Language Teaching: Refashioning the Role of the English Teacher

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Abstract

Language is the unique phenomenon that man uses to communicate various life experiences, information, feelings, moods or ideas. The system of morphemes and phonemes within it make an utterance meaningful. Debates over the strategies to be implemented in the acquisition of a language have reached its zenith during the modern times. Language learning should be a natural process and proficiency in the different skills of the language is significant. Language acquisition device (LAD) and the age of the learner is significant in language learning. Proficiency in a language can vary according to the need of the learner- Second language (L2) or foreign language (FL). Different genres of literature can be used as a means to imbibe language. The role of the teacher in teaching a foreign language like English at different levels is highly demanding. Progressive modern teaching is activity based, skill oriented and demonstrative giving emphasis to uniqueness and creativity of the learner. The recent developments in Stylistics and language proposes the emergence of a new discipline. In this technologically advanced world, the role of the teacher has to be refashioned to suit the scenario. Innovative strategies should be implemented to engage the learner at graduate level so as to arouse his/her creativity to emerge successful in practical life.

Keywords*:* language acquisition, progressive modern teaching, innovative strategies, intersemiotic translation

Introduction

Early man who lived in caves, ate raw flesh and communicated through gestures has today reached the zenith of development. In the present scenario, the whole world is a digitalised globe which is closely knitted by modern means of communication. Language is the peculiar unique phenomenon that man uses to communicate with each other. Signs and symbols are used to communicate with each other. English language which is a universally accepted link language has much to do with9 realizing the dreams and aspirations of progressing nations.

Competence is the native speaker's innate knowledge of the language that enables him to use it Shukman (1977). The first few years of life is very significant in language learning. A natural learning environment contributes much to language learning. A baby articulates speech like sounds by the month of seven. Language acquisition is a natural process and the child's needs motivate him to produce speech sounds. Children remain very skilled at learning the inbuilt grammatical structures of a new language. Learning a L2 is easier early in life. The LAD is a controversial claim from language acquisition research proposed by Noam Chomsky in the 1960's. LAD and the age of the learner is significant in language learning (Antony, 1993).

Natural learning environments are places where children live, learn and play. School is an extended home for a young kid who goes to a student-friendly, activity-oriented school atmosphere. Optimal learning environments begin with a positive, productive school climate or campus environment and provide intellectually and emotionally safe stimulating learning environment where he is free to express his/her creativity.

The 'gurukul' system of education with the guru (teacher) as the centre of the institution and the disciples who were trained usually resided at

the residence of the guru or in a premise next to it. The material for study and the methods to be adopted were all decided by the guru and given at a pace to suit the individual. The guru was the source of all knowledge and the disciples gained it through face to face interaction. Later through the popularisation of education schools sprang up in association with religious institutions. The universalisation of education later paved the way for new schools and universities under Government administration. Education became more organised and systematic with a graded curriculum and innovative scientific strategies.

The introduction of English language brought about a great change in the educational scenario as well as other social spheres. English language as a first language (L1) was later taught in schools and colleges and the competency and skills of some of the learners sometimes matched that of native speakers. It ranged from no competency at all to native like competency. The role of the teacher in developing this competency is commendable. Only a teacher who has native-like competency and understands the learner can teach English effectively in a natural environment. The strategies to be employed by a language teacher should suit the age and level of competency aimed at. Grading of structures and vocabulary and strategies employed are significant. The language teacher is no more a provider of knowledge introducing new grammatical structures and employing practice exercises to make pupils perfect, nor is he/ she an interpreter of poems and prose. Today, the teacher is not the primary source of knowledge and information for the students. The role of the language teacher at all levels has to be refashioned so as to cater to the needs of the present-day scenario. The new strategy implemented should be student friendly and activity oriented which sustains their interest. It should motivate the students for creative efforts to nourish their development. This

paper discusses the emerging role of the language teacher at graduate level to make language and literature study a celebration of ideas.

The role of the teacher

The role of the teacher from primary through middle school, high school, higher secondary to graduate level is significant in developing competency in the language. The teacher uses the graded text books to transact language through graded grammatical structures and vocabulary. The four skills have to be given significance at all stages of the teaching-learning process. Planning is significant part of the teaching process. Proper motivation and activity-oriented class rooms contribute much to language learning. Activity oriented student-centred strategies should be employed. E-resources should be appropriately used to enhance their knowledge. Creative thinking, as Richards and Rodgers (2014) have pointed out, of the learners should be appreciated. Suitable language pedagogy which is interesting and instil research aptitude should be implemented. Appropriate evaluation techniques to evaluate all the skills of language should be carefully selected.

Issues faced by the English language teacher

The teacher finds it difficult to train the student in speaking skills when it is often neglected in the curriculum. Mother tongue interference at lexical and phonological levels are a hindrance to language teaching. Completing a huge syllabus is often a burden for a language teacher. Lack of interest on the part of the learner is yet another difficulty faced by the teacher. Policies of the government are sometimes not in par with our teaching methods. The National Education Policy (NEP) 2020 which introduces language teaching at a higher age is a hindrance to the language learner and teacher as language learning is at its best during early childhood. The teacher

finds difficulty in creating a natural learning environment as all the other subjects are taught in the mother tongue.

Factors to be considered in teaching English as a first, second or foreign language

The knowledge in another language as in mother tongue is like possessing another soul. It has the added advantage of being more comfortable in communication as well as more sociable and culturally enhanced. The language competency of the teacher and the awareness of the of the student needs are significant. The learning objectives and level of competency to be acquired are to be kept in mind by the teacher. Teaching techniques have to be refashioned to suit the interests of the pupil community. Audio -visual aids can effectively be used for class room transaction. Vocabulary building can be done through language games and other class room activities. Enquiry based student-centred learning should be initiated by the teacher. Kinaesthetic learning should also be included. Flipped classroom activities sometimes prove useful in language transaction. Interactive learning environment where the educator guides students as they apply concepts and engage in creativity is significant. Overuse of technology should be avoided. At graduate level students should be confident in the four skills of language learning to face any interview or job oriented competitive examination. A good knowledge in English language is an added advantage for Higher studies and research in any subject.

Transacting different genres of literature at graduate level

Effective modes of transaction ought to be used for different genres, like poetry, essays, drama, fiction, short story, travelogue, biography, autobiography and letters. The innovative strategies employed for the different genres should also be based on the objectives of the curriculum and of the specific units. Essays are transacted differently at

elementary, middle school, high school, higher secondary and graduate level. Different kinds of essay writing techniques with suitable examples can be discussed in the graduate classroom. Suggestions for extra reading and links can also be provided. Discussions on the topic can later be initiated as an interesting class room activity so that all the four skills can be involved in the process. Note making can be made an essential part of such activities so that it can be documented for internal assessment with recorded data. Continuous evaluation can be done effectively by the teacher by grading the students on the basis of their performance. Narrative techniques can be used effectively with the participation of the students. The concept of modern class room as a stage and the teacher as a performer can be effectively used for transacting plays. Enacting a part of the play can be a thrilling learning activity for the students. Recitation of poems and speeches can be a graceful class activity. Discussions on cinema and other branches of culture related to literature can be conducted fruitful. Literary Theory and study of the ages of literature can be made thorough by conduction of quiz competitions to motivate the learners. Study becomes fun filled activity which boosts their confidence. Difficult as well as easy questions can be included to motivate the learners at different levels. Different art forms can be brought in to make literature study interesting by presenting intersemiotic translations of the same. Activity-oriented, student-centred programmes with the teacher as facilitator will surely enhance the quality of a language class room.

Progressive modern teaching techniques employed at graduate level

The individuality and creativity of the learner should be taken into account while assigning learning tasks. A student- centred method of learning by doing can be adopted even at graduate level, but it should suit their age group and interests. Creating a natural environment for

communication in the target language is of prime importance. Students should be encouraged to speak freely and their mistakes if any be corrected in a manner that does not dissuade them from communicating. The four language skills listening, speaking, reading and writing should be given equal importance as the proficiency in a language is measured in terms of the four criteria. The teacher should be democratic in his/her approach and ensure participation of all the students. The differently abled must be given an opportunity to perform in areas of their interest and should never feel marginalised. Gender equality should also be an area of concern when classroom activities are conducted. E-resources and E-platforms have been successfully used especially during the days of the pandemic and this is likely to affect the educational culture in post-Covid days too. Too much of Online programmes and resources are likely to create serious health hazards and makes students mechanical and dull. A multitude of resources are available for the learner. The teacher is no more the only source of knowledge as it was in ancient times and so the teacher is to refashion him/her self to suit the age and culture. We are training international citizens who ought to be skilled in an international language as well as soft skills to meet the demand of the day.

A properly designed curriculum with well-trained, skilled teachers can surely work wonders to create universal citizens. A student centred, activity- oriented learning process can reduce stress and improve the mental and physical health of students. Colleges can serve as centres of excellence and fulfil a great mission by sharing of resources. Group discussions, quiz, seminars, debates, radio and television mock programmes based on curriculum, mock interviews, hand written class room magazines, creative writing, academic writing are all part of class room activities. These activities are used to transact the curriculum in an effective and interesting manner. The application of soft skills they study as part of curriculum is brought to application level when

creating audio -visual aids and conducting mock television and radio programmes. News reading and reporting are yet other activities which contribute much to their linguistic abilities as well as building their general knowledge for competitive exams. The guidance for a strong foundation for National Eligibility Test (NET) by UGC, other competitive exams and exams conducted by the Kerala Public Service Commission is also provided based on their career aspirations. Gandhiji's words 'True education must correspond to the surrounding circumstances or is not a healthy growth' is really inspiring for any teacher to facilitate his students. Evaluation of the activities can be done effectively by the teacher and recorded as part of internal assessment.

A real experience to share

Government Arts and Science College, Trithala in a small township in Palakkad in Kerala gained the attention of the public and media by conducting a Literary Festival 'arc n ciel 2020' hosted by the Department of English, where the students came out in rainbow colours to exhibit their talents. The college campus situated on the banks of the Bharathapuzha with its limitations in infrastructure served as a centre of excellence and provided a variety of linguistic and cultural experiences to the students of the institution as well as the neighbouring higher secondary, high school students and teaching community. It was really a 'dream come true', a fascinating experience for the students. The exhibition 'Jalaka' which was a part of the Festival attracted spectators in large numbers. The exhibits related to the syllabus and curriculum of English language and literature displayed the infinite variety and creativity of the participants. It boosted their confidence and motivated them to become self- reliant. Great organizational skill of the students was also evident. The Quiz with the title 'A Look Through the Ages' was very informative was

another highlight of the festival. These were all actually extended class room activities which ensured the delightful participation of the students. Recitations, speeches, poems, songs, dance performances all added to the elegance of the event. The differently abled students were the best performers in a few events. An intersemiotic translation [translation of literature to art form, as pointed out in Patricia (2019)] of Shakespeare's 'Macbeth' was presented as a dramatic performance as mime which excelled in quality and won high accolades. This was a novel attempt in Intersemiotic Translation by the second-year students of English optional. The process they underwent by re-reading the text, selecting a suitable portion to be enacted, writing the script, adding music, casting, making technical innovations and then presenting it successfully before an audience was really a fantastic learning experience. The students were so involved and excited to be a part of the literary Festival which was a grand success. The multi-talented youngsters created miracles out of nothingness to make the audience wonderstruck.

The State and Central policies of education

The NEP of India 2020 approved by the Union Cabinet on 29th July 2020 outlines the vision of India's new education system. The new policy replaces the 1986 policy and introduces a number of innovations for future India in the educational scenario. The introduction of four-year interdisciplinary courses and the aim to increase the gross enrolment ratio in higher education sector including vocational education are all welcomed and hope it would transform the lives of millions of Indians. The language policy adopted by the NEP 2020 that until grade 5 or preferably under grade 8 the mother tongue or local languages should be the medium of instruction in schools is embarrassing for an English language teacher who expects to teach the language in a natural environment and teach the student in early

childhood when language learning process is much easy. The student centred, activity-oriented strategy employed by the State Council for-Educational Research and Training has been of immense help to train students in language learning and evaluation criteria is the only hindrance to the attainment of proficiency in language in schools in Kerala.

Conclusion

English language teaching and the changing role of the language teacher is a topic to be discussed with proximal interest. The teacher is no more the prominent all-knowing source of knowledge alone. Our students are living in an era where Internet resources provide any significant information of their choice at their fingertips. The teacher should refashion himself/herself as a facilitator, guide, motivator, mentor and friend to facilitate learning. Learning should be made interesting and functional with maximum peer group interaction. The competency of the teacher as well as the updating of new strategies for teaching is consequential in this mechanised world.

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GERTRUDE SHOTTE

RETHINKING PEDAGOGY: ENGLISH LANGUAGE TEACHING APPROACHES

> *The principal goal of education is to create people who are capable of doing new things, not simply repeating what other generations have done - people who are creative, inventive discoverers.* (Piaget)
>
> *Education in the light of present-day knowledge and need calls for some spirited and creative innovations both in the substance and the purpose of current pedagogy.* (Anne Sullivan Macy quotes)

Introduction

Education, pedagogy and change are watchwords of twenty-first century educators and researchers. They are interrelated on theoretical, as well as practical levels. The renewed attention given to pedagogical changes in the education sphere is propelled by globalisation and its knowledge economy forces. As the need to engage with these 'forces' arises, so does the need for communication in a 'global language'. This gives rise to this question: which language is a global language? As indicated by the work of 'scholars' who have an interest in linguistics, that global language is English (Raine, 2012; Rosen, 2010; Crystal, 2010). This paper looks at English Language teaching approaches for learners whose Mother Tongue is not English.

Rosen (2010) advances the outlook that English is "a language that has grown to world domination". Admittedly, not everyone has a total positive outlook on English language 'domination' since this can bring about the abandonment of native tongues (Rymer, 2012, p. 60). However, one cannot ignore the importance of English language as a vital communication tool for the knowledge economy – knowledge and skills specialism by means of technology (Chen & Dahlman, 2005; Robertson, 2005). It seems therefore that education systems' interest in the teaching of English language is not misplaced if they are to engage in 'an international communication' that has the potential to improve their educational status as well as enhance nation-building activities. Strategy consultant, Dorie Clarke, in commenting on whether English is a preferred language for global business notes:

> English will maintain and grow its dominance, moving from "a marker of the elite" in years past to "a basic skill needed for the entire workforce, in the same way that literacy has been transformed in the last two centuries from an elite privilege into a basic requirement for informed citizenship." (Clarke, 2012).

Clearly, "the global spread of the English Language" (Raine, 2012), has not escaped the attention of educators around the world. Little wonder that in this era of educational change and pedagogic reform, education ministries see the teaching of English language as a priority curriculum matter. This paper reports on English Language teaching approaches that are now being used by Gambian English Language teachers. It contends that English should be taught using content, activities and resources that are specifically tailored for learners whose Mother

Tongue is not English. And as such, assert that basic grammatical structures and related principles should be at the heart of teacher training, which is crucial in equipping teachers with the professional skills they need to attain and maintain high English literacy levels in the national community, and beyond. To this end, the paper promotes a cross-concept poetic/musical approach. It argues that this approach is practical and advantageous in situations where English is a second language, or considered as a foreign language; and makes the case that English Language teaching should be a pleasurable experience for teachers and learners alike. It draws on personal experiences, and experiences of some English Language teachers in The Gambia. The background information that is presented in the next subheading provides the context for this paper. It gives insight into my interest in the educational experiences of Gambian teachers, pupils and students.

Framing the Case

The Ministry of Basic and Secondary Education (MOBSE) in The Gambia is currently on a campaign to improve the quality of education in its schools (MoBSE, 2012). This is done in collaboration with the University of The Gambia (UTG). To this end, the enhancement programme purposes to raise the content knowledge level of all English and Mathematics teachers in Lower Basic Education (LBE) (Grades – 6, referred to as Primary Education in some education systems). The upgrading of teachers' content knowledge is being done via a programme of in-service training. The selection of teachers for this 'special' training was based on the results of a 'Content Knowledge Test' taken by teachers who are qualified, but who do not hold West African Senior School Certificate Examination (WASSCE) credits in English and Mathematics. The total number of teachers undertaking this training is 2 700, which represents 75% of qualified LBS teachers in The Gambia.

The 'Content Knowledge Test' was administered in 2010 but the training sessions were carried out in August 2011, December 2011, April 2012 and December 2012, in Centres in the six regions in The Gambia. As noted earlier, MoBSE's main target is to improve teachers' content knowledge; but there is also a strong focus on pedagogy. This target is my connection to the training programme, in particularly the December 2012 session. As the English consultant for this round of the training, I was expected to collaborate with an 'English Language Teachers' Team' to develop the pedagogical aspects of the training programme. One of my tasks was to provide training for the tutors who deliver the training sessions. Another was to design and develop course materials for teachers to use.

It is within the boundaries of these roles that I had the opportunity to 'rethink and redesign pedagogy', in relation to the teaching of the English Language for learners whose Mother Tongue is not English. This paper does not allow space for a full account of all the teaching learning activities that took place at the training sessions. It will therefore highlight the main aspects of the 'new' pedagogic practices used in the December 2012 training. It will also give a brief explanation of the rationale for the approach taken, and by extension, the reason behind the selection of particular methods and strategies.

Old Content, New Pedagogic Approaches

A sizeable proportion of the material presented under this subheading formed part of the discussion presented in the Teachers' Guides produced as resource material for the training sessions. It justifies the position taken on content chosen for the training programme.

The 'old content' that was the focus of the training exercise is the 'Parts of Speech'. This content theme was deliberately chosen because the 'Parts of Speech' are the basis for meaningful communication. They are words we read, speak, hear and even think! They occupy a particular position in any given sentence. This suggests that it is not just the word itself that matters; how it is used in the sentence, its position in the sentence and its meaning also need some consideration if one is to know what part of speech a specified word is. Knowing the parts of speech, as well as their various meanings and functions, are important in understanding how sentences are constructed, how what is written, spoken or heard should be interpreted, which in turn should help to improve writing skills. Such level of importance necessitates that teachers should know, and teach the parts of speech well, if learners are to benefit fully. More importantly, in the Gambian context, English is the official language but other main languages such as Mandinka, Fulfulde, Wolof, Soninke and Jola are widely spoken. It is not unusual for speakers to switch between languages. In fact, in some communities English is hardly spoken. Undoubtedly, such a situation will affect the way the English language is taught and learned; and given that English is the official language of the Gambia, its grammatical structure should be taught in a way that shows a 'respectable' degree of excellence.

The 'language' situation explained above necessitates a renewed emphasis on, and a fresh approach to the teaching of the Parts of Speech. It was in this light that eight *Guides* (one for each Part of Speech) were produced to be used as the core material for the training of the teachers. *The Guides* employ a back-to-basics style with a poetic/musical base. The reason for this method is to allow teachers to gain mastery of the foundation principles of the grammatical structure of the English Language. I assert that this technique does not only provide a solid basis for teachers to tackle the higher tiers, but it also boosts their confidence to perfect the 'complex' aspects of language.

About The Guides

The Teachers' Guides are user-friendly handbooks designed for English Language teachers in The Gambia. They cater for all grade levels but focus is on mastering the basics. There are eight in total – *The Notorious Noun, The Versatile Verb, The Adaptable Adjective, The Amazing Adverb, The Practical Pronoun, The Positional Preposition, The Clever Conjunction and The Intervening Interjection.* Each Guide is presented in two parts – *Part I: About the Guide* and *Part II: Content and Suggested Activities.* The content of the Guides is underpinned by a constructivist philosophy. The Guides' principle aims are to:

- Equip teachers with all the basic information they need to become efficient and successful English Language teachers.

- Supplement teachers' knowledge of the English Language content material.
- Enhance and improve teachers' pedagogical practices, which in turn should enrich the students' literacy.
- Build up teacher quality, which should eventually improve learner quality, and ultimately the general quality of education.

Each *Guide* supports two other main features (1) a *'Part-of-Speech-ogram'* that presents a breakdown of the parts in the radial diagram; and (2) a song bearing the same name as the *Guide*, which encapsulates the essence of the Part of Speech that it tells about. The *Guides* advocate and demonstrate that learning can be a 'fun thing' that brings essential, significant and lasting results. Teachers are therefore encouraged to plan lessons to include activities with pupil involvement as the focus. All lesson plans should demonstrate a *Presentation-Practice-Production (PPP)* format, where the beginning, middle and end sections of the plan reflect PPP. The PPP approach should emphasise less 'teacher talk' and more 'pupil participation'. Positive results from well-planned PPP lessons will bring a sense of satisfaction and achievement to the pupils as much as they do to the teachers. The PPP style is an appropriate catalyst for English Language learning via poetry and music.

Why a Poetic, Musical Style?

The 'poetry-music approach' opens up many opportunities for teachers to present lessons in a variety of interesting and exciting ways. Poetry and music are inextricably linked. A famous quote by Henry Wadsworth Longfellow states: "music is the universal language of mankind". Another well-known quote by William Hazlitt notes: "poetry is the universal language which the heart holds with nature and itself". Given that poetry and music are universal, this *Guide* advocates the use of these 'universal tools' in the teaching of English Language, which itself is universal in scope. Both poetry and music are easy to 'digest' because of their rhythmic nature. They also have the power to evoke deep-seated feelings, which suggests that these tools can be used not only to help children to learn, but also to help them 'bring back to mind' what they have been taught. The all-embracing nature of poetry and music puts them in a strong position to be the 'perfect' catalysts for teaching and learning.

Thinking – the Fifth Essential Skill

It is generally accepted among English Language teachers that the four essential skills necessary for mastering a language are *speaking, listening, reading and writing* (English Club, 2012). Undoubtedly, these skills are essentials for the attainment and maintenance of high literacy skills. But none of these seems fully functional without *thinking* – the fifth skill that I have added to the language skills list. I view *thinking* as having as much value as the other four skills. Thinking is ever present throughout the learning process. I contend that whichever mode (receptive or productive) is engaged, neither of the two is complete, or is fully operational without a degree of thinking.

An activity-oriented approach for English Language teaching is recommended in the *Guides.* Learner engagement and involvement is highly recommended for it is this level of participation that encourages, and sustains thinking ability. I contend

that meaningful and structured activities are the training grounds for the development of perceptive powers and capabilities that foster creativity and an analytical mind. This is yet another way in which *thinking* has earned its rightful place as the fifth language development skill.

For every lesson, teachers should have structured activities that will allow the five language skills to work in harmony so that learning the fundamental principles of the English language is seen as a necessary good, rather than a difficult chore. This helps to create an 'our', rather than an 'us-and-them' atmosphere, where the teacher is seen to be *'the guide on the side'* rather than *'the sage on the stage'*. Teaching and learning go hand in hand, so teachers and pupils alike should participate fully in a given lesson. Pupil participation not only aids understanding and memorisation, but also gives pupils a sense of importance as a 'facilitator in the teaching learning process, a position that can only encourage more *thinking.* As noted earlier the content in the Guide is underpinned by a constructivist philosophy. The next subheading explains.

The Theories behind the Practice

Constructivism, and by extension, social constructivism, is the main theoretical position employed in the *Guide.* Constructivist theorists contend that children are active participants in their learning in that they actively construct new knowledge whenever they interact with their environments (Bakhurst & Shanker, 2001; Smith 2002). In other words, new knowledge is processed mentally, when the 'old' meets the 'new', and then the action follows. Social constructivist, Lev Vygotsky contends that learning cannot be, and should not be *separated from social context* (Vygotsky, 1978, p. 128). He further stresses that social interaction aids cognitive development. Drew (2012) sees school as school as the perfect place to begin cultivating student's social interaction.

The main theoretical perspectives used are from Piaget, Bruner and Vygotsky:

- *Readiness* (Piaget)
- A *spiral organisation* of content and activities (Bruner)
- *Zone of Proximal Development (ZPD)* (Vygotsky)
- *Scaffolding* (Vygotsky)
- *Cognitive development happens in a social space* where people influence each other (Bruner, Piaget, Vygotsky)
  (CUREE, 2012; Schunk, Pintrich & Meece, 2008; Vygotsky, 1978).

Maslow's motivation theory – Hierarchy of Needs, Gardner's multiple intelligences and learning styles, Ausabel advance organisers and Bloom's Taxonomy of learning Objectives also influenced the content used for teacher training. Within the discussion of the appropriate use of this broad range of educational theories, care was taken to emphasise the 'pedagogic shift' that has evolved over time. The shift is played out on this theoretical continuum: from instructivism to constructivism to social constructivism. In practice, this is demonstrated as: a teacher-centred approach, to a teacher-learner interaction, to learner-learner-teacher interaction with the teacher as a guide or facilitator.

Conclusion

The paper makes a case for using a poetic musical approach to boost teaching learning activities in the teaching of English Language to learners whose Mother Tongue is not English. It contends that during this era educational change a rethinking, as well as a redesigning of pedagogic activities is necessary. It utilises the case of The Gambia MoBSE that is currently organising training programmes to enhance its English Language teachers' content knowledge and pedagogic skills.

A Teachers' Guide was developed for the purpose of the training programmes. The paper presents the rationale behind the suggested content and activities and highlights the main theoretical position that underpinned the strategies and methods used. It concludes by illustrating the reason for the pedagogic shift. The 'new' programme is a practical one; but only time will whether The Gambian teachers, pupils, students and adult learners will eventually see English as a 'window' to a multi-dimensional academic realm and a related knowledge economy, and not just 'an official language'.

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Teaching and Learning English as a Foreign Language: A Comprehensive Approach

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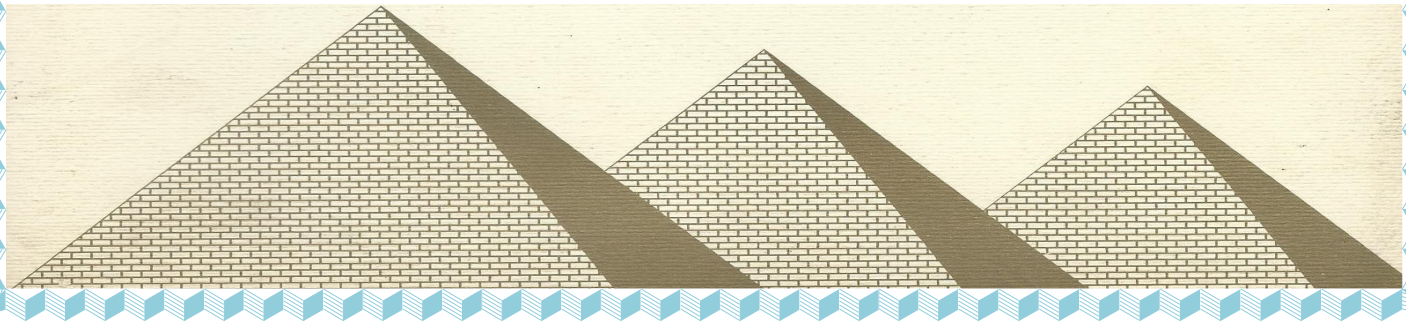

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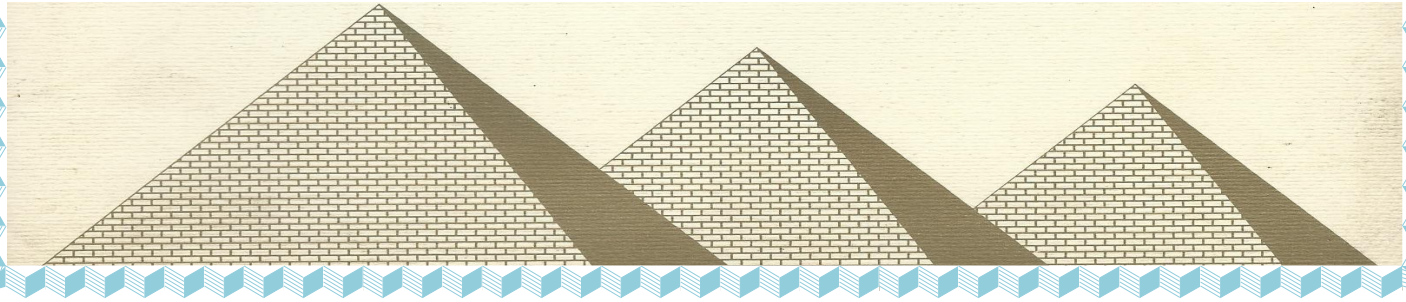
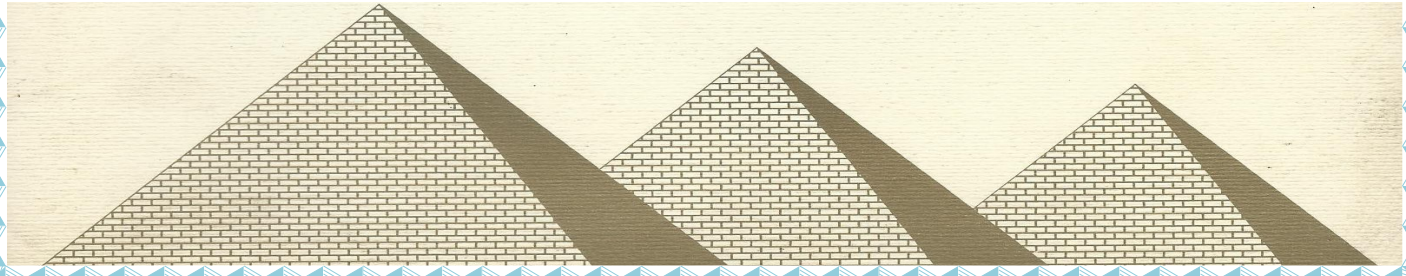


Dedication

This book is dedicated to my ever caring parents, and to my wife and children, for their help and encouragement. Without their support, this work would not be a reality. I would like to express my deep appreciation to all of them.



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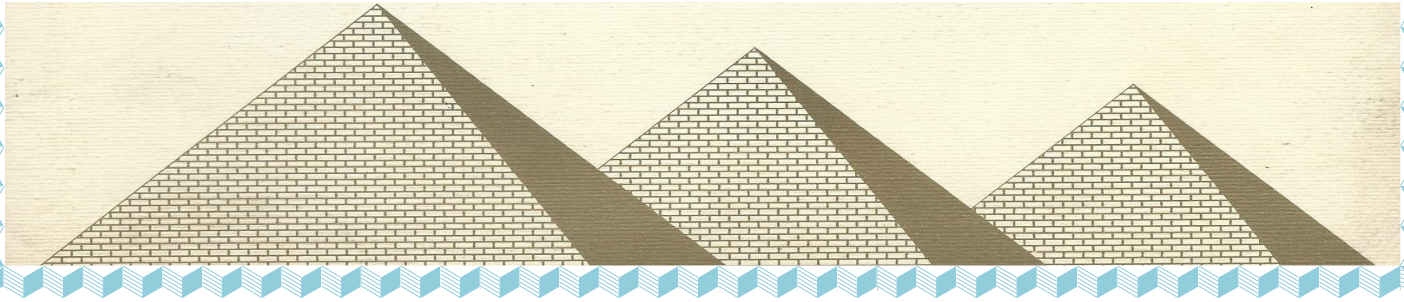

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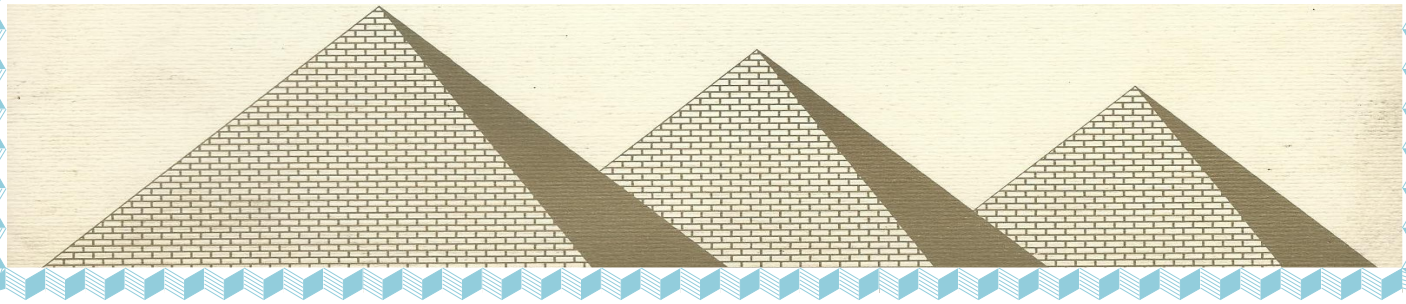

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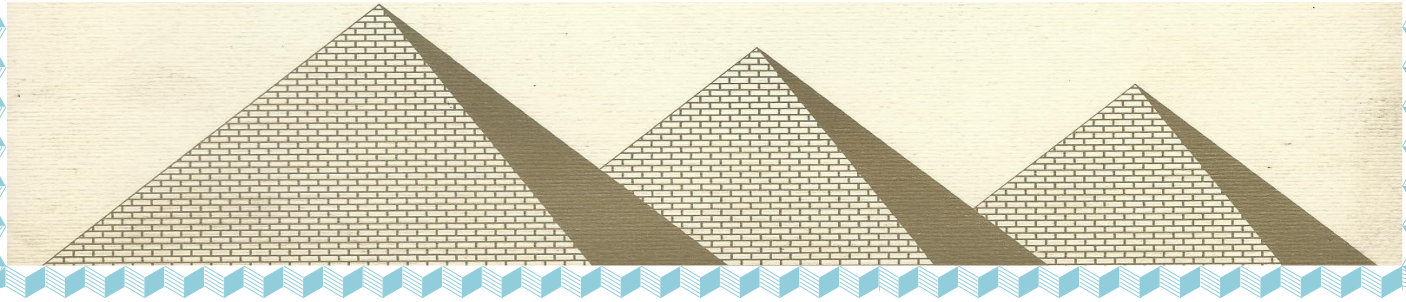

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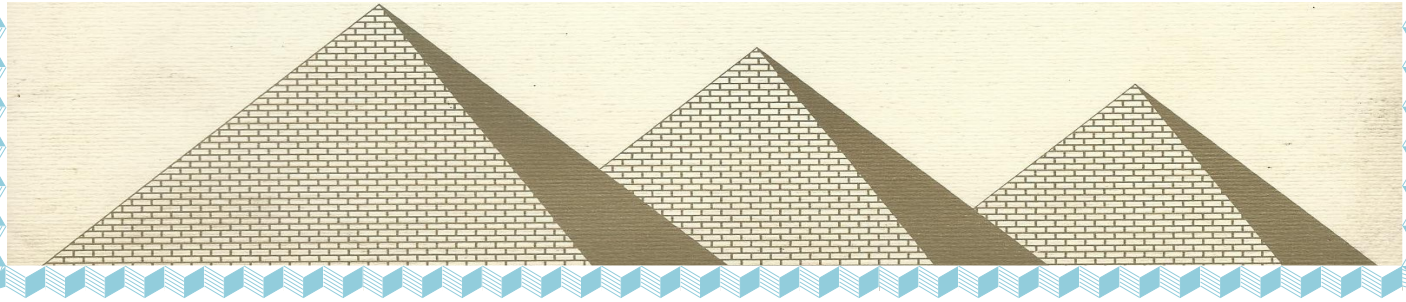

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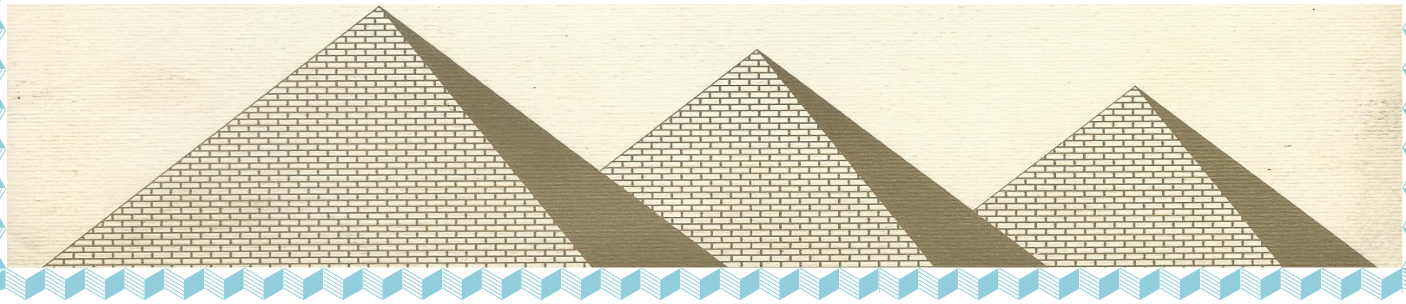

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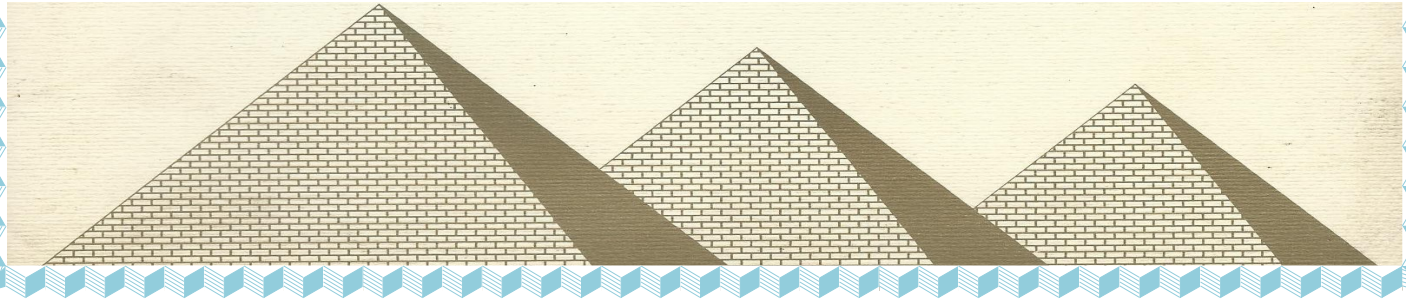


Overview

The aim of this book is to provide a compromise between past and present theories of language teaching and learning. The book is organized into six main parts. In the first part, the author highlights the strengths and weaknesses of both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach. He then presents a theory that emphasizes the strengths of both and shares the weaknesses of neither. Part two consists of six chapters that are devoted to the integration of subsidiary skills with main language skills. Part three consists of four chapters that focus on the integration of main language skills with subsidiary skills. Part four consists of four chapters that are devoted to integrating main language skills with each other. Part five deals with the integration of all language skills through literature. Part six consists of two chapters that address error correction and assessment.

In following the above organization, the author aims at building gradually toward whole language, and weaving error correction and assessment into the suggested approach.

In the suggested approach, teachers shift from closely-controlled to semi-controlled and finally to student-directed

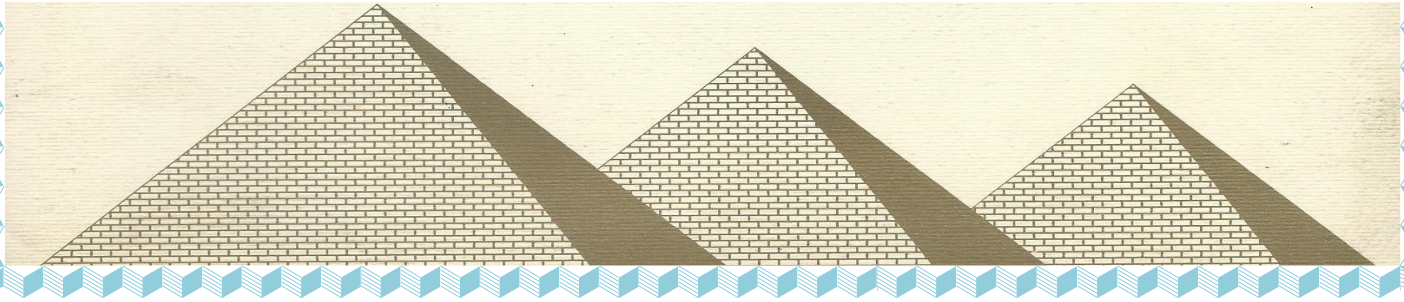
activities in every lesson at the primary (beginning) and preparatory (pre-intermediate) levels. Meanwhile, they move from local to global, and finally to no error correction, and from assessing micro-skills to assessing the comprehension and production of whole texts. With the use of this procedure in teaching, error correction and assessment in every lesson, teachers integrate subsidiary skills with main language skills at the primary level and main language skills with subsidiary skills at the preparatory level.

Then, with an emphasis on student-directed activities, error-tolerance, and group-, peer- and self-assessment, teachers integrate each two main language skills at the secondary (high-intermediate) level and all language skills at the university (advanced) level.

It is hoped that this book will help researchers, teachers, and learners in the field of foreign language teaching and learning.

The Author

Abdel Salam Abdel Khalek El-Koumy



Part One

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Background Information

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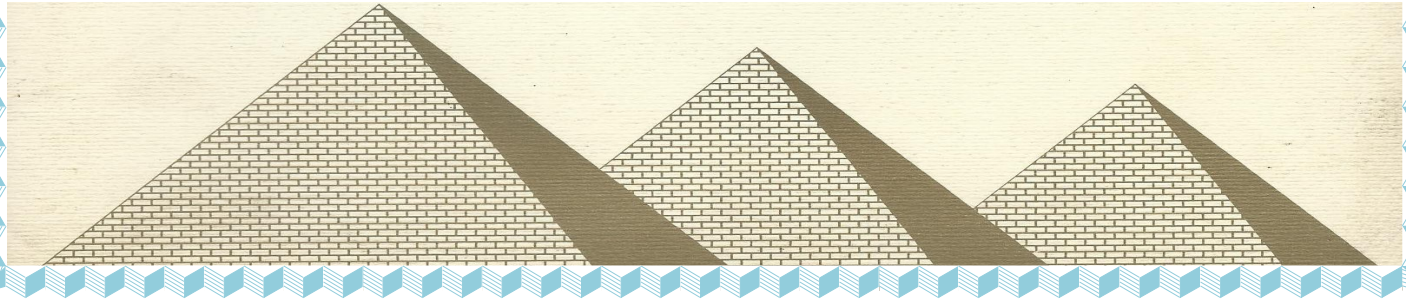


Chapter One

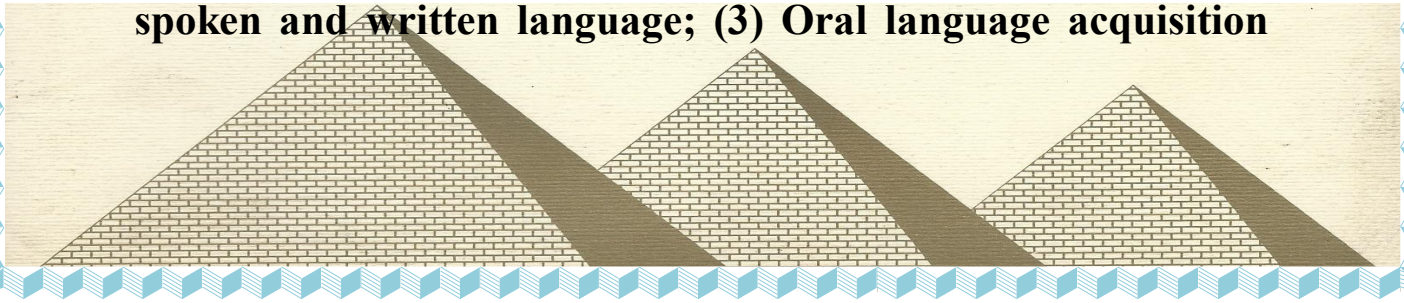
Major Approaches to Language Teaching and Learning

1.0 Introduction

Over the last two decades or so, foreign language teaching and learning have been swayed by two major approaches: (1) the skills-based approach, sometimes referred to as the "direct," "intentional," or "formal" instructional approach, and (2) the whole-language approach, sometimes referred to as the "indirect," "incidental," or "informal" learning approach. This part of the book explores the strengths and weaknesses of these approaches, and presents a theory that emphasizes the strengths of both and shares the weaknesses of neither.

1.1 The skills-based approach

The skills-based approach drew its theoretical roots from behavioral psychology and structural linguistics. Specifically, it is based on the following principles: (1) The whole is equal to the sum of its parts; (2) There are differences between spoken and written language; (3) Oral language acquisition

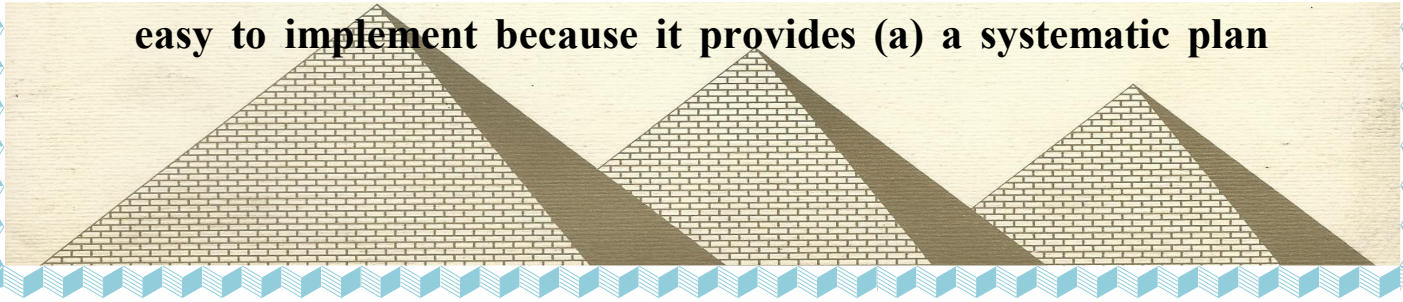


precedes the development of literacy; (4) Language learning is teacher-directed and fact-oriented; and (5) Students' errors are just like 'sins' which should be eliminated at all cost.

In accordance with the above principles, advocates of the skills-based approach view language as a collection of separate skills. Each skill is divided into bits and pieces of subskills. These subskills are gradually taught in a predetermined sequence through direct explanation, modeling and repetition. Furthermore, the skill-building teacher constantly uses discrete-point tests (e.g., multiple choice, true or false, fill in the spaces) to measure the mastery of each subskill before moving to the next.

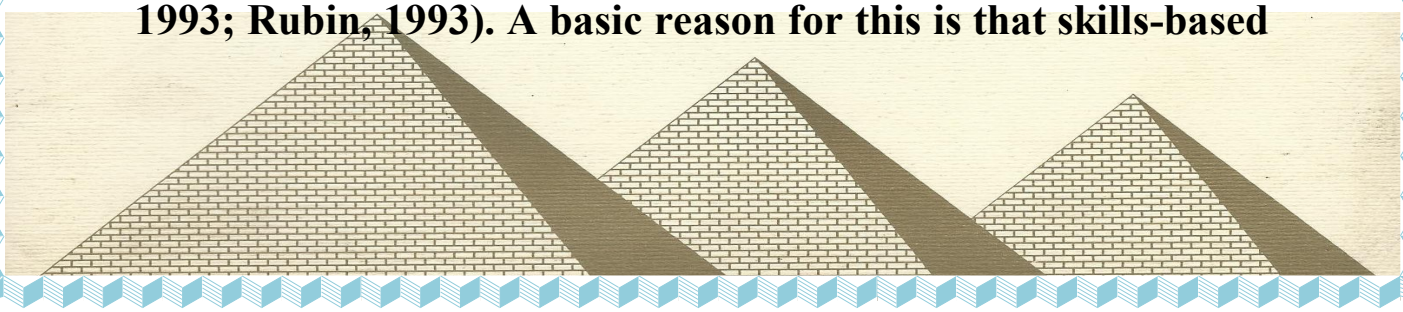
1.2 Merits and demerits of the skills-based approach

Although there are many advantages to the skills-based approach, there are also disadvantages. Advocates of the skills-based approach claim that the teaching of language as isolated skills makes language learning easier because it spares students from tackling the complexity that language entails. They also claim that this approach reduces students' errors (Shuy, 1981). They further claim that this approach is easy to implement because it provides (a) a systematic plan



that is easy to follow, and (b) graded instructional materials within and across grade levels. Nonetheless, the following weaknesses are associated with this approach: (1) There is a large discrepancy between the manner in which the language is taught and the manner in which it is actually used for communication (Norris and Hoffman, 1993; Reutzel and Hollingsworth, 1988); (2) The teaching of language as isolated skills makes it difficult because the brain cannot store bits and pieces of information for a long time (Anderson, 1984); (3) The skills-oriented programs demotivate students to study the language because what is taught to them is not relevant to their needs and interests (Acuña-Reyes, 1993); (4) The teaching of language as isolated skills stifles students' creativity; (5) The role of students is too passive and leads to underdevelopment of independent learning skills (Gipps and McGilchrist, 1999); and (6) Teachers' presentation of language as isolated skills steals both teachers' and learners' time away from productive activities (Goodman, 1986).

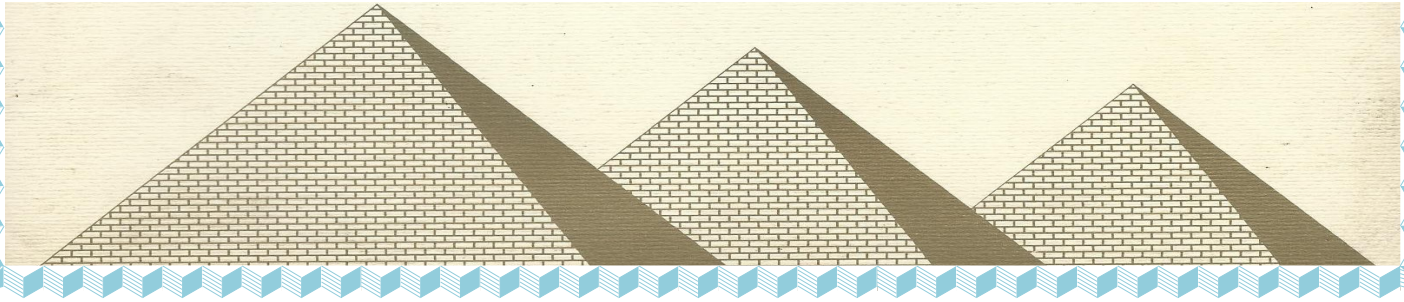
Despite its demerits, the skills-based approach is still the most widely used approach throughout the whole world (Ellis, 1993; Rubin, 1993). A basic reason for this is that skills-based



programs are mandated by higher authorities such as boards of education and curriculum coordinators (Anderson, 1984). Another reason is teachers' resistance to new approaches in general.

1.3 The whole-language approach

In response to recent theories in constructivist psychology and socio-psycholinguistics, the whole-language approach emerged in the latter part of the twentieth century. The evolution of this approach was, to a large extent, a revolt against the skills-based approach. The basic principles underlying this approach are the following: (1) The whole is more than the sum of its parts; (2) Language learning is a social process; (3) Learning is student-centered and process-oriented; (4) Language learning involves relating new information to prior knowledge; (5) Oral and written language are acquired simultaneously and have reciprocal effect on each other; and (6) Students' errors are signals of progress in language learning. For more detailed discussion of the whole language principles, see Freeman and Freeman (1992), Newman and Church (1990), Reutzel and Hollingsworth (1988).

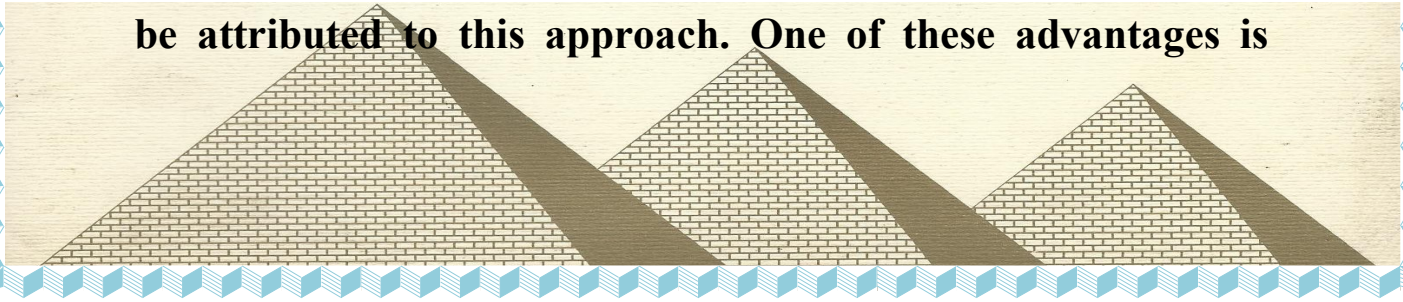


In accordance with the above principles, whole-language theoreticians claim that all aspects of language interrelate and intertwine. They further claim that students should be given the opportunity to simultaneously use all language arts (listening, speaking, reading, and writing) in meaningful, functional, and cooperative activities (Carrasquillo, 1993; Farris, 1989; Farris and Kaczmarski, 1988). These activities are often centered around topics that build upon students' background knowledge (Edelsky *et al*., 1991; Freeman and Freeman, 1994). These topics are often selected by the students themselves (Pahl and Monson, 1992).

With regard to assessment, whole-language theoreticians claim that the contextualized nature of language, obtained by means of instruments such as projects, portfolios, and observations, provides a more realistic view of a student language than standardized tests.

1.4 Merits and demerits of the whole-language approach

Just like the skills-based approach, the whole-language approach has its advantages and disadvantages. Advocates of this approach assert that there are many advantages that can be attributed to this approach. One of these advantages is

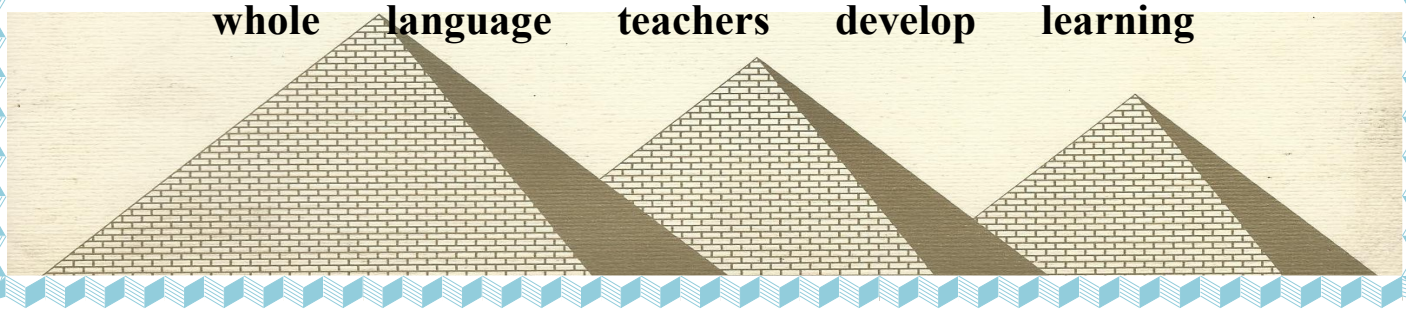


that it respects students' prior knowledge which can, in turn, encourage and foster comprehension. As Vance (1990) puts it:

> **The whole language teacher brings to each student a deep respect for his or her existing prior knowledge as well as a strong desire to expand that child's wealth of knowledge and experience, and therefore his or her power to truly comprehend. Respect for each child's prior knowledge and experience provides a basis for encouraging and fostering comprehension. (p. 175)**

Another advantage of the whole-language approach is that it subsides behavior problems (Doake, 1994; Weaver, 1990, 1994). As Weaver (1990) puts it:

> **In whole language classrooms, typically there are few behavior problems, not only because students are more actively involved in learning but because students are given the opportunity to develop self-control rather than merely submit to teacher control. Instead of controlling children by their demands, whole language teachers develop learning**



> communities characterized by mutual respect and trust—communities in which many decisions are made cooperatively, and students have numerous opportunities to make individual choices and take responsibility for their own learning. In such environments, learning flourishes and behavior problems subside. (p. 25)

Still another advantage of the whole-language approach is that it boosts students' self-esteem (Freeman and Freeman, 1994; Weaver, 1994). As Freeman and Freeman (1994) put it:

> When bilingual students are involved in a learner-centered curriculum, teachers focus on what their students can do rather than what they cannot do. This process builds student self-esteem and also raises teacher's expectations. (p. 247)

Still, an additional advantage of the whole language approach is that the whole language teachers respect students' dignity and treat them with love. Goodman (1986) puts this advantage in the following way:

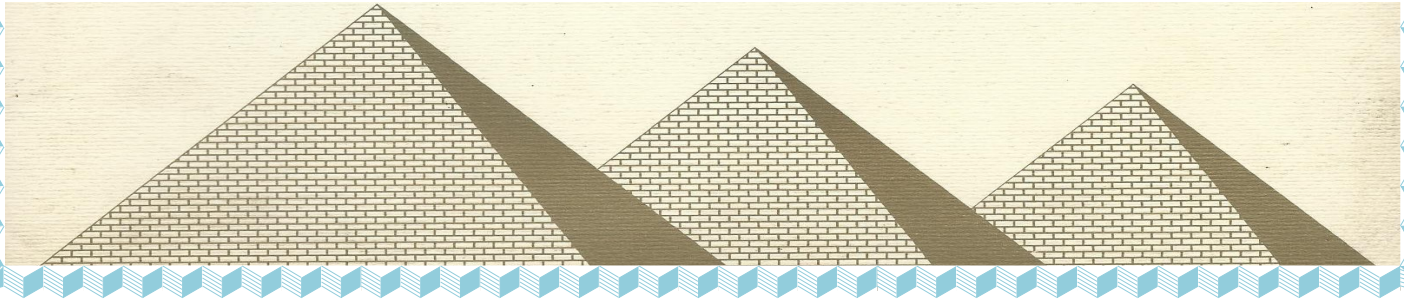
> Whole language teachers need not be defensive or apologetic. They believe in kids, respect them as

> **learners, cherish them in all their diversity, and treat them with love and dignity. That's a lot better than regarding children as empty pots that need filling, as blobs of clay that need moulding, or worse, as evil little troublemakers forever battling teachers. (p. 25)**

A final advantage of the whole-language approach is that it develops students' creativity and critical thinking. As Weaver (1990) puts it:

> **Students in whole language classrooms are thinkers and doers, not merely passive recipients of information. They learn to think critically and creatively and to process and evaluate information and ideas rather than merely to accept them. (pp. 26-27)**

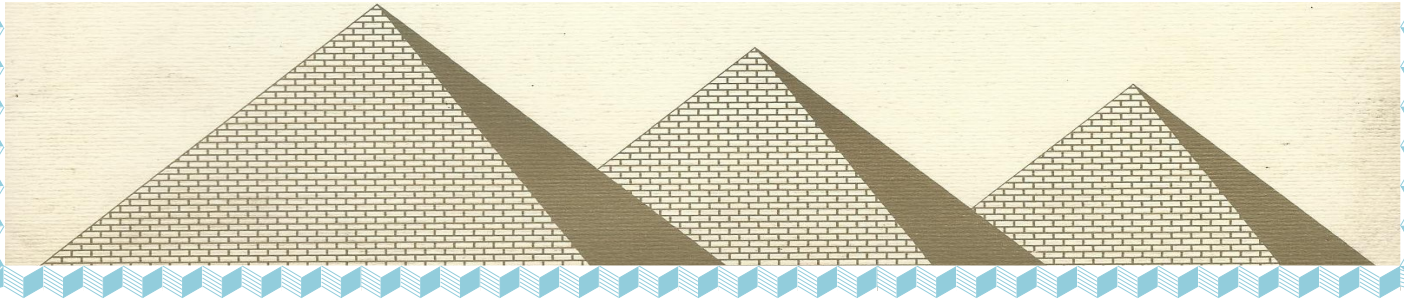
However, opponents of the whole-language approach argue that this approach neglects accuracy in spite of the fact that many language teaching theoreticians and researchers (e.g., Eldredge, 1991, 1995; Goldenberg, 1991; Omaggio, 1986; Scarcella and Oxford, 1992) agree that accuracy is an essential element in the development of communication skills.



Another argument against the whole-language approach, according to two of its proponents (Freeman and Freeman, 1992), is that "it won't be easy to implement, and there will be resistance to many practices consistent with whole language" (p. 9).

Still another argument is that the whole-language approach over-estimated FL students' ability to select and monitor what they learn. In other words, it failed to distinguish between L1 and FL students. As I think, this approach may fit only L1 students from the very beginning of schooling for two reasons. The first reason is that those students possess preschool language skills that enable them to concentrate on meaning and take full responsibility for their own learning. As Singer (1981) notes:

> **The language ability of most children at age 6 is already well developed. They have attained sophisticated control over their syntax, they possess a vocabulary of about 5000 words, and they have a phonological system that can adequately communicate their needs. (p. 295)**



The second reason is that L1 students use the language out of school in meaningful activities just like the activities the whole-language approach calls for. Conversely, in the FL context, children join schools without any FL background knowledge. Therefore, there will be a lack of fit if the whole-language approach is implemented in this context from the very beginning. It is also the height of unreasonableness to expect FL students to simultaneously learn all language skills from the very beginning.

A final argument against the whole-language approach is the lack of curriculum guides.

1.5 Conclusions

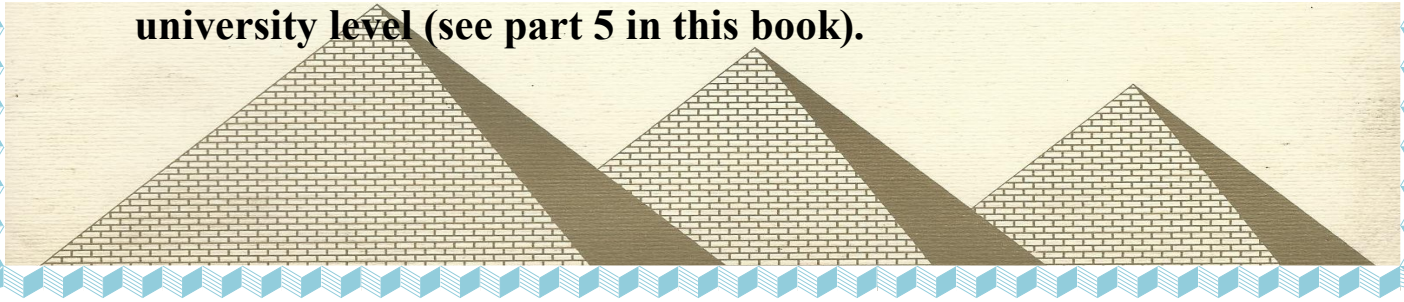
From the preceding discussion, it is clear that the skills-based approach stresses skills at the expense of meaning in spite of the fact that understanding and conveying meaning is the ultimate aim of language teaching and learning. It is also clear that the whole-language approach stresses meaning at the expense of skills in spite of the fact that skills are necessary for comprehending and conveying meaning. In other words, the whole-language approach as a reaction to the skills-based approach is too extreme. It follows, then, that

the need is clearly for a comprehensive approach that combines skills and meaning and moves from partial to total integration of language skills.

1.6 Principles of the comprehensive approach

In the comprehensive approach, teachers shift from closely-controlled to semi-controlled and finally to student-directed activities in every lesson at the primary and preparatory levels. At the same time, they move from local correction in the closely-controlled activities to global correction in the semi-controlled activities, and finally to no error correction in the student-directed activities. They also move from assessing micro-skills to assessing the comprehension and production of whole texts. With the use of this procedure in teaching, error correction and assessment in every lesson, teachers integrate subsidiary skills with main language skills at the primary level and main language skills with subsidiary skills at the preparatory level (see parts 2 and 3 in this book).

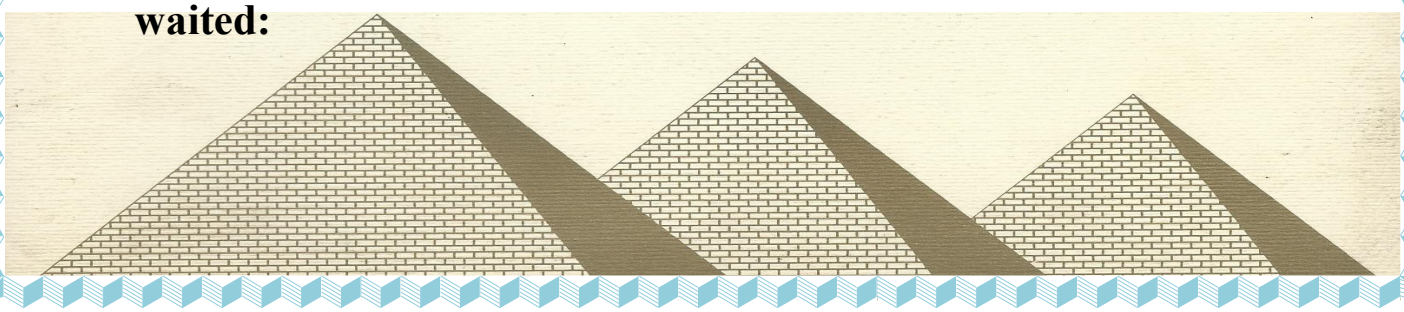
Then, with an emphasis on student-directed activities, error-tolerance, group-, peer-, and self-assessment, teachers integrate each two main language skills at the secondary level (see part 4 in this book) and all language skills at the university level (see part 5 in this book).



As noted above, the comprehensive approach shifts from skills to meaning in every lesson at the primary and preparatory levels and focuses on only meaning at the secondary and university levels. It also shifts gradually from partial to total integration of language skills. In the partial integration phase, the teacher moves from the integration of subsidiary skills with main language skills and vice versa to the integration of each two main language skills. In the total integration phase, the teacher integrates all language skills through literature-based programs.

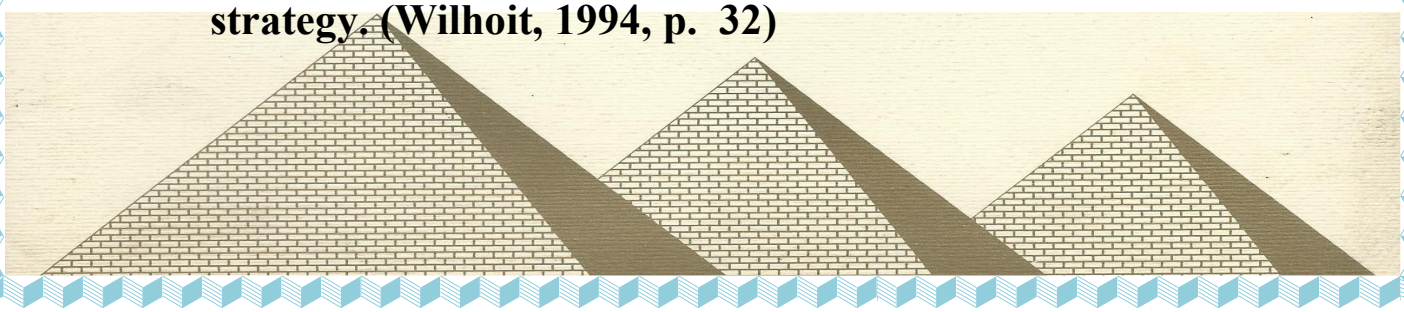
The comprehensive approach also weaves error correction and assessment into the teaching-learning process to save the time for both teachers and students and to document students' progress over time.

In summary, the comprehensive approach is based on the behaviorists, cognitivists, and constructivists' views of language teaching/learning, error correction, and assessment. It also draws on the author's practical experience as well as research on first- and second-language teaching and learning. The following extracts show that such an approach is eagerly waited:



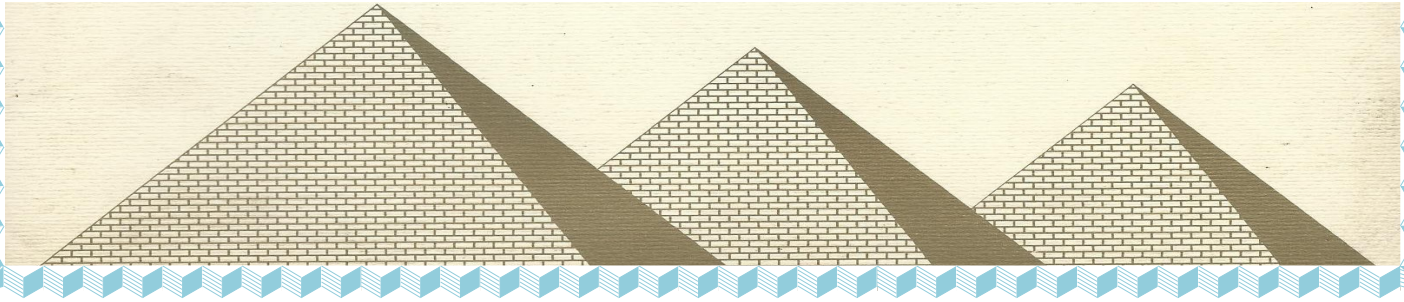
Direct guidance from tutors is preferred even in the self-access learning environment. A tutor-guided scheme may offer a pathway for learners to gradually start learning independently on this new ground of autonomous/self-access learning Tutor-guided schemes may also provide semi-autonomous learning situations for learners as they can have their own choices and at the same time be directed by tutors to begin with. (Kwan, 1999, p. 2)

In recent years we have seen the emergence of several diverse teaching methodologies. Each one is attracting practitioners who often contend that their particular technique is superior, to the exclusion of the others. However, despite the claims of these proponents, no single methodology adequately addresses the needs of all English-language students. On the contrary, evidence gained from practical experience strongly suggests that the strong points of a variety of methodologies, if skillfully combined, can complement one another, together forming a cohesive, realistic, and highly motivational teaching strategy. (Wilhoit, 1994, p. 32)



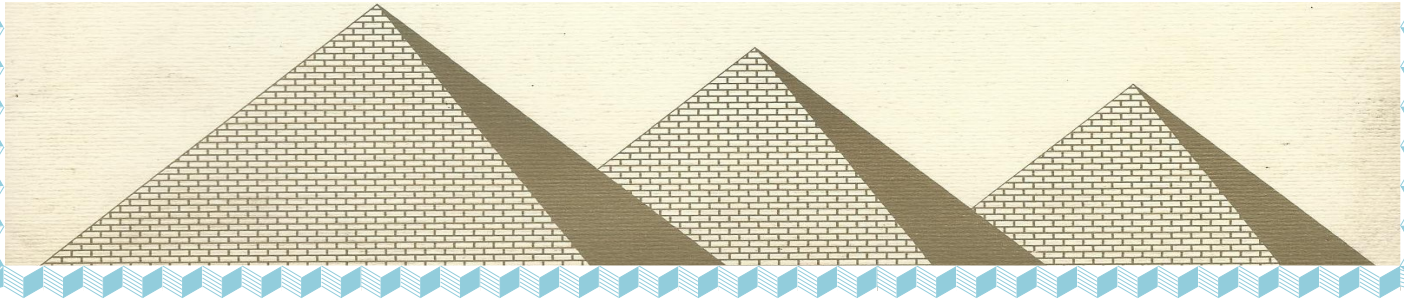
The "either-or" logic is damaging our educational possibilities. One can be an authority and a mediator, one can use both basals and literature, language is best learned as interactive and social, but there is a place for studying grammars, form, and usage. Any classroom works better when both direct and indirect teaching occur. Child-centered teaching does not occur in a vacuum; there must be content and a teacher who is doing her best to mediate and teach content in a dialogue with the student, making the notion of a child-centered versus a teacher-centered classroom a foolish concept. Obviously direct and indirect teaching must occur in realistic classrooms where direct instruction precedes group work. (Hedley, 1993, p. 55)

The teaching of EFL students should be based on an integrated approach which brings linguistic skills and communicative abilities into close association with each other; this is due to the fact that both language use and language usage are important. (Ibrahim, 1993, p. 98)



1.7 Self-checks

1. **Observe a whole language lesson taught by one of your colleagues either live or recorded. Note down the main difficulties he/she encountered in applying this approach.**
2. **Observe a skills-based lesson taught by one of your colleagues, either live or recorded. Note down your impressions of the affective features of this lesson based on how students felt during the lesson (bored/interested/ angry/amused/pleasant or whatever).**
3. **The role of the whole-language teacher differs from that of the skill-building teacher. Which one do you prefer to play? Why?**



Part Two

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Integrating Subsidiary Skills with Main Language Skills

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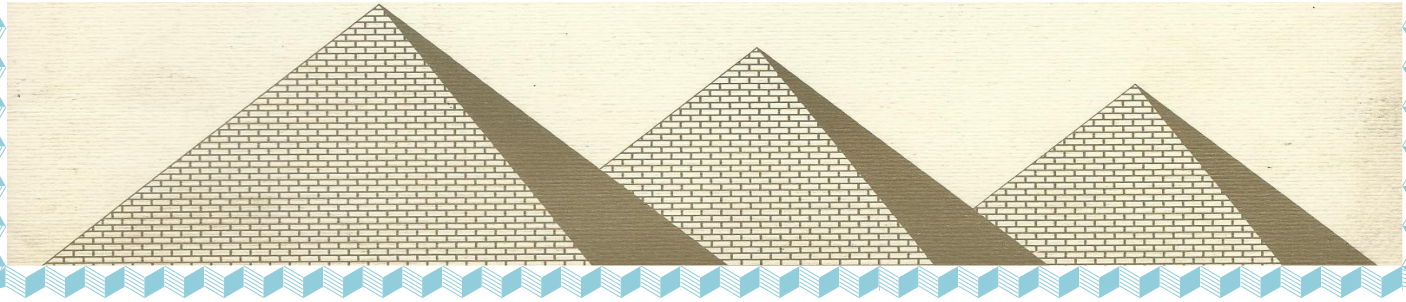


Chapter Two

Handwriting

2.0 What is handwriting?

The skills-based approach views handwriting as one of the subskills involved in writing. It also holds that handwriting involves many micro-skills such as shaping, spacing, slanting, etc. From the whole language perspective, handwriting is viewed as a process through which meaning is understood and/or created.

2.1 The importance of handwriting

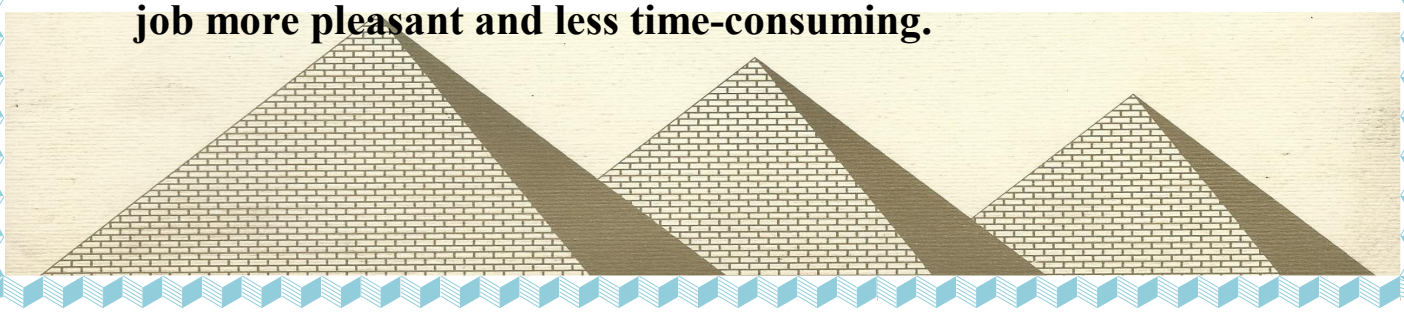
In spite of the fact that we live in a world that venerates typewriters and computers, handwriting is still necessary in our daily lives. In the early 1980s, Rose (1982) expressed this idea which still holds true in the third millennium as follows:

> **Many situations still require a handwriting effort. Typewriters are usually impractical for note taking; and even when a typewriter is available, most of us prefer our love letters, notes of condolence and other personal communications to be handwritten. (p. 410)**

In addition to the great extent to which handwriting is used in our lives, its importance as an aid to the various aspects of language has been recognized by many educators and applied linguists (e.g., Feitelson, 1988; Getman, 1983; Graham and Madan, 1981; Kaminsky and Powers, 1981; Lehman, 1979). Lehman (1979), for example, wrote:

> **The various language skills used to produce and receive language all find support in handwriting. If reading is essentially decoding, handwriting is encoding; if composition is the communicating of ideas in an orderly way, handwriting lends a rhythmic stride to the whole process—mental organization, the act of writing, and the visual product; if spelling is arranging letters in an accepted sequence for the communicating of a word, handwriting is the physical act of doing it as well as the ordinary application of spelling skills. (p. 7)**

To the above benefits, Ruedy (1983) adds that good handwriting enhances students' self-confidence, develops positive attitudes towards writing, and makes the teacher's job more pleasant and less time-consuming.



Research has also shown that essays written in legible handwriting are assigned higher marks than illegible ones (Chase, 1986; Markham, 1976; Robinson, 1986).

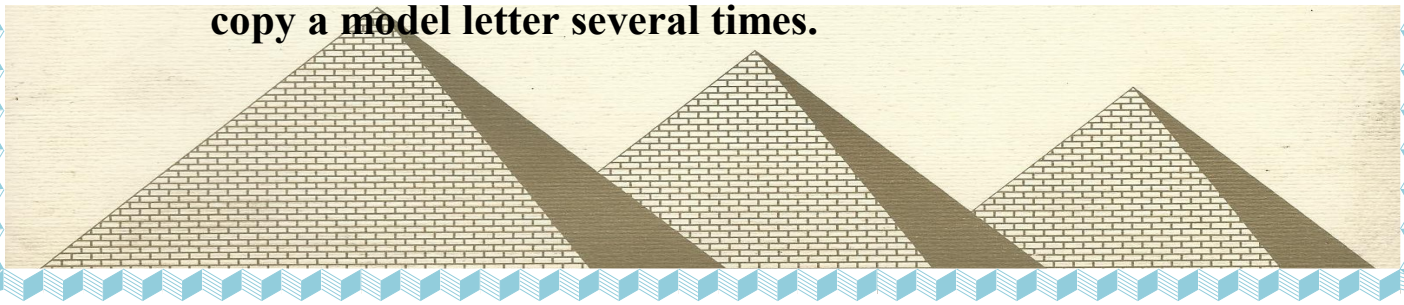
It appears from the foregoing that handwriting is an important skill that does not operate in isolation. That is, it affects success in spelling, vocabulary, reading, and writing. This skill, therefore, deserves the attention of both teachers and researchers

2.2 The teaching and learning of handwriting

In skills-based classrooms, handwriting is taught as a separate skill through visual and verbal demonstrations of the formation of letters—that is, students see and listen to a description of the order and direction of the strokes of each letter. Then, they practice what has been demonstrated to them through the following:

(1) Tracing. In this type of practice, students trace the letter on dot-to-dot patterns in which the direction and order of strokes are guided through the use of arrows and/or numbers.

(2) Copying. In this type of practice, students are asked to copy a model letter several times.



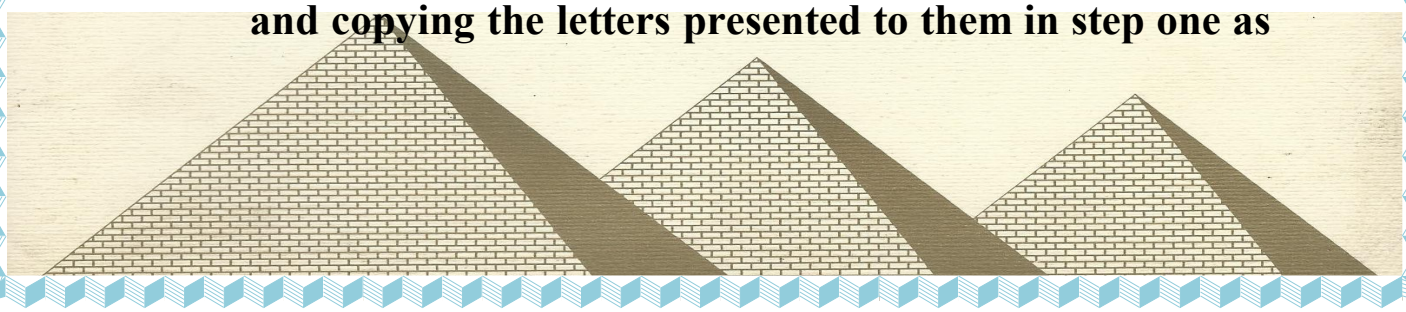
As shown above, although the skills-based approach directs students' attention solely toward letter formation. Such an explicit letter formation instruction may be demotivating and time-consuming. Furthermore, it neglects the meaning which handwriting conveys.

In whole language classrooms, no direct instruction in handwriting is provided. Students unconsciously acquire letter formation through purposeful reading and writing activities. Although this may appear to be so for first language acquisition, it cannot be applied to EFL learners, particularly in the Arabic context where the mother tongue alphabet is completely different and runs from right to left.

An effective approach to teaching handwriting to Arabic-speaking students must, therefore, move from skills to meaning through the following three-step procedure:

(1) *Presentation of letters*. In this step, the teacher presents letters one by one utilizing the auditory, visual, kinesthetic, and tactile modalities of his/her students.

(2) *Reading and writing letters within the context of words and sentences*. In this step, students practice reading and copying the letters presented to them in step one as



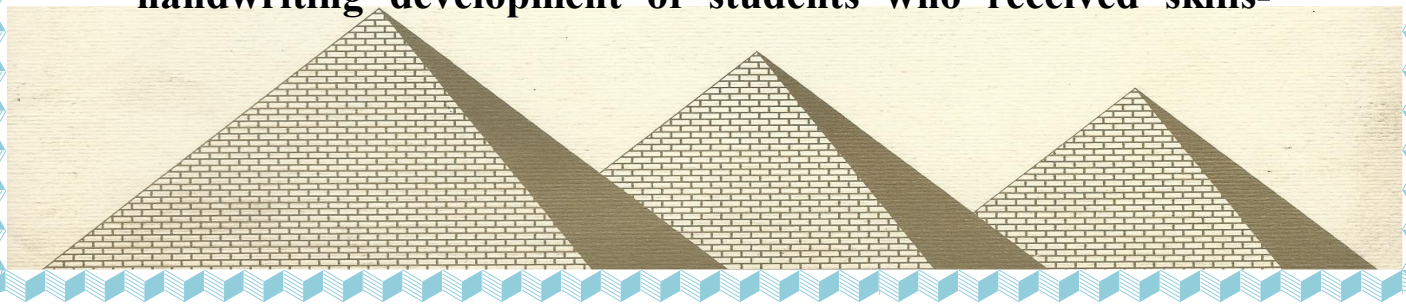
well as others by sorting mixed words out and copying segments from substitution tables to make meaningful sentences.

(3) *Reading and writing letters within the context of whole paragraphs*. In this step, students practice letter formation through reading scrambled sentences and rewriting them to make up a meaningful paragraph. They may also fill in the missing words in a paragraph, and/or write a topic sentence to another paragraph.

2.3 Summary of research on handwriting instruction

A literature search indicated that most of the studies done in the area of handwriting instruction focused on the effect of the skills-based approach on handwriting. These studies found that this approach developed handwriting legibility (e.g., Askov and Greff, 1975; Hirsch and Niedermeyer, 1973; Manning, 1989; Pontello, 1999; Wood *et al*., 1987).

It is also evident, by literature, that research has not addressed the effect of the whole-language approach on handwriting and that only one study compared the handwriting development of students who received skills-

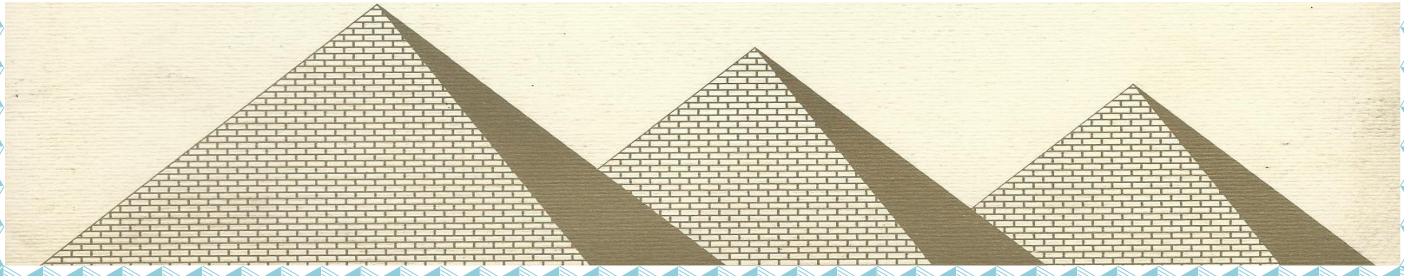


based instruction to that of students who received whole-language instruction. In this study Goldberg (1997) found that the skills-based approach produced more legible handwriting than did the whole-language approach.

As indicated, there is no evidence that the whole-language approach develops handwriting legibility. Moreover, empirical investigations comparing the effects of skills-based to whole-language instruction on handwriting are very rare.

To conclude this chapter, I claim that handwriting is not only a mechanical, lower-level skill but also a meaningful process. Accordingly, the integration of the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach can boost handwriting performance above the levels that occur with either alone. In support of this view, Farris (1991) states:

> [Handwriting] instruction is more efficient while ... instruction is more in line with the philosophy of whole language. However, without being introduced to and given instruction in the basic handwriting skills such as letter formation, alignment, slant and size, children are left to discover such skills on their



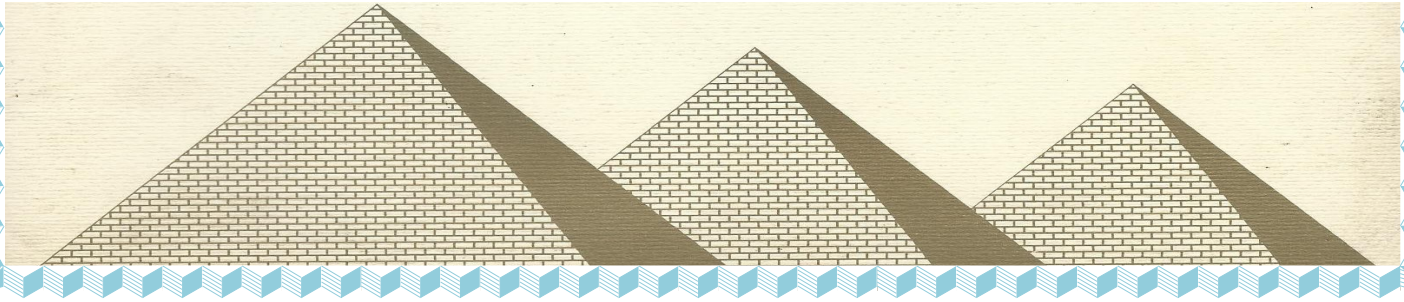
own. As such they develop inappropriate techniques and legibility suffers. (pp. 313-314)

2.4 Self-checks

1. What is handwriting?

2. Handwriting does not operate in isolation. Discuss.

3. From your own experience, do you agree with the author that the comprehensive approach is the most appropriate approach to teaching handwriting in the FL context? Why? Why not?



Chapter Three

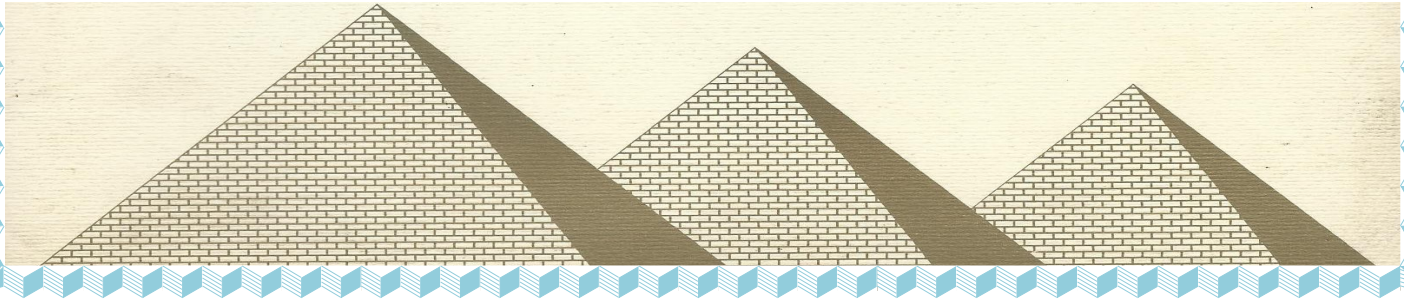
Vocabulary

3.0 What is vocabulary?

The skills-based approach views vocabulary as one of the subskills involved in the major language skills. It also holds that vocabulary involves many micro-skills such as pronunciation, spelling, word structure, etc. In contrast, the whole-language approach views vocabulary as word meaning within the context, i.e. meaning which is more than the sum of individual words.

3.1 The importance of vocabulary

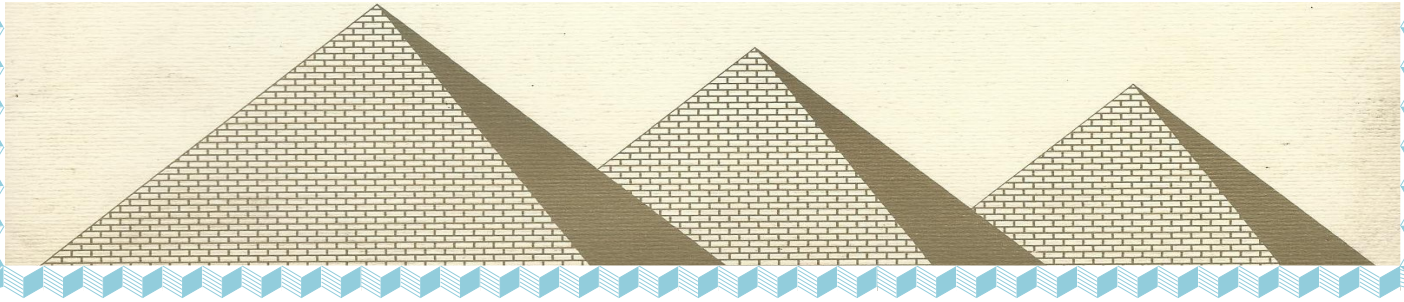
Vocabulary is a requisite for learning the main language skills. As Krashen (1989) points out, "A large vocabulary is, of course, essential for mastery of a language" (p. 439). McGinnis and Smith (1982) also point out that "without words a student seldom can understand what is being communicated to him nor can he express his thoughts to others" (p. 236). In this respect, Pittelman and Heimlich (1991) also add that vocabulary knowledge is important in understanding both spoken and written language. They state:



> **It is not surprising that vocabulary knowledge, or knowledge of word meanings, is critical to reading comprehension. In order for children to understand what they are reading, they must know the meanings of the words they encounter. Children with limited vocabulary knowledge...will experience difficulty comprehending both oral and written text. (p. 37)**

In support of the crucial role that vocabulary plays in reading comprehension, Crow (1986) claims that for adult L2 readers the biggest difficulty in reading is not the concepts of a text, but the words representing these concepts. Hague (1987) also claims that "to read, a reader must know words" and "to become a better reader, a reader must learn more words" (p. 218). Howell and Morehead (1987) go so far as to say that word meanings may account for up to 70% of the variability between students who do and students who do not score well on comprehension tests.

Research has provided an overwhelming evidence that even among adults word recognition accounts for a sizable amount of variance in reading ability (e.g., Bertelson, 1986; Gough and Tunmer, 1986; Morrison, 1984, 1987; Perfetti, 1985).

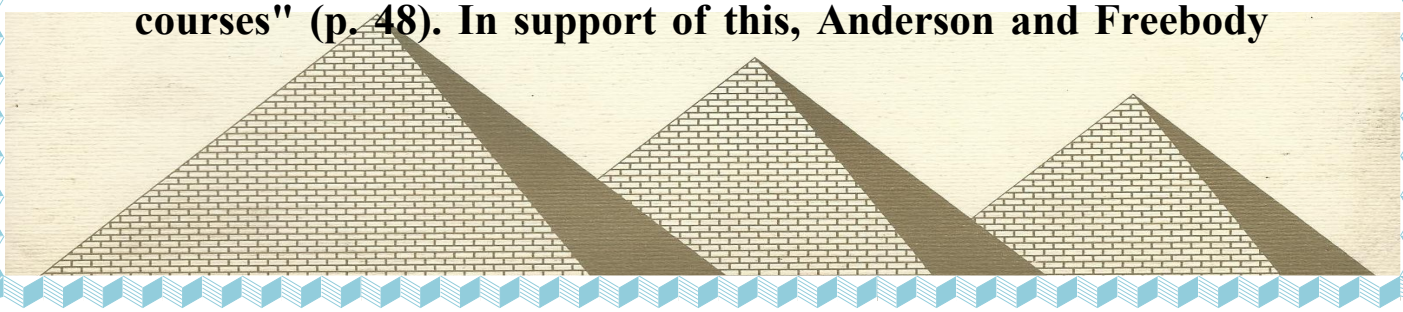


Research has also shown that there is a correlation between word knowledge and reading comprehension (e.g., Barr, 1985; Hoover and Gough, 1990; Kitao, 1988); and that when L2 readers' vocabulary is improved, their reading comprehension is also improved (e.g., Cziko, 1980; Davis, 1989; McDaniel and Pressley, 1986).

The role vocabulary plays in listening comprehension has also been emphasized by Mecartty (1995) who found that lexical knowledge is significantly related to listening comprehension.

Personke and Yee (1971) highlight the role that vocabulary plays in writing saying, "Fluency in writing is almost dependent upon a large store of words which can be written without thinking" (p. 22). Brynildssen (2000) also states that the ability to write hinges heavily upon an adequate vocabulary even more than does the ability to read.

The importance of vocabulary to general academic achievement has also been recognized by Zientarski and Pottorff (1994). They claim that students who "possess larger vocabularies tend to achieve greater success in their content courses" (p. 48). In support of this, Anderson and Freebody



(1981) reported a strong relationship between vocabulary and academic performance.

As shown above, vocabulary is an essential component of language and we would be totally mistaken if we ignore teaching it.

3.2 The teaching and learning of vocabulary

In skills-based classrooms, vocabulary is taught as individualized, decontextualized items. The techniques consistent with this perspective include structural analysis, morphological analysis, and definitions. The exercises associated with these techniques, synthesized from a number of sources, include the following:

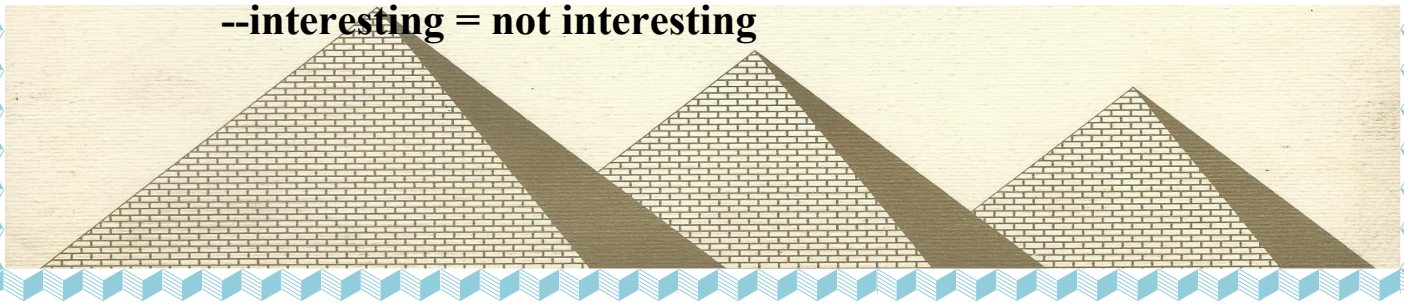
(1) Analyzing words into units of meaning, i.e., base words, affixes, and inflections;

(2) Dividing compound words into free and bound morphemes, i.e., morphemes that can stand alone and morphemes that cannot;

(3) Adding suffixes and prefixes to root words to make as many new words as possible;

(4) Adding affixes to words to make ones that agree with the given definitions; e.g.,

--interesting = not interesting



joy-- = full of joy

(5) Using analogies to relate known to unknown words; e.g.,

teacher: students

-----: car

(6) Forming adverbs from adjectives;

(7) Matching acronyms with the expressions they come from;

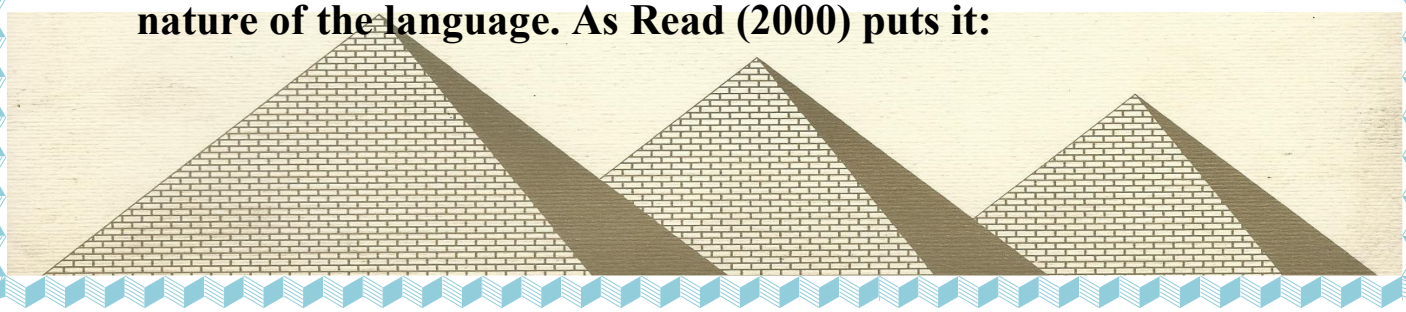
(8) Matching contractions with their meanings;

(9) Forming past and past participle from root verbs;

(10) Forming plurals from singular nouns.

Proponents of the skills-based approach claim that teaching vocabulary apart from context facilitates the formulation of an accurate mental representation of each word and enhances storage in memory. As Ormrod (1986) points out, when words are presented in isolation, students' attention can be directed solely toward the learning of these words. Gough and Juel (1991) also contend that "what the child needs is a way to recognize novel words on the basis of their form rather than their context" (p. 51).

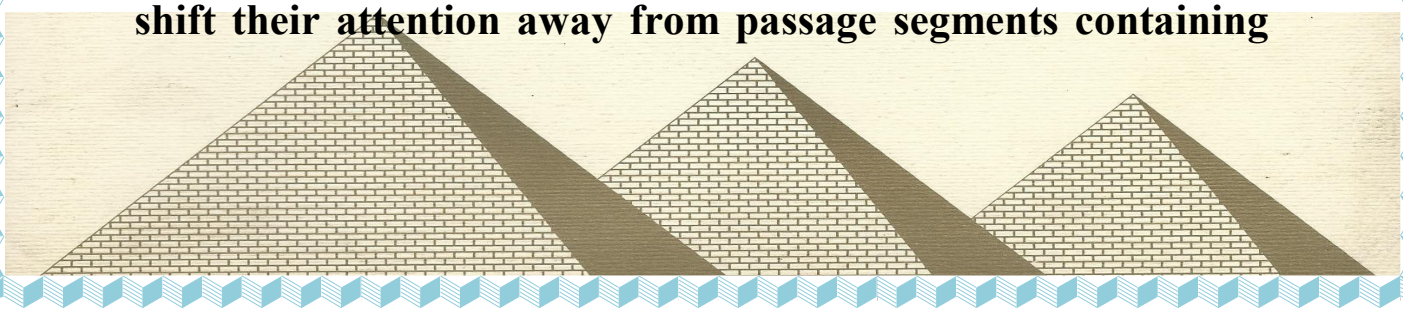
However, opponents of the skills-based approach claim that the decontextualized practice of vocabulary is contrary to the nature of the language. As Read (2000) puts it:



> **In normal language use, words do not occur by themselves or in isolated sentences but as integrated elements of whole texts and discourse. They belong in specific conversations, jokes, stories, letters, textbooks, legal proceedings, newspaper advertisements and so on. And the way that we interpret a word is significantly influenced by the context in which it occurs. (p. 4)**

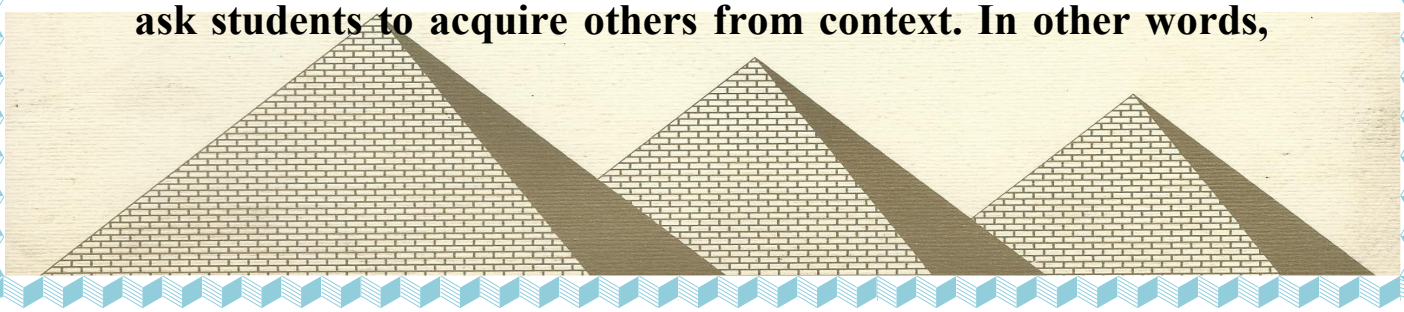
Nagy and Anderson (1984) add that the sheer number of words a teacher has to teach casts serious doubt on the utility of direct vocabulary instruction.

In whole language classrooms, learners unconsciously acquire vocabulary through exposure to oral and written language. The major criticism of this approach is that a mere exposure to oral and written language may not necessarily facilitate vocabulary learning for several reasons. The first reason, as Jenkins and Dixon (1983) note, is that "when encountering a novel word in a context, the reader or listener may not recognize the situation as a vocabulary learning opportunity" (p. 239). A second reason is that students may shift their attention away from passage segments containing



difficult words (Anderson and Freebody, 1981). A third reason is that context does not always provide enough clues to word meaning because writers write to transmit ideas, not to define words (Beck *et al*., 1983; Schatz and Baldwin, 1986; Sinatra and Dowd, 1991). A fourth reason is that FL students' low proficiency may not permit acquiring words from context. It seems, therefore, that incidental learning of vocabulary from context may take place but not to the degree needed to explain large additions to students' vocabulary stores. As Watanabe (1997) notes, "Although incidental learning of vocabulary through context is possible, it is not always efficient" (p. 288).

From the foregoing, it seems that neither direct instruction nor incidental learning is sufficient for vocabulary development. Therefore, a combination of direct vocabulary instruction and incidental learning can boost vocabulary learning above the levels that occur with either alone. Accordingly, the comprehensive approach holds that the teaching of vocabulary should shift from identifying words in isolation to recognizing and using them in sentences, and finally to understanding and producing them in contexts. It also holds that the teacher should teach some new words and ask students to acquire others from context. In other words,



this approach asserts that basic vocabulary should be taught through direct instruction and other words will be learned naturally by the students. Here is the three-step procedure of this approach:

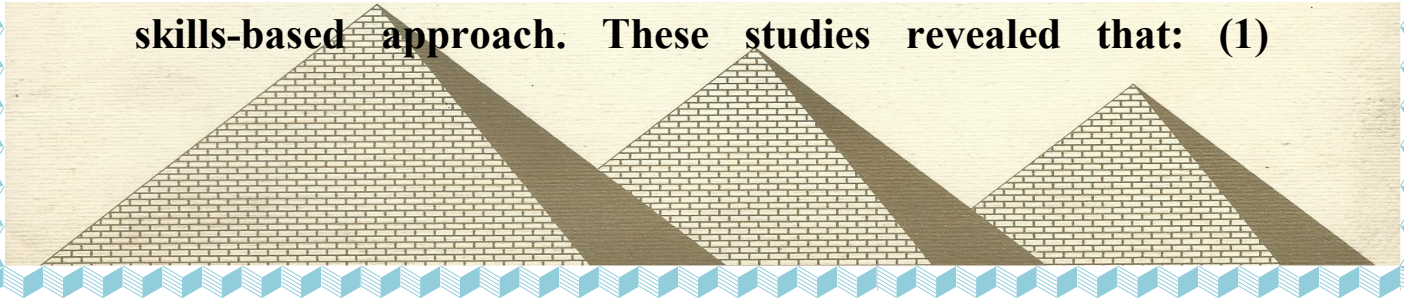
(1) *Recognizing words in isolation*. In this step, the teacher explains some of the basic, unknown words through structural analysis, definition, translation, etc.

(2) *Recognizing and using words in sentences*. In this step, students read the words, explained to them in step one, in meaningful sentences. Then, they use these words in sentences of their own.

(3) *Understanding and using words in contexts*. In this step, students understand the most appropriate meanings of the words, explained to them in step one, in an oral or written text. They also try to acquire other words from this text. Then, they summarize this text and discuss the issue(s) raised in it with one another.

3.3 Summary of research on vocabulary instruction

Research indicates that both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach increase vocabulary achievement. Some studies obtained positive results with the skills-based approach. These studies revealed that: (1)

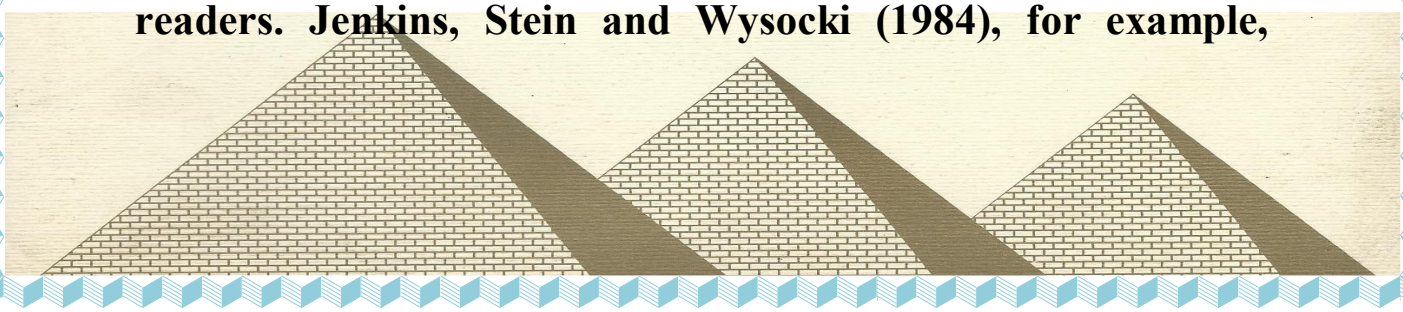


Morphological generalizations help students determine the meanings of unknown words (Wysocki and Jenkins, 1987); (2) Explicit instruction in context clues enhances students' ability to determine the meanings of unknown words from the context (Askov and Kamm, 1976; Huckin and Jin, 1987); (3) Phonics instruction positively affects word recognition (for a review of studies in this area, see Adams, 1990).

A second body of research (e.g., Herman *et al.*, 1987; Joe, 1998; Nagy *et al.*, 1985a, Reutzel and Cooter, 1990) demonstrated that incidental vocabulary learning during reading produced a small, but statistically reliable increase in word knowledge.

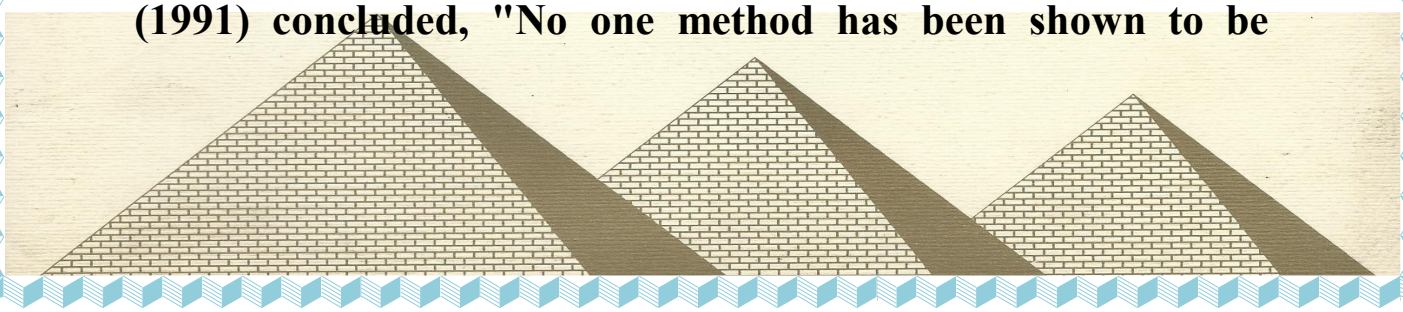
A third body of research found no significant differences between direct instruction and incidental learning in vocabulary achievement (Mercer, 1992; Nemko, 1984; Schatz and Baldwin, 1986; Shapiro and Gunderson, 1988).

The results of the above studies can be interpreted in light of the abilities of students participated in these studies. In support of this interpretation, research has shown that better readers profited more from context than did less skilled readers. Jenkins, Stein and Wysocki (1984), for example,



examined the hypothesis that new vocabulary knowledge can be acquired through incidental learning of word meanings from context. In their study, fifth graders of two reading abilities read passages containing unfamiliar words. The results indicated that better readers profited more from context than did less skilled readers. They concluded that "perhaps combinations of informal vocabulary instruction and incidental learning boost vocabulary learning above the levels that occur with either alone" (p. 785). A similar finding was also reported by McKeown (1985) who found that less skilled fifth graders were less able to identify the meaning of words from context even after context clues had been presented to them. Becerra-Keller (1993) also found that in grades 2 and 3 the use of the whole-language approach did not have an effect on vocabulary achievement, but in grade 4 it did seem to have an effect.

The results of the previously-mentioned studies provide evidence in support of the author's view that direct instruction and contextual learning can add significantly to the vocabulary of students of all ability levels. In support of this view and from their survey of research dealing with the conditions of vocabulary learning, Beck and McKeown (1991) concluded, "No one method has been shown to be

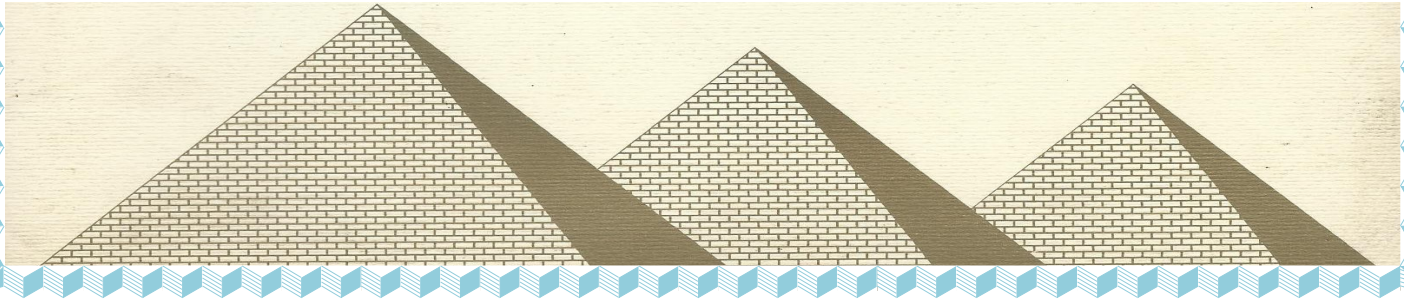


consistently superior.... [and] there is advantage from methods that use a variety of techniques" (p. 805). Chall (1987) also supports the comprehensive approach to teaching vocabulary in the following way:

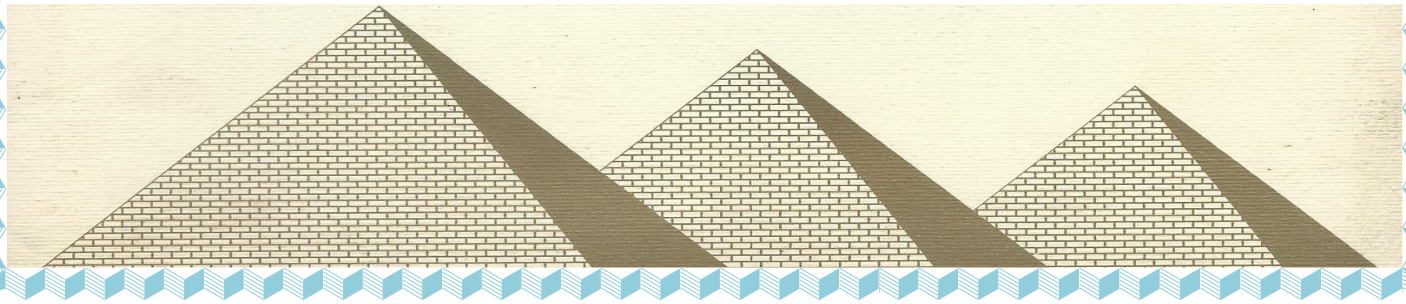
> **It would seem from the research and from experience that both direct teaching and contextual learning are needed. Students need to learn words through reading, and they need to learn words directly, apart from the context. (p. 15)**

3.4 Self-checks

1. **Assign two of the classes you teach to either a context or a non-context condition. In the non-context condition teach words directly in isolation. In the context condition let students read the same words embedded in a passage. Find if your students can learn new words from the context and if the number of words learned from context is significantly greater than words learned from direct instruction.**
2. **From your own experience, do you agree with the author that neither direct instruction nor incidental learning seems to account for growth in students' vocabulary? Why? Why not?**



3. **Do you think that primary school students can acquire vocabulary only through exposure to oral and written texts? Why? Why not?**



Chapter Four

Spelling

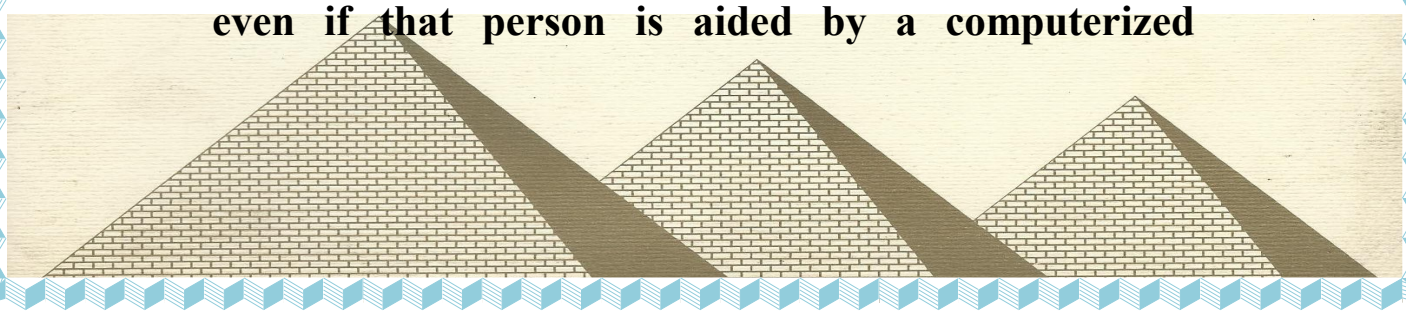
4.0 What is spelling?

The skills-based approach views spelling as one of the subskills involved in reading and writing. It also holds that spelling involves many micro-skills such as letter-naming, phonics, word structure, etc. Conversely, the whole-language approach views spelling as a developmental process through which meaning is understood and/or created.

4.1 The importance of spelling

The importance of spelling lies in the fact that to be literate, one must become proficient in spelling. Learning to spell correctly is necessary for being a good writer (Graham, 1983; Scardamalia, 1981; Treiman, 1993). Treiman (1993), for example, expresses this idea in the following way:

> **The ability to spell words easily and accurately is an important part of being a good writer. A person who must stop and puzzle over the spelling of each word, even if that person is aided by a computerized**



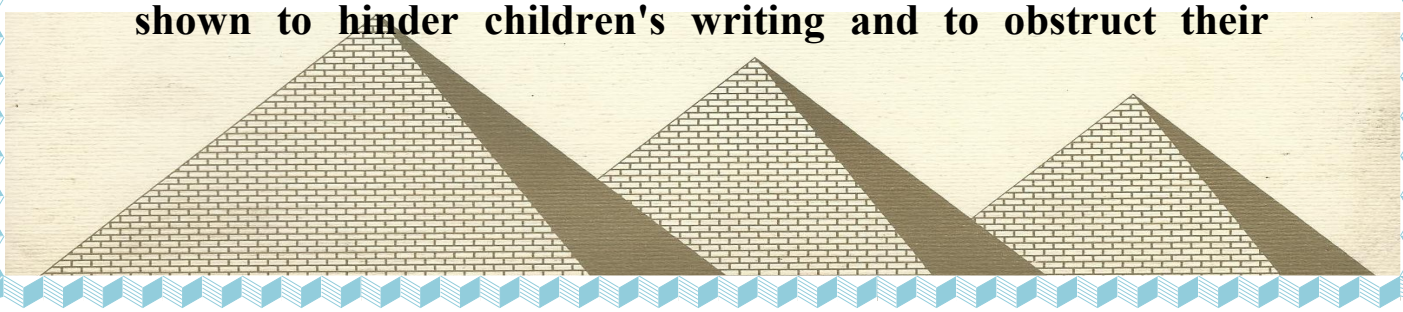
> **spelling checker, has little attention left to devote to other aspects of writing. (p. 3)**

Spelling also improves reading because knowledge of spelling-sound correspondences is a basic component of reading. As Adams (1990) notes, "Skillful reading depends critically on the deep and thorough acquisition of spellings and spelling-sound relationships" (p. 421).

Moreover, research has shown that there is a strong relationship between spelling and reading (e.g., Bear and Barone, 1989; Ehri and Wilce, 1987; Gough *et al.*, 1992; Henderson, 1990; Juel *et al.*, 1986; Zutell, 1992; Zutell and Rasinski, 1989). Instruction in spelling has also been found to have a strong effect on beginning reading (e.g., Bradley, 1988; Bradley and Bryant, 1985; Uhry, 1989).

Research has also shown that there is a strong relationship between spelling and word recognition (e.g., Bear, 1982; Juel *et al.*, 1986), and between spelling and reading comprehension (e.g., Beers, 1980).

Moreover, poorly developed spelling knowledge has been shown to hinder children's writing and to obstruct their



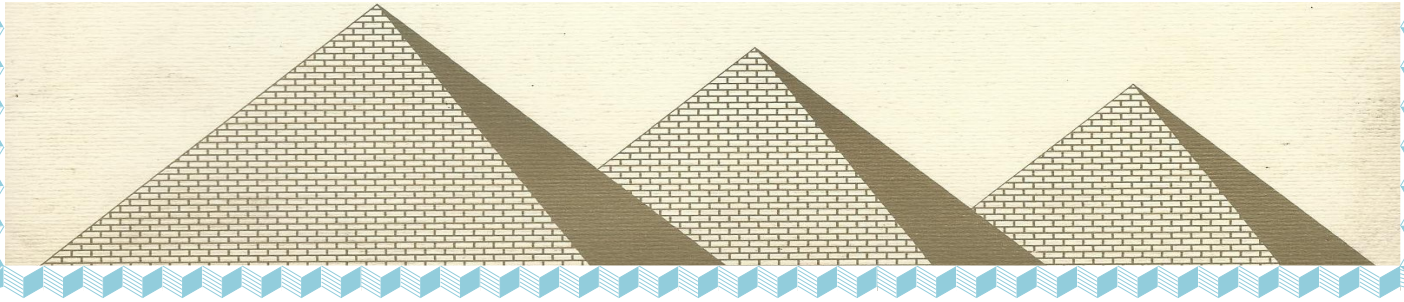
vocabulary development (e.g., Adams *et al.*, 1996; Read, 1986), and to be the most frequent and pervasive cause of reading difficulty (e.g., Bruck, 1990; Perfetti, 1985; Rack *et al.*, 1992; Vellutino, 1991).

Some spelling theorists add that spelling is very much a part of listening and speaking (e.g., Buchanan, 1989; Gentry and Gillet, 1993).

4.2 The teaching and learning of spelling

In skills-based classrooms, teachers teach spelling rules through mechanical drills. Although this approach directs students' attention solely toward spelling, it has its own weaknesses. One weakness is that it draws students' attention away from the communicative function of spelling. Another weakness is that spelling rules have too many exceptions to be consciously learned (Parry and Hornsby, 1988; Smith, 1982).

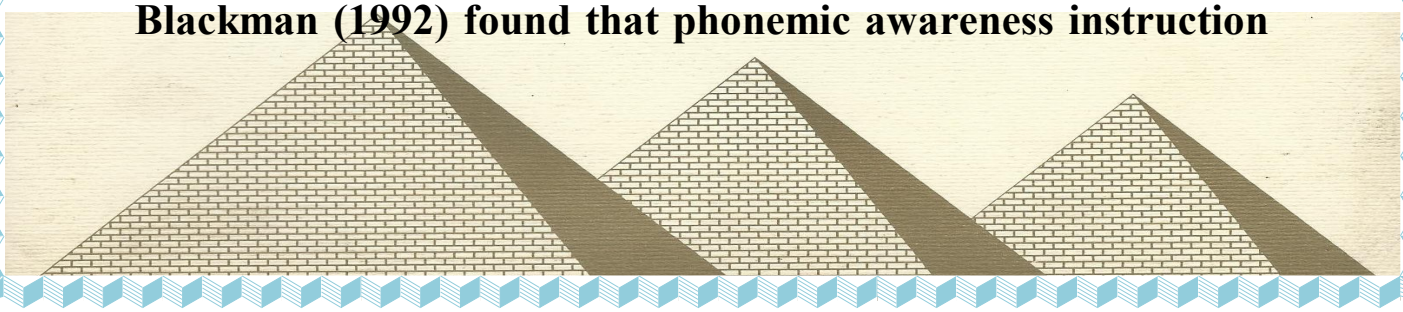
In whole language classrooms, spelling is learned by immersing students in or exposing them to print (Goodman, 1986). Students are also encouraged to use invented spelling (approximate spelling) in writing (Clay, 1985; Invernizzi *et al.*, 1994; Wilde, 1992).



In spite of the fact that the whole-language approach to teaching spelling promotes independence and integrates spelling with language use, we cannot assume that proficiency in spelling will follow directly from engaging students in reading and writing activities. The reasons for this are stated by Treiman (1993) as follows:

> **There is some truth to the whole-language philosophy. Many children do pick up correspondences between letters and sounds on their own, even when the correspondences are not explicitly taught. However, the insight behind the whole-language approach—that children can learn many things on their own—should not be pushed too far. For one thing, not all children easily pick up relations between phonemes and graphemes on their own. For another thing, this learning is more rapid for some correspondences than for others. (pp. 124-125)**

Opponents of the whole-language approach also claim that students cannot invent spelling without linguistic information. Such information is indeed the primary source of invented spelling. In support of this claim, Tangel and Blackman (1992) found that phonemic awareness instruction



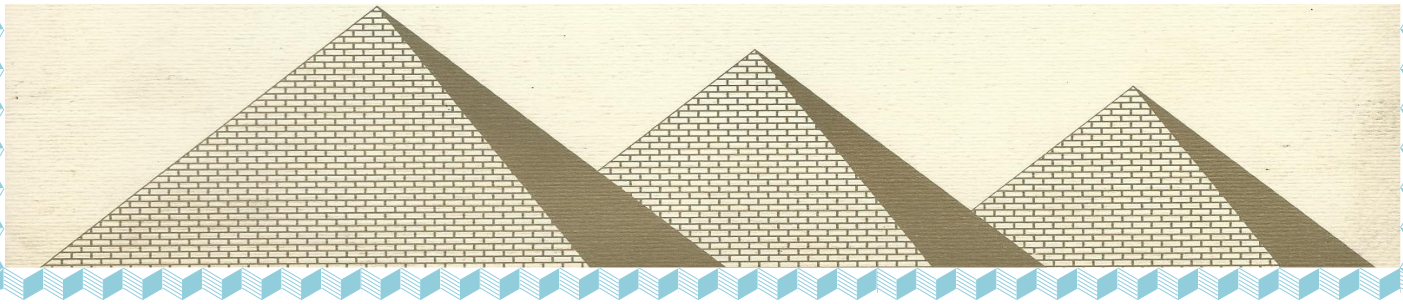
positively affects children's invented spelling. They then concluded that "in order to produce invented spellings, a child must possess some degree of linguistic awareness" (p. 235). Additionally, I claim that FL beginners cannot invent spelling because they lack the speaking skill which they segment during this process.

From the foregoing, it seems that we need an approach that shifts from direct instruction to incidental learning of spelling. Below is the three-step procedure of this approach:

(1) ***Presentation of spelling rules*****. In this step, students receive direct instruction in a spelling rule at a time.**

(2) ***Learning spelling through reading*****. In this step, students see how the spelling rule, explained to them in step one, is applied in a reading passage. They also develop visual images of the words in this passage.**

(3) ***Producing spelling through writing*****. In this step, students apply the spelling rule explained to them in summarizing the text they read in step two. They are then asked to write a paragraph about a self-selected topic and to invent spelling of words whose spelling is unknown to them.**



As noted, the comprehensive approach asserts that it is of utmost importance that the teacher should teach the spelling of some words and ask students to acquire the spelling of others from context and through invented spelling.

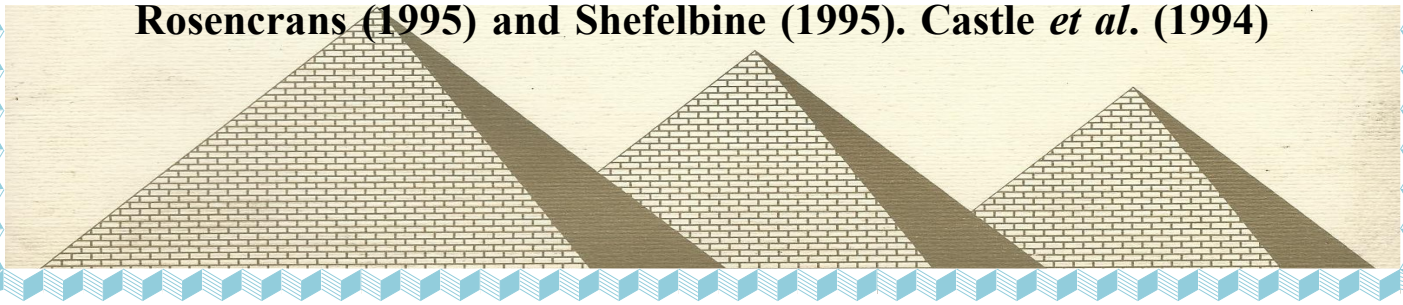
4.3 Summary of research on spelling instruction

Many studies demonstrated an increase in spelling ability under the skills-based approach (e.g., Ball and Blackman, 1991; Connelly *et al*., 1999; Ghazi, 1983; Gordon, 1992; Haan, 1999; Lie, 1991; Robinson, 1980; White, 1988).

Other studies demonstrated an increase in spelling ability under the whole-language approach (e.g., Cunningham and Stanovich 1990; Shapiro and Gunderson, 1988; Stanovich and West, 1989).

As shown above, research in the area of spelling provides indirect evidence that instead of either-or planning of spelling instruction, the comprehensive approach can be more effective in increasing spelling achievement.

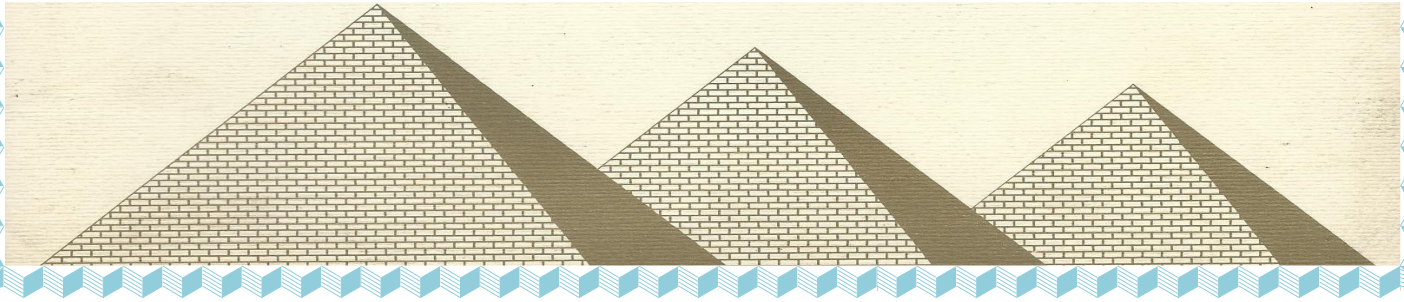
Direct support for the comprehensive approach to teaching spelling comes from studies done by Castle *et al*. (1994), Rosencrans (1995) and Shefelbine (1995). Castle *et al*. (1994)



found that providing phonemic-awareness instruction within a whole language program had significant effects on spelling and reading performance. Rosencrans (1995) found that direct instruction within a whole language spelling program increased children's spelling achievement. Shefelbine (1995) found that combining temporary (invented) spelling with systematic, formal spelling instruction resulted in more rapid growth in both correct spelling and word recognition than did either approach alone.

4.4 Self-checks

1. Do you agree with the author that skills and meaning must be combined in the teaching of spelling? Why? Why not?
2. Develop a plan that moves from skills to meaning in teaching a particular spelling rule.
3. Which is the most appropriate approach to teaching spelling to your students? Give reasons.



Chapter Five

Grammar

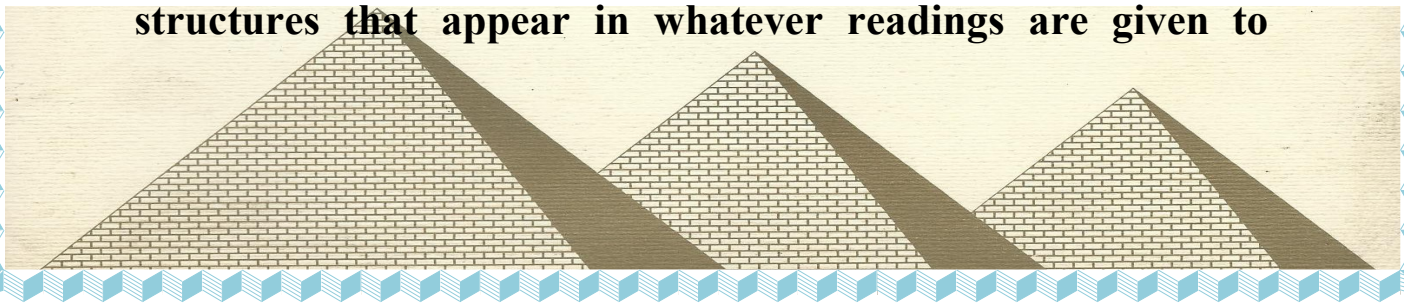
5.0 What is grammar?

The skills-based approach views grammar as a set of micro-skills, including syntax, morphology, rhetorical organization, etc. Conversely, the whole-language approach views grammar as an instrument of understanding and creating ideas in whole texts.

5.1 The importance of grammar

The underlying rationale for the teaching of grammar in EFL classrooms is multi-faceted. Teachers teach grammar to EFL students because it helps them produce messages. Without grammar, as Schleppegrell (1998) claims, such students cannot speak or write effectively.

Grammar also helps to make language input more comprehensible (Eskey and Grabe, 1989; Scarcella and Oxford, 1992). With respect to reading comprehension, for example, Eskey and Grabe (1989) point out that "reading requires a relatively high degree of grammatical control over structures that appear in whatever readings are given to



students" (p. 226). We also teach grammar because the constraints of the FL classroom make its natural acquisition almost impossible (Alexander, 1990).

Moreover, there is evidence that grammar instruction improves students written and oral language proficiency (e.g., Davis, 1996; Fotos, 1992; Govindasamy, 1995; Melendez, 1993; Yeung, 1993).

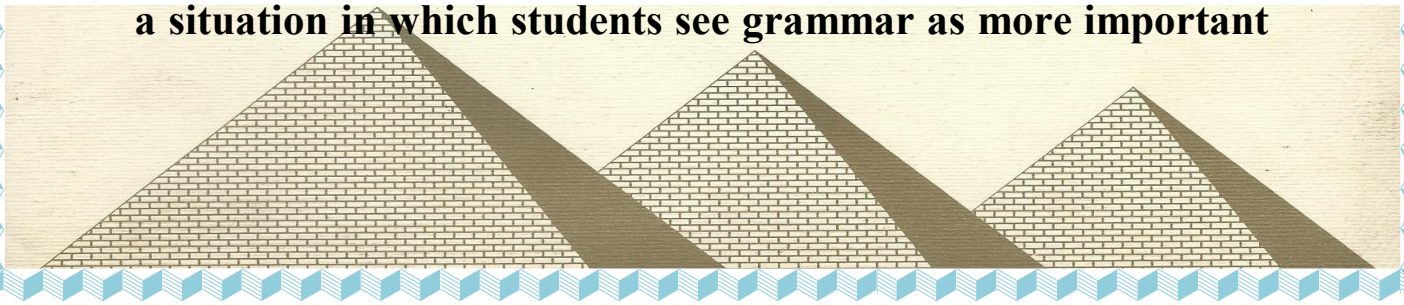
5.2 The teaching and learning of grammar

The skill-building teachers teach the rules of grammar explicitly and then have students practice these rules through mechanical exercises. Such exercises consist of isolated and unrelated sentences. Among these exercises are the following:

(1) Substitution exercises. In this type of exercises, students get accurate sentences by picking words/phrases from columns, one from each.

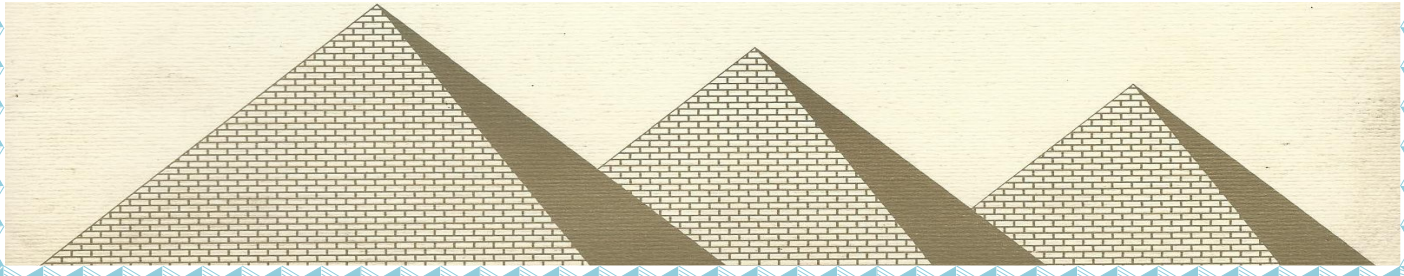
(2) Transformation exercises. In this type of exercises, students change sentences in certain ways in response to call-words.

Opponents of the skills-based approach to teaching grammar claim that an overemphasis on explicit grammar can produce a situation in which students see grammar as more important



than the meaning they are trying to understand or convey. They also claim that the teaching of grammar is time consuming, and the more time spent on teaching grammar, the less time spent on using the language. Krashen and Terrell (1983) add that "any grammar-based method which purports to develop communication skills will fail with the majority of students" (p. 16). Along the same line, in his book, *Writing with Power*, Elbow (1981) states that grammar interferes with writing. He further states that the teaching of grammar in isolation does not lead to improvement in students' writing; and that grammar is not only unnecessary but also harmful.

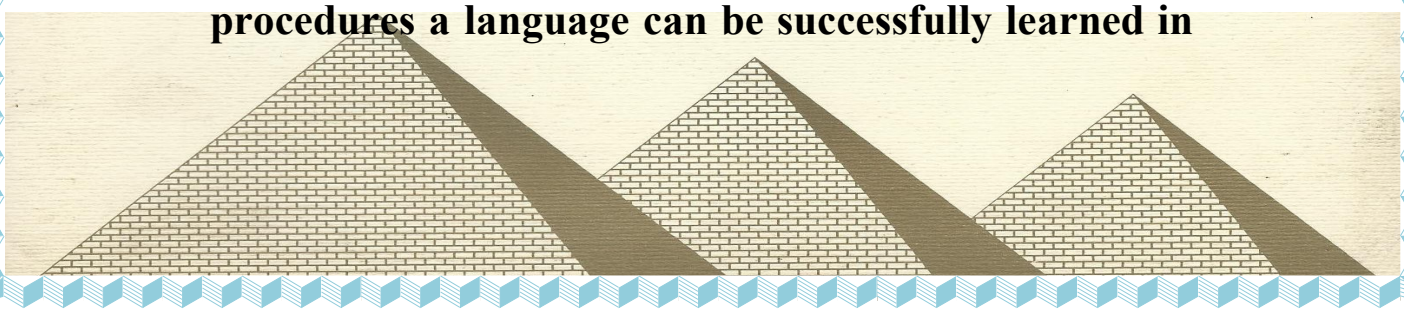
> **Learning grammar is a formidable task that takes crucial energy away from working on your writing, and worse yet, the process of learning grammar interferes with writing: it heightens your preoccupation with mistakes as you write out each word and phrase, and makes it almost impossible to achieve that undistracted attention to your thoughts and experiences as you write that is so crucial for strong writing. For most people, nothing helps their**



> **writing so much as learning to ignore grammar (p. 169).**

In whole language classrooms, grammar is learned incidentally through oral and written communication. In spite of the fact that such an approach focuses on meaning, it can lead to the development of an ungrammatical, pidginized form of the foreign language beyond which students cannot progress (Celce-Murcia, 1991; Gary and Gary, 1981). Thus, the major problem with the whole-language approach is that it sacrifices accuracy for the sake of fluency. As Hammerly (1991) puts it:

> **When communication is emphasized early in a language program, linguistic accuracy suffers and linguistic competence does not develop much beyond the point needed for the bare transmission of messages.... In the classroom, fluency does not lead to accuracy, and most errors do not disappear through communicative interaction. In the classroom, a language cannot be acquired unconsciously with good results. But through largely conscious procedures a language can be successfully learned in**

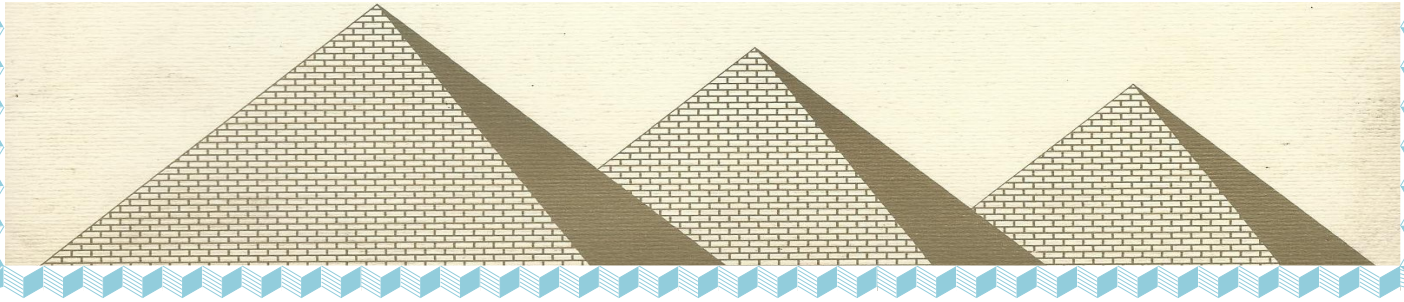


> **the classroom. This can be done quite well through systematic instruction, which should precede and build up to part of the curriculum being taught in SL. (p. 10)**

From the foregoing, it seems that both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach to teaching grammar are complementary. Therefore, I claim that combining both approaches can be more effective than relying on one of them alone. In support of the suggested approach, Hammerly (1991) notes that

> **An early emphasis on free communication ... seems to guarantee linguistic incompetence at the end of the program, just as surely as an exclusive emphasis on linguistic structure guarantees communicative incompetence. (p. 10)**

Omaggio (1986) also suggests that there should be emphasis on both grammatical accuracy and meaningful communication and that early meaningful verbal communication is not possible without some grammatical knowledge.



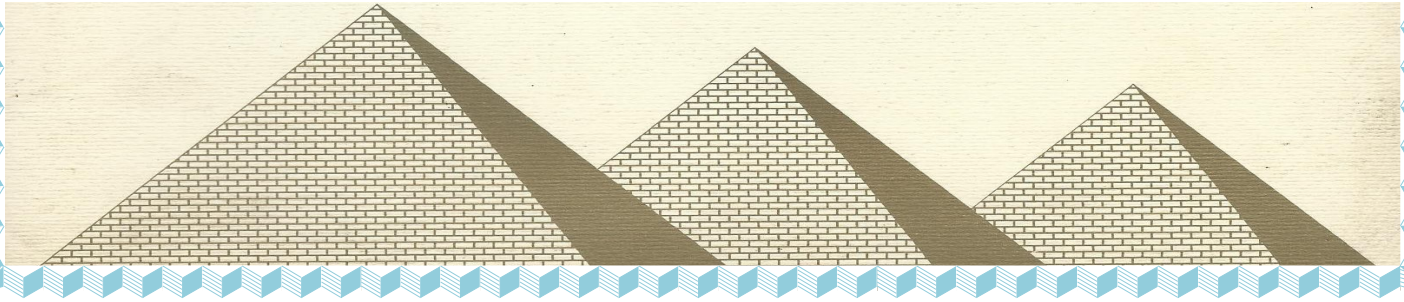
The same standpoint is also supported by Pachler and Bond (1999) in the following way:

> **Foreign language teachers must not only focus on developing the learner's explicit [knowledge of grammar] but also on facilitating the development of his or her implicit knowledge by creating an acquisition-rich classroom environment. (p. 100)**

What is needed, then, is a combination of grammar instruction and whole language. In this new approach, grammar should be taught for the sake of communication, not for its own sake. Such an approach should shift from explicit teaching of grammatical rules to using these rules for understanding and expressing meaning in communicative contexts. Here is the three-step procedure of this approach:

(1) ***Presentation of grammatical rules*****. In this step, the teacher explains one grammatical rule at a time. Such a rule should provide the basis for the other two steps.**

(2) ***Understanding grammar in whole texts*****. In this step, the teacher provides students with an oral or written text in which the grammatical rule, explained to them in step one, is used. While listening to or reading this text,**



students focus on the meaning given by this specific rule. They also try to pick up other rules on their own.

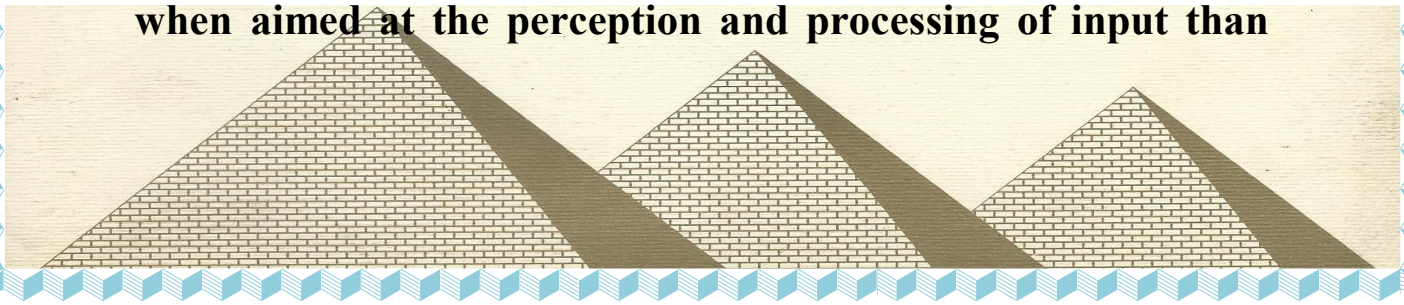
(3) *Using grammar in producing whole texts*. In this step, students use the grammatical rule explained to them as well as the rules they acquired by themselves in summarizing the text presented to them in step two and discussing the issue(s) raised in this text with one another.

5.3 Summary of research on grammar instruction

A body of research revealed that communicative language teaching did not lead to grammatical accuracy (e.g., Harley and Swain, 1984; Swain, 1985, 1989).

A second body of research revealed that learners who received explicit grammar instruction showed greater gains on grammatical competence than did those who received implicit or no instruction (e.g., Concepcion, 1992; Doughty, 1991; Graaff, 1997; Master, 1994; Moroishi, 1998; Scott, 1989, 1990).

A third body of studies indicated that form-focused instruction was more useful in second language learning, when aimed at the perception and processing of input than



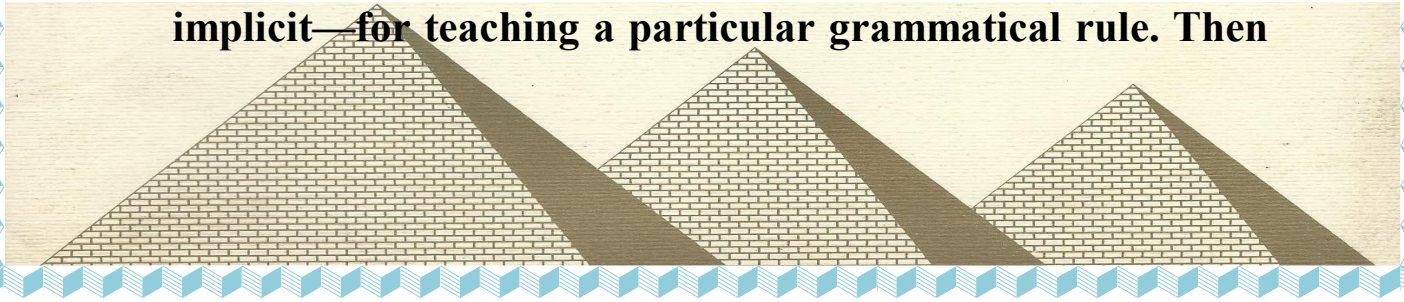
when it focused on practice as output (e.g., Day and Shapson, 1991; VanPatten and Cadiemo, 1993).

Viewed collectively, research in the area of grammar shows that grammar can be regarded as both a skill and a process and that a combination of form and meaning can contribute to higher levels of accuracy and fluency.

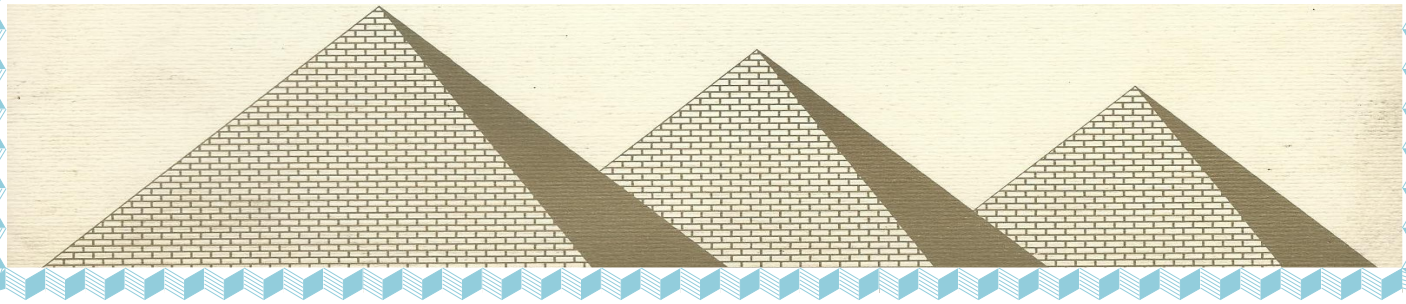
In support of the comprehensive approach to teaching grammar, some studies found that students who received explicit grammar instruction within communicatively organized classrooms showed greater accuracy in subsequent use of the grammar points taught to them than students who received form-oriented instruction alone or no form-oriented instruction at all (e.g., Bernardy, 1998; Lightbown and Spada, 1990; Montgomery and Eisenstein, 1985; Spada, 1987; White, 1991; White *et al*., 1991).

5.4 Self-checks

1. **What role can grammar play in foreign/second language learning?**
2. **Is grammar a means or an end? Why?**
3. **Develop two lesson plans—one is explicit and the other is implicit—for teaching a particular grammatical rule. Then**



apply them in two classes at the same level (one for each). Find if there are any differences in understanding and using this rule in oral communication between the two classes.



Chapter Six

Pronunciation

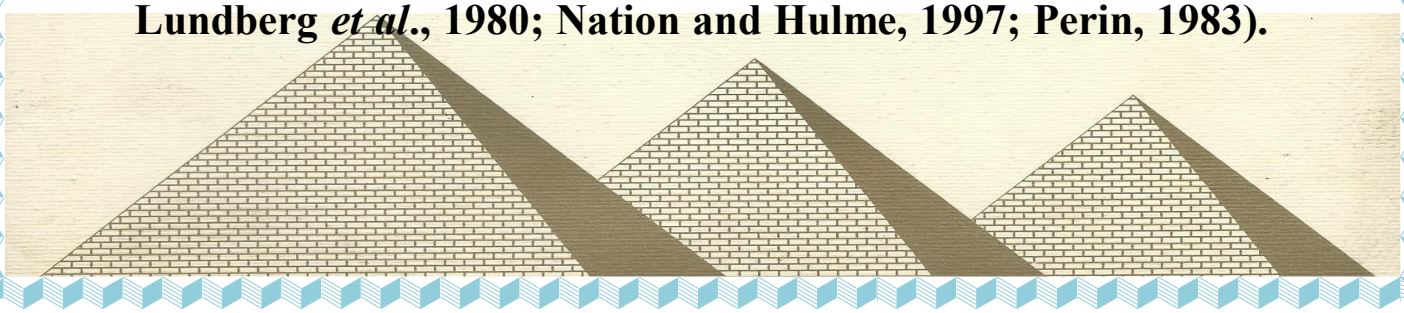
6.0 What is pronunciation?

According to the skills-based approach, the concept of pronunciation involves sounds of the language, stress, intonation, etc. The whole-language approach views pronunciation as a process through which meaning is understood and/or created.

6.1 The importance of pronunciation

The importance of pronunciation lies in the fact that it helps students read effectively. Additionally, students must know the sounds that letters make in order to speak, and understand what others say.

In support of the importance of pronunciation, research has shown that phonological awareness is more highly related to learning to read (e.g., Ehri, 1992; Share *et al.*, 1984; Stanovich, 1986, 1993, 1993-94; Tunmer and Hoover, 1992), and to spell (e.g., Ehri, 1992; Liberman *et al.*, 1985; Lundberg *et al.*, 1980; Nation and Hulme, 1997; Perin, 1983).



It has also been found that phonological awareness is the most important causal factor separating normal and disabled readers (e.g., Share and Stanovich, 1995).

Research has also shown that phonetic analytic skills are predictors of beginning reading achievement (e.g., Evans and Carr, 1985; Fox and Routh, 1976; Tunmer and Nesdale, 1985; Williams, 1980); and that there is a causal link between phonics knowledge and reading comprehension (e.g., Andrews, 1985; Eldredge *et al*., 1990).

6.2 The teaching and learning of pronunciation

The skills-oriented teachers teach the rules of pronunciation explicitly and then have students practice these rules through segmentation and blending exercises such as the following:

(1) Identifying the sounds of letters;

(2) Dividing words into sounds;

(3) Breaking up words into syllables;

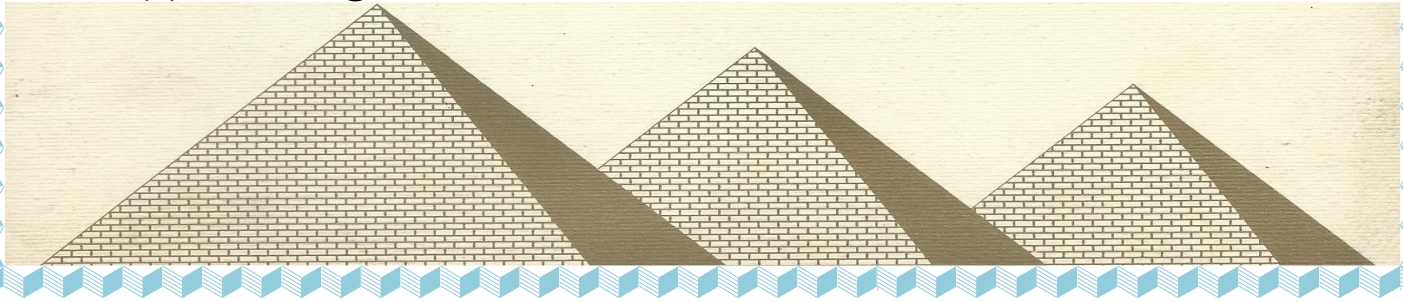
(4) Counting phonemes in words;

(5) Blending phonemes to compose words;

(6) Segmenting words into phonemes;

(7) Locating the stressed syllable within words;

(8) Isolating the initial, middle, or final sound of a word;



(9) Generating words that begin with a specific initial phoneme;

(10) Making new words by substituting one phoneme for another;

(11) Deleting a particular phoneme and regenerating a word from the remainder;

(12) Distinguishing two English sounds from each other;

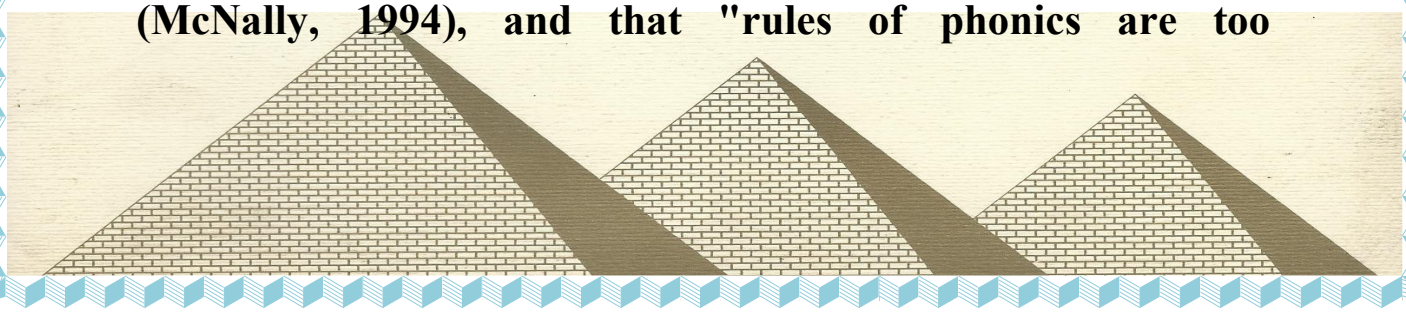
(13) Distinguishing an English sound from interfering sounds in the student's mother tongue;

(14) Specifying which sound has been left out in words like meat and eat;

(15) Recognizing rhyme in words like meet and seat;

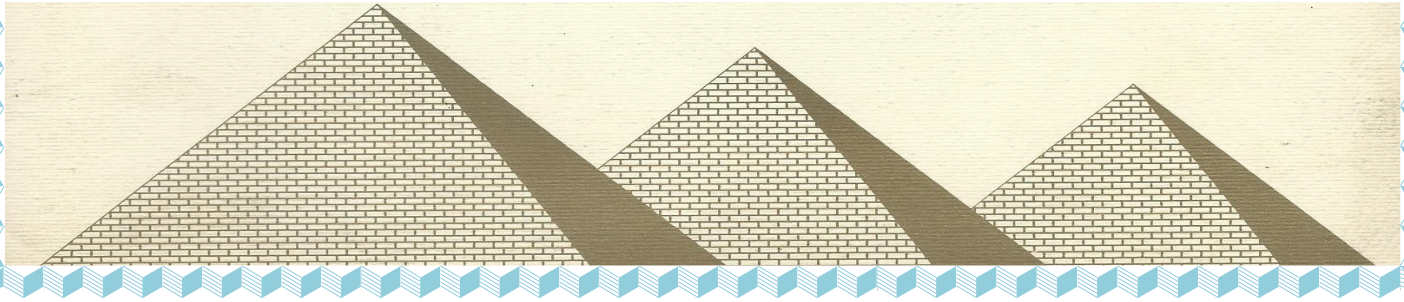
(16) Listening to a group of words to identify which one is different in pronunciation.

Advocates of the skills-based approach claim that if pronunciation is not taught, it naturally follows that errors will occur. However, opponents of this approach argue that concentrating too heavily on phonics instruction will result in losing the natural insight that language is meaningful. They also claim that sounds and stresses differ and affect one another within the flow of speech. They further claim that students cannot endure the non-contextual phonics training (McNally, 1994), and that "rules of phonics are too



complex...and too unreliable...to be useful" (Smith, 1992, p. 438). Weaver (1980) goes so far as to say, "Sounding out a word is a cumbersome, time-consuming, and unnecessary activity" (p. 86).

Whole language teachers leave pronunciation instruction out. They claim that phonics is best learned incidentally through listening, speaking, reading and writing. Winsor and Pearson (1992), for example, claim that when students engage in invented spelling during writing, they segment the speech stream into phonemes, and this, in turn, develops their phonemic awareness and phonetic knowledge. Along the same line, Weaver (1980) states, "Children can develop and use an intuitive knowledge of letter-sound correspondences [without] any phonics instruction [or] without deliberate instruction from adults" (p. 86). Goodman (1991) also states, "Talking about letters and about the sounds of letters is sheer jabberwacky. Thorough knowledge of letters and their sounds is not required in order to read words; phonic skills come with reading" (p. 108).



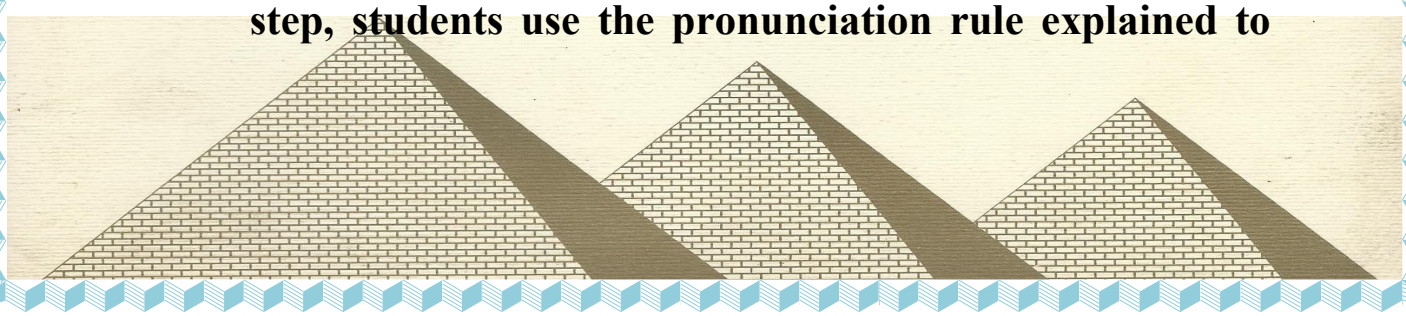
However, opponents of the whole-language approach argue that this approach provides little help in making graphic-phonemic information explicit to students; and this causes severe pronunciation problems that are difficult to erase.

In light of the foregoing, the author claims that both phonics and whole language are important, neither is satisfactory by itself. Accordingly, the comprehensive approach shifts from the presentation of phonics rules to understanding and then producing pronunciation in whole texts. Below is the three-step procedure of this approach:

(1) ***Presentation of pronunciation rules*****. In this step, the teacher explains one pronunciation rule at a time. Such a rule should be relevant to his/her students' communicative needs.**

(2) ***Understanding pronunciation in whole texts*****. In this step, the teacher provides students with an oral text in which the pronunciation rule, explained to them in step one, is used. While listening to this text, the students focus on the meanings of utterances within the context and try to acquire the pronunciation of other words from this context.**

(3) ***Using pronunciation in producing whole texts*****. In this step, students use the pronunciation rule explained to**



them as well as the rules they acquired by themselves in discussing the issue(s) raised in the text presented to them in step two and in acting out or role-playing a situation they encounter in daily life.

6.3 Summary of research on pronunciation instruction

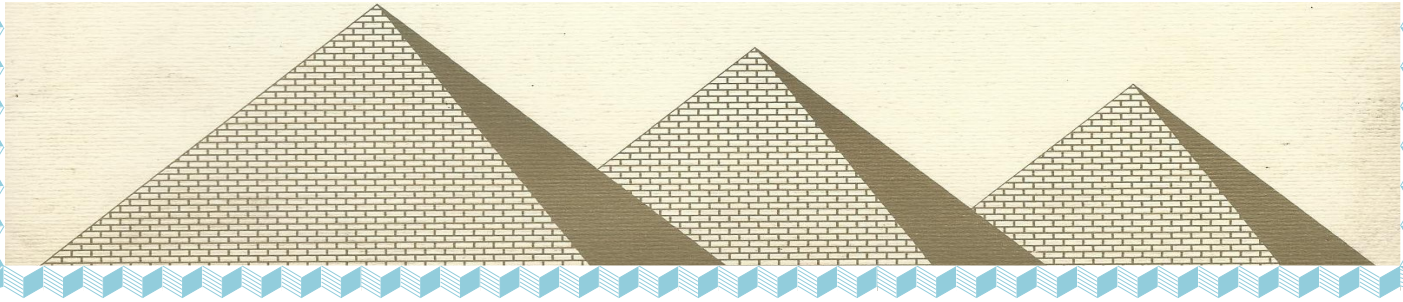
Many studies showed that the teaching of phonics through explicit instruction improved students' pronunciation skills (e.g., Griffith and Olson, 1992; Isaacs, 1996; Lundberg *et al*., 1988; Murakawa, 1982). For more studies that show the advantages of direct and systematic teaching of phonics in early grades, see Adams (1990) and Chall (1983). Other studies indicated that whole language programs resulted in the acquisition of phonics skills (e.g., Shapiro and Gunderson, 1988).

As shown, research in the area of phonics shows that both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach have positive effects on students' phonological skills. Therefore, the author claims that a comprehensive approach can yield better results than relying on either the skills-based approach or the whole-language approach alone.

Direct support of the comprehensive approach to teaching pronunciation comes from many studies which demonstrated that students who received explicit pronunciation instruction within whole language classrooms showed greater gains than either the skills-based approach or the whole-language approach alone (e.g., Castle, 1999; Larsen, 1997; Walther, 1998). For more studies that show the advantages of combining phonics and whole language in early reading instruction, see Honig (1996), and Sherman (1998).

6.4 Self-checks

1. **Pronunciation is both a prerequisite and a consequence of learning to read and speak. Discuss.**
2. **Two options exist for integrating pronunciation and whole language. Some methodologists believe that teachers should begin with discourse-level and work down to discrete sounds; others believe that teachers should begin with discrete sounds and work up to discourse-level. Which one, do you think, is more effective for EFL students? Why?**
3. **Phonics and whole language are not alternative routes to the same goals. Discuss.**



Chapter Seven

Punctuation

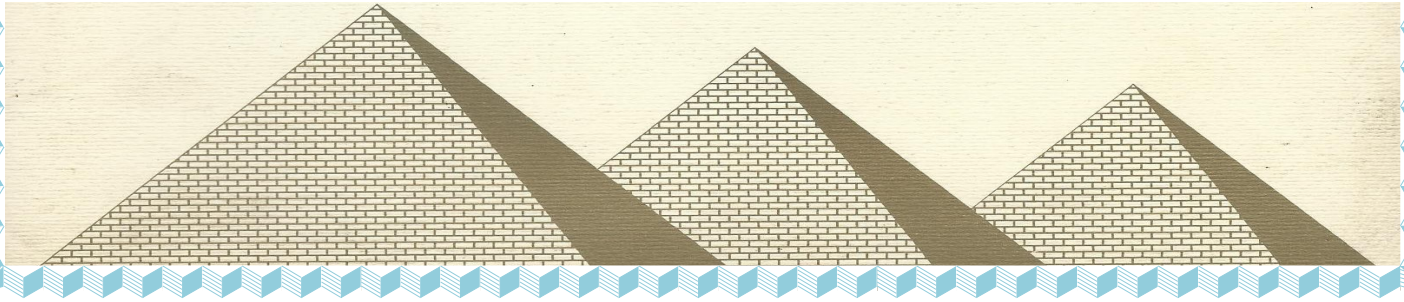
7.0 What is punctuation?

From the skill-building perspective, punctuation is defined as a collection of micro-skills including the full stop, the question mark, the colon, the semicolon, etc. From the whole language perspective, punctuation is defined as a process of making sense by grouping, dividing, organizing, separating, and categorizing ideas in whole texts.

7.1 The importance of punctuation

The importance of punctuation lies in the fact that it achieves the clarity and effectiveness of writing. It also links or separates groups of ideas and distinguishes what is important in the sentence from what is subordinate (Bruthiaux, 1993).

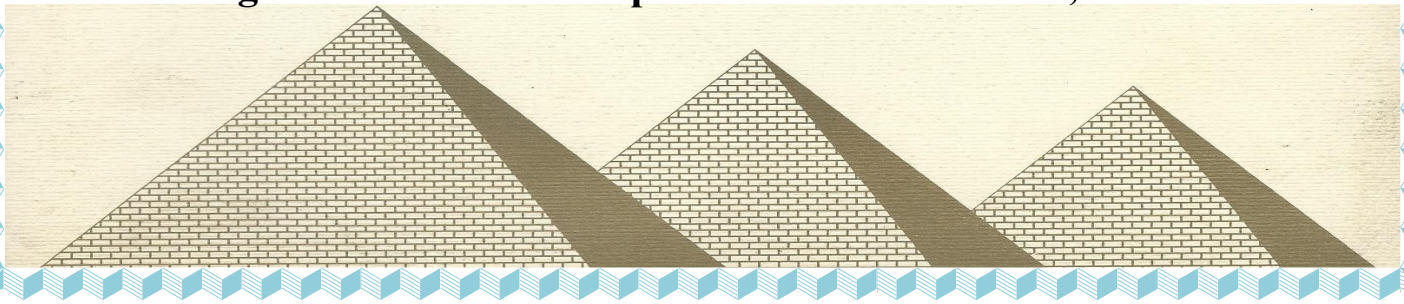
Punctuation marks are also the reader's signposts. They send out messages that say stop, ask a question, and so on (Backscheider, 1972; Rose, 1982).



7.2 The teaching and learning of punctuation

The skill-building teachers teach punctuation as a separate skill through explicit instruction of the punctuation rules. Students then practice what they have been taught by punctuating individual, uncontextualized sentences. Advocates of this approach claim that direct instruction of punctuation rules makes punctuation easier to learn. However, critics of this approach claim that such rules are meaningless when taught alone. They add that the teaching of such meaningless rules leads to rote learning and to negative attitudes towards punctuation and writing in general. These negative attitudes lead, in turn, to writing behavior whose purpose is to avoid bad writing, not to create good writing (Limaye, 1983). They also claim that direct instruction in punctuation takes the time that can be profitably spent in actual writing.

Whole language teachers leave punctuation instruction out. They claim that punctuation grows out of students' experience in reading and writing (Wilde, 1992). In spite of the fact that this approach stresses meaning, its critics claim that not all students acquire punctuation rules simply through immersion in a print-rich environment, and that

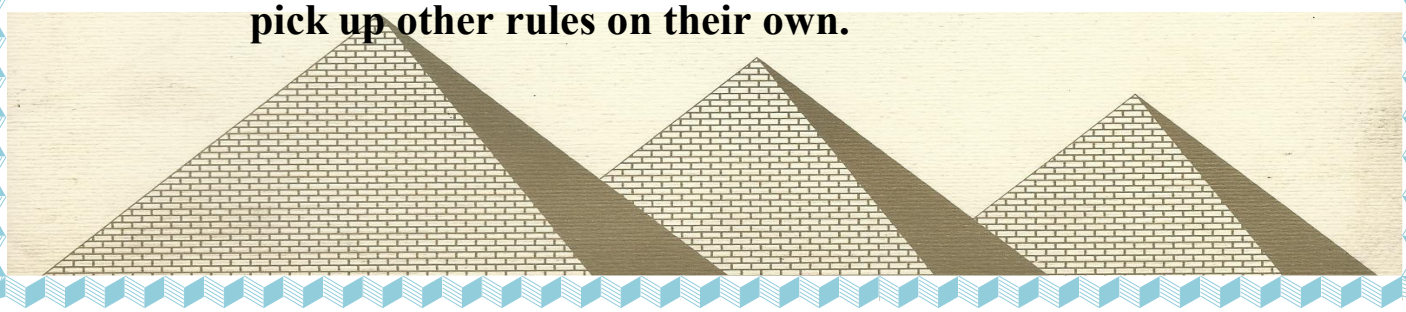


some students need direct instruction in this aspect of language.

From the foregoing, it appears that the two approaches can make a contribution—that is, none of them can do the whole job. In other words, I claim that combining the two approaches can be more effective than relying exclusively on either alone. Therefore, the so-called comprehensive approach claims that a combination of the two approaches can be superior to just adopting one of them. This approach holds that the teaching of punctuation should move from the presentation of rules to understanding and producing these rules in reading and writing activities. Here is the three-step procedure of this approach:

(1) ***Presentation of punctuation rules*****. In this step, the teacher explains one punctuation rule at a time. Such a rule should be relevant to his/her students' communicative needs.**

(2) ***Understanding punctuation in whole texts*****. In this step, the teacher provides students with a written text in which the punctuation rule, explained to them in step one, is used. While reading this text, students focus on the meaning given by this specific rule. They also try to pick up other rules on their own.**



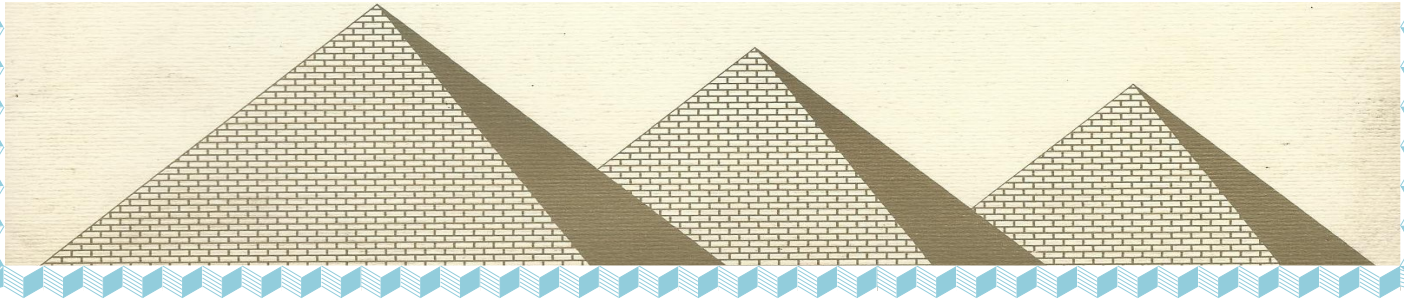
(3) *Using punctuation in producing whole texts*. **In this step, students use the punctuation rule explained to them as well as the rules they acquired by themselves in writing whole texts. In doing so, they move from summarizing the text they read in step two to creating a text of their own.**

7.3 Summary of research on punctuation instruction

A literature review related to punctuation instruction revealed that some studies demonstrated that the teaching of punctuation through explicit instruction increased students' awareness of punctuation marks (e.g., Abou-Hadid, 1994; Nazir, 1985).

Other studies indicated that whole language programs resulted in the acquisition of punctuation skills (e.g., Calkins, 1980; Edelsky, 1983).

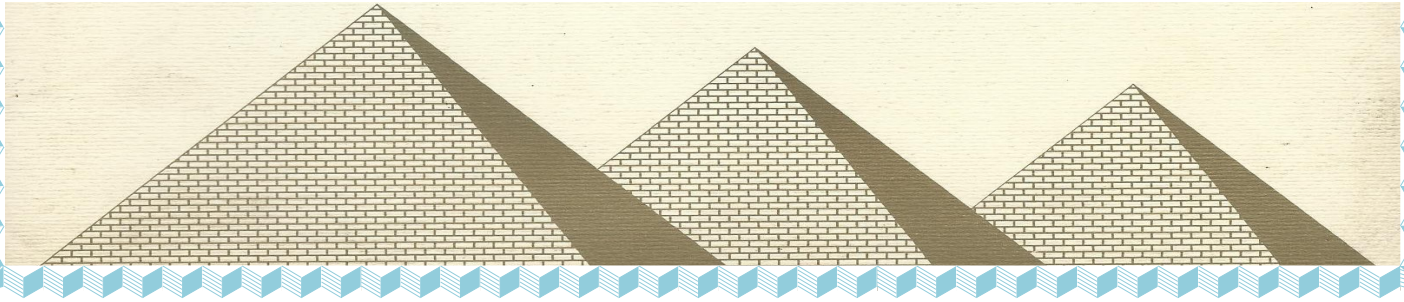
Still other studies showed that the whole-language approach was as effective as the skills-based approach in increasing students' awareness of punctuation marks (Lopez, 1986; Mancillas, 1986; Miller, 1986; Varner, 1986).



The research reviewed in this chapter is clearly in line with the author's suggestion that the teaching of punctuation should move from skills to meaning.

7.4 Self-checks

1. **Punctuation is both a prerequisite and a consequence of learning to read and write. Discuss.**
2. **Find whether you can use the whole-language approach to teaching punctuation in your classes.**
3. **It seems that rules are not sufficient for perfect punctuation. Do you think so? Why? Why not?**



Part Three

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Integrating Main Language Skills with Subsidiary Skills

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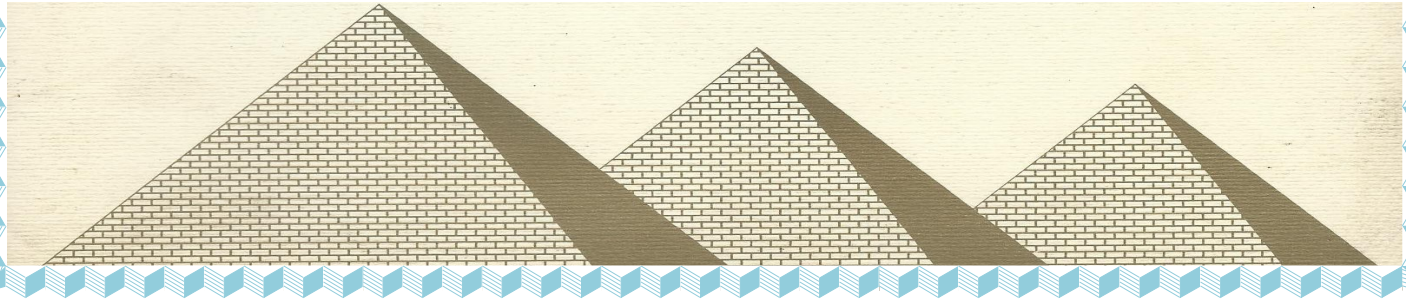


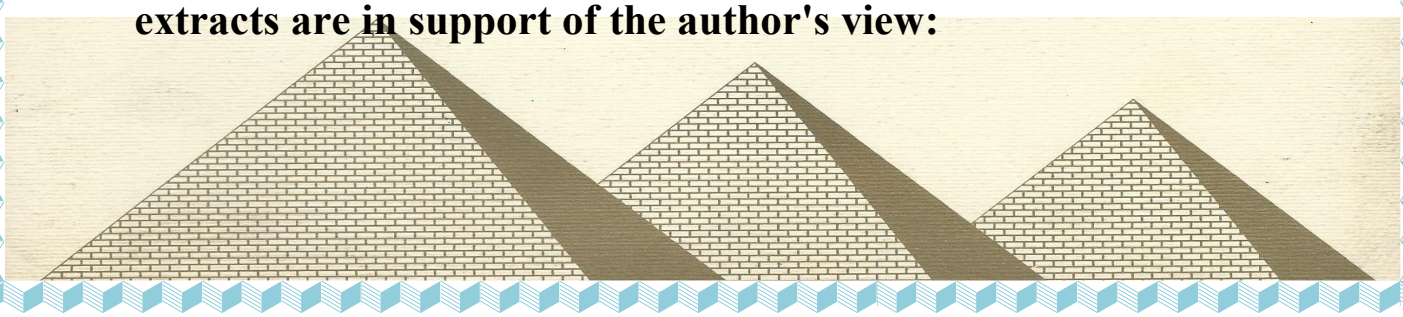
Chapter Eight

Listening

8.0 What is listening?

From the skill-building perspective, listening is defined as a collection of micro-skills, including phonics, vocabulary, grammar, etc. In this respect, some language teaching theorists and researchers have constructed a number of taxonomies delineating the micro-skills needed for effective listening (e.g., DeHaven, 1988; Field, 1997; Lund, 1990; Lundsteen, 1989; Peterson, 1991; Richards, 1983; Rivers, 1981; Rubin, 1990; Wipf, 1984). Richards' (1983) taxonomy, for example, lists 33 microskills that students need to master for effective conversational listening, and 18 microskills for academic listening. From the whole language perspective, listening is defined as an active process in which the student constructs meaning from an oral text.

The definition of listening, which in the author's opinion provides a sound theoretical base to develop listening in EFL students, must involve both skills and meaning. The following extracts are in support of the author's view:

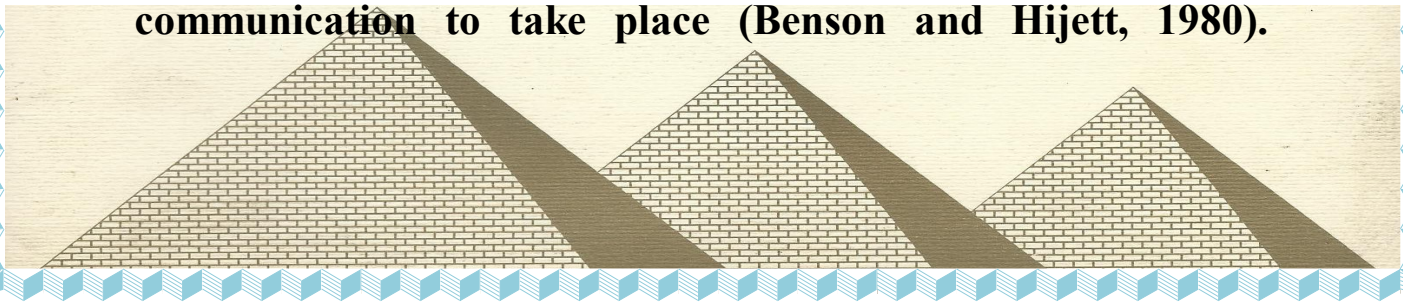


In developing classroom activities and materials for teaching listening comprehension, a clear understanding is needed of the nature of top-down and bottom-up approaches to listening and how these processes relate to different kinds of listening purposes. (Richards, 1990, p. 65)

L2 listening is not just a "bottom-up" skill in which the meaning can be derived from perception or comprehension of the sum of all discrete sounds, syllables, words, or phrases (Ur, 1984). L2 listening does indeed involve some "bottom-up" processing, but at the same time it requires substantial amounts of "top-down" processing in which meaning is inferred from broad contextual clues and background knowledge (Richards, 1983). (Oxford, 1993, p. 207)

8.1 The importance of listening

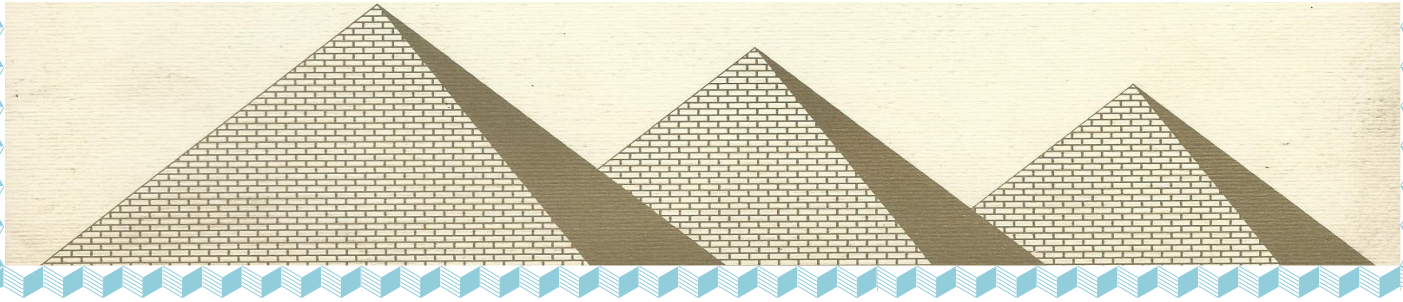
There are a number of reasons why listening is important for first- and second-language learners. Firstly, and most importantly, listening is an essential prerequisite for oral communication to take place (Benson and Hijett, 1980).



Secondly, it often influences the development of reading and writing (Scarcella and Oxford, 1992), and helps to enlarge students' vocabulary (Rubin, 1982). Thirdly, it plays a central role in academic success because the lecture remains the most widely used method for instruction at all levels (Dunkel, 1991; Powers, 1985).

8.2 The teaching and learning of listening

In skills-based classrooms, the teaching of listening emphasizes the mastery of the subskills involved in listening for hope that students themselves would put these subskills together and become proficient listeners. These subskills include identifying isolated speech sounds, recognizing words with reduced syllables, recognizing the stress patterns of words, distinguishing between similar-sounding words (as between cat and cut), recognizing reduced forms of words, discriminating between intonation contours in spoken sentences, recognizing typical word-order patterns, etc. These subskills and many others are mastered individually through direct explanation, modeling and repetition. The mastery of each subskill is then measured by means of a discrete-point test before moving to the next.



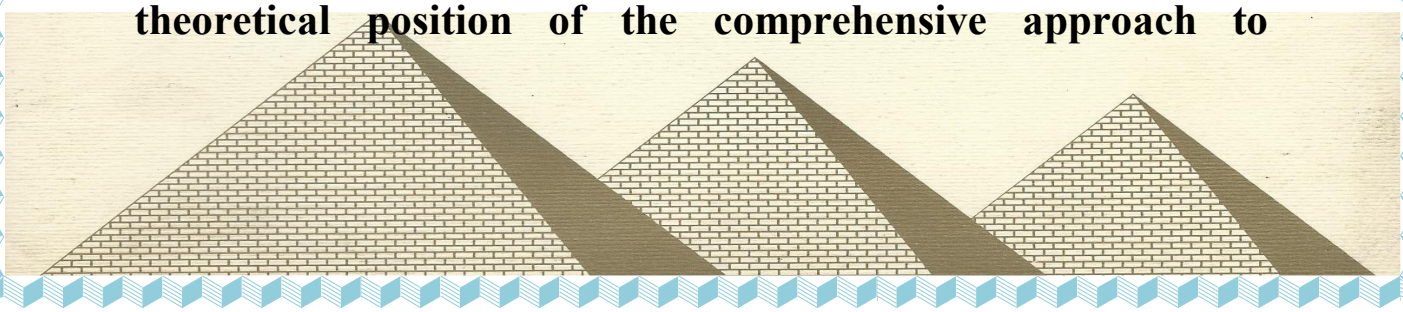
Although efficient auditory perception underlies effective listening, it is not right to suppose that learning to listen involves massive practice with decoding alone (Rost, 1992).

In whole language classrooms, listening is learned as a unitary art because normal speech, as whole language theoreticians believe is continuous and not chopped up into discrete sounds. Therefore, whole language teachers teach listening in real, meaningful communication settings. In these settings, students fit everything they hear into a context.

It is clear that the whole-language approach stresses meaning at the expense of skills in spite of the fact that the lack of skills can present an obstacle to FL comprehension. This is largely because FL listeners are still mastering the basic patterns of phonology and grammar which the native speaker understands so effortlessly.

As mentioned above, it seems that the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach are not mutually exclusive but rather tend to complement each other.

The preceding discussion also offers support for the theoretical position of the comprehensive approach to

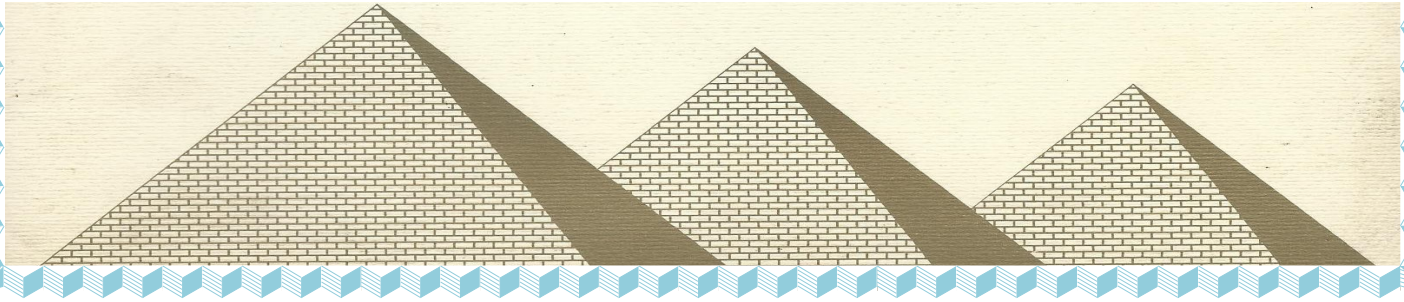


teaching FL listening. This approach suggests the following three-step procedure for the teaching of listening to EFL students:

(1) *Presentation of listening skills*. In this step, the teacher explains some new vocabulary, a new structure and a phonics rule. Such skills should provide the basis for the other two steps.

(2) *Guided listening*. In this step, students listen to a short passage or dialogue. While listening, and under the guidance of their teacher, students focus on the meanings of the language items explained to them in step one. They also try to guess the meanings of other language items from the context.

(3) *Independent listening*. In this step, each student independently listens to a passage or dialogue compatible with his/her prior knowledge. After listening, s/he proceeds on her/his own from answering questions about the ideas explicitly stated in the text, to answering questions that require information inferred from or implied in this text. S/he then discusses what s/he listened to with other students.

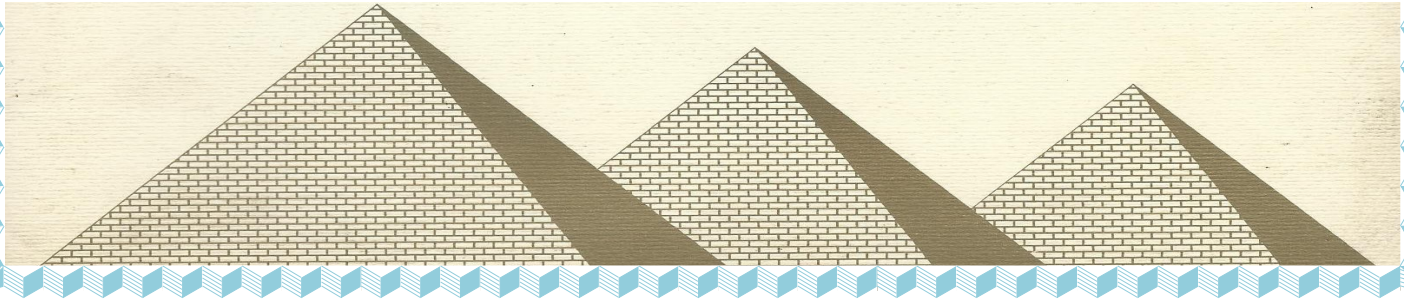


8.3 Summary of research on listening instruction

Although relatively little research is available in the area of listening, some studies showed that proficiency in listening was attained through direct instruction in listening subskills (e.g., Al-Gameel, 1982; Cosgrove and Patterson, 1978; Geiss and Mayer, 1998; Ironsmith and Whitehurst, 1978; Ratliff, 1987). On the other hand, Stelly (1991) found that the whole-language approach was effective in improving listening comprehension.

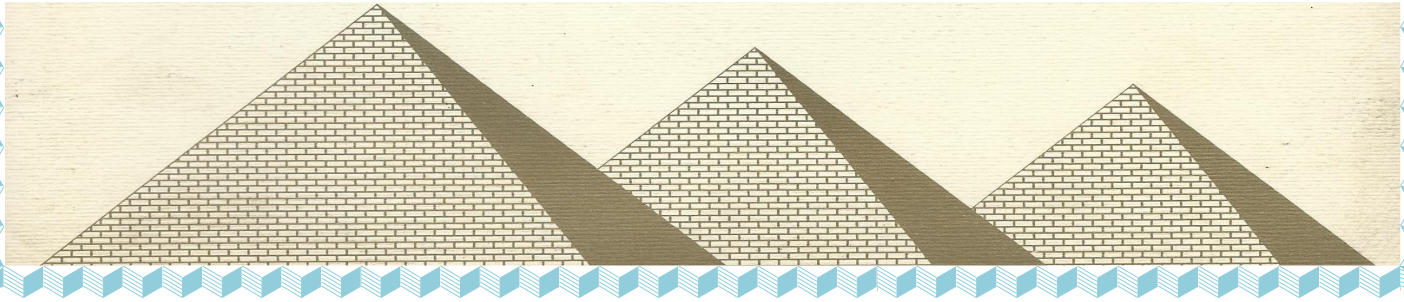
Viewed collectively, previous research on listening instruction provides indirect evidence that a combination of both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach can boost students' listening above the levels that occur with either alone.

Direct support for the comprehensive approach also comes from two studies done by El-Koumy (2000, 2002). These studies showed that the skills-based approach was effective only for low ability listeners, whereas the whole-language approach was effective only for high ability listeners. These results suggest that the comprehensive approach can serve both low and high ability listeners.



8.4 Self-checks

1. **Which of the three approaches mentioned in this chapter do you feel most comfortable with? Why?**
2. **With reference to the three-step procedure given in 8.2, develop a listening lesson plan for one of the lessons you teach. Find out how well, or badly, it works with your students.**
3. **Aural decoding is essential for listening comprehension, but it is not sufficient. Discuss.**



Chapter Nine

Speaking

9.0 What is speaking?

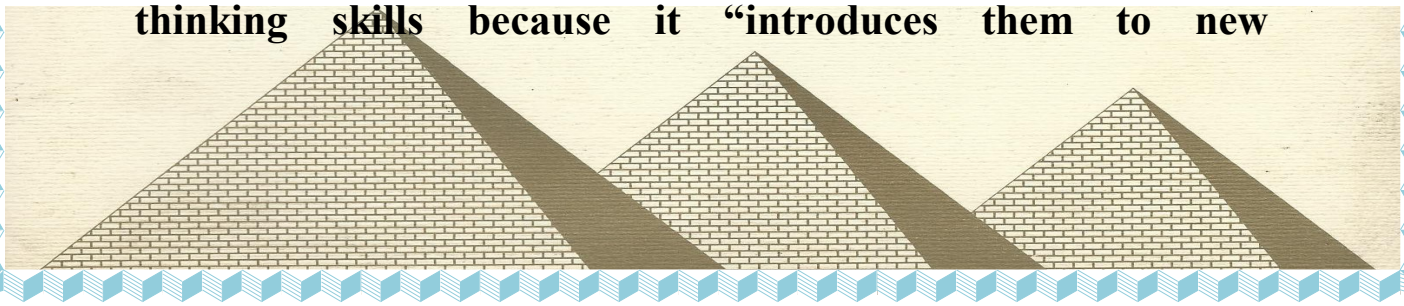
From the skill-building perspective, speaking is defined as a collection of micro-skills, including vocabulary, grammar, pronunciation, etc. From the whole language perspective, speaking is defined as an oral process of meaning construction and expression.

The definition of speaking, which in the author's opinion provides a sound theoretical base to promote speaking in EFL students, must combine both skills and meaning.

9.1 The importance of speaking

In the modern world, English is used as an international language in many fields such as diplomacy, trade and tourism. Non-native speakers, therefore, frequently find themselves in many situations where they have to speak in English.

Moreover, talk in the classroom can develop students' thinking skills because it "introduces them to new



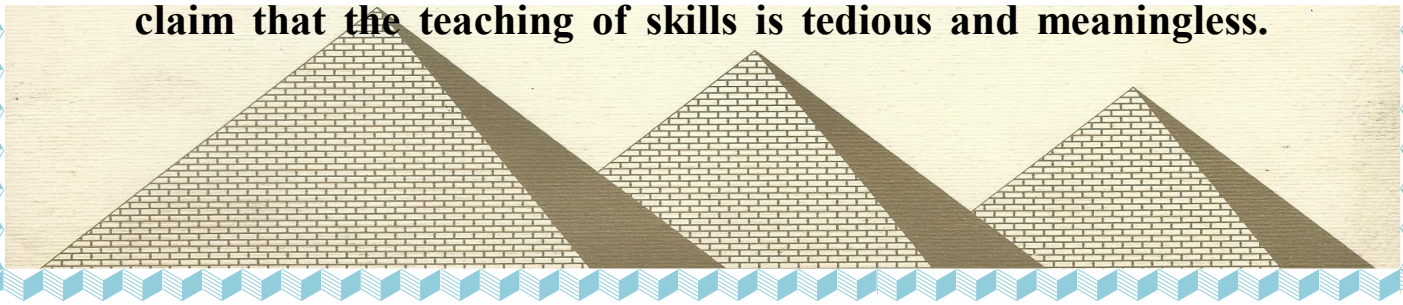
perspectives [that] ... facilitate reflection and innovative thinking" (Wollman-Bonilla, 1993, p. 49).

Speaking is also regarded by some linguists as the foundation for other language skills. As Palmer (1965) points out, "Learning to speak a language is always by far the shortest road to learning to read and to write it" (p. 15). In the same vein, research suggests that "the practice of hurrying children away from talk into work with paper and pencil – of discounting their oracy – has grave effects on their literacy" (Gillard, 1996, p. xiii).

9.2 The teaching and learning of speaking

In skills-based classrooms, speaking is taught as a set of discrete subskills through oral mechanical drills. These subskills include pronouncing the distinctive sounds of the English language, using stress and intonation patterns, using the correct forms of words, putting words in correct word order, etc. On the other hand, in whole language classrooms, the ability to speak is developed from spontaneous interaction in naturalistic situations.

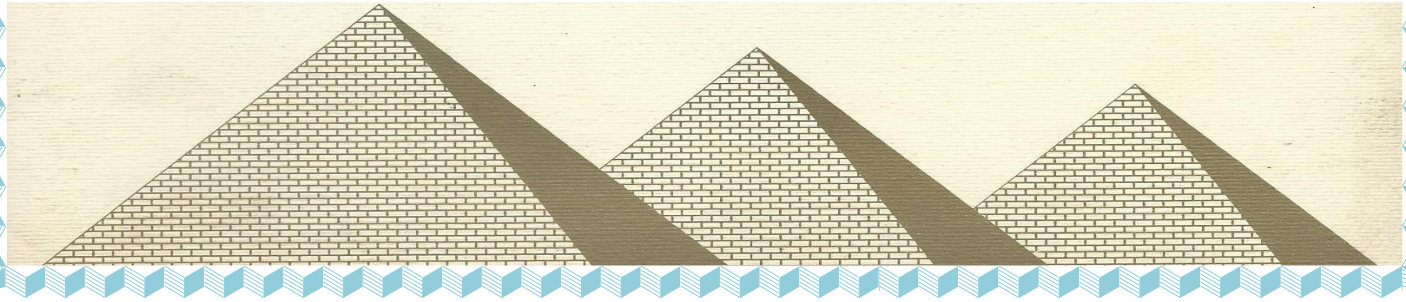
Opponents of the skills-based approach to teaching speaking claim that the teaching of skills is tedious and meaningless.



On the other hand, opponents of the whole-language approach claim that spontaneous interaction may lead students to cease progress at a certain level. They further claim that no one can speak effectively without language form. Additionally, unlike native speakers, FL beginners cannot spontaneously interact with the teacher or with one another because they lack the skills that enable them to do so.

On the basis of the preceding discussion, it is the author's contention that ignoring skills or meaning may result in making speech generation more difficult for EFL students. In other words, I claim that both skills and meaning are necessary for students to speak a foreign language fluently.

In support of the author's view, Dobson (1989) suggests that for teaching speaking to EFL students, the teacher should "help the student move from pseudo-communication, in which his use of English is fictitiously concocted and predictable, to communication where he expresses his personal ideas and needs in the context of reality" (p. 1). Accordingly, the comprehensive approach holds that the teaching of speaking to EFL students should move from oral drills to guided conversation, and finally to free-

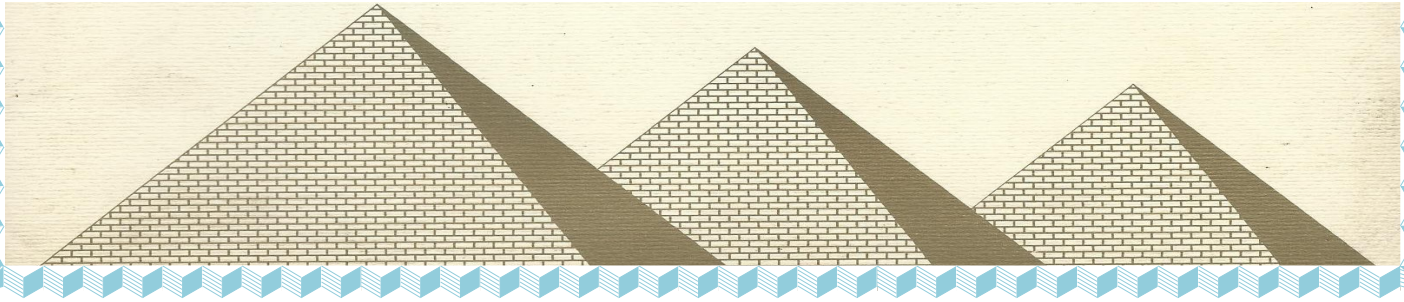


communication in every lesson. This three-step procedure is explained below.

(1) *Presentation of speaking skills*. In this step, the teacher explains the reduced forms of some words and/or phrases, a speaking rule and a phonics rule. Such skills should provide the basis for the other two steps.

(2) *Guided conversation*. In this step, the teacher prompts students to interact with him/her or with one another, within the limits of their competence and the new materials introduced in step one and in previous lessons. S/he can use "Ask me/your colleague What/When/ Where...." or "Ask me/your colleague if...."

(3) *Free conversation.* In this step, the teacher provides opportunities for the students to engage actively in using the newly introduced language items, among others, in peer or small group discussions. In these discussions, students express themselves in an uncontrolled way. Meanwhile, the teacher can move among them to make sure that every student is participating.



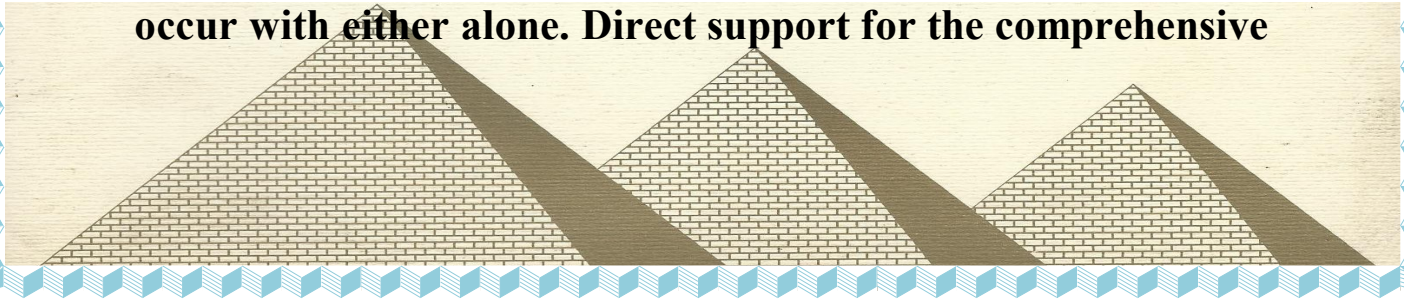
9.3 Summary of research on speaking instruction

In support of the skills-based approach to teaching speaking, a number of studies showed that proficiency in speaking was attained through direct instruction in speaking skills (e.g., Al-Gameel, 1982; Donahue and Bryan, 1983; Gafaar, 1982; Hieke, 1981; Sonnenschein and Whitehurst, 1980; Whitehurst, 1976; Whitehurst and Merkur, 1977).

On the other hand, Starvish (1985) found that the whole-language approach was effective in improving speech generation.

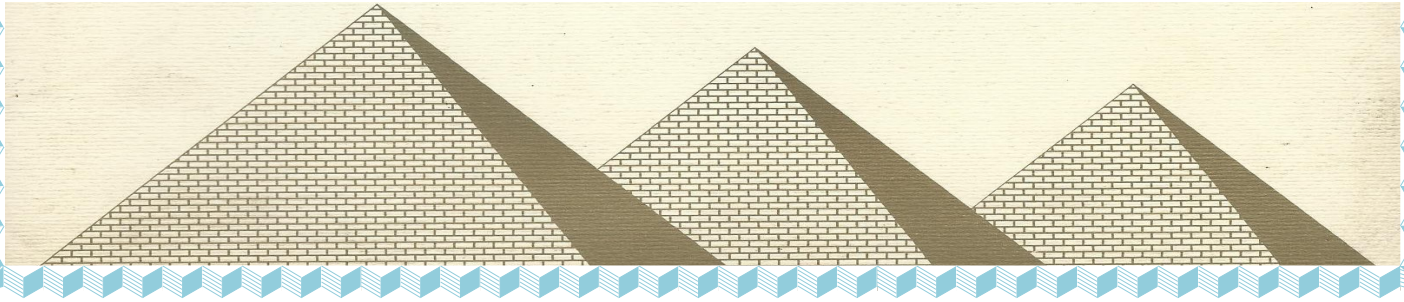
Indirect support for the skills-based approach to teaching speaking also comes from a study done by Howe (1985). This study revealed a higher positive correlation between phonological, morphological, syntactic, and semantic processes involved in speech generation.

Viewed collectively, previous research on speaking instruction provides indirect evidence that a combination of both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach can boost students' speaking above the levels that occur with either alone. Direct support for the comprehensive



approach also comes from studies done by Higgs and Clifford (1982) and Porter (1986).

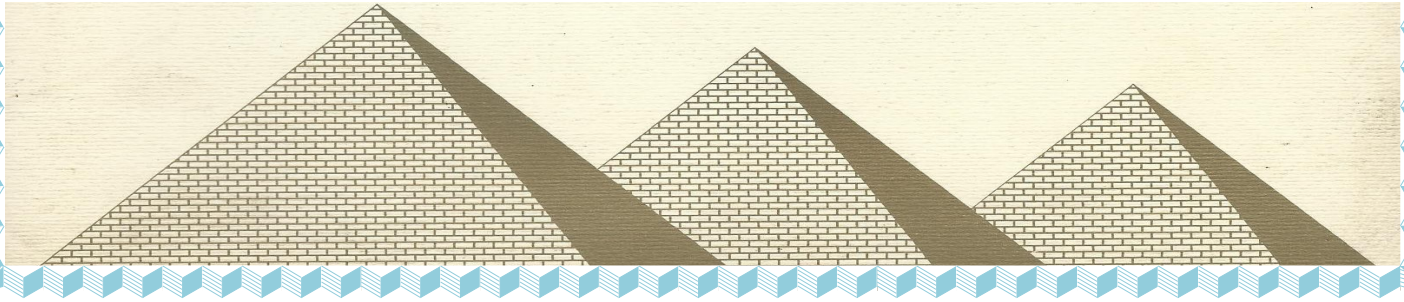
Higgs and Clifford (1982) found that learners in a class of foreign/second language, labeled terminal 2/2+, were stuck at the Advanced/Advanced-Plus level of speaking on the ACTFL proficiency scale. (The 2/2+ level was described as the ability to "fully participate in casual conversation, express facts, give instructions, describe, report on, and provide narration about current, past, and future activities".) That is, they exhibited "fossilized" language behavior that they were apparently unable to ameliorate. Higgs and Clifford attributed this phenomenon to arriving at this level through "communication-first" experience—either in a classroom where grammatical precision was not valued or through learning the language in a natural, uninstructed setting. They compared these terminal learners to others who arrived at the same point through an "accuracy-first" program and found that learners in the latter group were capable of progressing beyond the 2/2+ boundary. These data imply that accuracy-based, explicit instruction is necessary in order to avoid producing students who cease progress in speech generation at a certain level.



In her study Porter (1986) found that ESL learners could not provide each other with the accurate grammatical and sociolinguistic input. In discussing the implication of this finding, she stated that teachers have to make explicit presentation of appropriate language in the classroom.

9.4 Self-checks

1. The author suggests a three-step procedure for teaching speaking to EFL students. What are the differences among these steps in terms of the teacher's role, the student's role, and the teaching/learning materials?
2. The procedure suggested by the author for the teaching of speaking incorporates speaking with vocabulary, grammar, and phonics. Discuss.
3. Choose a speaking lesson from the textbook you use and teach it in light of the three-step procedure mentioned before. Discuss the results with your colleagues.

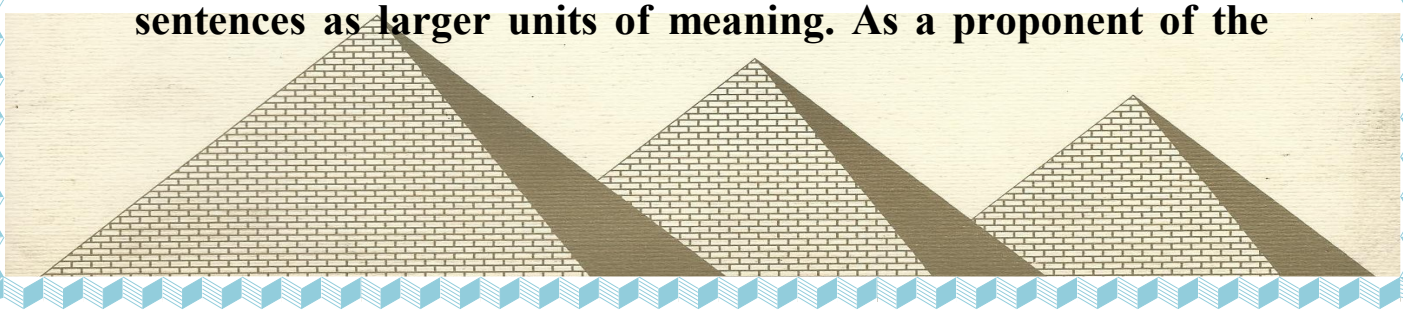


Chapter Ten

Reading

10.0 What is reading?

The skills-based approach views reading as a collection of separate skills, including phonics, word recognition, grammar, etc. Under the influence of this view, a number of reading specialists have extrapolated sets of micro-skills which they assume to be necessary for reading comprehension. In this regard, Gough (1972), like many others (e.g., Gough and Juel, 1991; LaBerge and Samuels, 1974), divides reading into two major components: (1) graphemic information and (2) phonemic patterns. Flood and Lapp (1991) separate reading into four major components: (1) knowledge of letters and sound correspondences, (2) knowledge of words and word forms, (3) knowledge of grammatical structures of sentences and their functions, and (4) knowledge of meanings and semantic relations. Similarly, Smith (1997) suggests that the mechanics of reading include: (1) basic vocabulary and syntactic competence, (2) recognizing letters, (3) pairing graphic shapes with sounds, and (4) recognizing words as smaller units of meaning and sentences as larger units of meaning. As a proponent of the



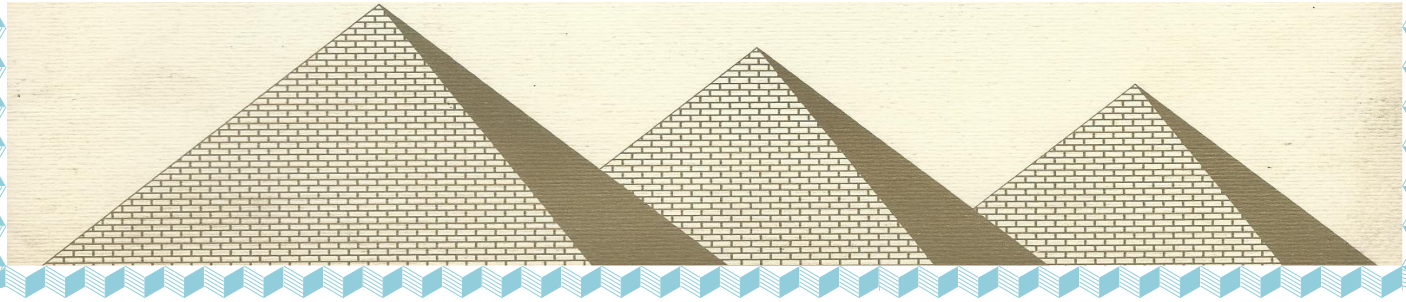
skills-based approach, Randall (1996) views reading as decoding of visual symbols or letters and suggests that word recognition skills should be given a high priority within any reading course for EFL beginners.

The whole-language approach adopts the opposite viewpoint that reading is an active process in which the reader constructs meaning from a written text. As Smith (1994) puts it:

> **Identification or apprehension of meaning does not require the prior identification of words. Reading usually involves bringing meaning immediately or directly to the text without awareness of individual words or their possible alternative meanings. (p. 149)**

The definition of reading, which in the author's opinion provides a sound theoretical base to develop reading in EFL students, must combine both skills and meaning. In support of this view, Carrell (1989) states:

> **Both top-down and bottom-up processing, functioning interactively, are necessary to an**



> **adequate understanding of second language reading and reading comprehension. (p. 4)**

Supporting the same view, Fritz (1996) says:

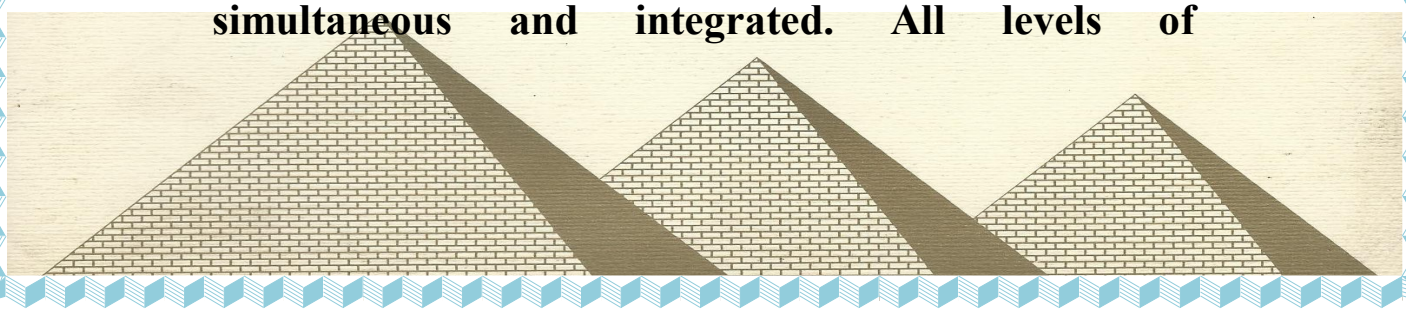
> **I propose that both bottom-up and top-down reading processes are equally vital to the general process of reading, each in its own right. (p. 38)**

McDonough and Shaw (1993) also support the same balanced view saying:

> **In many cases an efficient reader appears to use what are called 'top-down' and 'bottom-up' strategies.... In other words, the top-down process interacts with the bottom-up process in order to aid comprehension. (p. 109)**

Norris and Hoffman (1993) also emphasize the importance of combining both skills and meaning in the teaching of reading comprehension in this way:

> **Ignoring either top-down or bottom-up cues results in making the reading process more artificial and difficult than natural language processing, which is simultaneous and integrated. All levels of**



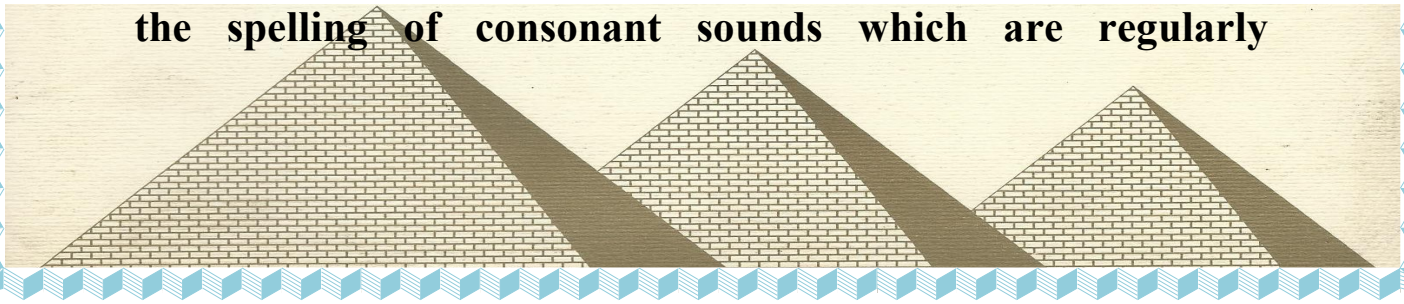
information are necessary to the process of reconstructing the author's message, and a disruption of any one level will have reciprocal effects on all levels. (p. 145)

10.1 The importance of reading

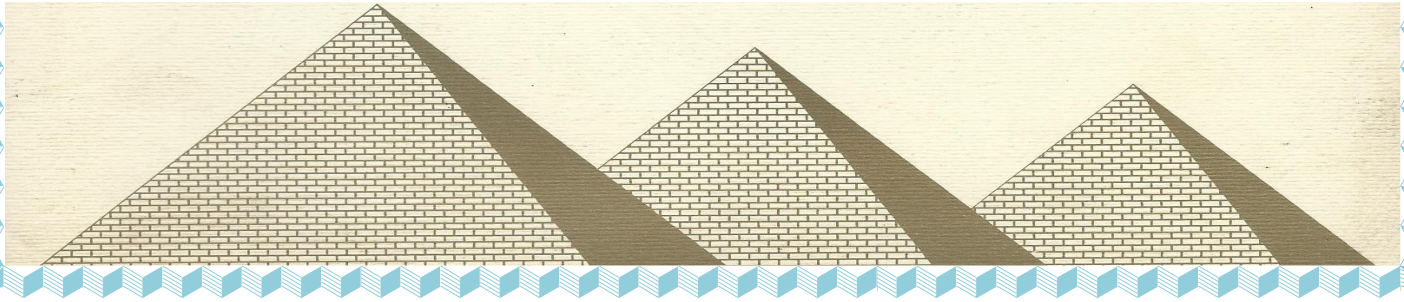
Reading English as a foreign language is very important for several reasons. First, it is critical to success in some academic majors such as medicine and engineering in Egyptian universities. Second, it is a useful source for information that might be missed in class lectures (Huckin and Bloch, 1993). Third, it can improve native language reading (Levine and Reves 1985). Fourth, it can accelerate foreign language learning and improve other language skills (Cohen, 1990; Harmer, 1998). Finally, it is a major means of learning both vocabulary (Herman *et al*., 1987; Nagy and Anderson, 1984; Nagy *et al*., 1987) and spelling (Cunningham and Stanovich, 1990; Stanovich and West, 1989).

10.2 The teaching and learning of reading

In skills-based classrooms, reading is taught sequentially as a set of discrete subskills. These subskills include distinguishing between isolated sounds in the foreign language, identifying the spelling of consonant sounds which are regularly



represented by a combination of letters, identifying the pronunciation of the verb suffixes: --s, --es, --ed, identifying the pronunciation of the noun suffixes: --s, --'s, --s', identifying long and short vowels, contrasting hard and soft sounds, identifying vowel diphthongs, contrasting homophones (i.e., words that are identical in pronunciation but different in spelling, e.g., missed and mist), contrasting homographs (i.e., words that are identical in spelling but different in meaning and sometimes pronunciation, e.g., minute as very small and part of time), identifying commonly confused and mispronounced words (e.g., accept, expect, and except), recognizing morphemic units (roots, prefixes, and suffixes), identifying syllables within words, dividing words into syllables, locating syllable boundaries within multisyllabic words, locating the accented syllables, determining the grammatical categories that words and phrases fall into, distinguishing between similar-sounding words, identifying stressed and unstressed syllables, identifying word-divisions, recognizing word order patterns in the target language, producing phonemes and blending them together into a word, etc. These subskills and many others are mastered individually through direct explanation, modeling and repetition. The mastery of each subskill is then



measured by means of a discrete-point test before moving to the next.

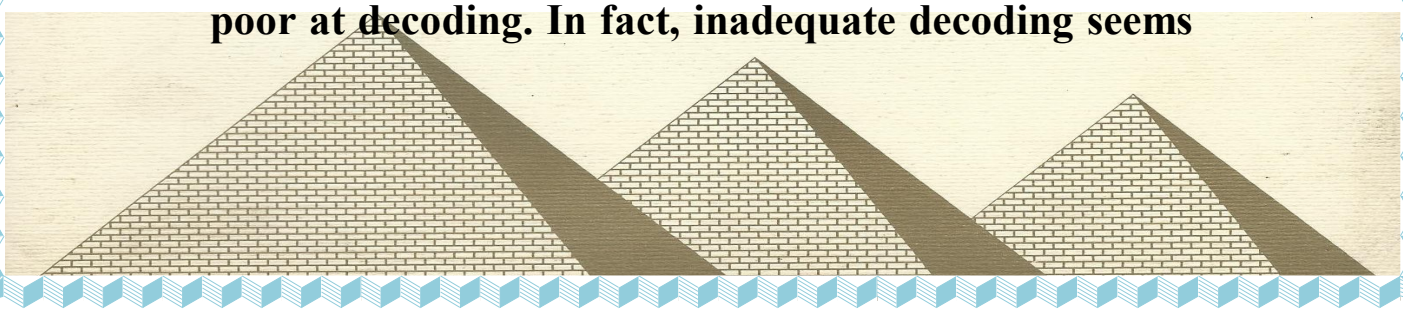
In whole language classrooms, reading is taught by reading whole texts in which all reading subskills are integrated and fully accessible to the learner. Advocates of this approach hold that language must be kept whole when it is read and that teachers make reading difficult "by breaking whole (natural) language into bitesize abstract little pieces" (Goodman, 1986, p. 7). They also hold that the ability to read evolves naturally out of students' experiences in much the same way that oral language develops.

Opponents of the skills-based approach to teaching reading claim that fragmenting written language destroys or distorts meaning which is the ultimate goal of reading instruction (Anderson, 1984). They add that this approach is boring and may produce students who are bored and turned off to reading (Freeman and Freeman, 1992). Goodman, (1974) goes so far as to say, "Accuracy, correctly naming or identifying each word or word part in a graphic sequence, is not necessary for effective reading since the reader can get the meaning without accurate word identification…. Furthermore, readers who strive for accuracy are likely to be

inefficient" (p. 826). Along the same line of thought, Smith, (1992) asserts that "the worst readers are those who try to sound out unfamiliar words according to the rules of phonics" (p.438).

On the other hand, opponents of the whole-language approach claim that focusing on whole language ignores decoding, which is central to reading comprehension. Adams (1990), for example, considers decoding just like the gasoline for the car. She adds that without gas, the car cannot run, and without decoding, there is no reading comprehension. Eskey (1989) adds that even guessing at meaning is not a substitute for accurate decoding. Yorio (1971) asserts that accurate decoding is especially important to foreign language reading because "the [FL] reader's knowledge is not like that of the native speaker; the guessing or predicting ability necessary to pick up cues is hindered by the imperfect knowledge of the language" (p. 108). In support of the view that decoding is essential to reading comprehension, Eldredge (1995) states:

> **Individuals who are fluent decoders . . . generally comprehend written text better than those who are poor at decoding. In fact, inadequate decoding seems**



> **to be a hallmark of poor readers (Cartnine, Cartnine, and Gertsen, 1984, Lesgold and Curtis, 1981). Good decoders find it easier to comprehend written text than poor decoders simply because they have less difficulty in translating print into language. (p. 19)**

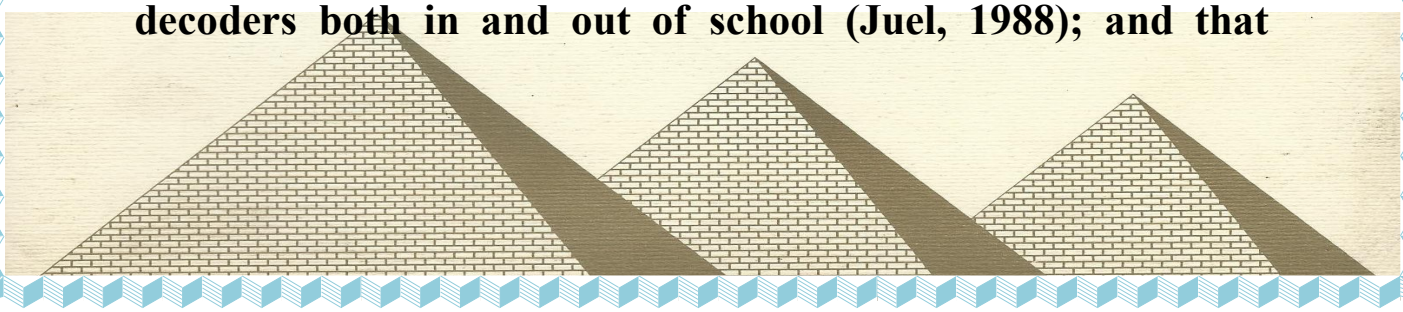
Gough and Juel (1991) express the same point saying:

> **Poor decoding skill leads to little reading and little opportunity to increase one's basic vocabulary and knowledge, leaving a shaky foundation for later reading comprehension. (p. 55)**

Mason *et al*. (1991) also emphasize that decoding is central to reading comprehension in this way:

> **Skilled readers have the ability to identify words fluently and effortlessly .... The process of identifying words becomes subservient to text meaning and overall understanding .... Clearly, proficiency in word identification is central to the reading act. (p. 722)**

Research has also shown that poor decoders express a dislike for reading and read considerably less than the good decoders both in and out of school (Juel, 1988); and that



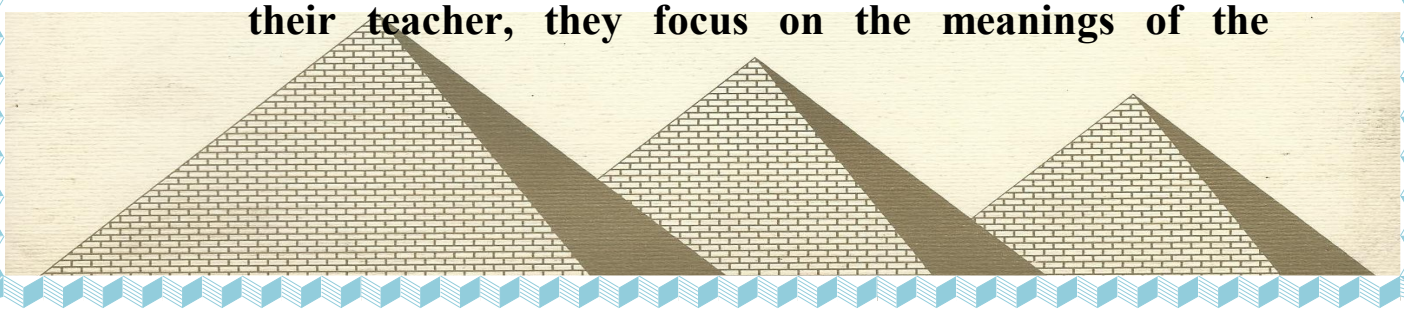
there is a high correlation between decoding skills and reading comprehension (e.g., Boger, 1987; Lesgold and Resnick, 1982; Lesgold *et al*., 1985; Perfetti, 1985).

In light of the previously-mentioned deficiencies of both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach to teaching reading, it seems that both approaches are complementary, with one's strength being the other's weakness, and vice versa. It also seems that it would be unreasonable to use one of them to the exclusion of the other.

Therefore, the author calls for a comprehensive approach that emphasizes both skills and meaning. That is, an approach in which skills and meaning operate as complements rather than substitutes for each other. According to this approach, any reading lesson should move from skills to meaning as follows:

(1) *Presentation of reading skills*. In this step, the teacher explains some new vocabulary, a new structure and a phonics rule. Such skills should be selected from the dialogue or passage students are going to read.

(2) *Guided reading*. In this step, students read a dialogue or passage. While reading, and under the guidance of their teacher, they focus on the meanings of the



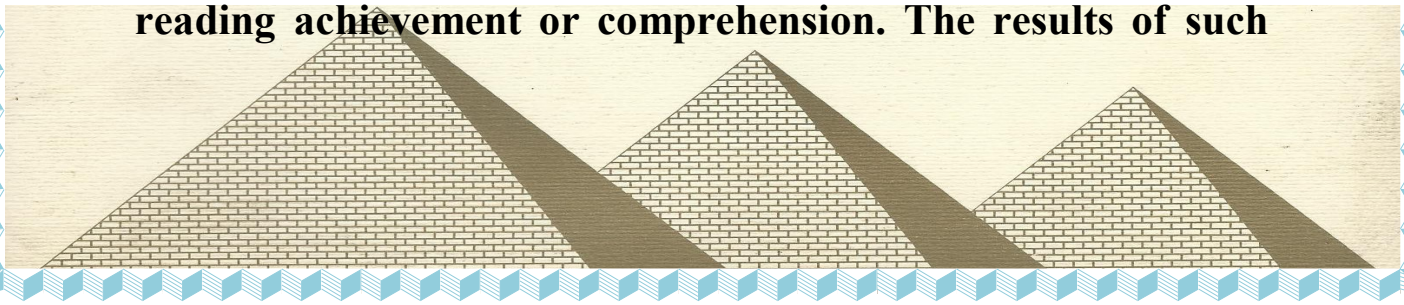
language items explained to them in step one. They also guess the meanings of other language items from the context.

(3) *Independent reading*. In this step, each student independently reads a whole text which is compatible with her/his language competence. After that, s/he answers comprehension questions and discusses what s/he has read with other students.

In any reading lesson, the teacher should move through all the previously-mentioned steps at the preparatory (pre-intermediate) level. Accordingly, the materials utilized in these steps should be adapted to suit the students' proficiency level.

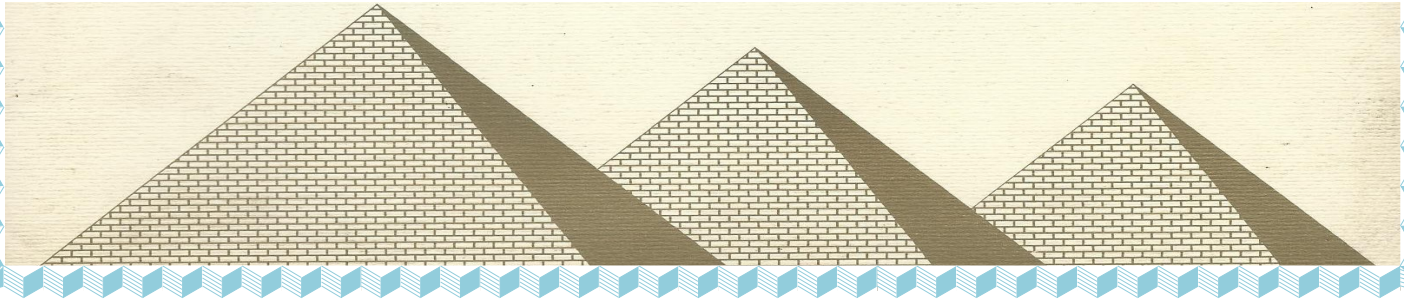
10.3 Summary of research on reading instruction

A review of research on reading instruction showed that although the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach have contrasting views, both have been valued by researchers as useful instructional approaches for developing reading comprehension. Some studies obtained positive results with the skills-based approach. These studies examined the mastery of certain subskills and their effect on reading achievement or comprehension. The results of such



studies revealed that: (1) Training in phonemic awareness improved students' reading ability (e.g., Bradley and Bryant, 1983; Lundberg *et al*., 1988; Olofsson and Lundberg, 1985; Treiman and Baron, 1983; Vellutino and Scanlon, 1987); (2) Explicit teaching of letter-sound correspondences facilitated reading acquisition (e.g., Anderson *et al*., 1985; Williams, 1985); (3) Instruction in spelling had a strong positive effect on measures of beginning reading (e.g., Bradley, 1988; Bradley and Bryant, 1985; Uhry, 1989); (4) Vocabulary instruction improved reading comprehension (e.g., Cziko, 1980; Davis, 1989; McDaniel and Pressley, 1986); (5) Direct teaching of sentence combining improved reading comprehension (e.g., McAfee, 1981); (6) Teaching students about text structure improved their reading comprehension (e.g., Armbruster *et al*., 1987; Carrell, 1985; Idol and Croll, 1987); (7) Inference training improved reading comprehension (e.g., Hansen, 1981; Hansen and Pearson, 1983).

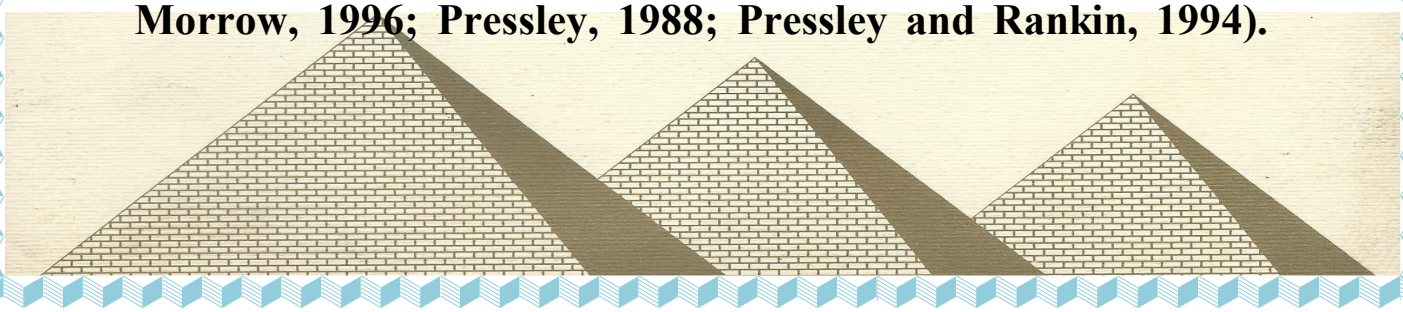
A second group of studies reported that the whole-language approach was effective in improving reading comprehension (e.g., Azwell, 1990; Crawford, 1995; Otero, 1993; Stasko, 1991; Stice and Bertrand, 1989).



A third group of studies revealed that the skills-based approach and the whole language approach resulted in an equivalent statistical effect on reading comprehension (e.g., Bitner, 1992; Cirulli, 1995; Ezell, 1995; Holland and Hall, 1989; Koch, 1993; Mercer, 1992; Wilson, 1998).

Viewed collectively, the above results provide indirect evidence for the position that a combination of the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach to teaching reading comprehension can meet the needs of students of all reading abilities and result in superior reading gains. It is also clear that the above results suggest that both skills and meaning are necessarily equal to reading comprehension. In this regard, Stahl and Miller (1989) suggest that the whole-language approach is more effective for teaching the functional aspects of reading such as print concepts, whereas direct instruction is better at helping students master word recognition skills.

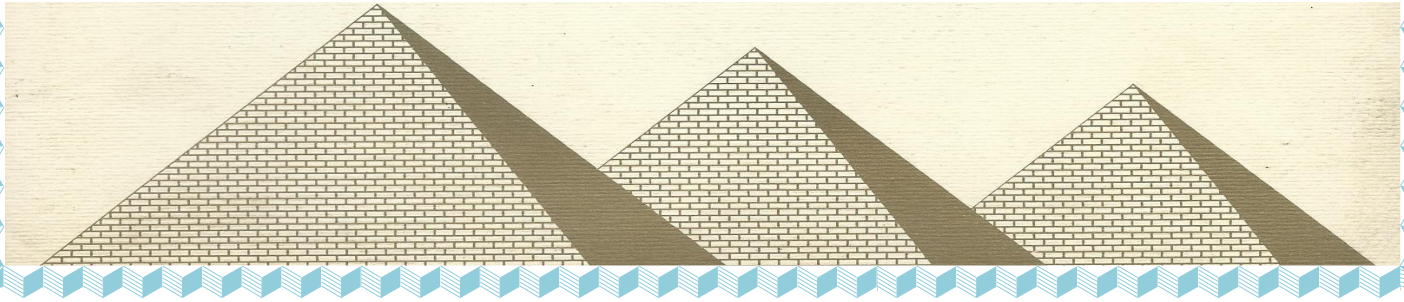
Direct support for the comprehensive approach to teaching reading comprehension comes from many practitioners and researchers all over the world (e.g., Adams, 1990; Batjes and Brown, 1997; California Department of Education, 1987; Morrow, 1996; Pressley, 1988; Pressley and Rankin, 1994).



After reviewing several research studies in the area of reading, Adams (1990), for example, came to the conclusion that "approaches in which systematic code instruction is included along with meaningful connected reading result in superior reading achievement overall" (p. 578).

10.4 Self-checks

1. **Do you think that less competent readers can self-regulate their reading strategies to remediate comprehension failures? Why? Why not?**
2. **Take any piece of reading material from an EFL textbook and develop a plan of how you can teach it using the comprehensive approach procedure. Teach this plan to one of your classes and find out how interesting and/or useful it is.**
3. **Interview some of your students to know their attitudes towards the comprehensive approach to teaching reading. Write a statement that details their attitudes.**



Chapter Eleven

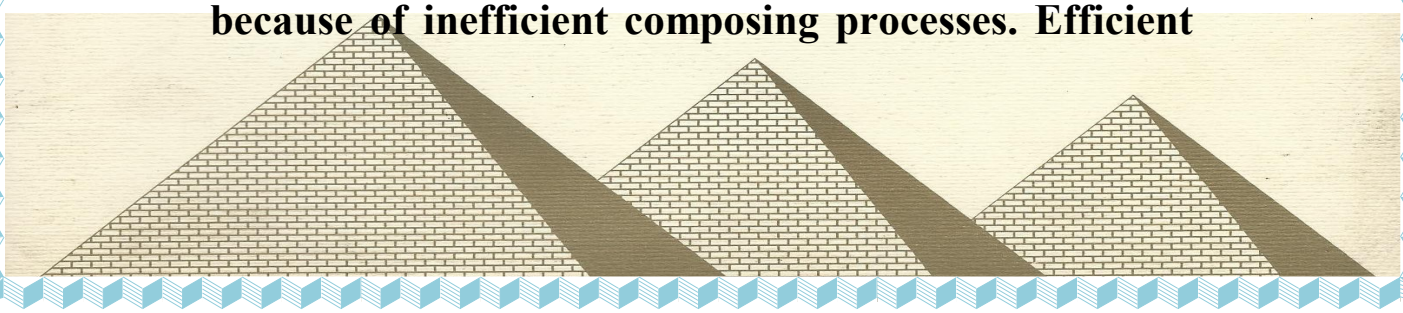
Writing

11.0 What is writing?

The skills-based approach views writing as a collection of separate skills, including letter formation, spelling, punctuation, grammar, organization, and the like. This approach also views writing as a product-oriented task. In this respect, McLaughlin *et al.* (1983) state that writing, like many other complex tasks, requires "learners organize a set of related subtasks and their components" (p. 42). In contrast, the whole-language approach views writing as a meaning-making process which is governed by purpose and audience rather than by compositional rules.

From the author's point of view, a thorough definition of writing should involve both skills and meaning. This is precisely the perspective taken by Krashen (1984) who states:

> **Writing competence is necessary, but is not sufficient. Writers who are competent, who have acquired the code, may still be unable to display their competence because of inefficient composing processes. Efficient**

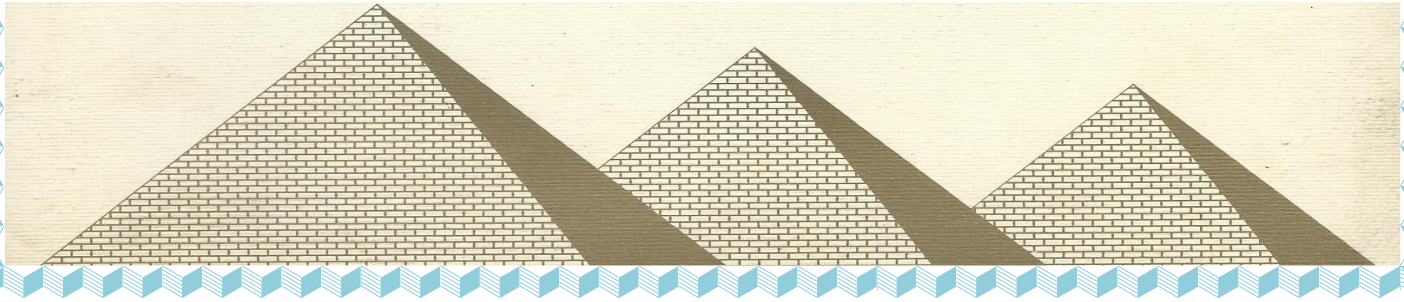


composing processes, writing "performance," can be developed via sheer practice as well as instruction. (p. 28)

11.1 The importance of writing

In the area of EFL, writing has many uses and functions. To begin with, the ability to write acceptable scientific English is essential for post-graduate students who must write their dissertations in English. Moreover, writing EFL allows for communication to large numbers of people all over the world. It also provides students with physical evidence of their achievement. This in turn helps them to determine what they know and what they don't know. As Irmscher (1979) notes, "In our minds, we can fool ourselves. Not on paper. If no thought is in our minds, nothing comes out. Mental fuzziness translates into words only as fuzziness or meaninglessness" (p. 20).

Writing can also enhance students' thinking skills. As Irmscher (1979) notes, "Writing stimulates thinking, chiefly because it forces us to concentrate and organize. Talking does, too, but writing allows more time for introspection and deliberation" (loc. cit.).



Additionally, writing can enhance students' vocabulary, spelling, and grammar. Finally, writing skills are often needed for formal and informal testing.

11.2 The teaching and learning of writing

The skills-oriented teachers teach writing in fragmented pieces with the assumption that students cannot compose until they master the subskills that stem from writing. These subskills are taught explicitly through the use of techniques such as the following:

(1) Copying model compositions;

(2) Organizing a set of disorganized notes into topic areas with topic sentences and secondary points;

(3) Rearranging scrambled sentences to make up a paragraph;

(4) Predicting the method(s) of developing a topic sentence;

(5) Analyzing a passage with the help of questions such as the following:

-Which sentence states the main idea?

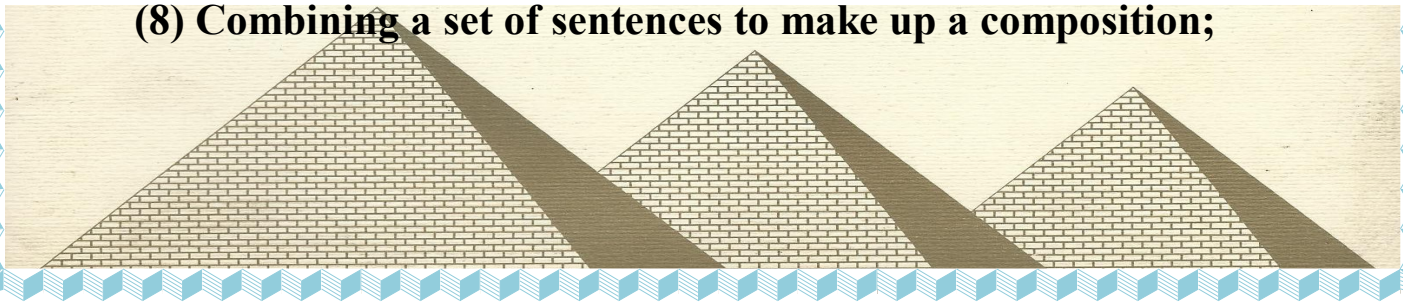
-What sentences directly support the main idea?

-What method did the writer use to develop the main idea?

(6) Filling in the missing connectives in a composition;

(7) Filling in the missing words or sentences in a composition;

(8) Combining a set of sentences to make up a composition;



(9) Writing topic sentences to given paragraphs;

(10) Reading a passage and answering the questions about it in complete sentences to make up a paragraph;

(11) Making a summary of a reading or listening passage using one's own words as far as possible;

(12) Rewriting a passage from another person's point of view;

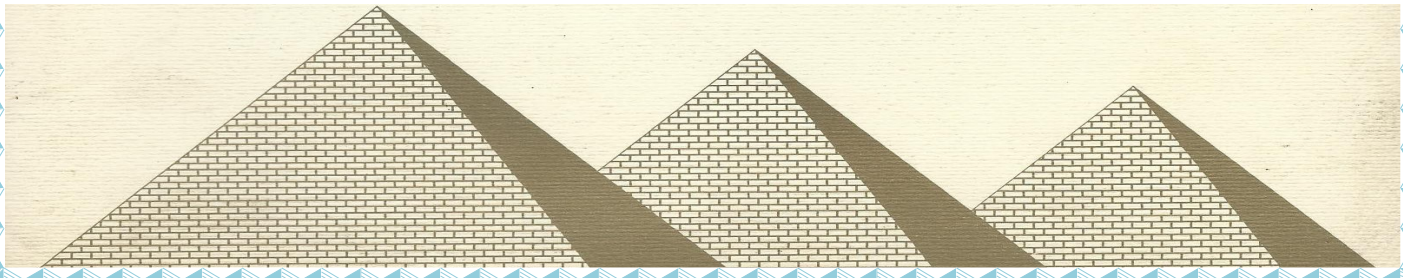
(13) Changing a narrative into a dialog;

(14) Changing a dialog into a narrative.

The whole language teachers teach writing by immersing students in the process of writing. In whole language classrooms, students write whole compositions and share them with the teacher or other people from the start (Reutzel and Hollingsworth, 1988). The following techniques are consistent with the whole-language perspective:

(1) Dialogue journal writing

Dialogue journal is a long-term written conversation between a student and the teacher in or out of classroom. Students write on any topic and the teacher writes back to each student, making comments and offering opinions (Peyton and Reed, 1990).

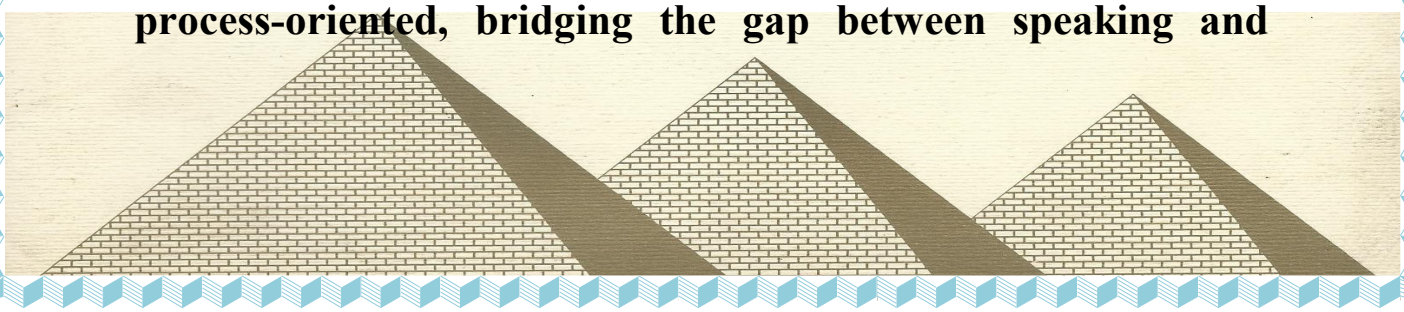


Teachers do not correct journals in the traditional sense. Rather they respond by asking questions and commenting on the content (Jenkinson, 1988). Such responses drive the process and endow the activity with meaning (Hennings, 1992).

Atwell (1987) argues that the dialogue journal partner does not have to be the teacher and that students may be paired with each other. Rather than leaving dialogue journal topics completely open-ended, Walworth (1990) suggests that the teacher can use it to focus the discussion on a certain topic.

In classes with word processors that are easily accessible to all students, Peyton and Reed (1990) suggest that the journal may be on a disk passed back and forth and if schools have access to electronic mail, messages can be sent without the exchange of disks. Naiman (1988) adds that with access to computer networks, students can keep dialogue journals with other students in different parts of the world.

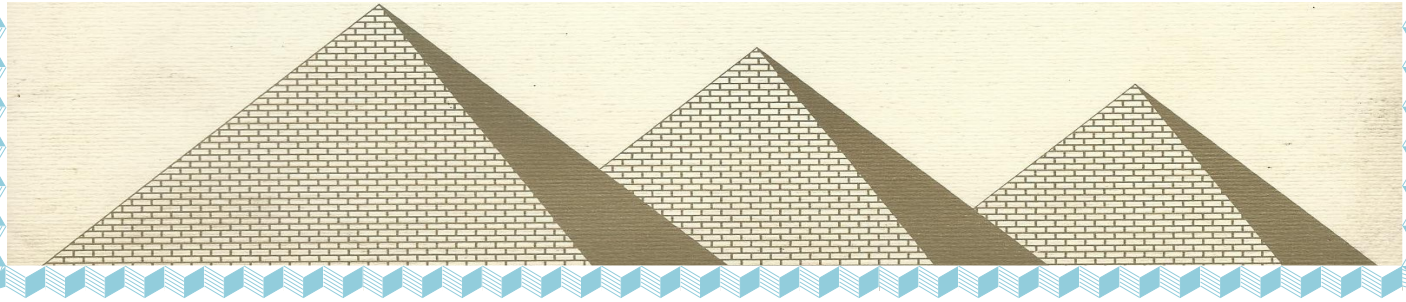
The benefits of dialogue journal writing in general include individualizing the teaching of writing, using writing and reading for real communication, making students more process-oriented, bridging the gap between speaking and



writing, developing students' awareness of the real purposes of reading and writing, helping students become more relaxed as writers, promoting autonomous learning, improving vocabulary and punctuation skills, raising self-confidence, helping students become more fluent writers, and increasing opportunities for interaction between students and teachers and among students themselves (Hamayan, 1989; Peyton, 1990; Porter *et al.*, 1990; Steffensen, 1988; Wham and Lenski, 1994).

In addition to the above benefits, electronic dialogue journals enable students to send in their journals at any time of day or night and the respondent to answer at his/her convenience (Warschauer *et al.*, 2000). Moreover, in a study on the difference between the discourse in dialogue journals written on paper and those sent via e-mail, Wang (1993) found that ESL students who used e-mail wrote more text, asked more questions, and used more language functions than students who wrote on paper.

According to the author's point of view, the use of dialogue journals with EFL students should move from correspondence between student and teacher to



correspondence among students themselves, and from controlled to open-ended topics.

(2) Letter writing

Letter writing is another technique for immersing students in writing to a real audience for a real purpose. Students use this technique when they want to communicate through writing with someone inside or outside the school. After writing their letters, students deliver or mail them for hope that they will be answered. Respondents accept students' letters and comment on meaning rather than on form.

The most important reason for using letter writing is that students enjoy writing and receiving letters (Hall, 1994). Another reason is that descriptive, expository, persuasive, expressive, and narrative forms of writing can be practiced in letters, whether intended for real use or not (Temple and Gillet, 1984).

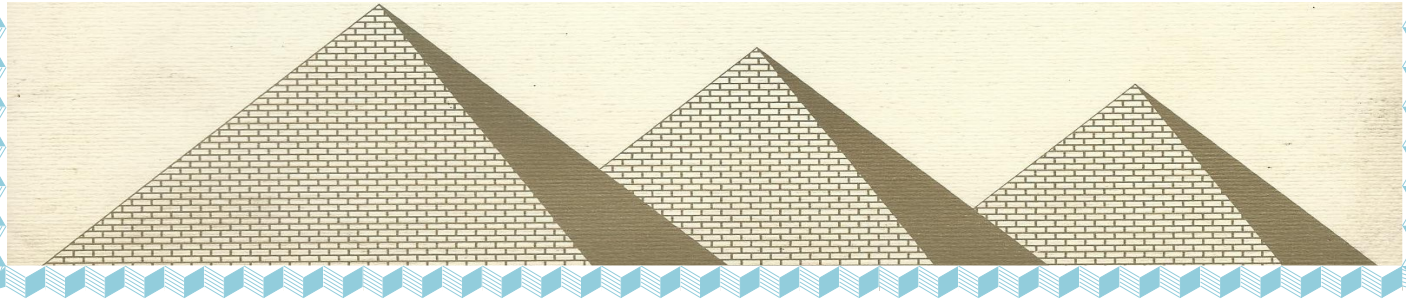
In an effort to understand young children's abilities as letter writers, Hall, Robinson, and Grawford (1991) investigated whether or not very young native English-speaking children could sustain a letter-writing dialogue. Hall and Crawford wrote on an individual basis to all children in a class taught

by Robinson. The researchers found that children, from the beginning, functioned totally efficiently and appropriately as correspondents. As the exchanges progressed, children showed that they could generate novel topics, sustain topics, and when appropriate, close topics. Droge (1995) also found that letter dialogue writing improved students' writing skills as well as their self-esteem.

(3) Process writing

Heald-Taylor (1994), in her book, *Whole Language Strategies for ESL Students,* describes process writing in the following way:

> **Process writing is an approach which encourages ESL youngsters [and adults] to communicate their own written messages while simultaneously developing their literacy skills ... rather than delaying involvement in the writing process, as advocated in the past, until students have perfected their abilities in handwriting, reading, phonics, spelling, grammar, and punctuation. In process writing the communication of the message is paramount and therefore the developing, but**

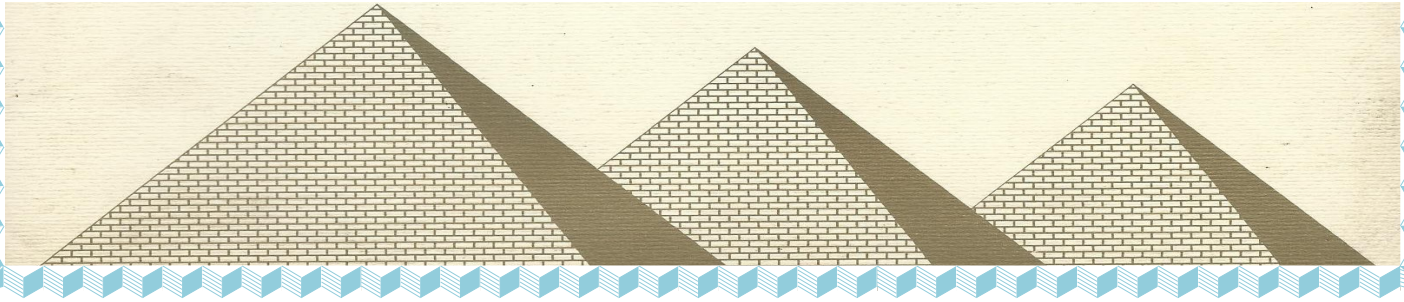


inaccurate, attempts at handwriting, spelling and grammar are accepted.

Process writing, as described above, can improve students' writing because it encourages them to write and to continue writing whatever their ability level.

Process writing also refers to the process a writer engages in when constructing meaning. This process can be divided into three major stages: pre-writing, writing and post-writing. The pre-writing stage involves planning, outlining, brainstorming, gathering information, etc. The writing stage involves the actual wording and structuring of the information into written discourse. The post-writing stage involves proofreading, editing, publishing, etc. For additional coverage of process writing, see Barnett (1989), Flower and Hayes (1981), Hall (1993), Krashen (1984), Reid (1988), and Zamel (1983).

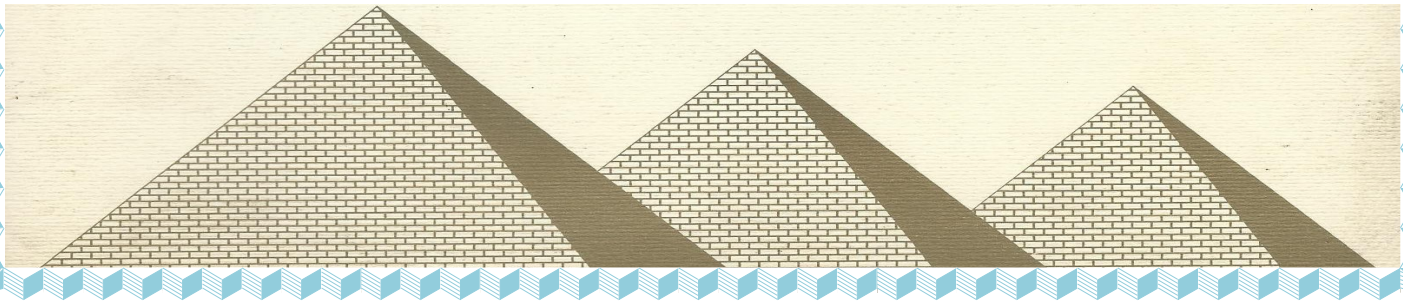
Data from the National Assessment of Educational Progress (NAEP) in writing showed that "teachers' encouragement of ... process-related activities was strongly related to average writing proficiency" (Applebee *et al.*, 1994, p. 178).



The comprehensive approach holds that the process and product of writing are complementary and that a combination of both can boost writing proficiency above the levels that occur with either alone. In support of this view, Hairston (1982) states:

> **We cannot teach students to write by looking only at what they have written. We must also understand how the product came into being, and why it assumed the form that it did. We have to understand what goes on during the act of writing. (p. 84)**

Opponents of the skills-based approach claim that the teaching of writing subskills is often uninteresting. As Rose (1982) points out, "Part of the problem in teaching children the mechanics of writing is that the teaching is often uninteresting. Teachers themselves may have a distaste for the elements of grammar and punctuation" (p. 384). Such opponents add that an overemphasis on writing conventions may get in the way of communicating meaning. As Newman (1985) puts it:



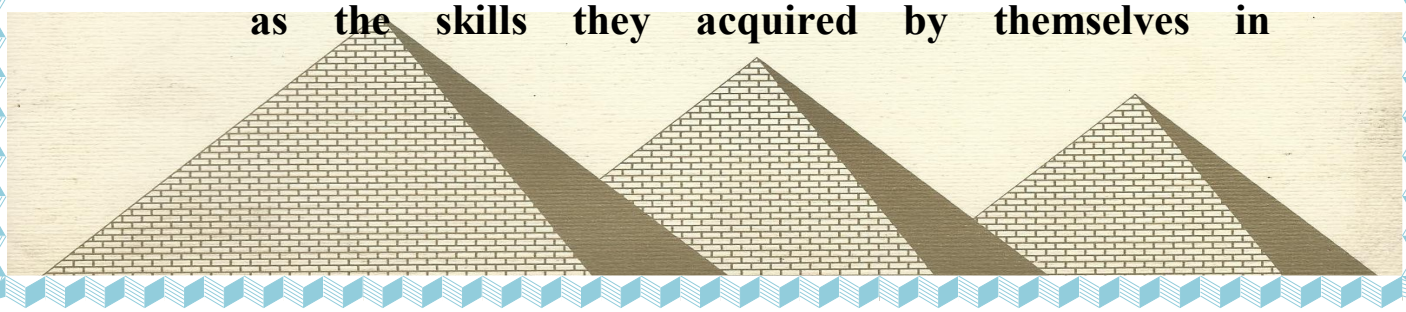
> **An overemphasis on accurate spelling, punctuation, and neat handwriting can actually produce a situation in which children come to see the conventions of writing as more important than the meaning they are trying to convey. (p. 28)**

On the other hand, opponents of the whole-language approach claim that students cannot convey meaning without writing conventions.

From the foregoing, it is clear that just like the skills-based approach, the whole-language approach is necessary, but not sufficient for writing acquisition. Therefore, the comprehensive approach suggests the following three basic steps as a procedure for teaching writing to foreign language students:

(1) *Presentation of writing skills*. In this step, the teacher explains some vocabulary, a grammatical rule, a punctuation rule and a spelling rule. Such skills should provide the basis for the other two steps.

(2) *Guided writing*. In this step, students read a model composition. Then, under the guidance of their teacher, they use the skills explained to them in step one as well as the skills they acquired by themselves in

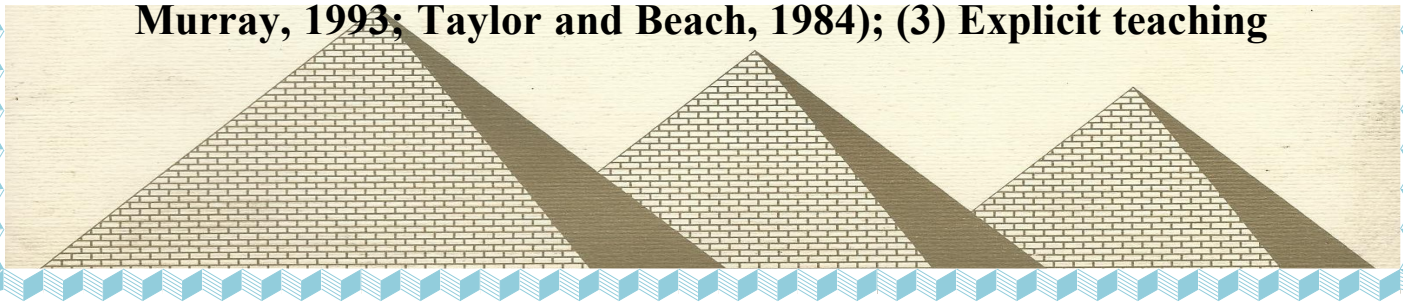


summarizing this model composition or changing it from a narrative to a dialog or vice versa.

(3) *Independent writing*. In this step, each student independently writes a whole composition on a self-selected topic using the writing process. S/he then discusses what s/he has written with other students in the class.

11.3 Summary of research on writing instruction

A review of research on writing instruction showed that although the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach have contrasting views, both have been valued by researchers as useful instructional approaches for developing writing. Some studies obtained positive results with the skills-based approach. These studies examined the mastery of certain subskills and their effect on writing. The results of such studies revealed that: (1) Explicit story grammar instruction improved the narrative writing of average and below average students (e.g., EL-Koumy, 1999; Fitzgerald and Teasley, 1986; Gambrell and Chasen, 1991; Gordon and Braun, 1982, 1983; Leaman, 1993); (2) Explicit instruction in expository text structures had a positive effect on the quality of students' expository writing (e.g., Hiebert *et al*., 1983; Murray, 1993; Taylor and Beach, 1984); (3) Explicit teaching



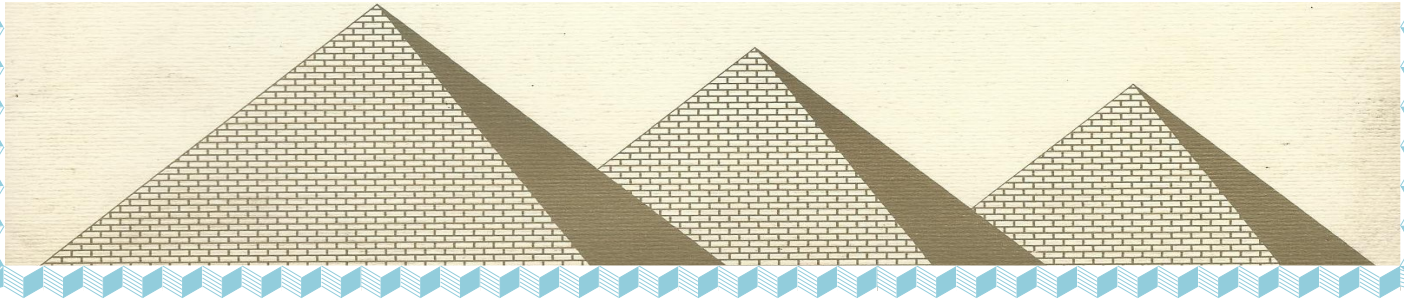
of formal grammar improved the quality of students' writing (e.g., Govindasamy, 1995; Melendez, 1993; Neulieb and Brosnahan, 1987; Yeung, 1993); (4) Direct teaching of sentence combining improved the quality of students' writing (e.g., Abdan, 1981; Combs, 1976; Cooper, 1981).

A second body of studies revealed that the whole-language approach improved students' writing (e.g., Agnew, 1995; Crawford, 1995; Cress, 1990; Loshbaugh, 1993; Lucas, 1988; Maguire, 1992; McLaughlin, 1994; Roberts, 1991).

A third body of studies revealed that the two instructional approaches resulted in an equivalent statistical effect on students' writing (e.g., Adair-Hauck, 1994; Shearer, 1992).

The research reviewed above provides indirect evidence that a combination of both the skills-based approach and the whole-language approach can boost students' writing above the levels that occur with either alone.

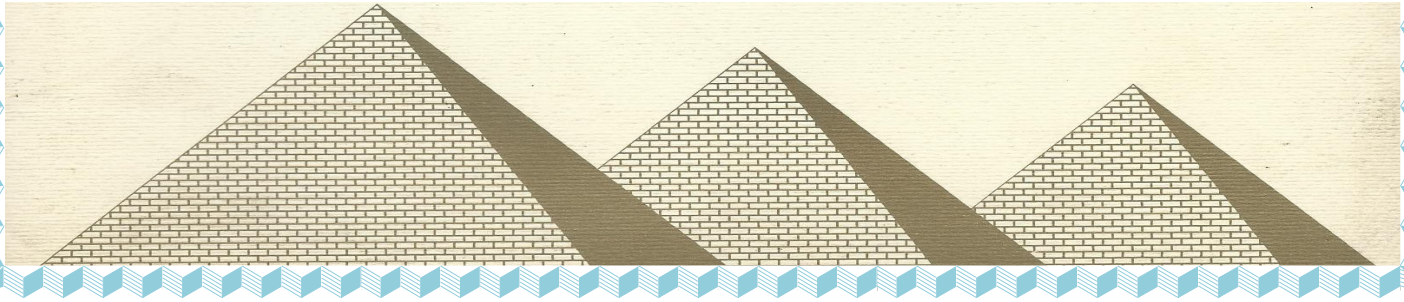
Direct support of the comprehensive approach to teaching writing comes from studies done by El-Koumy (2005), Jones (1995), and Nagle (1989).



El-Koumy (2005) compared the effects of the whole language approach versus the skills-based approach on the quantity and quality of EAP students' writing. He found that the whole language approach was effective for developing only the quantity of writing, whereas the skills-based approach was effective for developing only the quality of writing. This suggests that both the skills-based approach and the whole language approach are necessarily equal to writing.

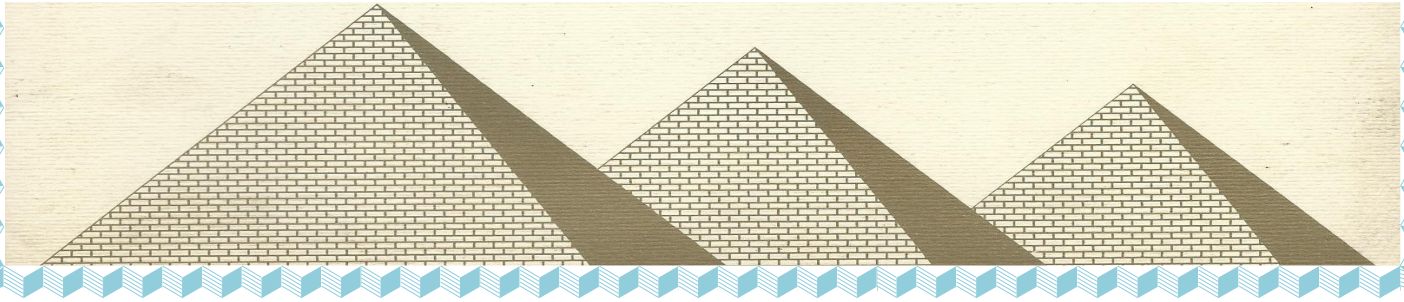
Jones (1995) compared the effects of an eclectic approach versus a whole-language approach on the writing skills of first grade students. She found that the eclectic approach resulted in statistically significant writing skills' scores than the whole-language approach.

Nagle (1989) compared the stories written by students in five first grade classes being taught by a whole language/process approach, a traditional approach, and a combination of both. She found that "the mean scores were consistently higher in classes with teachers that integrated the holistic and traditional teaching methods as compared to classes being taught in a more holistic or a more traditional setting" (p. 72).



11.4 Self-checks

1. **Writing EFL has many uses and functions. Discuss.**
2. **Overreliance on either the skills-based approach or the whole-language approach can cause writing difficulties for foreign language learners. Discuss.**
3. **Studies done in the area of writing support the author's comprehensive approach. Discuss.**



Part Four

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Integrating Main Language Skills with Each Other

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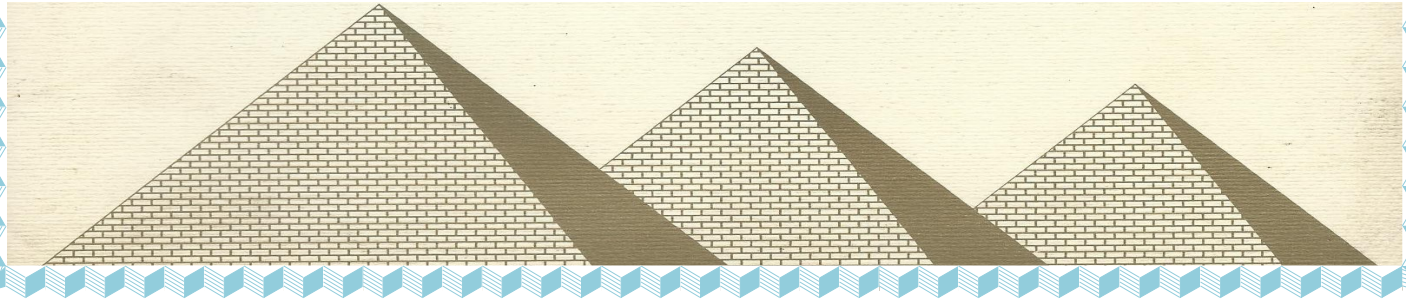
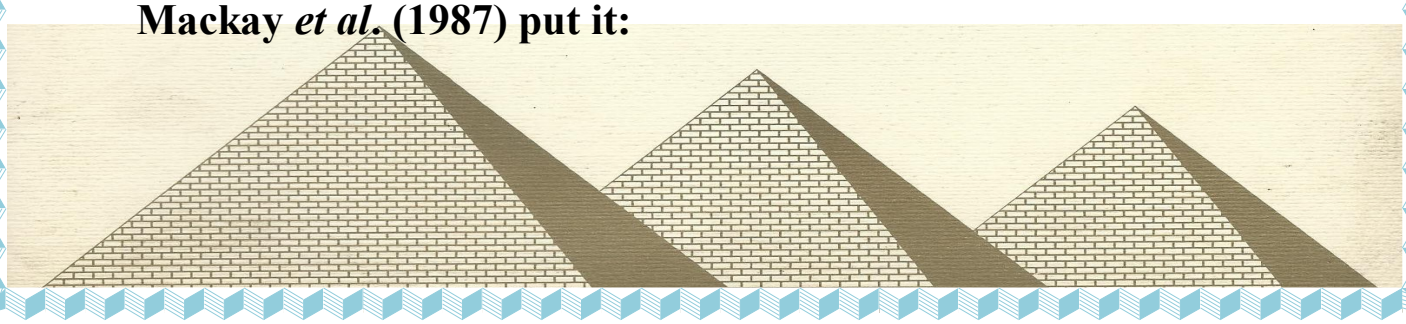


Chapter Twelve

Integrating Listening with Speaking

12.1 Introduction

Influenced by the neuropsychologists who hold that comprehension is located in one area of the brain and production in another, the skill-building theorists (e.g., Bates *et al*., 1988; Byrnes, 1984; Nord, 1980; Snyder *et al*., 1981; Wipf, 1984)) claim that listening and speaking are independent behaviors. They further claim that the teaching of listening should precede the teaching of speaking. As Byrnes (1984) points out, "Listening comprehension precedes production in all cases of language learning, and there can be no production unless linguistic input was provided and became comprehensible intake for a listener" (pp. 318-319). On the other hand, whole language proponents, among other language educators, claim that listening and speaking are interdependent (e.g., Cutler, 1987; Mackay *et al*., 1987; Temple and Gillet, 1984). They further claim that both skills (listening and speaking) should be taught simultaneously. As Mackay *et al*. (1987) put it:



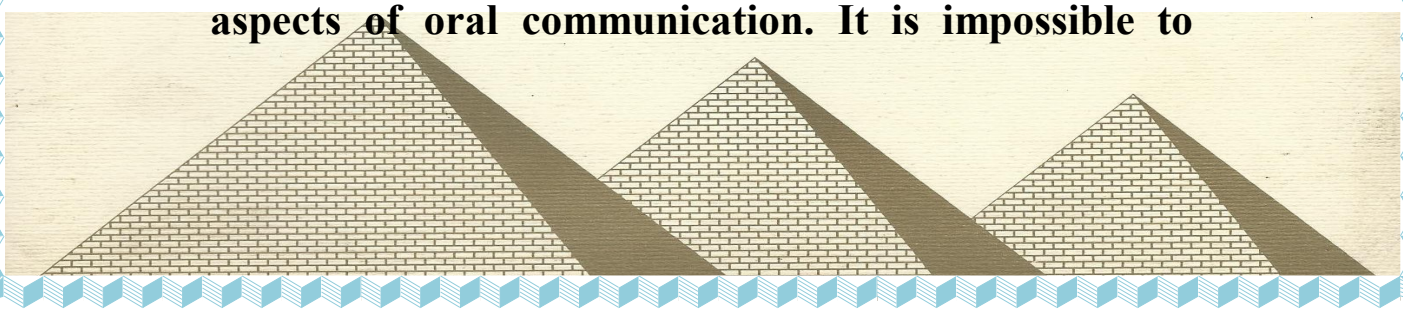
> **Language perception and production are intimately related and difficult to separate operationally. Every speaker is simultaneously a listener, and every listener is at least potentially a speaker. From an evolutionary perspective as well, language perception and production are virtually inseparable: the capacities for perceiving and producing speech could only have evolved simultaneously.... (p. 2)**

Cutler (1987) supports the same view saying:

> **Speech production is constrained at all levels by the demands of speech perception...the production of an utterance is constrained by factors which have more to do with the nature of the listener's perceptual process than with the nature of the production process itself. (p. 23)**

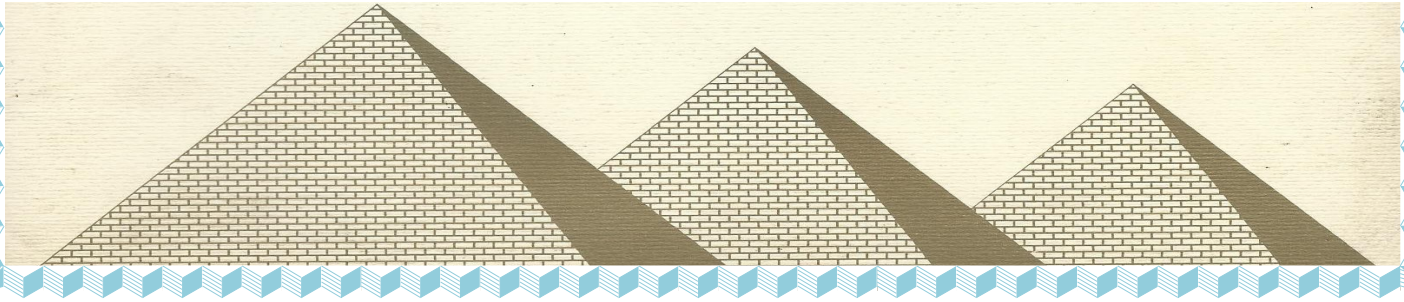
Temple and Gillet (1984) also emphasize the close relationship between listening and speaking in this way:

> **Listening cannot be separated from the expressive aspects of oral communication. It is impossible to**



> **"teach listening" separately from speaking, or to set aside a portion of the instructional time for listening instruction and ignore it the rest of the time. Listening is as much a part of group discussions, dramatic play, or puppetry, for example, as the dialogues and actions created. When children develop their communicative powers they also develop their ability to listen appreciately and receptively. (p. 70)**

The comprehensive approach holds that listening and speaking are related in some aspects but different in others. They are related in that both are aspects of oral communication. They are different in that listening is meaning-abstracting while speaking is meaning-generating. Furthermore, unlike listeners, speakers can control the scope and difficulty of utterances. Therefore, the teacher should move towards the integration of both skills after focusing on each skill's unique characteristics.



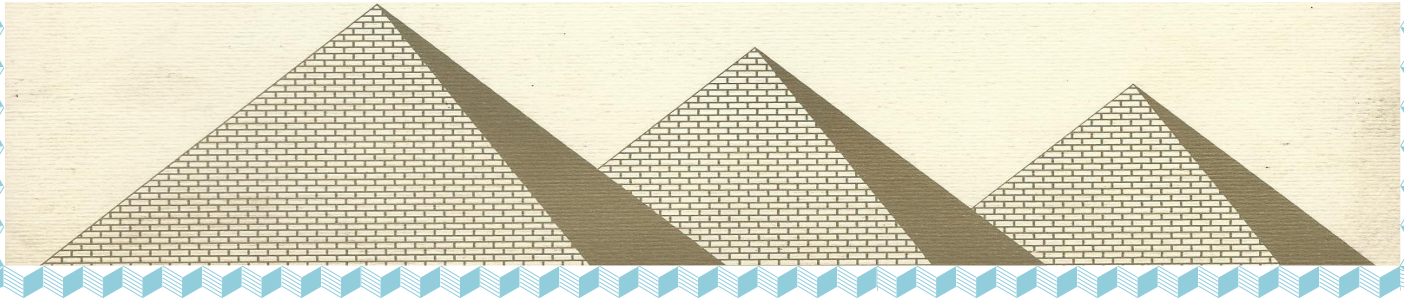
12.2 Summary of research on listening-speaking relationship

A review of research on the relationship between listening and speaking revealed that some studies support the view that the two skills are independent behaviors (e.g., Holtz, 1994; Huttenlocher, 1974; Rescorla, 1980); whereas other studies offer support for the view that the same skills are interdependent (e.g., Brown *et al*., 1988, cited in Anderson and Lynch, 1988; Smolak, 1982).

The research reviewed above provides indirect support for the author's view that listening and speaking are related in some aspects but different in others. Therefore, the comprehensive approach holds that the differences between listening and speaking need to be addressed before stressing the commonalties between them.

12.3 Classroom activities for integrating listening with speaking

The activities for integrating listening with speaking, according to the comprehensive approach, should move from teacher-student to student-student interaction as students



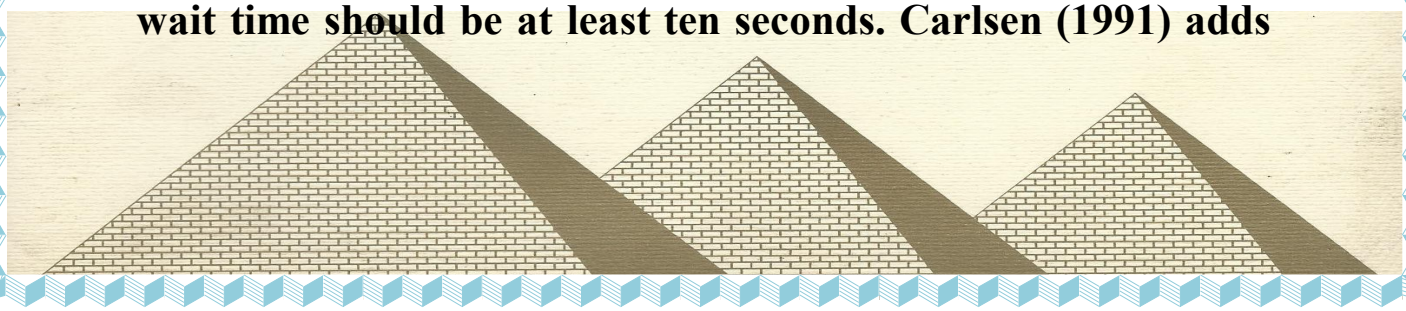
advance in a listening/speaking lesson in particular and the target language in general.

12.3.1 Teacher-student interaction

The teacher-student interaction is based on the teacher's superior knowledge. This superiority, however, allows students to share responsibility for producing a complete performance (Comeau, 1987). In interactions of this kind, teachers help students to participate through the use of scaffolds. These scaffolds are temporary supports that teachers provide for students to stimulate their language development to higher levels (Eldredge, 1995; Rosenshine and Guenther, 1992; Scarcella and Oxford, 1992).

Teacher questions have been the most widely used technique for scaffolding language learning. In this respect, Daly *et al.* (1994) point out that in classroom interactions, teacher questions take up a significant portion. However, Chaudron (1988) claims that teachers' questions may be either helpful or inhibiting of interaction.

To encourage student interaction, Udall and Daniels (1991) suggest that teachers' questions should be open-ended and wait time should be at least ten seconds. Carlsen (1991) adds

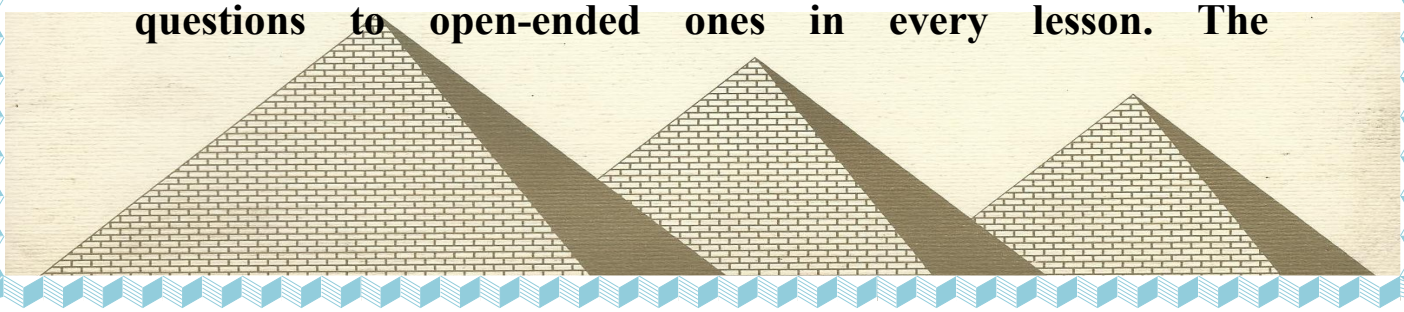


that teachers should ask challenging questions rather than rote memory ones to encourage students to take part in classroom interactions.

Nunan (1989) notes that "in contrast with interactions in the world outside, classroom interaction is characterized by the use of display questions to the almost total exclusion of referential questions" (p. 29). However, van Lier (1988) claims that the distinction between instructional questions and conversational ones is not their referential or display nature, but their eliciting nature. He wrote:

> **Such [display] questions have the professed aim of providing comprehensible input, and of encouraging 'early production'. I suggest that, by and large, what gives such question series their instructional, typically L2-classroom character is not so much that they are display rather than referential, but that they are made with the aim of eliciting language from the learners. (p. 222)**

According to the comprehensive approach, the teacher should move from display to referential questions and from closed questions to open-ended ones in every lesson. The



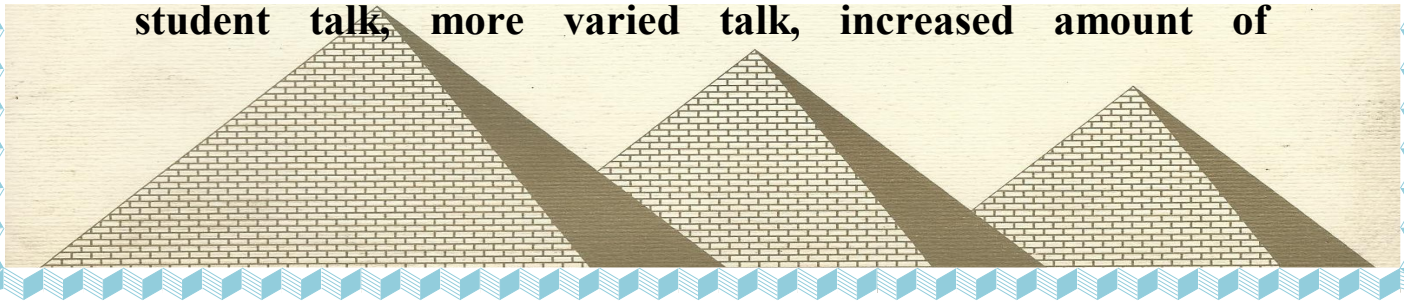
comprehensive approach also suggests that teacher scaffolds should be gradually withdrawn, as students progress in any lesson in particular and the target language in general to allow them to interact with each other.

12.3.2 Student-student interaction

Student-student interaction, in which students learn with and from each other, can play an important role in developing both listening and speaking. This type of interaction can be carried out by involving students in cooperative learning. Referring to Long and Porter (1985) and McGroary (1988), Ford (1991) outlines the advantages of cooperative learning in the following way:

> **Cooperative learning provides students with greater opportunities to: 1) interact with each other, 2) negotiate for meaning, 3) work in a variety of projects that are of interest to them, 4) participate in real-world communicative activities more frequently than in traditional teacher-fronted classrooms....(p. 45)**

Additional advantages of cooperative learning include more student talk, more varied talk, increased amount of



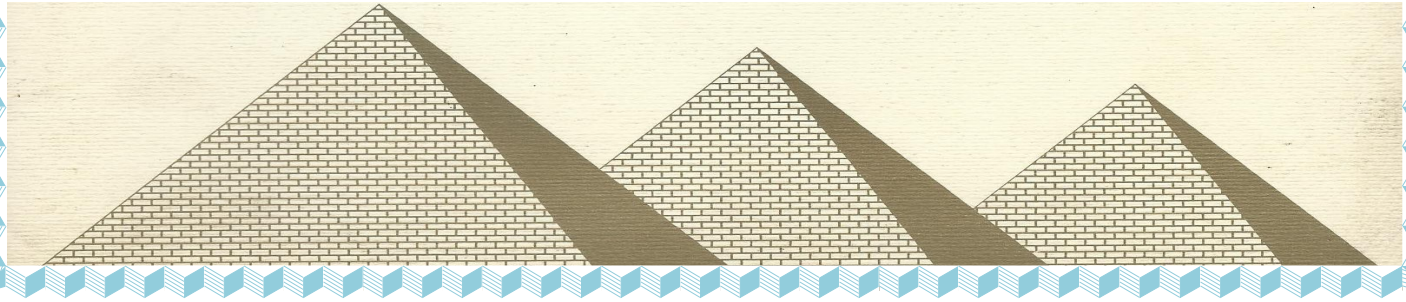
comprehensible input, decreased prejudice, increased respect for others, more relaxed atmosphere, greater motivation, and higher self-esteem (Christison, 1990; Olsen and Kagan, 1992).

In order for student-student interaction to be effective, educators suggest that teachers should pay careful attention to the following factors:

12.3.2.1 Group composition

There has been considerable discussion surrounding the question of what constitutes a successful group. Some educators (e.g., Barr *et al*., 1995; Hiebert, 1983; Mathes and Fuchs, 1994; Topping, 1998) suggest that students should be grouped by their ability levels.

The effects of ability grouping on learning efficiency and interaction were examined in many studies. Varonis and Gass (1983, cited in Long and Porter, 1985) found that most negotiation of meaning occurred when learners were of different language backgrounds and of different proficiency levels.

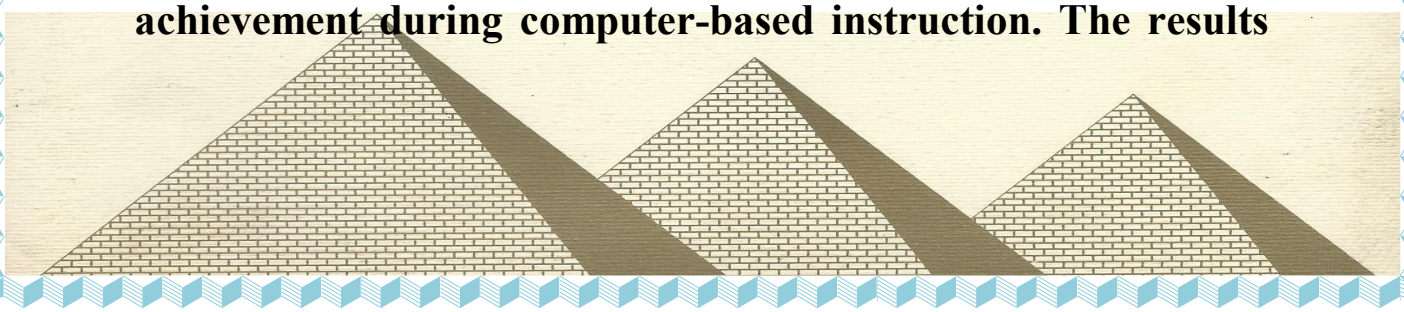


Nation (1985) found that learners in a homogeneous, low-proficiency group had more equal spoken participation than learners in mixed groups.

Porter (1986) found that ESL learners got more and better-quality input from advanced learners than from intermediates, suggesting an advantage for practice with a higher-level partner from the perspective of quality and quantity of input. Based on this finding, she recommends that teachers should pair students of differing proficiency levels in the ESL classroom.

Hooper and Hannafin (1988) found that heterogeneous grouping increased the achievement of low-ability students by approximately 50% compared to their homogeneously grouped peers. In contrast, homogeneous grouping increased the achievement of high-ability students by approximately 12% compared to their heterogeneously grouped counterparts.

In another study, Hooper and Hannafin (1991) investigated the effects of cooperative group composition and student ability on interaction, instructional efficiency, and achievement during computer-based instruction. The results

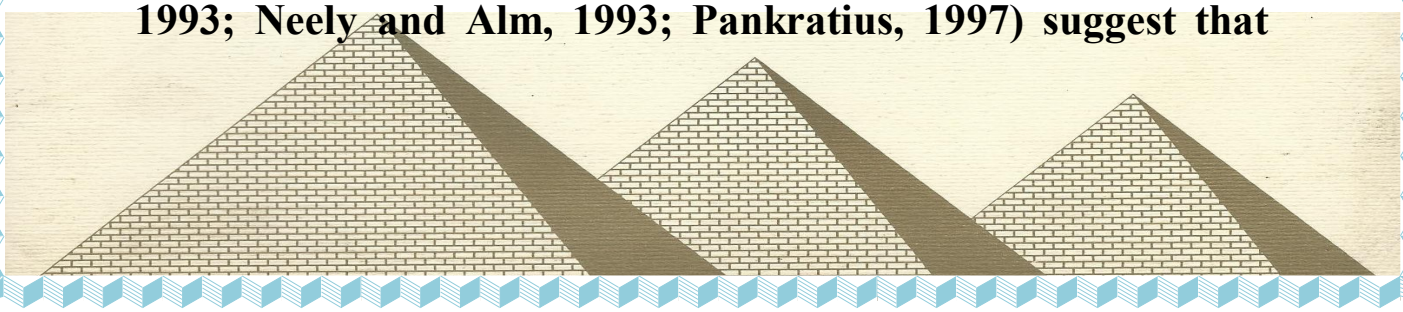


showed that: (1) low-ability students interacted more in heterogeneous than in homogeneous groups; (2) high-ability students completed the instruction more efficiently in homogeneous than heterogeneous groups; and (3) cooperation was significantly related to achievement for heterogeneous ability groups, but not for either homogeneous high- or low-ability students.

However, ability grouping, as McGreal (1989) states, can cause problems when inferior students find out who they are. Abadzi (1984) asserts that ability grouping hurts lower ranking students. Oakes (1985) also contends that students in the lower track are usually seen by others as dumb and also see themselves in this way.

In support of the social consequences of ability grouping, Ireson and Hallam (2002) found that derogatory terms were often used to refer to lower ability pupils and that these terms had a negative effect on their self-esteem, self-concept and their emotional responses to school.

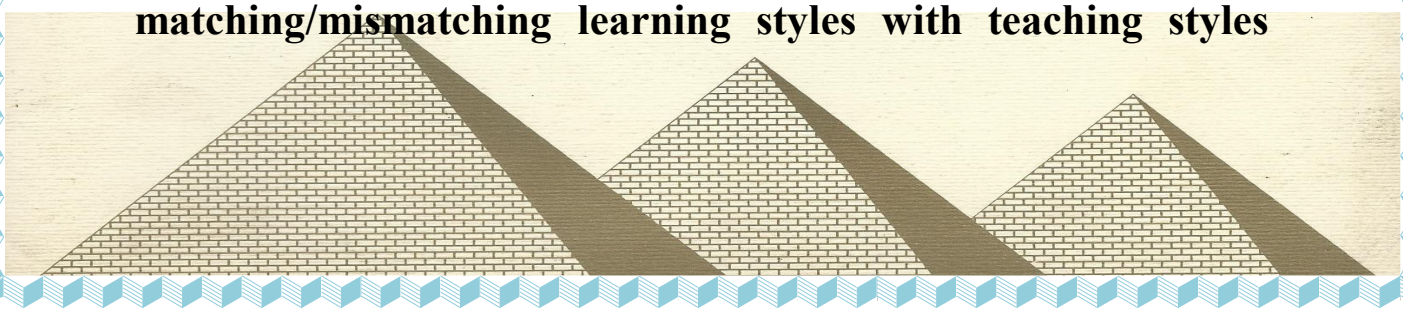
Due to the negative social consequences of ability grouping, some educators (e.g., Bauder and Milman, 1990; Klavas, 1993; Neely and Alm, 1993; Pankratius, 1997) suggest that



students should be grouped by their learning style. In the learning style literature, some theoreticians (e.g., Dunn and Dunn, 1993, 1999) suggest that students should be homogeneously grouped by their own preferred learning style. These theoreticians hold that learning style homogeneity allows students to learn most effectively, efficiently, easily, and with greatest enjoyment. However, such a grouping technique may lead to a narrow group focus and predispose groupthink.

Other learning style theoreticians (e.g., Bonham, 1989; Kathleen, 1993) suggest that students should be grouped heterogeneously. These theoreticians hold that learning style heterogeneity helps learners to expand the learning styles with which they do not feel comfortable and best fit the content. However, such a grouping technique may disrupt positive relations among group members which can, in turn, negatively affect their performance.

Unfortunately, no studies have sought to determine which one of these two types of learning style grouping better affects students' oral language. Research in this area was only concerned with investigating the effects of matching/mismatching learning styles with teaching styles

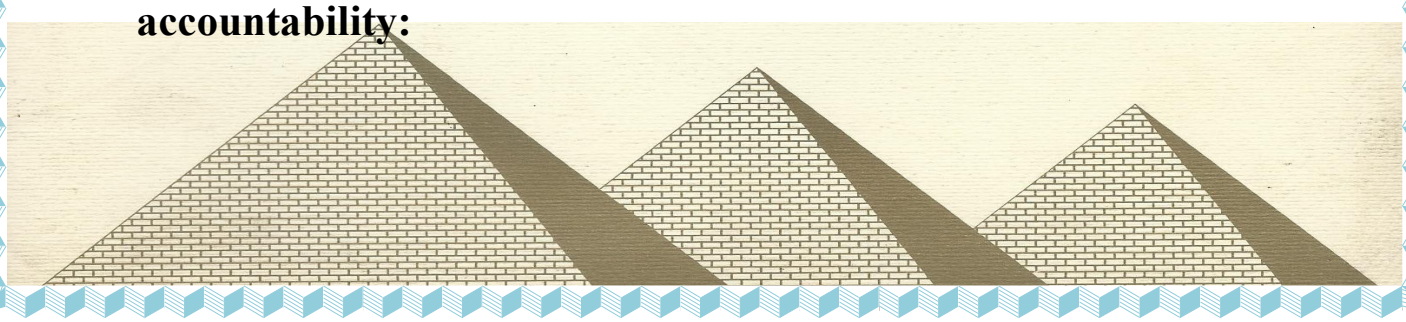


and exploring the relationship between isolated learning styles and reading achievement or comprehension (e.g., Davey, 1990; Eitington, 1989; Rosa, 1991; Stiles, 1986).

In light of the foregoing discussion, the comprehensive approach holds that groups should be of mixed learning styles. Such a method of grouping would provide a richer pool of students who have varied knowledge and divergent thinking styles that help in promoting classroom interaction. In support of this view, many social psychologists agree that conflict among group members leads to higher quality decision making and better task performance.

12.3.2.2 Individual accountability

Many educators suggest that individual accountability promotes student-student interaction and helps avoid loafing by less active or less able students (Hooper *et al*., 1989; Jacobs, 1987). Such an individual accountability as Fandt *et al*. (1993) suggest, "can be created either by task structure, reward structure, or some combinations of the two" (p. 114). To ensure that each student is individually accountable to do his/her share of the group's work, Johnson and Johnson (1994) suggest the following ways to structure individual accountability:



(1) Keeping the size of the group small;

(2) Giving an individual test to each student;

(3) Examining students orally by calling on one student to present his/her group's work to the entire class;

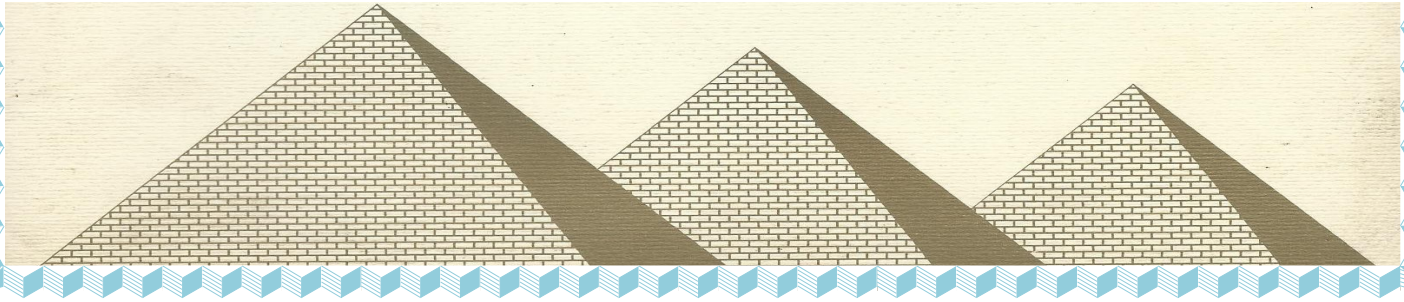
(4) Recording the frequency with which each member contributes to the group's work;

(5) Assigning one student in each group the role of checker;

(6) Having each member teach what he/she learned to someone else.

12.3.2.3 Learning tasks

The tasks assigned to group members also influence their interaction with one another (van Lier, 1988). For group or peer involvement in interaction, some educators (e.g., King, 1989; Palincsar and Brown, 1988; Sadow, 1987) suggest the use of problem solving tasks to promote interaction and divergent thinking. In the same vein, Palincsar *et al.* (1990) suggest that open-ended problems provide greater opportunities for cooperation than do closed problems. Allen *et al.* (1996) add that the tasks assigned to groups should be complex enough for students to recognize the need to work together and to demonstrate thinking skills beyond simple knowledge and comprehension.



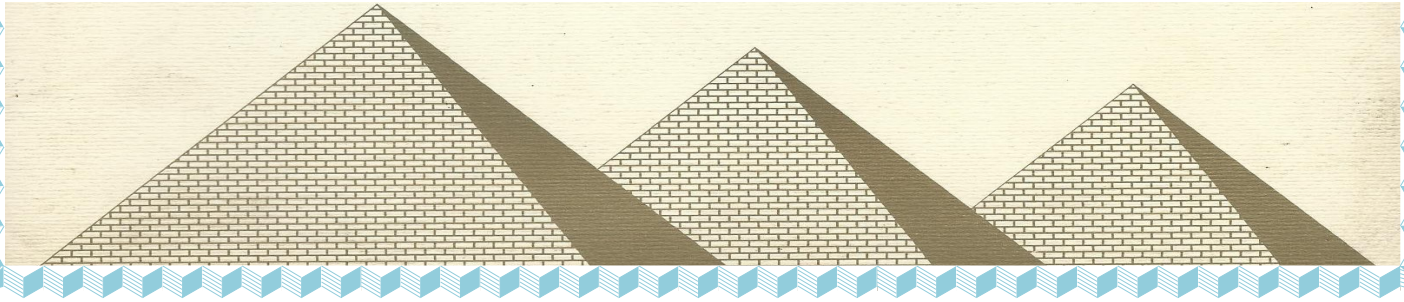
12.3.2.4 Group size

With respect to group size, there is a remarkable agreement that small groups have advantages over large groups. According to Johnson *et al.* (1984), small groups take less time to get organized. It's also very difficult to drop out of a small group (Kohn, 1987; Vermette, 1998). Also, learning in small groups, as Hertz-Lazarowitz *et al.* (1980) state, "provides for the acquisition of social skills needed for sustaining cooperative interaction" (p. 105).

In contrast, large groups, as Dansereau (1987) states, "are more likely to result in the formation of coalitions and passivity on the part of some students" (p. 618).

In support of small groups, studies done by Long and Bulgarella (1985) led them to conclude that

> **Interaction in small groups is desirable because it leads to clashes of points of view that encourage children's development of individuality, creativity, and ability to think. (p. 171)**

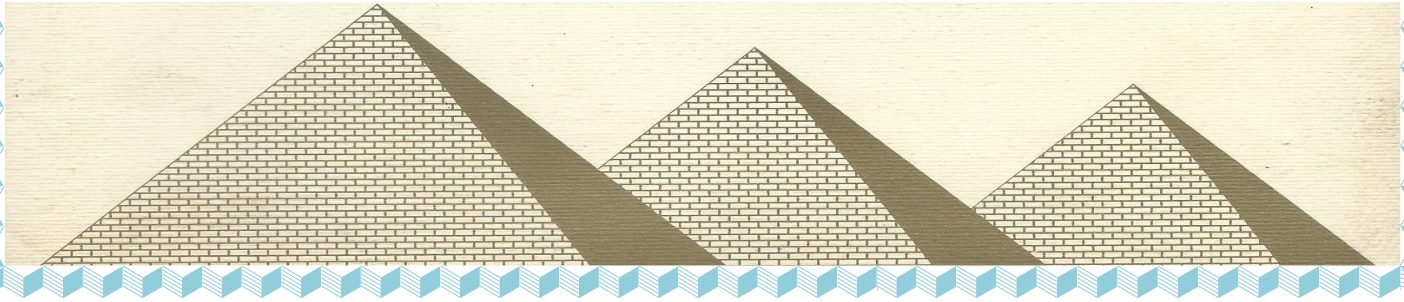


12.3.2.5 Assessing group and individuals work

In order to maximize student-student interaction in group work, the comprehensive approach holds that the teacher should assess group work as well as individual contributions to motivate students to focus on individual and group work and thereby develop in both areas. The comprehensive approach also holds that there is a need to assess both the process and product of group work.

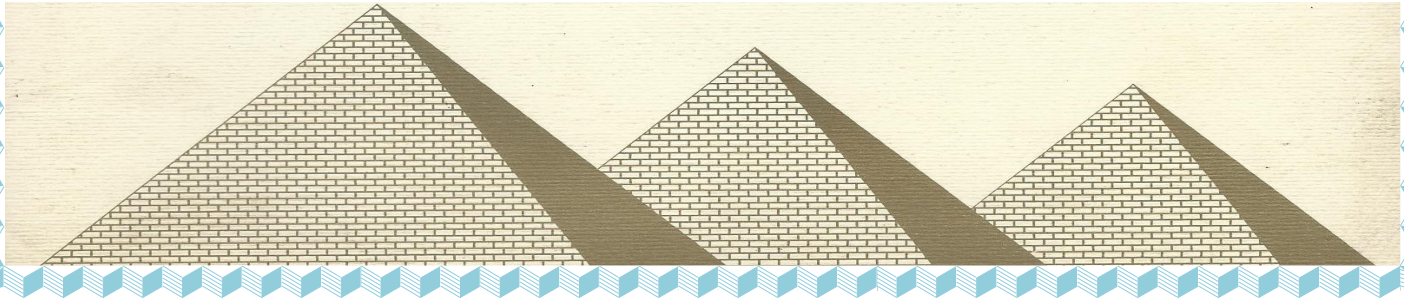
Moreover, the comprehensive approach holds that each student in the group should self-assess what he/she learned from the members of the group and what other group members learned from him/her. This type of assessment motivates learners to participate actively in group interaction.

With regard to the teacher's role during student-student interactions, the comprehensive approach holds that the teacher should move among groups to facilitate difficulties and to assess individual contributions and the process of group work.



12.4 Self-checks

1. Develop an oral lesson plan that moves from teacher-student to student-student interaction as noted in this chapter. Teach it to your students and discuss the results with your colleagues.
2. In one of your classrooms, assign students into high-, middle-, and low-ability groups and engage them in a collaborative oral activity. Note down the amount of conversational interaction generated in each of the three groups.
3. Interview some teachers to know their rationale for using or not using ability grouping in their teaching of English as a foreign language.



Chapter Thirteen

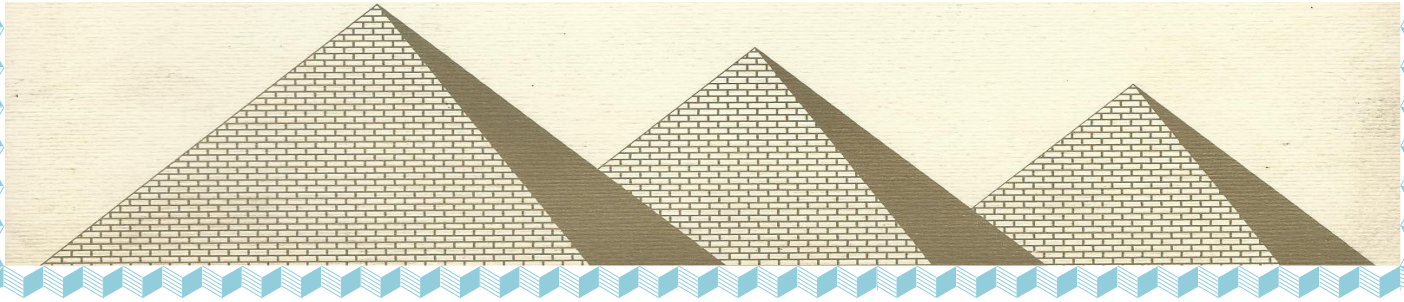
Integrating Reading with Writing

13.1 Introduction

Influenced by the neuropsychologists who hold that comprehension is located in one area of the brain and production in another, advocates of the skills-based approach claim that reading and writing are parallel and independent aspects of language. That is, the two skills are linguistically and pedagogically different from each other. As Brown (1987) puts it:

> **In child language, both observational and research evidence point to the "superiority" of comprehension over production: children understand "more" than they actually produce. For instance, a child may understand a sentence with an embedded relative in it, but not be able to produce one. (pp. 26-27)**

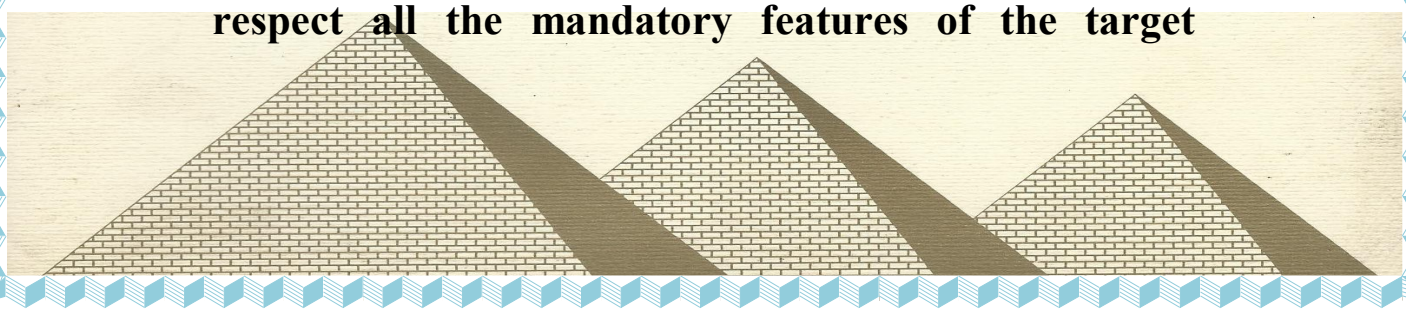
Bialystock and Ryan (1985) express the same point of view in this way:



> **The primary difference between the two activities [reading and writing] is that writing depends on more detailed analyzed knowledge. The required degree of analyzed knowledge about sound-spelling relationships is greater when expressively spelling words than when receptively recognizing them. Similarly, vague notions of discourse structure may be adequate to interpret written texts but are decidedly inadequate to produce it. (pp. 224-225)**

Brooks (1964) also emphasizes that reading and writing are different in this way:

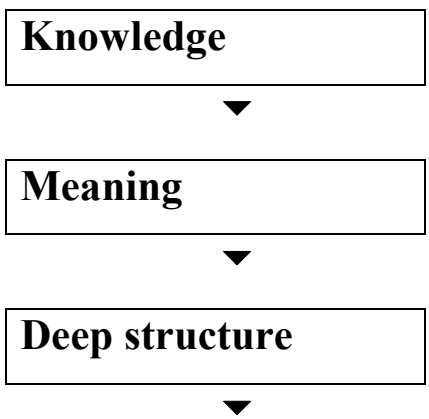
> **The receptive skill of reading is much more easily acquired and more easily retained than the productive skill of writing. But the learning of reading also has special characteristics that relate to its institutional or langue nature. The learner must know how to respond as a reader to writing of many different types, of many different degrees of difficulty, recorded at different times and in different places. Writing, on the contrary, like speaking, is a highly personal affair, in which the learner must respect all the mandatory features of the target**

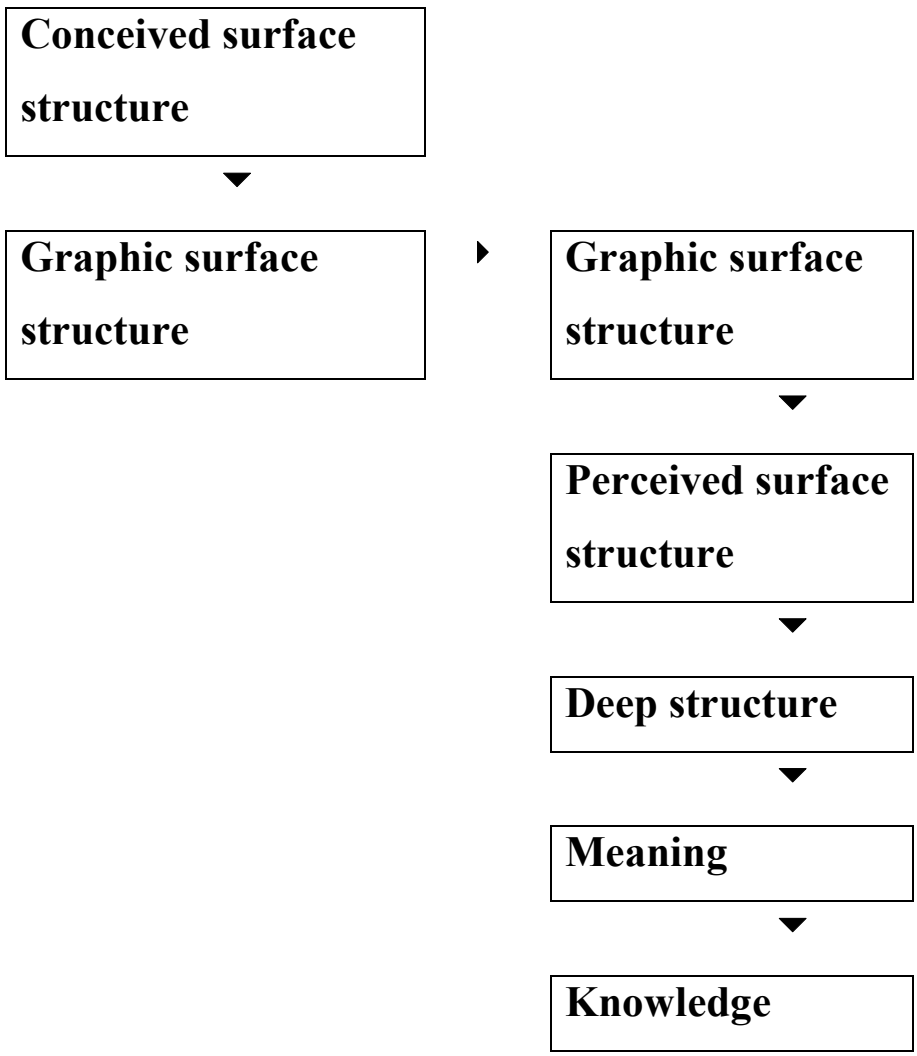


> language code as it appears when written, while at the same time being permitted and encouraged to exploit the volitional and creative aspects of the new language to the extent that his ability and his experience permit. (p. 167)

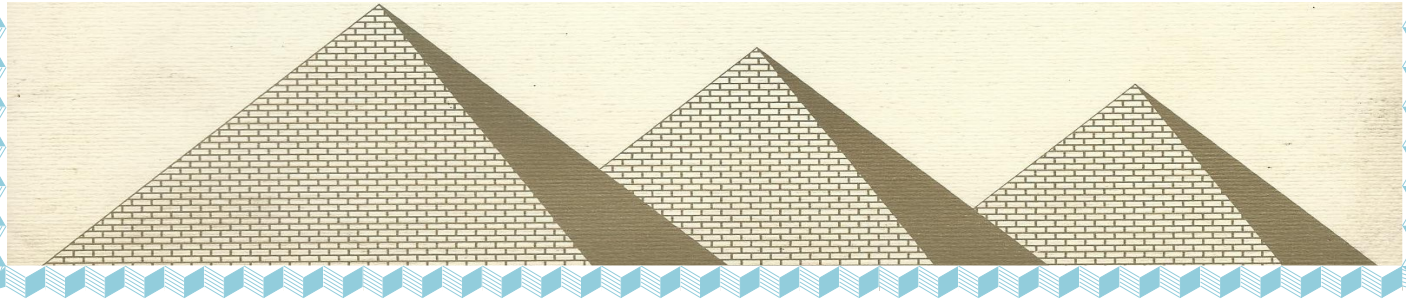
In a similar vein, some educators claim that a writer and a reader of a text follow inverse cognitive processes (e.g., Beaugrande, 1979; Page, 1974; Yoos, 1979). More specifically, they claim that writers encode meaning, whereas readers decode it. Figure 1 represents Page's view in this point (p. 176).

Figure 1: Page's view of reading and writing





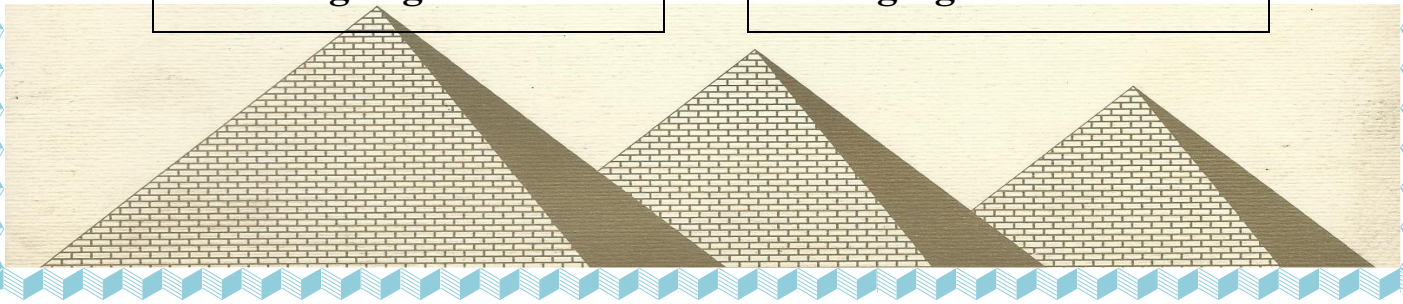
The previously-mentioned standpoint resulted in treating reading and writing as separate entities in the classrooms as well as in language arts curricula at all levels. Furthermore, most of the experimental studies related to these skills, as Reid (1993) states, "progressed so independently for the past twenty years" (p. 43).



On the other hand, advocates of the whole-language approach, among others, argue that both reading and writing are potentially equal and integrated. Some of them (e.g., Laflamme, 1997; Norris and Hoffman, 1993; Taylor, 1981) view the subskills of reading and writing as virtually the same. Figure 2, for example, represents Taylor's view (1981) in this point (pp. 30-31).

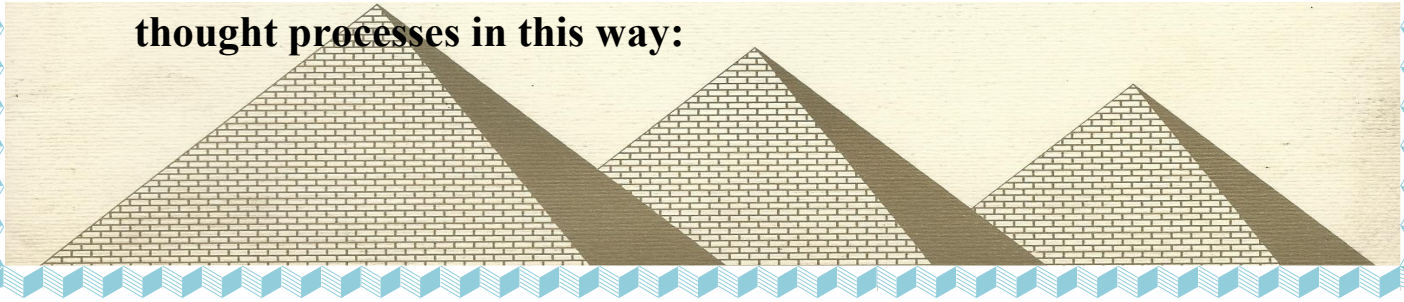
Figure 2: Taylor's subskills of reading and writing

Reading	Writing
Identifying the main idea	Formulating and phrasing the main idea
Finding support for the main idea	Supporting the main idea
Recognizing the sequence of sentences	Linking sentences to achieve coherence
Drawing inferences	Shaping inferences
Following organization of	Arranging ideas and



ideas and events	**events in the logical order**
Differentiating fact from opinion	**Supporting an opinion with facts**
Recognizing organizational patterns	**Using appropriate organizational patterns**
Drawing conclusions from ideas, stated or inferred	**Writing deductively**
Drawing conclusions from detail	**Writing inductively**
Detecting causal relationships	**Analyzing a causal chain**

In the same vein, Rosenblatt (1988) describes reading and writing as similar patterns of thinking, Singh (1989) views them as two aspects of the same activity, Flood and Lapp (1987) view them as mutually reinforcing interactive processes, and Fitzgerald (1989a) views them as two related thought processes in this way:

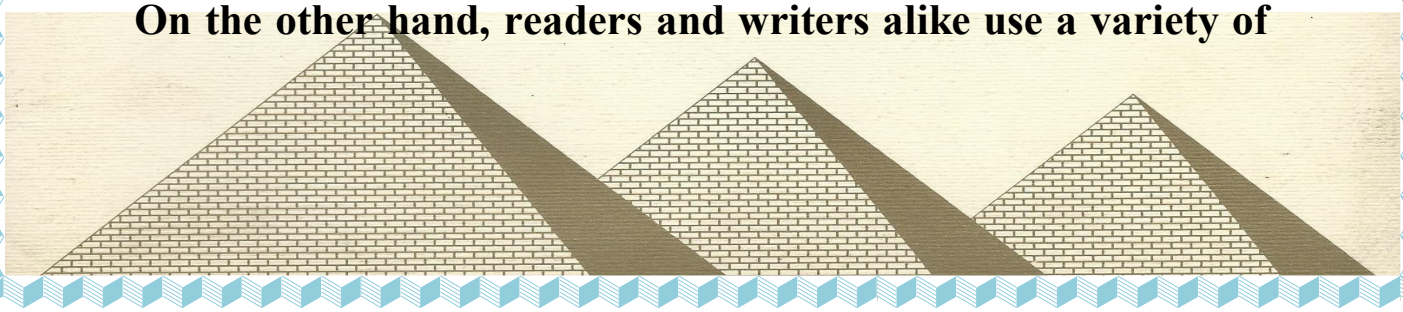


> **We write on the premises of the reader, i.e. writers learn that readers expect information to be sequenced in certain logical or commonly accepted ways, so writers goals for their texts take those reader expectations into account, and try to fashion their texts to meet the readers' expectations. (p. 42)**

Furthermore, Tierney and colleagues (1983, 1995) hold that both reading and writing activate schemata about the content and form of the topic which consequently influence what is understood or produced.

In line with the assumption that reading and writing are interdependent, some language teaching theoreticians assert that the teaching of reading involves the teaching of writing and vice versa. As Kenneth and Yetta Goodman (1983) note, "People not only learn to read by reading and write by writing but they also learn to read by writing and write by reading" (p. 592).

The comprehensive approach holds that there are differences and similarities between reading and writing. Unlike writing which is meaning-generating, reading is meaning-abstracting. On the other hand, readers and writers alike use a variety of

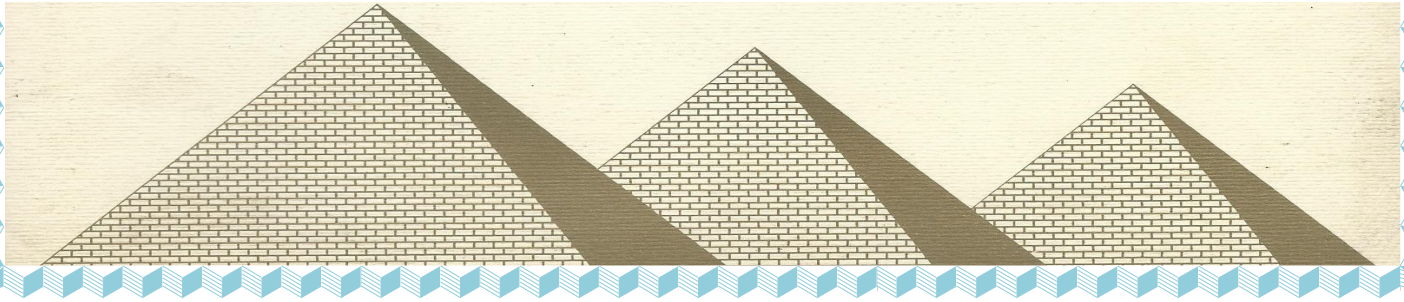


cognitive and metacognitive strategies in order to achieve their goals. Therefore, reading should be taught separately from writing at the beginning of foreign language learning to stress the unique properties of each skill. Then, both skills should be integrated at the intermediate-high level to stress the commonalties between them.

13.2 Summary of research on reading-writing relationship

A review of research on the relationship between reading and writing revealed that some studies support the view that the two skills are independent behaviors (e.g., Evans, 1979; Fuller, 1974; Perry, 1980; Siedow, 1973); whereas other studies offer support for the view that the two skills are interdependent (e.g., Acuna, 1986; Balkiewicz, 1992; D'Angelo, 1977; Flahive and Bailey, 1993; Hill, 1982; Holtz, 1988; Hulett, 1986; Kane, 1983; Popplewell, 1984).

Similarly, some studies showed that training in writing produced positive effects on reading (e.g., Denner *et al*., 1989; Donohue, 1985; Kelley, 1984; Zuckermann, 1987); whereas other studies indicated that writing instruction did not lead to improvement in reading (e.g., Frey, 1993).



In light of the experimental literature reviewed above, there is indirect evidence that there are differences and similarities between reading and writing. Direct support for the author's view comes from Webster and Ammon's study (1994) which revealed that there are some skills specific to reading and others common to both reading and writing.

13.3 Classroom activities for integrating reading with writing

Reading-writing integration can be implemented in the EFL classroom through the following activities:

(1) Reading-to-write activities. Such activities can be divided into the following three stages:

(a) Pre-reading activities, e.g.,

Asking students to write their own experiences about the theme of the text before they read it;

(b) While-reading activities, e.g.,

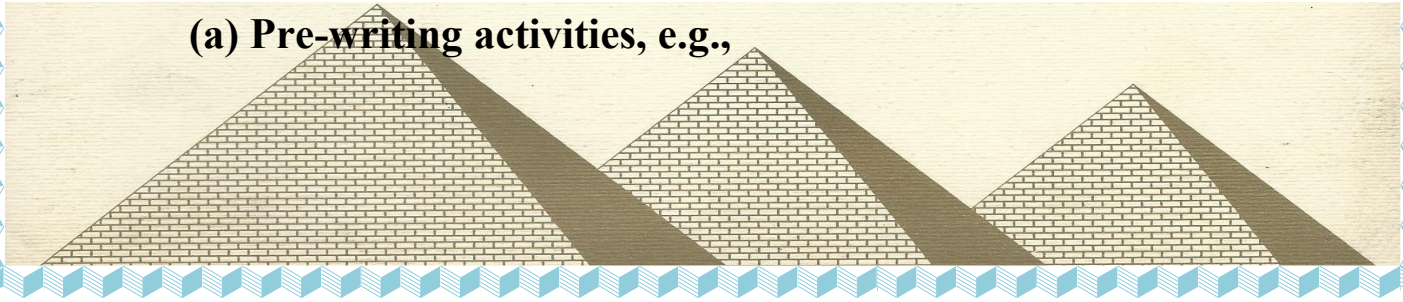
Asking students to take notes while reading;

(c) Post-reading activities, e.g.,

Asking students to write summaries, syntheses and critiques about what they have read.

(2) Writing-to-read activities. Such activities can be divided into the following three stages:

(a) Pre-writing activities, e.g.,



Asking students to read materials that teach various organizational patterns before writing;

(b) While-writing activities, e.g.,

Asking students to pause to scan and read during writing;

(c) Post-writing activities, e.g.,

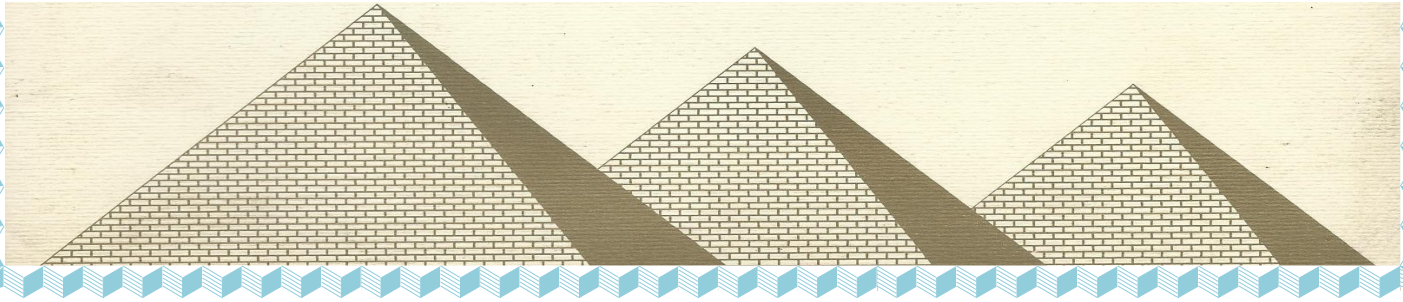
Asking students to read each other's writing and respond to it.

13.4 Self-checks

1. Develop a lesson plan that integrates reading with writing.

2. The position taken by the author is that the separation of reading and writing is necessary in the early stages of foreign language learning. Do you agree with him? Why? Why not?

3. Do you think that writing and reading develop reciprocally and directly affect each other? Why? Why not?



Chapter Fourteen

Integrating Speaking with Writing

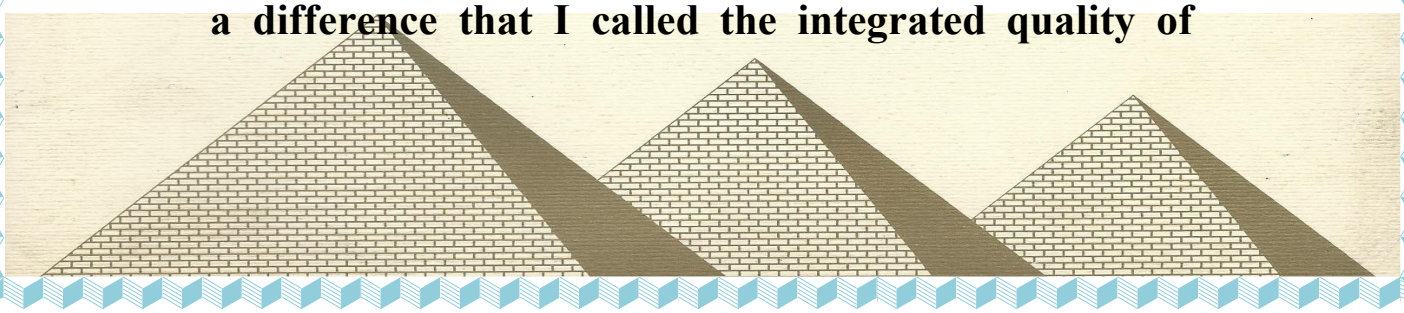
14.1 Introduction

Advocates of the skills-based approach take the position that speaking and writing are completely different. As Lakoff (1982) puts it:

> **It is generally acknowledged that written and oral communication involve very different kinds of strategies: what works orally does not work in print, and vice versa. We know the reasons for this discrepancy, at least in part: oral communication works through the assumption immediacy, or spontaneity; writing on the other hand is planned, organized, and non-spontaneous. (p. 239)**

Chafe (1985) emphasizes that the speaking and writing are different in this way:

> **The fact that writing is a slow, deliberate, editable process, whereas speaking is done on the fly leads to a difference that I called the integrated quality of**



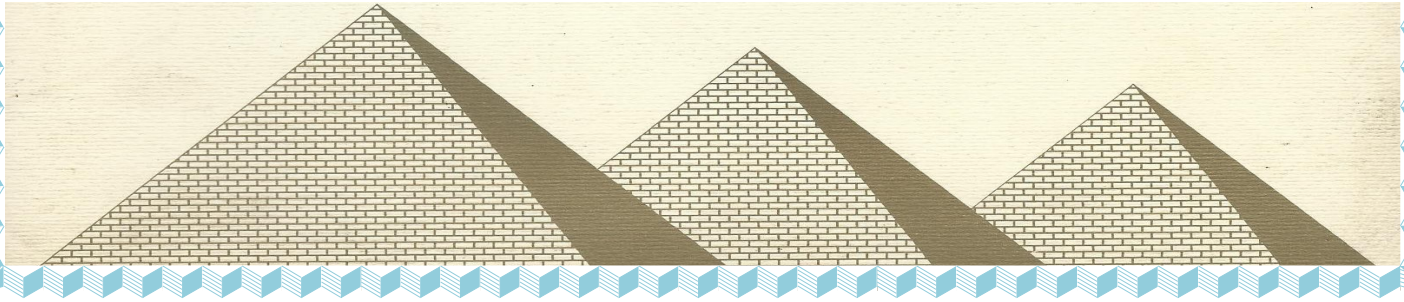
> written language as opposed to the fragmented quality of spoken. The fact that writing is a lonely activity whereas speaking typically takes place in an environment of social interaction causes written language to have a detached quality that contrasts with the involvement of spoken language. (p. 105)

Oxford (1993) also emphasizes the same point of view in this way:

> Ordinary speech, unlike the written word, contains many ungrammatical, reduced, or incomplete forms. It also contains hesitations, false starts, repetitions, fillers, and pauses, all of which make up 30-50% of any conversation (Oxford, 1990). (p. 206)

For other differences between spoken and written language, see Graesser *et al.* (1991), Horowitz and Samuels (1987), Kamhi and Catts (1989), Mazzie (1987), and Rader (1982).

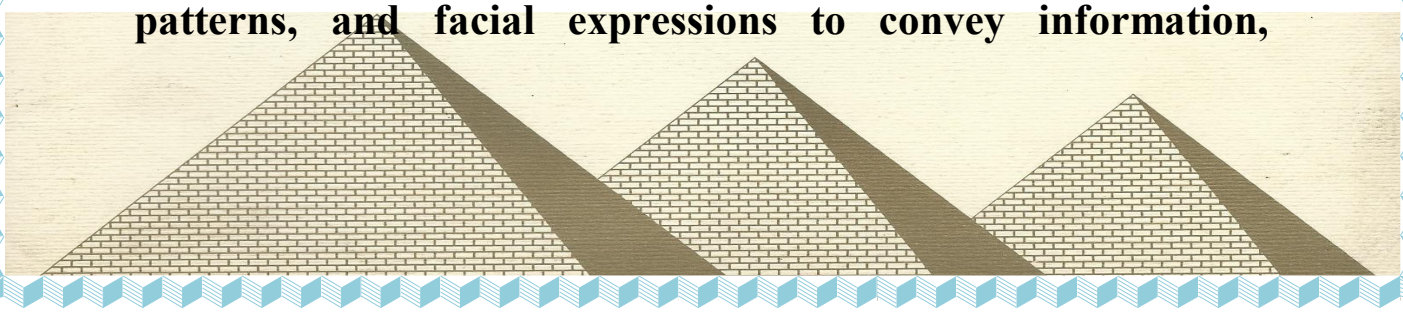
The above position resulted in treating speaking and writing as separate entities in the classroom as well as in language arts curricula.



On the other hand, advocates of the whole-language approach, among other language theoreticians, assume that speaking and writing are equal and integrated (e.g., Goodman, 1986; Johnson, 1989; Myers, 1987). One reason for this assumption is that both oral and written language come from the same source which is one's communicative competence. A second reason is that writing and speaking are productive modes of the language and employ many of the same faculties (Larson and Jones, 1983). A third reason, as Magnan (1985) notes, is that "writing is sometimes the only possible form for speech ... [and] speech is the most feasible form for writing'' (p. 117). A final reason is that writers frequently engage in inner speech (Klein, 1977).

In line with the previously-cited assumption, some language teaching theoreticians assert that speaking and writing should be taught simultaneously and that involvement in the meaningful and communicative use of language is central for the development of both skills.

The comprehensive approach holds that although speaking and writing are different in some aspects, they share others. They are different in that a speaker uses intonation, stress patterns, and facial expressions to convey information,



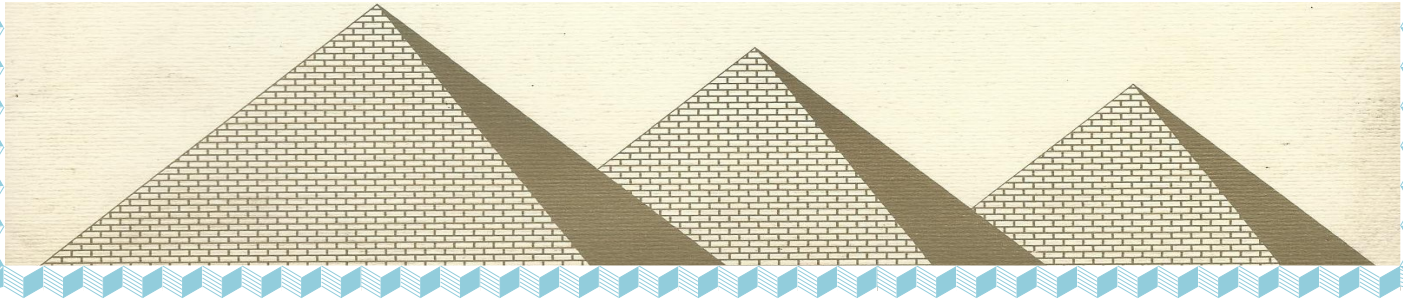
whereas a writer conveys information through writing conventions. In other words, the speaker uses the sound (phonemic) system, whereas the writer uses the print (graphemic) system. They are similar in that both speakers and writers create meaning. Therefore, the author's position is that the unique properties of each skill should be taught first before focusing on the elements common to both.

14.2 Summary of research on speaking-writing relationship

Research on the speaking-writing relationship yielded two sets of findings. One set showed that speaking and writing are different forms and/or not correlated (e.g., Hildyard and Hidi, 1985; Lee, 1991; Mazzie, 1987; Redeker, 1984; Sweeney, 1993).

The other set showed that speaking and writing are similar forms and/or correlated (e.g., Abu-Humos, 1993; Cooper, 1982; Negm, 1995; Tannen, 1982a and b).

The research reviewed in this chapter provides indirect support for the author's position that there are similarities and differences between speaking and writing.



14.3 Classroom activities for integrating speaking with writing

Speaking-writing integration can be implemented in the EFL classroom through many activities. Among these activities are the following:

(1) Asking students to write down sentences in the way they are spoken;

(2) Asking students to discuss the topic they are going to write about;

(3) Asking students to engage in self-dialogue while writing;

(4) Asking students to discuss what they have written;

(5) Asking students to orally narrate the stories they have written;

(6) Giving writing assignments in which students can manipulate features of voice such as stories, dialogues, and letters;

(7) Using individual conferences in which the teacher converses with an individual student at a time during or after writing to diagnose his/her problems in writing and to suggest solutions to these problems;

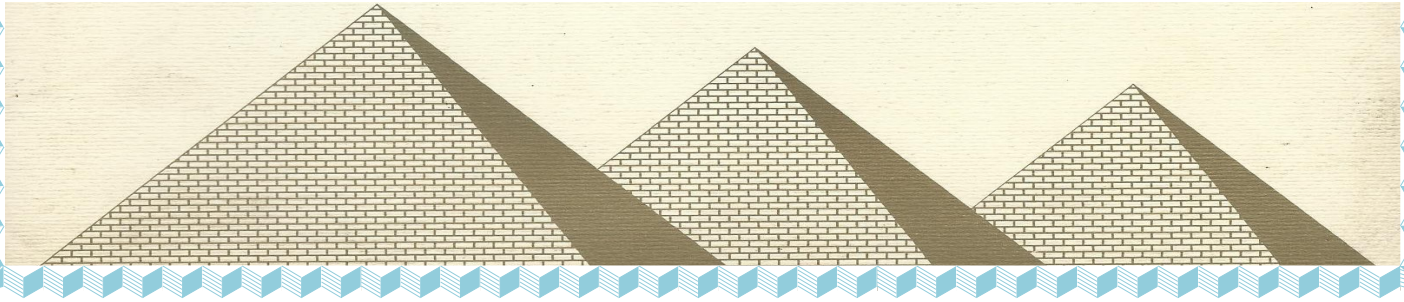
(8) Using peer/group conferences in which students converse with one another during and/or after writing to share writing strategies, ideas, and experiences;

(9) Asking students to write questions for an interview;

(10) Asking students to conduct interviews with others and to put these interviews in writing.

14.4 Self-checks

1. Do you think that students should be aware of the differences between written and spoken discourse? Why? Why not?
2. Compare the spoken and written versions of a certain content. Note down the similarities and differences between them.
3. The author thinks that writing and speaking are partially independent from each other. Do you agree with him? Why? Why not?



Chapter Fifteen

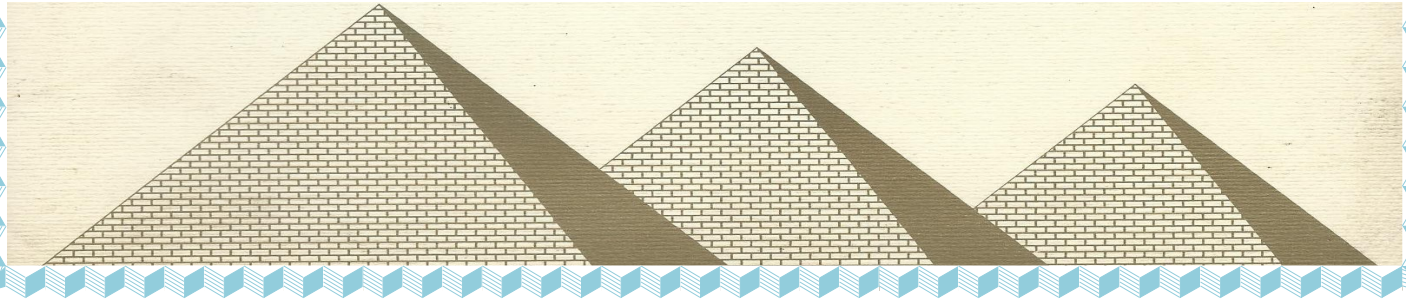
Integrating Listening with Reading

15.1 Introduction

Advocates of the skills-based approach (e.g., Anderson and Lapp, 1979; Hildyard and Olson, 1982; Leu, 1982; Rubin, 1980) take the position that listening and reading are independent and parallel skills. They further claim that listening comprehension ordinarily precedes reading comprehension.

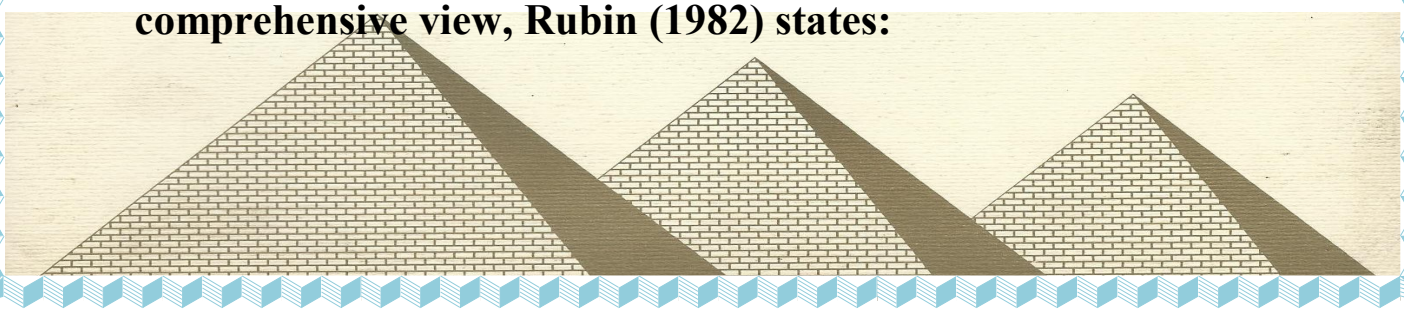
In Contrast, advocates of the whole-language approach, among other language teaching theorists, take the position that reading and listening are interrelated (e.g., Bromley, 1988; Carlisle, 1991; Omanson *et al*., 1984; Sticht and James, 1984). In support of this unitary comprehension view, Brassard (1970) a long time ago stated:

> **Listening and reading obviously are interrelated communication skills. They are similar in that the receiver relies on his background experience and**



> **vocabulary to interpret stimuli presented through oral and written channels. (p. 1)**

The comprehensive approach holds that while there are areas for interrelating instruction in listening and reading, each embodies some subskills which must be learned and developed separately. The two skills are related in that listeners and readers use their own language background and experience to understand the message. They are also related in that both are concerned with the intake half of the communication process and manifest the same set of cognitive processes. They are different in that: (1) listening requires processing aural signals, while reading requires processing visual signals, (2) the listener must cope with verbal and nonverbal messages, whereas the reader must cope with verbal messages alone (Oxford, 1993; Rost, 1992), (3) readers, unlike listeners, are capable of control over the input, and can dwell upon parts of the text, review others, and slow down when the information is difficult (McClelland, 1987), (4) the reader's messages are generally linear, tightly structured, and presented in full sentences, while the listener's messages are often non-linear, loosely structured, and redundant (Lundsteen, 1979). Supporting the comprehensive view, Rubin (1982) states:

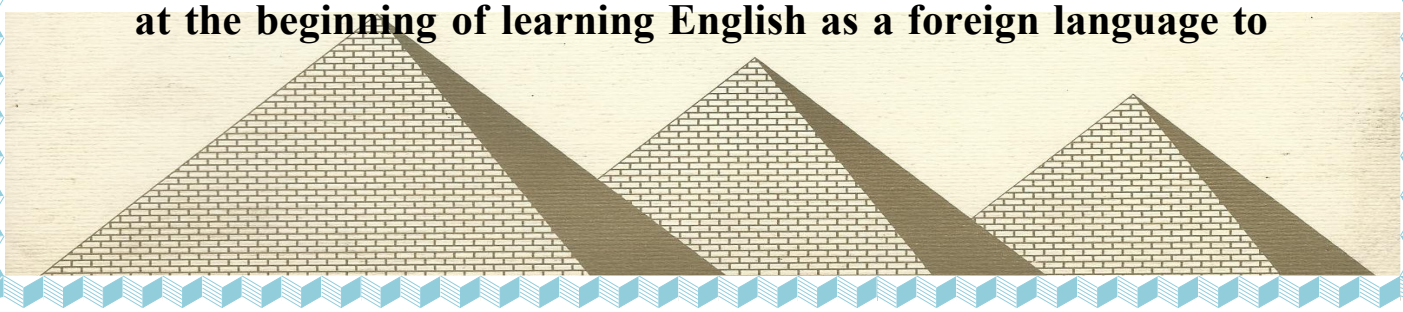


> **Although there are many common factors involved in the decoding of reading and listening—which would account for the relationship between the two areas—listening and reading are, nonetheless, separated by unique factors. (p. 67)**

Supporting the same view, Danks and End (1987) state:

> **So, to the question, "Are listening and reading processes the same or different," the answer is, "Both." Listening and reading are the same in that both are language comprehension processes that have available to them the same set of strategies to accomplish the task of comprehension. They differ to the extent that the cognitive demands imposed by text characteristics, situational factors, and cognitive skills available to the comprehender result in different processing strategies being heuristic. (p. 291)**

With the previously-mentioned views in mind, the author claims that listening and reading should be taught separately at the beginning of learning English as a foreign language to

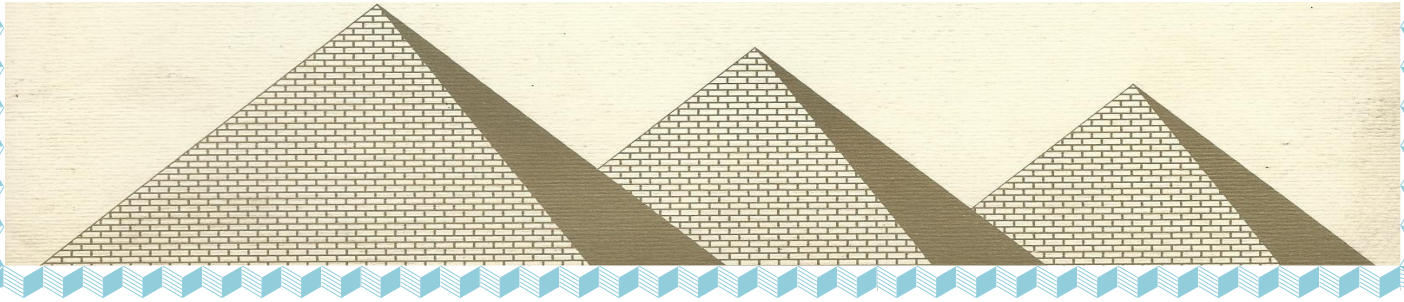


develop the properties specific to each skill. Then, the teacher can move towards the integration and unification of the two skills to develop the properties common to both. In doing so, the comprehensive approach stresses the shared qualities as well as the uniqueness of each skill.

15.2 Summary of research on listening-reading relationship

In reviewing the studies relevant to the area of the listening-reading relationship, the author found that some studies revealed that listening and reading are different forms and/or not correlated (e.g., Brown and Hayes, 1985; Curd, 1984; Levesque, 1989; Lund, 1991; Royer *et al*., 1986, 1990); whereas other studies indicated that the two skills are similar and/or correlated (e.g., Berger, 1978; Carr *et al*., 1985; Favreau and Segalowitz, 1983; Nuwash, 1997; Travis, 1983).

Similarly, some studies showed that training in listening improved reading skills (e.g., Brooks, 1986, 1990; Lemons and Moore, 1982; Seaton and Wielan, 1980); whereas other studies did not show significant gains in reading comprehension after training in listening (e.g., Beck, 1985; Miller, 1988; Weisenbach, 1989).



Viewed collectively, the experimental literature reviewed above provides indirect support for the view that there are differences and similarities between listening and reading.

Direct support for the comprehensive approach comes from studies which showed that listening and reading are equivalent for specific proficiency levels, but not for others (Brown and Hayes, 1985; Miller and Smith, 1990). This, in turn, suggests the use of the comprehensive approach which stresses the differences between listening and reading before integrating them at a higher level.

15.3 Classroom activities for integrating listening with reading

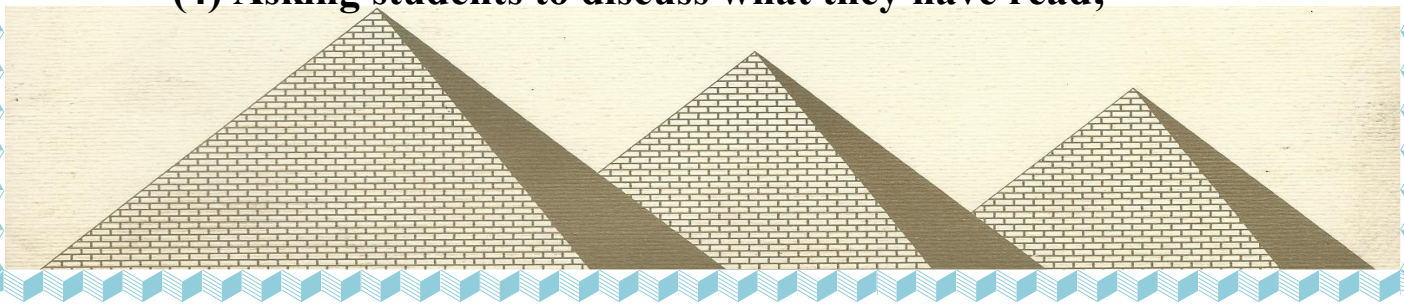
Listening-reading integration can be implemented in the EFL classroom through many activities. Among these activities are the following:

(1) Having students listen to a model reading of what they are going to read;

(2) Having students read aloud and listen to themselves;

(3) Asking students to discuss the topic they are going to read about;

(4) Asking students to discuss what they have read;



(5) Having students listen to a model reading of what they have just read;

(6) Using individual conferences in which the teacher converses with an individual student at a time during or after reading to diagnose his/her problems in reading and to suggest solutions to these problems;

(7) Using peer/group conferences in which students converse with one another during and/or after reading to share reading strategies, ideas, and experiences;

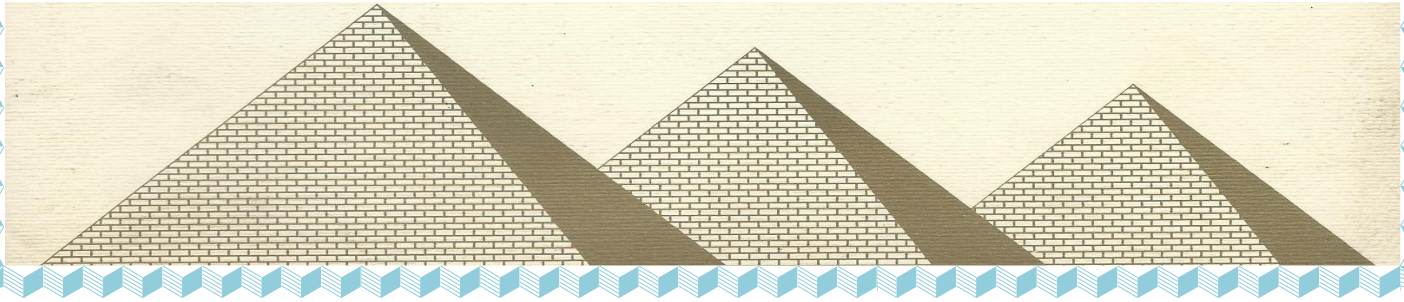
(8) Asking students to act out parts of the story they have read;

(9) Asking students to retell the story they have read from a different point of view;

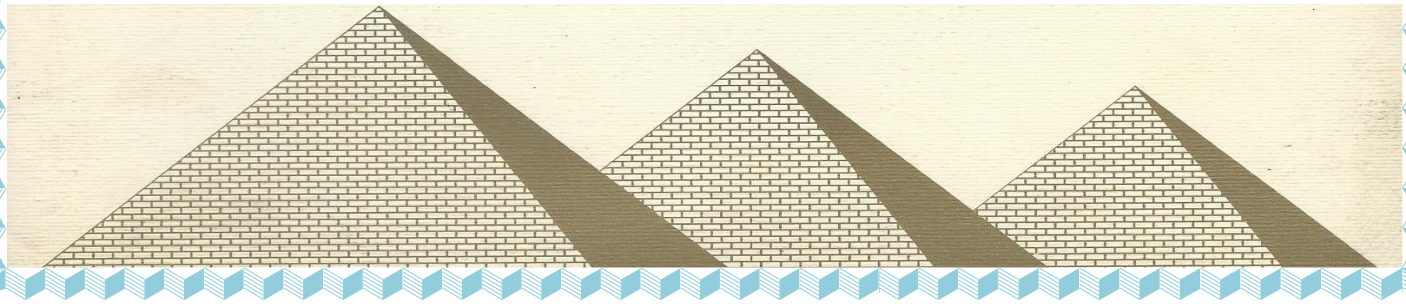
(10) Asking students to keep a reading log and to discuss it with the class.

15.4 Self-checks

1. The author thinks that teachers cannot use listening to support reading or vice versa unless students know the differences between the two skills? Do you agree with him? Why? Why not?
2. What are the metacognitive strategies you think listeners and readers use?

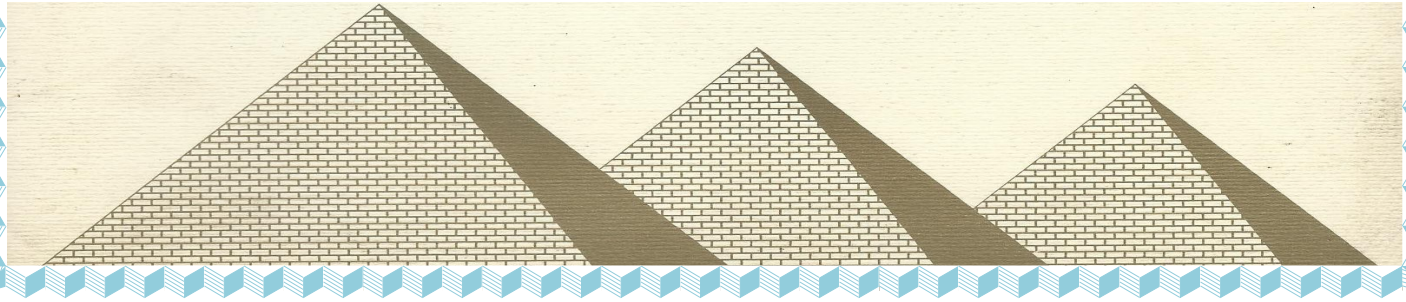


3. While similarities exist between listening and reading, there are a number of differences between them. Discuss.



Part Five

Integrating All Language Skills



Chapter Sixteen

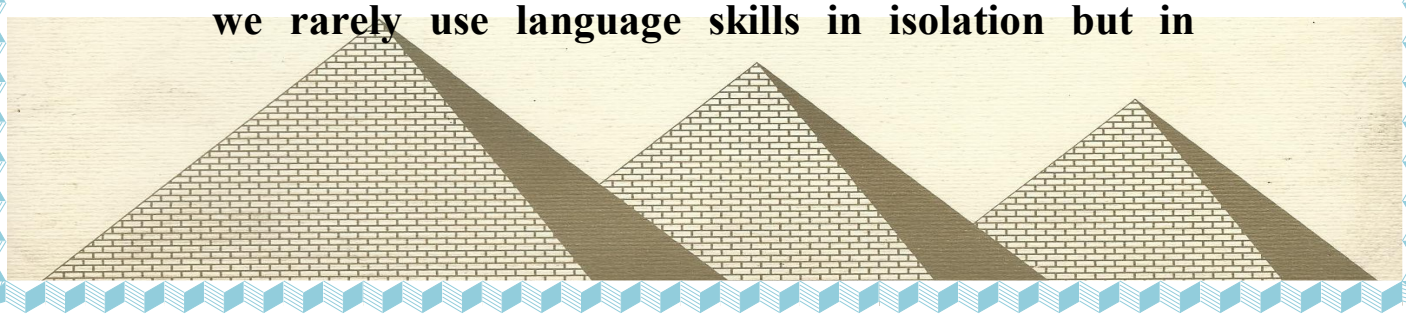
Integrating All Language Skills

16.1 Introduction

Advocates of the skills-based approach (e.g., Boyle, 1987; Hughes and Woods, 1981; Swinton and Powers, 1980) take the position that language is divisible and needs to be fractionated and broken down into separate, discrete elements for the purpose of instruction. They further claim that if each language skill is practiced and mastered individually, the unitary nature of language would emerge as an outgrowth of such instruction.

On the other hand, advocates of the whole-language approach, among other educators and applied linguists, take the position that language is unitary (e.g., Farris, 1989; Lapp and Flood, 1992; Lundsteen, 1989; McDonough and Shaw, 1993; Temple and Gillet, 1984). As McDonough and Shaw (1993) put it:

> **If we look around us in our daily lives we can see that we rarely use language skills in isolation but in**

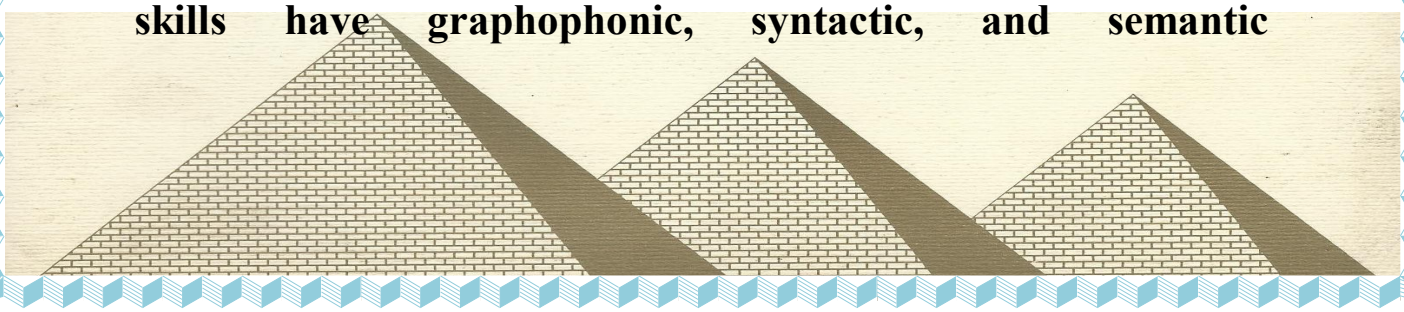


> **conjunction ... and, even though the classroom is clearly not the same as "real life," it could be argued that part of its function is to replicate it. If one of the jobs of the teacher is to make the students "communicatively competent" in L2, then this will involve more than being able to perform in each of the four skills separately. By giving learners tasks which expose them to these skills in conjunction, it is possible that they will gain deeper understanding of how communication works in the foreign language as well as becoming more motivated when they see the value of performing meaningful tasks and activities in the classroom. (pp. 201-202)**

Supporting the holistic view, Temple and Gillet (1984) state:

> **The organization of most language arts programs suggests that reading, writing, speaking, listening, spelling and the other components are separate subjects. In reality each supports and reinforces the others, and language arts must be taught as a complex of interrelated language processes. (p. 461)**

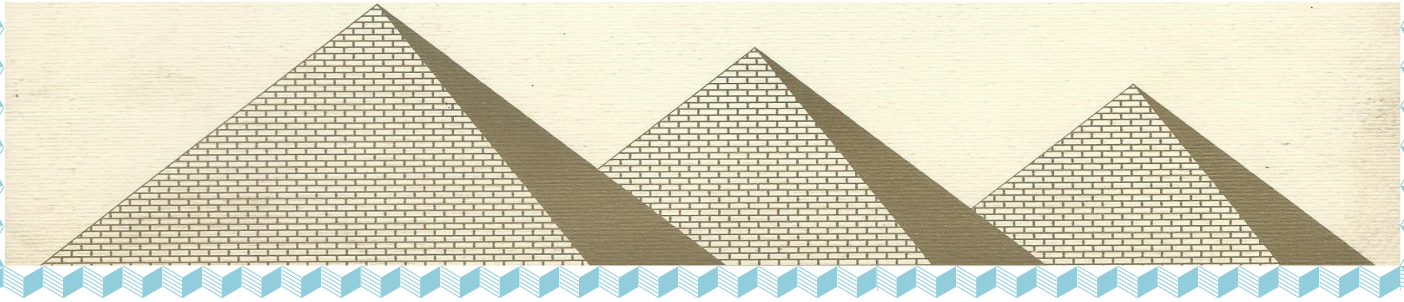
Whole language theoreticians also claim that all language skills have graphophonic, syntactic, and semantic



characteristics in common. They add that language presents a totality which cannot be broken down into isolated skills.

However, as mentioned in chapter one, it is the height of unreasonableness to integrate all language skills from the very beginning of foreign language learning. Therefore, the comprehensive approach shifts to total integration of all language skills at the university level. At this level, total integration can be successfully carried out through the literature-based approach. This approach plays a vital role in developing EFL students' linguistic knowledge on the use level. As El-Menoufy (1993) puts it:

> **The student learning the foreign language wants to learn how to express meaning in that foreign language. Literature is the only variety which makes him/her aware of the potentialities of the language for the expression of meaning and draws his/her attention to the way the formal properties of the language, i.e. its grammar and vocabulary, express these meanings. This is why I think literature is an essential component in the foreign language teaching course – primarily for linguistic purposes and, not**

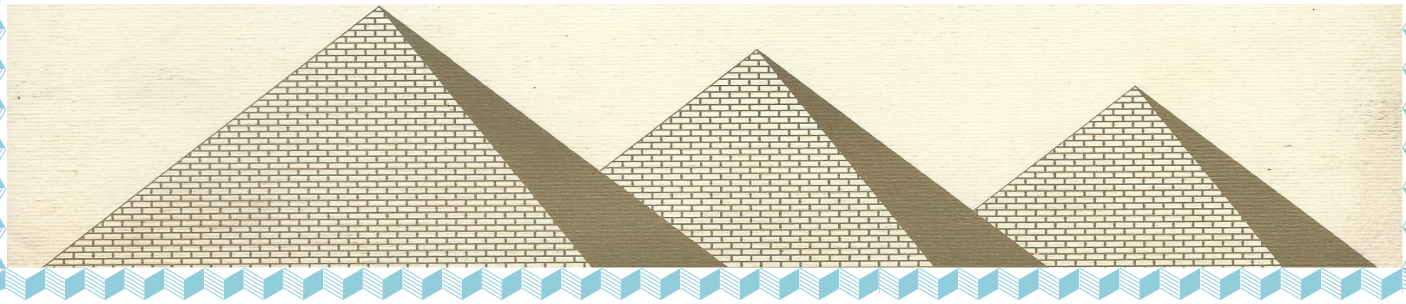


> **simply for cultural or other purposes, as has usually been argued. (p. 260)**

The literature-based approach can also play an important role in developing reading, writing, and oral skills. As Stern (1991) puts it:

> **All the elements of literature—plot, character, setting, and theme—help promote reading comprehension by presenting special challenges to readers which demand that they learn to put into practice specific reading strategies, and by helping carry students along in their reading. Moreover, they provide the subject matter, the context, and the inspiration for numerous written and oral activities so that a single literary work becomes the central focus of a classroom study unit. (p. 328)**

Moreover, literature can help EFL students understand the foreign culture because it immerses them in the world it depicts. Wabby (1995) makes this point clear in the following way:

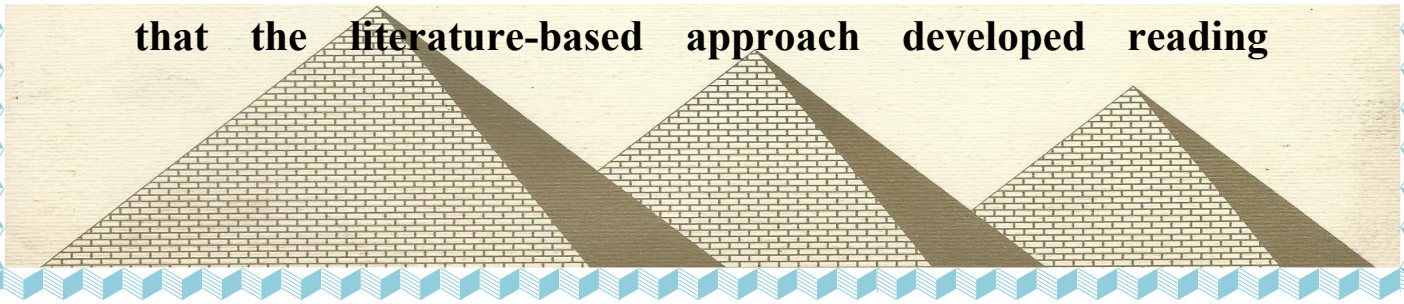


> If a learner reads a novel or a play in the target language, for example, this gives him the opportunity to live the real-to-life experience of the characters and becomes aware of how the people of this particular culture behave under certain circumstances....The involvement of the learner in the literary text enables him to perceive and be aware of how people of other cultures behave. That is why literature and literary materials as a whole can be a good medium to develop the learners cultural awareness. (p. 154)

As indicated in this section, the teaching and learning of language through literature can help students develop the various components of the curricula in the departments of English at Egyptian universities.

16.2 Summary of research on literature-based instruction

A review of research related to literature-based instruction revealed that studies done in this area were conducted with various types of native English speakers. These studies found that the literature-based approach developed reading



comprehension (Bader *et al*., 1987; Lester, 1993; Madison, 1991; Richardson, 1995), attitudes towards reading (Froelich, 1992; Kaya, 2002; Kunze, 1994; Oppelt, 1991; Richardson, 1995), writing proficiency (Gipe, 1993), metacognitive knowledge about reading and writing (Gambrell and Palmer, 1992), vocabulary (Oppelt, 1991), and phonemic awareness (Moriarty, 1990).

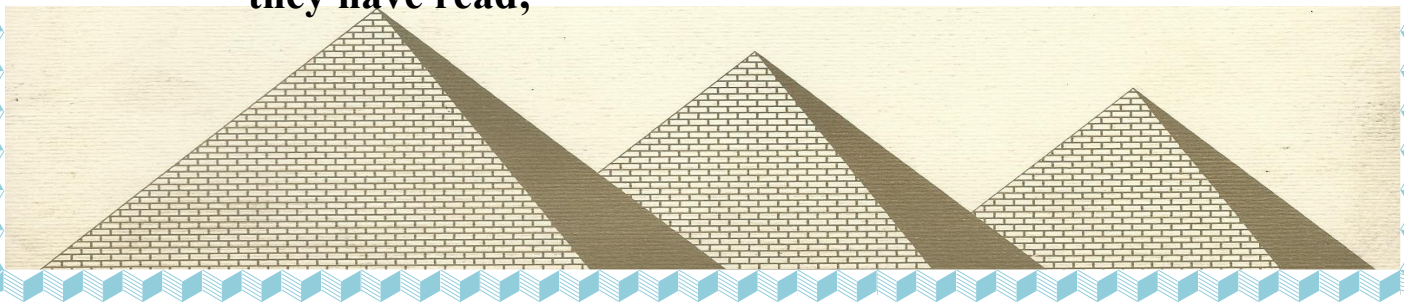
16.3 Classroom activities for integrating all language skills through literature

The following literature-based activities, synthesized from several sources, offer students the opportunity to actively engage in learning the language skills and the target culture while simultaneously gaining insights into literary competence.

(1) Asking students to make predictions about what will happen in the story they are going to read;

(2) Asking students to write summaries, analyses of characters, reviews, abstracts, appraisals of the author's technique, and to discuss what they have written in groups;

(3) Asking students to dramatize parts of the literary text they have read;



(4) Asking students to discuss extracts from the literary text they have read;

(5) Asking students to read parts of a play dramatically;

(6) Asking students to read poetry aloud;

(7) Asking students to write extensions of scenes or events;

(8) Asking students to rewrite a part of prose fiction into dialogue and to dramatize what they have written;

(9) Asking students to write a letter to the author of the literary text they have read;

(10) Asking one of the students to portray the author and other students to ask him/her about the literary work;

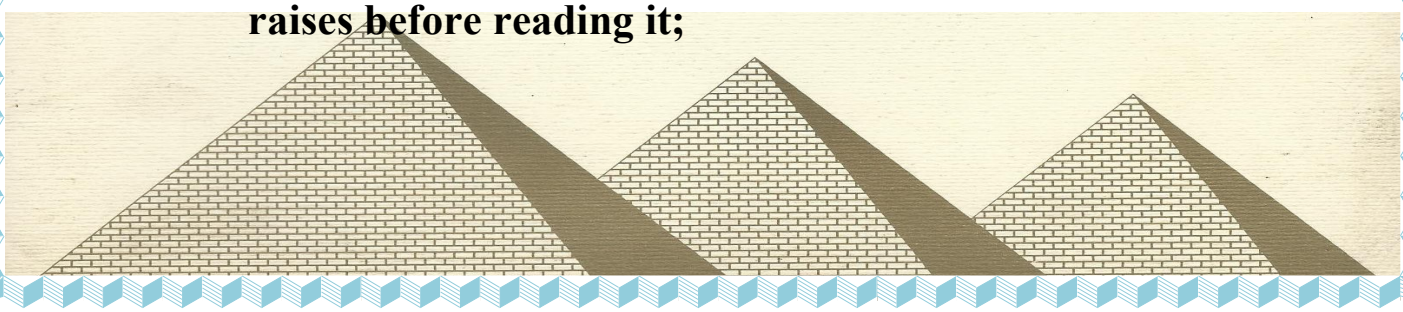
(11) Asking students to write an alternative ending to the story they have read and to share what they have written in pairs;

(12) Asking students to use literature dialogue journals to give those who talk little in class the opportunity to reflect on readings/discussions;

(13) Asking students to keep a literature log while reading the assigned text and to discuss what they have written with the class;

(14) Asking students to speak about their personal experiences that relate to the literary selection;

(15) Asking students to discuss an issue the literary work raises before reading it;



(16) Asking students to assess the worth of the author's point of view either orally or in writing;

(17) Asking students to paraphrase parts of a poetic text;

(18) Asking students to write about the poem's poetic language and structure;

(19) Asking students to discuss the differences and similarities between two poems;

(20) Asking students to discuss the relationship between and among the language units in the poem they have read;

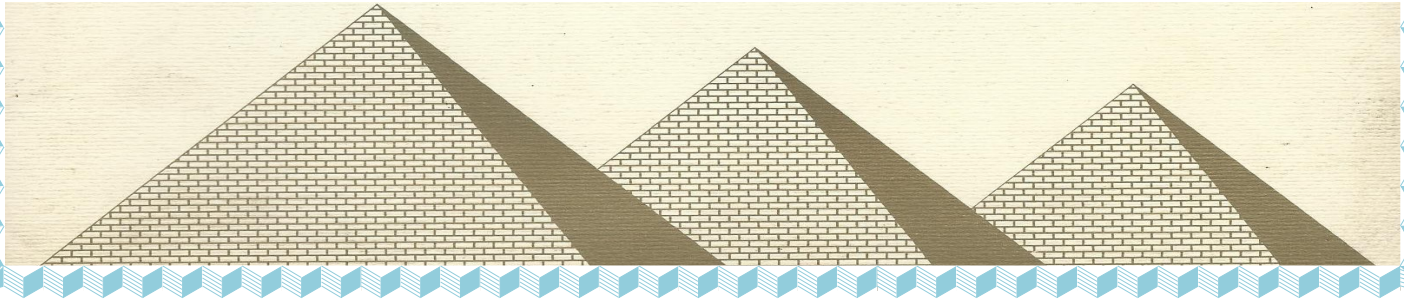
(21) Asking students to compare/contrast two literary texts orally or in writing in terms of pedagogical purpose, cultural perspective, linguistic level, etc.;

(22) Asking students to show orally or in writing how the literary text they have read depicts the social setting in which the events take place;

(23) Asking students to write a critical appreciation of the poem they have read and to discuss it with the class;

(24) Asking students to tell the story they have read from a different point of view;

(25) Asking students to analyze the author's style of writing;



(26) Asking students to write about what they would do if they were one of the characters in the story they have read;

(27) Asking students to speak about the feelings they have about the characters in the story they have read;

(28) Asking a student to portray a character and other students to interview him/her focusing on how s/he feels about an event or another character and how s/he hopes the dramatic conflict will be resolved;

(29) Asking students to portray a character and to write a letter to another character to change his/her opinion on an issue;

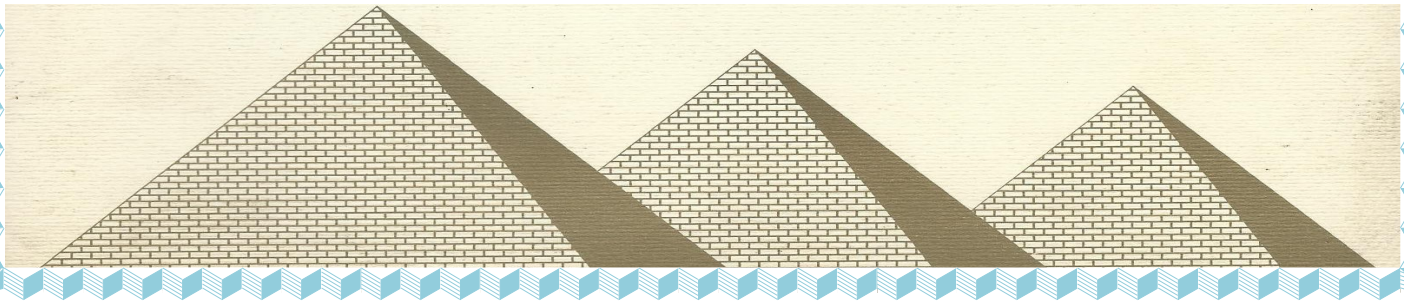
(30) Asking students to write a letter to a character evaluating his or her actions in the story;

(31) Asking students to write about an incident, that made them angry or happy, in the story they have read;

(32) Asking students to write about the cultural forces that might shape the author's view;

(33) Asking students to rewrite parts of a play or a scene into narrative;

(34) Asking students to rewrite a story in the form of a script for a play;



(35) Asking students to change a real-life story to a fantasy by changing human characters to talking animals or realistic settings to magic ones;

(36) Asking students to write about a cultural issue in the literary work they have read and to compare it with their own culture;

(37) Asking students to analyze utterances in the literary text they have read in terms of their communicative functions;

(38) Asking students to translate extracts from set plays, novels, and poems into the native language;

(39) Asking students to translate extracts from Shakespearian plays into modern English;

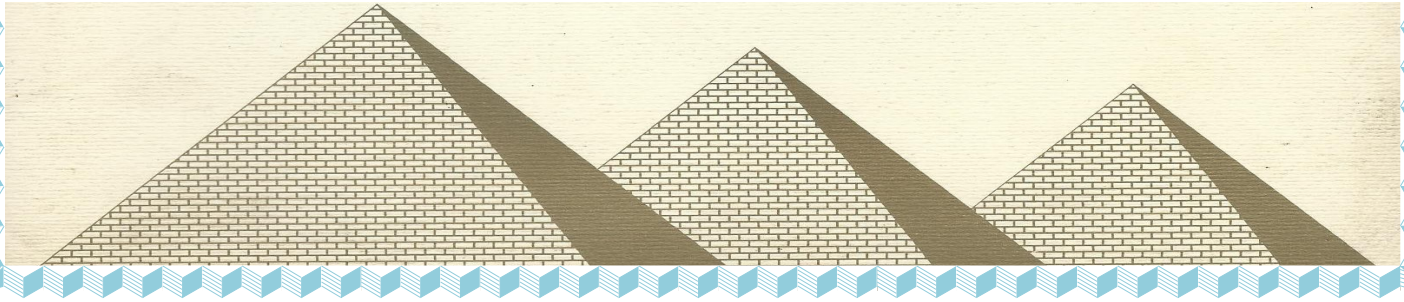
(40) Asking students to analyze dialectal variations in the play they have read;

(41) Asking students to compare the dialects of the characters in the play they have read;

(42) Using extracts from set plays, novels, and poems as examples of stress, intonation, and rhyme;

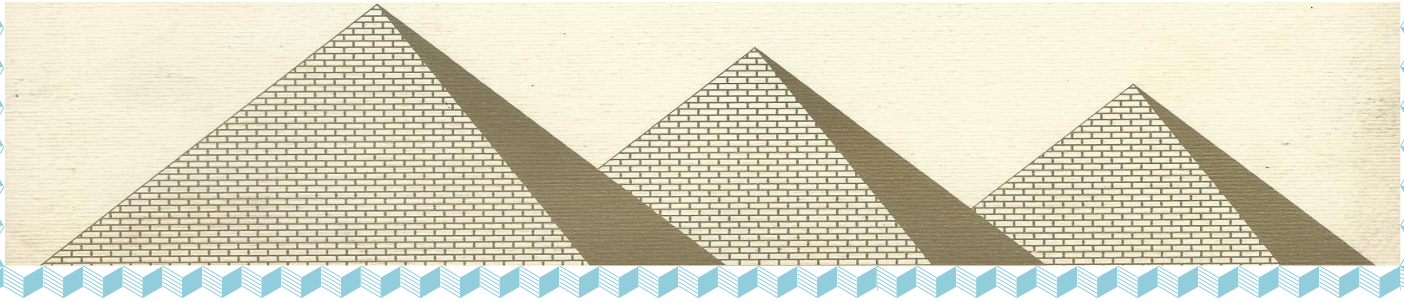
(43) Playing a recording or a video of the literary selection;

(44) Asking students to tell their personal stories either orally or in writing.



16.4 Self-checks

1. Is foreign language proficiency divisible, unitary, or both?
2. Take any chapter from a novel you are reading or familiar with and think of how it could be used for teaching all language skills.
3. Do you think that all language skills can be integrated from the very beginning of foreign language learning? Give your reasons.



Part Six

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Error Correction and Assessment

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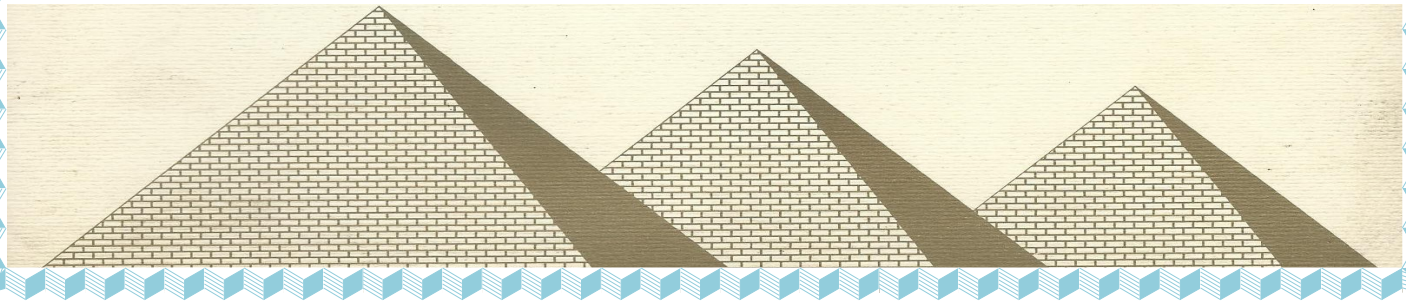


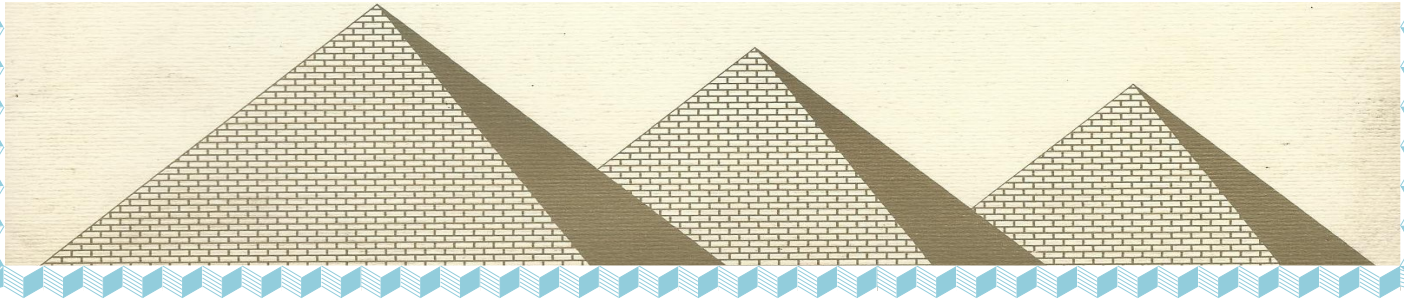
Chapter Seventeen

Error Correction

Just like language teaching and learning, error correction, whether oral or written, was influenced by different approaches in the field of psychology. This led to the appearance of three major techniques for error correction. These techniques are briefly described below:

17.1 Local error-correction

Drawing on the behaviorist view of learning, advocates of the skills-based approach view errors as sins which should be eliminated at all cost. They believe that errors should be locally and immediately corrected for fear that learners may become habituated to their own errors. As Larsen-Freeman (1986) states, "It is important to prevent learners from making errors. Errors lead to the formation of bad habits. When errors do occur, they should be immediately corrected by the teacher" (p. 40). Such a local correction technique is always directed at bits and pieces of students' language. Correction, according to this technique, is done by providing



the student with the correct form. Then, the student repeats this correct form several times.

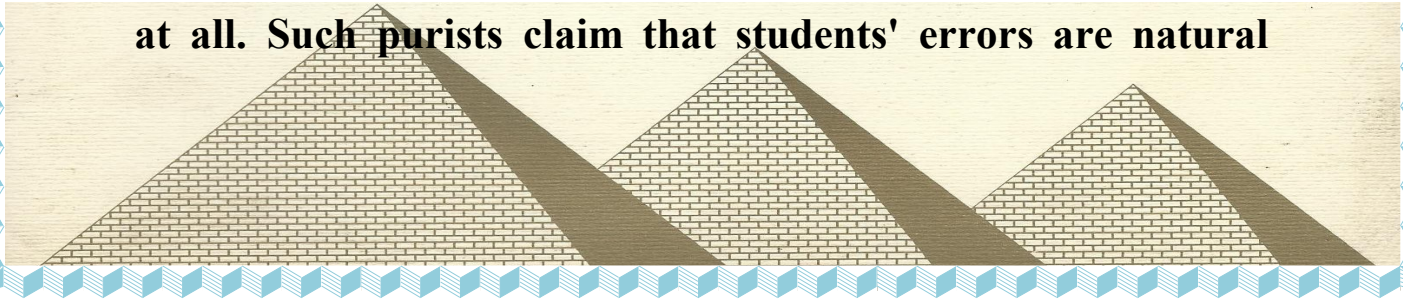
Opponents of this technique claim that it encourages students to focus on bits and pieces of language rather than on meaning. Another disadvantage is that this technique consumes teachers' time. A final disadvantage is that this technique intimidates language learning.

17.2 Global error-correction

Drawing on the constructivist view of learning, some advocates of the whole-language approach, among others, propose that teachers should focus on errors of meaning rather than on errors of form. In other words, errors that cause a listener or reader to misunderstand or not to comprehend a message. Such advocates claim that the correction of global errors develops students' communicative ability and increases their motivation to learn the language. Although this technique encourages students to concentrate on meaning, it sacrifices accuracy for the sake of fluency.

17.3 No error-correction

Whole-language purists, among others, propose no correction at all. Such purists claim that students' errors are natural

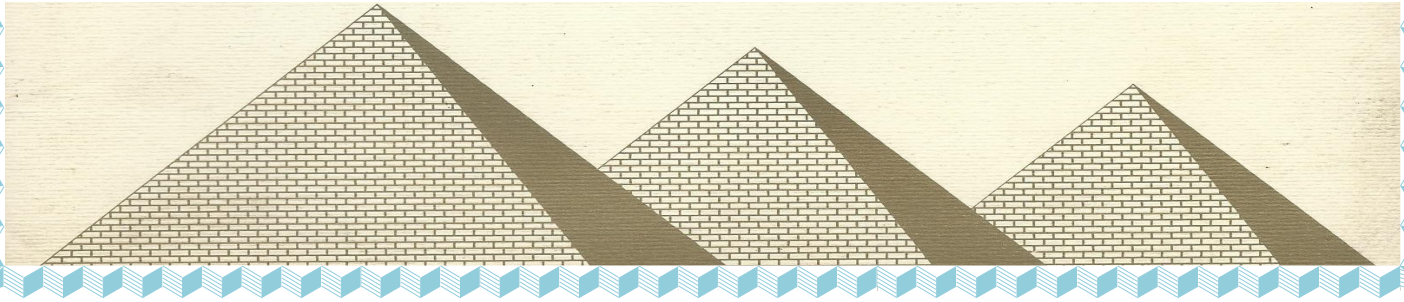


and are supposed to disappear gradually through communication and self-correction. With respect to reading comprehension, for example, Smith (1992) states, "If in fact you are not making errors when you read, you are probably not reading efficiently, you are processing more visual information than you need."

The most obvious advantage of the no error-correction technique is that this technique does not intimidate language learners (Truscott, 1996). Another advantage of this technique is that it encourages learners to explore their thinking and regard themselves as capable thinkers, engaged in intellectual work. In support of this, Terrell (1982) believes that the following three reasons exist for avoiding the correction of speech errors:

(1) Correction of speech errors plays no important role in the progress toward an adult's model of grammar in any natural language acquisition situation.

(2) Correction of speech errors will create affective barriers.



> (3) Correction of speech errors tends to focus the speaker on form promoting learning to the expense of acquisition. (p. 128)

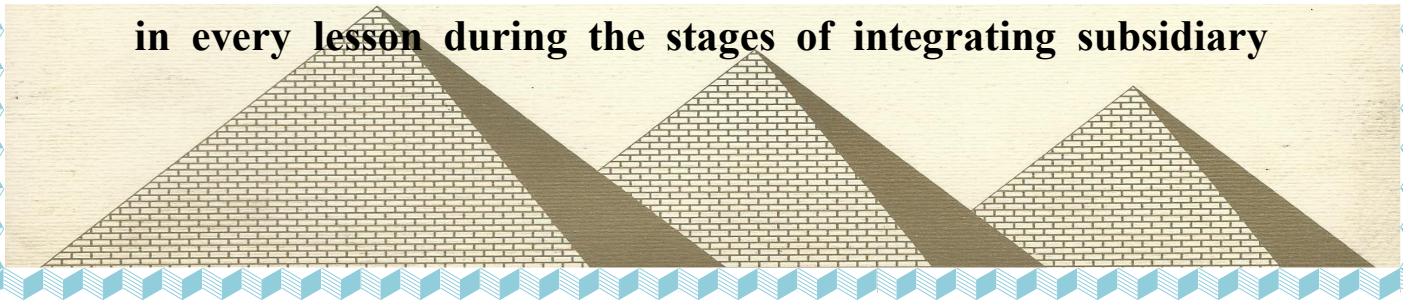
However, opponents of the no error-correction technique claim that this technique sacrifices accuracy for the sake of fluency. As Hammerly (1991) puts it:

> The opinion that no error needs to be corrected in the SL classroom is preposterous, and the end result of that practice is sadly obvious. Up to a point there is general improvement with little or no correction. But in the classroom, that point represents minimal (i.e. survival) SL competence. (p. 91)

Furthermore, my teaching experience says that this technique leads to the formation of incorrect habits which are much more difficult to change later.

17.4 A comprehensive approach to error correction

The comprehensive approach holds that teachers should move from local to global and finally to no error correction in every lesson during the stages of integrating subsidiary



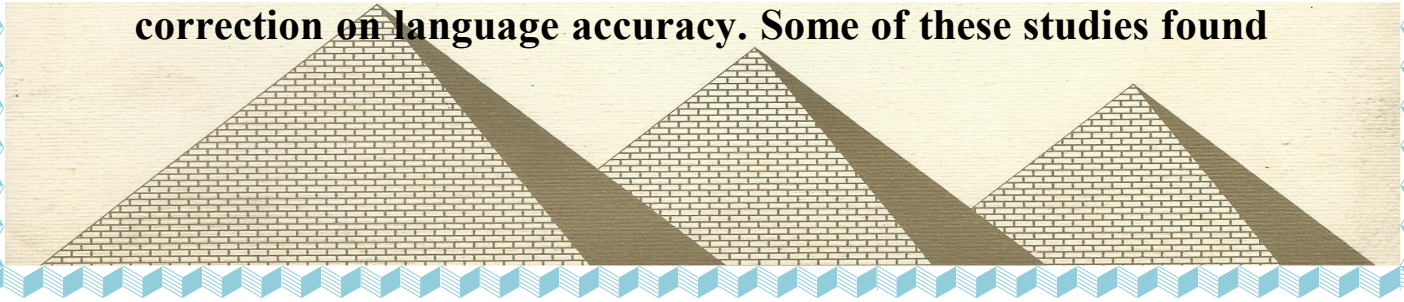
skills with main language skills at the primary level and main language skills with subsidiary skills at the preparatory level. During these two stages, the teacher shifts from correcting the local errors related to the subskill(s) drilled in step 1, to correcting global errors in step 2, and finally to no error-correction in step 3 (see the three-step procedure in parts 2 and 3 in this book).

The comprehensive approach also holds that teachers should correct no errors at all during the stages of integrating each two main language skills at the secondary level and all language skills at the university level (see parts 4 and 5 in this book).

As noted above, the comprehensive approach holds that error correction must be gradually withdrawn as students progress in any lesson in particular and the target language in general. This, in turn, allows students to gain self-confidence, fluency and autonomy.

17.5 Summary of research on error correction

A literature search in the area of error correction indicated that studies done in this area focused on the effect of local correction on language accuracy. Some of these studies found



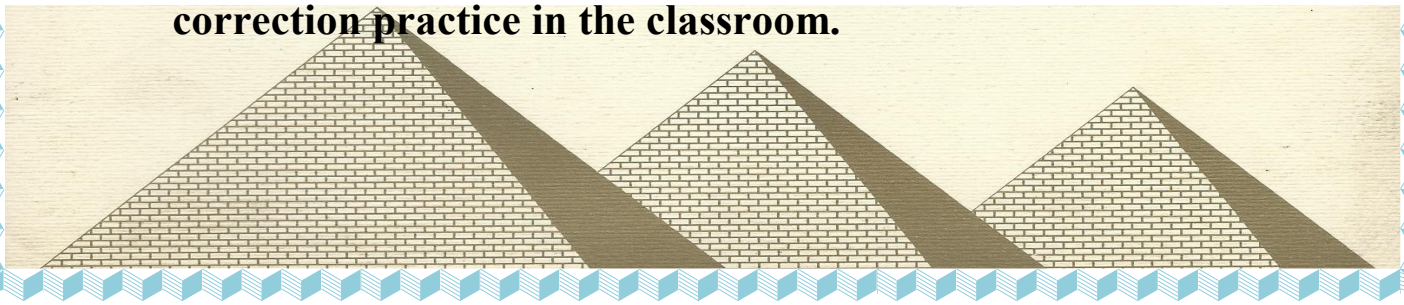
that local error correction improved language accuracy (e.g., Carroll and Swain, 1993; Gaydos, 1991; Jenkins *et al*., 1983). Other studies found that local error correction did not lead to an improvement in language performance (e.g., DeKeyser, 1993; Robb *et al*., 1986; Semke, 1984).

It is also evident, by literature, that research has not addressed the effect of correcting global errors on language proficiency and that only one study investigated the effects of correcting local versus global errors on language performance. In this study, Hendrickson (1977) found that correcting local errors in one group and global errors in another did not make a difference in students' language proficiency.

The results of the studies reviewed above provide little support one way or the other. Therefore, I claim that it is best to use the comprehensive approach to error correction because this approach can be effective with different learners in different situations.

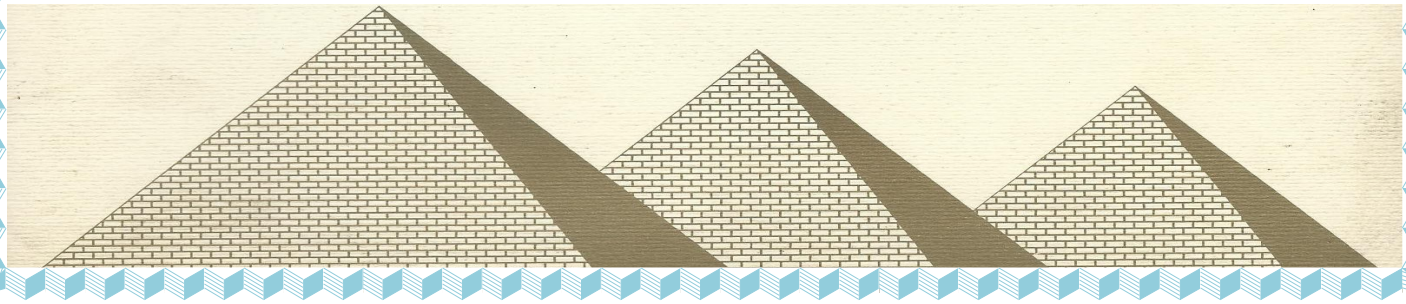
17.6 Self-checks

1. Try to find out how your students feel about your error correction practice in the classroom.



2. Do you think that errors can disappear gradually through communication? Why? Why not?

3. What should feedback be mainly on: form, content, or both?



Chapter Eighteen

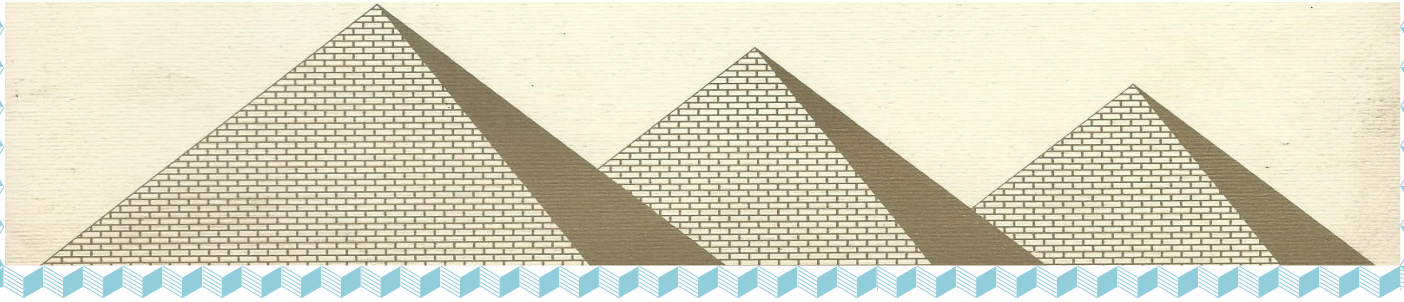
Language Assessment

A literature search revealed that there are two major types of language assessment. These two types are briefly described below:

18.1 Discrete-point assessment

From the skill-building perspective, assessment is directed at discrete language components such as phonology, morphology, syntax, lexicon, and the like (Dieterich and Freeman, 1979). Such components are usually measured by quantitative measures (e.g., multiple choice, true or false, and fill in the blanks). The major advantage of this type of assessment is that it covers a wide variety of instructional objectives. Another advantage is that it is valid and reliable.

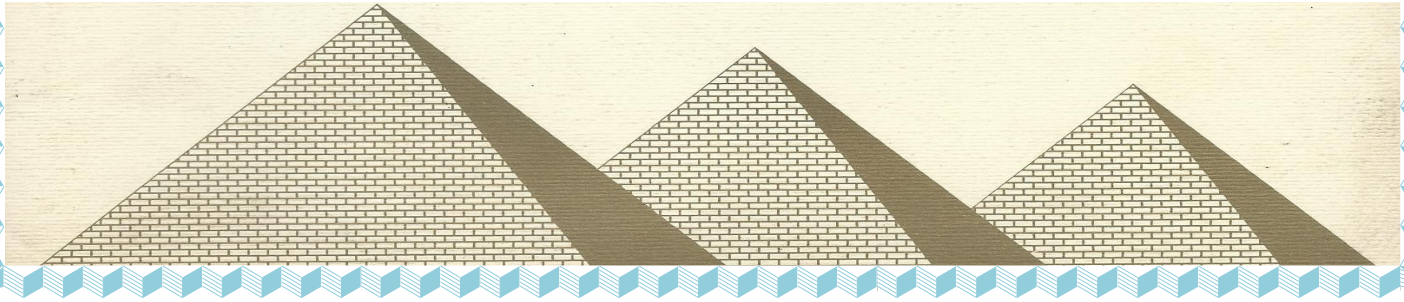
However, opponents of discrete-point assessment claim that this type of assessment is not authentic because it yields information about minute elements of the language, not about language use in real life situations. As Oller (1979) a long time ago pointed out:



> **Discrete point analysis necessarily breaks the elements of language apart and tries to teach them (or test them) separately with little or no attention to the way those elements interact in a larger context of communication. What makes it ineffective as a basis for teaching or testing languages is that crucial properties of language are lost when its elements are separated. (p. 212)**

Another argument against discrete-point assessment is that it fails to assess higher-order thinking and learning processes (Haney and Madaus, 1989; Neill and Medina, 1989; O'Neil, 1992; Wiggins, 1989). Still another argument is that this type of assessment does not require students to demonstrate the full range of their abilities (Goodman, 1986).

A final argument against discrete-point assessment is that it encourages rote memorization of bits and pieces of language and creates the impression that these bits and pieces are more important than meaning. And this is the impression that stays with students.



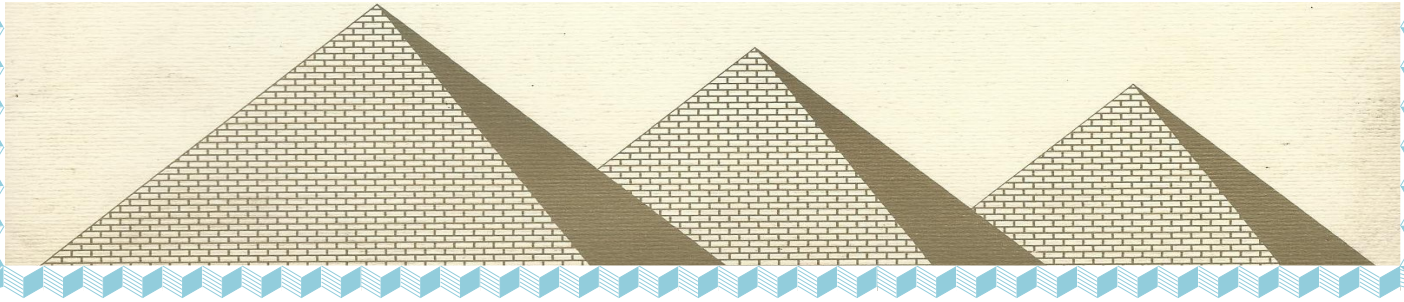
18.2 Global assessment

Realizing that the whole is more than the sum of its parts and that discrete-point assessment is an inadequate indicator of language proficiency, whole language advocates, among other language assessment theoreticians, called for the use of global assessment (e.g., Antonacci, 1993; Cambourne and Turbill, 1990; Norris and Hoffman, 1993; Teale, 1988; Weaver, 1990). This type of assessment uses qualitative measures such as written reports, interviews, projects, portfolios, conversations, observations, and journals.

The most important advantage of this type of assessment is that it is meaningful. As Norris and Hoffman (1993) put it:

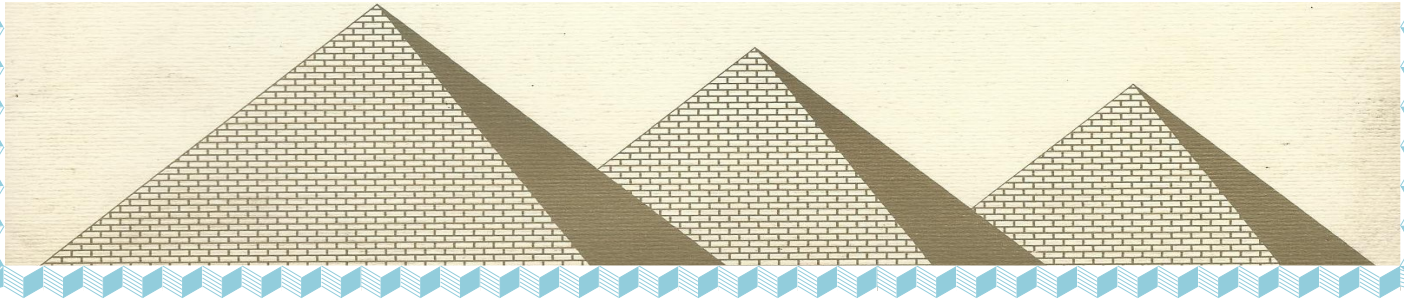
> **A language sample obtained in context is far more meaningful than information gleaned about a child's language from discrete tasks that attempt to assess the semantic, syntactic, morphological, phonological, and pragmatic components separately. (p. 111)**

Another advantage is that global assessment provides teachers with the opportunity to assess learning processes and higher-order thinking. As Vance (1990) puts it:



> **Whole language also provides teachers with the opportunity to use and appreciate the unique, idiosyncratic thinking processes of their students. Assessment is not limited to determining whether a right or wrong word is written in the blank, but is expanded to include conversation, written and oral; the application of skills in contextual settings; and observation of the students' ability to discuss, learn from others, draw meaning from various activities and sources, and exercise problem-solving skills. (p. 181)**

However, opponents of global assessment claim that qualitative measures are still in need of validation. Another disadvantage is that the range of tasks involved in this type of assessment is narrow. Still another disadvantage of this type of assessment is that many studies have found differences in rater behaviour due to factors such as rater background and amount of rater training (e.g., Chalhoub-Deville, 1996; McNamara, 1996; Schoonen *et al*., 1997; Weigle, 1994). A final disadvantage is that this type of assessment is relatively time-consuming to administer (Brown and Hudson, 1998).



As indicated in this chapter, the skills-based and whole language assessments represent two different ways for collecting information. Both types of this information are necessary for assessment to be effective (Brown, 1988, 1995; Campbell *et al*., 2000; Herschensohn, 1994; Huba and Freed, 2000; Sasaki, 1996). As Brown (1995) puts it:

> Clearly, both [quantitative and qualitative] types of data can yield valuable information in any evaluation, and therefore ignoring either type of information would be pointless and self-defeating. (p. 232)

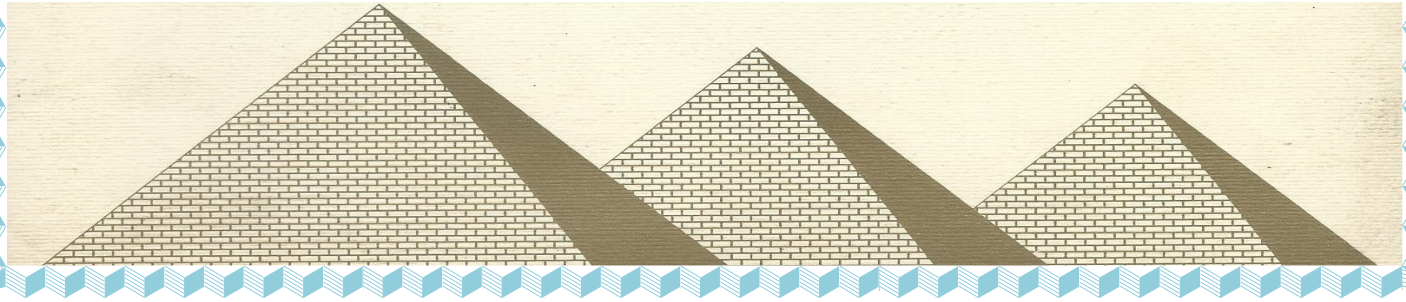
18.3 A comprehensive approach to language assessment

The comprehensive approach holds that the teacher should move from assessing subskills to assessing the comprehension and production of whole texts. This procedure should be used in every lesson during the integration of subsidiary skills with main language skills at the primary level and main language skills with subsidiary skills at the preparatory level. Such a procedure allows teachers to gather data during the implementation of the three-step procedure in every lesson

(see parts 2 and 3 in this book). This, in turn, increases the reliability of the gathered information, gives a comprehensive picture of students' usage and use of the language; and allows both teacher and student to monitor progress and improve the teaching/learning process.

The comprehensive approach also holds that students themselves should self-assess the ideas they understand and produce rather than the language during the stages of integrating each two main language skills at the secondary level and all language skills at the university level. This can be done through collaborative group-assessment, peer-assessment and self-assessment. In spite of the subjectivity of these assessment techniques, they can help secondary and university students identify their own strengths and weaknesses, enhance their self-esteem, increase their motivation to learn and develop their sense of responsibility.

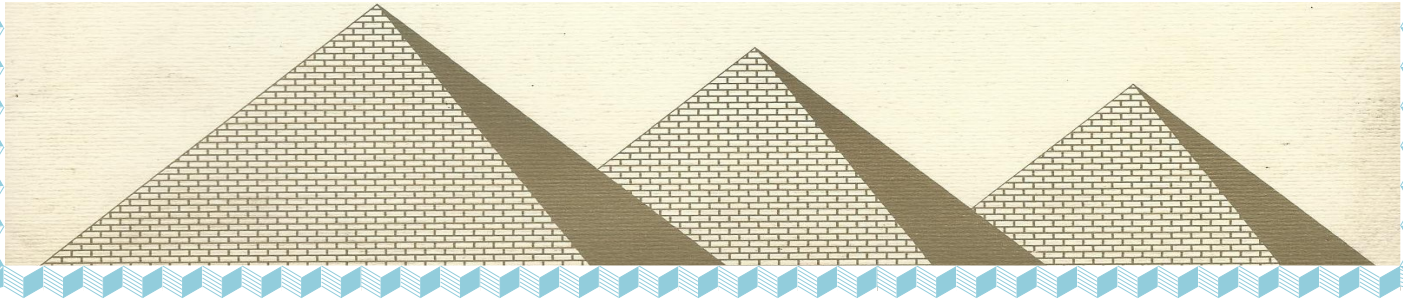
As indicated above, the comprehensive approach asserts that assessment must be used as an integral part of the teaching-learning process at all levels. It also asserts that assessment should move from skills to meaning as students progress in any lesson at the primary and preparatory levels and from



teacher-generated to student-regulated assessment as they progress in the target language in general.

18.4 Self-checks

1. **What are the most common ways of assessing language proficiency in your context?**
2. **What effect does assessment have on instruction?**
3. **A combination of both qualitative and quantitative measures guarantees the validity of the results. Discuss.**



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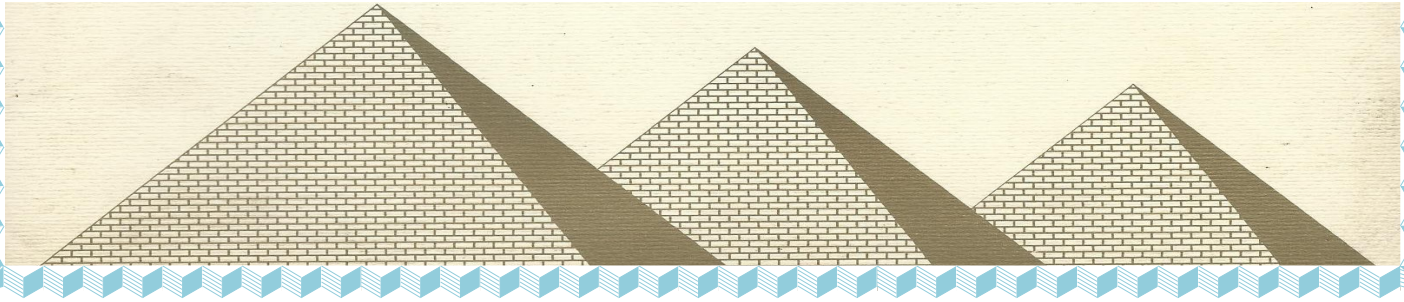

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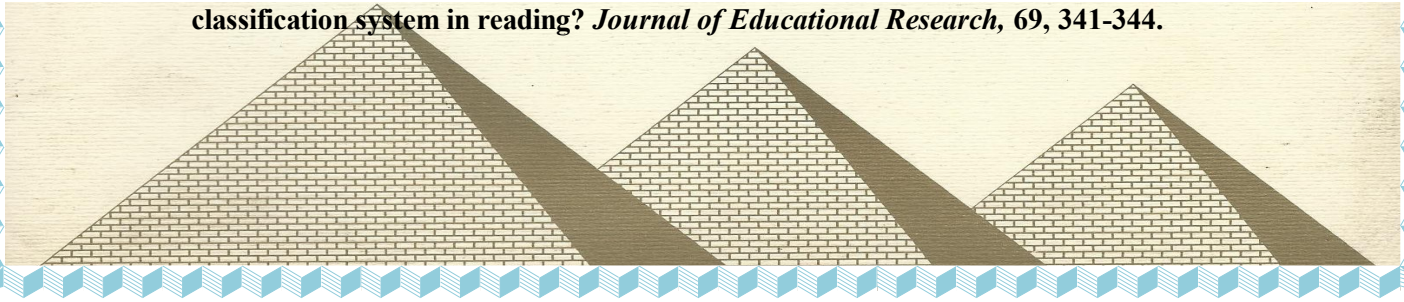

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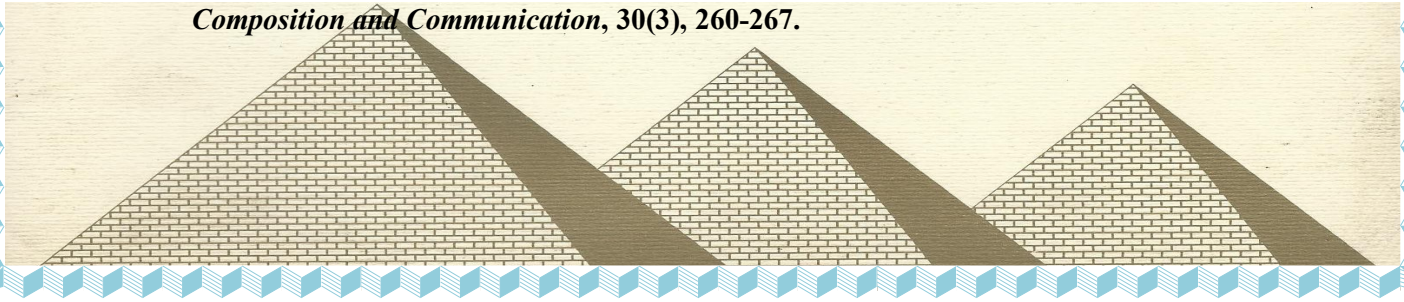

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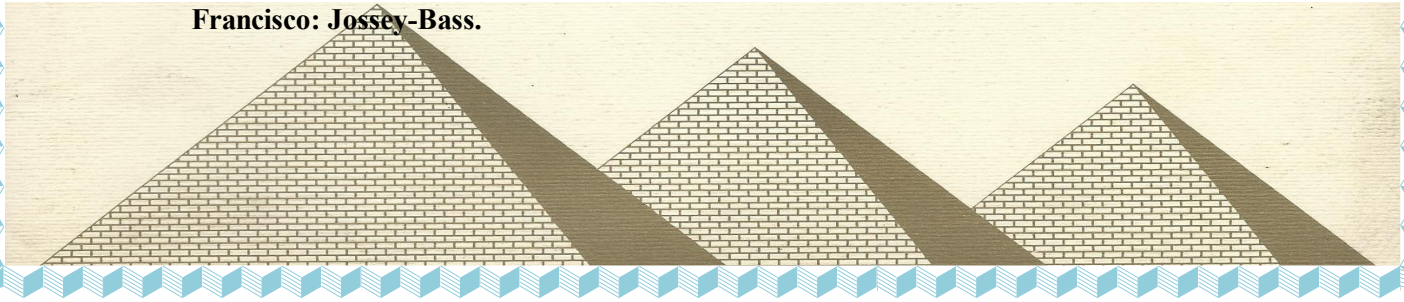

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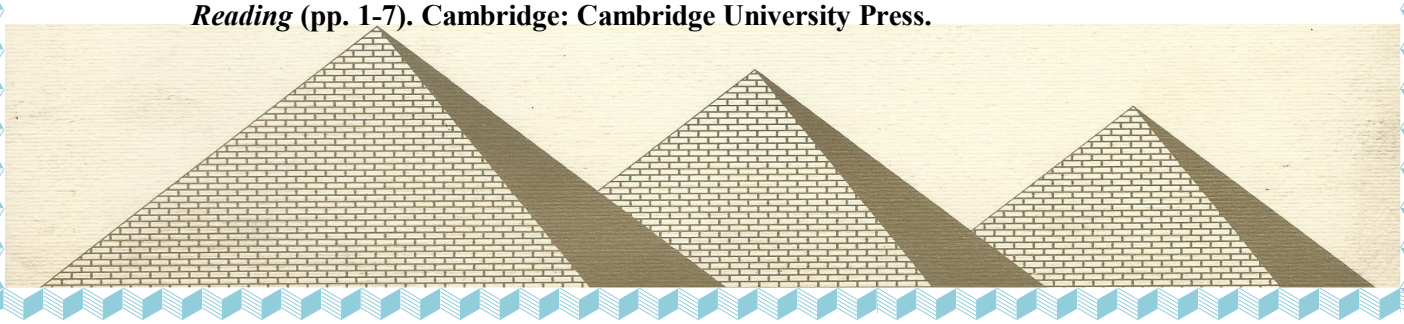

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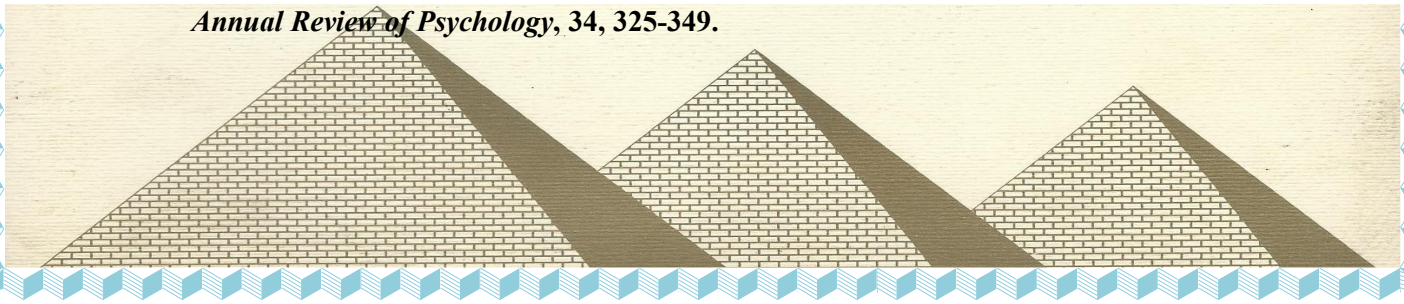

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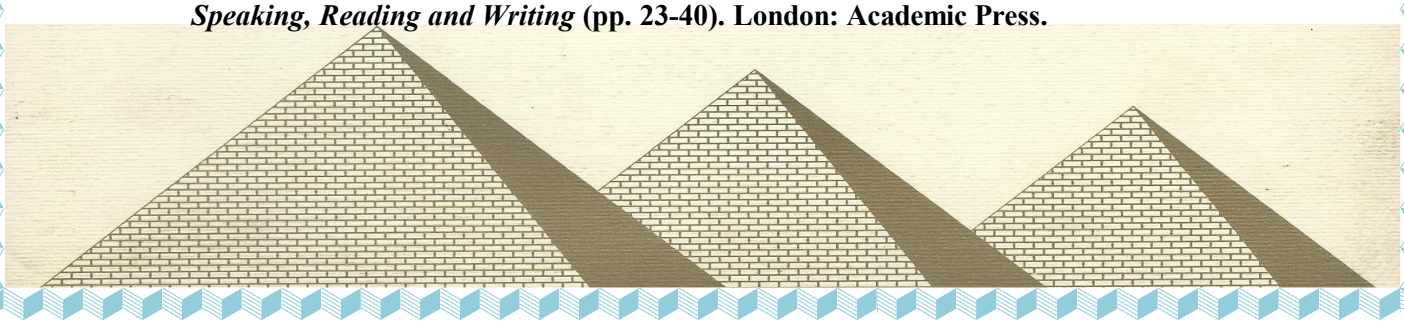

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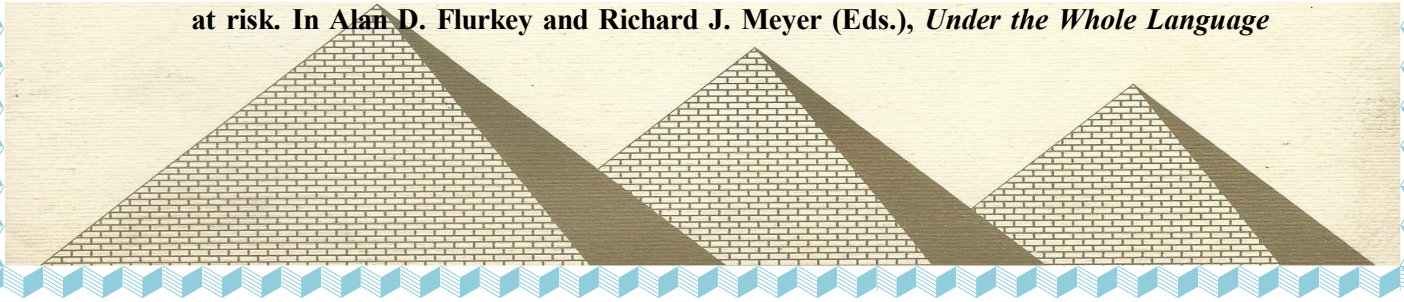

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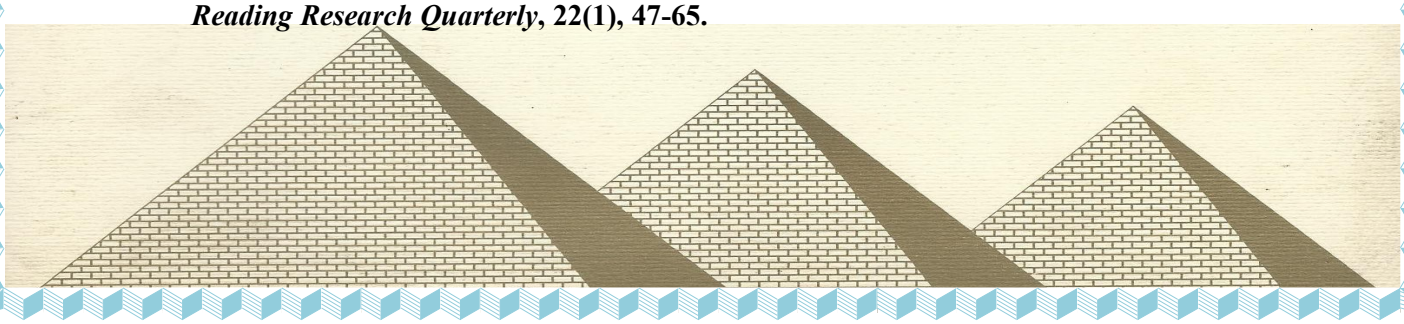

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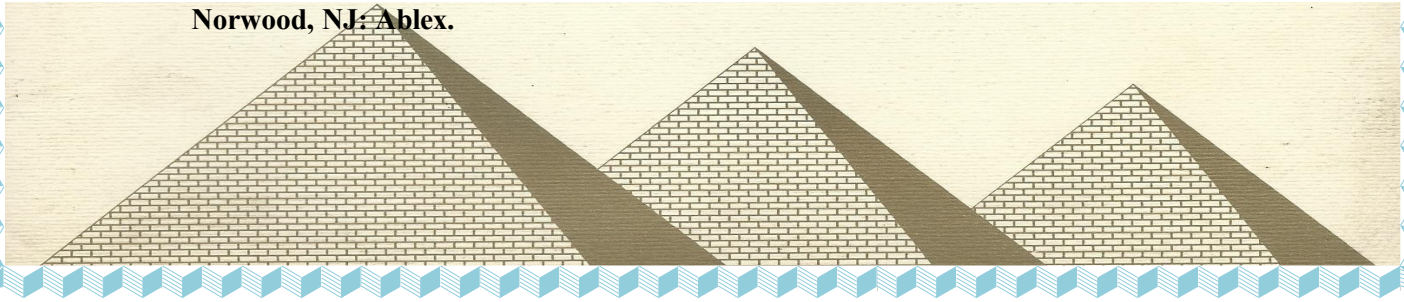

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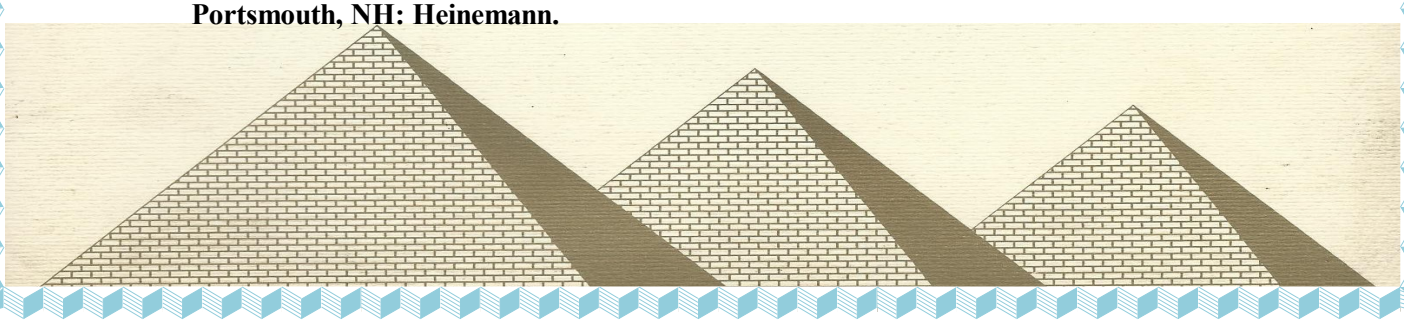

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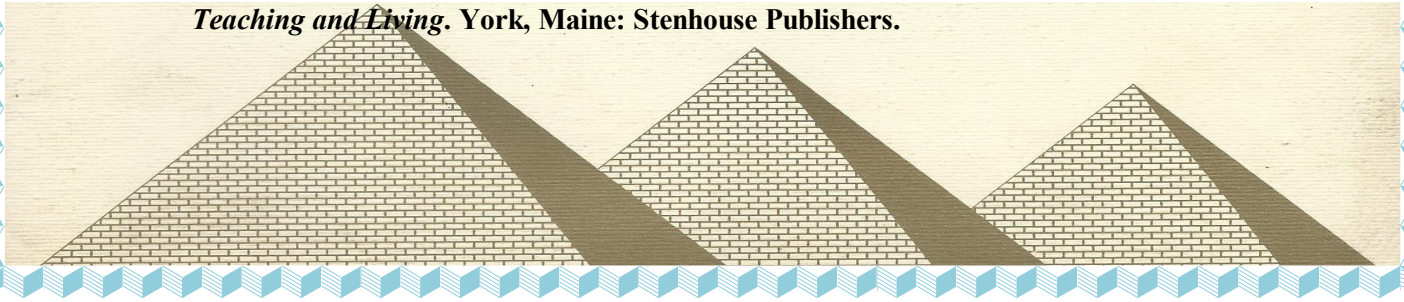

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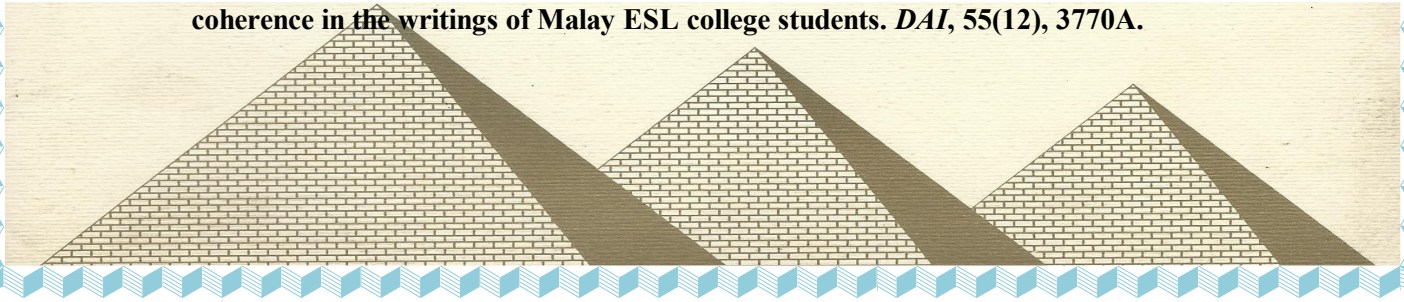

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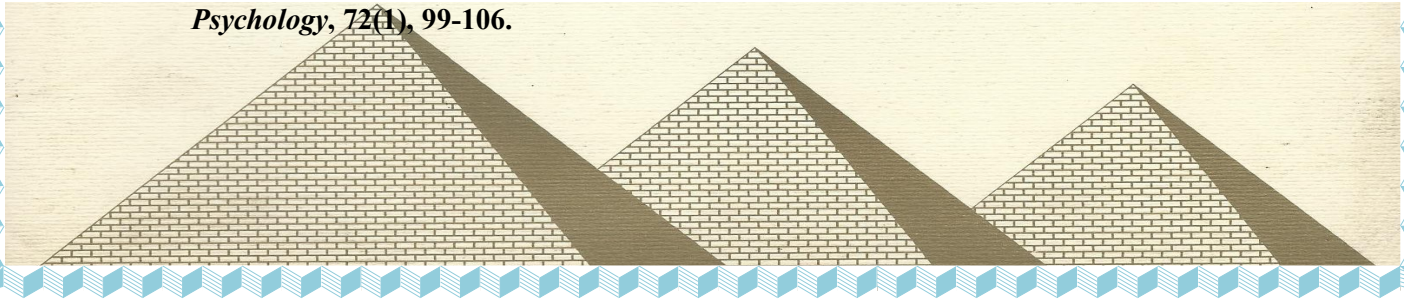

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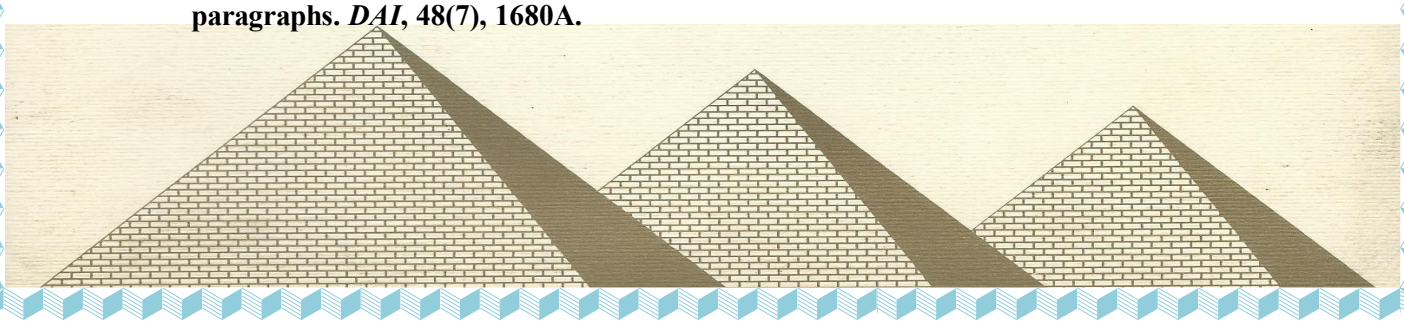

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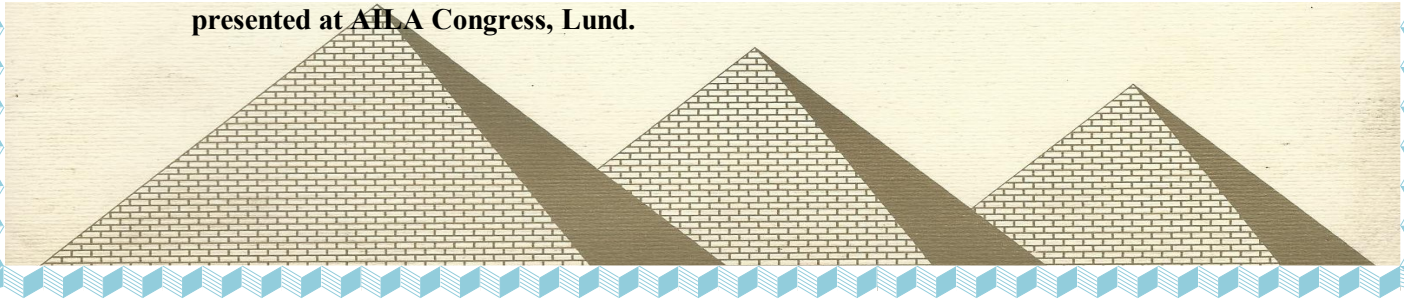

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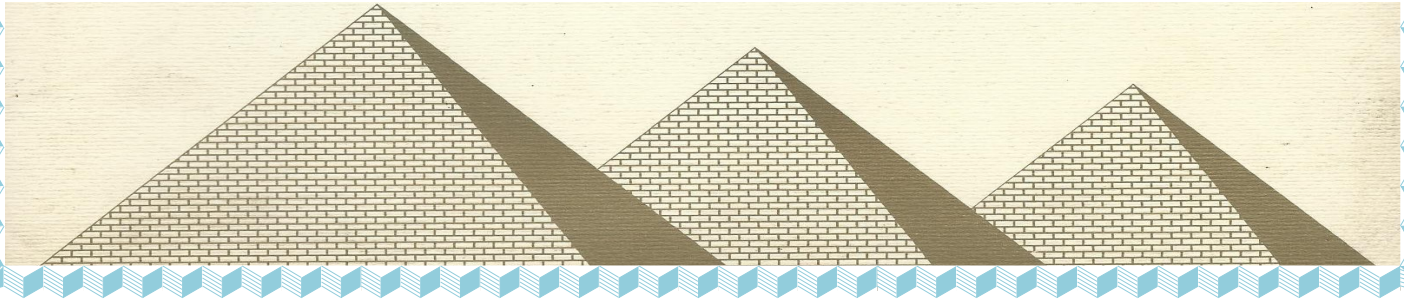

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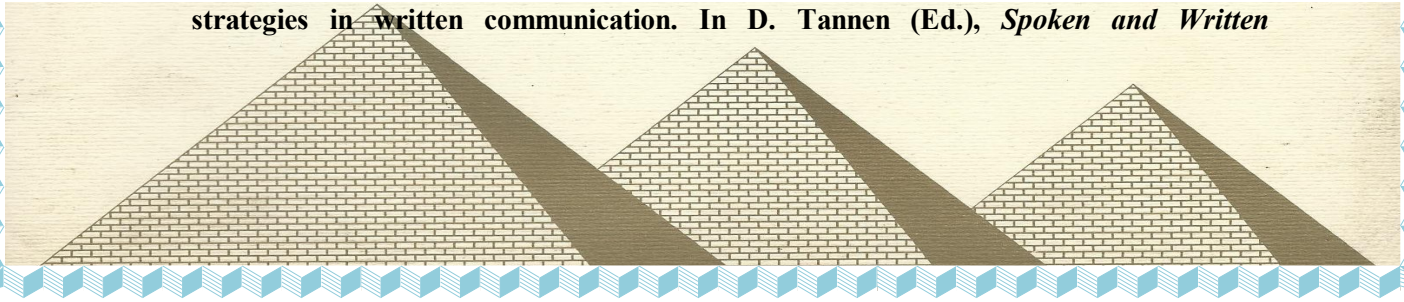

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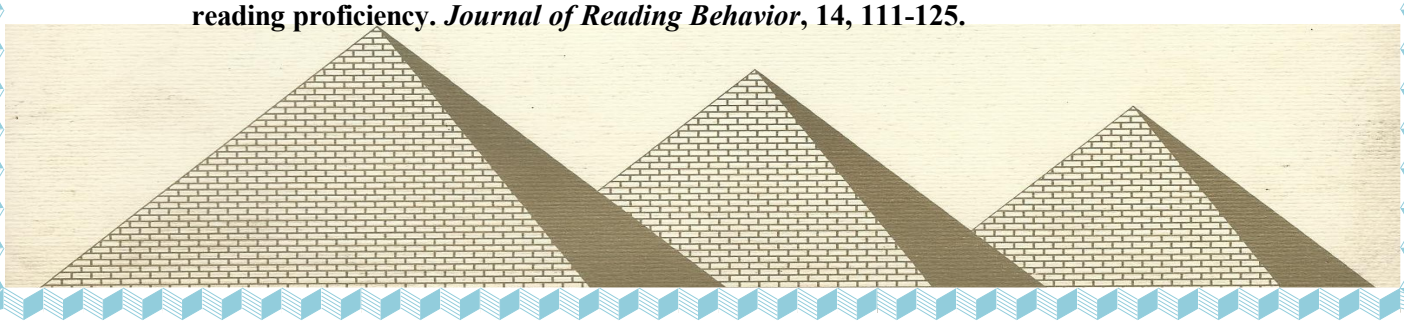

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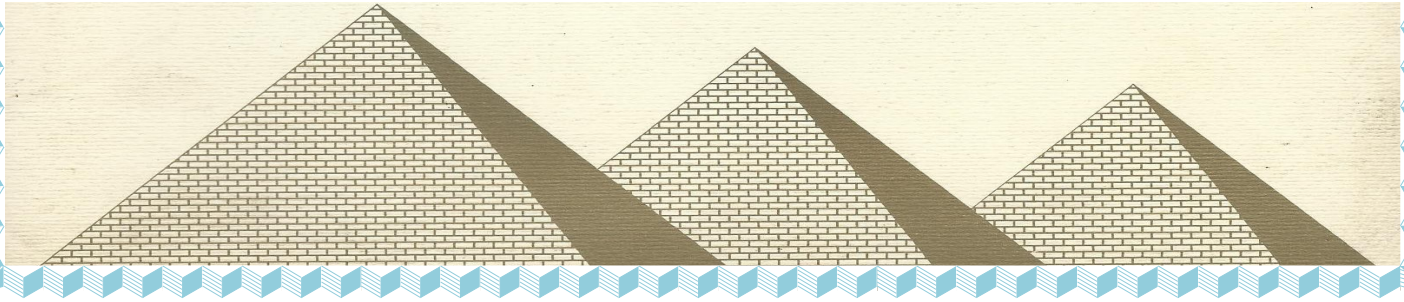

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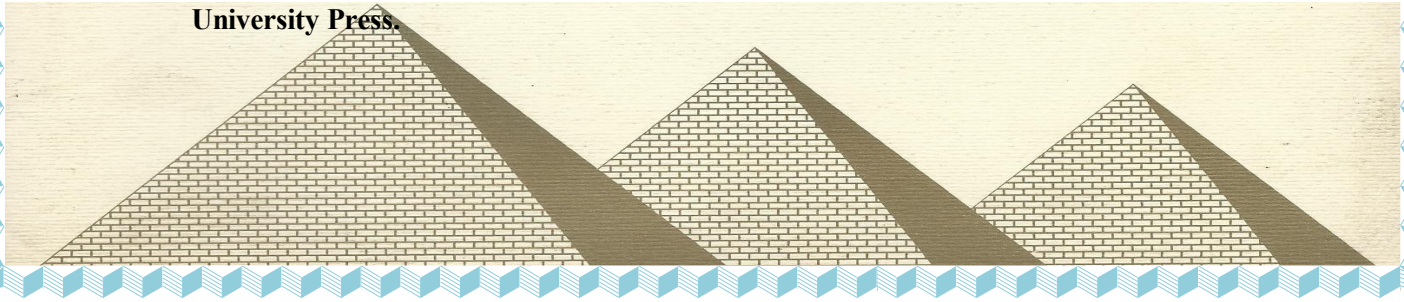

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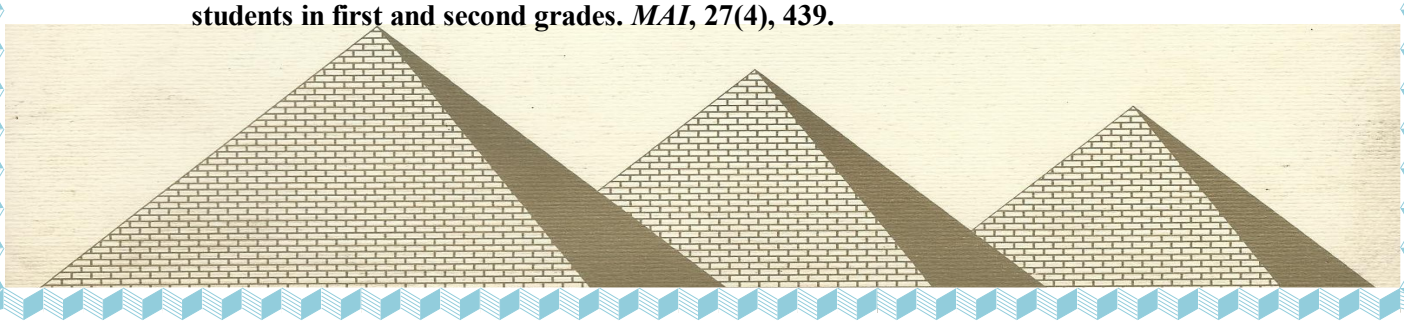

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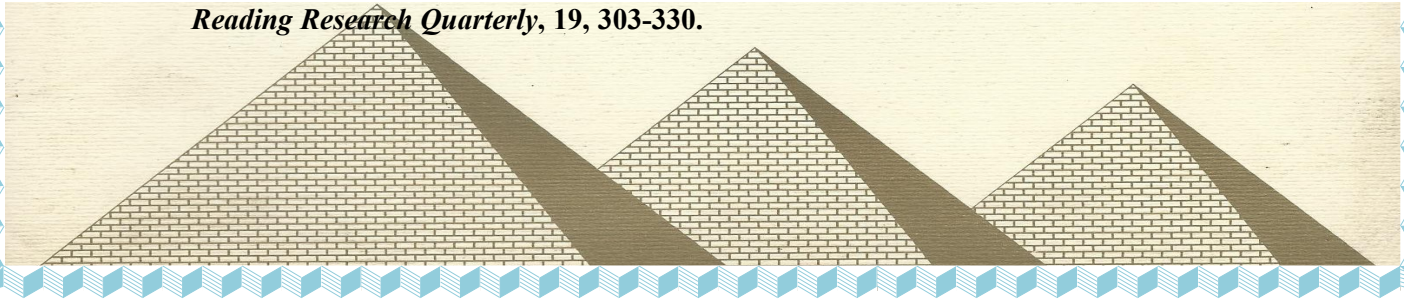

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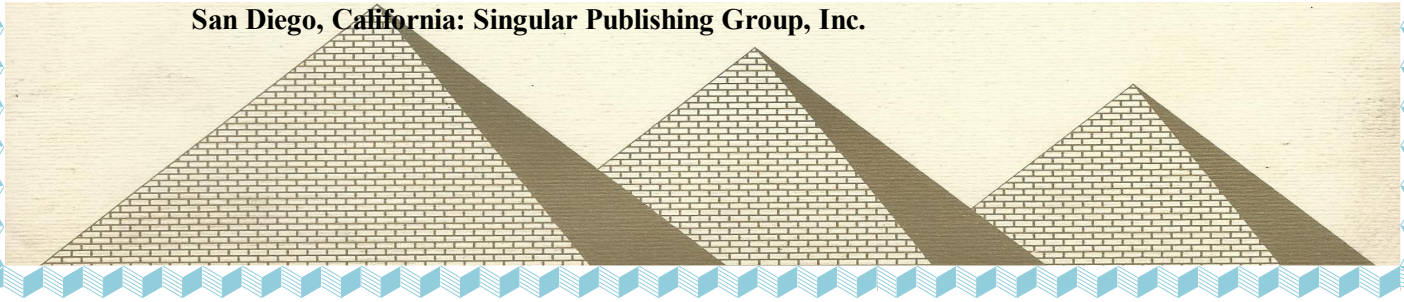

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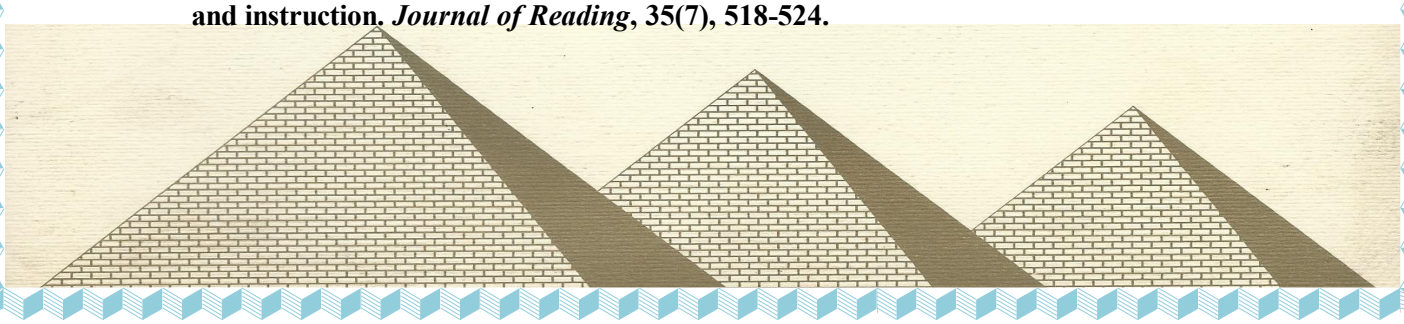

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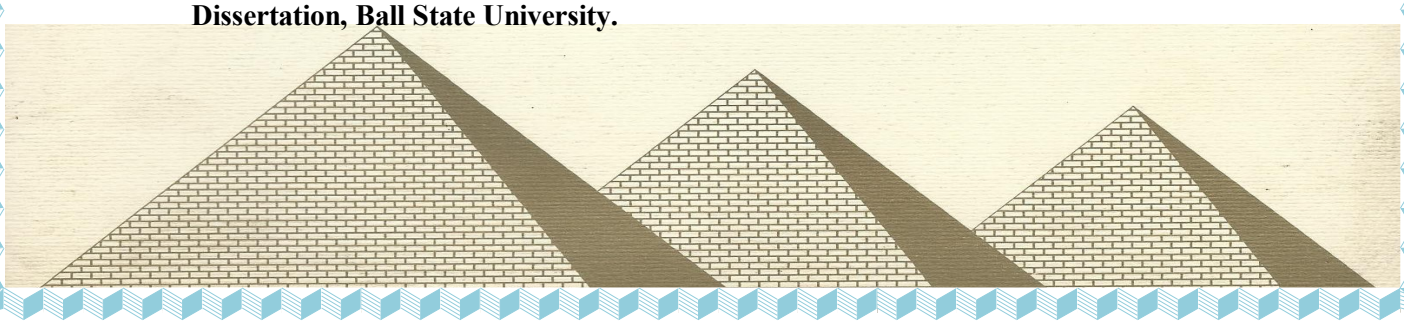

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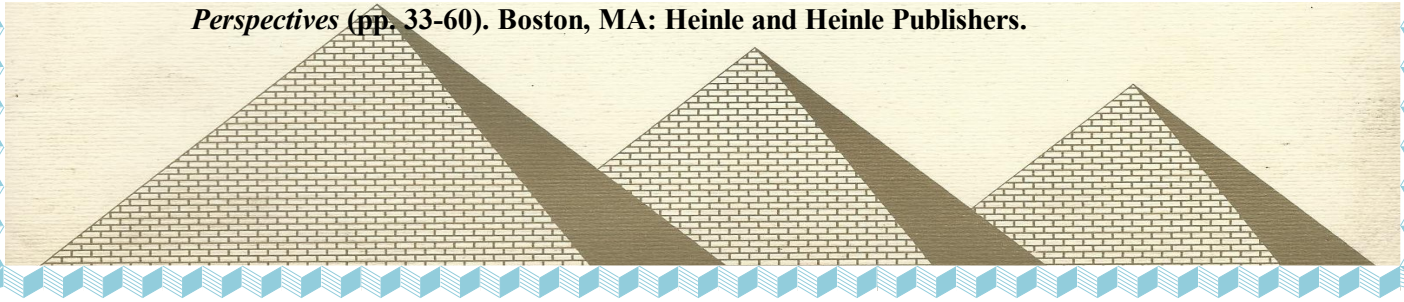

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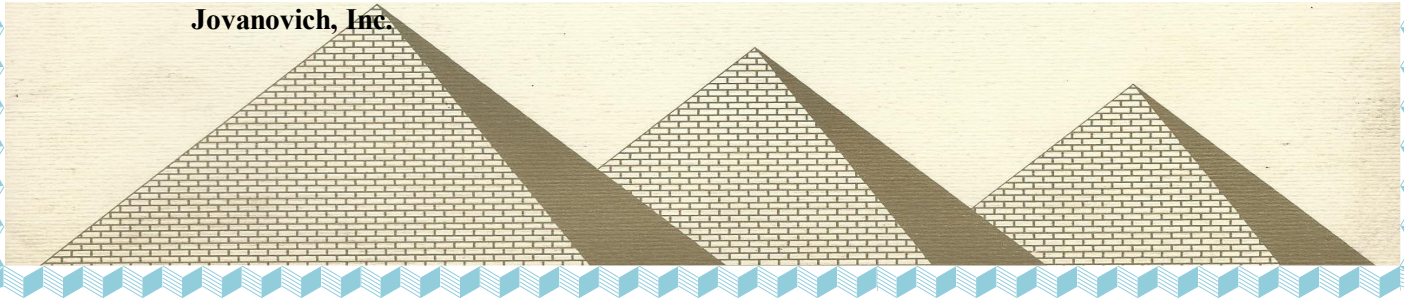

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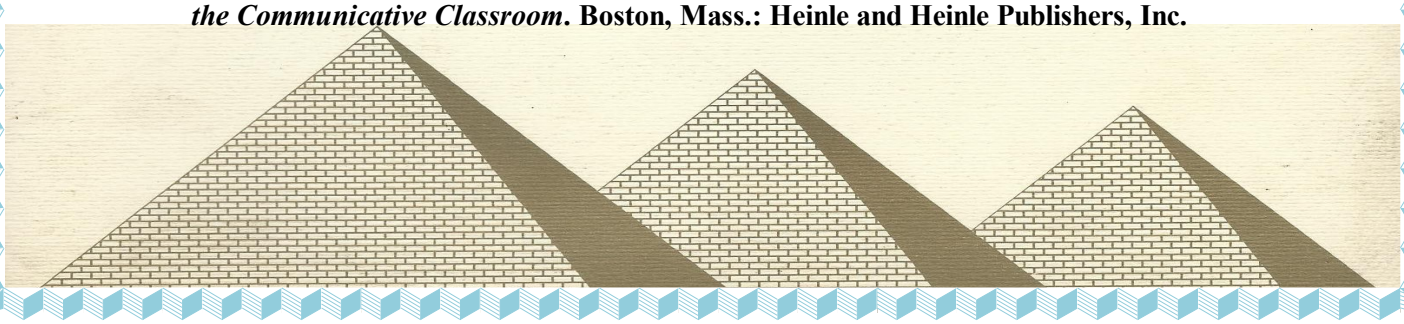

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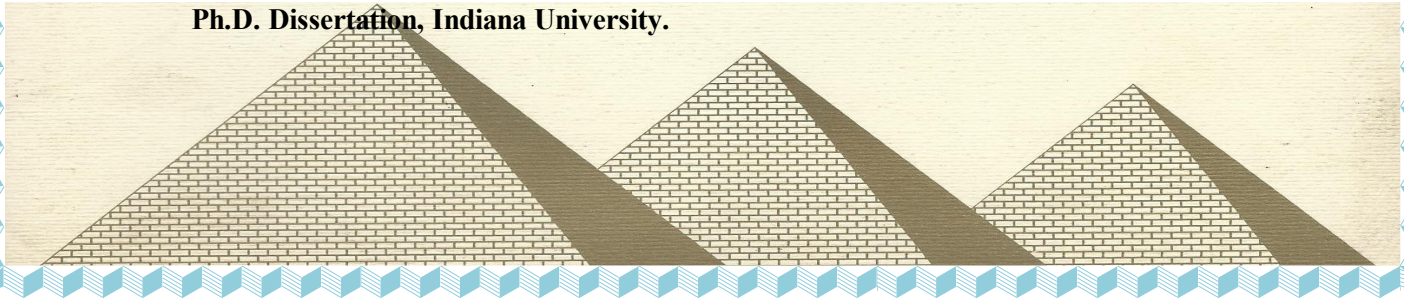

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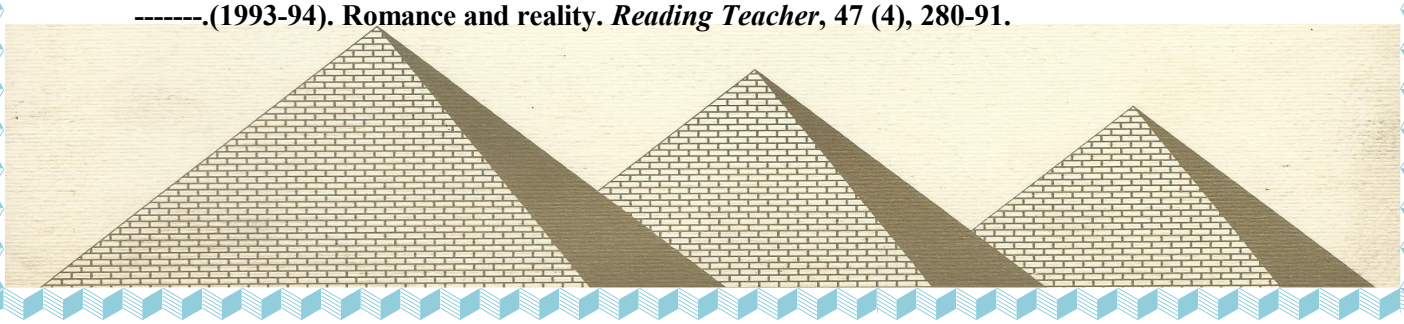

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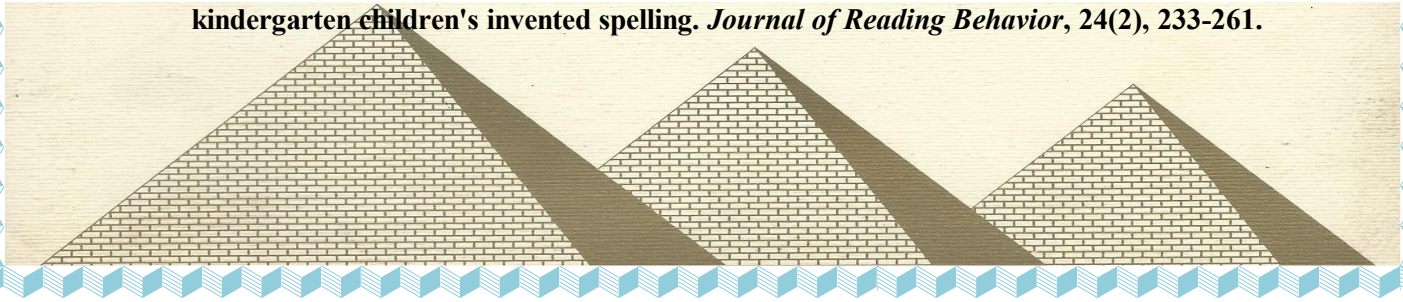

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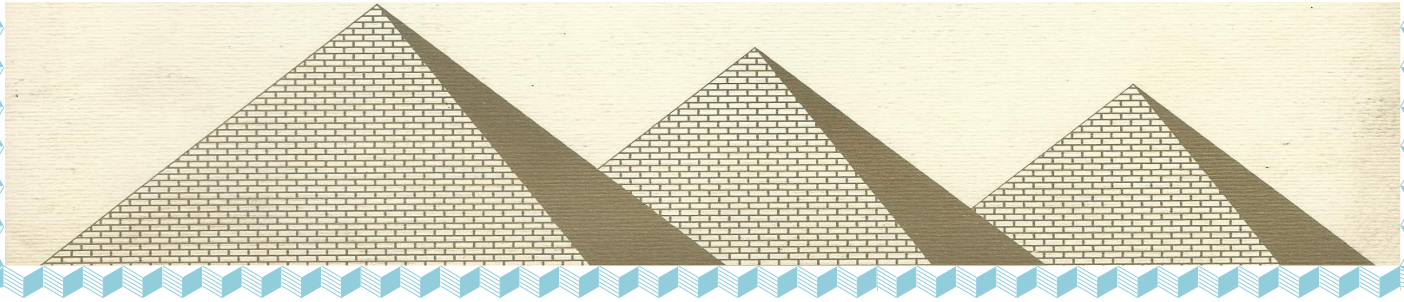

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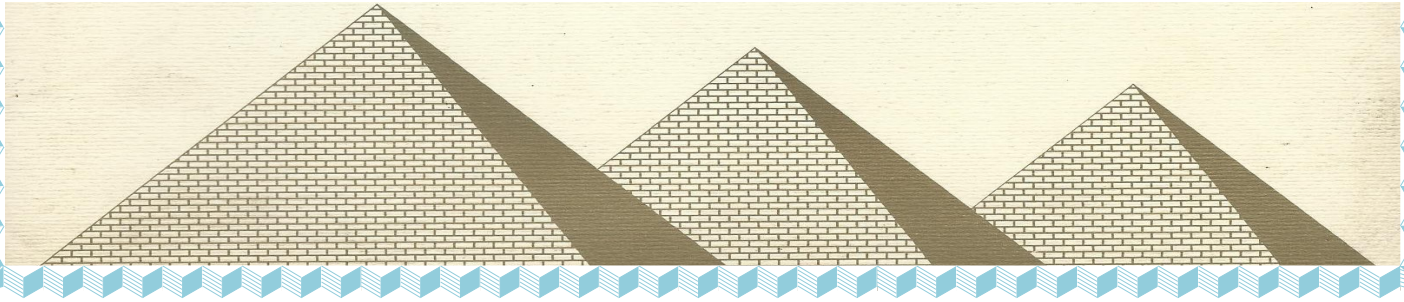

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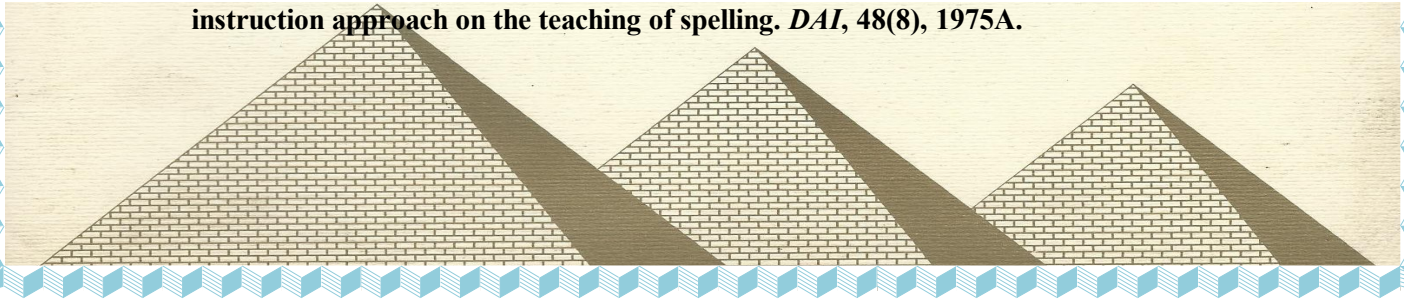

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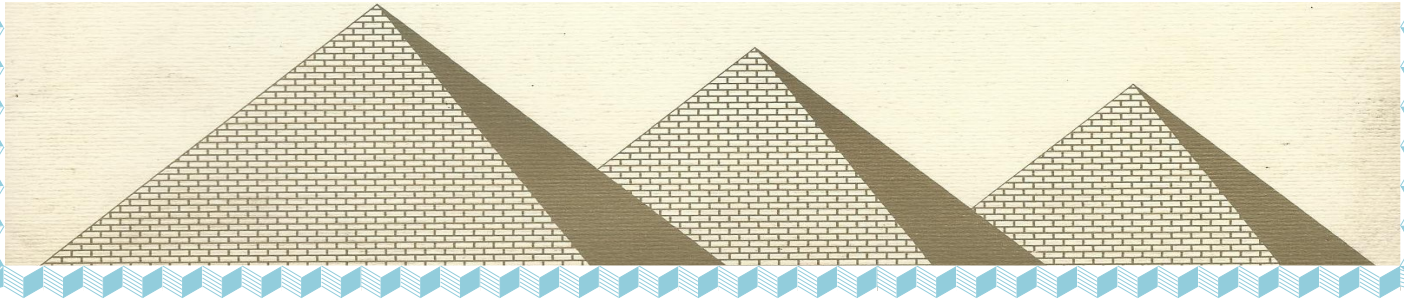

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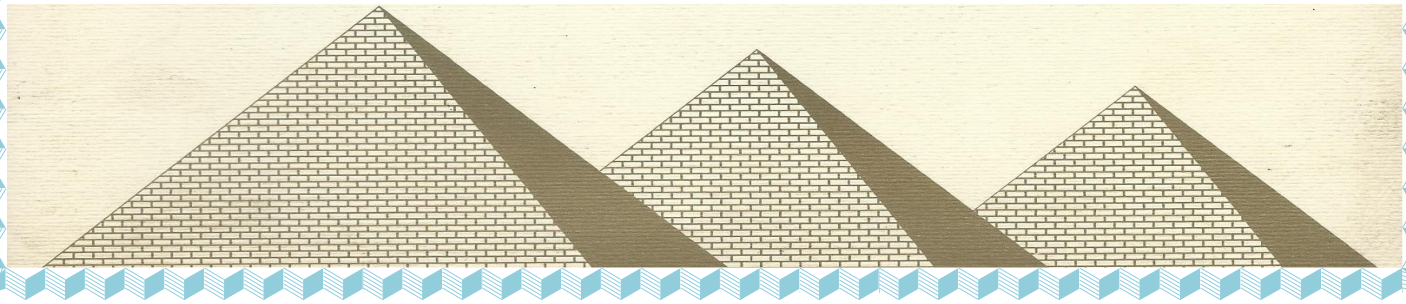

22 Language Teaching

Alejandro S. Bernardo

22.1 Introduction

The spread of the world Englishes (WE) paradigm and its birth in the 1980s is a testament of its resilience as a way of thinking, but borrowing the words of Jenkins (2006, p. 158): "[M]uch work remains to be done, even at the level of theorizing, let alone in practice". This echoes that while many empirical studies on Englishes have been initiated and more and more papers which delve into the aftershock the WE paradigm has caused have been published, what is still needed to date is a well-defined pedagogic approach which language teachers—whether English as a Second Language (ESL) or English as a Foreign Language (EFL) practitioners—may allude to when they teach English in the elementary, secondary, or collegiate level. More effort based on a principled design will have to be directed to designing and developing instructional approaches, methods, and techniques which are not only in congruence with one another but likewise considerate and reflective of the various local sociolinguistic realities which surround both language teachers and language learners who are non-Inner Circle members in the concentric circle model popularized by Kachru (1985).

AU: Please check and confirm capitalization for Inner Circle, Outer Circle and Concentric Circle as usage is inconsistent.

It is important to note at this point that the WE paradigm has started and continues to permeate classroom teaching in different parts of the globe (cf. Kubota, 2001; Shim, 2002; Matsuda, 2003; McLean, 2004; Song & Drummond, 2009; Mack, 2010; Matsuda & Matsuda, 2010; Jindapitak & Teo, 2012; Lee, 2012; Belibi, 2013; Galloway, 2013; Chang, 2014; Floris, 2014; Bhowmik, 2015; Vettorel, 2015, 2017; Vettorel & Corrizzato, 2016; Dimoski, 2016; Kato, 2016). A survey of these studies which attempted at making English language instruction WE-aligned would show that WE has indeed caught the attention of ESL and EFL practitioners in different postcolonial English-using environments. However, while it is impressive that there have been efforts in making English language teaching (ELT) WE-informed as shown above, several important questions need to be raised: *Are these projects, activities, lesson prototypes, instructional materials, modules, and the like based on clear and definite pedagogical, methodological, and procedural lenses or underpinnings in the first place? What made the teaching-and-learning*

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approach, method, and techniques in sync? How was the WE, an extremely huge paradigm, fit into a narrower domain such as an English course and its syllabus? Was the process of cascading and fitting seamless and undoubtedly effective? How was the WE paradigm (re)contextualized and operationalized in the teachers' approach, methods, and teaching procedures? It is also important to note that, while the pursuits featured in the papers above adhere to the WE paradigm, they still seem abstract to be applicable to practical classroom instruction, and how they are cascaded to daily classroom pedagogies is still to be articulated. How the WE paradigm actually and observably works in the ESL classrooms remains to be seen.

In teaching English, a necessity is a pedagogic model that is *WE-inspired, WE-based,* and *WE-adherent*. Jenkins (2006) echoed that "[t]eachers and their learners […] need to learn not (a variety of) English, but about Englishes […]" (p. 178). Holliday (1994, as cited in Jenkins 2006) earlier underscored that there is a need for an "appropriate methodology for learners in different (and very often, non-Western) contexts of language learning and use". All these point to one thing: what is needed is an instructional backbone that is *WE-moved*. Because WE promotes inclusivity, a pedagogic model that highlights the homegrown varieties of English, that is localized, indigenized, and contextualized, and is realizable and implementable is indubitably fundamental.

In the Philippines, the local variety of English, Philippine English (PhE), has been a center of scientific sociolinguistic inquiry since it was first empirically described in a groundbreaking study of Llamzon in 1969. In fact, it is said that among all South East Asian (SEA) Englishes that have been documented, PhE is the most extensively studied (Tay, 1991) not only by Filipino linguists but also by foreign scholars. Gonzalez (1983, 1985), Bautista (2000, 2004, 2008), Borlongan (2008, 2011), Dita (2011), Tayao (2004), and many others have forwarded a comprehensive linguistic description of PhE, i.e., phonological properties, semantic and syntactic behaviors, pragmatic and discourse qualities. Many have intuited their standpoints as regards its status and prospects (cf. Borlongan, 2016; Martin, 2014) and have defended that PhE is the English propagated by the educated Filipinos and is not deviant, erroneous, and substandard (Bautista, 2000). And now that PhE is at the dawn of endonormative stabilization (Borlongan, 2016) and that it has come of age (Bernardo, 2017), it may be formally nominated as a pedagogic norm in the Philippine ESL classrooms (Bernardo & Madrunio, 2015). In doing so, the call for the improvement of the quality of ELT in the Philippines through more effective methodologies and better training programs for both pre-service and in-service teachers and the fervent call for teaching (in) PhE (Llamzon, 1969, 1972, 1997; Hidalgo, 1970; Gonzalez, 1983, McKaughan, 1993; Bautista, 2001), which has been reverberating for the last four centuries, may finally be responded to. The unpunctuated discussion on the pedagogical implication of WE initiated by the group of distinguished language specialists who represented the Philippines in the convention *Varieties*

of English and Their Implications for Language Teaching in Southeast Asia convened in 1981 will continue if PhE is popularized as a pedagogic model for teaching English phonology, lexicon, syntax, and discourse.

This chapter, therefore, proposes a pedagogic model for teaching English in the local ESL classrooms and a guidepost for making ELT approaches, methods, and procedures in sync, with PhE taking the spotlight in the process of making these three instructional domains in congruence with one another. This chapter argues that PhE is more than ready and ripe to be studied, taught, and used in the classrooms and offers Filipino teachers of English with a pedagogical tool or armory which they can employ in their respective ESL classes and incorporate within the framework of changing patterns of language education brought about by the WE paradigm. It should be noted, though, that the model presented here is not meant to be prescriptive, nor does it claim to be all-inclusive. It is necessary to stress that this chapter hardly suggests the replacement or striking out of the established approaches to ELT for that would sound unrealistic and would require much empirical support, which is beyond the scope of this chapter.

Following would be a brief survey of the different approaches, methods, and techniques in ELT. Constructively aligning these three and the present state of the ELT curriculum in the Philippines will be concisely tackled to situate the development of the pedagogic approach forwarded in this chapter.

22.2 Approaches, Methods, and Techniques: A Differentiation and Constructive Alignment

Richards and Rodgers (1986) alluded to Anthony's (1963) definitions of these three levels of conceptualization and organization: *approaches, methods, and techniques*. Until now, this differentiation is the most referred to in ELT. Anthony says:

> The arrangement is hierarchical. The organizational key is that techniques carry out a method which is consistent with an approach….
>
> …An approach is a set of correlative assumptions dealing with the nature of language teaching and learning. An approach is axiomatic. It describes the nature of the subject matter to be taught….
>
> … Method is an overall plan for the orderly presentation of language material, no part of which contradicts, and all of which is based upon, the selected approach. An approach is axiomatic; a method is procedural.
>
> Within one approach, there can be many methods….
>
> …A technique is implementational—that which actually takes place in a classroom. It is a particular trick, stratagem, or contrivance to accomplish an immediate objective. Techniques must be consistent with a method, and therefore in harmony with an approach as well.
>
> (pp. 63–67)

The foregoing suggests that approach is a set of assumptions, theories, or philosophies about the nature of language and how it is learned; approach dictates 'what it is' in a language that should be taught and how that 'what it is' should be taught in the classroom. Approach escorts teachers to a definite destination as far as language teaching is concerned, by providing them with a framework, a model, or an overall teaching blueprint. Without one, everything that happens in the classroom is hollow.

Richards and Rodgers (1986) posit that "at least three different theoretical views of language and the nature of language proficiency explicitly or implicitly inform current approaches and methods in language teaching" (pp. 16–7). These are the *structural, functional*, and *interactional* view of the language. The structural view considers language as "a system of structurally related elements for the coding of meaning" (p. 17). The functional view looks at language as a tool for the communication of functional meaning while the interactional view "sees language as a vehicle for the realization of interpersonal relations and for the performance of social transactions between individuals" (p. 17). Each of these, however, Richards and Rodgers argue, is complemented by theories of language learning.

Methods, on the one hand, are procedures informed by a specific view of language and language learning. Richards and Rodgers (1986) enumerated the most common of the ELT methodologies then and now: the audio-lingual method, total physical response, the silent way, community language teaching, and suggestopedia. In addition are the direct method, the grammar translation method, and the situational method (Mwanza, 2017). Techniques, on the other hand, are the most specific and observable among the three levels of conceptualization. Techniques may refer to the classroom tasks which students engage in, e.g., language games, simulations, role plays, written or oral exercises, collaborative activities, and dyadic conversations. The choice of techniques is an offshoot of the theoretical assumptions about language and language learning.

As far as the relational aspect of these three levels of instructional conceptualization is concerned, one important notion may be deduced: approach informs a method, and a method informs a technique. The selection of a technique is based on the method to be employed and the choice of the method is grounded on the approach. Approach is on top of the hierarchy for it serves as the overarching teaching philosophy. It is made evident and at work in the classroom through the methods and techniques implemented. It is also to be stressed that these three should always be in congruence with one another; otherwise, theoretical, methodological, and technical incongruity will occur.

The foregoing discussion about the nature of approach, method, and technique, noticeably, is devoid of the WE paradigm. How the WE framework serves as a paradigmatic inspiration in aligning ELT approach, method, and technique will have to be the subject of today's discourse. As McLean (2004) puts it: "[t]his increased attention and research regarding

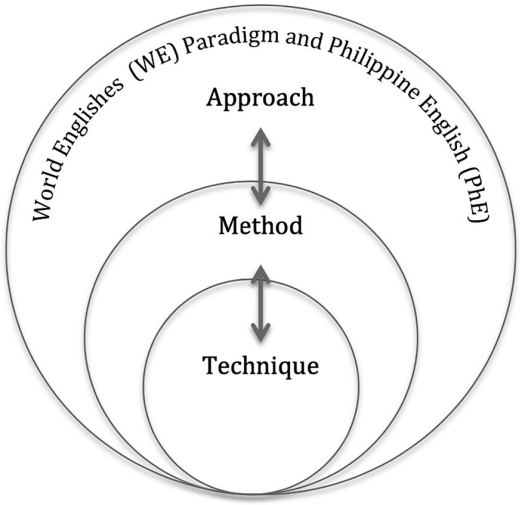

Figure 22.1 The Concentric Circles of the Three Levels of Instructional Conceptualization.

World Englishes subsequently pressures English language teachers to not only familiarize themselves with the issues, but also to incorporate World Englishes into their courses…" (p. 1). How it may be incorporated in ELT is therefore the next route of exploration. The WE paradigm as a whole and the empirical studies on PhE in particular call for making pedagogical choices that are locally and contextually tailored. One way of doing this is to concoct a way of thinking where the "constructive alignment" (Biggs & Tang, 2011) of approach, method, and technique positions WE and PhE as the fulcrum or the point where the alignment rests. This may be schematically represented through the concentric circles of instructional conceptualization shown in Figure 22.1.

Figure 22.1 shows that the WE paradigm and the PhE moorings provide a theoretical foundation for a principled approach to language teaching. WE and PhE are both situated as an overarching platform in bringing into line ELT approach, method, and technique. Under this framework, there is a conscious effort for the language teacher to select a WE- and PhE-inspired pedagogic guidepost, a well-sequenced teaching procedure and activities constructively aligned with one another.

22.3 The Endocentric Pedagogic Approach for Teaching English

The approach forwarded here is the *endocentric pedagogic approach* to ELT. This approach draws inspiration from the concentric circle of the three levels of instructional conceptualization in Figure 22.1. 'Endocentric' literally means focused or centered within itself or inside, and not on something external or outside. This approach promotes the deliberate teaching

of acceptable phonological, lexical, syntactic, and even discourse features of PhE proven to have been thriving within and outside the classroom. As an illustrative case, *based from, result to, cope up with* are established and pedagogically acceptable features of PhE (cf. Bernardo & Madrunio, 2015); hence, there is no reason for language teachers to be afraid of teaching them formally in the classroom and to be scared of persuading the learners to use these in various forms of communication. The endocentric pedagogic approach urges language teachers to welcome PhE as a pedagogic norm thus prompting them to 'look within or to look inside', i.e., to rely on the local norms that PhE has to offer. There might not be a reason at all for formally teaching the inner circle structures such as *a majority*, *pieces of advice,* and *pieces of furniture* because in (and for) intranational communication; these AmE syntactic items are rarely used by the majority of Filipino ESL speakers and are pedagogically unacceptable to both language teachers and learners (cf. Bernardo & Madrunio, 2015). The endocentric pedagogic approach, put more succinctly, draws inspiration primarily from the homegrown variety making itself PhE-centric and PhE-philic.

However, because it seems rather impractical and unrealizable to completely veer away from PhE's parent variety, AmE, its other pedagogically acceptable features may likewise be taught under the endocentric pedagogic approach, e.g., *unless* instead of *not unless*, *for example* instead of *like for example, 'I' and my siblings* instead of *'me' and my siblings* (cf. Bernardo & Madrunio, 2015). This implies that, in a way, in learning English, both Englishes are taught, both varieties are accorded equal treatment, and both Englishes receive the same amount of pedagogical respect and attention. The endocentric pedagogic approach looks at English as a plural language and thus its attribute as a multifaceted language is emphasized in the classroom. The formal teaching of an Outer Circle English alongside an Inner Circle English is therefore legitimized, making the learners cognizant that these two Englishes co-exist and that there is nothing strange in learning both. If the endocentric pedagogic model is adhered to, PhE will then be celebrated, formalized, and institutionalized.

Kirkpatrick (2013) posits that it is only through the efforts of local educators that WE can thrive because only they can legitimize their own English. Corollary to this, it is only through the efforts of teachers that PhE can be institutionalized because only they can endorse PhE in the educational space where they serve as leads or frontrunners. As an instructional backbone, the endocentric pedagogic approach affords them with lenses, which allow them to see English as a language with localized norms and idiosyncratic structures that may be used for both functional and interactional purposes.

22.4 A Philippine English-Aware Method for Teaching English

In a paper by Bernardo (2017, p. 138), a PhE-aware five-stage teaching procedure was presented. The steps under the procedure accord the language

teachers the opportunity to gradually raise the learners' level of awareness of the WE paradigm in general and of PhE in particular.

> *Stage 1: Notice*—Students are made to notice the distinctive features of PhE. Teachers direct students' attention to grammatical, lexical, or phonological items that significantly differ from American English or British English.
>
> *Stage 2: Compare*—Teachers lead the students to compare and contrast idiosyncratic PhE phonological, syntactic, or lexical features with American English or British English highlighting that the differences are acceptable and not strange.
>
> *Stage 3: Comment*—The teacher comments that the distinctive features are not errors and abnormalities; rather, they are innovations that are allowed and permissible in formal and informal discourses.
>
> *Stage 4: Encourage*—Teachers encourage learners to use the local variety both in formal and in informal discourses without uncertainties or hesitations or fear of being penalized or laughed or frowned at.
>
> *Stage 5: Familiarize*—Teachers encourage students to be familiar with other established varieties of English and train them to shuttle from one variety to another to effect more successful communication.

How this five-stage teaching procedure may be inserted anywhere in the instructional period or instructional blueprint will now be explored. This method may be employed every time teachable episodes in the class surface. In fact, this method hardly interferes with or distracts the pre-instruction, during instruction, and post-instruction phases in the teaching process. However, the prototypical stages, if they are to be used in ESL classes, may need to be modified. The method may be used even at the motivation part of the lesson, lesson proper, generalization segment, and task time as long as the goal is to raise core issues of WE and PhE. The method aims for consciousness-raising and eventually acceptance of PhE. Making such explicit reference to WE and PhE through this method is a welcome step toward formalizing an awareness of the important role they play in ELT.

As an illustration, the teacher may find a teachable moment in class after certain texts that contain PhE have been presented to the class. These texts may be newspaper articles, blogs, social media posts, and other text types that contain PhE lexico-syntactic features. For instance, if phrasal verbs such as *based from, fill out,* and *cope up with* occur in the text presented to the students, the classroom scene would appear like this: The teacher leads the learners to notice that *based from, fill out,* and *cope up with* are idiosyncratic features as far as local English is concerned. The teacher provides input about the local English and the WE paradigm if the learners are hardly cognizant about these. The teacher raises questions like *Do you also use these phrasal verbs in speaking and in writing? Do you find them different or strange? Where else could you hear about or read these? Do you hear educated Filipinos say these, too?*

The teacher presents the AmE variants *based on, fill out,* and *cope with* to the students and positions them vis-à-vis their PhE counterparts. The students realize that there exists a different pattern of use in PhE. The teacher asks: *How does the pattern of use differ in AmE and in PhE? Would you consider 'based from', 'fill up', and 'cope up with' erroneous?* The teacher, after processing the students' responses, comments that these are not errors or abnormalities but features of PhE. The teacher convinces the learners that PhE is not a bastardized form of English and encourages the students to use these phrasal verbs in both formal and informal communications without reservations. Finally, the teacher asks the students to spot other features of PhE and advises them to be familiar with these.

22.5 'Noticing a Variety' Technique

One technique employable in class is the noticing task. 'Noticing language', which was first popularized by Schmidt in 1990, has recently gained recognition in language learning. Research into noticing, Batstone (1996) says, "is still in its infancy, but given its importance as a gateway to language learning, it should be a subject of vital interest for all those involved in language teaching" (p. 273). This task is based on the premise that students learn the language items they pay attention to and thus learning language structures is driven by attention and awareness. Contextualizing the noticing theory in the teaching of PhE, the student will learn about PhE phonology, grammar, lexicon, and discourse if they are deliberately led to pay attention to PhE structures that are central and typical.

A facet of noticing a variety in the classroom is its explicitness (Batstone, 1996). Features of PhE may be explicitly presented to the learners by engaging them with various input sources and by providing metalinguistic explanations afterward. The input could be texts teeming with PhE features, e.g., newspaper headlines, memoranda, acknowledgments, legal texts such as bills and acts, press releases, transcribed telephone conversations, magazine articles, advertisements, poetry, and other literary pieces written in PhE. The texts may also be oral productions of proficient Filipino speakers of English or any attentional resources available—whether authentic materials or teacher-developed. In doing so, Cook's (2001) suggestion remains convincing: that "the model for language teaching should be the fluent L2 user, not the native speaker" (p. 179) When the learners manifest familiarity with PhE, these PhE-rich inputs may be collected by the learners themselves. They may be asked to accumulate texts that they feel contain distinctive features of PhE and use these as subjects of classroom discussion.

When learners have achieved a much higher level of noticing ability, the teacher may also provide situations that would require students to shuttle from one variety to another. For example, in writing for publication, the students may be made to realize that in the realm of local and international publications, they may shift from PhE to AmE. They may use *based from, fill*

up, and *cope up with*, when they communicate intranationally but they will have to use *based on, fill out,* and *cope with* when they communicate internationally. Truly, the reality is that not all English speakers would tolerate such idiosyncratic features in formal and academic communications. The ability to shuttle from one variety to another, however, gives the learners a competitive advantage. They will be able to "…adjust their speech in order to be intelligible to interlocutors from a wide range of L1 backgrounds, most of whom are not inner-circle native speakers" (Jenkins, 2006, p. 174).

Following the five-stage teaching procedure outlined above, the teacher will be able to create classroom conditions where learners can notice aspects and features of PhE. However, because a singular noticing task would not suffice, the language teacher should endeavor to re-expose the learners to PhE inputs and make covert efforts to make them re-notice PhE idiosyncratic structures. Flooding students with central and typical PhE features to notice and re-notice will be of value, not to mention that constantly exposing the learners to PhE will heighten its noticeability. When this happens, the teacher may later spur the learners to talk about issues material to the WE paradigm and PhE and the contentious issue that have to do with the use of English in a much higher level of discourse.

A PHE-INSPIRED PEDAGOGICAL PROCEDURE

Note: This lesson is only a chunk of a larger content taken up in class. It should be noted that ELT in the Philippines follows the integrative approach, that is, a lesson covers all the macro-skills. The procedure below may be followed if and when the 'PhE teachable moment' surfaces in class.

A. Intended Learning Outcome:

The students should be able to discuss what phrasal verbs are and use them in compositions appropriately and to be able to demonstrate favorable attitude toward the local variety of English.

B. Content:

Phrasal verbs.

C. Procedure:

1 Present a text that bears PhE phrasal verbs. Ask the students to identify the phrasal verbs in the text.
2 Ask the students to describe what phrasal verbs are and to give more examples.

3 Direct the students to 'notice' the phrasal verbs *based from, result in,* and *cope up with.* These may be written on the board or highlighted on the screen. Ask: *Do you also use these phrasal verbs in speaking and in writing? Do you find them different or strange? Where else could you hear about or read these? Do you hear educated Filipinos say these, too?*

4 Provide a two-column table similar to what is shown below. The first column presents the PhE phrasal verbs while the second column indicates their Standard English counterparts. Ask: *Which between the two groups would you consider 'more' correct? How does the pattern of use differ? Would you consider 'based from', 'fill up', and 'cope up with' erroneous?* Welcome as many answers or opinions as possible. Remark that both are acceptable and underscore that these are only variations. Emphasize that one is PhE while the other is AmE. Give comments that these are not errors or abnormalities but features of PhE. Elicit more opinions from the students. Convince them that PhE is not a bastardized form of English and encourage the students to use these phrasal verbs in both formal and informal communications without reservations.

based from	based on
result to	result in
cope up with	cope with

5 Give sentence drills to the students. Sentences may be similar to the following. Ask them to supply the phrasal verbs needed in the sentences. If students use the PhE *based from, result to,* and *cope up with*, or their AmE counterparts, appreciate students' answers by saying that their answers are correct.

1 *The findings show that 99% of the students favor K-12. _____ the data, it could be seen that they do appreciate this educational reform.*
2 *Failure in the examination would _____ in debarment and cancellation of candidacy.*
3 *The students had difficulty in the course. They could hardly _____ the demands of the program.*

6 Ask the students to give more examples of phrasal verbs they use. Make them list these down and lead them to decide whether these may be regarded as PhE phrasal verbs. Ask them to look for texts produced by Filipinos where these phrasal verbs occur. Make them realize that when these structures are used most especially by educated Filipinos, there is nothing wrong if they will use these as well either in written or in spoken communication.

22.6 The English Teacher and the ELT Curriculum

Dorgu (2015) argues that "[t]eaching is a deliberate activity done in a professional manner to bring a positive change on the learner…" (p. 77). As such, there is also a need for a deliberate effort to resort to other WE-inspired pedagogical alternatives or, in the words of Matsuda (2003, p. 727), to "… put on a new pair of eyeglasses" so that teaching becomes attuned to the demands of the times and the learners themselves. Changes in pedagogical approaches, however, hardly take place if there is no institutional mandate. In an earlier analysis of the English curriculum, Bernardo (2017) concludes that "…the WE paradigm in general and PhE in particular are hardly regarded as a serious pedagogical agendum in the present-day English language teaching-and-learning curriculum implemented in the Philippines" (p. 121). This implies that language teachers are not in any way obligated either to use PhE as a pedagogic norm or to introduce PhE and WE to the learners. Throughout this chapter, it has been argued that it is only when the imparting of WE is made a curricular requirement or a permanent fixture in the ELS classroom can it be taught and only then can PhE become the "taught variety" (Kirkpatrick, 2002, p. 222).

For the English curriculum to be regarded both innovative and liberating, reference to it should allow teachers to depict that the "…complexity of the sociolinguistic reality of English is needed to prepare learners for their future use of English that may involve both NNSs and NSs and that may take place in any part of the world" (Matsuda, 2003, p. 726). The curriculum should also embolden language teachers in making sound and brave pedagogical decisions. Crystal (2001, p. 59) exclaims that "It is a brave new world, indeed; and those who have to be bravest of all are the teachers" (p. 59). Teachers should be fearless to untie themselves from the native-speaker-centric model for language teaching for it is not robust enough to meet the changing communication needs of the learners. It should be remembered, nevertheless, that "[i]t is up to each teacher, working with real students, and subject to a variety of administrative and pedagogical requirements and constraints, to decide how to respond to the reality of English as a world language" (Gupta, 2001, p. 18).

Language teachers themselves, for the endocentric pedagogic approach to work, are expected to project favorable attitudes toward the WE paradigm. Otherwise, the teaching of WE and PhE will hardly flourish. As an inevitable reality, WE is seen to become a pedagogical backbone and they are encouraged to find ways by which it can be infused as an overarching pedagogic principle.

22.7 Concluding Remarks

This chapter advances an endocentric pedagogic approach for teaching English. Through this approach, language teachers 'look within' the local

variety of English and entice the learners to do the same. It is hoped that when English teachers teach the target language, they are guaranteed that they are armed with a pedagogical implement that is compliant with a paradigm expected to gain further prominence in the years to come. As it is, WE "…encompasses many different approaches to the study of English worldwide" (Low & Pakir, 2017, p. 5). It is hoped that through the endocentric pedagogic approach for teaching English presented here, when English teachers face their students in their everyday instruction, they would be confident to challenge the notion of adopting a 'monomodel' (Kachru, 1992) and would be bold enough to exclaim: "Today I am going to teach (in) PhE".

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Principles and Practices of Teaching English Language Learners

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Abstract

This conceptual paper presents diverse approaches and strategies for preparing competent teachers who work with either English Language Learners (ELLs) or students who speak English as a Second Language (ESL). The pedagogical approaches discussed herein include practical and hands-on activities for teachers at any level. Bilingual learning improves ELL's cognitive development as well as their self-esteem. The paper outlines underlying principles for the best practices with an emphasis on ESL students and also to other learning situations and students. Teachers can modify their instructional methods to adjust ELL's learning needs. Specifically, even though the discussion is framed in the context of ESL students in U.S. classrooms, it is applicable to TEFL (Teaching English as a Foreign Language) environments in schools and other centers of learning.

Keywords: English as Second Language (ESL), English Language Learner (ELL), Teaching English to Speakers of Other Languages (TESOL), bilingual learners, teaching strategies

1. Introduction

1.1 Issues in Teaching English as a Second Language

The increasingly diverse environment of today's classrooms provides a rich opportunity for teachers and students to engage in effective learning. With a growing number of English Language Learners worldwide, there is a critical need for general education and resource teachers to know how to effectively build and implement literacy programs that are inclusive of students' language and culture. Understanding that culture goes beyond the knowledge of ethnic attire, music, food, and language; it includes the total being, comprised of the totality of the student's background, heritage, ancestry, educational, political, and life. The importance of teaching ESL students is critical in the current climate with increasing accountability by way of student performance on standardized tests. ESL students are expected to be on grade level proficiency within three years and teachers are held accountable for their learning (Curtin, 2005).

There are a variety of terms that have been used for non-native English speakers, ranging from LEP (Limited English Proficient), ESL students (English as a Second Language), Bilingual students and English Language Learners (ELL). For practical purposes, we use the term ESL students for a student whose mother tongue is not English. As educators, we understand that ESL students have to double their efforts in school, to not only learn new information but also learn the academic language of the school. Freeman and Freeman (2011, p.19) state, "ESLs face double the work of native English speakers. They must learn English, and they must learn academic content through English. In addition, they often live in neighborhoods where the schools are underfunded and are staffed by inexperienced teachers." On the same note, teachers of ESL students face double work of teaching core competencies enlisted in the curriculum to meet the benchmarks and teach English to non-native speakers. It is a double-whammy. While we realize that no two students are alike and that no two students have the same needs, there are commonalities among learners that help us approach our teaching in a more informed way. The paper proposes foundational principles and practices for teachers who work with ESL students in their classrooms.

1.2 School Culture and Educational Environment

It is important to consider how the culture of the school eases when a new ESL student enters into the classroom to create a sense of belonging. Using a framework of compare and contrast can be instructional and useful in learning about two cultures. There are commonalities and differences in comparing different cultures. Reaching out to parents by using a few phrases in their native language while greeting them can instantly break down the social barriers between the teachers and the parents. Now with Google Translate, it can be easily done. Creating a

welcoming climate for students new to the country and culture provides the first step in easing into a learning situation. Seating students next to another student who has a similar background can ease the jitters caused by an alien culture and language.

2. Method

This conceptual paper focuses on the description of pedagogical strategies stemming from a theoretical framework that has evolved out of second language learning research. Research on ESL/ELL strategies is based on the findings that building on learners' background by providing comprehensible input and multiple opportunities for interaction is the key to second language proficiency. These findings lead to the development of a set of strategies built on the framework of principles of learning the second language outlined below.

Seven principles of second language learning have been identified as critical to successfully teaching ESL students.

1) Know your student and motivation to learn the second language
2) Create a welcoming classroom environment
3) Build Background Knowledge
4) Provide Comprehensible Input by building vocabulary
5) Include frequent opportunities for Interaction and Discussion
6) Use Multiple Modalities during instruction
7) Conduct ongoing review and assessment

These principles provide a basis for developing a broader theory for second language learning.

Cummins (1980) discusses the context-embedded language and its effectiveness with ESL learners. For instance, repetition of classroom routines provides non-English speakers with meaningful language learning opportunities because the words and phrases that accompany such routines are constantly repeated within a concrete context. For instance, a word like 'lavatory' will become a part of their lexicon, if used by a teacher on a routine basis every time for a bathroom break. Using synonyms or rephrasing keywords differently reinforces meaning. Creating a low-stress environment necessary for students to feel ready to participate in a larger group setting provides a less threatening environment for a student to take a risk. Established routines facilitate learning as students know what to expect and begin to thrive in that environment.

2.1 Know Your Student and Motivation to Learn the Second Language

One of the most important things to do is to get to know your student you are sharing your classroom space and time with. Getting to know your student will go a long way in building a strong relationship and bonding with them. This knowledge will greatly help educators respond in an informed way as they work with their English language learners. It is one thing to read about English language learners and discuss theoretical models in the setting of a university classroom; it is another to work with the students directly and apply what teachers know. However, when teachers take the time to study each student carefully, they gain a new perspective on all their English learners. Knowing your student not only makes you a better teacher but makes the student a better learner. By knowing one learner, teachers can gain insight into commonalities among other learners that helps with effective teaching and learning.

Using the Funds of Knowledge (Gonzalez, Moll, & Amanti, 2013) framework is a great place to start this process. Funds of knowledge are created by the out-of-school daily living experiences that students have in their families and communities. For instance, an ESL student may not be aware of the terminology used in mathematics in the classroom or textbook, such as 'fractions' or division but is aware of the concept in real-life. A teacher will incorporate real-life examples to incorporate such concepts in classroom instruction. Building connections with your students and their families aren't always at the top of a teacher's "to do" list, but it must be. Children with a strong home to school connections thrive at school and as preschool teachers; we can lay the foundation for a positive school experience for our students by making this a priority.

Instead of a subject-centered, a student-centered classroom is more productive. Subject-oriented teachers tend to focus on learning the subject content, passing tests, doing worksheets rather than tuning in to their students. They usually engage in individual work rather than encouraging group work. Generally, novice teachers are unable to attempt more student-centered approaches because of discipline management issues (Curtin, 2005). However, with prior instructional planning, one can overcome this issue. Differentiating instruction, by allowing students to choose how to display their own learning or how they want to address the tasks based on ability, provides for a

student-centered approach.

Research shows that motivation directly influences the proficiency levels of students in the target language (Wen, 1997). Motivation is considered one of the main determining factors in picking up a second language.

When a teacher tries to know and learn about a student's background, it makes a big difference. Student and family members come to see that they are valued by the school system when a teacher makes an attempt to say a phrase or just one word in the home language of the learner; it helps to break the ice. Just being able to say hello in another language is enough to make someone smile. A teacher's attempt to make an effort to use your student's language and a desire to connect with the other's culture pays huge dividends for student learning and student achievement. Now with technology and Google translate, it has been made significantly easier to learn how to pronounce a word or a phrase in another language. A teacher is not expected to know multiple languages that various ESL learners speak. However, using a single word or a phrase in another language indicates teacher's sensitivity and attitude towards speakers of other languages and that alone can make a huge difference in creating a student-friendly environment.

2.2 Create a Welcoming Classroom Environment

An important step in helping ESL students succeed is building their confidence and comfort level by making them feel welcome in the classroom. This pays great dividends in terms of academic success as they build positive relationships with their academic community, teacher, peer, paraprofessionals, resource teacher, and other classroom volunteers.

Making the instructional classroom environment, welcoming and comfortable to students is critical in learning as it helps to build a relationship with ESL students. Let there be a sense of openness, students should perceive the teacher as caring and thoughtful that you care about them and want to be there for them. Some ways are to bring a students' culture into the classroom by using visuals and pictures of student's cultural tradition or festivals or foods with labels in both languages is a good start. Labeling items in the classroom in two or three languages benefits them visually. They come to see that their language, heritage, and culture is valued. It also allows for opportunities for them to share about their culture. Always be consistent and fair with all students.

Grouping students with a respectable and trustworthy partner can help guide when the teacher is not available. This is beneficial not only for ESL student but also for the partner, as both are learning about each other's culture and vocabulary, or when feasible, inviting a staff member from the school who speaks the student's language to work with the student. Grouping or pairing students with friends that speak the same language greatly helps the ESL student in case they are not getting what the teacher says. Other students chime in to translate the assignment in the native language to assist them with directions. Technologies like Remind and ClassDojo all have the ability to translate material for teachers, and teachers can print, email, or text the information they need to send to their parents as necessary.

Keeping instructions simple and clear is helpful. Posting the visual colorful class schedule in a prominent place in the room is helpful. Also, reviewing it daily as a set routine will reinforce it.

Learn to say their name correctly. It makes a monumental difference. Students see that you not only respect their ideas, thoughts and knowledge but most of all their identity, who they are, represented by their name. Teachers can relate to their students by playing the music from the student's culture during center time or transitional times or by displaying books from the country/culture of students in the classroom. Remember, students follow the tone set by the teacher in the classroom. Students observe not only the verbal directives and interactions but the non-verbal cues from the teacher.

Finally, during formal or informal oral presentations or conversations, teachers may correct the content of what ESL students say, if necessary rather than how they say in terms of pronunciation or grammar. Constant interruptions or corrections will deter students from speaking up and sharing their ideas (Gupta 1999).

2.3 Building Background Knowledge

There is a virtual consensus that background knowledge is essential for reading comprehension. Effective teaching takes students from where they are and leads them to a higher level of understanding (Krashen, 1985; Vygotsky, 1978). All learners have prior knowledge, gained from schooling and life experiences and teachers can build on those experiences. Reading becomes especially difficult when children are not able to comprehend because they are not familiar with a topic or theme that is being taught. Activating prior knowledge and building new background knowledge for ESL students is a crucial component of literacy development. The more readers know about a topic, the easier it is to read a text, understand it, and retain the information. Previous studies (Alexander, Kulikowich, & Schulze, 1994; Shapiro, 2004) have shown that background knowledge plays an enormous role in

reading comprehension.

When introducing a topic or new subject to students, research shows that if we discuss the topic and concepts prior to teaching it, students are better able to relate to the topic (Cain & Oakhill, 2011; Gupta and Lee, 2015)). Sometimes it is called, domain-specific knowledge or topical knowledge. Without such prior knowledge, it becomes more difficult to construct meaning from the text for ESL.

Since children come from varied backgrounds and cultures, through oral and written activities, teachers can draw out from students what they already know about the subject. Their understanding is tinted by a cultural filter they come from.

Neuman et al. (n.d.) online mention that, "Even the most immediate oral language exchanges, like "What do you say?" to a young child who just received some Halloween candy, require some level of inferencing. From infancy on, oral language comprehension requires children to actively construct meaning by supplying missing knowledge and making inferences. This is an example of cultural specific usage of language requiring familiarity with Halloween and the distribution of candies to children. If you have a specific set of vocabulary words that you plan to teach, you can pre-assess students' familiarity with the words prior to teaching the lesson. Neuman et al. (n.d.) have used a basic chart that lists the word and options on a knowledge continuum. Students can fill it in prior to the lesson and after the lesson has been taught to check where they fall on the continuum.

Table 1. Vocabulary awareness screening

Vocabulary Word	Never heard of it	Think I've heard of it	I've heard of it	I've heard of it and I can tell you about it	I've heard of it, I can explain it, and I've used it
Navel					
Goggles					
Orbit					

1) Prepare students with the upcoming topic by relating it to their current experiences. For instance, while introducing a topic on photosynthesis, talk about how the food is made for us to eat. Discuss how food is prepared in different cultures represented by students in the class. Then connect it to how do plants make their own food to survive. They do it through a process of photosynthesis, where 'photo' means light and synthesis means to bring together. Thus, photosynthesis is the process by which plants prepare their own food using carbon dioxide and water in the presence of sunlight. Breaking the word into smaller units of meaning assists ESL learners with the understanding meaning of root words.
2) Use anticipation guides: An Anticipation Guide is a strategy that is used before reading to activate students' prior knowledge and build curiosity about a new topic. Before reading a selection, students respond to several statements that challenge or support their preconceived ideas about key concepts in the text. Then check for their understanding, after the topic has been presented in terms of how their thinking has been changed or confirmed based on the new information. For instance, for teaching a concept like photosynthesis to younger students, one can generate statements such as do plants need food? Can plants cook their own food without cooking pots and pans? Can plants make food without air? Will plants need sunlight to make their food?

2.4 Provide Comprehensible Input by Building Vocabulary

An effective teacher considers the unique characteristics and cultural aspects of the ESL students. The teacher is aware of the student's needs and makes an effort to make her verbal communication more understandable based on the student's linguistic needs. Making the message understandable for students is referred to as Comprehensible Input (Krashen 1985). ESL students need to work on making meaning of what they are doing all the time. Increasing participation and engagement rates of ESL students is done by increasing comprehensible input.

Clear enunciation and repetition, as well as, rephrasing concepts and words help tremendously if the communication is at students' proficiency level. If teachers find that the instructional text that they are using in the classroom is difficult for ESL students to follow, then they can use technologies like 'Rewordify.com', which provide free online service that improves reading, learning, and teaching by simplifying the complexity of the text.

Insufficient background knowledge of the target culture may also hinder students in getting the meaning of the text. For instance, a text-passage on "Groundhog Day" will mean little to a student from another country and culture in the US without the appropriate background knowledge. It is a popular tradition celebrated in the U.S. on February 2nd, based on the Pennsylvania Dutch superstition that if a groundhog emerging from its burrow on this

day sees its shadow, then winter will persist for 6 more weeks. This is part of cultural literacy and building prior knowledge before introducing the topic.

Before reading or introducing a specific text to ESL students in the content areas, one needs to provide time and space to acclimate to the learning that they are expected to partake in. Primarily, students need to understand the vocabulary that will be utilized to comprehend and respond to the material found in the text, passage, book, or even just conversations that occur during their partner or group work. Further, students need to understand where they are expected to be going with the work, in other words, students need to understand the structure of the material presented, and how they can access the learning during the upcoming lesson. ESL students need goals that are tailored to them, and they need to be able to understand those goals. In summation, the lesson's foundations must be built in order to create a significant enough scaffold to support interactions and learning during the assignments.

Some teachers pre-teach their students specific words that they think students will struggle with on the test, for instance, [navel]. A prior discussion on body parts with formal and informal labels promotes student understanding of the target anticipated text. Thus, letting students know that a 'belly button' is also called a 'navel' will help with vocabulary development.

The best ways to assist students during informal classroom tests is by reading test questions aloud, explaining definitions of words, or even acting out the text. This provides additional meaning to the learners and helps with the comprehension of the task. Some instructors give students a visual to go with the text, and they usually know the correct answer when they can see it.

Cognates are very helpful. Cognates are words in the English language (target language) that look and mean the same as a word in a student's first language. Usually, they sound similar in the two languages. For example, [gratitude] in English means the same as [gratitud] in Spanish. In a similar fashion, one can also bring students' awareness to false-cognates, such as [exit] and [exito]; in Spanish 'exito' means 'success'. Similarly, for the English word [soap], the Spanish word is [sopa] which means 'soup', thus the two words look and sound very close but they are semantically very different. These are classed as 'false friends' or false cognates. Students could compile a list of words in their reading journals that they believe to be cognates and false cognates. At the end of each reading session after a given week, they could spend five minutes checking with a partner in a Spanish language dictionary (if the focus is on Spanish cognates) to check meanings. Selected words can then be placed on a board in the classroom.

Word wall is another effective strategy for building vocabulary as it encompasses speaking, listening, and reading skills, in order to further students' comprehension of the target vocabulary. A Word Wall is an interactive, ongoing display on the wall that shows words and/or parts of words, used to teach concepts, spelling, reading, writing skills. These words provide support and references for students during learning. One could begin by creating multiple word walls. At the beginning of the year, the classroom could simply have a cognates board, which students would fill in as a group during the first week. This activity promotes a learning community by helping students tap into their background knowledge around their current language mastery and can feel proud of their accomplishment. Over the course of the time, students could add many more cognates that they find, expanding further the list of words that they have in their growing receptive vocabularies. As teachers introduce content during their core subject classes, they could begin to add word walls for each of their subject areas, social studies, science, math, geography, as academic vocabulary wall.

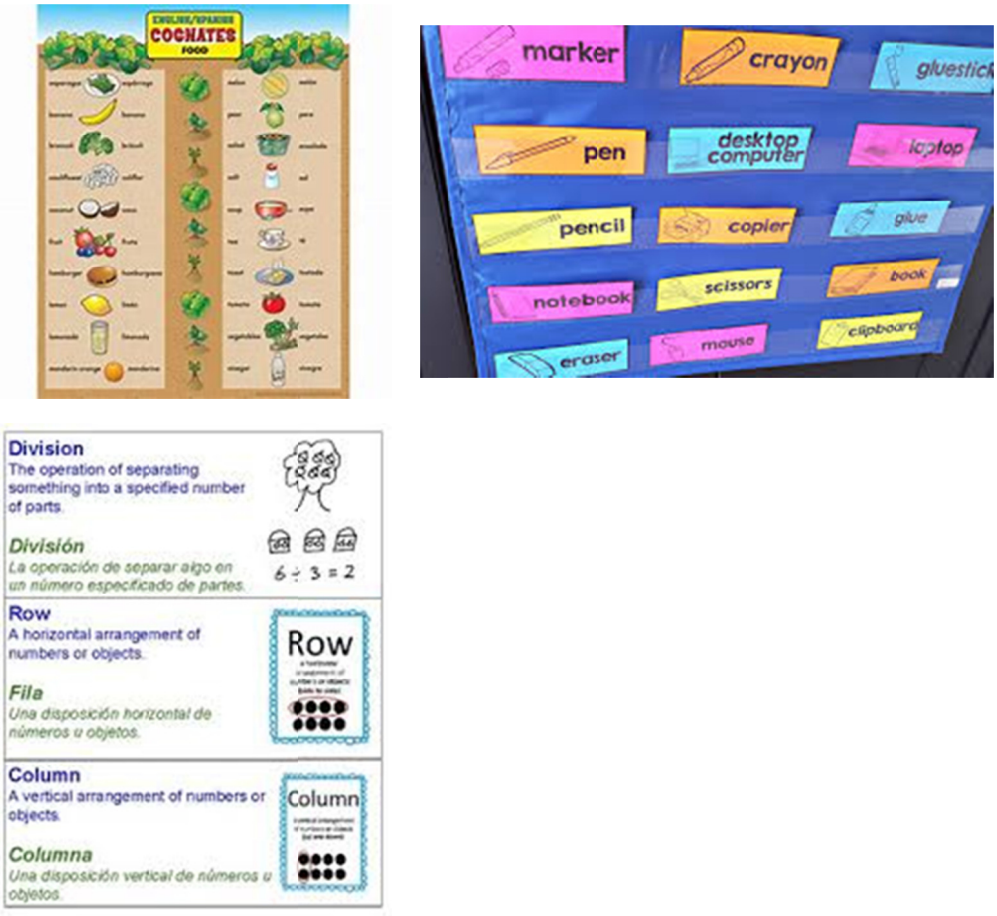

Figure 1. Mathematics vocabulary word wall samples in English and Spanish

For vocabulary growth, teachers can display words that have been selected from each leveled group in the classroom. For the young elementary ESL students, teachers can build high-frequency word walls that are slightly more complex than the words they currently know, and slowly progress throughout the year towards more complex, academic language. The weekly words from the wall can be read, acted out, if possible, defined with an illustration or diagram (in a picture or first language-English dictionary, as necessary), or used in multiple sentences.

Vocabulary Journals is another engaging strategy, which is an extension of word cards (flash cards) in a spiral notebook that depicts the word on one side and a picture/illustration related to the word on the other side of the page. Students can add new vocabulary words alongside the definition and provide a sentence using the word or a visual that will assist the student in remembering the word. This strategy can be used at elementary as well as secondary level. Students can be assigned new words every week which they can add to their journal. These journals can be separated by the subject since every content area has its own subject-specific vocabulary. Teachers can also assign a "Word for the Day", each day a new word becomes the focus of learning. Using the word orally and frequently in conversation is the key to acquiring new vocabulary.

2.5 Include Frequent Opportunities for Interaction and Discussion

The literature on effective culturally responsive instructional practices supports the teaching style that is highly interactive as well as the use of cooperative groups, and individualized testing and assessment procedures (Garcia, 1992). For ESL students it is imperative that they practice target language with others in an oral language format. The interaction maintains student attention and allows students to apply what they have learned in a real context. In small groups or in a pair, students who feel hesitant or are shy to speak up in a large group, tend to open-up easily. These opportunities assist in overcoming students' anxieties and fears to speak orally in front of others.

There are a number of strategies that provide a platform for interaction. These strategies range from, 'turn-pair and

share' to book circle, jigsaw reading, story scripts. Teachers can easily tweak them to suit their subject, focus, or task. Turn-Pair-Share can be conducted after a class has read a specific book or a specific content area topic. Each student turns to his or her partner to discuss thoughts, ideas, and feelings. This format is less threatening for reluctant learners or students with anxiety, compared to presenting to a large classroom where all the eyes are on the student. The small group prepares the student to eventually share in a large group or in front of the class. Book Circles are powerful formats where students sit in a circle and face one another to share their thoughts or comments on the book/chapter that has been read by everyone in the group. There is no right or wrong answer in this setting, instead, students share their feelings, thoughts evoked as a result of reading the text or any connections to their prior knowledge that they were able to make based on the text. Jigsaw Reading is where students are each given a part of a text or story. Each student reads his or her part then they meet in small groups to discuss what their part was about. Story Scripts strategy allows students to take a story or poem and turn it into a dialogue where students take turns to speak their part. These are some ways to involve students during instruction in class. Students enjoy them as it keeps them on their toes as they take the responsibility to share their part. Each student is accounted for. It is an effective way for a classroom teacher to assess student understanding of the subject matter or their comprehension skills.

2.6 Use Multiple Modalities During Instruction

A teacher who can "purposefully exhibit a wide range of teaching styles is potentially able to accomplish more than a teacher whose repertoire is relatively limited" (Smith & Renzulli, 1984, p. 49). Due to the availability of multiple platforms of communication and learning, innovative ways to deliver instruction are evolving. Dunn and Dunn (1979) found that only 20-30% of school-age children appear to be auditory learners, that 40% are visual, and that the remaining 30-40% are tactile/kinesthetic, visual/tactile, or some other combination. Researchers have found that early on children tend to be mostly tactile/kinesthetic and gradually they develop other strengths such as visual and auditory (Price, Dunn, and Sanders (1980). Multiple learning modalities (such as read it, write, do it, and talk it, see it, hear it, interact with it) are used in the integrated approach. Teachers can use multimedia and other technologies in lessons incorporating websites to enrich visual support for the learners. Teachers use interactive teaching style and various learning modalities to meet the needs of their ESL students. New modalities have changed multimodal digital platforms that present educators with the possibility of providing meaningful opportunities for engagement and creativity employing different cognitive, audio-visual senses and ability to interact.

Teachers can now provide audio feedback to students which is shown to provide more elaborate detailed responses where teachers provide not only more information but the richer language and greater elaboration of concepts (Swan-Dagen, et al., 2008). Technologies like *ClassDojo* have the ability to translate material for teachers, and teachers can print, email, or text the information they need to send to students' parents as necessary. *Rewordify.com* is free and child safe online software that improves reading and learning. One can enter difficult or complex sentences or text passages in the highlighted box, and the program rewords the text into simpler text and voila! One can even click on a phrase or a difficult word to hear it, thus addressing the pronunciation aspect as well.

Students can create scripts and manage illustrations to go with the scripts. Engagement level in the students goes up as they work on media projects. Students can use Twitter, Facebook, Instagram, YouTube, blog posts as social media to share thoughts and ideas or create digital stories. Online forums for discussion provide an opportunity for a wider range of responses than a traditional discussion where the first respondents set the tone for an entire group. ESL students may feel more comfortable as they post their views in online forums. It provides space for the development of unique learner's voices, ideas, thoughts, and opinions.

2.7 Conduct Ongoing Review and Assessment

Assessment is an essential component of any instructional practice to evaluate its effectiveness. It has to be formative, ongoing rather than a summative, one-shot evaluation. It is a two-pronged process by which teachers can do self-assessment, deliberately reflecting on what they are teaching as well as do students' assessment, to find out what they are learning in turn. It provides an effective way to monitor students' progress and what changes need to be made. It could be a formal or informal evaluation to track a student's progress and understanding. Learning should be assessed on a regular basis. Teachers should keep their own written record of student interactions and abilities. Students should be assessed on what they have taught and what is relevant to the grade level content. Use multiple modalities to assess students – using diagrams, visuals, oral and written components – aids the overall accessibility of student work. Multiple assessments should be used. For instance, teachers can use students' scores from the previous years, current test scores from reading and writing, as well as classwork, observations to determine where a student is academically. At the same time, teachers can follow any legal

accommodations and use professional judgments based on the outcomes of assessment and their own developing knowledge of students to provide quality instruction. Teachers can also teach students to self-monitor by using teacher provided rubrics. Students can become better learners and improve their knowledge and skills when they reflect on what they are learning. By taking a step back from the learning process, both teachers and students can objectively view the progress.

3. Results and Discussion

With an ever-increasing number of ESL students, it is imperative that teachers and instructional leaders become aware of effective ESL teaching strategies to help this population in their classrooms. We have discussed strategies that address different learning styles (audio, visual, kinesthetic, tactile) via various modalities. First, modeling what students are expected to do when given a new task or a skill is greatly helpful to them. Modeling, rather than simply telling the students what to do, promotes stronger learning and higher self-confidence. Similarly, speaking slowly and clearly assists student comprehension. Providing wait time affords them an opportunity to think and to process before responding. Use of visuals, gestures, PowerPoint slides, podcasts, voice inflection, intonation, and body language as non-verbal cues enables a better understanding of the directions and the content. An additional strategy involves reinforcing student comprehension by following up verbal instructions with written instructions. All instructions must be explicit and clear. Creating a low-stress environment is necessary for students to feel ready to participate in a larger group setting; it also provides a less threatening environment that facilitates risk-taking by the students. Established routines facilitate learning, as students know what to expect and begin to thrive in that environment. In classroom settings involving a peer who speaks a similar first language and is also competent in the second language, can be a morale and motivation booster for other learners. ESL students are full members of the classroom community. It is important to let them know that they are expected to learn and work just like everyone else in the classroom. Learning another language is a need, not a disability. With these principles in mind, a teacher can play a huge role in the success of the ESL students.

4. Conclusion

As our classrooms become more diverse, educators need to consider the needs of ESL students by providing them the opportunities to learn and creating a shared learning environment. Taking small steps based on the framework of seven principles discussed in this paper will yield effective results in classrooms. As one teacher stated, “if you focus on the *who*, the *what* will start to care of itself”.

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BOOK REVIEW

English Language Teaching Today: Linking Theory and Practice
Willy A. Renandya and Handoyo P. Widodo (Eds). Springer, 2016. Pp. xiv + 307. ISBN 978-3-319-38834-2 (eBook). DOI 10.1007/978-3-319-38834-2

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A quick glance at its title and contents will draw our attention to this fine volume edited by two established Asian scholars, Willy A. Renandya from Singapore and Handoyo P. Widodo from Indonesia. This edited book whose editors and contributing authors are English Language Teaching (ELT) experts and practitioners is organized into two sections: theories and practices. The first theory-based section has seven chapters, including the introductory chapter written by the editors, while the second practice-based section consists of thirteen chapters, each of which offers practical pedagogical approaches for teaching such language skills as listening, reading, speaking, writing, grammar, vocabulary and pronunciation.

As an ELT practitioner myself, I have been familiar with some of the famous names in the field, such as Willy A. Renandya, John Macalister, Brian Tomlinson, James D. Brown, Thomas S. C. Farrell, and many others. Seeing that each chapter in this volume is authored or co-authored by these world-renown and other emerging ELT experts motivated me to begin reading the book from start to finish and write this review. In what follows, a concise and accurate summary of the book is offered, followed by a critical analysis of its quality and scholarship.

Section 1 of this volume, entitled *Theories, Research, and Principles*, starts with an introductory chapter in which the editors strive to set the scene for the book by briefly discussing different aspects of ELT, such as the rise of new varieties of English, the changes to how English is taught, and the growing acceptance of English as a second or official language. The chapter then introduces the aims of the book and provides a brief synopsis of each of the 19 remaining chapters.

Chapter 2, co-authored by George M. Jacobs and Willy A. Renandya, discusses student-centered learning in ELT. What is best about this chapter is that it presents 10 key elements of student centered learning and elaborates

on how each element can be implemented in the classroom. Chapter 3 by Ahmar Mahboob and Angel M. Y. Lin explores the role of local languages in English language classrooms. This chapter explains why local languages are devalued in English classrooms, discusses benefits of integrating local languages in English classes, and outlines a teaching-learning model that offers a place for local languages in English language classrooms. Chapter 4, written by a curriculum design expert John Macalister, examines how research-based learning principles can guide instructions and the use of coursebooks, often accepted by teachers and students as a curriculum, to enhance students' learning outcomes. To this end, the author discusses four key principles which can help language teachers decide how to use the coursebook. These principles include the principle of the four strands, the fluency principle, the frequency principle, and the interference principle.

In the next chapter, Brian Tomlinson, a leading expert in language materials development, turns our attention to the needs and wants of learners of English as an International Language (EIL) and proposes a set of guidelines for developing materials which can cater for the needs of such learners. Tomlinson suggests we consider nine ways when developing materials for learners of EIL. Moving on to chapter 6, James D. Brown introduces us to his area of expertise which is assessment in ELT. In the chapter, Brown discusses 12 assessment types classified into four categories, including receptive-response, productive-response, personal-response, and individualized-response categories. Practical suggestions on how to compare, select and use each assessment type are offered in detail, followed by a useful appendix describing advantages of each assessment type. A contributor to this last chapter (chapter 7) in this theoretically oriented section is Thomas S. C. Farrell, who asks whether regular journal writing promotes reflective practice among EFL teachers. Having explained what reflective practice is, the author reports on a case study with three EFL teachers in Korea by discussing topics generally included in the journals, specifically how journal writing can facilitate reflection and problems associated with writing reflective journals. Farrell concludes the chapter by offering suggestions and cautions for English language teachers so that they can take advantage of this mode of reflective practice.

Section 2 of the book, *Pedagogical Practices*, focuses on pedagogical approaches for teaching various language skills. The first chapter in this section (chapter 8 of this volume) is by Willy A. Renandya and George M. Jacobs who examine extensive reading (ER) and extensive listening (EL) in

the second language classroom. The authors cleverly discuss key characteristics of ER and EL, their benefits for language learning, seven core principles for implementing ER and EL in L2 classrooms, and legitimate concerns preventing teachers from fully implementing ER and EL in their teaching. The next chapter (chapter 9) is from Anna C.-S. Chang who looks at L2 listening in and outside the classroom. This is a really practical chapter which discusses almost everything about L2 listening, including its significance and factors causing difficulties in listening comprehension. More importantly, Chang offers a three-stage lesson (i.e., the pre-listening, while-listening and post-listening stages) for teaching L2 listening and suggests three approaches, namely narrow listening, repeated listening, and reading while listening, teachers can use to promote students' listening practice outside the class.

Chapter 10 by Lawrence J. Zhang is on teaching reading and reviewing skills. This chapter begins by discussing major views on reading and viewing and briefly elaborates on factors which affect reading and viewing success. It then looks at 10 principles for teaching reading and reviewing skills, followed by practical reading and viewing teaching strategies (including the use of the K-W-L chart) that can be applied in the classroom. The next chapter focuses on teaching speaking skills. This chapter, written by Christine C. M. Goh, explores the construct of speaking, including interaction management skills, discourse organization skills, and communication strategies. What is significant in this chapter is a presentation of a comprehensive and holistic approach to teaching speaking, an approach which takes into account learners' cognitive, linguistic, affective, and metacognitive needs.

Chapter 12, contributed by Jonathan Newton, deals with the teaching of English for intercultural spoken communication. This chapter offers a brief background of the field of intercultural language learning and teaching, a set of principles for teaching intercultural spoken communication, and six practical classroom applications guided by intercultural communicative language teaching principles (iCLT principles), a term coined by Newton and his co-authors. The next chapter is by Yin L. Cheung who introduces us to the teaching of writing. Cheung briefly describes paradigm shifts in approaches to teaching academic writing before arguing for a more practical approach to teaching this skill: a socio-cognitive approach. In this chapter, the author discusses various aspects of second language writing, including writing competence, writing process, and strategies for teaching writing, all

of which are to set the scene for implications and pedagogical principles of the socio-cognitive approach to academic writing.

Similar to the previous chapter, chapter 14, by Zhichang Xu, is about teaching academic writing in context. In this chapter, Xu briefly reviews literature on World Englishes, English as an International Language, academic writing as community of practice, and intercultural rhetoric before introducing us to academic writing courses in three different contexts: Beijing, Hong Kong and Melbourne. Drawing on these contexts, a set of pedagogical principles for teaching English academic writing is then discussed. Chapter 15 by Helena I. R. Agustien examines the teaching of English grammar in Asian contexts. Agustien proposes three sets of a form-meaning-use strategy to address problems with the teaching of Finite verbs that Asian learners usually face. The proposed three-stage strategies are for dealing with the absence of Finite, the incorrect use of Finite, and the overuse of Finite. This chapter is interesting in that it looks at the teaching of grammar from the perspective of a systemic functional grammar tradition.

The next chapter in this volume is about teaching vocabulary in EFL contexts, co-authored by Anna Siyanova-Chanturia and Stuart Webb. This chapter touches on several issues which are of significance to learning and teaching vocabulary in the EFL context. It discusses such issues as vocabulary size, types of vocabulary to be learned and taught, vocabulary learning programs, and out-of-classroom vocabulary learning activities which promote indirect vocabulary learning. The following chapter by Cathy S. P. Wong turns our attention to the teaching of English pronunciation. Considering the role of English as a global lingua franca, Wong examines English pronunciation aspects that deserve instructional attention, such as the significance of intelligibility, learners' awareness of regional varieties of English, their ability to self-monitor their own pronunciation, and their understanding of English sound-spelling (arbitrary) correspondences, word stress, and knowledge of phonetics and phonology. Wong also discusses important elements in pronunciation teaching methodology, specifically the role of explicit instruction and the internet.

Mark Wilkinson's contribution in Chapter 18 looks at language learning with ICT (Information Communication Technology). This chapter discusses how L2 learning theories are supported by CALL (Computer Assisted Language Learning); it also examines benefits and drawbacks of flipped learning, principles for selecting and evaluating ICT tools, and digital tools,

applications and platforms for L2 classes. The chapter ends with an illustration of how to use digital storytelling, an ICT-infused L2 learning activity, and a discussion on how this activity can be assessed. This chapter will be of great interest to many readers, particularly language teachers who wish to use digital learning tools and activities to enhance their students' L2 learning. The next chapter by Handoyo P. Widodo examines the teaching of English for Specific Purposes (ESP), in particular English for Vocational Purposes (EVP). In this chapter, Widodo looks at needs analysis in ESP, EVP, and seven elements of ESP materials before suggesting three EVP tasks, namely vocational vocabulary building, vocational knowledge building, and functional metalanguage analysis of vocational texts. ESP teachers may adapt and tailor these tasks for their EVP classes.

The final chapter of this volume is contributed by Radhika Jaidev and Brad Blackstone who explore workplace communicative competence by basing their discussion on a professional communication course, called Proposal Communication Project, offered at the National University of Singapore. This chapter illustrates how workplace communicative competence, including some twenty-first century skills, can be acquired through group projects and collaborative web-based tasks.

English Language Teaching Today: Linking Theory and Practice, overall, is a great collection which, despite several typographical errors, offers a general overview of recent research and thinking in the field of ELT. The book is certainly an invaluable resource for all ELT stakeholders, particularly teacher educators and researchers. Students and teachers in TESOL programs can also find this volume an excellent source of teaching strategies and principles.

Although it may not be the best successor for Richards and Renandya's (2002) classic collection, *Methodology in Language Teaching: An Anthology of Current Practice*, this volume is a new book which will not disappoint readers who wish to keep up with recent developments in ELT or teachers who need a good language teaching methodology book as a required or recommended textbook for their TESOL classes. In sum, this volume is clearly a welcome addition to a growing body of research and scholarship in the field of ELT.

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DÜNYANIN ORTAK DİLİ OLARAK İNGİLİZCE: NİTEL PEDAGOJİK BİR ÇALIŞMA

Öz

Günümüzde tartışmasızdır ki İngilizce ortak iletişim dilidir. Ön Germanik dil ile başlayıp Eski İngilizceye, sonrasındaysa Ortaçağ İngilizcesi ve nihayetinde Modern İngilizce olarak karşımıza çıkan uzun tarihi bir geçmişi vardır. Ana dili İngilizce olmayan öğrencilere İngilizce öğretimi İngilizcenin çağdaş gelişiminde önemli bir rol oynamaktadır. İngilizce öğretiminin modern ihtisası için oldukça çok miktarlarda terim dizgeleri geliştirilmiştir. Örnek olarak Yabancı Dil Olarak İngilizce (EFL), İkinci Dil Olarak İngilizce (ESL), İngilizcenin Yabancı/İkinci Dil Olarak Öğretimi, İngilizcenin Ana Dili İngilizce Olmayanlara Öğretimi (TESOL), Uluslararası İngiliz Dili Test Sistemi (IELTS), Akademik Amaçlı İngilizce (EAP), Konu İçeriğiyle Entegre Olunmuş İngilizce Öğrenimi (CEIL), Anadili İngilizce Olmayan İngilizce Öğretmenleri (NNEST), Dünya Dili Olarak İngilizce (ELF) vb. verilebilir. Bu çalışma özellikle son on yıldır artarak yapılan empirik birtakım EFL ve ESL çalışmaların sonuçlarını incelemektedir. Araştırma bulguları ilköğretim, orta öğretim ve yüksek öğretim düzeyleri olmak üzere üç gruba ayrılmıştır. Sonuçlar, İngilizce öğretmenlerinin İngilizce konuşurken kullandıkları gerçek hayat İngilizcesi ve anlaşılırlıkları, dönütlerin kalitesi, öğrencilerin İngilizceye tutumları, motivasyon düzeyleri, öğrenci merkezli yaklaşım kullanılması ve faydalandıkları dil öğrenme stratejileri gibi birtakım değişkenler içermektedir. Ayrıca, EFL/ESL ile ilgili konuları ölçecek bir dizi araçlar tanımlanmıştır. Bu araçlar, dil öğrenme stratejilerinin, İngilizceye olan tutumlarının, İngilizce öğrenmek için gerekli içsel ve dışsal motivasyonların, ESL/EFL öğrencileri için gerekli ders kitaplarının yanısıra bilişüstü farkındalıklarının ve genel anlamda dil öğrenme için gerekli içsel motivasyonun ve temel psikolojik ihtiyaçların saptanmasında kullanılırlar. Bu

derleme makalesinin sonundaysa İngilizce öğrenirken ve öğretirken karşılaşılan bazı zorluklardan bahsedilerek tavsiyelerde bulunulmuştur.

Anahtar kelimeler: Dünyada Ortak Dil Olarak İngilizce, Yabancı Dil Olarak İngilizce, İkinci Dil Olarak İngilizce.

THE ENGLISH LANGUAGE AS A LINGUA FRANCA: A PEDAGOGICAL REVIEW ARTICLE

Abstract

Nowadays, the English language is inarguably a lingua franca. Teaching English to non-native English speakers/students plays a special role in contemporary development of English. A huge body of terminology was invented in order to name and describe modern domains of English teaching: English as a Foreign/Second Language (EFL/ESL), Teaching English as a Foreign/ Second Language (TEFL/TESL), Teaching English to Speakers of Other Languages (TESOL), English for Academic Purposes (EAP), Non-native English-speaking Teachers (NNEST), Native English-speaking Teachers (NEST) and so on. This article mostly deals with EFL/ESL environment listing and describing the results of some empirically based studies that are on increase especially in the last decades. The research findings were divided into three groups: those of the primary school, high school and university level of schooling. They revealed the importance of teachers' speed and clarity while talking in English using genuine English during teaching, the quality of a proper feedback, students' attitudes towards English, their level of motivation, and so forth. Additionally, several tools for measuring EFL/ESL related topics were listed and briefly described. At the end of this review article, some obstacles have been provided while teaching and learning English as well as several recommendations.

Keywords: English as a Lingua Franca (ELF), English as a Foreign Language (EFL), English as a Second Language

1. Introduction

Anglophone is a term that stands for an English-speaking person, a group of people, or a territory where English is spoken. Thus, it refers to English-speaking world or population that was estimated to be around 1,5 billion people (375 million are native speakers)[1]. This is the most widespread language in the world (based on the total number of its speakers) and the third language worldwide according to the number of native speakers (after Chinese and Hindi). English is a West Germanic language and the onset of modern English was set around 1500 A.D. Most of its lexical treasure has its origin in old Germanic and Romance languages. It is nowadays the international language of Internet, commerce, globalization, science and mass entertainment. Now, the English language has the status that Latin had in the Middle Ages and several centuries later. In other words, it is a lingua franca (ELF) of the modern world. It is a global (EGL) and world (EWL) language.

[1] http://www.statista.com/statistics/266808/the-most-spoken-languages-worldwide/ (28.08.2016)

1.1. English in acronyms

In recent times, lots of English-related terms, concepts and tests have been referred to in the form of abbreviations (to be more specific, in the form of acronyms). Most of them are listed in Table 1 below. English language learners (ELLs) are those who start to learn English, who still learn it, or who want to improve their English competence. English can be studied as the first language (L1) or as the second language (L2). It can also be studied as a foreign language (EFL) or a second language (ESL). There is a tiny difference between EFL and ESL. The first one does not necessarily include English as a second language. English can be the third language (for example, after French and German), thus, it is one of the foreign languages learned by students in a particular country. ESL is strictly linked to learning English after somebody's mother tongue. Hence, in ESL studies, its importance is greater compared to EFL studies.

Some learners want to improve their English in specific fields or branches. They are interested and engaged in learning English for specific/special purposes (ESP). Those can be academic purposes (EAP), such as academic writing, expressing ideas that are the products of critical thinking, etc. There are English for diplomatic (EDP) and medical (EMP) purposes as well.

Table 1. The Most Common Abbreviations Linked to The English Language

Acronym	*Meaning*
ELLs	English language learners
EFL	English as a Foreign Language
ESL	English as a Second Language
EAP	English for Academic Purposes
EFSL	English as a Foreign or Second Language
ESP	English for Specific/Special Purposes
EDP	English for Diplomatic Purposes
ELF	English as a Lingua Franca
EMF	English for Medical Purposes
EWL	English as a World Language
EGL	English as a Global Language
TESL	Teaching English as a Second Language
TEFL	Teaching English as a Foreign Language
ELT	English Language Teaching
TESOL	Teaching English to Speakers of Other Languages
NETs or NESTs	Native-speaking English teachers
NNETs or NNESTs	Non-native English-speaking teachers
TOEFL	Test of English as a Foreign Language
IELTS	International English Language Testing System
TOEIC	Test of English for International Communication
TEAM	Test of English at Matriculation
TSE	Test of Spoken English
TWE	Test of Written English
L1 & L2	The first and the second (such as English) language
CLIL	Content and Language Integrated Learning/
CEIL	Content and English Integrated Learning

English language teaching (ELT) can be held by native-speaking (NETs/NESTs) or non-native English-speaking teachers (NNETs/NNESTs). Moussu and Braine (2006: 33) noticed that research on NNESTs is a recent phenomenon due to sensitive (second-order) status of these teachers compared to NESTs. According to Medgyes (2001: 435), there are four criteria that should be met before a teacher is classified into NNESTs:

1. English is a second or foreign language of this teacher.
2. S/he works in an EFL/ESL environment.
3. Her/his students are monolingual groups of learners.
4. S/he speaks the same native language as her/his students/learners.

Without fail, English can be taught as a second (TESL) or foreign language (TEFL). L2 classroom is related to teaching English as a second language. Along with the aforementioned terms, there is also Teaching English to Speakers of Other Languages (TESOL). TESOL International Association is an organization which has, according to the report from February 2016, 31,876 members.[2]

There are several internationally acnowledged English tests that are available worldwide. Test of English as a Foreign Language (TOEFL) is among the most well-known English tests. Its scores are accepted by lots of renown institutions from all over the world. The TOEFL Internet-based test (iBT) encompasses four aspects of language: reading, listening, speaking (TSE) and writing respectively[3]. On the other hand, the TOEFL paper-based test (PBT) includes the following four domains: listening, structure and written expression, reading comprehension and writing (TWE). It is in accordance with the International English Language Testing System (IELTS). There are many other English tests available such as Test of English for International Communication (TOEIC), Test of English at Matriculation (TEAM), Cambridge English: Legal (ILEC), Cambridge English: Financial (ICFE)[4] etc.

Content and Language Integrated Learning (CLIL) includes English as one of the languages through which subject-matter content could be taught and learned. English thus could be a mediating tool in co-construction of content and language in a learning environment (Moate, 2010: 39). According to Met (1999: 1), language-content integration is a continuum that has two poles – the content-driven and the language-driven approach. In the first one, content learning is priority and students are evaluated on content mastery. In the second one, language learning is in the first place and students are evaluated on the basis of their language skills/proficiency. Content-based instruction (CBI) is a term similar to CLIL and their integration within the frame of sociocultural theory is an innovative approach in education (Dalton-Puffer, 2011: 183).

1.2. ESL/EFL teachers and their professional qualities

Kerns and Knight-Mendelson (2006: 11) claim that ESL teachers should possess three types of skills and five competencies as indicated by U.S. Department of Labor (June 1991). As can be noticed below, these skills and competencies are general and could be applied to different working environments. The three skills are listed below:

1. *Basic skills* (writing, reading, arithmetic/mathematics, speaking and listening).
2. *Thinking skills* (decision making, creative thinking, problem solving, knowing how

[2]http://www.tesol.org/docs/default-source/membership/february-2016-membership-statistics.pdf?sfvrsn=0 (01.09.2016)
[3] https://www.ets.org/s/toefl/pdf/qp_v4_web_a4.pdf (05.09.2016)
[4] http://www.cambridgeenglish.org/exams/ (05.09.2016)

to learn, reasoning and seeing things in "the mind's eye").

3. *Personal qualities* (self-esteem, self-management, integrity and honesty, responsibility and sociability).

There are also five competencies that a successful ESL/EFL should possess (Kerns and Knight-Mendelson, 2006: 11):

1. *Finding and posessing adequate resources* (time, materials, personnel, facilities).
2. *Using information properly* (acquiring, evaluating, organizing, maintaining, analyzing and communicating information, as well as using computers to do this).
3. *Interpersonal skills* (teaching others new skills, working with others, working with people of diverse backgrounds, acts as leader).
4. *Working with systems* (understanding how organizational, technological, educational, and social system work, improving and designing systems)
5. *Technological competencies* (selecting the right technology for a task, using it to complete that task, maintaining and trouble shooting technology).

To be more specific, EFL/ESL teachers should (Agor et al., 2005: 227-228): know students; appreciate attitudes; explore and apply culture; assess teaching and learning; plan, deliver and reflect on instruction; connect beyond the classroom; expand professional horizons; and construct knowledge of language (i.e. English), language learning and critical thinking. These are eight standards or domains which represent what ESL/EFL teachers have to know and be able to do. In other words, they should be actively involved in three types of practices: planning, assessing, and instructing along with having the following knowledge, disposition and abilities: language proficiency, learning, identity, context, commitment and professionalism (TESOL International Association, 2008).

Baleghizadeh and Mozaheb (2011: 367-368) provided academic community with a profile of an effective EFL grammar teacher. They empirically derived several characteristics of these teachers:

1. While consolidating the newly learned lesson, EFL teachers use classroom discussions and debates (these two techniques were the fundamental ones).
2. In order to motivate their students, these kind of teachers use authentic teaching and learning materials.
3. While teaching different tenses, they usually use charts and graphs (i.e. visual didactic techniques).
4. These teachers are updated on new theories of grammar teaching and refer to them while planning the teaching process.
5. They use an integrative teaching approach in different situations (they are flexible and they analyse students' needs before applying an approach toward teaching).
6. These teachers always summarize the whole session in the last 10 minutes of the class (they also ask students if they encountered any problems or not).
7. They know that using mother tongue is sometimes mandatory or necessary.
8. Effective grammar teachers use pair and group work as well as role play as supplementary activities during their classes.
9. Successful grammar teachers make sure if the instruction is clear enough for their students or not.

ESL/EFL teachers are not expected to meet all these criteria; however, they should be aware of this pedagogical imperative (that is, of becoming successful and effective educators).

2. Instruments (methodology) used in EFL/ESL environment

Apart from instruments which content is related to objective measurement of students' English knowledge, skills and competencies, several scales, survey forms, and questionnaires were developed in order to assess EFL/ESL students' attitudes, perceptions and motivation with regard to English language, teachers, textbooks and foreign/second language learning process in general. The first inventory covers language (e.g. English) learning strategies and the other ones include attitudes, motivation and perceptions. These instruments (measures) are listed below.

Strategy Inventory for Language Learning (*SILL*, Oxford, 1990: 80-86) is a measure consisting of 50 items. It covers direct and indirect language learning strategies. There are three learning strategies in the first group: memory (nine items, e.g. "I use new English words in a sentence so I can remember them"), cognitive (14 items, e.g. "I try to find patterns in English"), and compensation (six items: "If I can't think of an English word, I use a word or phrase that means the same thing") strategies. In the second one, there are metacognitive (nine items, e.g. "I notice my English mistakes and use that information to help me do better"), affective (six items, e.g. "I encourage myself to speak English even when I am afraid of making a mistake"), and social (six items, e.g. "If I do not understand something in English, I ask the other person to slow down or say it again") strategies. A five-point Likert scale corresponds to each item in SILL: 1 – "never or almost never true of me", 2 – "usually not true of me", 3 – "somewhat true of me", 4 – "usually true of me", and 5 – "always or almost always true of me").

Attitude towards Foreign Language Learning (*A-FLL*, Vandewaetere & Desmet, 2009: 355-360) is an instrument consisting of three main scales: Cognitive components (which include five items), Affective/evaluative components (13 items divided into following subscales: Extrinsic motivation, Intrinsic motivation, and Teacher's influence), and Behavioral/ personality components (13 items arranged into four subscales: Inhibition, Exhibition, Tolerance of ambiguity and Learning effort). Participants rate their agreement with the contents of items on a seven-point Likert scale (1 – "totally disagree" to 7 – "totally agree").

Attitudes towards English Language Questionnaire (Abidin, Pour-Mohammadi, Alzwari, 2012: 128-130). It covers cognitive, emotional (affective), and behavioral (conative) components of attitudes and comprises of 45 items. All items have a 5-point Likert scale, where the numbers stand for: "strongly disagree" (1), "disagree" (2), "neutral" (3), "agree" (4), and "strongly agree" (5). Examples of items are: "I have more knowledge and more understanding when studying English" (cognitive component of attitude toward English), "I feel excited when I communicate in English with others" (emotional component of attitude toward English), "I look forward to studying more English in the future (behavioral or conative component of attitude toward English).

Intrinsic and Extrinsic Motivation for English Learning Scale (*IEM-ELS*, Aydogan & Akbarov, 2015: 90-91). IEM-ELS consists of 14 items, divided into two subscales – Intrinsic motivation subscale (10 items, e.g. "I dedicate lots of time to learn English because I am interested in it.") and Extrinsic motivation subscale (four items, e.g. "I learn English to gain prestige"). Each item is accompanied by a 5-point Likert scale, where numbers mean: 1 – "totally disagree", 2 – "disagree", 3 – "neither agree nor disagree", 4 – "agree", and 5- "completely agree".

Student English Book Evaluation Scale (*SEBES*, Rahimi & Hassani, 2012: 69). It comprises 25 items, divided into six subscales: Students' needs (items 1-2), Learning objective (items

3-6), Skills and components (items 7-10 and 12-14), Students' interest (items 11, 15-18, and 22), Teacher's role (items 19-21), and Supplementary materials (items 23-25).

Teacher Textbook Evaluation Scale (*TTES*, Tok, 2010: 512-515) has 30 items divided into six subscales: Layout and design (eight items; e.g. "The textbook includes a detailed overview of the functions, structures and vocabulary that will be taught in each unit"), Activities (six items; e.g. "The activities encourage sufficient communicative and meaningful practice"), Skills (four items; e.g. "The textbook pays attention to sub-skills, that is, listening for gist, note-taking, skimming for information, etc."), Language type (four items; e.g. "The language used in the textbook is authentic, that is, like real-life English"), Subject and content (five items; e.g. "The subject and content of the textbook is relevant to students' needs as an English language learner(s)"), Whole aspect (three items; e.g. "The textbook is appropriate for the language-learning aims of my institution"). As in most cases, a five-point Likert scale is used here as well.

Survey to Native English-speaking Teachers (Villalobos Ulate, 2011: 75-76). It is used to collect information on the perceptions of NEST in the ELT field. This measure includes 17 items with open-and close-ended questions incorporated in it. An example of an item is: "Is having an 'accent' something that could negatively affect a language educator's teaching?" The answering options are: "Yes", "No", "Somewhat", and "Not sure". This item also has an open-ended question: "Why or why not? _____".

Survey to Non-native English-speaking Teachers (Villalobos Ulate, 2011: 77-79). It comprises of 23 items in the similar form as that of the previous measure. An example is: "Do you try to improve your English skills?" The answering options that are included are: "Yes", "No", and "Sometimes". In addition, there is another question inside this item: "If so, what do you do to improve your skills? _____"

In addition, there are somewhat more general instruments by which the aforementioned variables are assessed. They are part of standard pedagogical and psychological measures' collections. They are used to assess extrinsic and intrinsic motivation; amotivation; attitudes; perceptions; values; learning skills, strategies and habits, psychological needs, etc. in the context of education. Some of them are: *Basic Need Satisfaction in General scale (BNSG*, Gagné, 2003: 206-215; Ilardi et al. , 1993: 1794-1796; it assesses students' need for autonomy, relatedness and competence); *Intrinsic Motivation Inventory (IMI*, Plant and Ryan, 1985: 440-444), *Metacognitive Awareness Inventory* (*MAI*, Schraw and Dennison, 1994: 466-469), *Motivated Strategies for Learning Questionnaire* (*MSLQ*, Pintrich et al., 1993: 805-809), etc.

3. Research findings in EFL and ESL research

Up until now, lots of researches have been carried out in order to investigate the acquisition and learning of English as a second/foreign language. For the purpose of this chapter, research findings were divided into three categories: EFL/ESL at primary schools, EFL/ESL at high schools and EFL/ESL at colleges/universities.

3.1. EFL/ESL at primary schools

In Spain, Bazo Martinez and Penate Cabrera (2002: 459) explored the input and interlanguage of teachers in EFL/ESL classroom where children were in their first and second year of learning English as a foreign language. They found that: teachers use simple syntactic structures more compared to difficult ones, they tended to speak in well-formed and short sentences, they use basic vocabulary, their rate of speech was slow with lots of pauses, there are lots of repetitions during teachers' speeches and teachers ask display questions the most. Display ques-

tions are those questions that are asked to see if a student knows the right answer. Long (1981: 147) found that teachers ask more questions when they encounter non-native speakers of English in their classrooms.

In Taiwan, most primary school teachers (in grades 3-6) emphasize the importance of form mastery rather than using English in real situations and communication (Scott and Chen, 2004: 59). Al-Mekhlafi and Negaratnam (2011: 69) found that, according to teachers, EFL grammar was moderately difficult for children in grades 1-4 (on the scale 1 to 5, the estimate of grammar difficulties was around the value of 3). Starting with the first grade and ending up with the fourth one, problems were decreasing with grammar. This study was carried out in Oman.

By summarizing research findings on teaching English to primary school students (IILT, 2006: 166), four remarks/points should be highlighted:

1. Teachers have to provide children with contextual clues (in other words, they should always work from the concrete).
2. It is very important to think on the way teachers use language in the classroom (due to the fact that young children are extremely sensitive to the sounds of language).
3. Primary school English teachers should involve other children in the group in helping a newly-arrived child in order to understand what is happening (They have to keep in mind that children understand other children).
4. These teachers should slow down their speech, use simpler and fewer words, repeat key words, use gesture, mime and visual supports along with helping children to match words to their meanings.

3.2. EFL/ESL at high schools

Hajhashemi, Ghombavani and Amirkhiz (2011: 214) conducted their research in an Iranian high school where EFL students' use of learning strategies and their multiple intelligence scores were examined. Their research revealed that high school students mostly use metacognitive and social strategies. These strategies were in low, positive and statistically significant correlations with multiple intelligences. The verbal-linguistic intelligence is the most relevant ability for EFL learning facilitation. It seems that this combination of students' skills, strategies and competences were linked to their school performances.

Zhang and Wu (2009: 37) examined reading-strategy use and metacognitive awareness of Chinese high school EFL students. These strategies are (Mokhtari & Sheorey, 2002: 7): global reading strategies (learners use them to manage and monitor their reading), problem-solving strategies (used in understanding textual information), and support strategies (aiding readers in comprehending a text). The results of Zhang and Wu's (2009: 46-48) study indicated that students used all reading strategies at a high-frequency level. Additionally, high-proficiency group of EFL students, compared to intermediate and low-proficiency group, used global and problem-solving reading strategies more frequently. The difference between these three groups in using support strategies was not statistically significant. Chen and Chen (2015: 156) carried out a research on the same topic in Taiwan. Their findings suggest that EFL high school students prefer the global reading strategies the most. Then, they like and use problem-solving strategies. All in all, high school students use support strategies. In addition, there were significant gender differences obtained by their study: female students used EFL strategies more frequently than males. Students who participated in this study were highly aware of the usage of reading strategies in the EFL context.

Perez and her colleagues (2013: 149) investigated the influence of explicit feedback on EFL high school students (in Chile) engaged in writing tasks. The results of their study showed that students who received feedback on content and organization of their writing tasks feel more motivated to re-write their tasks. They also accepted more teachers' comments, incorporated them into their writing tasks and performed better compared to students who did not receive feedback from their teachers.

3.3. EFL/ESL at colleges/universities

Chang and Liu (2013: 196) investigated the use of language learning strategies and language motivation of EFL university students in Taiwan. Their research revealed positive correlations between language learning strategies and motivation among university students. Furthermore, metacognitive and cognitive strategies correlated stronger whereas compensation strategies correlated weaker with students' motivation. In addition, students prefered strategies involving visual and audio elements to those which did not have these elements.

Calvo Benzies (2013: 41) carried out a survey on Spanish EFL university students' perceptions on the teaching of pronunciation. Her research suggests that Spanish university students generally believe that teaching of pronunciation in a crucial factor of English proficiency. However, it is usually neglected or put aside in their EFL teaching materials as well as classes. The other findings were the following ones: most of the participants always listen to English music outside EFL classes; lots of them sometimes use English outside the classroom, watch English films, talk to English native speakers and read in English. In addition, most of the participants in this study never write in English and hardly ever talk to their friends in English.

In the USA, Liu, Qiao and Liu (2006: 77) found that ESL instructors usually use the teacher-centered methodology despite the fact that extensive researches support the student-centered (learner-centered) approach. According to the same authors, this awareness should motivate university authorities to provide their academic staff with more training in the learner-centered approach. This type of approach includes seven components: learner-centered activities, personalizing instruction, relating to experience, assessing needs, climate building, learning process and flexibility for personal development (Conti, 1985: 8-9).

Walkinshaw and Oanh (2014: 1) examined college and university students' perceptions of native (NESTs) and non-native English language teachers (non-NESTs) in Vietnam and Japan. Their results show that non-native English language teachers were perceived as effective teachers of grammar who sometimes use students' first language to explain a grammar rule, phrase, etc. In contrast, native English language teachers were perceived as poor in explaining grammar; however, they serve as models of correct language use as well as pronunciation. Of course, non-NESTs were perceived as inferior in correct pronunciation and verbal fluency, compared to NESTs. Hence, there were advantages and disadvantages in both groups of teachers.

4. A brief summary, recommendations, and final remarks

The present-day English language originated from Proto-Germanic language, through Old English, Middle English and Early Modern English. Today, its learning is standardized, although there is informal (interactions with friends, work colleagues, native speakers via social networks on internet) and non-formal education (within various organizations and community groups) through which English could be improved and studied in a less-organized way. In addition, there is a lifelong learning process as well.

EFL/ESL teachers are faced with various obstacles while teaching their students. Some of them are: the difference between students' mother tongue and English; foreign/secdond language speaking anxiety; utilizing appropriate teaching techniques; understanding the position (viewpoint) and estimating English level (as well as previous knowledge) of their students; using genuine English in the class and increasing the time spent on English pronunciation, etc.

Different educational level (primary/elementary school, high/secondary school, college/ university level) puts different demands on students with regard to English learning. ESL/EFL teachers have to be aware of these demands and requirements and adjust their teaching methods and contents accordingly. Non-native English speaking teachers have to master English pronunciation whereas native English speaking teachers should explain grammar to their students in more details. Both groups of teachers should monitor their exposition (the delivery of relevant information to students) and make it understandable from the viewpoint of students. One approach is promising – Content and English Integrated Learning (CEIL), because it is about putting English into a context of a school subject or an academic course.

The use of learning strategies by students should be underlined as well. Teacher is the facilitator and the leader of learning process; however, students' self-efficacy and self-determination matter also. They have to manage their times to be spent in studying, to monitor the process of learning and to motivate themselves despite occasional failures to achieve learning goals. In addition, ESL/EFL teachers' available time spent with students is limited (for instance, one or two school classes a week, that is, 45 to 90 minutes); hence, students have to organize their activities outside the classroom in their own ways so that they can learn English and employ acquired English knowledge and skills.

The main recommendation is that instruments used within ESL/ELF research methodology should be reliable and valid measures of the relevant hypothetical constructs (e.g. knowledge, motivation, second/foreign language speaking anxiety...). Therefore, researchers who work in this field should have at least basic knowledge and skills related to statistics in social sciences, psychometrics and quantitative methodology.

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(Book Review)

Urmia University

Key Issues in Language Teaching, Jack C. Richards. Cambridge University Press, Cambridge (2015). xxii+ 826 pp., ISBN: 978-1-107-45610-5 (pbk).

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There is no shortage of books on the market on issues in language teaching and indeed dozens of books are added to already existing publications every year. However, most such volumes fail to provide a comprehensive account of key issues in the field and after reading each, the reader feels s/he was looking for a more detailed coverage or that s/he needs to consult different sources to get an overall picture of what language teaching (and in particular English as a second/foreign language) looks like. *Key Issues in Language Teaching* is the very book that nicely bridges these gaps by treating fundamental considerations in language teaching that survey the status of English as an international language, learners and how they learn an L2, theoretical and practical concerns in teaching language skills and sub-skills, and language teacher education. This mammoth book, written in "response to the need for a comprehensive text that explores key issues in English language teaching today" (p. xx), is most probably the first full coverage of seminal issues in TESOL (encompassing a wide range of territory) intended to be used both as a course book in undergraduate and postgraduate TEFL/Applied linguistics programmes for teaching methods courses or as an independent reference book by practicing teachers (both novice and experienced), or as resource material by teachers in training or those attending teacher education programmes. The book has been written in an accessible, easy to understand language and assumes no prior background in language teaching.

In addition to a chapter-long acknowledgements section, and a short introduction outlining the content of the book, with its 21 chapters, this voluminous book is organized around four major themes/parts: *English Language Teaching Today; Facilitating Student Learning; Language and the Four Skills;* and *The Teacher's Environment*. The book also includes an extended glossary, a 40-page long list of references, a full list of contributors and a complete index of subjects and influential scholars cited

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in the text. The book comes both in paperback and in the form of an e-book with additional features including a summary and highlights of each chapter by the author and video interviews with teachers and teacher educators on various teaching related issues including classroom management and teaching/testing different skills.

Each chapter is an independent unit (to be followed in any order) and includes various features such as reflective questions, vignettes provided by different teachers in different parts of the world as well as discussion questions (both within the text and at the end of the chapter) meant to help readers make connections between their experience/practice and their theoretical knowledge base. Additionally, some chapters include further advice to teachers in the form of sample lesson plans, case studies, application activities to encourage readers to make the gained knowledge in the chapter practical as well as suggestions for further reading.

Part 1, *English Language Teaching Today*, comprises 4 chapters. *The Scope of English and English Language Teaching* discusses issues such as global spread of English, varieties of English as well as implications of English as an International Language for teaching curriculum in private and public schools. *Second Language Learning* is devoted to theories of behaviorism, cognitivism, performance-based learning as well as interactive, social and strategic processes involved in L2 learning. In *Approaches and Methods*, the author provides a clear account of the differences between these two concepts, summarizing major teaching methods discussed in detail in his co-authored book with Theodore Rodgers (Richards & Rodgers, 2001) in addition to focusing on the distinctions and similarities between specific purpose approaches such as ESP, CBLT, CBI, CLIL, TBI and TBLT. The chapter closes with a sample communicative lesson as well as a sample communicative lesson plan. Then, *Developing Knowledge, Skills and Awareness in Teaching* is devoted to how teachers can develop professional competence as well as the role of knowledge base of language teaching, teacher identity and learner-centered teaching in teacher's professional development. The chapter ends with a case study by an Iranian teacher where he highlights the role of disciplinary and pedagogical content knowledge in teaching.

Likewise, part 2, *Facilitating Student Learning*, is made of 4 chapters. In *The Second Language Learner*, the author considers issues such as the diversity of learners' beliefs and learning as well as classroom participation styles and discusses the role of important learner-related variables such as learner autonomy, learner's age, aptitude, motivation, identity, willingness to communicate and affective factors in the success of learning. Three case studies of successful language learners and a learning styles quiz are appended to the chapter. The focus in *The Language Lesson* is on the structure of a lesson, the teachers' role in the lesson including aspects of lesson planning and how to plan lessons that work as well as how lesson effectiveness can be increased. A sample lesson plan and a detailed lesson observation checklist accompany the chapter. Issues of classroom management are taken up in *Managing Classroom Learning*. The chapter covers the components of an effective lesson management such as giving instructions and managing time and space and offers practical advice on grouping arrangements (such as pair and group work) as well as how to create a supportive classroom climate. A list of good classroom management techniques appear as the appendix. The need for offering different teaching and learning opportunities is highlighted in *Age-Appropriate Pedagogy* where different characteristics, course design options and principles of teaching are discussed separately for different age groups: young learners, teenagers and adults.

With its 8 chapters, one on each skill (*Listening, Speaking, Reading* and *Writing*) and one on each sub-skill (*Grammar, Vocabulary* and *Pronunciation*), Part 3, *Language and the Four Skills,* is the longest part of the book. There is also a non-skills related chapter, *Discourse and Pragmatics*, in this part to highlight the role of language in discourse and that of discourse and pragmatics in communication. As far as sub-skills are concerned, the chapters discuss similar issues including the nature of the sub-skill, its role in the syllabus and the goals for teaching it, the way it can be learned effectively as well as the approaches and techniques used to teach and test it. Sample lesson plans and activities have been provided at the end of each unit to provide hands-on practice for teachers to apply what has been introduced in the chapters. As for skills, in addition to coverage of similar issues (such as the nature of the skill in questions and approaches to teach and test it), other skill-specific discussions appear in relevant chapters such as one-way and two way listening, cognitive processes involved in reading and listening, reading skills and strategies, genres of writing and spoken interaction, fluency and accuracy in speaking and writing as well as the nature of proficiency in second language writing. The *Listening* chapter ends with appendices on a taxonomy of listening strategies as well as an activity to identify listening skills; the *Speaking* chapter has an appendix on a lesson plan for teaching small talk; and the *Reading* chapter includes a sample lesson plan for teaching extensive reading and activities to identify concepts and the rationale for the sequence of exercises. Similarly, the *Writing* chapter includes appendices on teaching topic writing and identifying teaching approaches and sample writing lessons. The final chapter in Part 3 elucidates the nature of discourse in speaking and writing, offers practical advice to do discourse analysis and discusses implications for teaching pragmatic aspects of discourse. Four appendices at the end of the chapter help teachers with identifying discourse and pragmatic features of relevant tasks.

With its five chapters, Part 4, *The Teacher's Environment*, is perhaps the most distinct part of this volume in that it includes very useful information found elsewhere (as in books on assessment, syllabus design and teacher education) rather than in teaching methods books. *The Language Course, Textbooks, Technology, Testing and Assessment,* and *Professional Development* are the important toolkit without which the heavy toolbox of a language teacher (filled with all other knowledge areas and practical tools) will still lack means to function fully. In addition to a wide coverage of important topics in relevant fields including curriculum planning, adopting and evaluating textbooks, teaching and testing using technology, practical advice on test development and on teacher training and education, these chapters also include useful appendices such as analytic rating scales, classroom activities and a needs analysis questionnaire.

This short review can never do justice to an encyclopedia-length book. The space was only enough to highlight a very limited number of notions tackled in the volume. The book is the product of a 50-year-long academic experience of one of the highly-cited and most acclaimed contemporary authors, researchers and teacher educators in the field of TESOL. This observation in itself speaks for the high value of the book for our profession and there are no other non-encyclopedic books (covering almost any issue on TESOL) which can fill the space this book has set to bridge. More importantly, this book very nicely mixes theory with practice, making it an ideal resource or course book for both practicum and methods modules in any TESOL or SLTE programme. Jack C Richards is to be highly commended for adding another milestone to his previous quality service to the world of second language acquisition and language education.

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Effective Principles of Teaching English as a Foreign Language: Useful Ideas and Guidelines

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Introduction

The status of English as a global lingua franca has made English language skills indispensable for individuals seeking to participate effectively in the global economy and access information crucial for social and economic development (Phillipson, 2009; Seidlhofer, 2011). This global demand has led to an unprecedented expansion in English language teaching, creating an urgent need for both effective English language teachers and more sophisticated approaches to their preparation and professional development (Freeman, 2002; Burns & Richards, 2009). The field of English as a Second Language Teacher Education (SLTE) continues to evolve dynamically in response to the worldwide expansion of English usage, its integration into school curricula globally, and increasing demands for accountability in educational programs (Richards, 2001; Singh & Richards, 2006).

The effectiveness of TEFL hinges on various pedagogical principles that guide educators in creating engaging and productive learning environments. This article explores several effective principles of teaching English as a foreign language, offering useful ideas and guidelines for educators.

Theoretical Framework for EFL Teaching

Before delving into specific principles, it is essential to understand the theoretical framework that underpins effective EFL teaching. The field has evolved significantly from traditional grammar-translation methods to more communicative approaches (Howatt & Widdowson, 2004). This evolution reflects a deeper understanding of language acquisition processes and the recognition that language learning is inherently social and contextual (Widdowson, 1978; Larsen-Freeman, 2000).

In other words, the theoretical framework underpinning effective EFL teaching represents a sophisticated synthesis of multiple theoretical perspectives that have evolved over time (Richards & Rodgers, 2001). Moving beyond early behaviourist approaches, contemporary EFL theory integrates cognitive, sociocultural, and constructivist understandings of language acquisition. This framework draws substantially from Krashen's Input Hypothesis emphasizing comprehensible input (Widdowson, 1978), Vygotsky's sociocultural theory highlighting the social nature of learning (Singh & Richards, 2006), and constructivist approaches emphasizing learners' active role in knowledge construction (Nunan, 1991). It incorporates Canale and Swain's (1980) model of communicative competence, which delineates four essential components: grammatical, sociolinguistic, discourse, and strategic competencies. Critical Applied Linguistics perspectives (Pennycook, 2001; Phillipson, 2009) contribute crucial insights about power relations and social contexts in language teaching, while cognitive and metacognitive theories (Anderson, 1999) illuminate the role of information processing and learning strategies.

This theoretical foundation emphasizes the importance of authentic materials, meaningful interaction, supportive learning environments, and balanced assessment practices that consider both process and product. The framework acknowledges the complexity and dynamicity of language learning, recognizing the influence of technology, globalization, learner autonomy, and

identity in the language learning process (Larsen-Freeman, 2000). This multifaceted theoretical understanding guides educators in creating effective learning environments that balance linguistic, cognitive, social, and cultural factors while addressing the diverse needs of EFL learners in increasingly globalized contexts (McKay, 2002; Kachru & Smith, 2008). The framework's practical implications emphasize the need for authentic materials, meaningful interaction, scaffolded instruction, and assessment practices that reflect the complex nature of language acquisition while maintaining sensitivity to cultural and contextual factors that influence learning outcomes.

Understanding Learner Needs

One of the foundational principles of TEFL is the need to understand learners' backgrounds, motivations, and specific needs. Each learner comes with unique experiences and expectations, which can significantly influence their learning process. According to Brown (2007), understanding these factors allows teachers to tailor their instructional strategies effectively. For instance, a needs analysis can help identify whether students require English for academic purposes, business communication, or travel, enabling educators to focus on relevant vocabulary and contexts.

Focus on Communication

One of the fundamental principles of effective EFL teaching is the emphasis on meaningful communication. This approach represents a significant departure from traditional teaching methods that emphasised rote learning and grammatical drills, which research has shown to be less effective for language acquisition (Rivers, 1981; Harmer, 2007). Instead, contemporary approaches prioritize creating an interactive and engaging learning environment where students feel empowered to use the language authentically (Savignon, 1991; Nunan, 2003).

Implementing Communicative Approaches

Communicative Language Teaching (CLT) emphasizes interaction as the primary means of language learning. This approach encourages learners to use the language in real-life situations, promoting fluency over accuracy initially (Richards & Rodgers, 2014). Activities such as role-plays, group discussions, and problem-solving tasks foster an environment where students can practice their speaking and listening skills actively. CLT also supports the integration of all language skills—reading, writing, listening, and speaking—into lessons, reflecting how language is used in authentic contexts.

Teachers can implement communicative approaches through various strategies:

- Utilizing authentic materials such as newspapers, magazines, and digital media to expose students to real-world language use (Breen, 1985; Davies, 1984)
- Designing communicative activities including role-plays, simulations, and debates that encourage purposeful language use (Thornbury, 2005)
- Integrating technology-enhanced learning opportunities that connect students with authentic English-language content (Smith & Barber, 2005)
- Employing task-based teaching methodologies that simulate real-world communication scenarios (Long & Crookes, 1992)

Developing Communicative Competence

Effective EFL instruction aims to develop students' communicative competence, which encompasses the ability to use language accurately, fluently, and appropriately in various social contexts (Canale & Swain, 1980). This multifaceted approach requires attention to both linguistic knowledge and pragmatic awareness (Widdowson, 1983; Skehan, 1984).

Task-Based Language Teaching (TBLT)

Task-Based Language Teaching (TBLT) is another effective principle that focuses on using meaningful tasks as the central component of language instruction. According to Ellis (2003), tasks should be designed to engage learners in authentic language use while also promoting cognitive processes that enhance learning. For example, students might work on a project that requires them to research a topic in English and present their findings to the class. This method not only improves language skills but also develops critical thinking and collaboration.

Individual Learning Styles and Differentiation

Research consistently shows that learners approach language acquisition differently, necessitating a diverse range of teaching strategies (Nunan, 1991). Differentiated instruction is crucial in TEFL classrooms where learners may have varying levels of proficiency and learning styles. Tomlinson (2014) suggests that teachers should adapt their teaching methods to accommodate these differences by providing multiple pathways for students to engage with content. This could involve offering varied reading materials based on proficiency levels or allowing students to choose between different types of assignments that align with their interests and strengths. Effective EFL teachers must be adept at recognising and accommodating various learning styles while maintaining high expectations for all students (Ur, 1996). This includes:

- Incorporating visual, auditory, and kinaesthetic learning activities
- Providing differentiated instruction based on learner needs
- Adapting teaching materials to suit different proficiency levels
- Offering multiple paths to achieve learning objectives

Technology Integration in EFL Teaching

The integration of technology in language teaching has transformed traditional methodologies. Tools such as language learning apps, online resources, and interactive platforms can enhance engagement and provide

additional practice opportunities outside the classroom (Godwin-Jones, 2018). For instance, using platforms like Duolingo or Quizlet allows learners to practice vocabulary at their own pace while receiving immediate feedback. Moreover, technology facilitates communication with native speakers through online exchanges or social media platforms, further enriching the learning experience. Modern EFL instruction increasingly relies on technology to enhance learning opportunities and engagement (Smith & Barber, 2005). Effective technology integration should:

- Support pedagogical objectives rather than drive them
- Provide access to authentic materials and real-world language use
- Enable meaningful interaction and communication
- Facilitate autonomous learning and self-assessment

Cultural Awareness and Sensitivity

Cultural awareness is an essential aspect of teaching English as a foreign language. Language is deeply intertwined with culture; thus, teaching should include cultural elements that help learners understand the social context of the language (McKay, 2002; Kachru & Smith, 2008). Educators should incorporate discussions about cultural norms, values, idioms, and traditions from English-speaking countries into their curriculum. This not only enhances language acquisition but also prepares students for real-world interactions in diverse settings. Thus, teaching English as a foreign language requires careful attention to cultural dimensions (McKay, 2002). Effective teachers must:

- Promote intercultural understanding and communication
- Address cultural biases and stereotypes
- Integrate cultural knowledge into language instruction
- Support learners in developing global perspectives

Assessment and Evaluation

Effective assessment practices are vital in TEFL to monitor progress and inform instruction. Formative assessments—such as quizzes, peer reviews, and self-

assessments—provide ongoing feedback that helps both teachers and students identify areas for improvement (Black & Wiliam, 1998). Summative assessments should also be aligned with learning objectives to ensure they accurately measure student proficiency. By employing a variety of assessment methods, teachers can create a more comprehensive understanding of each learner's capabilities. Effective assessment in EFL teaching combines formative and summative approaches (Bachman & Palmer, 1996). Key considerations include:

- Alignment with learning objectives
- Integration of multiple assessment methods
- Regular feedback and progress monitoring
- Cultural sensitivity in assessment design

Professional Development

Continuous professional development (CPD) represents a cornerstone of effective EFL teaching practice, extending beyond initial teacher preparation to encompass ongoing learning throughout one's career (Freeman, 2002). As Burns and Richards (2009) emphasize, effective professional development integrates both theoretical knowledge and practical classroom experience, enabling teachers to critically reflect on their practice and adapt to evolving educational contexts.

This process involves multiple dimensions: engaging in action research to systematically investigate classroom practices (Nunan, 1992); participating in professional learning communities that facilitate knowledge sharing and collaborative problem-solving (Singh & Richards, 2006); maintaining currency with emerging research and methodologies through academic reading and conference attendance (Richards, 2001); and developing reflective teaching practices that promote continuous improvement (Medgyes, 1999). Furthermore, as Canagarajah (1999) argues, professional development must address the increasingly complex demands of teaching English in globalized

contexts, including technological integration, cultural sensitivity, and learner diversity.

The rise of digital learning platforms and online professional networks has expanded opportunities for teacher development, enabling educators to engage in global communities of practice and access diverse professional learning resources (Smith & Barber, 2005). Effective CPD programmes should also address the specific challenges faced by non-native English-speaking teachers (Llurda, 2005), including linguistic confidence, cultural awareness, and pedagogical expertise. As Yates and Muchisky (2003) note, successful professional development requires institutional support, dedicated time for reflection and learning, and opportunities for the practical application of new knowledge and skills. This comprehensive approach to professional development ensures that EFL teachers remain current, effective, and responsive to the evolving needs of their learners while contributing to the broader development of the field (Zeichner, 1999).

Thus, continuous professional development is crucial for EFL teachers (Freeman, 2002). This includes:

- Engaging in action research
- Participating in professional learning communities
- Staying current with research and methodologies
- Developing reflective teaching practices

Conclusion

Teaching English as a foreign language requires a complex blend of theoretical knowledge, practical skills, and cultural sensitivity. Success in EFL teaching depends on teachers' ability to integrate these various elements while maintaining focus on learner needs and outcomes. As the field continues to evolve, teachers must remain adaptable and committed to professional growth. In summary, effective principles of teaching English as a foreign

language encompass understanding learner needs, employing communicative approaches like CLT and TBLT, differentiating instruction, integrating technology, fostering cultural awareness, and implementing continuous assessment strategies. By adhering to these principles, educators can create dynamic and inclusive classrooms that promote successful language acquisition.

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Book Review

English Language Teaching Today: Linking Theory and Practice, by Willy A. Renandya and Handoyo Puji Widodo (Eds.), Springer International Publishing Switzerland, 2016,307 pp., 93.59€ (Hardcover), ISBN 978-3-319-38834-2

One of the most significant professional challenges for language learning researchers is to transform research findings into language teachers' pedagogical practices. For this reason, I am particularly attracted by this edited volume on English language teaching, in which Renandya and Widodo attempt to link theory and practice in teaching English with contributions from more than twenty leading researchers in the field. There are two parts in the book. The first part titled "Theories, Research and Principles" has seven chapters and covers a wide range of topics, from student-centered language learning to multilingualism. The second part titled "Pedagogical Practices" contains thirteen chapters and explores the use of those aforementioned theories and principles in pedagogical practices in teaching conventional language knowledge and helping learners acquire specific language in particular contexts. The book provides readers an up-to-date account of current principles and practices for teaching English, this reader-friendly book has clear content index, and every chapter is coherently and cohesively organized.

Chapters in Part I provide some principles of English language teaching and thus establish a sound foundation for the practical accounts in Part II, and in so doing many chapters in Part I themselves have practical suggestions for teaching. In the chapter by Jacobs and Renandya, they present the principles associated with Student-Centered Learning in which students are expected to be independent of teachers and to be responsible for themselves since learning is truly a student-centered journey. Such focus on language learners is closely related with what Mahboob and Lin convey in their chapter, as supporters of the belief that mother tongue-based multilingual education can make students' lives more lively and diversified. Instead of strictly discussing the relevant theories, they provide some guidelines for teachers to use local languages productively in classrooms where language learners are immersed in a familiar experiential context.

The fourth and fifth chapters depart from the theme of pedagogy and address the critical issue of curriculum and textbook development to support pedagogical practices. In Macalister's chapter, he reminds curriculum developers that language courses should strike a balance between meaning-focused input and output. In the next chapter, Tomlinson stresses the importance of using authentic texts and tasks in English language teaching to cater to diverse needs of learners of English as a global language, so it is quite essential that current material development should be internationally-oriented, and language teachers should prepare English learners for lingua franca interaction.

In the subsequent chapter, Brown puts forward twelve theoretically sound assessment types. In the last chapter of Part I, Farrell documented how three EFL teachers made use of journal writing as a reflective tool to gain insights into their practice. Writing is of course a valuable opportunity for learners to reflect on their beliefs and assumptions on various experiences. Through different kinds of introspects or reflections, learners can gradually understand themselves and find their shortcomings, then make some

adjustments, so teachers' careful and comprehensive reflections will serve as an effective avenue for self-improvement.

The thirteen chapters in Part II discuss a wide variety of pedagogical approaches to teaching different language skills. In the chapter by Renandya and Jacobs, implementing extensive reading and listening together in input-poor L2 classrooms are specifically examined. Zhang's chapter is also highly recommended in which reading and viewing are blended together, thus makes the lesson more dynamic and interactive. Similarly, Chang's chapter is also a very useful resource for teachers interested in supporting students with strategies for listening beyond the classroom, as Chang suggests that teachers develop students' independent learning skills through narrow listening, repeated listening and simultaneous reading.

The next chapters involve two productive skills, speaking and writing. As for speaking, Goh presents a comprehensive and holistic method. I am in favor of her view that designing an effective speaking lesson must take a speaker's linguistic and cognitive needs into account. Newton proposes a set of principles to guide the teaching of English for intercultural spoken communication. Language educators should consider seriously the cultural or intercultural problems in English language teaching. Only when teachers have a full understanding of communicative norms between different cultures can they help learners find "a third place" (Kramsch, 1993) to negotiate differences and interact across cultures in the intercultural learning processes comfortably. As for writing, Cheung presents a social-cognitive approach to teaching writing. I am particularly appreciative of Xu's efforts in comparing three academic writing courses in Beijing, Hong Kong and Melbourne in his chapter.

The remaining chapters in Part II cover not only language knowledge such as grammar , vocabulary and pronunciation, but also English language learning with technology support and English language teaching for vocational purposes or in workplace settings. As for grammar teaching, I concur with Agustien that texts should be used as vehicles for grammar teaching since meaningful and appropriate contexts of authentic language use is essential for the command of grammar. When it comes to the teaching of pronunciation, Wong's proposal that teachers should raise the awareness of learners in phonetic and phonological features is very constructive since these features are vital for learners to grasp pronunciation.

In those final chapters, Wilkinson stresses that information and communication technology (ICT) in the L2 classroom should be integrated with relevant L2 learning principles. Widodo provides language teachers with both theoretical and practical guides to designing and implementing an EVP (English for Vocational Purposes) course. I am especially drawn to the VOLL (Vocationally Oriented Language Learning) programs which offer students English courses with vocational practice. In the last chapter, Jaidev and Blackstone deliver an account of inquiry-based communication proposals designed to equip students with workplace communicative competence. I concur with the authors that some key skills in the 21st century should be carefully and productively embedded in workplace language teaching.

Overall, the book presents a comprehensive overview of key theoretical considerations and pedagogical issues in English language and its teaching worldwide. The book reflects the dynamic and complex nature of English language teaching in different parts of the world. Therefore, this reader-friendly book successfully addresses its intended diverse readership including postgraduates, practitioners and researchers in the field of TESOL. If I have to point out anything that the editors could improve, it seems the two parts in the volume do not relate to each other very well. I suppose these days very few readers would read a book from the first page to the last like me. Therefore, rich content of individual chapters matters more than organic integration of different chapters in an edited volume. Nevertheless, as a reader, I do wish to see a closer connection between chapters in Part I (theory) and Part II (practice). Despite these reservations, I believe that every chapter in this volume illustrates well the complexity and multifaceted nature of ELT in the world today. These chapters also constitute a principled way of dealing with the complexity of ELT to inform teachers' professional practices.

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Practical English Language Teaching

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EDITOR

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Vision and purpose

Practical English Language Teaching is designed for the practicing teacher who may or may not have had formal training in teaching English as a second or foreign language (ESL/EFL). Methodology texts currently available make too many assumptions about the background knowledge of their readership. The authors of the chapters in this book keep such assumptions to a minimum. This is not to say that the concepts underlying the chapters are dealt with in a trivial manner. Rather they are given an accessible treatment which is richly supported by teaching materials and ideas, and illustrative extracts from a wide range of classrooms.

Practical English Language Teaching consists of three sections: Exploring skills, Exploring language, and Supporting the learning process. The first main section, Exploring skills, begins with an introductory chapter that defines and illustrates the concept of methodology. The next four chapters introduce the four key "macroskills" of listening, speaking, reading and writing. In the second section, Exploring language, we look at language from a somewhat different perspective. Here the chapters are organized in terms of the different systems that make up the language: the sound system, the vocabulary system, the grammatical system, and the discourse system which shows how language itself is organized and reflects the communicative purposes that bring it into existence in the first place. The final section, Supporting the learning process, looks at some of the ways in which the learning process can be supported – through teaching styles and strategies, effective use of commercial coursebooks, and by a variety of other means.

Practical English Language Teaching brings together the work of 15 world-class specialists in ESL/EFL. The value of publishing an edited collection, rather that a single-authored volume, is that we have been able to draw on the knowledge and experience of the top specialists in our field.

One of the problems with most edited collections is that they are uneven in terms of their treatment and approach, and in terms of the assumptions that they make about the reader. This collection has a degree of coherence unusual in edited collections. The coherence has been achieved through a clear chapter-by-chapter framework, and the use of detailed writing guidelines.

The length of each chapter has been controlled for accessibility. Each chapter could have been a book in its own right. However, we wanted to present readers with the essentials in terms of conceptual background, theory, and research. These provide the basis for a series of key teaching principles which are illustrated with pedagogical materials and authentic classroom extracts.

Features

- Critical areas of language teaching are comprehensively addressed with a specific focus on practical techniques, strategies, and tips.
- World-class specialists offer a variety of perspectives on language teaching and the learning process.
- *Reflection* questions invite readers to think about critical issues in language teaching, while *Action* tasks outline strategies for putting new techniques into practice.
- Thoughtful suggestions for books, articles, and Web sites offer resources for additional, up-to-date information.
- Expansive glossary offers short and straightforward definitions of core language teaching terms.

Audience

This book is designed for both experienced teachers and those who have only just entered the profession. It will update the experienced teacher on current theoretical and practical approaches to language teaching. The novice teacher will find step-by-step guidance on the practice of language teaching.

Chapter structure

Each chapter is constructed upon the following format.

1. Introduction: Defines the subject of the chapter.
2. Background: Provides an overview of what theory, research, and practice have to tell us about the subject.
3. Principles: Describes and provides examples of key principles for teaching the subject that forms the basis for the chapter.
4. Classroom techniques and tasks: Provides examples of practical classroom procedures.
5. In the classroom: Takes the reader into a range of classrooms where the principles spelled out earlier are exemplified.
6. Conclusion: Summarizes key parts of the chapter.

   Additional resources:

   - Further reading: Introduces additional sources for exploring the subject in question.
   - Helpful Web sites: Points the reader to relevant Web sites.

A glossary at the end of the book defines the key terms related to language teaching and learning that are introduced in the book. These key language terms are printed in bold in the body of the text. Note that section titles and bulleted lists of items throughout the book also appear in boldface type. The glossary does not necessarily provide definitions for all terms mentioned in these section titles and bulleted lists.

Interspersed throughout each chapter are *Reflection* and *Action* boxes. The *Reflection* boxes pose questions inviting readers to reflect on issues, principles, and techniques in relation to their current or projected teaching situations. *Action* boxes invite the reader to apply the ideas through action-oriented tasks.

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Thanks to Linda O'Roke for all her help. – David Nunan

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Section **One**

Exploring skills

This first section of the book introduces you to language teaching methodology from the perspective of language skills, that is, listening, speaking, reading, and writing. Before looking at the skills in detail, there is an initial chapter on language teaching methodology that provides a framework, not just for the four other chapters in this section, but for the book as a whole.

Each chapter follows a set format. Firstly, the skill dealt with in the chapter is defined. Next comes a section providing background information on the skill. This section provides a brief history of the teaching of the skill, summarizes important research findings, and elaborates on key concepts. Section Three sets out key principles that should guide you when teaching the skill concerned. The next two sections provide examples from published and unpublished materials as well as from direct classroom experience illustrating the principles in action. The chapters conclude with useful follow-up text and resources, including Web sites, to provide you with further information and ideas.

Chapter **One**

Methodology

David Nunan, University of Hong Kong (China)

Goals

At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

- ✔ **define** methodology.
- ✔ **explain** how methodology is related to curriculum development and syllabus design.
- ✔ **describe** the "methods" debate.
- ✔ **explain** the basic principles of communicative language teaching, and describe its current importance in language teaching pedagogy.
- ✔ **discuss** some of the research findings that have influenced language teaching methodology.
- ✔ **create** instructional sequences that incorporate the pretask, task, and follow-up cycle.

1. What is methodology?

The field of **curriculum development** is large and complex. It includes all of the planned learning experiences in an educational setting. Curriculum has three main subcomponents: **syllabus** design, **methodology,** and **evaluation.** Syllabus design has to do with selecting, sequencing, and justifying content. Methodology has to do with selecting, sequencing, and justifying learning tasks and experiences. Evaluation has to do with how well students have mastered the objectives of the course and how effectively the course has met their needs. The following diagram shows how these different elements fit together.

Curriculum component	Focus	Defining questions
Syllabus design	Content	What content should we teach? In what order should we teach this content? What is the justification for selecting this content?
Methodology	Classroom techniques and procedures	What exercises, tasks, and activities should we use in the classroom? How should we sequence and integrate these?
Evaluation	Learning outcomes	How well have our students done? How well has our program served our students' needs?

Figure 1 Subcomponents of a curriculum

This book is basically about language teaching methodology. In other words, the focus of the chapters is principally on techniques and procedures for use in the classroom, although most chapters also touch on aspects of content selection and evaluation.

The *Longman Dictionary of Applied Linguistics* defines methodology as …

> **1.** … the study of the practices and procedures used in teaching, and the principles and beliefs that underlie them.
>
> Methodology includes
>
> **a.** study of the nature of language skills (e.g., reading, writing, speaking, listening, and procedures for teaching them)

b. study of the preparation of lesson plans, materials, and textbooks for teaching language skills

c. the evaluation and comparison of language teaching methods (e.g., the audiolingual method)

2. such practices, procedures, principles, and beliefs themselves.

(Richards, et al. 1985, p. 177)

From the table of contents you will see that this book addresses most of these areas. Section 1 focuses on the language skills of listening, speaking, reading, and writing. Section 2 looks at aspects of language–discourse, grammar, vocabulary, and pronunciation. Section 3 explores elements that support the learning process, including learning styles and strategies, content-based instruction, using textbooks, using computers, fostering autonomy and independence, and classroom-based assessment and evaluation.

2. Background to language teaching methodology

The "methods" debate

A language teaching **method** is a single set of procedures which teachers are to follow in the classroom. Methods are also usually based on a set of beliefs about the nature of language and learning. For many years, the goal of language pedagogy was to "find the right method"–a methodological magic formula that would work for all learners at all times (Brown, 2002). Methods contrast with **approaches**, which are more general, philosophical orientations such as **communicative language teaching** (see page 6) that can encompass a range of different procedures.

The dominant method for much of the last century was the **grammar-translation** method. This was challenged in the 1950s and 1960s by **audiolingualism**, a method that is still very popular today, and whose influence can be seen in a variety of drill-based techniques and exercises.

Audiolingualism was the first method to be based on a theory of learning–**behaviorism**, which viewed all learning as a process of forming habits, and on a theory of language–**structural linguistics**. Behaviorism and structural linguistics provided the following key characteristics of audiolingualism:

- Priority is given to spoken rather than written language.
- Language learning is basically a matter of developing a set of habits through drilling.

- Teach the language, not *about* the language. (Avoid teaching grammar rules. Get learners to develop their skills through drill and practice—teach through "analogy" not "analysis.") (Moulton, 1963)

In the 1960s, behaviorism and structural linguistics were severely criticized as being inadequate representations of both the learning process and the nature of language. In place of behaviorism, psychologists proposed cognitive psychology while the linguist Chomsky developed a new theory called **transformational-generative grammar**. Both approaches emphasized thinking, comprehension, memory, and the uniqueness of language learning to the human species. Methodologists seized on the theories and developed a method known as **cognitive code learning**. This approach promoted language learning as an active mental process rather than a process of habit formation. Grammar was back in fashion, and classroom activities were designed that encouraged learners to work out grammar rules for themselves through inductive reasoning. (For examples, see Nunan, Chapter 8, this volume.)

In addition to methods based on theories of learning and language, there emerged a number of methods that were based on a humanistic approach to education. These methods emphasized the importance of emotional factors in learning, and proponents of these methods believed that linguistic models and psychological theories were less important to successful language acquisition than emotional or affective factors. They believed that successful learning would take place if learners could be encouraged to adopt the right attitudes and interests in relation to the target language and target culture. The best known of these methods were **the silent way, suggestopedia** and community language learning. The best introduction to humanistic learning within language education is Stevick (1997). Stevick became interested in humanism after he observed both audiolingual and cognitive code learning in action. He found that both methods could either be quite successful or extremely unsuccessful. "How is it," he asked, "that two methods based on radically different assumptions about the nature of language and learning could be successful or unsuccessful, as the case may be?" He concluded that particular classroom techniques mattered less than establishing the right emotional climate for the learners.

Communicative language teaching (CLT)

During the 1970s, a major reappraisal of language occurred. Linguists began to look at language, not as interlocking sets of grammatical, lexical, and phonological rules, but as a tool for expressing meaning. This reconceptualization had a profound effect on language teaching methodology. In the earliest versions of CLT, meaning was emphasized over form, fluency over accuracy. It also led to the development of differentiated courses that reflect-

ed the different communicative needs of learners. This needs-based approach also reinforced another trend that was emerging at the time–that of **learner-centered education** (Nunan, 1988).

In recent years, the broad approach known as CLT has been realized methodologically by **task-based language teaching** (TBLT). In TBLT, language lessons are based on learning experiences that have nonlinguistic outcomes, and in which there is a clear connection between the things learners do in class and the things they will ultimately need to do outside of the classroom. Such tasks might include listening to a weather forecast and deciding what to wear, ordering a meal, planning a party, finding one's way around town and so on. In these tasks, language is used to achieve nonlanguage outcomes. For example, the ultimate aim of ordering a meal is not to use correctly formed wh-questions, but to get food and drink on the table.

Research

During the "what's the best method?" phase of language teaching, several studies were carried out to settle the question empirically. For example, Swaffar, Arens and Morgan (1982) set out to decide which was superior, audiolingualism or cognitive code learning. The results were inconclusive, and it appeared that, at the level of classroom teaching, few teachers adhered rigidly to one method rather than the other. Instead, they evolved a range of practices that reflected their own personal teaching styles. Among other things, it was studies such as these that gradually led people to abandon the search for the "right method."

In the 1970s, a series of investigations were carried out that had (and continue to have) a great deal of influence on methodology. These came to be known as the **morpheme order studies**. These investigations set out to examine the order in which certain items of grammar were acquired. (For a more detailed description, see Nunan, Chapter 8, this volume.) The researchers concluded from their investigations three significant points: one, that there was a "natural order" in which grammar was acquired; two, that this order did not reflect the order in which items were taught; and three, that the natural order could not be altered by instruction. According to one of the researchers, the implications for the classroom were clear: it was not necessary to drill grammar (Krashen, 1981, 1982). All that was needed in order to teach another language was to engage learners in "natural" communicative tasks that were roughly pitched at their level of proficiency (Krashen and Terrell, 1983).

As you will see in the chapter on grammar, subsequent research has demonstrated that a grammar focus in class *does* seem to be beneficial for most learners. However, the insights provided by Krashen and others did

help to advance the field, and many of his suggestions have found their way into current methodological approaches.

Out of the research just cited grew the question: What kinds of communicative tasks seem most beneficial for second language acquisition? A great deal of research has gone into this question in the last fifteen years. (For a review see Nunan, 1999, particularly Chapter 2.) While results from this research are varied, one characteristic that seems particularly beneficial is required information exchange tasks. These are tasks in which two or more learners, working in pairs or small groups, have access to different information. This information needs to be shared in order for the task to be completed successfully. (An example of a required information exchange task is provided below.) It is hypothesized that required information exchange tasks force students to negotiate with each other, and this is healthy for language development because it "pushes" the learners to reformulate and extend their language.

3. Principles for language teaching methodology

1. Focus on the learner.

A learner-centered classroom is one in which learners are actively involved in their own learning processes. There are two dimensions to this learner involvement. The first of these is the involvement of learners in making decisions about what to learn, how to learn, and how to be evaluated. The second is in maximizing the class time in which the learners, rather than the teacher, do the work.

Reflection

1. What do you think some of the objections to the two dimensions of learner involvement outlined above might be?
2. Brainstorm possible solutions to these objections.

In relation to the first dimension, it is sometimes argued that most learners do not have the knowledge or experience to make informed decisions about what to learn, how to learn, and how to be assessed. According to this view, the teacher is the boss, and it is the professional responsibility of the teacher to make these decisions. A countervailing view is that ultimately it is the learner who has to do the learning.

One possible solution to this dilemma is for the teacher to make most of the decisions at the beginning of the learning process. Then gradually, through a process of learner training, begin developing in the learners the skills they need in order to begin taking control of their own learning processes. (See Christison, Chapter 13, this volume.)

In fact, it is not an "all or nothing" issue in which either the teacher or the learner makes all of the decisions. In most classrooms it is somewhere in between, with teacher and students negotiating things such as when to submit assignments, whether to do a task in small groups or pairs, whether to do a reading task before a listening task or vice-versa, and so on. However, a teacher who is committed to this principle will look for opportunities to involve learners in becoming more reflective and in making more decisions about their own learning.

Here are some ways of getting learners more involved in their own learning process and to gradually take control of that process. Each step entails greater and greater involvement of learners in their own learning processes.

Involving learners in the learning process

1. Make instructional goals clear to learners.
2. Help learners to create their own goals.
3. Encourage learners to use their second language outside of the classroom.
4. Help learners to become more aware of learning processes and strategies.
5. Show learners how to identify their own preferred styles and strategies.
6. Give learners opportunities to make choices between different options in the classroom.
7. Teach learners how to create their own learning tasks.
8. Provide learners with opportunities to master some aspect of their second language and then teach it to others.
9. Create contexts in which learners investigate language and become their own researchers of language.

(For examples of how to make these ideas work in the classroom, see Nunan, 1999.)

Figure 2 Involving learners in the learning process

2. Develop your own personal methodology.

As we saw in the background section of this chapter, the search for the "one best method" was elusive and ultimately proved to be futile. When researchers looked at what teachers actually did in the classroom as opposed to what proponents of one method or another said they ought to do, they found that teachers had a range of practices that were widely used regardless of the method that any given teacher was supposed to follow. The major difference lies, not in the tasks themselves, but in the ordering and prioritizing of the tasks. In other words, in terms of actual classroom practices the same techniques might be used, but their ordering and emphasis would be different.

Another related observation is that just as learners have their own learning styles, so teachers have their own teaching styles. They are derived from their professional training and experience as well as their own experiences as learners. While one teacher might correct errors overtly, others might do it through modeling the correct utterance. These two styles are exemplified in the following examples.

Example 1

Student: *I go home at three o'clock, yesterday.*
Teacher A: *No. Remember Luis, the past tense of* go *is went.*

Example 2

Student: *I go home at three o'clock, yesterday.*
Teacher B: *Oh, you* went *home at three, did you Luis?*

Similarly, one teacher may prefer to give explicit explanation and practice of a new grammar point before getting students to use it in a communicative activity. Another teacher may prefer to introduce the grammar point in the form of a contextualized dialogue and only draw the attention of the student to the grammatical form after they have used it communicatively or pseudocommunicatively.

What is important, then, is that teachers develop their own preferred classroom practices based on what works best for them in their own particular situation and circumstances and given the learners they have at the time. As circumstances, students, and levels of experience change, so will the practices. (If you are teaching large classes, it may not be feasible to do much pair or group work, no matter how highly you think of them.)

This is not to say that all practices are equally valid for all learners. Experiment with different practices. Try out new ideas. Record your lessons, observe your teaching, if possible have a peer observe your teaching, and above all reflect on what happens in your classroom. If you have time, keep

a reflective journal and set out observations, questions, challenges, and puzzles. Even if you have relatively little experience, you will be surprised at how much you can learn about processes of teaching and learning by systematically reflecting on what happens in your classroom.

Principle 2 (pages 10-11) mentions self-observation, peer observation, and reflective journals. Brainstorm other ways of obtaining information and feedback on your teaching. Design a plan for getting feedback on your teaching.

3. Build instructional sequences based on a pretask, task, and follow-up cycle.

Successful instructional sequences share certain things in common, regardless of the methodological principles or approaches that drive them. First of all, the main task, whether it be a drill, a role-play, or a listening comprehension, is set up through one or more pretasks. Pretasks have several functions: to create interest, help build students' **schema** in relation to the topic, introduce key vocabulary, revise a grammatical point, etc.

Following the pretasks comes the task itself. This will usually consist of several steps or subtasks. In the communicative classroom, the teacher will seek to maximize the time that the students are processing the language or interacting with each other (although, of course, this will depend on the rationale for the instructional sequence). The teacher will also carefully monitor the students to ensure that they know what they are supposed to do and are carrying out the tasks correctly.

Following the task proper, there should be some sort of follow-up. This also has a number of functions: to elicit feedback from the students about their experience, to provide feedback to the students on how they had done, to correct errors that the teacher might have noticed in the course of the instructional sequence, and to get students to reflect on the tasks and engage in self-evaluation.

Select a language-learning task from a textbook or other source and design a pretask and follow-up to it.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

In this section, we look at some of the techniques and ideas that have been introduced in the preceding sections. There are so many of these that I

have had to be highly selective. I have chosen to organize this section in terms of pretask, task, and follow-up.

Pretask As we have seen, pretasks have several functions: to create interest, help build students' schema in relation to the topic, introduce key vocabulary, and revise grammar items prior to the introduction of the task proper. There is almost no limit to the number of things that can be done at the pretask stage. Here are some examples:

Have students

- look at a list of comprehension questions and try to predict the answers before carrying out a listening task;
- classify a set of words for describing emotions as "positive," "negative," and "neutral" before reading a magazine article about emotions;
- practice a model conversation and then introduce their own variations before doing a role-play;
- study a picture of a group of people at a party and try to guess which people are married/going out with each other before hearing a conversation about the couples;
- brainstorm ways in which cities of the future will be different from now before writing a newspaper article;
- match newspaper headlines and photos before reading articles;
- check off words in a vocabulary list that are associated with living in a foreign culture before listening to a person recounting their experiences of living abroad;
- rank from most to least important a list of factors predicting if a relationship will last before listening to a minilecture on the subject;
- discuss the best year they ever had before taking part in an information gap exercise;
- look at pictures taken from advertisements and guess what the ads are trying to sell before listening to the ads.

Task The number of tasks that can be used to activate language in the classroom is also large. Some of the more popular task types in the communicative classroom include: role-plays, simulations, problem-solving, listening to authentic audio/video material, discussions, decision-making, and information gaps. Information gap tasks in which two or more students have access to different information that they have to share in order to complete the task are popular because

- they work well with learners at most levels of proficiency from post-beginner to advanced;
- students participate actively;

- all students have to take part if the task is to work;
- they work well with mixed level groups.

Here is an example of an information gap task. This task is personalized in that the students create their own information gap based on content from their own lives.

Example

Make a note of the things you have to do this week. Leave two spaces free.

	Monday	Tuesday	Wednesday	Thursday	Friday
Afternoon					
Evening					

Now work with two other students. Arrange a time to see a movie. You might have to change your schedule.

Reflection

1. What level of proficiency do you think the task above is designed for?
2. What language do you imagine that students will need to use?
3. What language functions are the students practicing?

Action

Design your own information gap task. Specify the vocabulary, grammar, and structures that you think the students will need in order to complete the task.

Follow-up As already indicated, the follow-up phase also provides lots of scope. The teacher can give feedback to the students, debrief them on some aspect of the preceding task, or encourage them to reflect on what they learned and how well they are doing.

Here are some examples of reflection tasks.

Example

1. Write down five new words you learned in today's lesson. Write sentences using three of these new words. Write down three new sentences or questions you learned.

2. Review the language functions you practiced in this lesson. Circle your answers.

Can you...

talk about past events?	Yes	A little	Not yet
give and receive messages?	Yes	A little	Not yet

3. What would you say?

   Your best friend invites you to his/her birthday party, but you can't make it.
   You say _____

   You want someone to get you a book from the library.
   You say _____

4. Review the language we practiced today. In groups, brainstorm ways to use this language out of class. Imagine you are visiting an English-speaking country. Where and when might you need this language?

5. Methodology in the classroom

Reflection

What is going on in Extract 1 (page 15–16)? Is the extract taken from a pretask, task, or follow-up? What is the purpose of the instructional sequence?

Extract 1

T stands for teacher. *S* represents a particular student. *Ss* stands for students.

S1: Tourist, visitor, traveler, student.

S2: Student.

S1: *Yeah.*

S2: *Must be that one, yeah.*

T: *Why do you think—why is* student *the odd one out?*

S2: *Oh,* tourist, visitor, traveler … *They are moving.*

S3: *Yeah.*

S1: *They are going.*

S2: *They have something in common, no?*

T: *Yeah, yeah. But I'd like you to say what it is that they have in common, you know? How would you describe it?*

S3: *OK, second.* Investigate, determine, explore, inquire. *I think,* determine …

S1: Determine.

S3: *Yeah, because* investigate, inquire, explore *is …*

S1: *Synonymous, synonymous.*

S3: *…means to know something. Mmm. OK.*

S1: *Third.* Elderly, intelligent, stupidly, *and* talkative. Intelligent *and* stupidly, *you know. I think they have, er, some relations between because there is the opposite meanings.*

S3: *How about, er,* elderly *and* talkative?

S2: Talkative—*what means* talkative?

S1: *Yeah, too much.*

S2: Talkative.

S1: *How about the* elderly?

S3: *Adjective.*

S1: *Had a more experience and they get the more …*

S3: Intelligent, stupidly—*maybe that the part of the human being … which is, I think … OK. Oh…*

S1: *Wait. Wait a minute. OK, this is, this is different ad … kind of adjective that the ….*

S2: *OK, all right.*

T: *So, which one did you decide?*

Ss: Elderly, elderly.

T: *Why's that?*

S2: *Because, er, it's quite different this, because this match with your age, with your age, and the other one is with your… kind of person that you are.*

T: *Personality.*

S2: *Personality, yeah.*

S1: *Er,* utilize, uncover, reveal, disclose. *Yeah, this is* utilize. Uncover, reveal, disclose—*all of them the same meaning.* Uncover, reveal, disclose.

S2: Uncover? *What's* uncover?

S1: *You know, cover and uncover (gestures).*

S2: *Oh.* Reveal. *OK.*

S3: *Good.*

T: *But how would you define … how would you define those three words? What is … what would be the dictionary definition of those three words?*

S3: *You mean the* uncover *and* reveal?

T: Reveal *and* disclose. *What is the … what is the meaning that they share?*

S2: *To find something and to…*

S1: Uncover, revealed.

S3: *And the other one doesn't have anything to do with find. The other one means the opposite of doing something.*

Commentary The sequence is taken from a pretask designed to present and review some key vocabulary that the students would encounter in the task proper–a selective listening task.

Here is the handout they were working from:

Spot the "odd word out." [The word that doesn't belong in each list.]

Example: (radio,) computer, video, television

Discuss the following words. Put a circle around the odd word out and say why it is the odd word.

1. tourist, visitor, traveler, student
2. investigate, determine, explore, inquire
3. elderly, intelligent, stupidly, talkative
4. utilize, uncover, reveal, disclose

Extract 1 is interesting from a number of perspectives. The students negotiate and collaborate well to complete the task. The teacher also does a good job of keeping the students on track and pushing them to describe what the words have in common.

In the extract, the two participants have heard two different interviewing committees discussing the relative merits of three applicants for a job. Their task is to share their information and decide which of the three would be the best person for the job.

Extract 2

A: *Are you talking about Alan or Geoffrey? Just the first name.*

B: *Well, I understood I was talking about Geoffrey, yeah? Is that correct?*

A: *Not at all.*

B: *Not at all. So I have confused the man, have I? I've made a mistake here. Who … who are you … can you …? What notes do you have on Richards? See if we can get this sorted out first.*

A: *We're talking about Geoffrey, right? And he's certainly the man that had a very good report. He knows the job, and I don't see why we should at all discuss this because it is so obvious to me.*

B: *Well, it could very well be that I'm confusing the names of the people involved, so let's make sure we're talking about the same people.*

A: *How about Alan?*

B: *But he's a foreman rather than a supervisor, I understand, and this is basically a union job … I mean I … my information is that all these people are occupying more or less the same rank.*

A: *Yes, but I mean, er, I agree, they are all, erm, foremen. Supervisor, by the way, is the same to me. Isn't it to you?*

B: *Um, no, it's not quite the same thing to me. A foreman is, uh, somewhat lower on the range, right?*

Reflection

In Extract 2, the learners seem confused about the identities of the individuals. In what ways does this help their language development? In what ways does it hurt it?

Commentary At first sight, it appears that the teacher in Extract 2 has probably not set up this task very well. There is considerable confusion over the identity of the individuals being interviewed. However, this was exactly the purpose of the task. Both students had different, and slightly conflicting, information on the three participants, and this led to considerable negotiation between the two students. As we saw in the background section, such negotiation is hypothesized to be healthy for language acquisition.

Reflection

Extract 3 is a feedback session following a task. What do you think the task was? What do you notice about the way the teacher conducts the session? What is the purpose of the follow-up?

Extract 3

T: *OK, let's check your responses. At school?*
Ss: *Yes, yes.*
T: *At a party?*
S: *Yes.*
S: *No.*
T: *Never been to a party? Oh, you poor thing. (*laughter*) At the movies?*
Ss: *No, no.*
T: *No? Why not?*
Ss: *(*Inaudible comments and laughter.*)*
T: *What about at a shopping center?*
Ss: *No.*
T: *Sports event?*
Ss: *Yes. No.*
T: *Why?*
S: *Not at sports event.*
S: *What sports event?*
S: *Baseball game. Stadium.*
S: *Stadium. Stadium. Yes.*
T: *You mean watching?*
S: *Watching, yeah.*

S: *Or playing tennis.*

*(*There is some confused discussion among the students.*)*

T: *OK, difference of opinion there. What about at a concert?*

S: *No.*

T: *No?*

*(*Laughter*)*

T: *What about at a friend's house?*

Ss: *Yes. Yes.*

S: *No. (*Laughter*)*

T: *No as well. Don't you have any friends either?*

S: *I didn't meet new people.*

T: *New people. OK. What other, what other places can you meet?*

S: *Part-time job.*

T: *Part-time job.*

*(*Excited murmuring*)*

T: *Yeah! Good one. Yeah. Any more?*

S: *Church.*

T: *Church.*

*(*Scattered Laughter*)*

S: *Travel, travel, traveling.*

T: *Traveling.*

S: *Some people meet new people at beach or, er, swimming pool.*

T: *OK.*

*(*Laughter and teasing of student making this remark.*)*

T: *Is this where you meet new people? (*Laughter*)*

S: *Huh?*

T: *Is this where you meet new people?*

S: *Yeah. (*Laughter*)*

T: *Any others?*

S: *Er... organizations.*

T: *Organizations? What kind?*

S: *Oh, like, er, environmental group or...*

T: *Environmental groups—that's good. OK. I think I'll have to put some of these on my list because they're very interesting.*

Commentary In this section, the teacher is conducting a debriefing and eliciting feedback from the students. Students had completed a reading task about how and where single men and women in the United States meet each other and then took part in a pair and group work task based on the following worksheet.

Pair work. In your country, where can you meet new people?

	Yes	No
At school		
At a party		
At the movies		
At a shopping center		
At a sports event		
At a concert		
At a friend's home		
Your idea:		
Your idea:		
Your idea:		

6. Conclusion

In this section, I have provided a basic introduction to language teaching methodology, sketching out how the field has evolved over the last forty years, and then looked at contemporary approaches within the context of a communicative approach to language teaching. This had to be a selective introduction. A comprehensive text on language teaching methodology would be hundreds of pages in length. I hope, however, that it provides a platform you can build on when you read the rest of the chapters in this volume.

Further readings

Celce-Murcia, M. (ed.) 2001. *Teaching English as a Second or Foreign Language.* Third Edition. Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This edited volume is one of the standard works in the field. It covers all aspects of language teaching methodology, and many chapters would be excellent follow-up reading to the chapters in this volume.

Nunan, D. 1999. *Second Language Teaching and Learning.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This book provides an introduction, rationale, research basis, and classroom procedures for task-based language teaching.

Richards J. and W. Renandya (eds.) 2002. *Methodology in Language Teaching.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

An edited collection of reprints on all aspects of methodology, this volume provides an overview of current approaches, issues, and practices in teaching English to speakers of other languages.

Helpful Web site

Center for Applied Linguistics, Washington DC (http://www.cal.org/ericcll)

This Web site has many useful resources, including papers, bibliographies, and links to other Web sites of relevance to language teaching methodology.

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Chapter **Two**

Listening

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **explain** top-down and bottom-up processing.
- ✔ **identify** different listening types: specific information, gist/global listening, inference.
- ✔ **list** examples of different task types.
- ✔ **modify** listening tasks to provide different types of practice.

1. What is listening?

Every day we listen to many different things in many different ways. Whether it is conversation with a colleague, the TV news, or a new music CD, we listen. In our native language at least, we seem to automatically know "how to listen" and "what we are listening for." To language learners, listening is far more challenging. In this chapter, we will explore how listening works and ways to help learners become more effective listeners.

Listening is an active, purposeful process of making sense of what we hear. Language skills are often categorized as *receptive* or *productive*. Speaking and writing are the **productive** skills. Listening, along with reading, is a **receptive** skill. That is, it requires a person to receive and understand incoming information (input). Because listening is receptive, we can listen to and understand things at a higher level than we can produce. For this reason, people sometimes think of it as a passive skill. Nothing could be farther from the truth. Listening is very active. As people listen, they process not only what they hear but also connect it to other information they already know. Since listeners combine what they hear with their own ideas and experiences, in a very real sense they are "creating the meaning" in their own minds. As Buck (1995) points out, the assumption that listeners simply decode messages is mistaken, "(M)eaning is not in the **text** (text = whatever is being listened to)–but is something that is constructed by listeners based on a number of different knowledge sources." Among those sources are knowledge of language, of what has already been said, of context, and general background knowledge. Listening is meaning based. When we listen, we are normally doing so for a purpose. You might even say we don't listen to words, we listen to the meaning behind the words.

Listening is often compared to reading, the other receptive skill. While the two do share some similarities, two major differences should be noted from the start. Firstly, listening usually happens in real time. That is, people listen and have to comprehend what they hear immediately. There is no time to go back and review, look up unknown words, etc. Secondly, although listening is receptive, it very often happens in the midst of a conversation–something which requires productive, spoken responses.

To understand how listening works and how to teach it more effectively, start by thinking about your own listening.

What have you listened to today? Write at least eight things. Try to think of different types of things you have listened to.

-
-
-
-
-
-
-
-

As you go through this chapter, think about how the ideas presented relate what you were doing when listening to each of the items you listed.

2. Background to the teaching of listening

Historically, learning a foreign language meant learning to read and write. Listening was virtually ignored. Then, in the late 1800s, interest in using children's learning of their first language as a model for foreign language teaching grew. One of the results was Gouin's series method. It featured action and oral presentation of new language in which the teacher would make a series of statements (thus the name of the method), and would carry out the actions so that students could map what they saw on to what they heard.

"I walk to the door.	I walk.
I draw near to the door.	I draw near.
I draw nearer to the door.	I draw nearer.
I get to the door.	I get to.
I stop at the door.	I stop."

(Titone, 1968, cited in Richards and Rodgers, 2001)

This is important since it represents the first time listening played a key role in language teaching methodology. Later, the reform movement promoted ideas such as the teaching of spoken, as opposed to written, language and that learners should hear language before seeing it in written form. Still later, the direct method, often associated with Charles Berlitz, promoted the teaching of listening comprehension and the idea that new teaching points should be introduced orally.

In the years following World War II, the **audiolingual** method came to dominate foreign language teaching. The method, which was heavily influenced by the behavioral psychology of the day, emphasized MIM/MEM (mimicry/memorization) of new structures. As in the direct method, these were presented orally, before the learner saw the written form. The popularity of the audiolingual method paralleled the establishment of language laboratories for dialogue and pattern practice drills. (For a description of the audio/lingual class, see Nunan, Chapter 8, this volume.)

In the 1970s and early 1980s, the introduction of **communicative language teaching**–the idea the student learns though the act of communication–increased the role of listening. During this period, Stephen Krashen's **input hypothesis** made a major impact on language teaching. The input hypothesis says that, "for language learning to occur, it is necessary for the

learner to understand input language which contains linguistic items that are slightly beyond the learner's present linguistic competence. Learners understand such language using cues in the situation." (Richards, et al., 1985) Put simply, we acquire language by meeting language that is a bit higher than our current level. Listening was seen as a major source of comprehensible **input**. Language learning textbooks began including listening activities that were not simply presentation of language to be produced. They were listening activities for input, the beginning of the kinds of listening tasks common in books today.

Reflection

1. Think of your experience studying languages. Which of the ideas mentioned in the methods above seem to have influenced your teachers?
2. Which of the ideas do you believe in? Why?

3. Principles for teaching listening

1. Expose students to different ways of processing information: bottom-up vs. top-down.

To understand how people make sense of the stream of sound we all hear, it is helpful to think about how we process the input. A useful metaphor often used to explain reading but equally applicable to listening is "**bottom-up** vs. **top-down processing**," proposed by Rumelhart and Ortony (1977) and expanded upon by Chaudron and Richards (1986), Richards (1990), and others. The distinction is based on the way learners attempt to understand what they read or hear. With bottom-up processing, students start with the component parts: words, grammar, and the like. Top-down processing is the opposite. Learners start from their background knowledge, either content **schema** (general information based on previous learning and life experience) or textual schema (awareness of the kinds of information used in a given situation) (See Long, 1989).

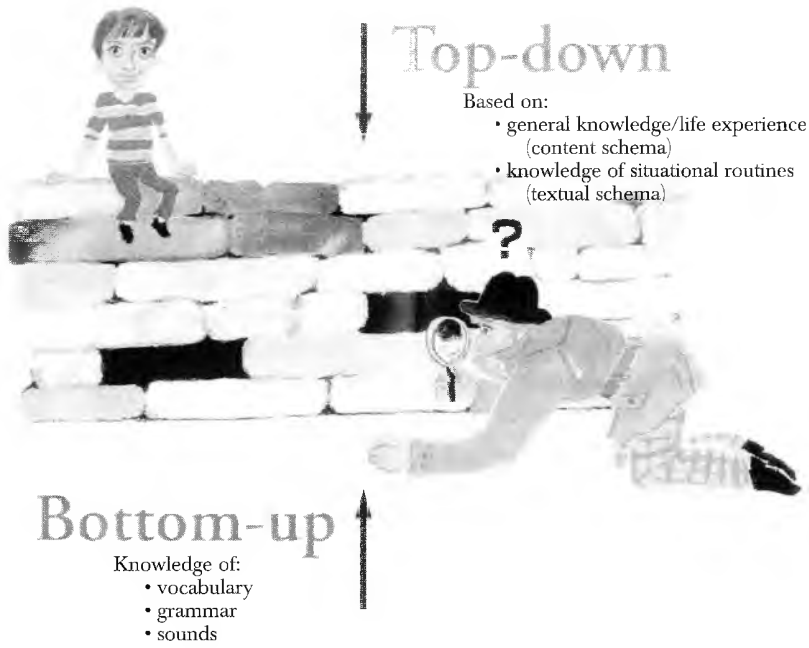


Figure 1 Bottom-up and top-down processing

The idea shown in Figure 1 is, perhaps, better understood by a metaphor. Imagine a brick wall. If you are standing at the bottom studying the wall brick by brick, you can easily see the details. It is difficult, however, to get an overall view of the wall. If, on the other hand, you're sitting on the top of the wall, you can easily see the landscape. However, because of distance, you will miss some details. And, of course, the view is very different.

Many students–especially those with years of "school English"–have learned via methods that stress the "parts" of English: vocabulary and grammatical structures. It is not surprising, therefore, that these learners try to process English from the bottom up.

It can be difficult to experience what beginning-level learners go through. It is especially challenging to understand what they experience when listening to an article which you are reading. However, a reading task can be used to understand the nature of bottom-up processing. From there you can imagine the initial challenge of trying to make meaning out of aural input. Try reading the following *from right to left.*

you as, time a at word one ,slowly English process you When
individual each of meaning the catch to easy is it ,now doing are
the of meaning overall the understand to difficult very is it ,However. word
. passage

You understood the paragraph: When you process English slowly, one word at a time, as you are doing now, it is easy to catch the meaning of each individual word. However, it is very difficult to understand the overall meaning of the passage.

While reading, however, it is likely you felt the frustration of "bottom-up" processing; you had to get each individual part before you could make sense of it. This is similar to what our students experience–and they're having to wrestle with the meaning in a foreign language. Their previous training in language learning–this bottom-up processing habit–gets in the way of effective listening.

The opposite type of processing, "top-down," begins with the listener's life knowledge. Brown (2000) gives this example from a personal experience of buying postcards at an Austrian museum:

> I speak no German, but walked up to the counter after having calculated that the postcards would cost sixteen schillings. I gave the clerk a twenty-schilling note, she opened the till, looked in it, and said something in German. As a reflex, I dug in my pocket and produced a one-schilling coin and gave it to her. She smiled and handed me "a five." I managed the transaction based on my prior knowledge of how one deals with change at a store. In some sense, I didn't need German. I just needed my life experience.

He had no "bottom-up" resources (vocabulary, grammar) in German, but by making use of previous knowledge, he was able to work out the likely meaning. Schema are abstract notions we possess based on experiences.

It is not possible to replace bottom-up with top-down, and it wouldn't be desirable to do so even if we could. We need to help learners integrate the two. The following is my own real life example of how top-down and bottom-up processing can integrate: Visiting Rome, I was in the courtyard in front of St. Peter's Basilica. A woman came up and asked me something in Italian, a language I don't know. I looked at her with a puzzled expression. She asked a question again, this time simplifying it to one word: "Cappella?" I didn't know what it meant but repeated, "Cappella?" She asked again, "Sistine Cappella?" Then I understood that she wanted to know if the big church in front of us was the Sistine Chapel. I replied, "No, San Pietro." (I did know the Italian name of St. Peter's.) I pointed to a building on the right side of the courtyard and said, "Sistine." She said, "Grazie," and walked off toward the Sistine Chapel.

What happened in this short interaction was a combination of bottom-up and top-down processing. Recognizing the single word *Sistine* told me that *cappella* must mean *chapel.* We were standing in front of buildings. She was asking a question about a place. My top-down knowledge of what people might talk about–especially to strangers–said that she must be asking for directions. With a friend, you might comment on the size of the buildings or their beauty or something else, but with a stranger asking for directions or asking someone to

take a picture seemed the only likely topics. Using both bottom-up data (the word, "Sistine") and the top-down data (likely language function), I was able to understand what she wanted.

In my case, this top-down/bottom-up integration happened by accident. In the classroom, prelistening activities are a good way to make sure it happens. Before listening, learners can, for example, brainstorm vocabulary related to a topic or invent a short dialogue relevant to functions such as giving directions or shopping. In the process, they base their information on their knowledge of life (top-down information) as they generate vocabulary and sentences (bottom-up data). The result is a more integrated attempt at processing. The learners are activating their previous knowledge. This use of the combination of top-down and bottom-up data is also called **interactive processing** (Peterson, 2001).

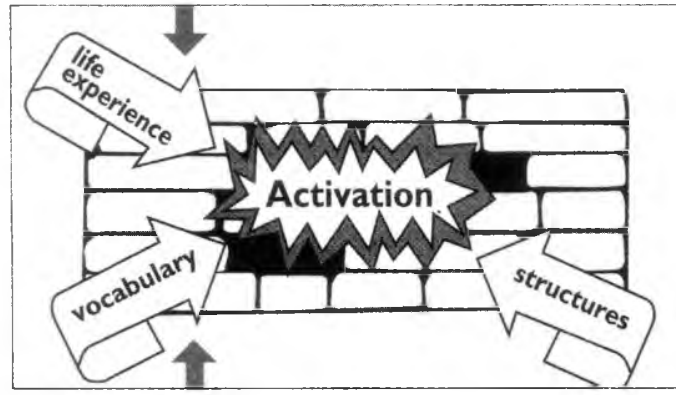


Figure 2 Interactive processing

As useful and important as prelistening activities are, Buck (1995) criticizes books that "provide twenty minutes of prelistening activities for about three minutes of listening practice. This is unbalanced. We need prelistening activities to do two things: provide a context for interpretation and activate the background knowledge which will help interpretation. Give them enough to do that, and then let them listen."

A second word of caution is suggested by Tsui and Fullilove (1998). Learners need to make use of their top-down knowledge but keep reevaluating information. If they lock into an interpretation too early, they may miss information that contradicts it.

Using an example of a news story in which firefighters were aided in saving a housing estate by the direction a wind was blowing, they used a passage that started, "Firemen had to work fast ..." Learners needed to answer the following comprehension question: What saved the estate from burning down?

Although the wind was the key to what saved the estate, many learners relied on their top-down schema (Firefighters put out fires.) and the fact that

the story started with the mention of firemen working fast. They incorrectly identified the firefighters as the answer. Tsui and Fullilove suggest that learners need specific work on bottom-up processing to become less reliant on guessing from context.

Reflection

Go back to the list you wrote on page 24. Choose one example of something you listened to.

1. What types of background information (both top-down and bottom-up data) helped you make sense of the information?
2. Would a person just learning your language have been able to understand the things you heard? If you had been using a recording of those listening items in a language class, what kind of prelistening task could your students have done to activate their top-down and bottom-up schema?
3. Think about the examples of buying postcards in Austria and giving directions in Italy. Have you had a similar experience, either in a foreign language or in an unfamiliar situation in your own country?

2. Expose students to different types of listening.

There's an adage in teaching listening that says: It's not just what they are listening *to*. It's what they are listening *for*. Listeners need to consider their purpose. They also need to experience listening for different reasons.

Any discussion of listening tasks has to include a consideration of types of listening. We will consider tasks as well as texts. When discussing listening, **text** refers to whatever the students are listening to, often a recording. For the purpose of this discussion, consider the following text:

Example 1

A: *Let's go outside. We could go for a walk. Maybe play tennis.*

B: *Look out the window. It's raining.*

A: *Raining. Oh, no.*

(Helgesen & Brown, 1994)

This is a simple conversation. Even near beginners would probably understand the meaning. What they understand, however, depends on what they need to know and do.

The most common type of listening exercise in many textbooks is listen-

ing for specific information. This usually involves catching concrete information including names, time, specific language forms, etc. In our "Let's go outside" example, asking the students to report on the type of weather is a simple "listening for specific information task."

At other times, students try to understand in a more general way. This is **global** or **gist listening**. In the classroom, this often involves tasks such as identifying main ideas, noting a sequence of events and the like. In our example, it could involve a very general question such as, "What's the main topic?" or, if more task support is needed, giving the learners a few choices (friends, sports, the weather) and having them choose the main topic.

Listening for specific information and listening for gist are two important types of listening, but, of course, they don't exist in isolation. We move between the two. For example, many students have been subjected to long, less than exciting lectures. They listen globally to follow what the speaker is talking about. Then they hear something that seems important ("This sounds like it will be on the test!") and focus in to get the specific information.

Another critical type of listening is inference. This is "listening between the lines"–that is, listening for meaning that is implied but not stated directly. In our "Let's go outside" example, we can ask, "Do the speakers go outside or not?" Of course they don't. It's raining. The text doesn't say that directly. It doesn't need to. Learners can infer the information. Inference is different from gist and specific information listening in that it often occurs at the same time as some other types of listening. The learners' main task might well be to catch specifics or to understand a text generally when they come across information that isn't stated directly. Because inference requires somewhat abstract thinking, it is a higher level skill. However, it is a mistake to put off working on inference until learners are at an intermediate level or above. Indeed, it is often at the beginning level when students lack much vocabulary, grammar, and functional routines that students tend to infer the most.

3. Teach a variety of tasks.

If learners need experience with different types of listening texts, they also need to work with a variety of tasks. Since learners do the tasks as they listen, it is important that the task itself doesn't demand too much production of the learner. If, for example, a beginning level learner hears a story and is asked to write a summary in English, it could well be that the learner understood the story but is not yet at the level to be able to write the summary. Tasks that require too much production can't be done or can't be done in real time–and if students get the answer wrong, you don't know if they really didn't understand, or if they did understand but didn't know how to respond, or if they understood at the time but forgot by the time they got to the exercise.

In this example of a summary task based on a story, it may be better to have a task such as choosing the correct summary from two or three choices. Alternatively, the learner could number pictures or events in the order they occurred or identify pictures that match the text.

Another reason for short, focused tasks is that listening weighs on a person's working memory. According to Just and Carpenter's capacity hypothesis (1992), when people are listening in a second or foreign language, they are having to process not only the meaning of what they are listening to but also the language itself. This can lead to an overload. You may have seen the well-known Far Side cartoon that shows a schoolboy raising his hand and asking the teacher, "May I be excused? My brain is full." What he is experiencing is running out of memory capacity. If the task itself makes the listening even more complex, the learners are simply unable to understand, remember, and do what they need to do. (See Lynch, 1998.)

All of this doesn't mean, however, that we need to limit ourselves and our students to only a few receptive "check the box" and "number the pictures" exercise types. As mentioned before, half of the time people are speaking is spent listening. At times, students need experience with production tasks. Our students need exposure to a wide range of tasks in order for them to deal with different types of texts and respond in different ways. Incorporating different tasks also increases the students' interest. If listening work in class follows too narrow a pattern, it is easy for the learners–and the teacher–to lose interest.

Reflection

Go back to the things you listed on page 24.

1. What types of listening were you doing? (specific information, gist, inference)
2. What was your task for each item? What did you need to do? How did you need to respond?

4. Consider text, difficulty, and authenticity.

In addition to the task, the text itself determines how easy or difficult something is to understand. Spoken language is very different from written language. It is more redundant, full of false starts, rephrasing, and elaborations. Incomplete sentences, pauses, and overlaps are common. Learners need exposure to and practice with natural sounding language.

When learners talk about text difficulty, the first thing many mention is speed. Indeed, that can be a problem. But the solution is usually not to give them unnaturally slow, clear recordings. Those can actually distort the way

the language sounds. A more useful technique is to simply put pauses between phrases or sentences. As Rost (2002, p. 145) points out, "By pausing the spoken input (the tape or the teacher) and allowing some quick intervention and response, we in effect slow down the listening process to allow the listeners to monitor their listening more closely."

Speed, of course, is not the only variable. Brown (1995) talks about "cognitive load" and describes six factors that increase or decrease the ease of understanding:

- The number of individuals or objects in a text (e.g., More voices increase difficulty.)
- How clearly the individuals or objects are distinct from one another (e.g., A recording with a male voice and a female voice is easier than one with two similar male voices or two similar female voices.)
- Simple, specific spatial relationships are easier to understand than complex ones. (e.g., In a recording giving directions, information like *turn right at the bank* is easier to understand than *go a little way on that street.*)
- The order of events (e.g., It is easier when the information given follows the order it happened in, as opposed to a story that includes a flashback about events that happened earlier.)
- The number of inferences needed (e.g., Fewer are easier than more.)
- The information is consistent with what the listener already knows (e.g., Hearing someone talk about a film you have seen is easier to understand than hearing the same type of conversation about one you haven't seen.)

Any discussion of listening text probably needs to deal with the issue of **authentic texts**. Virtually no one would disagree that texts students work with should be realistic. However, some suggest that everything that students work with should be authentic. Day and Bamford (1998, p. 53) go so far as to refer to this as "the cult of authenticity." However, the issue of authenticity isn't as simple as it sounds. Most of the recordings that accompany textbooks are made in recording studios. And recordings not made in the studio are often not of a usable quality.

You could ask what is authentic and natural anyway? We have already touched on the issue of speed. What is natural speed? Some people speak quickly, some more slowly. The average for native speakers of English seems to be 165-180 words per minute (wpm), but sometimes it jumps to 275 wpm. Even native speakers can get lost at that speed (Rubin, 1994).

With children learning their first language, we simplify (*motherese*). The advocates of "authentic only" would seem to deny this comprehensible input to foreign language learners, who, in many cases, lack that comprehension/acquisition rich environment that L1 learners enjoy.

When people think about authenticity in listening materials, they are usu-

ally considering the input. Brown and Menasche (1993) suggest looking at two aspects of authenticity: the task and the input.

They suggest this breakdown:

1. **Task authenticity**
   - **simulated:** modeled after a real-life; nonacademic task such as filling in a form
   - **minimal/incidental:** checks understanding, but in a way that isn't usually done outside of the classroom; numbering pictures to show a sequence of events or identifying the way something is said are examples

2. **Input authenticity**
   - **genuine:** created only for the realm of real life, not for classroom, but used in language teaching
   - **altered:** no meaning change, but the original is no longer as it was (glossing, visual resetting, pictures or colors adapted)
   - **adapted:** created for real life (words and grammatical structures changed to simplify the text)
   - **simulated:** written by the author as if the material is genuine; many genuine characteristics
   - **minimal/incidental:** created for the classroom; no attempt to make the material seem genuine

Reflection

1. In your experience as a language learner, what kinds of listening have you found easy? What has made it easy?
2. What has been difficult? Why?
3. What listening have you done that was authentic? What wasn't?
4. What listening activities have been authentic? Which ones haven't been?
5. Children read kids' books. They are "authentic" children's literature but very different from what adults read. Does this idea apply to listening materials in a foreign language? What is authentic? For whom?

5. Teach listening strategies.

Learning strategies are covered elsewhere in this book. However, in considering listening, it is useful to note the items Rost (2002, p. 155) identifies as strategies that are used by successful listeners.

- **Predicting:** Effective listeners think about what they will hear. This fits into the ideas about prelistening mentioned earlier.
- **Inferring:** It is useful for learners to "listen between the lines."
- **Monitoring:** Good listeners notice what they do and don't understand.
- **Clarifying:** Efficient learners ask questions (*What does ___ mean? You mean ___ ?*) and give feedback (*I don't understand yet.*) to the speaker.
- **Responding:** Learners react to what they hear.
- **Evaluating:** They check on how well they have understood.

1. Go back to your list on page 24. Choose one example of something you listened to. Imagine that you were using a recording of that in a classroom listening lesson. Give five ways that learners could include the ideas on Rost's list of strategies of successful listeners.
2. Think of your own experience as a language learner. What listening strategies have you used? List them. Which have been effective? Which haven't?

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

In this section, we will consider classroom activities and a variety of textbook exercises that make use of the above principles. We will also look at ways to modify textbook activities that don't already include the ideas.

Dictation with a difference For many teachers, listening for specific information means dictation. Dictation as it is usually done presents some problems because it is almost completely bottom-up–students need to catch every word. In our native language we don't process every word. So dictation is often asking students to do something in a foreign language that is unnatural and very difficult even in the first language. A related problem is that, since dictation is a "word level" exercise, the learners don't need to think about overall meaning.

The following exercise attempts to deal with those problems. Read the following and, in your mind, imagine the story.

Step 1

A road went though a forest. A woman was walking down the road. Suddenly she saw a man. He was wearing a shirt, pants, and a hat. He smiled and said something.

In class, students hear the passage and imagine the story. Then they listen again, but this time, at several points, they hear a bell. As they listen, they fill in a **cloze** (fill in the blanks) dictation sheet. Each time they hear the bell, they write any word that fits the story as they imagined it. The imagined words go in the boxes.

The student task appears in Figure 3.

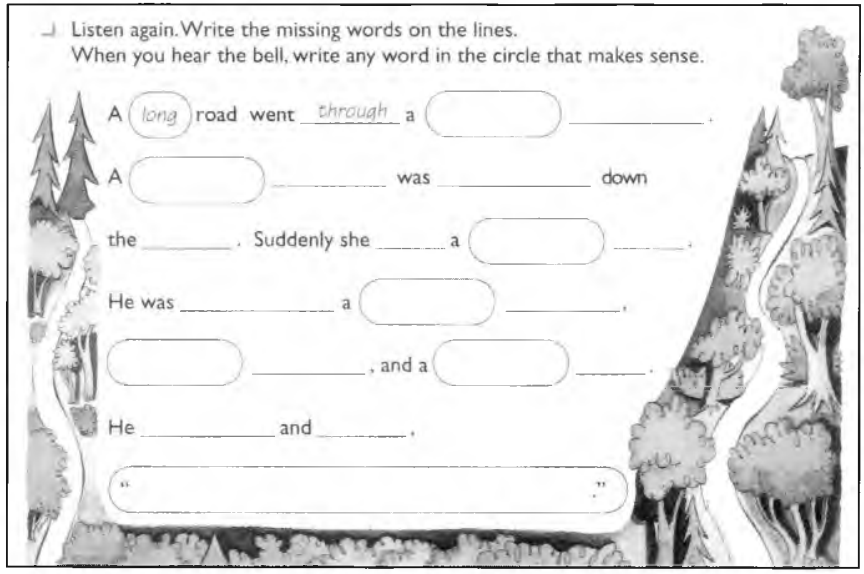


Figure 3 *Listen In* (Thomson Learning, 1998)

The script, as they hear it this time is as follows. The dots (•) show the points where the learners hear the bell.

Step 2

A • road went though a • forest. A • woman was walking down the road. Suddenly she saw a • man. He was wearing a • shirt, • pants and a • hat. He smiled and said•.

(Helgesen and Brown, 1995)

While the students have the accuracy work of the dictation–writing the missing words (forest, woman, walking, etc.)–they are also getting the top-down experience of imagining the story and describing their version of it. Some see a *dark forest.* Some see it as *green, old, a rainforest,* etc.

Since everyone's image of the story will be somewhat different, it provides a good reason for them to compare stories after they finish their writing. This, of course, means they continue listening–this time to their partners.

Do-it-yourself: Modifying materials to add "listening for specific information" While listening for specifics is the most common type of listening in textbooks, teachers sometimes want to add their own activities. This could be to provide an additional listening task–letting the students listen to the same recording for a different purpose. You might want to add different tasks just for variety if your textbook overuses a small number of task types. The following are some ways of modifying listening tasks to add or increase listening for specifics.

- **Micro-listening** (usually done after they know the main topic of the recording, but before they have begun the main listening task) Choose a few target items that occur several times on the recording. Examples might be names of colors, people, places, etc. In class, tell the students the topic of the recording. Ask them to listen for the target items. Each time they hear one, they should raise their hands. Play the recording. Students listen and raise their hands. The showing of hands is a good way for those who caught the items to give a cue to those who didn't.
- **Bits and pieces** (before the main task) Tell the students what the topic will be. In small groups or as a whole class, they brainstorm vocabulary likely to come up on the recording. Each learner makes a list. Then they listen to the recording and circle the words they hear.
- **What do I want to know?** (before the main task) Tell the students the topic and enough about what they will hear for them to imagine the situations. In pairs or small groups, they write two or three questions about the information they think will be given. Then they listen and see how many of the questions they are able to answer.
- **Dictation and cloze** Many books feature cloze (fill in the blanks) dictation as listening. Very often these are not actually listening tasks since learners can find the answer by reading. If you are using a book that has such exercises, have the students try to fill in the blanks before they listen. They read the passage and make their best guesses. Then when they listen to the text, they have an actual listening task: to see if they were right. (See Nunan, Chapter 8, this volume.)

What are they talking about?: Listening for gist Listening in a global way, trying to understand the main ideas, is an essential kind of listening. In the classroom, we should give our learners a lot of experience with this activity, both as a task in itself and as a "way in" to other types of listening with the same recording.

Look at Figure 4. For the first task, the students are asked to listen for the general meaning of five conversations (conversations between a doctor and a patient and conversations not between a doctor and a patient). For the second task, the students are asked to listen to the conversations again and to write key words that helped them distinguish between the two types of conversations. This is an excellent follow-up task since it moves from a general understanding of the gist to a narrower, more specific understanding of what was said. At the same time, it asks the learners to ask themselves, "How did I know the gist?" This type of task increases awareness of their own learning.

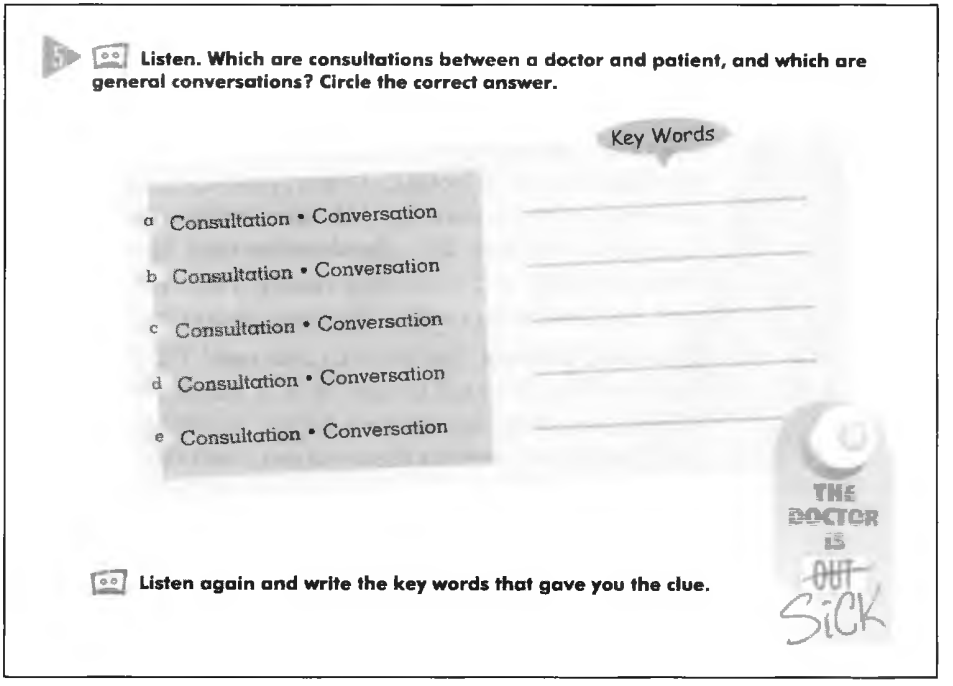


Figure 4 *Speak Out* (Heinle/Thomson, 1998)

Do-it-yourself: Adding gist tasks Even though many textbooks concentrate on "listening for specific information" exercises, sometimes transforming them into global listening tasks are as simple as asking, "What are they talking about? What words gave you the hints?" Here are some other ways to add gist listening.

- **Main ideas** Write the main idea for the recording on the board, along with three or four distracters. Often, subpoints within the conversation make good distracters. In the second example above, the main point is "she feels sick" and the distracters could be *rotten day, go to bed,* and *take some aspirin.* Students listen and identify the main idea.
- **What is the order?** When the listening text is a story, list five or six events from the story. Students listen and put the items in order. It is often useful to tell them which item is number one to help them get started. It is also useful to have at least one item as a distracter that isn't used. Otherwise, the last item is obvious without listening.
- **Which picture?** If pictures are available (e.g., one from the particular listening page of your textbook and distracters from elsewhere in the book) students can listen and identify the one that goes with what they are hearing.

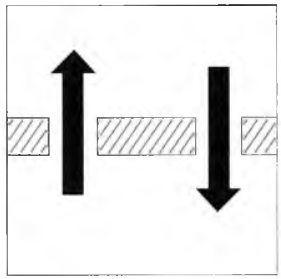
Listening between the lines: Inference tasks As mentioned earlier, students often find inferring meaning challenging because it requires abstract processing. Consider the following task:

- Stay to the left
- Elevator

Example

Look at this sign. What do you think it means?

Listen to the dialogue, then circle your answer.



Now read the script to see if you were right.

Man: *So the office is, what, on the fifth floor?*

Woman: *That's right, fifth floor. Room 503.*

Man: *Where's the—oh, there it is. Well, shall we go up?*

Woman: *Yeah, let's go.*

(Helgesen & Brown, 1994)

As you can tell from the script, the sign means there is an elevator. However, neither speaker ever says the word "elevator." They don't need to. By their talking about the floor the office is on and talking about going up, the listener is able to understand what they are talking about and consequently what the sign means. For that reason, asking the learners, "How did you know?" is probably just as important as whether or not they got the correct answer. It makes them aware of the clues that gave them the meaning. It also provides information and an example for students who may not have gotten the correct answer.

Do-it-yourself inference Unfortunately, it isn't possible to provide "recipes" for adding inference the way it is for gist and specific information listening. This is because inference depends as much on the text–what is being said–as it does on the task. However, as teachers, we can try to be aware of inference and look for opportunities to work with it. The following are two places to start:

- **Focus on emotions**. How do the speakers feel? How do you know that?
- **Look for background information**. Has one or more of the speakers been here/done that/tried this before? Why do you think so?

Think of a listening lesson you have taught or experienced, or a time you had to listen to and understand something in another language or culture. Identify the following:

1. What was the task? What did the students (or you) need to do?
2. Was there a prelistening task? If there was, did it integrate top-down and bottom-up processing? If not, how could you have changed it to do so? If there wasn't a prelistening task, how could one be added?
3. What type of listening was it (specific information, gist, inference, a combination)? How could you have changed the type of listening using the same text (recording), but a different task?
4. Think about how you would teach the lesson differently. If possible, explain your new plan to a partner. If that is not possible, just imagine yourself teaching the new plan. Write it out, step-by-step.

5. Listening in the classroom

In this section, we will return to the activities profiled earlier in this chapter and look specifically at how they are used in the classroom. In the process, we will note a few extra techniques teachers sometimes employ.

In each case, the listening task itself is the second step in the activity. The learners do a prelistening, which serves to activate the top-down and bottom-up schema. Each activity is followed with a speaking activity. As mentioned earlier, although listening is a different skill than speaking, they often go hand-in-hand. Also, students often come to our classes to learn to speak. Listening can be a good way to preview a speaking activity and speaking, in turn, can be useful to expand on what they've listened to. A balance of listening and speaking activities (and, depending on the class, reading and writing) can be important to maintain learner engagement.

In the "Your story" dictation activity, the students will be working with adjectives. The prelistening task is to have the students work in pairs. The teacher gives them a series of adjectives that could have more than one opposite. For example, the opposite of "right" could be either "wrong" or "left." Other adjectives with more than one antonym include "hard," "smart," "sweet," "straight," "free," etc. Learners see how many opposites they can think of. Providing the adjectives gives them support–as opposed to just saying, "How many adjectives can you think of?" It also focuses them on meaning, rather than just grammar. They are thinking about descriptions–just what they will need to do in the main task. The follow-up speaking activity for "Your story" is clear. Students, having created their own version of the story, usually want to compare their images with their partners.

The prelistening task for the doctor/patient activity both elicits information from the students and presents new information. The students see a cartoon of several obviously ill people in a doctor's waiting room. They identify what is wrong with the people. Then they are presented with a list of several symptoms and illnesses that the students may not know in English (appendicitis, rash, etc.). They look up the words they don't know, then match the symptoms to the illnesses. This is a useful example of activating their background knowledge while preteaching vocabulary at the same time.

Once the students have completed the main task in their books, the teacher might elicit answers from the students and write them on the board. At this point, the teacher may want to have the learners choose their own level of support of a final listening:

Extract 1

Teacher: *OK, we'll listen to this one more time. Please choose* how *you want to listen.*

If this was kind of difficult, watch me. I'll point to the answers just before they say them (on the recording).

Or if you don't need my help spotting the answers, watch your book. Try to catch the answers as they say them.

Or if it wasn't difficult at all, close your eyes. Listen. Imagine the people. What do they look like? Where are they? Watch the "movie" in your mind.

This final listening serves several purposes. It gives students a new task–albeit a simple one–and thus a new reason to listen. It also lets them choose the amount of support they want or don't want. Finally, for those who choose the third option, it encourages imagination.

The doctor/patient listening activity is followed by group work in which learners brainstorm a list of things they do to stay healthy. Then they exchange lists with another group and compare. This activity allows them to make use of the ideas and language from the warm-up and the listening, and to personalize the task by relating the information to their own lives.

In the sign activity, learners guess the meaning before they listen. By doing so, they are activating their previous (top-down) knowledge: the likely meaning of the sign based on other signs they know. It also puts them in touch with vocabulary and phrases, bottom-up information. And the fact that they have to commit to an answer often increases student interest. It's like they make a bet with themselves about the meaning. They listen to see if they win the bet.

As they listen, the teacher could suggest pair work, either to the whole class or to lower-level students.

It was pointed out earlier that "How did you know?" is just as important as getting the correct answer on inference activities. By working in pairs, students are more likely to take the time to analyze their listening process. Another reason for doing the activity in pairs has to do with making the task easier. Students tend to focus on different parts of the listening and listen in different ways. By working in pairs, they tend to understand the listening more quickly. This idea can be used with nearly any sort of listening where there are specific correct answers.

In considering these activities in the classroom, the flow suggested below is often a useful way to structure a lesson plan to include listening:

1. A warm-up activity that integrates top-down and bottom-up data
2. A main listening task
3. A speaking task related to the previous task

Over the length of a course, the listening tasks should be balanced to include a variety of listening types and tasks. It is often useful to decide on the listening task before planning the warm-up. Often, the task itself will determine the kind of information you want to elicit or preteach through the warm-up. Student speaking tasks often take place in pairs or small groups and require learners to listen and respond to each other.

Go back to your list on page 24.

Choose one example of something you listened to. Imagine that you have a recording of it that you want to use for a lesson.

1. What would the task be? What would the students do as they listened?
2. Design a lesson plan. What kind of prelistening task would you use? What kind of information would it target?
3. How would you follow it up with a speaking task?

6. Conclusion

This chapter started by emphasizing listening as an active, purposeful process. It involved processing information based on both overall top-down schema and the bottom-up "building blocks" of language such as vocabulary and grammar. Prelistening tasks are suggested as ways to integrate a learner's processing. I also considered text difficulty, authenticity, and the use of strategies.

Exposing learners to a variety of tasks, as well as different types of listening, is helpful in enabling them to become more skillful listeners. To that end, examples of how to incorporate these ideas into the classroom and ways to modify textbook tasks are provided. If we do these things, our learners can become more effective, active listeners.

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This book is a classic exploration of communicative possibilities for dictation.

Mendelsohn, D. and J. Rubin (eds.) 1995. *A Guide for the Teaching of Second Language Listening.* San Diego, CA: Dominie Press.

This is a very accessible overview of listening.

Murphey, T. 1992. *Music & Song. (Resource Books for Teachers).* Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Murphey offers creative ways of using music in the classroom.

Nunan, D. and L. Miller (eds.) 1995. *New Ways in Teaching Listening.* Washington, DC: TESOL.

This is a "cookbook" of nearly 150 "recipes" (lesson plans/ ideas) for teaching listening contributed by teachers around the world.

Rost, M. 2002. *Teaching and Researching Listening.* Harlow: Pearson Education/ Longman.

This is a very thorough handbook for both teachers and researchers, representing state-of-the-art teaching and learning to listen.

White, G. 1998. *Listening (Resource Books for Teachers).* Oxford: Oxford University Press.

White provides many ideas including using authentic texts and having students create their own texts.

Helpful Web sites

University of Oregon American English Institute Intensive English Program-Study Resources for Students (http://aei.uoregon.edu/iep/iep.htm)

This site links to language learning pages for listening and other language skills.

Randall's Cyber Listening Lab (http://www.esl-lab.com)

An extensive set of listening tasks are arranged by level of difficulty (easy, medium, difficult).

University of Illinois Intensive English Institute Interactive Listening Comprehension Practice Page (http://www.iei.uiuc.edu/LCRA/)

This site has listening tasks based on texts from sources such as National Public Radio.

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Chapter **Three**

Speaking

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- **identify** the "levels" of spoken language and explain their relationships.
- **explain** the main differences between the audiolingual method and communicative language teaching.
- **describe** some differences between spoken language and written language.
- **demonstrate** familiarity with all the techniques discussed in this chapter.

1. What is speaking?

If you have learned a language other than your own, which of the four skills–listening, speaking, reading, or writing–did you find to be the hardest? Many people feel that speaking in a new language is harder than reading, writing, or listening for two reasons. First, unlike reading or writing, speaking happens in *real time:* usually the person you are talking to is waiting for you to speak right then. Second, when you speak, you cannot edit and revise what you wish to say, as you can if you are writing.

In language teaching, the four skills are described in terms of their direction. Language generated by the learner (in speech or writing) is referred to as **productive.** Language directed at the learner (in reading or listening) is called **receptive.** Another important idea is the **channel,** which refers to the medium of the message (aural/oral or written). Thus, speaking is the productive aural/oral skill. It consists of producing systematic verbal **utterances** to convey meaning.

Teaching speaking is sometimes considered a simple process. Commercial language schools around the world hire people with no training to teach conversation. Although speaking is totally natural, speaking in a language other than our own is anything but simple.

Spoken language and written language differ in many significant ways. Here are some key contrasts (van Lier, 1995, p. 88):

Spoken language	Written language
Auditory	Visual
Temporary; immediate reception	Permanent; delayed reception
Prosody (rhythm, stress intonation)	Punctuation
Immediate feedback	Delayed or no feedback
Planning and editing limited by channel	Unlimited planning, editing, revision

Given these differences between writing and speech, you can see why people who learn a foreign language largely from textbooks often sound bookish when they speak.

2. Background to teaching speaking

For many years people taught speaking by having students repeat sentences and recite memorized textbook dialogues. **Audiolingual** repetition drills were designed to familiarize students with the sounds and structural patterns of the **target language** (the language which learners are aiming to learn). People supposedly learned to speak by practicing grammatical structures and then later using them in conversation. So an audiolingual speaking lesson might involve an interaction like Example 1. *T* stands for teacher and *S* represents a particular student. *Ss* stands for students. (Textbook lines are in quotation marks.)

Example 1

T: *Repeat please: "Good morning, Maria."*
Ss: *"Good morning, Maria."*
T: *"Where are you going?"*
Ss: *"Where are you going?"*
T: *Good. "I'm going to the library."*
Ss: *"I going to libary."*
T: *Listen: "I'm going to THE library."*
Ss: *"I going to THE libary."*
T: *Listen again. "Li-BRA-ry." Rrr. "Librrrary."*
Ss: *"Librrrary."*
T: *"To the library."*
Ss: *"To the library."*
T: *"Going to the library."*
Ss: *"Going to the library."*
T: *"I'm going to the library."*
Ss: *"I going to the library."*
T: *Good! Now the next part.*

The concept of habit formation, of **behaviorism,** is the theoretical basis of the audiolingual method. Since learners needed to form good habits, lessons involved a great deal of repetition. Students were not supposed to form bad habits, so teachers treated spoken errors quickly. Teachers worried that if errors were left untreated, the students might learn those erroneous forms.

For many years, teaching speaking involved providing students with the components of the language, in hopes that they would eventually put them

all together and speak. So students might spend several semesters repeating after the teacher, studying grammar rules, reciting dialogues, and learning vocabulary. Unfortunately, actual conversations didn't sound like the textbook dialogues, and if you really met someone like Maria, she was seldom going to the library.

Find a dialogue in an ESL/EFL or foreign language textbook. Ask someone who speaks that language well to see if people might have actually had that conversation. Does the language sound natural? If not, why not?

During the late twentieth century, language acquisition research made us reconsider some long-standing beliefs about how people learn to speak. Several studies led to the conclusion that we had gotten the basic idea backwards: People don't learn the pieces of the language and then put them together to make conversations. Instead, infants acquiring their first language and people acquiring second languages learn the pieces by interacting with other people.

This realization has several interesting implications. If we believe that people learn languages by interacting, then learners should interact during lessons. As a result, a method called **communicative language teaching** arose. Two versions of communicative language teaching emerged. The weak version says teachers should teach the components of language but include communication activities. The strong version says since students learn through interacting, lessons should consist of opportunities to communicate in the target language. In this method, teachers often downplay accuracy and emphasize how students communicate when they speak the target language.

However, in order to communicate well in another language, we must make ourselves understood by the people we are speaking with, and this is not an easy task–especially at the beginning and intermediate levels. There is some need to be accurate in speaking the target language. This is tricky because, as we saw in the speaking-writing contrast, there is limited time for planning and editing speech during conversations. And for less-than-proficient speakers, managing the components of language that must work together when we speak is very demanding indeed.

Figure 1 on page 51 depicts the many linguistic elements involved in speaking. The left column lists four areas of linguistic analysis, but it is the center column which concerns us as teachers. It labels the units of spoken language.

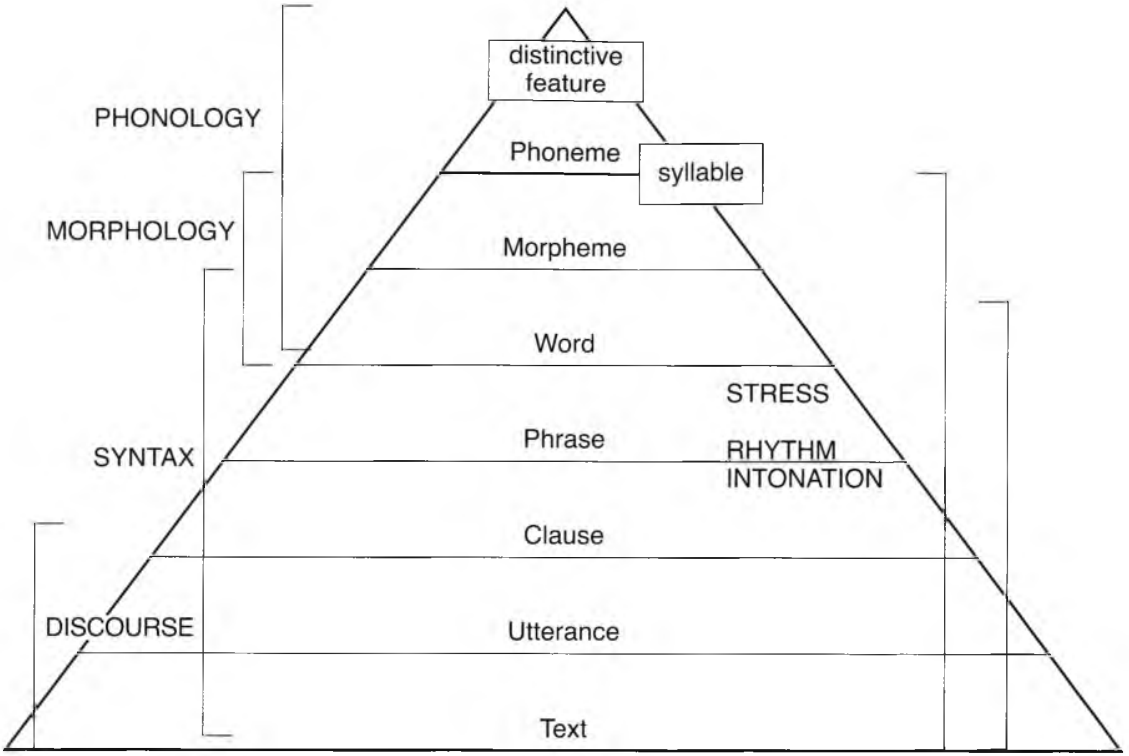

Figure 1: *Interaction in the Language Curriculum: Awareness, Autonomy, and Authenticity* (Longman, 1996)

Beginning at the pyramid's base, text means stretches of language of an undetermined length. Spoken texts are composed of utterances. An utterance is something someone says. It may not be a full sentence, as the concept is used in writing. For example, in asking a friend about what to eat, you might ask, "Would you like pizza?" This utterance is a fully formed grammatical sentence. But if you are both thinking about what to eat, you might just ask your friend, "Pizza?" Although this is not a grammatical sentence, it is an utterance.

Eavesdrop on two people having a conversation. Do they use complete sentences or are their turns composed of shorter utterances? Share your answer with your classmates.

The next two levels, **clauses** and **phrases,** are often confused. A phrase is two or more words which function as a unit but don't have a subject or a verb marked for tense. These include prepositional phrases (*to the store or after breakfast*) and infinitive phrases (*to eat* or *to look up*). Clauses are two or more words that do contain a verb marked for tense. These may be full sentences (*John ate the cake.*) or something less than a full sentence (*While John was eating the cake...*). Such clauses and phrases don't usually appear alone in formal writing, but they are quite common in speech. Both clauses and phrases can be utterances, as can words, the next level in the pyramid.

A word is called a free **morpheme**–a unit of language which can stand on its own and have meaning (*hat, flee, already,* etc.). There are also bound morphemes, which are always connected to words. These include prefixes, such as *un-* or *pre-,* as well as suffixes, such as *-tion* or *-s* or *-ed.* Sometimes during the pressure of speaking, it is difficult for English learners to use the necessary suffixes–especially if words in their own language don't usually end in consonants.

Identify the free and bound morphemes in this list:

ski jumpers inappropriately dysfunctional nonrefundable

The top levels of the pyramid on page 51 deal with the sound system of the language. Pronunciation is covered elsewhere (Murphy, Chapter 6, this volume), so only a few related issues will be mentioned here.

In Figure 1, the word *syllable* overlaps the levels of morphemes and **phonemes.** A phoneme is a unit of sound in a language that distinguishes meaning. Phonemes can be either consonants (like /p/ or /b/ in the words *pit* and *bit*) or vowels (like /I/ and /æ/ in *bit* and *bat*).

Think of five pairs of words where the phonemic distinctions are consonants (as in *pit* and *bit*). Now think of five pairs where the phonemic difference is based on vowel sounds (as in *bit* and *bat*).

Consonants and vowels are **segmental** phonemes. Sometimes a spoken syllable consists of one phoneme (/o/ in *okay*). But syllables also consist of combined sounds (the second syllable of *okay*), and of both free and bound morphemes. For instance, the free morpheme *hat* consists of three phonemes but only one syllable. The word *disheartened* has three syllables, four morphemes (*dis* + *heart* + *en* + *ed*), and eight phonemes.

An even smaller unit, a **distinctive feature,** relates to how or where a sound is produced when we speak. The distinctive feature which makes /b/ and /p/ separate phonemes in English is voicing: when /b/ is pronounced the vocal cords are vibrating, but when /p/ is pronounced, the vocal cords are not vibrating. These minute contrasts contribute to a speaker's accent. (One of my Arabic-speaking students who didn't distinguish between /b/ and /p/ told me he'd had "green bee soup" for lunch!)

On the right side of the pyramid there are three other labels. Stress, rhythm, and intonation are called the **suprasegmental** phonemes, because when we speak, they carry meaning differences but they operate "above" the segmental phonemes. To illustrate that the suprasegmental phonemes carry meaning, consider the sentence, "I think I know." It can convey four different meanings, depending on the stress:

I think I know. I think ***I*** know. I ***think*** I know. I think I ***know.***

In these four utterances, the bold italic typeface shows which word is stressed. If you say these sentences aloud, you will hear the sound and meaning differences among them. The differences are related to the context where the utterances occur. Consider these interpretations:

I think I know. (You may not think I know the answer, but I'm pretty sure I do.)

I ***think*** I know. (I'm not entirely sure, but I think I know the answer.)

I think ***I*** know. (You may not know the answer, but I think I do.)

I think I ***know.*** (I am not unsure—I am quite confident that I know the answer.)

Ask a friend to explain the difference in meanings in the following utterances:

- It ***was*** Jane who missed the bus.
- It was Jane who ***missed*** the bus.
- It was ***Jane*** who missed the bus.
- It was Jane who missed the ***bus***.

See if your friend's interpretations match your predictions.

Now that we have reached the top of the pyramid, you can see that all the levels of language operate when we speak, and conversation is not really simple at all. It is important for language teachers to understand these units of language and how they work together. Given this background information, we will now consider five principles for teaching speaking.

3. Principles for teaching speaking

1. Be aware of the differences between second language and foreign language learning contexts.

Speaking is learned in two broad contexts: foreign language and second language situations. The challenges you face as a teacher are determined partly by the target language context.

A **foreign language (FL) context** is one where the target language is not the language of communication in the society (e.g., learning English in Japan or studying French in Australia). Learning speaking skills is very challenging for students in FL contexts, because they have very few opportunities to use the target language outside the classroom. Sometimes foreign language learners traveling in countries where their target languages are spoken find that they can neither understand native speakers nor be understood. There is an old story of the college freshman who struggled with introductory French and then with intermediate French. When he finally passed that course, his parents were so proud they sent him on a trip to Paris. When he got to Paris, he discovered that no one there speaks or understands intermediate French!

A **second language (SL) context** is one where the target language is the language of communication in the society (such as English in the UK or Spanish in Mexico). Second language learners include refugees, international students, and immigrants. Some second language learners (especially those who arrive in their new country as children) achieve notable speaking skills, but many others progress to a certain proficiency level and then go no further. Their speech seems to stop developing at a point where it still contains noticeable, patterned errors. These can be errors in grammar, vocabulary, pronunciation, or any combination of problems that affect the learners' ability to communicate by speaking.

Reflection

Do you have experience learning a foreign language and then trying to use it with people who speak that language natively? Or have you learned a new language when you moved to a new country? If so, did you have any problems making yourself understood? What problems did you have? (If you had no problems, ask some friends with different backgrounds.)

2. Give students practice with both fluency and accuracy.

Accuracy is the extent to which students' speech matches what people actually say when they use the target language. **Fluency** is the extent to which speakers use the language quickly and confidently, with few hesitations or unnatural pauses, false starts, word searches, etc.

In language lessons–especially at the beginning and intermediate levels–learners must be given opportunities to develop both their fluency and their accuracy. They cannot develop fluency if the teacher is constantly interrupting them to correct their oral errors. Teachers must provide students with fluency-building practice and realize that making mistakes is a natural part of learning a new language.

Reflection

Think about when you have tried to learn a new language. How did you develop your fluency? How did you develop your accuracy? Think of an effective strategy for helping learners developing fluency and one for developing accuracy.

3. Provide opportunities for students to talk by using group work or pair work, and limiting teacher talk.

Research has repeatedly demonstrated that teachers do approximately 50 to 80 percent of the talking in classrooms. It is important for us as language teachers to be aware of how much we are talking in class so we don't take up all the time the students could be talking.

Pair work and group work activities can be used to increase the amount of time that learners get to speak in the target language during lessons. One further interesting point is that when the teacher is removed from the conversation, the learners take on diverse speaking roles that are normally filled by the teacher (such as posing questions or offering clarification).

4. Plan speaking tasks that involve negotiation for meaning.

Research suggests that learners make progress by communicating in the target language because interaction necessarily involves trying to understand and make yourself understood. This process is called **negotiating for meaning**. It involves checking to see if you've understood what someone has said, clarifying your understanding, and confirming that someone has understood your meaning. By asking for clarification, repetition, or explanations during conversations, learners get the people they are speaking with to address them with language at a level they can learn from and understand.

5. Design classroom activities that involve guidance and practice in both transactional and interactional speaking.

When we talk with someone outside the classroom, we usually do so for interactional or transactional purposes. **Interactional speech** is communicating with someone for social purposes. It includes both establishing and maintaining social relationships. **Transactional speech** involves communicating to get something done, including the exchange of goods and/or services.

Most spoken interactions "can be placed on a continuum from relatively predictable to relatively unpredictable" (Nunan, 1991, p. 42). Conversations are relatively unpredictable and can range over many topics, with the participants taking turns and commenting freely. In contrast, Nunan states that "transactional encounters of a fairly restricted kind will usually contain highly predictable patterns" (1991, p. 42), and he gives the example of telephoning for a taxi. According to Nunan, interactional speech is much more fluid and unpredictable than transactional speech. Speaking activities inside the classroom need to embody both interactional and transactional purposes, since language learners will have to speak the target language in both transactional and interactional settings.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

Information gap is a useful activity in which one person has information that the other lacks. They must use the target language to share that information. For instance, one student has the directions to a party and must give them to a classmate.

Jigsaw activities are a bidirectional or multidirectional information gap. Each person in a pair or group has some information the other persons need. For example, one student could have a timetable for train travel in Canada. Another could have a map of Canada. Without showing each other the visual information, they must speak English to plan a one-week trip.

Many information gap and jigsaw activities can be done with simple props, such as coins. First, make sure each student in a class has a penny, a quarter, a nickel, and dime (or the coins of your country). Next, hide your coins so the students can't see what you are doing. The students then follow your instructions as you do the actions you are describing: "Place the quarter with the man's picture facing up. Put the penny on the quarter. Put the dime below the quarter but not touching it. Put the nickel next to the dime on the right." Finally, reveal the design you have made with your coins so the students can see if their patterns match yours.

In the teacher-led version of this task, the students are primarily listening. But you can have them do the activity in pairs, where they take turns speaking. One natural information gap task–especially if the students don't know each other well–is to have one learner describe his family to another, while his partner draws a family tree diagram and labels it with names and information about the speaker's family. This activity promotes a great deal of negotiation for meaning, as one student asks another, "Wait–who lives in Madrid? Your aunt or, how you say, your cousin?"

You can have the students use **tango seating** to work in pairs. In tango seating one student's right shoulder is next to the other student's right shoulder and they are facing opposite directions. This arrangement allows them to hear one another but not see what is being drawn or constructed on their partner's desk.

Try an information gap activity with tango seating. Using simple objects, give a friend instructions about how to arrange the items as you are doing the same thing with yours. (You and your partner must have identical sets of objects.) When you have finished, compare the results.

Role-plays are also excellent activities for speaking in the relatively safe environment of the classroom. In a **role-play,** students are given particular roles in the target language. For example, one student plays a tourist telephoning the police to report his wallet stolen. The other plays the role of a police officer trying to help the tourist file a report. Role-plays give learners practice speaking the target language before they must do so in a real environment.

Simulations are more elaborate than role-plays. In a **simulation,** props and documents provide a somewhat realistic environment for language practice. So for instance, in a language lesson about the grocery store, a teacher might bring in "products" for the students to buy (a box of crackers, coffee, a jar of jam) and even play money for making their purchases. A check-out counter would be set up for the students to practice transactional speaking with the cashier.

Plan a role-play activity for a language lesson. The task should involve two people (for instance, a tourist and a waiter in a café). Write brief instructions on index cards. Try the role-play with a friend.

Contact assignments involve sending students out of the classroom with a stated purpose to talk to people in the target language. In a second language environment, you can send students on an information treasure hunt in a nearby business district. Provide a worksheet which the students complete by asking merchants questions. For instance, at a grocery store, they would have to ask how soon a shipment of fresh fruit would be delivered.

You can also use **contact assignments** in FL contexts if there are tourists, exchange students, or international businesspersons for your students to talk to in the target language. In a train station or at a ferry terminal, for example, students can interview tourists. Afterwards the students compile the results of the class survey and report what they learned.

In designing a contact assignment, be sure the required information cannot be gotten by reading available written information. The point is to get the students to speak with people using the target language.

5. Speaking in the classroom

Research has demonstrated that teacher-dominated classroom talk is one type of **unequal power discourse.** That is, the teacher usually has the power to determine the topics, distribute the turns, give feedback, and ask most of the questions, among other things.

Extract 1 (Long, 1980, p. 16) provides an example of teacher-controlled classroom discourse. It is based on an audio-tape of an intermediate vocabulary lesson for young adult EFL students. In the extract, indented lines mean one person's turn overlapped another person's. For example, in line 24, S3 says "Jeans" when the teacher is saying "Say the ...". In this segment the teacher was finishing with the vocabulary item *chemical pollution* and moving on to *trousers,* when S4 (Carlos) yawned loudly.

Extract 1

"Carlos's Trousers" transcript

1. ***T:*** *...Okay? Chemical pollution. Okay.*
2. ***S4:*** *(*Yawning*) O-o-o.*
3. ***T:*** *Trousers! All right, Carlos (*S4*), do you wear trousers?*
4. ***S4:*** *Always ... All my life.*
5. ***S:*** *(*Laughter*)*
6. ***T:*** *Always. You've worn, I have ...*
7. ***S4:*** *Eh, wear wear (*inaudible*).*

8. ***T:*** *I have … well, do you wear trousers?*
9. ***S4:*** *I wear.*
10. ***S:*** *I wear, I wear.*
11. ***S4:*** *Yes, I I do.*
12. ***T:*** *Yes, you do. What's, how do you say that word?*
13. ***S4:*** *Trousers.*
14. ***T:*** *Trousers.*
15. ***S4:*** *Trousers.*
16. ***T:*** *Trousers.*
17. ***S4:*** *Trousers.*
18. ***S3:*** *Trousers.*
19. ***T:*** *Mn-hm. Have you got trousers on?*
20. ***S3:*** *Yes, I have.*
21. ***T:*** *What kind?*
22. ***S3:*** *Jeans.*
23. ***T:*** *Jeans. Say the word jeans. Jeans.*
24. ***S3:*** *Jeans.*
25. ***T:*** *Jeans.*
26. ***S2:*** *Jeans.*
27. ***T:*** *Jeans.*
28. ***S1:*** *Jeans.*
29. ***T:*** *Okay. Okay. Huh! …*

Reflection

In Extract 1, how many turns does the teacher take? How many turns do the students take? What do you think the students learned about speaking English during this segment of this lesson?

It is difficult to imagine, by reading a printed transcript, what the intonation contours, volume, and stress patterns add to the meaning conveyed in the spoken discourse. This particular segment of a lesson involves some tightly controlled turn taking in which most of the students' utterances involve repeating what the teacher has just said.

Extract 2 is from an adult ESL lesson. In the extract "FS" stands for an unidentified female student and "xx" means the tape recording was not clear enough to transcribe what was said at that point. Words or phrases in parentheses indicate that the transcriber wasn't completely sure about what was said. Once again, indented lines indicate overlapping turns. Square brackets give the researcher's interpretation, based on the notes taken by an observer who was present during the lesson.

In this case, although the lesson is teacher-fronted, the learners had greater freedom to participate actively than did those in the lesson about Carlos's trousers. As you read this transcript, notice its conversational nature and the many times the students and the teacher work together to negotiate for meaning.

Extract 2

T: *Here's, here's another useful word.* (Writing on the blackboard.) *Have you ever heard of a flasher?*

S3: *Yeah, yeah.*

FS: *Yeah, I (*/heda/*) (*= heard of*) flasher.*

*(*One or two students laughing.*)*

T: *(*S8's name*), what's a flasher?*

S8: *It's like a flash. (*Laughter.*)*

T: *What's a flasher?*

S8: *(*Flasher?*)*

S1: *Somebody takes pictures.*

T: *No. (*Laughter.*)*

S3: *No.*

T: *xx. What's a flasher? You ever seen one? You ever seen a flasher?*

S3: *Somebody that flash.*

FS: *No.*

In the lines of transcript you just read, the teacher asks the class, "What's a flasher?" Student 1 guesses, "somebody [that] takes pictures" and Student 3 says, "somebody that flash." Both students use their knowledge of English morphemes as they analyze the word's bound and free components. The teacher then asks the classroom aide to explain the slang term to the students:

T: *OK. (*Aide's name*), you know. (*Aide laughs.*) (*You*) want to tell them xx*

A: *Somebody who shows off, uh, all the parts of his body.*

S6: *(*Gasps.*) Oh, xx!*

T: *A flasher, a flasher is like a person who has nothing on and maybe a raincoat.*

S3: *Nude?*

S7: *Exhibitionist?*

T: *OK, flash is uh flash is a quick movement, right?*

S3: *Streaker?*

S6: *A strea- A streaker?*

T: *xx OK, well. A streaker has absolutely nothing on. A flasher shows himself for a second or two.*

S7: *Exhibitionist.*

*(*Laughter.*)*

Reflection

Extract 1 about Carlos's trousers takes 29 lines. Count the number of turns taken by the teacher and students in the first 29 lines of Extract 2. How do the two extracts compare? What do you think the students learned about speaking during this segment of the lesson?

T: *xx Like he'll, (*above laughter*) he may have a raincoat on or something or a coat and he comes up to*

S3: *Why?*

T: *you and he goes (*Shows movement of someone opening a coat quickly.*)*

S3: *Why? (*Laughing. General laughter.*)*

T: *And then he runs away, OK?*

S3: *He should be out of his mind.*

(Some laughing continues.)

FS: *xx.....xx*

T: *That's a, that's a flasher. Anyway.*

S3: *xx*

(Some whispering.)

T: *Oh, dear. OK.*

S3: *It's a job? It's a job?*

T: *Pardon. It's a job? No, it's not a paying job. No.*

S3: *It's a job? Flasher.*

(S3 laughs. Mumbling continues.)

(Allwright and Bailey, 1991, pp. 58-59)

Reflection

Extracts 1 and 2 are both based on tape recordings made in classes for adult language learners. When you compare the two extracts, which lesson would you prefer if you were a student? Why?

Speaking includes the oral production of many different genres. Reciting poetry, participating in debates, engaging in class discussions, and leaving messages on answering machines are all different types of speaking. Perhaps the most common type of speaking is conversing.

Reflection

What is the difference between *speaking* and *conversing*? In other words, what are the defining characteristics of conversation?

In Extract 2 the interaction is highly conversational even though the teacher is managing the discourse. One key characteristic of true conversations is that their outcome is not predetermined or wholly governed by any one participant. Extract 3 shows three learners interacting together, without a teacher participating in the discussion. This in-class conversation is particularly interesting because the three learners are discussing the circumstances in which they can understand conversations in their second language. Notice how the learners negotiate for meaning (for example, when L1 pronounces "theme" as "seem"). In these lines the use of a colon (:) indicates that a sound is lengthened.

Extract 3

1.	L1	*Can you fo- can you follow any conversation? Any people?*
2.	L2	*Sometime yes, but ah ... many times I can't.*
3.	L1	*(*hm::
4.	L1	*And what about you?*
5.	L3	*The same but depend of (*who*) the conversation, no?*
6.	L2	*Yah*
7.	L3	*Or the point, because sometimes is point very very easy, but the::: depend of the theme*
8.	L1	*(*si:m*)*
9.	L3	*Theme*
10.	L1	*(*si:m*)*
11.	L2	*The topic*
12.	L1	*(*si:m*) ah! (*si:m*) ah yes (*si:m*)... yeah yes=*
13.	L2	*(((*chuckle*)) ((*unintelligible*)) topic = yes (*si:m*) tee- aitch- ((*spells*))...theme...theme*
14.	L3	*(* yes
15.	L2	*(* yeah
16.	L3	*Yeah, theme*
17.	L2	*Okay ... next thing*

(van Lier, 1996, pp. 176–177)

In conversations among equals, people are normally free to take turns, ask questions, and change topics. If you are teaching speaking, it is important to plan activities for small groups or pairs in language classrooms so the learners have a chance to practice these conversational skills without the teacher dominating the discussion.

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, we learned that speaking is the productive oral skill, and we contrasted speech with writing. We noted that speaking a second or foreign language is far from simple. In fact, speaking–especially in a language other than our own–is quite a complex undertaking which involves using all the different levels of language.

This chapter focused on five principles for planning speaking lessons in language classrooms. We examined three transcripts from actual language lessons, ranging from tightly teacher-controlled, to teacher-fronted but conversational, to highly conversational and not under a teacher's control. We also saw that some classroom discourse and some teaching materials do not sound very much like real conversations outside of classrooms. Several teaching strategies were suggested that can be used to help language learners gain practice in speaking in the target language.

Further readings

Bailey, K. M. and L. Savage (eds.) 1994. *New Ways in Teaching Speaking.* Alexandria, VA: TESOL.

This book, written by teachers, provides practical activities for teaching speaking.

Brown, G. and G. Yule 1983. *Teaching the Spoken Language: An Approach Based on the Analysis of Conversational English.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This book helps teachers understand authentic speech. It has fine chapters about teaching speaking and assessing language learners' progress.

Celce-Murcia, M. and E. Olshtain 2000. *Discourse and Context in Language Teaching: A Guide for Language Teachers.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This book has chapters on phonology and on speaking. The text is clearly written and does not require a background in linguistics.

Curtis, A. and K. M. Bailey 2001. Picture Your Students Talking: Using pictures in the Language Classroom. *ESL Magazine, July/August:10–12.*

This brief article gives many practical ideas for using pictures to get language learners to speak.

Legutke, M. and H. Thomas 1991. *Process and Experience in the Language Classroom.* London: Longman.

This book has several good ideas about interaction in classrooms. Chapter 6 discusses role-plays and many other communicative tasks.

Nunan, D. 1999. *Second Language Teaching and Learning.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This book is a good source of principles for understanding how to teach speaking. Chapter 8 elaborates on many of the ideas presented here.

Helpful Web sites

TESOL (http://www.tesol.org)

Visit this site to learn more about teaching English to speakers of other languages. The international TESOL association produces the TESOL Quarterly and the TESOL Journal, both of which should be helpful for teaching speaking classes.

English Language Teaching Journal (http://www.oup.com/elt)

Find abstracts for articles published in this journal, which is both practical and highly readable.

Amerispeak (http://www.amerispeak.com)

This Web site was designed to help non-native speaking professionals communicate successfully in English.

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Chapter **Four**

Reading

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Goals

At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

- ✔ **define** the following concepts central to an understanding of reading: silent reading, interactive models of reading, reading fluency, extensive reading, and intensive reading.
- ✔ **identify** and explain seven key principles related to second language reading.
- ✔ **demonstrate** familiarity with practical classroom techniques for teaching reading.
- ✔ **set** goals for improving your ability to teach reading.

1. What is reading?

Reading is a fluent process of readers combining information from a text and their own background knowledge to build meaning. The goal of reading is comprehension. **Strategic reading** is defined as the ability of the reader to use a wide variety of reading strategies to accomplish a purpose for reading. Good readers know what to do when they encounter difficulties. **Fluent reading** is defined as the ability to read at an appropriate rate with adequate comprehension. Meaning does not rest in the reader nor does it rest in the text. The reader's background knowledge integrates with the text to create the meaning. The text, the reader, fluency, and strategies combined together define the act of reading. See Figure 1 for a representation of the definition of reading.

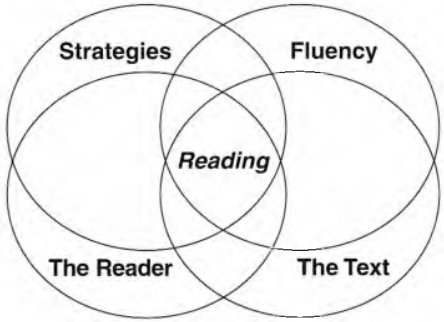

Figure 1 Definition of reading

Notice the overlapping circles. The intersection of all four circles represents reading. This is the point where meaningful reading happens. Grabe (1991) points out the complexity of even defining reading by stating that "a description of reading has to account for the notions that fluent reading is rapid, purposeful, interactive, comprehending, flexible, and gradually developing" (p. 378).

Teaching reading usually has at least two aspects. First, it can refer to teaching learners who are learning to read for the very first time. A second aspect of teaching reading refers to teaching learners who already have reading skills in their first language. You only learn to read once. Once you have learned how to read in one language, you do not learn how to read again in a second/foreign language, but rather you learn how to transfer skills that you have already learned to the new reading context in a new language.

This chapter will focus on the second of these aspects. We will review pedagogical techniques that second language teachers can use to teach learners who are already literate in at least one other language and are learning how to

read in a second (or third) language. The ideas presented here can be adapted for children, teenagers, or adults. Your role as the teacher will be to enhance the learners' reading skills by teaching them to read in their second language.

Reflection

1. Reading is defined as being composed of four elements. What are the four elements?
2. Do you agree with this definition of reading? Why or why not?
3. What are other elements of reading that may have been overlooked?

2. Background to the teaching of reading

Reading is an essential skill for learners of English as a second language. For most of these learners it is the most important skill to master in order to ensure success not only in learning English, but also in learning in any content class where reading in English is required. With strengthened reading skills, learners will make greater progress and development in all other areas of learning.

What is involved in reading? How do we make sense of printed material? These are questions I have had to answer as I prepared to teach ESL/EFL reading. I believe that it is important for me to understand the process of reading so that I can then be better prepared to facilitate the learning of this skill.

Silent reading

Reading is primarily a silent activity. The majority of reading that we do will be done silently. In Western cultures oral reading was the primary practice until the nineteenth century. In about 1880 a debate began on the advantages of silent reading versus oral reading (Allington, 1984). Huey (1908) compiled a summary of the early studies on oral versus silent reading and came out strongly in favor of silent reading. However, today many teachers still believe that oral reading is the best approach for teaching. Let me emphasize here that reading is primarily a *silent* activity. Classroom approaches to teaching reading should emphasize the silent nature of this skill and avoid overemphasis on oral reading.

Different strategies are used when reading orally than when reading silently. Since comprehension is the goal of reading, your primary focus in the classroom should be on getting meaning from print. Make silent reading the goal in your classroom instead of using oral reading.

Reading processes

Understanding the process of reading has been the focus of much research over the past 125 years. Models of how the printed word is understood have emerged from this research (Goodman, 1976; Stanovich, 1980). Understanding what happens from the moment our eyes meet the page to the "click of comprehension" (Samuels & Kamil, 1984, p. 185) has only been researched for the past 50 years. The models can be divided into three categories: bottom-up models, top-down models, and interactive models.

Bottom-up models typically consist of lower-level reading processes. Students start with the fundamental basics of letter and sound recognition, which in turn allows for morpheme recognition followed by word recognition, building up to the identification of grammatical structures, sentences, and longer texts. Letters, letter clusters, words, phrases, sentences, longer text, and finally meaning is the order in achieving comprehension.

A **phonics approach** to teaching reading supports a bottom-up model. This approach is used in many reading series. Many teachers and researchers suggest that for readers to be successful they must be able to break a word down into its smallest parts, the individual sounds. When a reader comes to an unknown word he or she can sound out the word because of the knowledge of the individual units that make up the word. The blending together of the various sounds allows the reader to then move toward comprehension. Teachers must remember that phonics is a method, *not* the goal for teaching reading.

One element of a bottom-up approach to reading is that the pedagogy recommends a graded reader approach. All reading material is carefully reviewed so that students are not exposed to vocabulary that is too difficult or that contains sounds that they have not yet been introduced to.

Figure 2 is a graphic representation of a bottom-up approach to reading. (See Helgesen, Chapter 2, this volume.) The reader begins with the smallest elements and builds up to comprehension of what is being read.

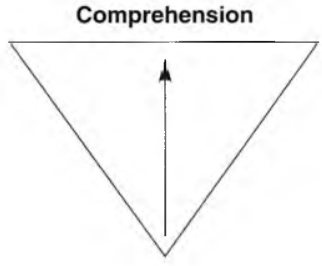

Figure 2 Bottom-up approach to reading

Within a bottom-up approach to reading, the most typical classroom focus is on what we call **intensive reading**. Intensive reading involves a short reading passage followed by textbook activities to develop comprehension and/or a particular reading skill. Most textbooks used to teach first and second language reading using an intensive reading approach.

Top-down models, on the other hand, begin with the idea that comprehension resides in the reader. The reader uses background knowledge, makes predictions, and searches the text to confirm or reject the predictions that are made. A passage can thus be understood even if all of the individual words are not understood. Within a top-down approach to reading the teacher should focus on meaning generating activities rather than on mastery of word recognition.

Goodman (1976), a strong advocate of top-down models of reading, criticizes bottom-up models because the readers become "word callers" who can read the words on the page but do not understand what they have read. Goodman (1976) believes that teachers make learning to read difficult "by breaking whole (natural) language into bite-sized, abstract little pieces" (p. 7). I agree somewhat with him. For example, I can read Spanish and pronounce all of the words that I'm reading, and yet, depending on what I am reading, I may have no comprehension of what I have read.

A meaning-based approach or a whole language approach to reading is supportive of top-down models of reading. Four key features highlight a meaning-based or whole language approach to teaching reading. First, it is a literature-based approach. Books are used which contain authentic language. Readers are exposed to a wide range of vocabulary. Next, whole language is student-centered; the focus is on the individual reader choosing what he or she wants to read. Third, reading is integrated with writing. Classes work on both skills simultaneously. Finally, emphasis is on constructing meaning. The focus should be on meaning and keeping the language whole, as opposed to breaking it down into smaller units. Whole language is a method, *not* the goal.

Figure 3 is a graphic representation of a top-down approach to reading. (See Helgesen, Chapter 2, this volume.) The reader begins with the largest elements and works down towards smaller elements to build comprehension of what is being read.

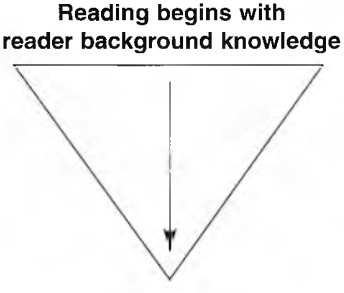

Figure 3 Top-down approach to reading

Extensive reading plays a key role in top-down approaches to reading. Extensive reading can be contrasted with intensive reading. Extensive reading means reading many books (or longer segments of text) without a focus on classroom exercises that may test comprehension skills.

Interactive models of reading

The models that are accepted as the most comprehensive description of the reading process are **interactive models**. This third type combines elements of both bottom-up and top-down models assuming "that a pattern is synthesized based on information provided simultaneously from several knowledge sources" (Stanovich, 1980, p. 35). Murtagh (1989) stresses that the best second language readers are those who can "efficiently integrate" both bottom-up and top-down processes (p. 102).

Figure 4 is a graphic representation of an interactive approach to reading. The reader combines elements of both bottom-up and top-down models of reading to reach comprehension.

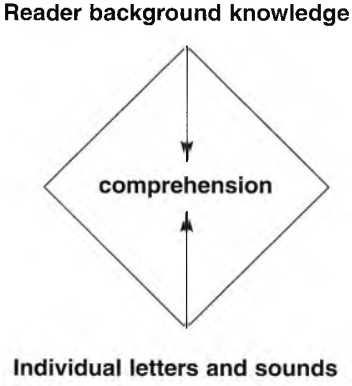

Figure 4 Interactive approach to reading

An interactive approach to reading would include aspects of both intensive and extensive reading. We need to provide learners with shorter passages to teach specific reading skills and strategies explicitly. We also need to encourage learners to read longer texts without an emphasis on testing their skills. Extensive reading provides opportunities to practice strategies introduced during intensive reading instruction.

Teachers should be aware that a single classroom textbook will not meet the needs for both intensive and extensive instruction. Materials will need to be selected that engage the learners in both types of reading.

When I observe my students, I can see that an interactive model is the best description of what happens when we read. Second language readers do many bottom-up things when they read (decode unfamiliar vocabulary, struggle with poor print quality, wonder about a part of speech of a particular word) and they do many top-down things when they read (anticipate what is coming next in the text, draw on their previous experience). My teaching has improved as I have come to understand that reading is an interactive process of both bottom-up and top-down processes.

Reflection

1. Describe the characteristics of a bottom-up reader.
2. Describe the characteristics of a top-down approach to reading.
3. Why is an interactive approach to reading the best description of what happens when we read?

Action

1. There is a problem with the text below. Notice that at the end of each line the last few letters of each word have been left off. In spite of this problem, read and figure out what the passage is about.

Preparing your resume

So, you want to find a job? You're getting close to completing your uni
studies and you are ready to begin the search for employment. Caref
preparation of your resume is the key to successfully landing the job o
your dreams. A resume is a short summary of your skills and abilities. A potential em
reviews your resume to determine whether you are the appropriate pers
hire. Most university graduates do not understand the importance of prep
resume that will present themselves in the best possible light. You must
remember that the resume is the tool that you have to sell yourself as the b
possible candidate for a job opening.

2. What were the top-down and bottom-up strategies you used in the above reading task? Share your answer with others in your class.

3. Principles for teaching reading

1. Exploit the reader's background knowledge.

A reader's background knowledge can influence reading comprehension (Carrell, 1983, Carrell and Connor, 1991). Background knowledge includes all of the experiences that a reader brings to a text: life experiences, educational experiences, knowledge of how texts can be organized rhetorically, knowledge of how one's first language works, knowledge of how the second language works, and cultural background and knowledge. Reading comprehension can be significantly enhanced if background knowledge can be activated by setting goals, asking questions, making predictions, teaching text structure, and so on. If students are reading on an unfamiliar topic, you may need to begin the reading process by building up background knowledge.

An interesting concept to consider related to the role of background knowledge is the negative influence it may have. Incorrect background knowledge can hinder comprehension. For example, some readers may have misconceptions about how AIDS is contracted. Some may believe that you can get AIDS by kissing or swimming in a pool. These misconceptions may interfere with a reading passage on AIDS, and you may have to correct the background knowledge through a prereading activity before reading comprehension can be achieved.

2. Build a strong vocabulary base.

Recent research emphasized the importance of vocabulary to successful reading. (See Nation, Chapter 7, this volume.) As I have developed my own philosophy of the role of vocabulary in reading instruction, I have decided that basic vocabulary should be explicitly taught and L2 readers should be taught to use context to effectively guess the meanings of less frequent vocabulary. I have arrived at my philosophy, in part, by reviewing the research on vocabulary acquisition. Levine and Reves (1990) have found that "it is easier for the reader of academic texts to cope with special terminology than with general vocabulary" (p. 37). They stress the great need for a teaching program that builds general, basic vocabulary.

I have found my own vocabulary instruction enhanced by asking these three questions from Nation (1990, p. 4):

1. What vocabulary do my learners need to know?
2. How will they learn this vocabulary?
3. How can I best test to see what they need to know and what they now know?

3. Teach for comprehension.

In many reading instruction programs, more emphasis and time may be placed on *testing* reading comprehension than on *teaching* readers how to comprehend. Monitoring comprehension is essential to successful reading. Part of that monitoring process includes verifying that the predictions being made are correct and checking that the reader is making the necessary adjustments when meaning is not obtained.

Cognition can be defined as thinking. Metacognition can be defined as thinking about our thinking. In order to teach for comprehension, it is my belief that readers must monitor their comprehension processes and be able to discuss with the teacher and/or fellow readers what strategies they use to comprehend. By doing this, the readers use both their cognitive and metacognitive skills.

Questioning the author, developed by Beck, McKeown, Hamilton, and Kucan (1997), is an excellent technique for engaging students in meaningful cognitive and metacognitive interactions with text and for assisting students in the process of constructing meaning from text. Beck et al. emphasize that this activity is to be done *during* the reading process, *not after* reading. The approach requires that the teacher model the reading behavior of asking questions in order to make sense of what is being read. Students learn to engage with meaning and develop ideas rather than retrieve information from the text. This particular technique is the kind of activity that teachers of reading should engage the class in, rather than asking them to read a passage and then testing reading comprehension of the material. Use of this approach engages the teacher and readers in queries about the text as the material is being read. Examples of queries include "What is the author trying to say here? What is the author's message? What is the author talking about? What does the author mean here? Does the author explain this clearly?" (Beck et al., 1997, pp. 34, 37).

4. Work on increasing reading rate.

One great difficulty in the second language reading classroom is that even when language learners can read, much of their reading is not fluent. Often, in our efforts to assist students in increasing their reading rate, teachers overemphasize accuracy which impedes fluency. The teacher must work towards finding a balance between assisting students to improve their reading rate *and* developing reading comprehension skills. It is very important to understand that the focus is not to develop *speed* readers, but *fluent* readers. I define a fluent reader as one who reads at a rate of 200 words-per-minute with at least 70 percent comprehension.

One focus here is to teach readers to reduce their dependence on a dictionary. Skills such as scanning, skimming, predicting, and identifying main ideas get students to approach reading in different ways. Readers should spend more time analyzing and synthesizing the content of the reading, and not focusing on moving through the passage one word at a time. Part of the joy of reading is being able to pick up a book and comprehend it, without having to struggle through the task of reading.

5. Teach reading strategies.

Strategies are "the tools for active, self-directed involvement that is necessary for developing communicative ability. Strategies are not a single event, but rather a creative sequence of events that learners actively use" (Oxford, 1996). This definition underscores the active role that readers take in strategic reading. To achieve the desired results, students need to learn how to use a range of reading strategies that match their purposes for reading. Teaching them how to do this should be a prime consideration in the reading classroom (Anderson, 1991; Chamot and O'Malley, 1994).

Some of the research that I have done indicates that "there is no single set of processing strategies that significantly contributes to success ..." in second language reading tasks. Strategic reading means not only knowing what strategy to use, but knowing how to use and integrate a range of strategies (Anderson, 1991).

A good technique to sensitize students to the strategies they use is to get them to verbalize (or talk about) their thought processes as they read. Readers can listen to the verbal report of another reader who has just read the same material, and it is often revealing to hear what other readers have done to get meaning from a passage. I use this technique in my reading classes to get students to become more aware of their reading strategies and to be able to describe what those strategies are.

6. Encourage readers to transform strategies into skills.

An important distinction can be made between strategies and skills (Kawai, Oxford, and Iran-Nejad, 2000). Strategies can be defined as conscious actions that learners take to achieve desired goals or objectives, while a skill is a strategy that has become automatic. This characterization underscores the active role that readers play in strategic reading. As learners consciously learn and practice specific reading strategies, the strategies move from conscious to unconscious; from strategy to skill.

For example, guessing the meaning of unknown vocabulary from context can be listed as both a strategy and a skill in reading texts. When a reader is first introduced to this concept and is practicing how to use context to guess the meaning of unfamiliar vocabulary he or she is using a strategy. The use of the strategy is conscious during the learning and practice stages. As the ability to guess unfamiliar vocabulary from context becomes automatic, the reader moves from using a conscious strategy to using an unconscious skill. The use of the skill takes place outside the direct consciousness of the reader. The goal for explicit strategy instruction is to move readers from conscious control of reading strategies to unconscious use of reading skills.

7. Build assessment and evaluation into your teaching.

Assessing growth and development in reading skills from both a formal and an informal perspective requires time and training. Both quantitative and qualitative assessment activities should be included in the reading classroom. Quantitative assessment will include information from reading comprehension tests as well as reading rate data. Qualitative information can include reading journal responses, reading interest surveys, and responses to reading strategy checklists. (See Brindley, Chapter 15, this volume.)

8. Strive for continuous improvement as a reading teacher.

The quality of the individual teacher is integral to success of second/foreign language readers. Reading teachers need to be passionate about their work. They should view themselves as facilitators, helping each reader discover what works best. Integrating the key principles discussed above can lead to more effective reading instruction in the second language classroom. While research studies conducted as early as the 1960s failed to support a single approach to teaching reading as better than others, it did support the central role of the teacher in students' success in learning to read (Farstrup, 2002). The good reading teacher actively teaches students what to do. To succeed, you need more than classroom tips and techniques: you need to understand the nature of the

reading process (Anders, Hoffman, and Duffy, 2000).

The International Reading Association gathers input from reading educators around the world each year on what the "hot topics" are in reading. For 2002 a hot topic that appeared on the list for the first time was teacher education for reading (Cassidy and Cassidy, 2002). Just because you are a reader does not mean that you are prepared to be a teacher of reading. Aebersold and Field (1997) have entitled their text for teacher education in reading, *From Reader to Reading Teacher.* What a nice title for each of us as we seek to improve our ability to teach reading!

Reflection

1. Which of the principles mentioned in Section 3 are you the most familiar with already? Which are you least familiar with?
2. What is the difference between the terms *strategies* and *skills*?
3. Why does the teacher play such a central role to the success in a reading classroom?

Action

1. Are you aware of a reading passage with which readers may have misconceptions in their background knowledge that would need to be corrected prior to reading? Describe the passage and why readers may have incorrect **schemata**.
2. Select an appropriate reading passage and practice the technique of *questioning the author* on page 75. What do you learn about your own comprehension processes as you read?
3. Read for five minutes and estimate your reading rate. What do you learn about your own rate from this activity?

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

As a new reading teacher over twenty years ago, I struggled to know how to implement reading theory in the reading classroom. I would read chapters like this one that presented a variety of ideas and information on teaching reading. Knowing how to integrate the theory of reading into appropriate classroom practice was my challenge. As I thought about the key elements of reading, I organized a teaching system for reading around the word ACTIVE:

A: Activate prior knowledge

C: Cultivate vocabulary

T: Teach for comprehension

I: Increase reading rate

V: Verify reading strategies

E: Evaluate progress

Activate prior knowledge Prior to each reading passage, it is beneficial to engage the readers in an activity that gets them thinking about what they already know about the topic of the reading. One activity that you could use is called an anticipation guide. The purpose of the anticipation guide is to learn what the readers already know about the topic of the reading. You can ask five key questions about the content of a reading passage based on the reading skill you are trying to develop. For example, if you are trying to develop the readers' ability to make inferences, prepare five inference questions. Before the students read the passage, they read the inference statements and determine whether they agree or disagree with the statement. The students then read the passage and respond a second time to the same inference statements. We expect that the students will not be able to respond correctly to the inference statements before reading the passage. But, after reading the passage, we expect that they will be able to answer the statements correctly. Figure 6 contains a blank anticipation guide that you can use as a model.

Instructions: Respond to each statement twice, once *before* you begin this unit and *again* at the conclusion of the unit.
(Continued on page 80)

Write *A* if you agree with the statement.

Write *D* if you disagree with the statement.

Response before reading	Topic:	Response after reading
	1.	
	2.	
	3.	
	4.	
	5.	

Figure 5 Anticipation guide

Cultivate vocabulary Word webs are a very good activity for building students' vocabulary skills. Begin by writing a key concept in the middle of the chalkboard. Choose a concept that is central to the reading you are about to do. Have the students work individually, in small groups, or as a class in building from the center of the word web by adding other vocabulary that is related to the key word. For example, if the key word is music, students could create a word web similar to the one in Figure 8.

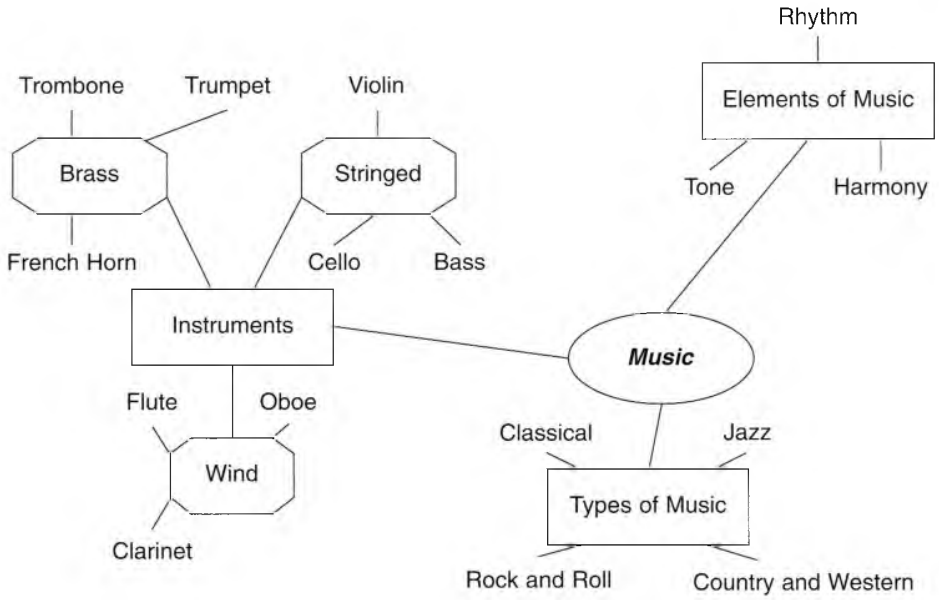

Figure 6 Word web

Teach for comprehension Instead of asking the students comprehension questions after reading a passage, a teacher can model with the class how comprehension is reached. The class reads together and discusses how they are understanding what is written. One of my favorite activities to use is teaching students how to make inferences. The teacher selects a passage that lends itself to making inferences. One of my favorite short stories to use for this activity is *Charles* by Shirley Jackson. The class reads a portion together and the teacher models the inferences that can be made while reading. As the class continues reading together, the teacher asks the students to verbalize the inferences that they are making. Instead of waiting to test students' ability to make inferences after they read, the class works together at making inferences while reading. Short mystery stories lend themselves well to teaching inferences.

Increase reading rate One successful activity is called repeated reading. Students read a short passage over and over again until they achieve criterion levels of reading rate and comprehension. For example, students may try to read a short 100-word paragraph four times in two minutes. As learners participate in repeated reading exercises, they come to realize how this activity is also a tool for improving reading comprehension. They understand more when reading something twice at a faster reading rate than reading it slowly only one time. This activity helps empower second language readers and strengthens their metacognitive awareness of the value of reading rate.

Verify reading strategies Think-aloud protocols in a guided format get learners to identify the strategies that they use while reading. I ask readers to respond verbally to five questions. (1) What are you trying to accomplish? (2) What strategy(ies) are you using? (3) Why did you select this/these strategy(ies)? (4) How well is/are the strategy(ies) working? (5) What other strategy(ies) could you use to accomplish your purpose?

Responses to these five questions allow the readers to share with each other a wide range of strategies available for comprehending reading material. The teacher does not have to generate the list of all appropriate reading strategies. Students can work together under the direction of the teacher in sharing and evaluating strategy use.

Evaluate progress Reading journals are an effective way to evaluate reading progress. Students make a journal entry each day. They respond to different questions based on different areas of focus they are working on in class. One day I may ask the students to engage in a repeated reading activity and then record in their reading journal what they have learned about their reading rate after doing the activity. On another day I may ask the students to do a written protocol and record the strategies they have used while reading during a homework assignment. The reading journal helps the students see the progress they are making in class.

Reflection

1. Why do you think that word webs strengthen vocabulary skills?
2. What is the difference between *teaching* comprehension skills and *testing* comprehension skills?
3. In what ways are journals a tool for evaluating reading development?

Action

1. Create an anticipation guide for a short reading selection of your choosing. Share your work with others in the class.
2. Engage in a repeated reading activity. Mark off a chunk of text of approximately 100 words. Read this chunk four times in two minutes. If you're able to do this, you are reading approximately 200 words per minute.
3. Read a short passage and engage in a think-aloud protocol.

5. Reading in the classroom

Let's now consider how these concepts take effect in the classroom. The reading that follows is a passage from *ACTIVE Skills for Reading, Book 1* (Anderson, 2002). This material is intended for high-beginning level readers in a non-US context.

Before the teacher asks the students to read the passage, the following five true/false questions are addressed (*activate prior knowledge*):

Step 1

1.	Chicken soup is a good remedy for a cold.	____ **T**	____ **F**
2.	Eating chocolate can cause skin problems.	____ **T**	____ **F**
3.	A vegetarian diet is low in protein.	____ **T**	____ **F**
4.	Coffee is better for you than tea.	____ **T**	____ **F**
5.	Bread and potatoes are not fattening foods.	____ **T**	____ **F**

The readers then practice the reading skill of scanning the passage to see if their responses to the true/false questions were correct. Readers are taught

that: *When we read to find information, we move our eyes very quickly across the text. We don't read every word. We don't stop reading when we see a word we don't understand. We look for the information we want to find. This is called 'scanning'.* This reading skill is taught to make sure that readers know how to use the skill of scanning (*teach for comprehension*).

Step 2

Around the world, people have beliefs about certain foods and drinks. Some people think that chicken soup is good for a cold. Others believe that it is unhealthy not to eat meat. The question is, are any of these beliefs true?

Belief: *Chicken soup helps to fight a cold.*

Fact: *For centuries, people have believed that chicken soup is a good cold remedy. Chicken soup contains a special chemical that stops a cold from getting worse. Also, heat from the soup can make a person feel better.*

Belief: *A vegetarian diet is unhealthy.*

Fact: *Meat, especially red meat, contains protein that the body needs. A person who doesn't eat meat can get enough protein and be healthy by eating tofu, eggs, nuts, and certain vegetables.*

Belief: *Chocolate causes pimples.*

Fact: *This is a common belief that is not true! Many researchers say that eating chocolate does* not *cause pimples. More often, the cause is stress or not getting enough sleep.*

Belief: *Tea is better than coffee.*

Fact: *A study in 2002 showed that black or green tea contains substances that can protect your heart, fight cancer, and lower fat in your body. Coffee does not do this.*

Belief: *Foods like bread and potatoes are fattening.*

Fact: *Bread and potatoes do not contain much fat or many calories. Eating too much and not exercising can cause us to gain weight. Also, adding butter or other fattening things to bread and potatoes can raise the number of calories we eat. Now, doctors say that this belief may not be true.*

6. Conclusion

This chapter set out to accomplish four goals. I believe that we have accomplished three of these four goals. We have discussed seven key concepts related to second language reading. You can define the following concepts central to an understanding of reading: silent reading, interactive reading, reading fluency, extensive reading, and intensive reading. You can demonstrate familiarity with practical classroom techniques for teaching reading. The single goal that we have not yet accomplished is having you set goals for improving your ability to teach reading.

What goals do you now have to improve your ability to teach second language reading in the classroom? Reflect back over the content of this chapter and set two to three specific, measurable goals for yourself. These should be goals that you believe could be accomplished within the next six to nine months. Write the goals in a teaching journal you will have regular access to. Share these goals with a colleague, one that you trust and one that you know will help remind you of your commitment to become a better teacher of reading. Use the references listed in the Further Readings section as well as those listed in the References to provide you with background reading on the topics of your goals.

Perhaps the best piece of advice that I can give you as you set goals to improve your teaching of reading is to enjoy what you are doing in the classroom. As ESL/EFL teachers of learners we have opportunities every day to interact with the learners in our classrooms. We can learn more from them than they will ever learn from us. Good luck on your adventure to improve your teaching of reading.

Further readings

Anderson, N. J. 1999. *Exploring Second Language Reading: Issues and strategies.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

The ACTIVE reading framework described in this chapter is outlined in greater detail in this book.

Day, R. R. 1993. *New Ways in Teaching Reading.* Alexandria, VA: TESOL.

This book provides over 100 reading activities appropriate for use in the classroom.

Day, R. R. and J. Bamford 1998. *Extensive Reading in the Second Language Classroom.* New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.

Day and Bamford discuss the importance of extensive reading and describe how teachers can encourage students to do more free reading.

Grabe, W. and F. Stoller 2001. Reading for Academic Purposes: Guidelines for the ESL/EFL teacher. In M. Celce-Murcia (ed.) *Teaching English as a Second or Foreign Language.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

Many teachers need to prepare students to read academic material. This chapter describes how to approach the teaching of academic reading.

Wallace, C. 2001. Reading. In R. Carter and D. Nunan (eds.), *The Cambridge Guide to Teaching English to Speakers of Other Languages.* New York, NY: Cambridge University Press.

This chapter provides additional insights on how to approach the teaching of reading.

Helpful Web sites

Kyoto University Extensive Reading Site (http://www.kyoto-su.ac.jp/information/er)

A helpful site for teachers interested in using extensive reading in their class.

The Reading Matrix (http://www.readingmatrix.com)

An on-line reading journal of interest to teachers.

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Chapter **Five**

Writing

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **understand** the ways in which writing instruction can be built into the ESL/EFL class.
- ✔ **show** confidence in using process approach techniques in the classroom, including quickwriting, brainstorming, word mapping, drafting, and peer review.
- ✔ **identify** suitable assessment options, including writing comments on student work and using written guidelines (rubrics).

1. What is writing?

Writing can be defined by a series of contrasts:

- It is both a *physical* and a *mental* act. At the most basic level, writing is the physical act of committing words or ideas to some medium, whether it is hieroglyphics inked onto parchment or an e-mail message typed into a computer. On the other hand, writing is the mental work of inventing ideas, thinking about how to express them, and organizing them into statements and paragraphs that will be clear to a reader.
- Its purpose is both to *express* and *impress*. Writers typically serve two masters: themselves, and their own desires to express an idea or feeling, and readers, also called the **audience**, who need to have ideas expressed in certain ways. Writers must then choose the best form for their writing–a shopping list, notes from a meeting, a scholarly article, a novel, or poetry are only a few of the choices. Each of these types of writing has a different level of complexity, depending on its purpose.
- It is both a *process* and a *product*. The writer imagines, organizes, drafts, edits, reads, and rereads. This process of writing is often cyclical, and sometimes disorderly. Ultimately, what the audience sees, whether it is an instructor or a wider audience, is a product–an essay, letter, story, or research report.

These contrasts may seem merely like clever or convenient ways to break down the larger concept. In fact, they point to the source of many conflicts and misunderstandings about writing and the teaching of writing.

Reflection

Think about your attitude towards writing. How do you feel when you know you have a writing task to complete? Do you think your attitude towards writing is similar to the attitudes of your students or your future students?

2. Background to the teaching of writing

Concern with the teaching of writing goes back thousands of years. However, up until the early twentieth century, writing instruction was based on a somewhat rigid set of assumptions: good writing was done from a set of

rules and principles, the teacher's duty was to relate these rules, and students then wrote in response to selected written texts, following the rules of good writing. A student essay was then graded for its grammatical accuracy and correct organization as well as its content. This idea is shown clearly in Harvard University's entrance requirements of 1874:

> Each candidate will be required to write a short English composition, correct in spelling, punctuation, grammar, and expression, the subject to be taken from such works of standard authors as shall be announced from time to time. The subject for 1874 will be taken from one of the following works: Shakespeare's *Tempest, Julius Caesar,* and *Merchant of Venice;* Goldsmith's *Vicar of Wakefield;* Scott's *Ivanhoe* and *Lay of the Last Minstrel.* (Cited in Bizzell, Herzberg & Reynolds, 2000.)

In second language writing instruction during this time, as in native language instruction, the "rules of writing" were concerned more with correctness of form over function. In class, students spent a great deal of time in copying models rather than expressing their own ideas creatively. Writing was used to show that students had mastered a particular grammatical rule, rather than had a good idea about the subject matter. In fact, correct spelling, grammar, and overall organization were the most important evidence of second language proficiency. A student's ability to form and write the future perfect tense correctly was seen as evidence of a student's ability to write, and moreover, of the student's overall English ability.

A movement for more progressive writing instruction started in 1911, when the National Council of Teachers of English (NCTE) was founded. The NCTE protested against the American high school curriculum, which they felt was dictated by the large universities, and did not address the needs of the diverse population of high school students across the U.S. However, it wasn't until the 1960s that a broader understanding of writing and the teaching of writing began to take hold in classrooms. Writing instruction began to include the entire process of writing–invention, drafting, feedback, and revision–and not just the **product**.

Second language writing instruction generally included the principles and methods followed in first-language writing classes. However, additional concerns surfaced in the 1960s. ESL/EFL instructors began to recognize that certain writing problems seemed to be related to students' first languages. In 1966 Robert Kaplan introduced the idea of **contrastive rhetoric**, or the comparison of different types of writing in terms of organizational patterns. In his landmark essay, *Cultural Thought Patterns in Intercultural Education,* he claims: "Each language and each culture has a paragraph order unique to itself, and ... part of the learning of a particular language is the mastery of its logical system." (Kaplan, 1966, p. 14)

This idea was represented in a drawing (Figure 1), showing the paragraph structures by speakers of different languages: extensive parallel constructions

in the Semitic group, an indirect approach in the Oriental group, and repeated digressions in Romance and Slavic groups. This illustration is often criticized for being too simplistic and for assuming the English language writing to be *linear* or *normal.* However, it continues to attract attention, and there is a renewed interest in the influence first language has on an additional language (Connor, 1996).

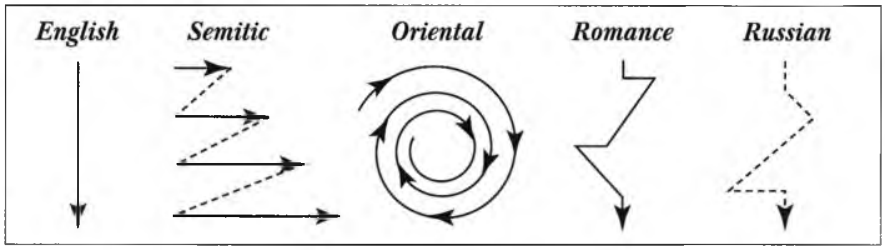


Figure 1 Contrastive rhetoric

Reflection

1. Have you been a student in a writing class? What was your experience like?
2. Could your writing instructors have considered your needs as a learner more effectively? Explain your answer.
3. Do you think Kaplan's contrastive rhetoric model (Figure 1) can help teachers to understand student writing? Explain your answer.

Scholars of first language writing, such as Peter Elbow and Donald Murray, called for teachers to take student writers' needs into consideration. This methodology has been called **expressivism**; in it, students are encouraged to write freely and personally. Writers explore their identities and writing processes in order to take control of their writing. Teachers are seen as "facilitators" who urge students to write without thought to "the rules" of writing. Peter Elbow, for example, encourages a type of writing called **freewriting**, in which students write on any topic they want for a specified period of time (usually about ten minutes), without concern for grammar, spelling, or punctuation. This writing exercise is intended to make students comfortable with the act of writing, and less afraid to make errors and experiment with ideas.

Although many instructors think expressivism has added something important to writing instruction, this approach has had several critics within

ESL/EFL. First of all, in some traditional academic settings, personal writing is discouraged, or at least not required by other disciplines. Students from some cultures will be unfamiliar with this style of writing for school purposes, or see the topics as inappropriate in an academic environment. However, aspects of this process, such as reading responses, journal-keeping, and **quickwriting** (page 97), are more and more common in the ESL/EFL writing classroom.

In the 1970s, interest in cognitive science and the sociology of language broadened writing instruction even further. The psychological processes of composing (see Shaughnessy, 1977), were seen as providing important insights into how students write and learn. In **cognitivism**, critical thinking and problem solving are of greatest importance. In the writing class, students define problems, investigate them thoroughly, and then after presenting their arguments, come to considered and logical conclusions. The cognitivist approach in ESL/EFL classrooms is also evident in aspects of a process approach that encourages brainstorming, drafting, and conferencing among students and with the instructor, in order to work out the substance of writing. Editing and proofreading are seen as a final, and less important stage, in the working out of the written text.

These trends continued into the 1980s and 1990s, when, in ESL settings, concerns for diversity, bilingualism/multilingualism, and political issues informed the teaching of writing. Writers were seen as belonging to "discourse communities," in what was called **social constructionism**. In this view, the language and form of writing arise from the target community. For native speakers in formal educational settings, this often means direct instruction in academic discourse, which in turn integrates them into the academic community. For second-language writers, there is a double burden: to learn the skills that will help them integrate into the new language community as well as into the academic community.

A concrete way in which these concerns took shape was in the formation of Writing Across the Curriculum (WAC) programs. In these programs, students were taught explicitly how to write in different disciplines, understanding that to write an essay for a literature class was a different task, and required a different style and vocabulary, than writing a laboratory report for biology. WAC appeared in second language learning in the form of **adjunct programs**. In these programs, students took "content" courses, such as psychology or political science and also attended adjunct courses, in which the specific writing and language issues related to the content course were addressed.

Most recently, Larsen-Freeman (2000) encourages teachers to adopt some form of **principled eclecticism**. Principled eclecticism encourages instructors to consider carefully the different trends and ideas that have occurred historically, and to choose those that most closely fit the needs of a particular classroom or individual student. In fact, in the writing curriculum, many instructors have done just that for many years.

3. Principles for teaching writing

The following are a few principles that every teacher should consider while planning a course, whether it is a writing course, or a course in which writing will play a part. These principles can (and should) be adapted to the many different learning situations.

1. Understand your students' reasons for writing.

The greatest dissatisfaction with writing instruction comes when the teacher's goals do not match the student's, or when the teacher's goals do not match those of the school or institution in which the student works. It is important to understand both and to convey goals to students in ways that make sense to them. Are the students required to take other courses? If so, which ones? Will those courses require writing? If so, what kind of writing?

This is not to say that your course should only be in service to other courses. However, if your curriculum includes a lot of personal writing, and the students' other courses do not, what is your justification for including this kind of writing? What benefit do you think it has? How do the skills learned in personal writing apply to other types of writing? Answering these questions will help you to find a focus for the writing that is to be done in your class.

1. What are the ways in which you use writing? Make a list (think of everything from shopping lists to research essays) of all the ways in which you use writing.
2. Review your list and think of which could be converted into writing activities. Create one activity related to an item on your list.

2. Provide many opportunities for students to write.

Writing almost always improves with practice. Evaluate your lesson plans: how much time is spent reading or talking about writing, and how much is spent actually writing? My students groan when they see how much writing is required, but I draw an analogy for them: Since writing is in part a physical activity, it is like other physical activities–it requires practice, and lots of it. If someone wanted to become an excellent basketball player, would she read and discuss basketball, or would she go out and shoot some baskets? Just as basketball players play basketball, writers write. However, you can lower the

stakes. Not every piece of writing needs to be corrected or graded. You don't keep score when you're practicing free throws, so teachers shouldn't grade "practice writing." When practice writing sessions are integrated regularly into your syllabus, students will become more comfortable with the act of writing.

Practice writing should provide students with different types of writing as well. Short responses to a reading, journal entries, letter writing, summaries, poetry, or any type of writing you find useful in your class should be practiced in class.

3. Make feedback helpful and meaningful.

Students crave feedback on their writing, yet it doesn't always have the intended effect. If you write comments on students' papers, make sure they understand the vocabulary or symbols you use. Take time to discuss them in class. Be cautious about the tone of your comments. The margins of a paper are small and can force you into short comments. When writing short comments, we tend to leave out the words that soften our message. While you may think, "I'm not sure I understand your point here," the limited space may cause you to write simply, "UNCLEAR" or just "?". Students can see comments such as these as unkind and unhelpful. Feedback need not always be written in the margins. You can experiment with different forms: individual conferences, taped responses, typed summary responses, and so forth.

Finally, feedback should not entail "correcting" a student's writing. In order to foster independent writers, you can provide summary comments that instruct students to look for problems and correct them on their own. So, instead of adding an *-s* to the end of every first person present tense verb, a comment at the end might say, *"There are several verbs that are missing an* -s *at the end. Try to locate and correct these verbs in the next version of this paper."*

With one of the sample student papers on pages 103-105, experiment with written feedback.

1. Find one good idea the student has, and make an encouraging comment about it.
2. Find a place where the student wasn't clear, and write a comment that will help her/him clarify it.
3. Identify a grammar problem, and make a comment that will help the student see the problem in other places in the paper.
4. Which of these was easiest to do? Which was most difficult?
5. What other issues might you comment on in the paper you chose?

4. Clarify for yourself, and for your students, how their writing will be evaluated.

Students often feel that the evaluation of their writing is completely subjective. Teachers often hear, "I just don't understand what you want." One way to combat that feeling is to first develop a statement for yourself about what is valued in student writing, either in your classroom or in your institution as a whole. Some questions you might ask are:

1. On a scale of 1–10, how important is creativity, or originality of ideas?
2. On a scale of 1–10, how important is following a particular written format (such as a research report, book report, letter, etc.)?
3. On a scale of 1–10, how important is grammatical accuracy?
4. On a scale of 1–10, how important is it that the assignment include recently taught material?
5. On a scale of 1–10, how important is accuracy in spelling and punctuation?

Answering these (and other questions that are relevant to your situation) will help you to develop a **rubric**, a kind of scoring grid that elaborates the elements of writing that are to be evaluated. This rubric should outline the weight of grammar and mechanics in relationship to content and ideas, as well as other features of writing that you find important.

There are three general types of rubrics that you can develop for your assignments:

Non-weighted rubric This type of rubric provides descriptions of writing quality by level across other writing criteria. A brief example of this type of rubric would look like the following:

	Excellent	**Adequate**	**Inadequate**
Contents	Description of what would be excellent content	Description of adequate development of content	Description of inadequate content
Organization	Description of superior organization	Description of adequate organization	Description of inadequate organization
Grammar	Statement of level of grammatical accuracy expected	Statement of an adequately grammatical paper	Statement of types of grammatical problems that lead to the paper's inadequacy
Comments: The instructor's general comments on the student's assignment			

Figure 2 Non-weighted rubric

With this type of rubric, the teacher would circle or check the level the student had achieved in each of the three categories, and then provide some written comments on the bottom of the page, or on the student's assignment.

Weighted rubric A weighted rubric is similar to the unweighted one, but it breaks the writing skills into categories and sub-categories. A specific point value is assigned to each. Converting the *organization* element of the non-weighted rubric on page 94 into an element in a weighted rubric might look like this:

> Organization: 10 points
>
> - has a clear introduction
> - has separate paragraphs
> - has a conclusion
> - uses transitions to join paragraphs
> - uses transitions when needed within paragraphs

For each element listed, for example, the instructor might assign up to two points, for the total of ten.

Holistic rubric A holistic rubric describes in general terms the qualities of excellent, good, fair, and unsatisfactory assignments. These descriptions can be tied to grades or stand on their own. The instructor then chooses the description that fits the assignment. An example of one part of a holistic rubric might look like this:

Grade	Description
B	**The 'B' paper shows:** • an ability to interpret and develop ideas in the writer's own words • a clear organizational pattern • vocabulary that is adequate in expressing ideas • generally correct use of punctuation or spelling, although with occasional errors • grammar that is usually accurate, and does not interfere with the reader's understanding

Figure 3 Holistic rubric

Students can help to form a rubric as well. Take class time to ask them what they value in writing. Ask them what features make writing enjoyable to read and what features distract from that enjoyment. This kind of discussion has two benefits: it not only gives students a voice in the evaluation of their own work, it also provides a common vocabulary with which the entire class can discuss their writing and the writing of others. To assist in this discussion, give students a piece of good writing and a piece of poor writing (from a different class than the one they attend, of course). Ask them to state which is the good and which is the poor piece, with an explanation. Then get them to say *why* one piece is good and the other piece is poor. In this way, they generate the criteria for good writing.

Reflection

1. Who are the learners that you are teaching (or imagine yourself to be teaching)? Consider their ages, first languages, academic training and experience, proficiency level in English, and learning goals, both personal and as defined by the curriculum.
2. Given these learners, how will you select writing activities for the class?

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

This section presents a few techniques and tasks you can use to teach writing. All of these techniques are part of what has been called the process approach or **process writing,** although as Kroll correctly points out:

> [T]he "process approach" serves today as an umbrella term for many types of writing courses... What the term captures is the fact that student writers engage in their writing tasks through a cyclical approach rather than through a single-shot approach (2001, p. 220).

In other words, these activities serve to encourage brainstorming, drafting, writing, feedback, revising, and editing in a cyclical fashion. These types of activities encourage the idea that learning to write is more than creating a final product; it is the learning of a series of skills leading to that product.

Invention techniques: brainstorming, wordmapping, quickwriting
Instructors often feel a tension between providing students a topic for writing and allowing students to formulate their own topics. Whichever you decide upon, students will have to come up with ideas to use in their assignment. These ideas will not come fully formed, so it is helpful to provide activities that allow them to "think on paper." In this way, they can develop their thoughts before spending time writing a more formal essay.

Brainstorming can be done individually or in pairs or groups of students. In a brainstorming session, students list all the ideas they can think of related to a topic, either in writing or aloud, quickly and without much planning. If no topic is given, then the student can brainstorm possible topics.

Give students plenty of time for this activity–the most obvious, and sometimes clichéd ideas, come early in the process. When they have time to get past these ideas, more sophisticated and original ideas often surface. From the lists of brainstormed ideas or topics, students can choose those they are most interested in, or feel they can write most proficiently about.

Reflection

1. What is your writing process? Do you make lists, write drafts, work on paper, a computer, etc.?
2. What is the most effective aspect of your writing technique? What is the least effective?
3. How does your technique change, depending on the task you have to complete?
4. How could you use your insights into your own technique to help students write more effectively?

Wordmapping is a more visual form of brainstorming. When students create wordmaps, they begin with an idea at the top or center of a blank piece of paper. They then think of related ideas or words and draw relationships with a series of boxes, circles, and arrows (See Anderson, Chapter 4, this volume).

Quickwriting is where students begin with a topic, but then write rapidly about it. You can give the students a time limit, usually 10 to 15 minutes, and instruct them not to erase or cross out text, to keep writing without stopping, and to just let the ideas and words come out without concern for spelling, grammar, or punctuation. From their piece of quickwriting, they then identify key ideas or interesting thoughts by underlining them. These ideas are then used in the first draft of their essays.

Writing: drafting, feedback, and revising After students have developed their topics and ideas, it is time for them to write their first draft. Ample time should be given for the first draft, and students should be reminded that at this point, they need to focus on the development of ideas and the organization of those ideas more than the development of perfect grammar, punctuation, or spelling.

After the draft is handed in, the instructor can make comments, but only in keeping with the instructions given to students; make comments more on the ideas and organization than on the grammar and spelling. At this point, the instructor can also utilize peer feedback. Students exchange papers and provide each other with comments on the paper's contents. If peer commentary is used, it is best to use some kind of structured feedback form, such as that found in Figure 4.

Peer Comment written by _____ for _____

Read your partner's paper. Answer these questions:

1. Is the introduction effective? Explain your answer.
2. What is the author's main idea? Restate it here:
3. Does the writer support that idea with evidence? What is that evidence?
4. What evidence is missing, or incomplete?
5. What questions do you have about this writing?
6. Is the conclusion effective? How would you improve it?
7. Do you notice any grammar or word choice errors? Underline them.

Give this sheet back to your partner, and then discuss your answers.

Figure 4 Example feedback form for students

After students have received feedback, they then begin the process of revising their papers. Note that students often mistake the idea of revision with "correcting mistakes" (Sommers, 1980), so you should spend time talking about the process of reorganization, developing ideas, and so forth, as separate from editing for grammar or spelling.

Proofreading and editing Before the final draft is turned in for evaluation, students should, of course, read for mistakes in spelling, grammar, punctuation, and so forth. Students can help each other to proofread and edit, although the instructor should keep his/her involvement to a minimum. In developing independent writers, it is important that students learn to proofread and edit on their own as much as possible. And, a teacher should not

correct a student's draft by supplying all the correct forms of words, punctuation, and so forth. Students are often overwhelmed by the large amount of teacher's writing on their papers, and feel paralyzed by what looks like an immense number of "errors."

Although these techniques are presented in a linear fashion, as mentioned in the introduction to this section, any of these steps can and should be performed, or "reperformed" at any stage in the writing process. For example, if a student's essay is not well developed, doing another round of quickwriting or brainstorming may help to further flesh out her/his ideas. And, while spelling and punctuation may not be of prime concern early in the process, students can, and should, make corrections any time they notice them, and not wait until the "last step."

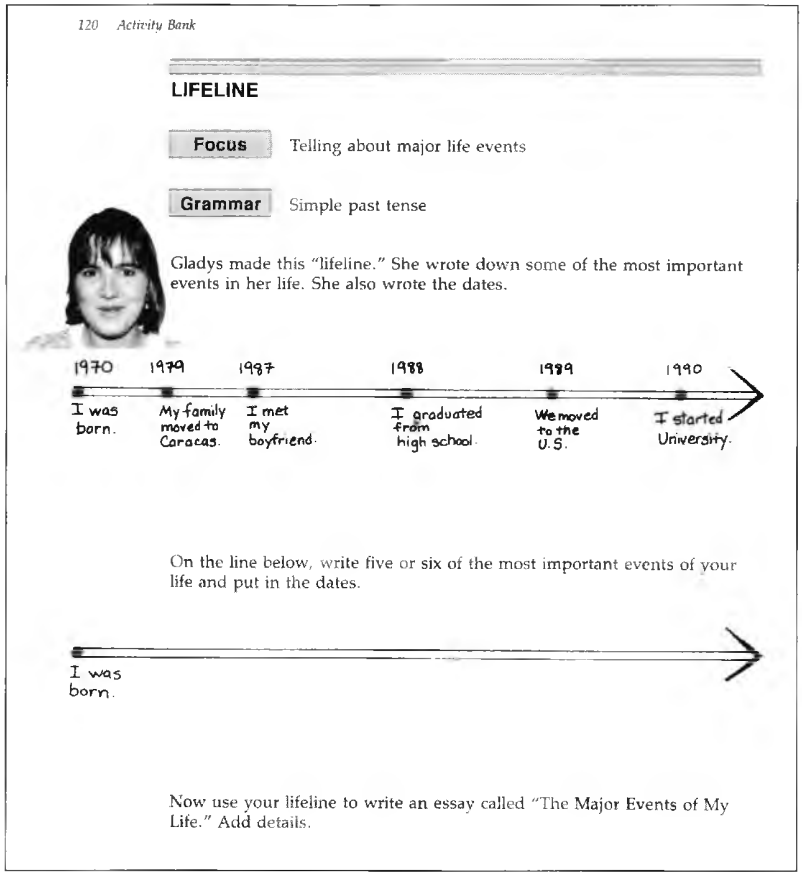
Plan an assignment in which you will ask your students to write a short essay about a favorite musician.

1. Write the steps of the assignment. For example, which of the techniques above will you use to help students through the process?
2. Describe a peer-review and feedback activity.
3. Choose a type of rubric or evaluation method you might use, and explain why you chose that method.

5. Writing in the classroom

In this section, we will look first at exercises from some textbooks that implement the principles described in this chapter. These example exercises come from different levels. We will then look at short samples of student writing, and possible ways to comment on that writing.

Textbook examples



120 *Activity Bank*

LIFELINE

Focus Telling about major life events

Grammar Simple past tense

Gladys made this "lifeline." She wrote down some of the most important events in her life. She also wrote the dates.

1970	1979	1987	1988	1989	1990
I was born.	My family moved to Caracas.	I met my boyfriend.	I graduated from high school.	We moved to the U.S.	I started University.

On the line below, write five or six of the most important events of your life and put in the dates.

I was born.

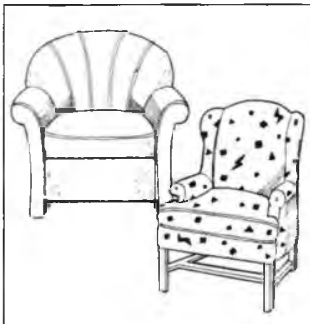
Now use your lifeline to write an essay called "The Major Events of My Life." Add details.

Figure 5 *Writing Workout: A Program for New Students of English,* by Jann Huizenga and Maria Thomas-Ruzic, Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle, 1990, p. 120

Commentary Figure 5 shows how process writing can be integrated into a lower-level class. It uses a variation on brainstorming in which students first create a visual map, in this case a timeline, and write from the details that they first created.

This activity would be best used after the instructions to write an essay. There is also a follow-up activity and the opportunity to rewrite their essay.

Write a follow-up activity that encourages students to revise their "Major Events" essay.



ACTIVITY 2

In this activity, you will have to write a very clear description for your classmates.

Before Writing

A. Study the two pictures of chairs.

Make a list of descriptive details about each one.

_____ _____

_____ _____

_____ _____

Writing

B. Choose one chair and write a description of it. Try to be as clear as possible, but do not compare it to the other chair.

C. Exchange your paragraph with another group's paragraph.

Read the paragraph from the other group. Can you pick out which chair it is describing? Is it number *1* or number *2*?

What parts of the description helped you pick the right one? What parts of the description confused you? Write some comments on the paragraph and then give it back to the group that wrote it.

Revising

D. When you get your paragraph back, read the comments and think about them. Then rewrite your paragraph so it is as clear as possible.

Figure 6 *Ready to Write: A First Composition Text* (Pearson Education Inc., 1994)

Commentary Figure 6 shows again a breaking down of the writing process into steps, beginning with a type of brainstorming list. It also uses peers in the reviewing of the written product. By having a goal, that is, creating a description that someone will be able to use to identify something, there is an added value of having a built-in audience for the writing. Writing projects are often most effective when they have a "real-world" purpose; that is, the audience is authentic. This encourages students to write clearly and with an audience in mind.

1. What *position* will you take toward your subject? Explain your choice.

   - Neutral: A neutral position tells only the facts.
   - Positive: A positive position praises the person for his or her accomplishments.
   - Negative: A negative position condemns the person for the life he or she has led.

   My reasons: _____

2. What part (or events or incidents) of the person's life will you write about?

   From _____

   to _____

   Reasons: _____

3. What topics will you cover?

   Reasons: _____

4. How will you organize your essay?

   - chronologically
   - by theme or main ideas
   - other (explain):

   Reasons: _____

5. What other things are you thinking about for your essay?

   Notes: _____

Figure 7 *Tapestry Writing 4* (Heinle/Thomson, 2000)

Commentary Figure 7 presents a more advanced activity for students' essays. Here, the assignment asks them to write a biography of a person of their choice. However, again, it breaks down the activity by guiding students through a series of topics and questions that help them formulate their ideas.

Reflection

Consider the three textbook samples in Figures 5-7.

1. In what ways are the activities similar?
2. Which do you find would be easiest to implement? Why?
3. Which do you think you would amend in some way? Explain how you would change each of the activities.

Sample student writing

The following are samples of student writing. All essays are reprinted with the students' permission. The first is a paragraph written in response to the question: *Which room in the house is most important?*

Student Essay 1

The most important room in a home is the living room. Because living room is the place where our family joins together. The living room is the place where family watch TV together. The family can only communicate in the living room, we will have no place to see each other. Because when people got off from work or got off from school, people will go back to their bedroom. People will not see each other unless they come out of the room and go through the hall way at the same time. So living room offers a place that members of the family can have entertainment together, and it offers people in the family was doing on that day or recently. And they won't become strangers as the days pass by.

Action

Make a copy of Student Essay 1 and write marginal comments.

1. Identify one grammar element that the student should focus on (but remember not to "correct" the problem).
2. Comment on the main idea; do you think it's a good one? Can it be improved?

What should the writer focus on when he or she revises this paragraph? Give him/her one piece of advice about revision.

The next two essays are from students writing in response to the question: *Should class attendance be required at the university level?*

Student Essay 2

Attendance of University

Most people feel more freedom when they attend at University than high school because students at University can have more flexible time than students at high school. One of the biggest problems to freshmen at University is a time management. Usually, their teachers or parents set up the schedule of students at high school. They spend most of day time at school and last of time to do homework or go to preparatory schools. However, the system of University is different with high schools.

In my opinion, students have to go to school. It does not matter if they go to high schools, Universities, or graduate schools. Why do we have to go to school? We need to learn something from professors who are specialist for some areas. It helps us very much to understand something that we do not know but want to know. For example, if there is a student who takes Mathematics and Native American History, and skips those classes a lot. The Mathematics and History classes are connected every class. So, if a student skips classes, it is very hard to catch up next time.

According to theory X of Mcgregor who is economic psychologist in 20 century, 'Most people are lazy, irresponsible, and work hard only when forced to do so.' I agree with his theory because lots of people reluctant to work if they do not have to do.

Study is not really fun all the time except some people. Also, it is true that we can live without studying. It is an option to go to University. People can study by themselves without going to school because there are plenty of books, videotapes, and other sources to learn. However, going to school means attending classes and studying with professors and other students regularly.

Student Essay 3

Attendance

University students should be require to attend class. Those who attend classes every time they have to, they have more possibilities of passing the class and not only that, but also they are exploring into different things to make sure what your major is going to be the same time they are being mature people which shows how serious education is them.

If you attend class, you will follow up on what the whole class is doing. You are able to do what do all of the assignments, take notes for the final exam. Having a good understanding of what is going on the class it will be easier to do a good work and have a good grade on your mid-terms and finals. The grading part is based on assignments, exams, and participation. Do you think you will get a good grade if you are not attending class and participating. Or what are you going to do when you will need to talk to the professor and the professor does not know you because you have not been attending class. Attending to class is not only about going into a room and sit until the class is dismiss, it can be more than that.

When you attend to class you have the chance to know more of what you want to do or just been introduce to a new thing. If you have the class you wanted, you will enjoy it. But if you don't, give it a chance to know what it is about and maybe you will like it. It is good to explore different things because it will help to make sure what you want to study.

Attending to class is one responsibility that you should take care of because at this time it is expect a lot from you. You are on the stage where you start being independent and responsible of your actions.

Probably you might think that is to much work, but in the reality is not. Put it this way, you will have to work more than you are used and do your best. But all of this hard work will be paid of when you see yourself in stage in front of your family and the people getting your diploma and thinking that you have accomplish one of your many goals.

Reflection

1. How would you describe the main problem with each essay?
2. In Student Essay 2, what piece of advice would you give the writer in order to improve her essay?
3. In Student Essay 3, what piece of advice would you give the writer in order to improve his essay?

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, you have read about the many influences on writing instruction and been introduced to general techniques for writing and evaluating student writing. The most important principle, however, is to learn to adapt any of these ideas to the many different situations in which students write.

Many people falsely believe that writing is a talent that is present in the lucky few, and cannot be taught to the rest. Fortunately for both native speakers and non-native speakers alike, writing is a teachable and learnable skill, and the instructor can play an invaluable role in making this skill an enjoyable one. First, the instructor can help the student understand the **context** of their writing assignments by discussing who the audience is, and what their expectations are.

The instructor also aids the students in understanding the purpose of the writing assignment. Is it to demonstrate knowledge of new vocabulary or grammatical structures? Is it to show creativity in thinking? Is it to report events accurately? Defining the purpose for writing assists students in completing assignments in different contexts.

Finally, helping students understand the process of writing by guiding them through the steps of invention, drafting, review, revision, and evaluation will help demystify writing and make it an important part of their learning of English. In addition, by reflecting on your own experience as a writer, and as a student of writing, you can help illuminate the path that your own students will walk as they become proficient writers of English.

Further readings

Campbell, C. 1998. *Teaching Second Language Writing: Interacting with text.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

Part of the TeacherSource series, this volume tells of the author's development as a teacher of writing. It addresses major issues in the field of writing and leads readers into an examination of their own practices. Teaching Second Language Writing has an accessible style and a strong teaching focus.

Ferris, D. and J. S. Hedgcock 1998. *Teaching ESL Composition: Purpose, process, and practice.* Mahwah, NJ: Lawrence Erlbaum.

Teaching ESL Composition is a practical guide for designing handouts, revision plans, and writing portfolio assessment. It is designed to serve a wide audience of teachers and researchers.

Kroll, B. 2001. Second Language Writing: Research insights for the classroom. In M. Celce-Murcia (ed.) *Teaching English as a Second or Foreign Language.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This collection of articles covers the main issues writing teachers face in teaching ESL/EFL writing. Topics include the composing process, variables in writing performance, instructor response to student writing and student processing of feedback, assessment, and the reading/writing connection.

Leki, I. 1992. *Understanding ESL Writers: A Guide for Teachers.* Portsmouth, NH: Boynton Cook.

This text focuses on the ESL writer as well as the writing product. It examines: the educational and linguistic contexts, the writing behaviors of ESL students, and types of assignments.

Reid, J. M. 1993. *Teaching ESL Writing.* Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall.

This book provides a theoretical and historical basis for the field of ESL writing, from planning and implementing of courses to actual writing activities. It includes discussion of: cross-cultural communication, learning styles and strategies, collaborative learning, and response and evaluation techniques for ESL writing.

Helpful Web site

The Journal of Second Language Writing (http://www.jslw.org)

A refereed journal that features reports of research and discussion of issues in second and foreign language writing and writing instruction. Topics include characteristics and attitudes of second language writers, second language writers' composing processes, features of writers' tests, readers' responses to second language writing, assessment/evaluation and other issues of relevance. Although this journal is not specifically devoted to ESL/EFL, a large number of the articles deal with writing issues and English learners.

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Larsen-Freeman, D. 2000. *Techniques and Principles in Language Teaching,* Second Edition. Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Shaughnessy, M. P. 1977. *Errors and Expectations: A guide for the teacher of basic writing.* New York, NY: Oxford University Press.

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Section **Two**

Exploring language

In this section, we look at four different features of language and how they are taught. These are the different systems of language: the sound system, the vocabulary (or lexical) system, the grammatical system, and finally the discoursal system. The chapters in this section follow the same organizing principle as those in Section 1. The aim of the section is to deepen your understanding of the language systems, as well as to provide practical techniques for teaching pronunciation, vocabulary, grammar, and discourse in the classroom.

You will find a lot of recycling of concepts and ideas within the chapters in this section as well as between this section and Section 1. This is done deliberately to help deepen and enrich your understanding of the ideas and techniques introduced in Sections 1 and 2. Addressing the same ideas from several perspectives mirrors the principle that recycling language items in the classroom enriches second language learners' understanding and mastery of these language items.

Chapter Six

Pronunciation

John Murphy, Georgia State University (USA)

At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- **provide** your own definition of pronunciation.
- **explain** the following concepts: fluency and accuracy, speech intelligibility, segmentals and suprasegmentals, variation in the sound system of English, and influencing factors that impact pronunciation learning.
- **demonstrate** familiarity with practical classroom techniques for establishing openness to change, contextualizing minimal pairs, tracking, using drama techniques, analyzing scripted dialogues, and focusing on vowel sounds in context.
- **understand** and discuss benefits of using gadgets/props and slow motion speaking in the pronunciation classroom.

1. What is pronunciation?

Most people think of pronunciation as the sounds we make while speaking. As speakers of a language, we need to be able to understand each other with relative ease. The pronunciation patterns native speakers use reflect those commonly accepted by particular speech communities. Though most of us think in terms of speech production, the *Longman Dictionary of Applied Linguistics* emphasizes "the way sounds are perceived by the hearer" to define pronunciation (Richards, Platt, and Weber, 1992, p. 296). An emphasis on hearers' perceptions is especially relevant. How we pronounce words, phrases, and sentences communicates to others considerable information about who we are, and what we are like, as people. As language teachers, we need to acknowledge that variation is a central feature of English pronunciation since there are many legitimate varieties of English in a large number of English-dominant countries around the world.

Reflection

1. Name as many countries as you can where English is the dominant language.
2. What are examples of words you have noticed that have different pronunciations as produced by speakers of English from different backgrounds?
3. For language teachers, what variety of English pronunciation do you think should be used in classrooms where English is being taught to speakers of other languages?
4. Can you think of an example of a famous second-language speaker of English who seems to have overcome what used to be a strong foreign accent in English?

2. Background to the teaching of pronunciation

The place of pronunciation teaching in the ESL/EFL classroom has gone through periods of dramatic change over the past 50 years. We can identify at least three primary orientations.

First orientation: 1940s–1950s – "Listen carefully and repeat what I say."

The first orientation depends upon learners' abilities to imitate sounds they hear. Grounded in theories of **behaviorism**, "listen carefully and repeat" lessons challenge learners to mimic, memorize, and in other ways practice language samples to the point of being able to reproduce them automatically. Based upon scripts and dialogues to be memorized, language lessons feature teacher-led presentations of language samples, substitution drills, intensive practice with sentence patterns, and so forth. Throughout these lesson phases, pronunciation practice of language samples serves as a primary medium through which grammar and vocabulary are taught. An implicit feature of such lessons is the expectation that learners will be successful in learning to mimic and approximate their teacher's style of speech.

Reflecting this first orientation, classroom procedures assume that learners with a "good ear" will be able to figure out how to pronounce English through guided exposure to reliable models. A problem is that learners differ in how effectively they are able to really listen to and discern the sound system of a new language. Since beginning learners "hear" the English sound system through the filter of their first language, they may need explicit training in how the sound systems of their first language and of English may differ in both obvious and subtle ways.

Reflection

1. What classroom procedures do instructors use to teach spoken language in foreign language classrooms you are familiar with?
2. What are some of the problems with the assumption that learners with a "good ear" will be able to figure out how to pronounce English well on their own?

Second orientation: 1960s–1970s – "Let's analyze these sounds closely to figure out how to pronounce them more clearly."

The second orientation features explicit presentation, intensive practice with specific sounds, and depends upon learners' mental abilities to make sense of complex descriptions of sounds. Teachers devote considerable time to explicit presentation and practice with the sounds of English, especially individual vowel and consonant sounds. Instruction appeals to learners' analytic

abilities to "learn about" speech sounds, compare features of the sound system of English with features of their native languages, and practice new sounds intensively. The teacher may introduce diagrams, charts, and video clips that depict visually particular locations in the mouth where specific sounds are produced. To be able to introduce and practice an inventory of sounds in class, the teacher may familiarize learners with a listing of symbols to represent individual vowels and consonants sounds–for example, the International Phonetic Alphabet (IPA). Once learners are familiar with the symbols introduced, teachers make the most of this knowledge by using symbols to raise learner awareness of new sounds and to provide feedback on pronunciation. It is worth mentioning that the second orientation is not limited to vowels and consonant sounds alone. Similar explicit attention is given to broader aspects of spoken language such as blendings across word boundaries (e.g., Di**d y**ou ea**t y**et?), word stress, rhythm patterns, and intonation.

Reflection

1. If you have ever taken a foreign language class, how did your instructor teach pronunciation?
2. Are you familiar with the IPA or another set of symbols to represent the sounds of English or some other language? Do you think that the time it would take to learn such a system would be worth the effort?

Third orientation: 1980s and beyond (communicative and task-based language teaching) – "Let's start using these sounds in activities as soon as we can while I provide cues and feedback on how well you're doing."

The third orientation may include brief explanations of how sounds are produced, but shifts quickly to interactive classroom activities that are controlled, guided, and increasingly more extemporaneous in nature. Instruction provides opportunities for learners to use specific features of pronunciation with generous amounts of teacher support. It is an experiential orientation that depends in large part on students' abilities to "learn through doing."

Teachers representative of the third orientation highlight the importance of genuine communication in classrooms. The idea is to involve learners in using targeted sounds and sound patterns as quickly and interactively as pos-

sible. As in the second orientation, the teacher may describe how specific sounds are produced, but technical explanations are kept short and learners are given increased opportunities to begin conversing with one another while using targeted sounds. Classroom tasks are structured for learners to focus on the expression of meaning while teachers listen in, monitor how well their students are doing, and lend support. In such ways, a normal part of the instructional process challenges learners to incorporate new sounds into more extemporaneous opportunities to speak. This process can be accomplished through a four-stage sequence (adapted from Celce-Murcia, 1987):

1. Identify what sounds or sound patterns might be in need of improvement.
2. Find real-world contexts of natural language use with many natural occurrences of the identified sounds or sound patterns.
3. Design communication-based classroom tasks of genuine language use that incorporate the identified sounds.
4. Develop at least three or four tasks that may be used to recycle the focus for instruction while providing new contexts for practicing the target sound patterns.

A further characteristic of this third orientation is that the domain of teaching is expanded to give even greater attention to other features of the sound system than individual consonant and vowel sounds. Attention to such suprasegmental dimensions as word stress, sentence stress, rhythm, and intonation becomes a priority.

3. Principles for teaching pronunciation

1. Foster intelligibility during spontaneous speech.

In earlier decades, a serious flaw of pronunciation teaching was the tendency to teach speech sounds isolated from meaningful content. Contemporary teachers and learners realize that efforts to communicate meaningfully are even more important than perfect pronunciation. Lessons should engage learners in using sounds in more personalized ways and through more spontaneous ways of speaking. Being able to produce sounds in isolation is a far cry from being able to use them intelligibly in connected streams of speech.

2. Keep affective considerations firmly in mind.

Emotions can run high whenever language learners are asked to develop new pronunciation habits. It is essential to realize that pronunciation practice normally takes place in front of other students and a teacher. There are many learners who have what they believe to be very good reasons to resist a teacher's efforts to modify their ways of pronouncing English. Peer pressure often plays an important a role. A learner may fear rejection from classmates if her or his pronunciation begins to sound better than other students' in the room. This is an area in which teachers need to provide learners with generous degrees of affective support.

Reflection

1. As a teacher how can you best address the affective considerations of your students when teaching pronunciation?
2. Have you ever felt embarrassed by something connected with your pronunciation of a second language that happened in a language classroom?

3. Avoid the teaching of individual sounds in isolation.

It is crucial for teachers to embed whatever sounds or sound patterns are the focus of instruction within connected stretches of speech. Other than very brief lesson segments when teachers may introduce a specific pronunciation point for the first time, it is almost always more effective to illustrate and practice sounds within contexts of whole phrases, short sentences, and interactive classroom tasks. Activities that provide opportunities for learners to communicate meaningfully with each other are more interesting, enjoyable, and memorable. In the long run, such activities have more of an impact on enhancing speech intelligibility.

4. Provide feedback on learner progress.

It is important to provide learners with feedback on how well they are doing. Teachers need to support learners' efforts, guide them, and provide cues for improvement. Otherwise, learners may be unaware where they need to place their energies. Such feedback can be provided by you as the classroom teacher, by peers, and through self-awareness training in conjunction with live analysis, video, and/or audio recordings.

5. Realize that ultimately it is the learner who is in control of changes in pronunciation.

Try as we may, teachers are not able to make the changes necessary for improvement in pronunciation to take place. Teachers can provide guidance and practice opportunities, but learners are the ones who are in charge of making any changes that may ultimately take place. Morley (1994) speaks of the pronunciation teacher as a "language coach" who "supplies information; gives models from time to time; sets high standards; provides a wide variety of practice opportunities; and supports and encourages the learner" (p. 89).

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

Here are a few of the more popular activity types and teaching strategies today's teachers use in order to teach pronunciation.

Openness to change Spending some time building learners' self-confidence and attending to their emotional needs as speakers of a new language is especially important at the start of a course. One way is to give learners opportunities to voice what they believe to be their strengths as speakers of English. Alternatively, teachers can ask learners to discuss problem areas and frustrations. By giving learners a chance to vent their frustrations, a teacher demonstrates concern for emotional needs. Laroy (1995) suggests asking learners to speak in their native languages while mimicking a native English speaker's way of pronouncing their own language. If all students are from the same background, their teacher can hand out a few brief dialogues written in the students' native language. In small groups students may be asked to imitate the speech of an English speaker performing the dialogues. Later, the class can participate in a discussion of what it is like to listen to non-native speech patterns. The point can be made that some of the exaggerations students use to mimic the speech of English speakers in their own language may be put to good effect in learning to pronounce English forms well.

Contextualized minimal pairs One of the oldest techniques in pronunciation instruction is to teach students to distinguish between specifically targeted sounds, stress patterns, or intonation patterns through the use of minimal pairs (for example, two words which differ from each other by only one distinctive sound and which also differ in meaning). Simple pictures or drawings can be designed to provide practice in learning to distinguish such minimal pairs as: pen/pan, man/men, hand/ham, etc. In the most familiar examples the vowel sounds in words such as "bat" and "bet" may be contextualized as follows:

That's a heavy bat. (Show a picture of a baseball player in a baseball stadium.)
That's a heavy bet. (Show a picture of a gambler in a gambling casino.)

Using the examples provided above as models, compose five additional sets of minimal pair words. For each set, also include accompanying descriptions of pictures for distinguishing each member of the five sets.

Gadgets and props Rubber bands, balls that bounce easily, and kazoos may be used in pronunciation classrooms to call attention to word stress, sentence stress, rhythm patterns, and features of intonation. For stress patterns at either word level or sentence level, students can be taught to stretch rubber bands dramatically to illustrate the prominence of specific syllables. Rubber balls may be used for similar purposes to illustrate words that are stressed at sentence level. By bouncing or tossing a rubber ball from hand to hand, a speaker can call attention to word stress at sentence levels. Kazoos are useful to illustrate some of the distinctive intonation contours of English sentences since "humming" a sentence into a kazzo strips away most linguistic information except the sentence's musical quality. To focus on word stress with the aid of a rubber band, place both index fingers inside the band and stretch its ends apart by pressing your fingers in opposing directions. As depicted below, the four syllable word "education" has primary (or main) stress on the third syllable and just a bit of secondary stress on the first syllable.

Ed u **CA** tion

To illustrate the word's stress pattern, the teacher says the word aloud while simultaneously stretching the rubber band slightly in coordination with the first syllable but much more dramatically for the word's third syllable. Students may be taught to analyze words on their own, and to practice saying words while stretching rubber bands, bouncing rubber balls, or humming into kazoos in coordination with their pronunciation of stressed syllables.

Slow motion speaking A way to build fluency with more accurate pronunciation is through "slow motion speaking" (SMS). To introduce SMS, the teacher models to learners how to deliberately slow down one's speech. Then, learners are given a brief excerpt of scripted language to practice aloud. Once familiar with the sample, they are asked to say it aloud along with their teacher while the teacher pronounces the excerpt in a highly unnaturally slowed-down manner. The idea is for the teacher to be slow, deliberate, and exaggerated in her or his way of slowly moving the tongue and lips

while maintaining accurate sound articulation, rhythm, intonation, and pausing patterns. SMS permits learners to view close up, and to imitate, the teacher's way of producing specific sounds in context.

Tracking Tracking begins with students analyzing written transcripts of English–as produced by native speakers–for which video or audio recordings are available. Either commercially produced ESL/EFL materials or transcripts from off-air recordings of television or radio shows may be used. (Transcripts for many TV talk shows are easily available at low cost.) It is important to select a recording covering a topic accessible to learners. Once learners are familiar with the transcript and know the material well, the video or audio recording is played for students and they are asked to say the material aloud while speaking along with the recorded voices. The process of working closely with such materials can continue for as long as learners find the material useful. One of tracking's distinctive features is that language learners are not being asked to repeat after the recorded voices. Rather, their challenge is to try to say the words presented in the transcript concurrent with the voices they are listening to.

1. What are some resources you are aware of that could be used as source materials for tracking activities? While working alone, create a list of five such resources. Then, share your list of five resources with the other members of the class.
2. Make a VCR recording of a television talk show and write away for a transcript of the show. Once you have the transcript, locate a five to ten minute segment that would be suitable for in-class use.

Techniques from drama and theater arts Another source of interesting pronunciation work is working with brief excerpts from popular plays and screenplays. There are numerous scenes from Neil Simon's *The Odd Couple,* Joseph Kesselring's *Arsenic and Old Lace,* and Thornton Wilder's *Our Town* that are useful in pronunciation classrooms. Instruction can be structured in ways similar to how an actor might work during rehearsal for a performance. Teachers can provide tips on body language, tempo of speech, pitch range, and so forth. Handman (1978) and Schulman and Mekler (1984) provide edited collections of scenes from movies and screenplays that are especially helpful when working with ESL/EFL learners. Also, the Internet is a valuable resource since it provides complete screenplays for thousands of movies in the public domain. (See the Web site, http://www.iscriptdb.com.)

Dialogue and pattern practice

This extract is taken from an EFL university setting in Latin America. At the time, the students were starting the second semester of a two semester, first-year English course. *T* stands for teacher. *S* represents a particular student. *Ss* stands for students.

Extract 1

(The teacher asks students to read through the following dialogue.)

A: *Hi, Sarah. Sorry I haven't called you. I've been really busy.*

B: *Me, too.*

A: *How about a game of tennis?*

B: *I'm afraid I can't play this week. My arm's hurting again.*

A: *Oh, is it? I thought it was better.*

B: *Well, it was. But I played on Saturday, and it started hurting again.*

A: *What a shame!*

B: *Well, yes, in fact, I've been feeling pretty bad all over. My . . .*

A: *Well, maybe next week? I've got to run. Bye.*

B: *Yes, umm. Okay. Bye.*

[Dialogue adapted from Richards, Gordon, and Harper, 1987, p. 49.]

(The teacher begins the lesson)

T: *Okay, everyone, please close your books. Listen carefully and repeat after me, "Hi, Sarah."*

Ss: *"Hi, Sarah."*

T: *"Hi, Sarah."*

Ss: *"Hi, Sarah."*

T: *Great, now try this one. "Sorry I haven't called you."*

Ss: *"Sorry I haven't called you."*

T: *"haven't called you."*

Ss: *"haven't called you."*

T: *"Sorry I haven't called you."*

Ss: *"Sorry I haven't called you."*

TT: *Okay, now just the right hand side of the room: "Sorry I haven't called you."*

(**Ss** from the right-hand side): *"Sorry I haven't called you."*

T: *Now those seated on the left: "Sorry I haven't called you."*

(**Ss** from the left-hand side): *"Sorry I haven't called you."*

T: *Maria, you try this one: "I've been really busy."*

Maria: *"I've been really busy."*

T: *..."been really busy"*

Maria: *"been really busy"*

These communication patterns continue for about twenty minutes until all of the lines from the dialogue have been practiced repeatedly. The teacher shifts between whole class responses and individual responses. At times, the teacher gestures to divide the class into four quadrants, and alternates work with individual quadrants at a time.

Analyzing the dialogue first

Now let's see how a different EFL classroom with a different teacher in the same general setting teaches the same dialogue material.

Extract 2

T: *Please read through this selection carefully. Pick out any of the words that are of two or more syllables. Try to figure out which of the syllables receives primary stress.*

(Over the next few minutes students identify words such as *busy*, *about*, *tennis*, *afraid*, *again*, *Saturday*, *pretty*, *maybe*.)

T: *Okay, now for each of those words, I want you to work with a partner and try to identify which syllable is the primary-stressed syllable.*

(Students begin to complete this task in small groups of two or three students. Several times, one or more students will ask the teacher to say a word aloud for them to hear while isolating the stressed syllable.)

After about three minutes the teacher says to the whole class:

T: I see most of you are finished. Of the words you identified, which of the two or more syllables receives a primary stress in the individual words?

S1: *"Maybe," on the first, "may"*

T: *Yes, good.*

S2: *"Saturday," the last, on "day"*

S3: *No, not on "day."*

T: *Who can show us where on "SATurday"?*

S1: *"Sat" "SATurday"*

T: *I agree. Yes, it's on the first syllable.*

(This lesson phase continues for several minutes.)

T: *Now, let's read through the selection together, using slow motion speech.*

(Students and teacher do this together as a whole class.)

T: *Arrange yourselves into pairs. Each of you takes a different part of the dialogue. But when you perform it, I'd like you to whisper only. Do the whole text several times if you can, in a whisper.*

(The whispering activity continues for three minutes.)

T: *Okay, now that you are familiar with the material, I'd like you to take the script and do some more analysis of the language presented there. Take out a pencil and underline any words that you feel should receive some emphasis when the line is delivered. Do this individually, and then we will work in small groups to compare notes in a few minutes. For example, where do you think the emphasis should be placed in the following line? "But I played on Saturday, and it started hurting again."*

(Following the teacher's illustration, students begin to work together. After about ten minutes, the teacher projects the same script on an overhead projector. A whole class discussion begins about sentence-level stress locations.)

Commentary This teacher has used dialogue material in ways quite different from "repeat after me" pattern practice. Students have examined individual words carefully, identified the number of syllables in words, and determined the location of primary-stressed syllables. They have also practiced slow motion speaking, while growing more familiar with the materials. The final task required students to further analyze the language sample, first during individual work, and then within the context of interactive discussion with the whole class.

Focus on vowel sounds

Extract 3 is from an intermediate level ESL classroom at a community college in the United States. It's near the beginning of the course.

Extract 3

(The teacher projects an overhead of Figure 1. Simultaneously he distributes a copy of the same figure to everyone in the class.)

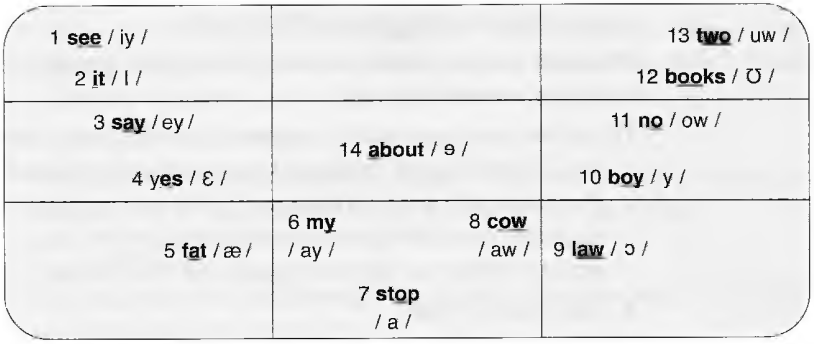

Figure 1 Symbols for 14 vowel phonemes with corresponding numbers and key words (Modified from Morley, 1979, p. 116)

T: *What you see here is a set of words that depicts the 14 major vowel sounds of English. We will be working with these sounds in a number of different ways throughout the course. For today, I would like you to start tuning your ear to how the various sounds are produced.*

S: *There are so many. Too many.*

T: *Well, yes, there are quite a few. But notice that there are only 14. It doesn't go on forever. Listen to me as I say all of the words in order. "See, it, say, yes, fat, my, stop, cow, law, boy, no, books, two, about."*

(The teacher does this three times as the students watch and listen.)

T: *Okay, now I am going to say a single word, and all I want you to do is to tell me what number it is. "Yes," I love to say "yes" to everyone as often as I can.*

Ss: *Number 4*

T: *That's good. How about "see," can you "see" it there?*

Ss: *Number 1*

T: *"Boy." Look at that "boy" out there across the street (*pointing out the window*).*

Ss: *10.*

T: *Okay, I think you have the idea. Now, in pairs, try to do what I have just been doing. You can both look at the chart. One of you says one of the words, and puts it into a short sentence. All your partner has to do is to tell you what number goes with that word.*

(Students begin to work in pairs. They follow the teacher's model. This continues for several minutes.)

T: *Let me get everyone's attention. Now this time, I am not going to give you a whole word. Instead, I'll just isolate the individual vowel sound. But your task will be the same. I give you a sound, and perhaps an example word different from the ones on the chart, and you tell me which number on the chart goes with that sound.*

T: */aw/, like in "how"*

S: *number eight*

T: */ɛ/, like in "head"*

S: *number three*

T: *Well, that's close, but it's not three. Can someone else try it?*

S: *number four*

T: *Yes, /ɛ/, like in "head" is number four.*

T: *How about /ɔ/, as in "tall?" That child is very "tall" for his age.*

S: *That's number nine.*

(The teacher continues working with the class, providing individual vowel sounds, example words, and short sentences to contextualize the sounds until all 14 of the vowels have been illustrated at least three times each.)

T: *Now, taking the 14 words you have in the chart, see if you can make phrases or sentences with those words. You can add additional words if you'd like, but your sentences need to have at least two of the words from the chart.*

S: *"Say yes."*

T: *"Say yes," that's a good example. That phrase uses vowel numbers 3 and 4. I like to "say yes" as often as I can. Sometimes you can get into trouble if you "say yes" to things you really do not want to do. Who has another example?*

S: *"See my books."*

T: *Hey that's great. "See my books." So those would be vowel sounds 1, 6, and 12. "See my books" over there. Can you bring them to me? Can you "see my books?" 1, 6, 12. How about something else?*

S: *"See my fat boy."*

T: *Now you've got four words together. "See my fat boy." I guess that is not a very nice way to talk about a child. "See my fat boy." Those are vowel numbers 1, 6, 5, 10.*

S: *There's "no law" here.*

T: *Great! Yes, that is the idea, you can add other words to make a more complete idea. You used numbers 11 and 9, "no" and "law."*

S: *"Cow boy"*

T: *Okay, I used to like to watch "cow boy" movies when I was a kid. Do you like "cow boy" movies?*

S: *No, I like action movies.*

T: *Which of those words do you think the "act-" in "action" rhymes with?*

S: *"fat"*

T: *Good, "fat," so that's number 5.*

(This activity continues for a total of twenty minutes as the class grows accustomed to associating vowel sounds with the numeric conventions the teacher presented.)

Commentary This teacher has decided it will be worthwhile to familiarize students with individual vowel sounds and with related phonemic and numeric symbols. Not all teachers of pronunciation make such a commitment. An advantage is that once the system is familiar to students, everyone in the class has a common vocabulary for talking about vowel sounds. Notice that the teacher avoids introducing individual sounds one at a time. Instead, he works with a large inventory of the vowel sounds within a single classroom activity. From the start of the activity, the sounds are embedded in whole words, short phrases, and sentences. The principle is to present sounds in context and to provide opportunities for students to learn sounds in connected streams of speech.

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, I set out to define pronunciation and describe the role it plays in the teaching of English to speakers of other languages. Some teachers assume that learners will learn to pronounce English well with little or no direct instruction. Other teachers give extensive attention to aspects of pronunciation teaching. The best of contemporary language teaching incorporates attention to pronunciation in ways compatible with **communicative language teaching** and task-based approaches to language teaching and is, therefore, sensitive to learners' real world needs. In the chapter, I introduced some of the fundamental concepts, techniques, and resources in pronunciation teaching. My definition of pronunciation highlights the fact that listeners' perceptions play a critical role. Pronunciation is more than precise enunciations of individual vowel and consonant sounds, but includes broader dimensions of spoken language such as speed of speech, tone, pausing patterns, intonation, and even the use of our whole bodies as complementary tools for getting spoken messages across. The chapter treats some additional topics such as fluency and accuracy, speech intelligibility, segmentals and suprasegmentals, and variation in the sound system of English. Some of the classroom techniques include ways of establishing openness to change, contextualizing minimal pairs, tracking, analyzing written transcripts, and focusing on vowel sounds in context.

Further readings

Celce-Murcia, M., D. Brinton, and J. Goodwin 1996. *Teaching Pronunciation: A Reference for Teachers of English to Speakers of Other Languages.* New York: Cambridge University Press.

This book is possibly the best teacher resource in the area of pronunciation.

Dalton, C. and B. Seidlhoffer 1994. *Pronunciation.* Oxford: Oxford University Press.

Designed for either self-study or use in a teacher development course, this book features over 130 projects/tasks to develop awareness and skills in pronunciation teaching.

Laroy, C. 1995. *Pronunciation.* Oxford: Oxford University Press.

This resource is filled with imaginative ideas and suggested activities for teaching pronunciation.

Murphy, J. M. 1991. Oral Communication in TESOL: Integrating speaking, listening & pronunciation. *TESOL Quarterly,* 25(1):51–75.

John Murphy presents an organizing framework for integrated instruction in this area.

Helpful Web sites

Dave's ESL Café Web Guide for Pronunciation (http://www.eslcafe.com)

This site has a rich source of annotated pronunciation links.

IATEFL Pronunciation SIG (http://www.wlv.ac.uk/~le1969/psig)

Monitored by the special interest group of the International Association of Teachers of English as a Foreign Language, this site has valuable resources about pronunciation (links, articles, bibliographies, and information about a newsletter).

Pronunciation Web Resources (http://www.sunburstmedia.com/PronWeb.html)

Provided by Marsha Chan, this site links to an impressive array of resources.

Supports for Pronunciation Teaching (http://www.gsu.edu/~esljmm/ss/furtherreading.htm)

John Murphy's site is where to go if you want to learn more about this area.

TESOL Speech and Pronunciation Interest Section (http://www.public.iastate.edu/~jlevis/SPRIS)

This site contains information about pronunciation issues, resources, activities, articles, and links to relevant sites.

References

Celce-Murcia, M. 1987. Teaching Pronunciation as Communication. In J. Morley (ed.) *Current Perspectives on Pronunciation.* Washington, DC: TESOL.

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Chapter **Seven**

Vocabulary

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **provide** your own definition of the term vocabulary.
- ✔ **distinguish** the different types of vocabulary (high frequency, academic, technical, low frequency) and describe how a teacher should deal with them.
- ✔ **describe** the strands of a well-balanced course and the conditions they require to be effective for vocabulary learning.
- ✔ **help** learners apply a range of effective vocabulary learning techniques and strategies across the four learning strands in a language course (meaning-focused input, deliberate learning, meaning-focused output, and fluency development).

1. What is vocabulary?

Before we do anything else, we need to decide what should be considered as vocabulary in a language course.

Reflection

If you were counting words that your learners needed to learn, what would you consider?

- *What are words?*

  Do you consider the names of people—*Elizabeth, Philip, Charles, Anne*—to be vocabulary? What do learners need to learn about them?

  Should the names of products like *Pepsi, Vim, Big Mac, and Toyota* be counted as part of a learner's vocabulary?

- *Are the words in italics the same words or different words?*

  Should *neutral* as in *neutral gear* be counted as the same word as *neutral* as in a *neutral country*?
  Should *government* be counted as the same word as *govern*?
  Should *hard work* be counted as a part of *hard* or *work* or as a separate piece of vocabulary?

Multiword units

Words are clearly vocabulary, but what about groups of words like *absolutely fantastic, at once, in a minute, portable TV, the United States of America*? If learners want to use language fluently and want to sound like native-speakers, they need to be able to put words together quickly in typical combinations (Pawley and Syder, 1983). Research on very large collections of language use like the British National Corpus show that although there are many possible ways of putting words together, language users have preferred ways of doing this (Kennedy, 1992). That is, we typically say *There's no answer* rather than *There isn't an answer, heavy rain* rather than *severe rain,* and *take medicine* rather than *have medicine or drink medicine.*

There are many ways of learning these typical combinations including deliberately learning them as units, deliberately searching for them in texts, learning the patterns they are based on, and picking them up incidentally through large quantities of language input. For people beginning to learn a language, Palmer (1925) noted that "the most fundamental guiding principle [for] those who are anxious to be proficient in foreign conversation ... is this: *Memorize perfectly the largest number of common and useful word-groups!*"

As a way of quickly developing **fluency** and of picking up native-like expressions, groups of words should be learned as units. This learning is made easier in most cases if the meanings of the single words that make up the multiword units are also understood. It is thus useful to see vocabulary as also including multiword units. A useful starting point for learning such units is Crabbe and Nation's survival vocabulary (Crabbe and Nation, 1991).

Word families

Do we count different forms of the same word as different words? Researchers need to count words to answer questions like: How many words do you need to know in order to read this book? How long is this book? How fast do people speak? How many words does a five-year-old native speaker know? How many words can you learn in week? What is a suitable vocabulary learning goal for a first-year English course?

One way of counting words is to count running words or tokens. That is, each word is counted one after the other and even if the same word form occurs again it is counted again. So the previous sentence to this one contains 23 tokens and several of these tokens are the same words – *is, the, counted, word, again* – occurring more than once.

Another way to count words is to count different forms or types. So a page of tokens will consist of a smaller number of types. But this means that words like *goal* and *goals* will be counted as different types. When learners know some of the basic word building patterns of English, particularly plural, past tense, present tense, stem+*ing,* stem+*ed,* possessive, it is more sensible to count word families than to count word types. That is, it is more realistic to count *walk, walks, walked, walking* as one **word family**. There are occasional exceptions to this, like *being* and *beings, hard* and *hardly* where the meanings differ more than that involved in the affixes, but usually counting the word family better represents the receptive learning burden of the words.

Example

Word families from the first 1000 most frequently used words of English

Agent	Agree	
agencies	agreed	disagree
agency	agrees	disagreeable
agents	agreeing	disagreed
Ago	agreement	disagreeing
	agreements	disagreement
	disagreements	disagrees

Core meanings

So far we have looked at multiword units and word families. The last issue we will consider in deciding what is counted as vocabulary is meaning. If we look at an entry for a word in a dictionary, we will find several different senses of the word listed. For example, the entry for neutral in the COBUILD dictionary lists the following senses:

Example

Neutral

1. *a country that does not officially support either side in a war*
2. *a position not supporting either side in an argument*
3. *not showing emotions or preference*
4. *a neutral voice does not show emotions*
5. *not causing change because is equal on both sides*
6. *a position between the gears of a car*
7. *neutral wire—not earth or positive*
8. *neutral color*
9. *neutral atomic particles neither positive nor negative*
10. *neither acid nor alkali*

Reflection

What is similar in the ten senses of *neutral* outlined above? Do you consider them to be different words or just different, closely related uses of the same word?

If we look closely at these senses we can see that they all share a common **core meaning**–something like "not taking a particular side or position." When teaching and learning vocabulary, it is important to draw attention to this core meaning because this reduces the number of items the learner has to cope with, provides access to a wide range of uses, and often contrasts with the first language of the learners. This contrast can be seen as one of the educational values of foreign language learning in that it shows learners that different languages organize the world in different ways.

When we look at the important vocabulary teaching principles, these ideas of multiword units, word families and core meanings will be touched on again. We have seen that there are arguments for teaching related uses, related forms, and multiword units made from known items as part of a larger

word family. This is particularly useful for **receptive** learning. For **productive** use, distinctions may need to be made.

2. Background to the teaching of vocabulary

Vocabulary teaching and learning must fit into the broader framework of a language course. One way to make sure that there is a balanced range of learning opportunities is to see a language course as consisting of four strands. They are as follows:

1. learning from meaning-focused **input**–learning through listening and reading
2. deliberate language-focused learning–learning from being taught sounds, vocabulary, grammar, and discourse
3. learning from meaning-focused output–learning by having to produce language in speaking and writing
4. developing **fluency**–becoming quick and confident at listening, speaking, reading and writing

Distinguishing the strands means that there is a balance of deliberate learning and incidental learning, of learning from input and output, of learning through oral and written skills, and of learning and fluency development.

These four strands apply for all aspects of a language course, and possibly most kinds of learning, but here we will only look at vocabulary.

Learning from meaning-focused input

The "learning from meaning-focused input" strand involves learning from listening and reading. For vocabulary learning to occur in this strand, learners need to know 98 percent of the running words already. That means that, at most, there should be only one unknown word in every fifty running words (Hu and Nation, 2000). This one unknown word in fifty is something that can be learned through guessing from context and which does not stop comprehension of the text.

The learning from input strand needs to be present even in the early stages of language learning, and so it is essential that learners have access to simple written and spoken texts. Graded readers are the most important source of these.

Deliberate learning

The deliberate learning strand is sometimes called form-focused instruction, language-focused learning, or language study. It involves paying deliberate attention to language features such as sounds, spelling, vocabulary, grammar, or discourse that are presented out of context. The most obvious deliberate learning technique is learning new vocabulary by memorizing their first language translations.

Like the other strands, no more than 25 percent of the course time should be given to this particular strand. It is an essential strand of a course but it should not overwhelm the other strands.

Learning from meaning-focused output

The "learning from meaning-focused output" strand involves learning through speaking and writing where the learners' main attention is on communicating messages. It may seem a little strange to see the **productive** skills as sources of vocabulary learning, but using vocabulary productively can strengthen learning and can push learners to focus on aspects of vocabulary knowledge that they did not need to attend to when listening and reading (Swain, 1985). For example, when having to say that someone took their medicine, the speaker has to choose the right verb–do people *eat, drink,* or *take medicine*? When listening and reading, no such decision has to be made.

Corson (1997) argues that **academic vocabulary** needs to be learned both receptively and productively because being able to produce it is one way of showing that you are part of a particular **discourse community**.

Fluency development

Vocabulary must not only be known, it must be readily available for use. The fluency development strand of a course aims at helping learners make the best use of what they already know. It is important to see fluency as being related to each of the four skills of listening, speaking, reading, and writing with fluency needing to be developed independently in each of these skills. Fluency development activities should involve only known language items (there should be no unknown vocabulary or grammatical features), should be message-focused, should involve substantial quantities of input and output, and should involve some pressure to perform faster than usual.

Classify these teaching techniques into the four learning strands in a language course given below. Add five more techniques from this chapter and from your experience.

Four learning strands

Meaning-focused input; Deliberate learning; Meaning-focused output; Fluency development

Teaching techniques

1. Intensive reading
2. Learning word parts
3. Speed reading
4. Listening to stories
5. Listening to morning talks
6. Reading easy graded readers
7. Extensive reading
8. Prepared writing
9. Strategy training
10. Communication activities with written input

3. Principles for teaching vocabulary

Learners see vocabulary as being a very important part of language learning and one of the difficulties in planning the vocabulary component of a course is making sure that it does not overwhelm other essential parts of the course. The best way to avoid this is for the teacher and course designer to have a set of guiding principles that can be applied in a variety of teaching and learning situations. These can then be applied in courses where there are parts of the course deliberately set aside for vocabulary development, or in courses where vocabulary is dealt with as it occurs in skill-focused or content-focused lessons.

1. Focus on the most useful vocabulary first.

Some words can be used in a wide variety of circumstances. Others have much more limited use. For example, the word *help* can be used to ask for help, to describe how people work with others, to describe how knowledge, tools, and materials can make people's work easier and so on. The word *advertise* has much more limited usefulness. It is still a useful word to know, but there are many more useful words to learn before this one. Teaching useful vocabulary before less useful vocabulary gives learners the best return for their learning effort.

The most useful vocabulary that every English language learner needs whether they use the language for listening, speaking, reading, or writing, or whether they use the language in formal and informal situations, is the most

frequent 1000 word families of English. This vocabulary is so useful that it covers around 75 percent of the running words in academic texts and newspapers, over 80 percent of the running words in novels, and about 85 percent of the running words in conversation. It contains most of the 176 function word families (words like *a, the, of, because, could*), and words like *keep, kind, know, lack,* and *land.* It is possible to say and write a lot using only the first 1000 words of English. The next most useful list is the second 1000 words of English. There are numerous lists of these words.

After this, the most useful vocabulary depends on the goals of the learners. If learners want to do academic study in senior high school or university, then the Academic Word List (Coxhead, 2000) is the most useful vocabulary to learn (http://www.vuw.ac.nz/lals/div1/awl). This is a list of 570 word families that occur frequently in a wide range of academic texts. Here is part of an academic text with the words from the Academic Word List marked in bold type. Note that there are about three Academic Word List words in almost every line.

Example

The second idea used to **justify** a rule based **approach** to **policy,** is the idea of time **consistency** which **implies** that **discretionary policy** has systematic inflation **bias.** I **attach** less **significance** to this second idea than many of my **colleagues** in the profession do. The reason is that in the time **consistency theories,** the **benefits** of **policy** rules largely arise from how they influence inflation expectations.

As well as Academic Word List words, each subject has its own special technical vocabulary, which needs to be learned while studying that subject. Beyond that, the rest of the vocabulary is **low frequency words.** At the most conservative estimate, English contains 120,000 low frequency words and this largely excludes proper nouns. Learners need to learn low frequency words but, except for special needs, they are best learned after the **high frequency words** are known. Native speakers of English do not know all of the words in the English language.

How much vocabulary do you know?

The words at the beginning of the list below are high frequency and the words at the end of the list are very low frequency. Put a check next to each word for which you know the meaning. This short test will help you to get a feeling for how many words you know. Multiply the number of words you know in this list by 500 to find your vocabulary size.

1. bird
2. fell
3. improve
4. barn
5. fatigue
6. kettle
7. combat
8. resent
9. redeem
10. hurrah
11. conversion
12. fixture
13. accede
14. avocation
15. calyx
16. conclave
17. hierarchy
18. monologue
19. tamper
20. acanthus
21. blowout
22. crupper
23. gloaming
24. minnesinger
25. perpetuity
26. riffle
27. behindhand
28. embolism
29. angst
30. blowhard
31. devolute
32. envoi
33. golliwog
34. neonate
35. plainchant
36. astrochemistry
37. nondurables
38. carboxyl
39. eyestalk
40. curragh
41. gunlock
42. dipole
43. rigorism
44. localist
45. benchboard
46. stirabout
47. hypothallus
48. doombook
49. paradiplomatic
50. poroplastic

It is estimated that the average native speaker with a university education knows at least 20,000 word families. To cope well in English, a second language learner would need around 5,000 words and preferably 10,000 words. It is most efficient to learn these words from the most useful to the least useful. In this way, at each stage of learning, learners get the best return for their learning effort.

2. Focus on the vocabulary in the most appropriate way.

The first principle looked at what words to teach and learn. This principle looks at how they should be taught and learned. Here we will look at the four most important vocabulary learning strategies of using word parts, guessing from context, using word cards, and using dictionaries. We will see that teachers need to clearly distinguish the way they treat high frequency words from the way they treat low frequency words.

English is a language that has been strongly affected by other languages. The core of the English language is the Germanic words from Anglo-Saxon and Norse which make up most of the function words and well over half of the first 1000 words of English. These are words like *the, a, because, home, cut, instead, iron.* Beyond the first 1000 words, most of the words, around 60 percent, came into English from French (through conquest), Latin (through religion) or Greek (through scholarship). These French, Latin and Greek words are typically made up of prefixes, stems and suffixes: *as/soci/ation, de/fin/ition, col/loc/ate, con/tain, un/in/form/ative.* This means that using word part knowledge is a very useful way of learning low frequency words. The most common word parts (prefixes and suffixes) occur in a very large number of different words.

Because high frequency words cover a large proportion of the running words of a text, they provide a helpful context to allow learners to guess the meaning of the low frequency words. This means that if learners develop skill in reading and, along with that, skill in guessing from context, they will have an effective strategy for coping with the many low frequency words that they meet in their reading.

Using word parts to help remember words, and using guessing from context are two very important strategies for dealing with low frequency words. There are two more very important strategies–using word cards for deliberate learning, and looking up words in dictionaries.

Using word cards involves making small cards and writing the English word on one side and the first language translation on the other. These cards are kept in packs of about fifty and are looked at when the learner has a free moment, while travelling on the subway, waiting for a bus, or during TV commercials. It may seem surprising to recommend using first language translation and deliberate, decontextualized learning. The use of the first language helps because it provides the meaning in a simple, clear, and comprehensible way. Learning from word cards is a very unfashionable technique (among teachers wedded to a communicative approach) but research (Nation, 2001) has shown it to be very effective. In every vocabulary learning experiment where deliberate and incidental learning is compared, deliberate learning always achieves faster and stronger vocabulary learning results. This should not be interpreted as saying that deliberate learning should replace incidental learning, but it does show that deliberate learning should be part of a well-balanced course. Deliberate learning and meaning-focused learning complement each other.

Write thirty words in another language on word cards. Study them. Work to learn them all.

1. Keep a record of how much time and how many repetitions were needed to learn the words. How many repetitions were needed to learn half of the words, three-quarters, all of them?
2. What words were difficult to remember? Why?
3. Describe a trick you used to help remember a particular word. Was it effective?
4. Briefly list three research questions that would be worth exploring with this type of technique.

Learning how to use a dictionary well is another important strategy in which many learners require training and practice.

So far we have looked at ways of helping learners with low frequency words. High frequency words are so important that anything the reader can do to help in learning them is a well-justified use of classroom time. This includes

- directly teaching high frequency words
- getting learners to read and listen to graded readers containing these words
- getting learners to study the words and do exercises based on them
- getting learners to speak and write using the words

From the teacher's point of view, the low frequency words do not deserve teaching time in the same way. In class, time can be spent working on the strategies that help learners deal with low frequency words, but teaching time should not be spent on the words themselves. Low frequency words do not deserve classroom time because of their low frequency. This means that when learners ask about particular low frequency words, the teacher should either deal with the word very quickly or use the opportunity to focus on a strategy.

3. Give attention to the high frequency words across the four strands of a course.

High frequency vocabulary needs to occur in all four strands of a course. It should get deliberate attention through teaching and study and should be met and used in communicating messages in listening, speaking, reading and writing. High frequency vocabulary should also be fluently accessible for receptive and productive use.

4. Encourage learners to reflect on and take responsibility for learning.

So far we have looked at principles that relate to choosing what vocabulary to teach and the conditions needed for learning it. There is an important principle that lies behind choosing and learning and that is that learners need to realize that they must be responsible for their own learning. Taking this responsibility requires (1) knowledge of what to learn and the range of options for learning vocabulary, (2) skill in choosing the best options, and (3) the ability to monitor and evaluate progress with those options.

Learners often find it difficult to take on this responsibility, partly because of the way they have learned in the past. The following quotations are from interviews with language learners about their vocabulary learning while they followed an English proficiency course.

> "I think course is 85 percent learning by myself. Teacher not always teach about English in here. This is different from Hong Kong. I suggest teacher can use three hours concentrated teach vocabulary—just use simple English to explain some word meanings."

A factor affecting what vocabulary learners study is the assessment that is used in a course.

> "I think it is not good way. We are studying for test. Before the test we study hard, very hard. After the test we forget everything."

In order to take responsibility for their own vocabulary learning, learners need to choose words that will be useful for them. Here, an effective language learner describes what words he chooses to study.

> "Mostly I just choose the words that I already know but I have to improve them or make them clear to me. Or I choose the one that are difficult to—me—about how to use them in different situations."

> "I learn words from talking to people, from TV and from radio. If that word is interesting I write on a small book. I always have a pen and notebook. Later I can put them in this list (vocabulary notebook)."

Contrast this with learners who are not taking control of their own learning.

> "I don't have no time to finding the words. Just I open my book and then I just pick up the words."

> "I choose very big academic word, but academic word is not useful. Of course I should know that word, but I think I don't use after this course."

(Moir and Nation, 2002)

Unless learners take control, the course will not be as effective for them. Teachers can help them do this in the following ways:

1. Inform the learners of the different types of vocabulary.
2. Train the learners in the various ways of learning so that they are very familiar with the range of learning options available for them.
3. Provide genuine opportunities for choosing what to learn and how to learn.
4. Provide encouragement and opportunity for learners to reflect on their learning and to evaluate it.

These ways include a mixture of informing, training, and encouraging reflection; or in other words, knowledge, skill, and awareness.

Vocabulary learning is a large and continuing task. Although teachers can provide useful input and support to help learners deal with this, it is ultimately the learners who have to learn and carry on learning.

The four principles we have looked at in this chapter can be applied in a variety of ways and in a variety of types of courses. What is most important is that a principled approach is taken to vocabulary development so that learners get the best return for their learning effort.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

The techniques in this section are grouped under the four strands described in the background section of this chapter.

Meaning-focused input activities These involve the learners focusing on understanding messages where there is a low density of new vocabulary.

- Teachers can read to learners from graded readers, briefly noting difficult words on the board and giving quick translations or definitions. The reading can be done as a serial with the story unfolding week by week.

1. Choose an interesting story for an ESL/EFL class you are familiar with. You might choose a story from a simplified reader.
2. Prepare to read this story aloud to the class. For the first one or two paragraphs, lightly mark in pencil in each sentence where you will pause and repeat.
3. For the first page, circle the words that students might not understand.

- Doing regular silent extensive reading of graded readers is a vital means of vocabulary development, as well as providing numerous other benefits.
- Learning through meaning-focused input can come from presenting talks to each other, from reading other learners' writing, and from interacting with the teacher. Vocabulary learning through input is increased if a little bit of deliberate attention is given to the vocabulary by noting unfamiliar words, by reflecting on the new vocabulary, by the teacher quickly explaining new words while the learners listen to the story, and by learners quickly previewing a reading to choose a few words to focus on when reading.

Deliberate learning activities These involve direct study or direct teaching.

- Having the meanings of words explained and examples of use provided
- Learning prefixes and suffixes, and cutting up words to see their parts
- Studying vocabulary on bilingual word cards
- Learning and using mnemonic techniques like the **keyword technique** to help remember vocabulary
- Practicing spelling rules
- Doing **cloze** exercises where the missing words in a text are recently met items
- Building word families by adding prefixes and suffixes to a stem
- Learning to use the vocabulary learning strategies of word cards, guessing from context, using word parts, and dictionary use. (For some learners these strategies require deliberate attention to bring them into use.)

Meaning-focused output activities These involve producing spoken or written messages.

An effective way of turning input into output is to base speaking and writing activities on written input. If this input contains a few words that are outside the learners' knowledge, but which are relevant to the topic, then there is a high probability that these words could be used and negotiated in spoken interaction, or picked up for use in the written output of the task. Combining written input with speaking and then writing increases such vocabulary learning opportunities. Although there are several important studies focusing on vocabulary learning from output, more research needs to be done to see how the written input is best designed and how different kinds of tasks affect use and learning.

The following activity focuses on the word *registration*, which occurred in a reading text about a nurse (see Nation and Hamilton-Jenkins, 2000). The learners read the text and then do productive work on some of the vocabulary by doing such tasks.

Example

Group these jobs into those that you think require registration (like nursing) and those that do not.

teacher	doctor	shop assistant
lawyer	plumber	bus driver
cleaner	engineer	computer programmer

Fluency activities These involve receiving or producing easy messages with pressure to go faster.

- A very basic listening fluency activity involves the learners pointing to or writing numbers as the teacher quickly says them in an unpredictable order.
- At a slightly more advanced level learners can listen to stories from graded readers which are well within their vocabulary knowledge. That is, where they have 100 percent coverage of the running words.
- Speaking fluency activities involve speaking on very familiar topics with some pressure to speak faster as in a 4/3/2 activity where the learners speak to one listener for four minutes on a topic, then give exactly the same talk to a different listener but in three minutes, and then to a different listener in two minutes.

Reflection

Analyse the 4/3/2 technique mentioned above to show which of the following fluency conditions it puts into practice. Part of it (*in italics*) has been done for you.

1. Easy language (*The learners choose what to talk about and what to say.)*
2. Message-focused communication
3. Pressure to perform quickly
4. Large quantity of language use

- Very elementary reading fluency activities can involve learners responding orally to flashcards of words and phrases.
- Once learners have a vocabulary of around seven or eight hundred words, they can do speed reading training using very easy graded readers or a speed reading course with a controlled vocabulary.
- Speed writing involves writing under time pressure about topics that are very familiar or that have just been read and talked about.
- Reading lots of very easy graded readers for pleasure can develop reading fluency.

5. Vocabulary in the classroom

The purpose of this section is to show you some of the ways the principles and techniques are used in the classroom. It is organized using the principles described in this chapter.

Focus on the most useful vocabulary first For elementary and intermediate learners, teachers should use material that is at a suitable level.

Before using a text with learners, it is useful to see how much of the vocabulary in the text is likely to be new for them. One way of doing this is to see the frequency level of the vocabulary in the text–how much is in the first 1000, the second 1000, the Academic Word List, and how many are not in those lists. This can be done by checking the words in the text against frequency lists. There are computer programs that can do this for you.

Go to one of these addresses on the Internet and type in a word or paste in a short text to see the different kinds of words in your text.

Frequency Level Checkers
http://language.tiu.ac.jp/flc/
http://www.er.uqam.ca/nobel/r21270/textools/web_vp.html

Focus on the vocabulary in the most appropriate way Teachers should give attention to high frequency words and should focus on the strategies for dealing with low frequency words. Notice how the teacher in Extract 1 deals with useful and not so useful vocabulary in the following examples.

Extract 1

A low frequency word

S: *What does* regurgitate *mean?*

T: *It means "repeat ideas from the book."*

A high frequency word

S: *What does* punish *mean?*

T: *That's a useful word, although I hope it is not needed in this class. See if you can guess its meaning from these sentences.*

He was punished for eating in class.
She was punished for coming home late.
What is the punishment that you hate the most?
Tell me some things that you get punished for.

In the first example, the word is dealt with quickly and the lesson moves on. The teacher could have added, "The *re-* at the beginning means *again* so that is where the *repeat* part of the meaning comes from." By doing this the teacher directs attention to the widely used prefix rather than the much less useful word. In the second example, the teacher spends time on the word and gets the learners to think about it. The teacher will also come back to it again in later lessons.

In Extract 2, the same word is being taught in two different ways. Once again, the principle of treating high frequency and low frequency words differently lies behind the teaching. The word *composition* has been met in this context–*It involves using parts of a musical composition in a new work.*

Extract 2

S: *Sir, what does* composition *mean?*

T1: *A piece of music, like a song.*

(The explanation given by Teacher 1 suits the meaning of the word in its context. Teacher 2 gives more helpful explanation using word parts.)

S: *Sir, what does* composition *mean?*

T2: *Well, what does com- mean? With, together. So, a composition is something that is put together in a planned way. For example, a piece of writing, a picture, a piece of music, a committee, or a chemical mixture.*

Teacher 2 connects the meaning of the parts to the meaning of the whole word. It also goes for the **core meaning** of the word. It works well if the learners have already learned the thirty or so most useful prefixes:

non-, un-, anti-, ante-, arch-, bi-, circum-, counter-, en-, ex-, fore-, hyper-, inter-, mid-, mis-, neo-, post-, pro-, semi-, sub-, ab-, ad-, com-, de-, dis-, ex- ("out"), in- ("in"), ob-, per-, pro- ("in front of"), trans-.

Reflection

Open a dictionary and look at some of the words beginning with *com-* (and its variants *co-, col-, con-, cor-*).

How much does the meaning of the prefix help with understanding the meaning of the words that contain them?

In the following extract with a low frequency word, notice how the teacher switches the learners' attention from the word to the guessing strategy. Here is the piece of text containing the unknown word.

> At age 15 he entered the University of Leipzig as a law student and by the age of 20 received a doctorate from the University of Altdorf. Subsequently, Leibniz followed a career in law and international politics.

Extract 3

S: *What does* subsequently *mean?*

T: *What part of speech do you think it is?*

S: *Adverb?*

T: *Why?*

S: *It's got -ly on the end.*

T: *Good. If we took away* subsequently, *what other word could we put there to join the two sentences?*

S: Then? Next?

T: *Great. That's the meaning of* subsequently. *The* sequ *part means "to follow."*

Balance attention across the four strands

Learning from input Graded readers may be the major means of learning from input. Graded readers are books written within a controlled vocabulary. Some graded readers are considerably reduced simplifications of well-known texts like *Robinson Crusoe, Lord Jim, Free Willy, The Secret Garden,* and *The Boys from Brazil.* Others are original stories written especially

for language learners within a controlled vocabulary. There are hundreds of such books available in numerous series such as Oxford Bookworms, Cambridge English Readers, Penguin Readers, Heinemann Guided Readers, and Longman Classics. These are an extremely valuable resource for teaching and learning English, and teachers should be very familiar with them.

Here is part of a graded reader. Notice how it contains mainly high frequency words and yet it still is an interesting story.

Example

Soon we were on our way to Castle Dracula. The mountains were all around us and the moon was behind black clouds. I could see nothing, but I could still hear the wolves. The horses went faster and faster, and the driver laughed wildly. Suddenly the carriage stopped. I opened the door and got out. At once the carriage drove away and I was alone in front of the dark, silent castle. I stood there, looking up at it, and slowly, the big wooden door opened. A tall man stood in front of me. His hair was white and he was dressed in black from head to foot.

"Come in, Mr Harker," he said. "I am Count Dracula." He held out his hand and I took it. It was as cold as ice!

I went into the castle and the Count carefully locked the door behind me.

(*Dracula* from the Oxford Bookworms Series of Graded Readers Level 2)

The few low frequency words like *castle, wolves,* and *carriage,* which are needed for the story, are repeated many times in the story.

Reflection

Here are criticisms which are made of graded readers. For each criticism think of a possible argument against that criticism. The first one has been done for you.

1. Simplified texts have difficult grammar. *"Only poorly simplified texts have easy words and difficult grammar."*
2. Simplified texts are not like the original.
3. Simplified texts take away the richness of the language.
4. Simplified texts deny learners access to vocabulary.
5. Simplified texts do not give learners the chance to develop guessing and dictionary use skills.

A very important means of vocabulary growth in the meaning-focused input strand is an extensive reading program. An extensive reading program involves learners reading large quantities of graded readers primarily for enjoyment. Ideally, the learners should read one graded reader every one or two weeks and should read at least twenty in a year. As well as being excellent for motivation and developing reading skill, this can be an important source of vocabulary growth. Learners can pick up new vocabulary and establish and enrich partly known vocabulary through such reading. The reading can be done in classroom time or as homework. There is now plenty of research that shows the language learning benefits of such "book floods" (Elley, 1991). Graded readers can also be used for listening, and some graded readers have accompanying tapes.

Learning from output Speaking activities with a vocabulary focus need to be monitored carefully to make sure the target vocabulary is getting attention. Often, only small changes to the design of the activity are needed to keep the focus on vocabulary.

Reflection

The following discussion occurred when learners were doing the task in the example given on page 143. In the text, *registration* as a nurse was described. The learners performed a speaking task which got them to consider what kinds of jobs would require someone to be officially registered. Find two examples from the discussion below which shows how the discussion contributes to the learning of the word.

S12: *Bus driver? I don't think so*

S10: *Bus driver because it is ...*

S9: *If you don't have a license how can you drive a bus, the police will catch me.*

(The others agree)

S11: *I see, so we need* ***registration.***

S12: *... so bus driver also need* ***reg ... registration*** *because of competence so at first I think teacher, doctor, and lawyer is a very specific occupation so um it um at first they have to go to the university and polytech so they need require* ***registration*** *so ah in my opinion er I bus driver ... if we want to be bus driver only we have ah licence and then we can ah get as a driver so I don't forget* ***registration*** *so I mistaked ah Japanese guess.*

S10: *Maybe it is not* ***registration,*** *maybe it is not* ***registration,*** *I think*

(Continued on page 149)

maybe it is only bus driver license ... maybe ***registration*** *is just like a list where you can find some name like doctor.*

Fluency development Here is part of the four-minute delivery of a 4/3/2 activity and the corresponding part from the two-minute talk. Notice the changes that accompany the increase in fluency. You should notice less hesitations and repetitions, and more complex and accurate language use.

Extract 4

Four-minute delivery

S: Today I will tell you about my experience with er Burmese ethnic group in Thailand. I work th in the village as a school teacher for four years. It is very interesting. They have their own leader. They have their own language. They have their own law. erm So it's like a independent state in Thailand which is illegal. I I teach in ah in that school before it become the normal school like this, it's a patrol police school before and we have about three hundred students in that school. It is primary school. When the children first come to school, they cannot speak Thai at all. They speak their own language and the student in form one the teacher has to speak Mon.

Two-minute delivery

S: Today I will tell you about my experience in Thailand. You know I teach um Burmese ethnic group on the western part of Thailand before I came here. In the village where I teach there are about six thousand people. They have their own leader. They have their own law. They have their own language like an independent state. um Their occupation they they plant ah corn, cotton and sugar cane. I have about three hundred students in the school and the children when they come to school they don't speak Thai. They speak their own language. So every teacher ha has to know the Mon language, especially the teacher who teach in grade one.

Because meaning-focused activities do not give special overt attention to vocabulary, the teacher needs to observe them carefully from a vocabulary perspective. In this way, vocabulary can get attention across all four strands of a course.

The thoughtful application of principles in the classroom will ensure that learners can gain the most from the vocabulary component of the language course.

6. Conclusion

The teacher's role is to focus on the most useful vocabulary, to provide strategy training for the low frequency vocabulary, to ensure that vocabulary learning has a chance to occur in all parts of a course, and to help learners take control of their own vocabulary learning.

It is necessary to have a broad view of what can be considered vocabulary so that multiword units are included. It is also necessary to see that there are shared meanings underlying the range of senses of a word as well as its various family members.

Vocabulary learning cannot be left to itself. It needs to be strengthened by careful planning and well-directed teaching.

Further readings

Nation, I. S. P. 1990. *Teaching and Learning Vocabulary.* Rowley, MA: Newbury House.

This is an easily read, practical text.

Nation, I. S. P. 2001. *Learning Vocabulary in Another Language.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This book is a current comprehensive survey of research, theory, and practice in the teaching and learning of vocabulary.

Schmitt, N. 2000. *Vocabulary in Language Teaching.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

Very readable, this book is an up-to-date review of vocabulary teaching.

Schmitt, N. and M. McCarthy (eds.) 1997. *Vocabulary: Description, acquisition and pedagogy.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

An excellent collection of review articles, this book covers a wide range of aspects of vocabulary.

Helpful Web sites

Learning Vocabulary in Another Language (http://uk.cambridge.org/elt/nation)

This Web site contains a range of supplementary material for the book including a very large classified list of references about vocabulary.

The Academic Word List (http://www.vuw.ac.nz/lals/div1/awl)

Kyoto Sangyo University Extensive Reading (http://www.kyoto-su.ac.jp/information/er)

Second Language Vocabulary Resources (http://www1.harenet.ne.jp/%7Ewaring/vocab/index.html)

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Swain, M. 1985. Communicative Competence: Some roles of comprehensible input and comprehensible output in its development. In S.M. Gass and C.G. Madden (eds.) *Input in Second Language Acquisition.* Rowley, MA: Newbury House.

Chapter **Eight**

Grammar

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **provide** your own definition of the term grammar.
- ✔ **explain** the following concepts: declarative and procedural knowledge, form and function relationships, inductive and deductive teaching.
- ✔ **demonstrate** familiarity with practical classroom techniques including the following: substitution drills, input enhancement, grammar dictation, and the garden path.

1. What is grammar?

Grammar is generally thought to be a set of rules specifying the correct ordering of words at the sentence level. The *Longman Dictionary of Applied Linguistics* defines it as "a description of the structure of a language and the way in which units such as words and phrases are combined to produce sentences in the language" (Richards, Platt and Weber, 1985). Sentences are acceptable if they follow the rules set out by the grammar of the language. For example, in English, one rule states that "a subject followed by a verb followed by an object" is *grammatical.* The sequence of words "The bit dog man the" is ungrammatical because it violates this rule, while "The dog bit the man" is grammatical because it obeys the rule. (The sentence "The man bit the dog," is grammatical, but would be considered unacceptable by many people for other reasons.)

Grammarians distinguish between **prescriptive grammars** and **descriptive grammars.** A prescriptive grammar lays down the law, saying what is right and what is wrong. A descriptive grammar, on the other hand, sets out to describe the way that people actually use language. In recent years, the trend has been away from prescriptive and towards descriptive grammars.

Each of the following statements would be judged ungrammatical by prescriptive grammarians. However, they were all produced by native speakers, and would therefore find their way into a descriptive grammar. In a recent study, the vast majority of native speakers and advanced non-native speakers of English judged the statements to be grammatically acceptable.

The gang were plotting a takeover.

Everybody is ready now, aren't they?

Neither Fred nor Harry had to work late, did they?

Someone has deliberately made themselves homeless.

Anyone running a business should involve their spouse.

What the cat did was ate the rat. (Celce-Murcia and Olshtain, 2000)

Reflection

1. Why would each of the sentences above be ruled ungrammatical by a prescriptive grammarian?
2. Why do you think most native speakers and advanced users of the language find them acceptable? Do you find them acceptable?
3. What would you prefer as a learner, a descriptive or a prescriptive grammar? Why? What would you prefer as a teacher?

2. Background to the teaching of grammar

The place of grammar in the language classroom has had a rather checkered history. Thirty years ago, language teaching and grammar teaching were synonymous in most language classrooms. The primary aim of teaching was to ensure that learners mastered the grammar, pronunciation and vocabulary of the language.

The dominant methodology at the time was **audiolingualism,** which, in fact, is still influential today. The principles underlying audiolingualism were derived from **structural linguistics** and behaviorist psychology. The behaviorists believed that learning was a matter of acquiring habits.

A typical audiolingual lesson might look something like this.

1. Present the new language item to be learned, giving a clear demonstration of its meaning through nonverbal means such as by pictures or actions. (Do not give grammatical explanations.)
2. Model the target pattern, using a number of examples.
3. Get the whole class to mimic and memorize the new pattern following the teacher's model.
4. Introduce a substitution drill, first to the whole class, then with the class divided into two, and then with individual responses.
5. Repeat the first four steps, using negative versions of the target structure.
6. Repeat the first four steps, using interrogative (question) versions of the target structure.
7. Check for transfer, using previously unrehearsed cues. Solicit both whole class and individual responses.

Reflection

1. What are two advantages of an audiolingual lesson?
2. Audiolingualism ended up being heavily criticized (although it remains very popular to this day). Why do you think it was criticized, and why do you think it remains popular despite the criticism?

The heart of the audiolingual lesson set out above is the substitution drill. Such drills are a stock-in-trade for most teachers, and remain popular to this day. Unfortunately, in many audiolingual classrooms such drills tended to be rather mechanical. For example, the teacher might say:

"That's a book. Pen!" and the students were expected to reply.

"That's a pen."

These days, teachers and textbook writers try to give a communicative and meaningful dimension to such drills. Here is an example from one of my own textbooks, *Expressions 1* (Heinle/Thomson, 1998).

1. The teacher and students brainstorm titles of movies to fit the categories: *science fiction, comedy, thriller, drama,* and *action film.*
2. Students listen to and then practice the following conversation:

   Alice: *Do you want to see a movie?*

   Rob: *Which one?*

   Alice: *How about* Arrival of the Visitors*?*

   Rob: *Great! I love science fiction. (Or "Oh no, I don't like science fiction.")*
3. Students practice the conversation again, using the film titles generated in Step 1, and giving answers that are true for them.

Make up your own substitution type dialogue following the model above. You can either use the same content, or make up your own.

In the 1970s, two developments were to have a far-reaching effect on language teaching. Firstly, researchers began to look at the order in which learners acquired the grammar of the language. Prior to this, it had been assumed that the learners' first language would have a strong influence on the order in which grammatical items were acquired. It was also assumed that if a teacher taught a given item on a given day (and it was taught well), it would have a strong impact on what was learned. In fact, researchers came up with some surprising results:

- learners from very different language backgrounds (Spanish and Chinese, in the first instance) appeared to acquire grammatical items in the same order;
- this order differed from the order in which items were taught in class;
- the order did not appear to be alterable by instruction;
- knowing a rule was no guarantee that the rule could be used for communication.

(Dulay and Burt 1973, 1974; Krashen, 1981, 1982)

As a result of their investigations, researchers concluded that acquisition orders were determined by the nature of the language to be learned, rather than through a contrast between the first language and the target language. The fact that individual grammar items appeared to be impervious to instruction, along with the fact that many learners could state rules, but then violated those very rules in communication, led to the notion that grammar instruction was of limited value. Stephen Krashen argued that grammar teaching led to conscious learning, whereas what was wanted was subconscious acquisition. He went further in suggesting that grammar instruction was unnecessary for the acquisition of a second language.

More recently, the consensus seems to be that some form of grammar instruction is useful. For example, two researchers recently wrote:

> Our view is that some degree of carefully timed and delivered focus on form is likely to be appropriate in most cases of L2 learning difficulty. ... we believe that leaving learners to discover form-function relationships and the intricacies of a new linguistic system wholly on their own makes little sense. This does not mean, however, that we advocate a constant focus on all forms for all learners all the time. (Doughty and Williams, 1998, p. 11)

The second development that had an important influence on the course of language teaching was a rethinking of the nature of language itself. Rather than being viewed as a set of linguistic systems, it was seen as a tool for communication. This reconceptualization led directly to the development of communicative language teaching.

Two recent related trends in language teaching are *focus on form* (Doughty and Williams, 1998), and *consciousness-raising* (Fotos and Ellis, 1991). Focus on form refers to the practice of explicitly drawing students' attention to linguistic features within the context meaning-focused activities. In other words, communication comes first, and a focus on form comes second. The advantage of this reorientation is that "the learner's attention is drawn precisely to a linguistic feature as necessitated by a communicative demand" (Doughty and Williams, 1998:3). Learners are therefore more likely to see the relationship between language form and communicative function. (See Principle 2, p. 159.)

Consciousness-raising is a type of focus-on-form approach to grammar teaching. According to Larsen-Freeman (2001, p. 39-40), these exercises do not require students to produce the target structures. Instead, students are made aware of the target grammatical item through discovery-oriented tasks. (Examples of consciousness-raising exercises are presented in this chaper in the section Classroom techniques and procedures.)

The current interest in focus on form has grown out of research questioning the idea that as teachers all we need to do is to create opportunities

for learners to be immersed in and to communicate in the target language, and that it is unnecessary to focus on form at all. Work carried out in immersion classrooms in Canada and elsewhere has shown that when a focus on form is entirely absent, the learners do not develop an adequate mastery of certain grammatical features. In fact, they appear to end up with a kind of classroom pidgin language.

3. Principles for teaching grammar

1. Integrate both inductive and deductive methods into your teaching.

In the **deductive** classroom, the teacher gives a grammatical explanation or rule followed by a set of exercises designed to clarify the grammatical point and help the learners master the point. In deductive teaching, you work from principles to examples. **Inductive** procedures reverse this process. In inductive teaching, you present the learners with samples of language and, through a process of guided discovery, get them to work out the principle or rule for themselves.

So, which is better, deductive or inductive teaching? The answer is–it depends. It depends on the grammar point being taught, and the learning style of the student. (Some learners appear to learn more effectively through a deductive approach, others appear to do better through an inductive approach.) In my own teaching, I try and combine both approaches. There are times when I will introduce a grammar point deductively and other times when I use an inductive approach. I know which approach most of my students prefer–deduction, I suspect because it requires less mental effort. I prefer induction because I believe that it demands greater mental effort and that this will result in more effective learning in the longer term. The disadvantage of an inductive approach is that it takes more time for learners to come to an understanding of the grammatical point in question than with a deductive approach. However, inductive techniques appear to result in learners retaining more of the language in the long term.

Reflection

Is the following teaching sequence an example of a deductive or inductive approach? What grammar point is being practiced?

1. Students have pictures illustrating the following actions.
   Students write the number of the activity next to the correct picture.
   1. Take a cooking lesson. 2. Take driving lessons. 3. Study English.
   4. Take singing lessons. 5. Take a swimming class. 6. Study computers.

2. Students listen to and practice the conversation.

   Glenda: *What are you doing over the break?*
   Valerie: *I'm going to take a swimming class.*
   Glenda: *Oh really? Where?*
   Valerie: *At the Plaza Fitness Center.*
   Glenda: *That sounds like fun.*

3. Students practice the conversation again using different activities from Number 1.

2. Use tasks that make clear the relationship between grammatical form and communicative function.

Many grammar-based courses are relatively ineffective because they teach grammar as an abstract system, present the language as isolated sentences, and fail to give learners a proper context for the grammar point. Teaching was largely limited to the form of the new grammatical item. For example, when the passive voice was introduced, typically students were given a list of sentences in the active voice ("The boy broke the window." "The dog bit the man." etc.) along with a model of how to form the passive. ("The window was broken.") The task for the students was to turn the active voice sentences into the passive. Such a procedure does not give students any insights into the communicative contexts in which they should use the passive rather than the active voice.

However, the solution proposed by some–do away with teaching grammar altogether–is no solution. The solution is to present the grammar in a context that makes clear the relationship between the grammatical form and the communicative function. For example, when teaching the passive voice, show WHY the passive voice is used–to place the emphasis on the action rather than the doer, to hide the identity of the doer, etc.

3. Focus on the development of procedural rather than declarative knowledge.

In the field of language learning, **declarative knowledge** is knowing language rules. **Procedural knowledge** is being able to use the knowledge for communication.

Most of us who have been teaching for any time at all know learners who can give a more-or-less standard textbook explanation of a grammatical rule or principle, but who violate the rule when using language communicatively. For example, I have students who can tell me that you have to put an s on the end of the verb when making third person singular declarative statements. When making such statements themselves, however, more often than not, they leave off the *s*. These students have declarative knowledge (they can state or declare the rule), but not procedural knowledge (they can't or don't use the rule when using the language to communicate).

There are also learners who have procedural but not declarative knowledge. In fact, the vast majority of native speakers fall into this category. Unless they have studied grammar formally, few native speakers can state the rule for third person *s*.

While declarative knowledge can facilitate the development of procedural knowledge, it is not a necessary and sufficient condition for the development of such knowledge. Students need to develop mastery of target language items, not by memorizing rules, but by using the target items in communicative contexts. This learning through use or learning by doing principle is one that has come to us through the approach to education known as experientialism.

Examine one or two ESL/EFL textbooks and find examples of tasks that exploit the students' procedural knowledge. What grammar items are taught through the procedure? What kind of context is provided for each grammar point? Compare your analysis with someone who has examined other grammar points.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

In this section, we look at some popular grammar teaching techniques. Most of the techniques can be used either for introducing a new grammar point for the first time or for recycling a point that has already been introduced.

There are various ways in which grammar techniques are classified.

Doughty and Williams (1998) distinguish between techniques in which the grammar point is relatively **implicit** and those in which the point is relatively **explicit**. Ur (1996) places techniques on a continuum from those that focus on accuracy to those that focus on fluency. I distinguish between reproductive techniques in which learners basically reproduce models provided by the teacher or the textbook and creative techniques in which learners have the freedom to use a range of structures to express their meanings.

Input enhancement Input refers to the language that is made available to the learner. **Input enhancement** is a technique for getting students to notice the grammar item that the teacher wants to introduce. With this technique, teachers draw students' attention to items that are meant to be noticed by "flagging" them in some way such as through highlighting, underlining, or coloring. Such awareness-raising techniques are at the accuracy end of Ur's accuracy-fluency continuum.

Example

(For third person singular possessive determiner)

Once upon a time there was a king. *He* had a beautiful young daughter. For *her* birthday, the king gave *her* a golden ball that *she* played with every day. The king and *his* daughter lived near a dark forest .... (Doughty and Williams, 1998)

Consciousness-raising Consciousness-raising activities are designed to get learners to notice a particular grammatical feature or principle. However, learners are not required to use or practice the target item.

Example

Study the following examples, and work out the rule for the correct order of direct and indirect objects in English.

We took a gift for the teacher.

We took the teacher a gift.

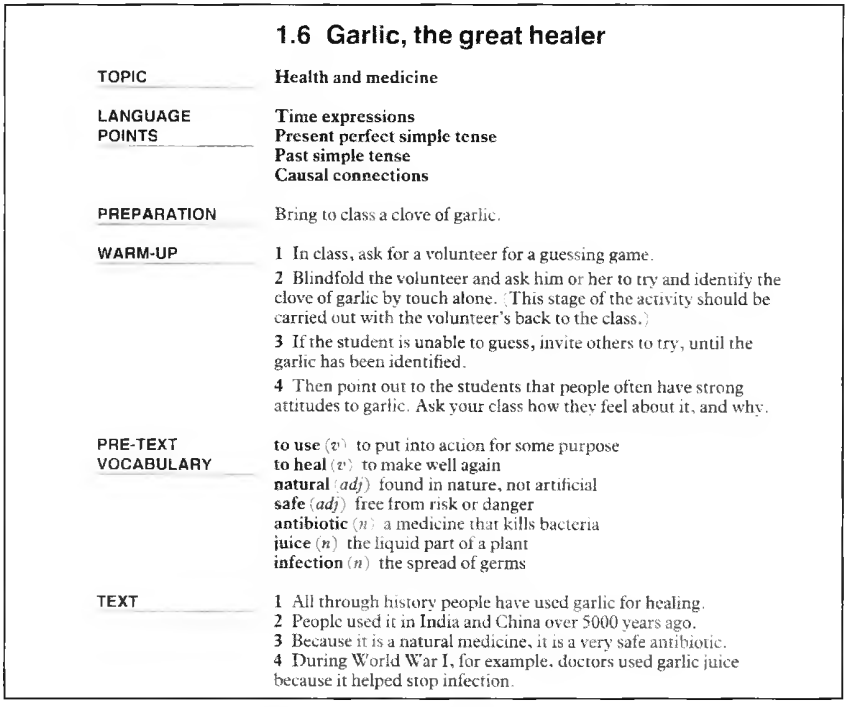
He recited a poem for his girlfriend.

He recited his girlfriend a poem.

Grammar dictation **Grammar dictation** (or Dictogloss, as it is called by its creator, Ruth Wajnryb) involves learners collaborating in small groups, actively using their language, and reflecting on the way grammar works in context (thus reinforcing form/function relationships). It also encourages students to reflect on their own output.

The technique is a relatively simple one. The teacher dictates a passage containing target language forms at normal speed. Students take notes and

then work in small groups to reconstruct the original passage. The following example is taken from Ruth Wajnryb (1990) who devised the technique.



1.6 Garlic, the great healer

TOPIC	**Health and medicine**
LANGUAGE POINTS	**Time expressions** **Present perfect simple tense** **Past simple tense** **Causal connections**
PREPARATION	Bring to class a clove of garlic.
WARM-UP	1 In class, ask for a volunteer for a guessing game. 2 Blindfold the volunteer and ask him or her to try and identify the clove of garlic by touch alone. (This stage of the activity should be carried out with the volunteer's back to the class.) 3 If the student is unable to guess, invite others to try, until the garlic has been identified. 4 Then point out to the students that people often have strong attitudes to garlic. Ask your class how they feel about it, and why.
PRE-TEXT VOCABULARY	**to use** (*v*) to put into action for some purpose **to heal** (*v*) to make well again **natural** (*adj*) found in nature, not artificial **safe** (*adj*) free from risk or danger **antibiotic** (*n*) a medicine that kills bacteria **juice** (*n*) the liquid part of a plant **infection** (*n*) the spread of germs
TEXT	1 All through history people have used garlic for healing. 2 People used it in India and China over 5000 years ago. 3 Because it is a natural medicine, it is a very safe antibiotic. 4 During World War I, for example, doctors used garlic juice because it helped stop infection.

Figure 1 *Books for Teachers: Grammar Dictation* (Oxford University Press, 1990)

Garden path This technique could be considered rather cruel. In order to encourage students to process the target structure somewhat more deeply than they might otherwise do, the task is set up to get students to overgeneralize. It thus leads them into error. This is a technique based on inductive learning. Students study examples of the language and come to an hypothesis or generalization. The generalization is too broad. They are given disconfirming evidence and then have to modify their hypothesis.

Example

T: *Look at these examples for forming superlative adjectives.* (Writes on the board. cute → the cutest; grand → the grandest.) *Now make superlatives out of "beautiful," "outrageous," "expensive." ... OK, now, what have you written? Sonia?*

S: *Beautifulest, outrageousest, expensivest.*

T: *No, for these words, the superlative forms are "the most beautiful," "the most outrageous," and "the most expensive." Now, I want you to get*

into groups and figure out the rule. ..... Who thinks they have the answer? Jose's group.

S: *It's about how big the word is. If it's a big word, you use 'most'.*

T: *Big. Hmm. How do we measure the size of words?*

S: *The number of syllables.*

T: *The number of syllables. OK. And how many syllables do "beautiful," "outrageous," and "expensive" have?*

S: *Three.*

T: *Three. OK. So, who can state the rule?*

S: *Adjectives with three syllables form the superlative with "most."*

(Note: This is an invented example based on White, 1998. It is not an authentic classroom extract.)

Design a grammar exercise to highlight the distinction between the simple past and the present perfect, or the distinction between "going to" and "will" for future actions. Use one of the techniques discussed in Section 4.

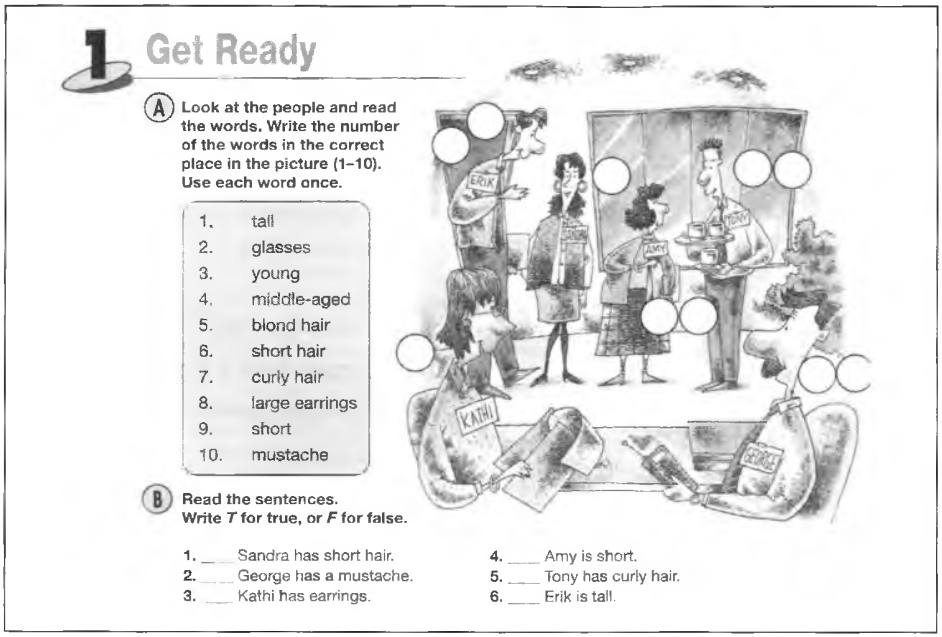
5. Grammar in the classroom

The purpose of this section is to show you some of the ways that the concepts and techniques already discussed are realized in the classroom. In the first two sequences, Teachers A and B were using the same task, as were Teachers C and D. It is interesting to notice the very different ways in which a set of materials can be exploited by different teachers.

Reflection

Study the following teaching sequences (page 164) in which two different teachers (Teacher A and Teacher B) are using the book *Expressions 1*. Then think about these questions.

1. In what ways are the lessons similar? In what ways are they different?
2. What is the purpose of each teaching lesson?
3. Which is the more effective teacher? Why?



1 Get Ready

A Look at the people and read the words. Write the number of the words in the correct place in the picture (1–10). Use each word once.

1. tall
2. glasses
3. young
4. middle-aged
5. blond hair
6. short hair
7. curly hair
8. large earrings
9. short
10. mustache

B Read the sentences. Write *T* for true, or *F* for false.

1. ___ Sandra has short hair.
2. ___ George has a mustache.
3. ___ Kathi has earrings.
4. ___ Amy is short.
5. ___ Tony has curly hair.
6. ___ Erik is tall.

Figure 2 *Expressions 1* (Heinle/Thomson, 2001)

In the extracts, *T* stands for teacher and *S* represents a particular student. *Ss* stands for students.

Teacher A	Teacher B
T: *OK, now, look at the picture and the words. Can you see the people?*	***T:*** *Right everybody! Remember these words? Siu Ming?*
Ss: *Yes, yes.*	***S:*** *Yes.*
T: *So, now we're going to practice the words. Listen to me and repeat.* "Erik is tall." "Erik is tall."	***T:*** *Tan?*
Ss: *Erik is tall.*	***S:*** *Yes.*
T: *Again.*	***T:*** *OK. I'm going to say a word, and I want you to make a statement. And NOT one you can see on the page, OK? Um …* George. *Siu Ming?*
Ss: *Erik is tall.*	***S:*** *George has a mustache.*
T: *Good!* Amy.	***T:*** (laughs) *Well, yes, that's true, but NOT one that you can see on the page. Try again.*
Ss: *Amy is tall.*	***S:*** *Um … George is middle-aged.*
T: *Good!* Glasses. *Jun?*	
S: *Amy is glasses.*	
T: *Is?*	
S: *Has.*	
(Continued page 165)	

Teacher A	Teacher B
T: *Yes...?*	***T:*** *George is middle-aged. Yes, right.* Short hair. *Tania.*
S: *Amy has glasses.*	***S:*** *Kathi has short hair.*
T: *Amy HAS glasses. Yes, right. Everyone.*	***T:*** *She does?* (shakes head)
Ss: *Amy HAS glasses.*	***S:*** *Oh ... Um... Tony has short hair.*
T: *George.*	***T:*** *That's good. Tony has short hair. Repeat everybody! Tony has short hair.*
Ss: *George HAS glasses.*	***Ss:*** *Tony has short hair.*
	T: *Good. Tony's almost bald!* (laughs)

Commentary Both teachers are getting students to learn key vocabulary that they will need later in the lesson and to practice making statements about appearance using the simple present tense with "be" and "have." Teacher A is using a classical audiolingual substitution drill. Unfortunately, the teacher is only concerned with grammatical accuracy, not with meaning. When a student makes the grammatically correct, but semantically incorrect statement "Amy is tall," (Amy is NOT tall, she's short!) the teacher responds by saying "Good!"

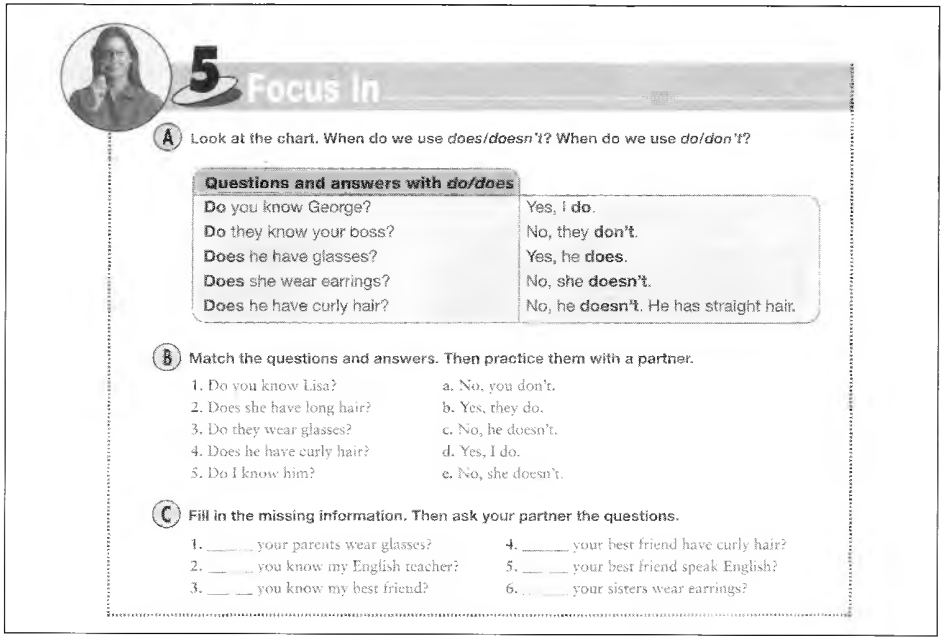
Teacher B achieves the same goals, but within a communicative context. The students have to make statements that are grammatically correct and semantically true. The exercise is also slightly more creative, in that the students have a choice over who to describe and what aspect of their appearance to focus on.

Imagine that you had just observed these teachers. List the questions you wound like to ask them. Compare your questions with another student.

Reflection

Study the following teaching sequences (page 166) in which two different teachers (Teacher C and Teacher D) are using the book *Expressions 1*. Then think about these questions.

1. In what ways are the lessons similar? In what ways are they different?
2. What is the purpose of each teaching lesson?
3. Which is the more effective teacher? Why?



5 Focus In

A Look at the chart. When do we use *does/doesn't*? When do we use *do/don't*?

Questions and answers with *do/does*	
Do you know George?	Yes, I **do**.
Do they know your boss?	No, they **don't**.
Does he have glasses?	Yes, he **does**.
Does she wear earrings?	No, she **doesn't**.
Does he have curly hair?	No, he **doesn't**. He has straight hair.

B Match the questions and answers. Then practice them with a partner.

1. Do you know Lisa?	a. No, you don't.
2. Does she have long hair?	b. Yes, they do.
3. Do they wear glasses?	c. No, he doesn't.
4. Does he have curly hair?	d. Yes, I do.
5. Do I know him?	e. No, she doesn't.

C Fill in the missing information. Then ask your partner the questions.

1. _____ your parents wear glasses?	4. _____ your best friend have curly hair?
2. _____ you know my English teacher?	5. _____ your best friend speak English?
3. _____ you know my best friend?	6. _____ your sisters wear earrings?

Figure 3 *Expressions 1* (Heinle/Thomson, 2001)

Teacher C

T: *OK, then, I want you to work in your pairs. Kevin, who's your partner? Jackie, is it?*

S: (nods)

T: *Good. OK, look at the questions and answers in the, um, yellow box. I want you to practice the questions and answers in your pairs. OK? Kevin—Can you and Jackie do the first one for the class?*

S: *Do … do you know George?*

S: *Yes, I do.*

T: *OK. Excellent. … So—off you go.*

(Ss practice the questions and answers in pairs).

(Continued page 167)

Teacher D

T: *I want you all to look at the grammar box. What … what does it show us? … Anyone? Alice?*

S: *About* do/does.

T: *OK, good. It shows us when we use the verb* do/don't, does/doesn't *in questions. Look at this table.* (Puts the following table on the board.)

do/don't	does/doesn't
I, you, we, they George and Kathi	he, she, Erik,

Teacher C

T: *Everyone finished? … That sounded pretty good. Now, I'm going to ask you some questions, and I want you to answer me, OK? Sharmy, do you know Kevin?*

S: *Yes, I do.*

T: *Of course you do!* (laughs) *Kevin, do you wear earrings?*

S: *No, I don't.*

T: *How about Sharmy, does she wear earrings?*

S: *Yes, she does.*

T: *Yes, she has great earrings, doesn't she? Um, Lillian, do you have curly hair?*

S: *Yes, I am.*

T: *Yes, I …?*

S: *Does … sorry … do.*

T: *Yes, I do. Yes, I do. Good. OK, so … when do we use* do/don't *and when do we use* does/doesn't*?*

(Puts the following table on the board.)

do/don't	does/doesn't
I, Sandra, you, we, your best friend	he, Erik and Amy, your boss, they

T: *Some of these words are in the wrong box. Understand? Yes?*

Ss: (nod)

T: *OK, I want you to work with your partner. Copy the table, but put the words in the right box. Then see if you can add two more items to each box.*

Teacher D

T: *Understand?*

Ss: (nod)

T: *OK, now I want you to look at Exercise B—matching the questions and answers. I want you to put a circle around all of the* do *and* don't *words you can find, and underline all of the* does *and* doesn't *words. OK, Fan? Understand?*

S: (nods)

T: *All right. And I want you to notice the pronouns they go with—I, you, he, she —maybe you can highlight them. OK? Right. Then I want you to match the questions with the right answers, and when you've done that, practice the questions and answers with your partner.*

Commentary Teacher C begins by getting the students to practice the target language (yes/no questions with do/does; asking and answering questions about appearance). She then personalizes the exercise by getting students to answer questions about the appearance of their classmates. She then tries an inductive activity designed to focus students on the appropriate pronouns and noun phrases to match with do/don't and does/doesn't. She does this through a *spot-the-mistake* exercise. This is a good exercise to introduce in a review/recycling lesson, but probably unwise if the grammar point is being introduced for the first time.

Teacher D has the same pedagogical objectives as Teacher C. However, she tackles the task somewhat differently. She focuses the students on the grammar point to be studied, presents the grammar box deductively, and then gets students to find examples of the grammar item. Only after students have studied the grammar point does she get them practicing questions and answers using the point.

Again, we see that two different teachers have exploited a set of materials in very different ways.

Imagine that you have just observed these teachers. List the questions you would like to ask them. Compare your questions with another student.

Reflection

Study the textbook excerpt in Figure 4 and the teaching sequence that follows. Then think about these questions.

1. Is Teacher E an effective teacher? Why or why not?
2. What comment would you make about the teacher's approach to grammar?

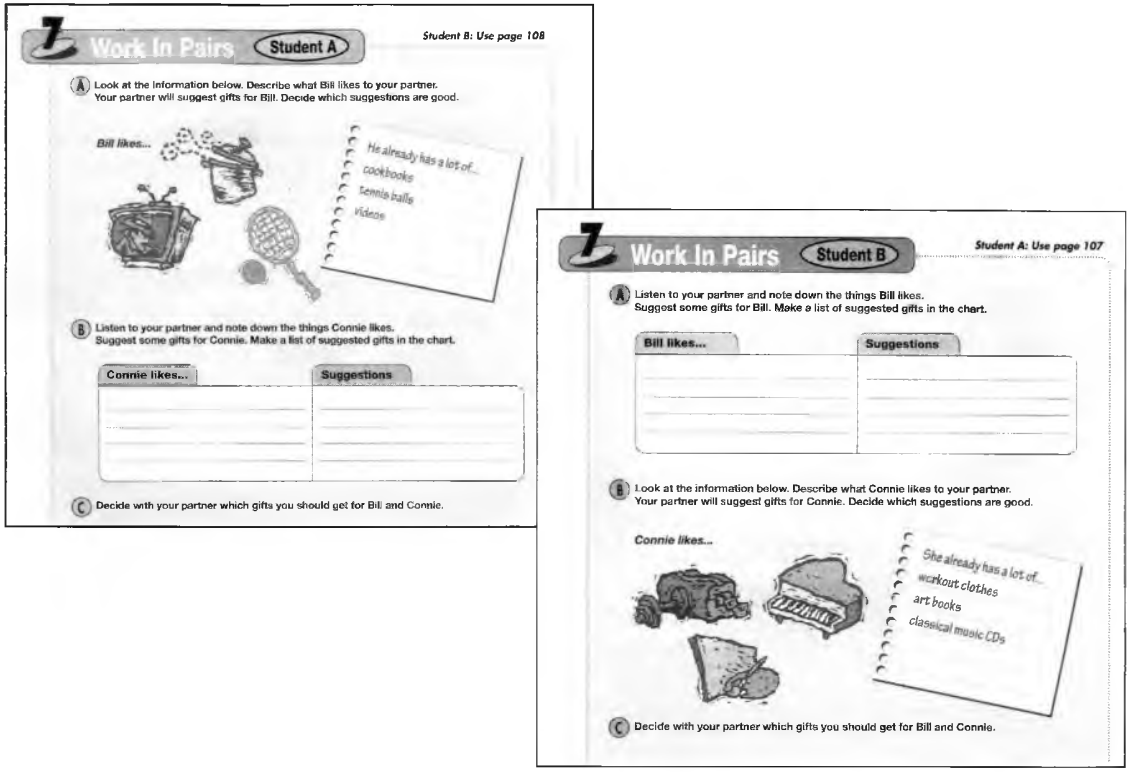


Figure 4 *Expressions 1* (Heinle/Thomson, 2001)

Teacher E

T: *Right, now are you ready to do the info gap task? Yes? We've done lots of these, now, haven't we?*

Ss: (nod)

T: *The purpose of this task is to give you more practice in the language we're learning in this unit. What ARE we practicing? Remember? Johnny?*

S: *Talk about what people like.*

T: *Talking about what people like—good. And?*

S: *Talking about gift giving.*

T: *Talking about gift giving. Right. These are our communication goals. And what structures do we use to do these things? … Anyone? … Yes, Mary?*

S: What do you like? *And* what do you like doing?

T: *Great! And we use* like *to talk about things, right? And* like doing *to talk about activities. What about making gift giving suggestions?*

S: *Let's.*

T: *OK, good,* Let's get him a CD, *or* Let's get Tom a golf club. *OK, now WHEN do we give people gifts? WHEN? Yes, Monica?*

S: *Birthday.*

(Continued page 170)

Teacher E

T: *Birthdays are good. (*Writes *birthdays* on the board.*) Johnny?*

S: *New ... new baby.*

T: *That's a good suggestion. (*Writes *new baby* on the board and continues eliciting until there are a number of events on the board.*) OK, now get into your pairs and I want Student A to look at page 107, and Student B to look at page 108. ... (*Peers over students' shoulder*) Johnny, you're the B student aren't you? You're looking at the wrong page. 108, please. Good. Now, Bill likes the things the A students can see in the picture, but he already has these things. OK? Understand, Monica? Right. So, tell your partner what Bill likes, and your partner will suggest gifts. Write the suggestions in the space, and then decide on the best idea. Oh, Student A—start off by suggesting a reason for buying a gift—look at the board—it's his birthday, he's going away, and so on. Right, off you go.*

*(*The students complete the task. As they do so, the teacher circulates and monitors. When she hears a mistake, she writes it in a notebook, but doesn't interrupt the students.*)*

T: *OK, I think everybody's finished now. Are you two finished? Right, good. So, now I want you to do the same thing for Connie. B, tell A what Connie likes. A will make suggestions. Write them down then decide, decide on the best one, OK?*

*(*Again, the teacher circulates and monitors. At one point she is stopped by one pair, listens to their question and says "It's called a subscription—a subscription."*)*

T: *OK, time's up. Let's hear what each pair decided. (*Teacher elicits responses from the students and writes them on the board.*) Well, that's great—look at all these interesting gifts. Which of these gifts would YOU like to receive, Johnny? ... Sorry?*

S: *The California Fitness Subscription.*

T: *Yeah, I like that one, too. How about you, Sophie?*

*(*She continues, eliciting students' preferences and writing their names next to the gift.*)*

T: *OK, now, you all did very well, but I noticed a few mistakes creeping in here and there. Look.*

*(*She writes the mistakes from her notebook on the board and gets students to self correct.*)*

Commentary This teaching sequence is based on an information gap task. The pedagogical objectives are asking about and making suggestions using *Wh-questions* with *do* as well as *like, like* +V*ing*. The task illustrates principle two–use tasks that show the relationship between form and function. Unlike the other teaching sequences in this section, the grammar is presented within a context that makes clear to the learners one communicative use for the structure. It also illustrates the way that both declarative knowledge and procedural knowledge can be worked into a pedagogical sequence.

This teacher displays a number of attributes of the effective teacher. She begins by spelling out the purpose of the task, reminding students of the language point and communication goal. She elicits ideas from the students rather than simply telling them, checks to see that students are correctly set up for the task, provides models, monitors the students, acts as an informant for one pair, personalizes the task during the debriefing, and provides corrective feedback at the end of the task.

Select a language function and a grammar point, and design your own information gap activity. For example,
Function: Making a polite request **Grammar point:** Modal verbs: could, can, may

6. Conclusion

At the beginning of this chapter, I set out to define grammar and describe the rather unstable place that grammar has occupied on the language teaching stage. At various times it has occupied center stage, while at others it has been relegated to the wings. At one point, it was pushed off the stage completely.

Having provided some background and context, I articulated three key principles to guide the selection, adaptation, or creation of grammar learning opportunities in the classroom. The rest of the chapter exemplified these principles by presenting a range of techniques. In the final part of the chapter, we looked at how the principles have been applied at the level of classroom action.

Further readings

Fotos, S. 2001. Cognitive Approaches to Grammar Instruction. In M. Celce-Murcia (ed.) *Teaching English as a Second or Foreign Language.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

Although the first part of the chapter is somewhat theoretical, it contains a very detailed example of a communicative ESL/EFL grammar lesson.

Larsen-Freeman, D. 2001. Grammar. In R. Carter and D. Nunan (eds.) *The Cambridge Guide to Teaching English to Speakers of Other Languages.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This chapter provides a very clear explanation, with examples of the relationship between grammatical form, meaning, and use.

Ur, P. 1988. *Grammar Practice Activities.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This book presents many great, practical ideas for introducing specific grammar points.

Helpful Web sites

Virtual English Centre (http://ec.hku.hk/vec/grammar/default.htm)

This site provides links to resources on the Internet for developing grammar teaching materials. It also provides links for students who want to brush up their grammar.

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Chapter **Nine**

Discourse

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **understand** how discourse is different from other core aspects of language.
- ✔ **see** how discourse analysis changes the way we think of language learning.
- ✔ **understand** how the way teachers communicate with learners can affect learning.
- ✔ **design** and edit language teaching dialogues and other spoken materials so that they focus more on discourse and are more natural and realistic.

1. What is discourse?

The study of **discourse** is the study of the relationship between language and its contexts of use. Grammarians study sentences, pieces of language taken out of context. The rules for using the English past tense, for example, can be stated generally, without reference to any particular context or situation. When we study discourse, however, we are interested in why someone chooses a past tense in a particular situation when addressing a particular listener (e.g., *I might say "I wanted to ask you a question."* where the past tense expresses politeness or indirectness). So discourse is concerned with speakers and listeners and normally, with extended stretches of language (e.g., a whole conversation, a story, a phone call) rather than single sentences. Important questions in the study of discourse are:

- What is the relationship between the speakers and how is this reflected in their language?
- What are the goals of the communication (e.g., to tell a story, to teach something, to buy something)?
- How do speakers manage topics and signal to one another their perception of the way the interaction is developing? How do they open and close conversations? How do they make sure they get a turn to speak?

All of these questions are relevant to the language teaching classroom. We can study discourse in written and spoken texts (see McCarthy, 2001, for a summary). However, most discourse analysis is concerned with speaking, and in this chapter we focus on speaking, especially speaking in the classroom, where the talk that takes place between teachers and learners is one of the most important ways that learners can gain access to the language they are trying to learn.

Reflection

1. When you studied foreign languages or your own language at school, did your lessons and coursebooks concentrate on grammar and sentences, or did you look at longer stretches of language (e.g., phone calls, stories, shop interactions)?
2. In what ways do you think language learning would be different if teachers and coursebooks concentrated more on discourse and less on fine grammar points?
3. In typical language lessons you have experienced as a student, how much opportunity did *you* get to talk, rather than listening to the teacher talking?

2. Background to the teaching of discourse

In the past, most language teaching was done through invented sentences or invented dialogues, and real discourse (in the form of real conversations on tape or transcribed) was rarely used in classrooms or materials. This often led to very artificial models of language, which did not resemble real-world talk or the type of language learners are exposed to when they try to use English outside of the classroom. However, two important approaches to the study of spoken discourse in recent years have influenced language teaching and brought a focus on real language into the classroom and teaching materials: exchange structure and conversation analysis (known as CA).

Exchange structure

Exchange structure analysis was originally based on mother-tongue classrooms. Sinclair and Coulthard (1975) recorded teachers and pupils interacting in class and produced a model for understanding classroom discourse. They found that teachers divided their lessons into different phases of activity (called transactions). The transactions were marked at their beginnings and ends by discourse markers such as *okay, so, right, now.* Discourse markers are signals people give one another which reflect how they are monitoring the conversation (e.g., in English we might say *anyway,* or *okay then* when we want to signal that we think the conversation should come to an end). During classroom transactions, Sinclair and Coulthard observed that there were three basic kinds of exchanges of language: (1) question-and-answer sequences (2) pupils responding to teachers' directions, and (3) pupils listening to the teacher giving information. These exchanges consisted of different numbers of moves: the question-answer sequences, for example, consisted of a minimum of three moves, the question (or Initiation), the answer (or Response) and the teacher's feedback (or Follow-up). Here is an example from a second language classroom:

Example

Teacher: *So, can you read question two, Junya?*	***I***
Junya: *(Reading from book) Where was Sabina when this happened?*	***R***
Teacher: *Right, yes, where was Sabina.*	***F***
In Unit 10, where was she?	***I***
Junya: *Er, go out ...*	***R***
Teacher: *She went out, yes.*	***F***

(Walsh, 2001)

The teacher marks the new phase of activity (the transaction) with *so*, then initiates a question (I), the pupil responds (R) and the teacher follows up (F), and then the IRF sequence is repeated. Notice that the teacher's follow-up evaluates the learner's answer (*Right, yes*); such feedback is important to the learner. Classroom talk of this kind takes place every day all around the world. Conversations outside of the classroom also have these same IRF patterns, but speakers do not usually evaluate one another's performances. A typical real-world exchange is:

Example

A: *What's the last day of the month?*	***I***
B: *Friday.*	***R***
A: *Friday.*	***F***
We'll invoice you on Friday.	***I***
B: *That would be great.*	***R***
A: *And fax it over to you.*	***I***
B: *Er, well I'll come and get it.*	***R***
A: *Okay.*	***F***

(CANCODE spoken corpus)

In the world outside the classroom, responses and follow-ups are not usually reactions to test-questions (speaker A is not testing speaker B on what day it is, unlike the teacher in the first example who was testing the learners' understanding), but show that the speakers have understood one another and are satisfied with the way the interaction is progressing (*Friday/ that would be great/ okay*).

For language teachers, understanding the discourse of the classroom itself is crucial, for we teach discourse *through* discourse with our learners. This is another way of saying that in many parts of the world, the main exposure to discourse in English that learners will have is in the classroom itself, via the teacher. A number of studies have compared the discourse of the classroom with "real" communication (e.g., Nunan, 1987). But as van Lier says (1988, p. 267), "the classroom is part of the real world, just as much as the airport, the interviewing room, the chemical laboratory, the beach and so on."

What is important to note about classroom discourse is:

- All classroom discourse is goal-oriented.
- The prime responsibility for what is said in the classroom lies with the teacher.
- Teaching goals and language use are inextricably linked.
- Exchange structure analysis is important for two reasons:

1. It enables us to understand interaction in the classroom and its special nature.
2. It enables us to model spoken language in the world outside the classroom, suggesting ways of constructing dialogues for teaching, role-plays for practicing conversation, etc.

Conversation analysis

Conversation analysis (CA) is a way of looking at the detailed, local aspects of interaction and the way participants in a conversation work hard to make it successful. (See Pomerantz and Fehr, 1997.) CA is concerned with turn-taking, i.e., how speakers manage to take turns without interrupting one another, how they select who shall speak next (Sacks et al, 1974), and how they show they are listening (e.g., by using backchannels, small noises and words such as *uhum, yeah, right, mm*). It is also concerned with **adjacency pairs,** how two bits of language fit or do not fit appropriately with each other. For example, a greeting normally prompts a greeting in return, congratulations normally prompt thank-yous, etc. When the two pair-parts do not fit (what CA analysts call a **dispreferred sequence**), speakers have to work hard to repair potential problems. For instance, if I invite you to dinner and you have to decline, do you just say "No!" or do you say something like "I'd love to come, but I'm busy Friday. I'm so sorry." CA is also concerned with openings and closings of conversations (Schegloff and Sacks, 1973) and with topic management (i.e., how speakers launch new topics, change the subject, decide what to talk about, etc.) (Gardner, 1987). A typical CA analysis is very detailed and complex. Things such as pauses, laughter, false starts (indicated by =) and *ers,* unfinished utterances, overlaps (indicated by ⌊) and points where speakers continue something they started earlier (indicated by +) and backchannels (*yeah*) are all considered important.

Example

(On the telephone, confirming delivery of an order from a company.)

Speaker A: *They'll be finished by mid-morning tomorrow.*

Speaker B: *Right.*

Speaker A: *That means we could pack them up and have them delivered tomorrow afternoon if there's going to be somebody there Saturday.*

Speaker B: *Oh right. Oh well, Jim will be pleased about that, George, I'll= I'll let him know all that and I'll get him to ring you before+*

Speaker A: ⌊*If you= if you could.*

Speaker B: *+as soon as possible obviously because [Speaker A: Yeah] er you need to know to arrange things.*

Speaker A: *That's right.*
Speaker B: *Right. Leave it with me, George.*
Speaker A: *Okay.*
Speaker B: *Okay?*
Speaker A: *Thanks.*
Speaker B: *Thanks a lot.*
Speaker A: *Bye.*
Speaker B: *Bye.*

CA, like exchange structure, gives us insights for language teaching:

- Teachers and learners have to deal with the special turn-taking circumstances of the classroom (e.g., only teachers normally select the next speaker, it is difficult to interrupt, teachers often do not wait long enough for students to answer, etc.).
- Some adjacency pairs will be easy to learn (e.g., the ritualized ones like greeting-greeting, offer-accept), but dispreferred sequences will require skill and practice (Dörnyei and Thurrell, 1994).
- Talking about different topics in a conversation class is difficult; much depends on motivation, familiarity with the topic, etc. Whose topics should be used, the teacher's, the coursebook topics, or the learners' own?

Teaching and learning as discourse

A way of looking at the talk that takes place in the classroom described by Steve Walsh (2001) helps teachers to evaluate their own discourse with their learners using the Self-Evaluation of Teacher Talk (SETT) procedure. We said above that understanding classroom discourse is vital because it is in the classroom that many learners get their main exposure to the target language.

In the SETT procedure, the teaching of discourse and the discourse teachers and learners engage in come together. Walsh's SETT model is based on different modes, or ways of talking, which have clearly defined teaching goals and distinctive discourse features. As the focus of a lesson changes, the pedagogic goals change, and so do the discourse modes.

Walsh's four modes of classroom discourse are:

1. Managerial mode
2. Materials mode
3. Skills and systems mode
4. Classroom context mode

The modes are observed through looking at turn-taking and topic management (see the section on CA, p. 177), and by looking at the IRF patterns (see Exchange structure section, p. 175) in stretches of classroom discourse. Observing the different modes can help teachers understand more fully the discourse of their own classes. In particular, observing different modes can help teachers understand the need to use teacher talk which is *appropriate.* Rather than trying to minimize teacher talking time (TTT), teachers need to learn how to adjust their use of language to their teaching aims. At times, high levels of teacher talk and tightly controlled turn-taking will be appropriate; at other times, depending on the teacher's goal, learners may be given more freedom to control both the direction of the discourse and its content.

Managerial mode

Managerial mode occurs most often at the beginning of lessons, as illustrated in Extract 1:

Extract 1

Teacher: *Ok, we're going to look today at ways to improve your writing and at ways which can be more effective for you and if you look at the writing which I gave you back you will see that I've marked any little mistakes and eh I've also marked places where I think the writing is good and I haven't corrected your mistakes because the best way in writing is for you to correct your mistakes so what I have done I have put little circles and inside the circles there is something which tells you what kind of mistake it is so Miguel would you like to tell me one of the mistakes that you made?*

- Here we see an extended teacher turn and no learner turns.
- The focus is on the business side of the lesson (how mistakes are corrected, etc.).
- There is repetition, and the teacher handing over the exchange to the learners at the end of the teacher's monologue.
- The teacher uses discourse markers *okay* and *so,* which are essential signals that help the learners to follow the talk.

Materials mode

In this mode, pedagogic goals and teacher-learner discourse flow from the materials being used:

Extract 2

(The teacher is doing a blank-filling exercise with the students.)

Teacher: *ok ... now ... see if you can find the words that are suitable in these phrases* (reading) *in the world cup final of 1994 Brazil XXX Italy 2 3 2 and in a XXX shoot-out ... what words would you put in there?*

Student A: *beat*

Teacher: *what beat Italy 3 2 yeah in?*

Student A: *in a penalty shoot-out*

Teacher: *a what?*

Student A: *in a penalty shoot-out*

Teacher: *in a penalty shoot-out, very good, in a penalty shoot-out ... (reading) after 90 minutes THE?*

Students: *the goals goals goals (mispronounced)*

Teacher: *the match was ... what?*

Student B: *match*

Students: *nil nil*

Teacher: *nil nil (reading) and it remained the same after 30 minutes OF?*

Student C: *extra time*

Teacher: *extra time, very good, Emerson.*

- Here the learners are completing a blank-filling exercise on sports vocabulary and the teacher directs the students' contributions; the talk is almost entirely determined by the materials.
- The sequence is classic IRF, the most economical way to manage the interaction, where each turn by the teacher is an evaluation of a learner's contribution and an initiation of another exchange.
- The discourse evolves from the material, which determines turn-taking and topic.

Skills and systems mode

In this mode, the teaching goals are related to language practice (phonology, grammar, vocabulary) or language skill (reading, listening, writing, speaking), and the IRF sequence frequently occurs. The management of topic and turn-taking lies with the teacher. Pedagogic goals focus on accuracy rather than fluency, and the teacher's aim is to get learners to manipulate the L2 system.

(For an explanation of the symbols and capitalization used here, see Appendix page 193.)

Extract 3

Teacher: *he went to what do we call these things the shoes with wheels=*

Student 1: *=ah skates=*

Student 2: *=roller skates=*

Teacher: *=ROLler skates roller skates so [he went]*

Student 1: *[he went] to=*

Student 3: *=roller SKATing=*

Teacher: *=SKATing=*

Student 1: *=he went to=*

Teacher: *=not to just he went [roller skating he went roller skating]*

Student 1: *[roller skating he went roller skating]=*

Here, the teacher's goal is to get the learners to use irregular simple past forms (e.g., *went*). In skills and systems mode, the focus is the language system or a skill. Learning is typically achieved through controlled turn-taking and topic selection, determined by the teacher. Learners respond to teacher prompts in an endeavor to produce accurate utterances.

Classroom context mode

In classroom context mode, opportunities for genuine, real-world-type discourse are frequent and the teacher plays a less prominent role, taking a back seat and allowing learners all the space they need. The principal role of the teacher is to listen and support the interaction, which often takes on the appearance of a casual conversation outside the classroom.

In Extract 4, the teacher is working with six advanced adult learners. The teacher's aim is to generate discussion before doing a cloze exercise on the subject of poltergeists.

Extract 4

Student 1: *=ahh nah the one thing that happens when a person dies my mother used to work with old people and when they died ...the last thing that went out was the hearing about this person =*

Teacher: *=aha*

Student 1: *so I mean even if you are unconscious or on drugs or something I mean it's probably still perhaps can hear what's happened*

Student 2: *but it gets=*

Students: *but it gets/there are=*

Student 1: *=I mean you have seen so many operation and so you can imagine and when you are hearing the sounds of what happens I think you can get a pretty clear picture of what's really going on there=*

Student 3: *=yeah=*

Here the turn-taking is almost entirely managed by the learners, with competition for the floor and turn gaining, holding and passing, typical features of natural conversation. Topic shifts are also managed by the learners, with the teacher responding more as an equal partner. Teacher feedback shifts from form-focused to content-focused and error correction is minimal, and there is genuine communication rather than a display or test of knowledge.

Reflection

1. What sorts of problems do you think learners have when they want to take a turn in a conversation in a new language they are learning, especially if they are conversing with native speakers?
2. How were the four SETT modes (pages 179-182) distributed in typical language lessons you experienced in school? Was there too much or too little of any of the four modes?

3. Principles for teaching discourse

1. Help learners achieve discourse skills *through* discourse.

The classroom is where most learning happens for most learners around the world. In the classroom exchanges, turn-taking, topic management, and all the things we can observe in everyday language outside the classroom are present, but in different and special ways. Learn to observe the discourse process in the classroom.

2. Remember that the classroom is not the outside world; it has its own discourse.

Sometimes it will be appropriate to engage in typical teacher-talk (e.g., asking questions to which you already know the answer, evaluating the students' responses), other times it will be advisable to be more natural and genuinely communicative (getting students to exchange real information about themselves and their worlds). Plan lessons to create a balance between language as *display* (i.e., skills and systems mode of discourse) and language as genuine communication (e.g., listening to authentic recordings, allowing relaxed, natural conversation without constant error correction).

3. Wherever possible, make language dialogues and classroom activities as natural as you can.

Listen to people speaking, in English or in any other language, and observe all the time! If possible, make transcripts of real conversations (starting with very simple ones) from tape recordings you have made. You may not wish to use dialogues in class that look as messy as our example of a CA analysis, so editing the script might be the best way. Alternatively, edit coursebook dialogues by adding small items that will make them seem more natural. Make sure any dialogue you use from your textbook has natural patterns of IRF that occur in the real world. Make sure dialogues contain natural features such as contractions (e.g., *I'm* instead of *I am*), tags (You're from Taiwan, *aren't you*?), backchannels (*uhuh, mm*), discourse markers (*right, well*) and so on, and add them where you feel they are unnaturally absent.

4. Use recordings of spoken language.

These can either come from published sources (e.g., Carter and McCarthy, 1997) or from radio/TV/Web casts. Or make your own in natural situations, building activities around them, which will help raise awareness of discourse in different contexts. These extracts need only be brief snapshots of dialogue, rather than whole conversations. Dramas, soap operas, talk-shows, and other types of discourse offer good data where natural, casual conversation is not available. Set up role-plays and simulations in class which will enable everyone to have something to say, and where students can prepare what they are going to say to lessen the stress of having to speak spontaneously.

5. Create conditions in the classroom where real-world discourse is most likely to be encouraged.

Sometimes you will want to move from a focus on grammar, vocabulary, pronunciation, etc. to a more relaxed, natural "conversation class." Make sure the classroom is set up to facilitate this. Is everyone facing *you,* or are they able to look at one another? Where have the topics come from? You? The coursebook? The students? Are the students allowed to be more relaxed, with you taking a back seat temporarily?

6. Make sure your learners are exposed to the language they will need to manage their own discourses, both in and out of class.

Help learners to become aware of how discourse markers such as *right, good, now, you see,* etc. are used. Practice ways of opening and closing conversations in different contexts. Expose your learners to typical ways of responding and following up, which are different from your evaluative responses to their performances (e.g., responding appropriately to good/bad news, expressing interest, frustration, etc.).

7. Observe yourself and your learners in class; remember, in trying to *teach* discourse you yourself and your learners are engaged in a discourse.

Monitoring the discourse of your classroom is central to being a good teacher. Record yourself occasionally, monitor how evenly turn-taking has been distributed among the students. And monitor your own turns: do you give enough *waiting time* for students to answer questions, or do you always jump in and fill awkward silences or immediately correct errors and slips before they have the chance to compose or recast what they want to say? Do you engage in too many long monologues? Use SETT to monitor the different modes that occur in your classes.

1. Record five minutes of English conversation (either in real life, or from a broadcast or Web cast source such as a soap opera or talk-show) and transcribe it in the way the conversational analysis sample (page 177) is transcribed in this chapter.
2. What features described in the sections on exchange structure and conversational analysis (pages 175-178) can you observe in your transcript

(e.g., IRF patterns, topic management, discourse markers, openings/closings, adjacency pairs, etc.)?

3. How could your transcript be used in a class? Consider whether you would need audio/video as well as the printed script, whether you should edit it first, and how, and what the script could be used for.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

We noted earlier that the IRF pattern was a powerful means by which conversations in and out of the class are organized. Among the problems associated with teaching the IRF structure are the following:

1. In many classes learners only get the opportunity to perform the R (responding mode) and have little opportunity to initiate (I) and even less to follow up (F).

In Extract 5, for example, the teacher is working with a class of preintermediate learners. Her aim is to revise and consolidate sports vocabulary. The discourse structure is classic IR(F); learners have no opportunity to initiate or follow-up and simply respond to the teacher's prompts.

Extract 5

Teacher: *Ken what is the past of win?*

Student 1: *won/won/won*

Teacher: *won good and the past participle?*

Student 1: *won/won*

Teacher: *won good lose?*

Student 2: *lost [lost]*

Teacher: *[lost] lost beat?=*

Students: *=beat beaten=*

Teacher: *=beaten good lead?=*

2. There is not a simple list of expressions one can teach for initiating or for responding or for following up, as appropriate moves will depend on the local context.
3. Teachers control the boundaries, openings, and closings of transactions, so discourse markers are rarely used by learners.

In Extract 6, the teacher is working with a group of upper-intermediate students. The discussion centers around the concept of world peace, and here the teacher is trying to elicit the phrase *military force*. Note how the turn-taking

is tightly controlled by the teacher, indicated by frequent interruptions (marked = in the transcript). The teacher, pursuing his pedagogic goal of eliciting vocabulary, tightly controls the turn-taking in order to steer the discourse towards the target language, *military force.* Learners have little opportunity in this context to control either the direction or content of the discourse.

Extract 6

Teacher: *=what do we call I'm going to try and get the class to tell you what this word is that you're looking for ... er we talk about military* (claps hands) *... military what?*

Student 1: *((1))=*

Teacher: *=like fight=*

Student 2: *=kill=*

Teacher: *=no not [kill]*

Student 2: *[action] action=*

Teacher: *=no ((2)) military?=*

Students: *=power=*

Teacher: *=power think of another word military?*

Students: *((3))force=*

Teacher: *=so she believes in a FORCE for?=*

Student 3: *=that guides our lives=*

Teacher: *=that guides our lives=*

Despite these problems, some teaching materials do focus on the structure of exchanges and offer practice in the different move-types. An example of material focusing on responding moves, is the following example from *Gateways 2* (Oxford University Press, 1998), a coursebook for adults and young adults. The students are invited to think about why Conversation 1 is less successful than Conversation 2. Conversation 2 has more productive responding moves, which answer the other speaker's questions but also expand a little; this is presented to the learners as a strategy which they can both observe and practice in a pair-work activity which follows it:

Conversation Management

Strategies: Keeping the conversation going–answer and add.

Read the two conversations. Notice that in Conversation 1, B kills the conversation each time he or she speaks. How? In Conversation 2, B keeps the conversation going each time. How?

Conversation 1

A: *Gee, it's nice to see you, Pat. So, tell me, what are you doing now?*
B: *I'm working.*
A: *Oh, where?*
B: *In the travel department at American Express.*
A: *That's great! Do you like it?*
B: *Yeah.*
A: *Well ... that's good. Are you still taking classes?*
B: *Yes.*
A: *Uh ... that's nice. Good luck.*
B: *Thanks.*

Conversation 2

A: *Gee, it's nice to see you, Pat. So, tell me, what are you doing now?*
B: *I'm working in the travel department at American Express.*
A: *That's great. Do you like it?*
B: *Oh, yeah. The work is really interesting, and I get to travel.*
A: *Well, that's terrific. Are you still taking classes?*
B: *Uh-huh. I'm going for my master's degree in business.*
A: *Hey, that's great! Good luck.*
B: *Thanks. Take care.*

Figure 1 *Gateways Student Book 2* (Oxford University Press, 1998)

Figure 2 deals with discourse markers, which are taught as vocabulary items, and the term *discourse marker* is explicitly used and explained. A selection of markers is presented, and then there are several exercises and activities to practice them.

Discourse markers in speech

Discourse markers are words and phrases which organize, comment on, or in some way frame what we are saying or writing. An example from spoken language is *well*. For example,

A: *So, you live in Boston?*
B: Well, *near Boston.*

Well here shows that the speaker is aware he or she is changing the direction of the conversation in some way (not giving the expected "yes" answer). In other words, well is a comment on what is being said. Another example is how teachers use words like *right* and *OK* to organize what is happening in a classroom. For example, "*Right/OK,* let's have a look at exercise 3."

Here are some common markers which organize the different stages of a conversation.

- *Now,* what shall we do next? *So,* would you like to come to the table now, please?
- *Good,* I'll ring you on Thursday, then. *Well then,* what was it you want to talk about?
- *Now then,* I want you to look at this picture. [said by someone in control of the conversation, e.g., a teacher]
- *Fine/Great,* let's leave it at that, then, shall we?

In these minidialogues, the markers in bold *modify* or *comment* on what is being said:

A: *It's cold, isn't it?*

B: *Yeah.*

A: **Mind you,** *it is November, so it's not surprising.* (an afterthought, used like however)

A: *It's quite a problem.*

B: **Listen/Look**, *why don't you let me sort it out?*

A: *Would you? Thanks a lot.* (introducing a suggestion/point)

Figure 2 *English Vocabulary in Use, Upper Intermediate* (Cambridge University Press, 2001)

In some materials, writers have attempted to incorporate the principles of adjacency pairs into activities without actually using the linguistic terminology, which might be off-putting for students. In the next example from a beginner's course for adults, the focus is on giving "dispreferred" responses, in this case declining invitations, without being too blunt and causing offence. The learners have listened to an audiotape and are now set a task based on the conversations they have heard.

Example

Here are parts of the conversations. Fill the spaces with one of these words or phrases.

listen *a pity* *perhaps* *probably* *sorry* *sure*

1.

SATOSHI: *John, this is Satoshi. Can you come to the party next Friday?*

JOHN: *No, I can't. .....*

SATOSHI: *Oh, that's .....*

2.

PETER: *Mayumi! How are you?*

MAYUMI: *I'm fine. ....., can you come to our party on Friday?*

PETER: *I'm not ..... I'm very busy this week. .....*

MAYUMI: *Can you come to the party on Friday?*

Lucy: *I don't really know. .....*

Listen to these conversations again and check your answers.

The expressions provided for the blank-filling task are ones which enable the speaker to soften his/her refusal or uncertainty on being invited. The task is followed up by another exercise in providing the second parts of adjacency pairs. Note that the instructions explicitly ask the student to give reasons why they are refusing; this is very important, since just saying *no* will probably create offence.

Example

Quick Check

A. Answer these invitations.

1. Can you come to the party next weekend? (Say *yes*.)
2. Can you come to the cinema on Monday? (Say *no* and then say why you can't.)
3. Can you come for lunch tomorrow? (Say *not* sure and give a reason.)
4. Can you come to the international conference in Paris? (Say *yes*.)
5. Do you want to go on holiday in August? (Say *no* and give a reason.)

True to Life, p. 94

5. Discourse in the classroom

Teachers play an important role in *shaping* classroom discourse and in maximizing opportunities for learning. Rather than accepting a learner's first response, for example, teachers can construct genuine opportunities for learning. They do this through careful control of their own language and by helping learners to say what they mean. Note that this is not simply a matter of reducing the quantity of teacher talk, but more a case of using teacher talk which is appropriate.

Reflection

1. Can you think of stages in a lesson when it would be considered normal to have high teacher talking time (TTT) and others when low TTT would be desirable?
2. What strategies can teachers use to help learners express themselves? For example, *feeding in* new vocabulary as and when it is needed.
3. Based on your own experience as a language learner, which teacher strategies seem to be effective?

In Extract 7 (p. 191), the teacher is discussing amusing incidents at school with a group of intermediate adult learners. The actual interaction is presented on the left and the teacher's own commentary on the lesson on the right.

Note how the teacher is helping the learner to construct meaning:

- In turn 5, the teacher pushes the learner to extend his contribution by asking for clarification (*So what happened, what made it funny?*).
- In turn 7 (and the commentary), the teacher clarifies a learner's contribution for the whole class.
- In turn 9, the teacher checks for confirmation and feeds in the phrase *closer relationship* for the whole class.
- Throughout, the teacher is aware of the need to shape the learner's contribution in order to help the learner's self-expression and clarify for the rest of the class.

Extract 7

Lesson transcript

1. **T:** *what was the funniest thing that happened to you at school (1) Tang?*
2. **S1:** *funniest thing?*
3. **T:** *the funniest*
4. **S1:** *the funniest thing I think out of school was go to picnic*
5. **T:** *go on a picnic? So what happened what made it funny?*
6. **S1:** *go to picnic we made playing or talking with the teacher more closely because in the school we have a line you know he the teacher and me the student=*
7. **T:** *=so you say there was a gap or a wall between the teacher and the students so when you=*
8. **S1:** *if you go out of the school you went together with more* (gestures 'closer' with hands)=
9. **T:** *=so you had a closer relationship [outside the school]*
10. **L1:** *[yeah yeah]*

Teacher's commentary

Basically he's explaining that on a picnic there wasn't this gap that there is in a classroom—psychological gap—that's what I'm drawing out of him.

There's a lot of scaffolding being done by me in this monitoring, besides it being managerial, there's a lot of scaffolding because I want to get it flowing, I want to encourage them, keep it moving as it were. I'm clarifying to the class what he's saying because I know in an extended turn—a broken turn—and it's not exactly fluent and it's not articulate—I try to reinterpret for the benefit of the class so that they're all coming with me at the same time and they all understand the point being made by him.

Using Extract 7,

1. paraphrase what you think the learner is saying and if possible, compare with a classmate.
2. comment on the ways in which the teacher clarifies the learner's contribution.
3. what is the value of allowing learners to "struggle" with what they are trying to say?

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, we have examined two approaches to analyzing discourse: the study of exchanges and conversation analysis. Exchange analysis shows us how speakers initiate, respond, and follow up; how they divide their discourse into longer segments (transactions); and how they mark these using discourse markers. Conversation analysts study turn-taking, adjacency pairs, topic management, discourse marking, and other local features of talk.

The language class is unique: we are engaged in a discourse with our learners in order to help them achieve satisfactory discourse in the target language. But if we want directly to teach aspects of discourse, how should we do this–through teaching specific items (such as discourse markers), by practicing appropriate responses and follow-ups in context? Which topics should teachers and learners talk about, and whose topics?

Above all, teachers and learners are always engaged in the discourse of the classroom, and the teacher is in control. Being aware of what you say in the class and how you help your learners say what they want to say is very important. The SETT framework will help you to be aware of what you say as a teacher, how the four classroom modes are appropriate to different goals, and how you can improve your management of the interaction to produce the best results.

Appendix Transcription system

The transcription system is adapted from van Lier (1988) and Johnson (1995).

T:	-	*teacher*
L:	-	*learner (not identified)*
L1: L2: *etc.*	-	*identified learner*
LL:	-	*several learners speaking at once or the whole class*
/ok/ok/ok/	-	*overlapping or simultaneous utterances by more than one learner*
[do you understand?]		
[I see] or	-	*overlap between teacher and learner*
= or +	-	*latching: a turn continues, or one turn follows another without any pause.*
...	-	*pause of one second or less marked by three periods.*
(4 sec) (pause)	-	*silence; length (where specified) given in seconds*
((4 sec))	-	*a stretch of unintelligible speech with the length given in seconds*
Paul, Peter, Mary	-	*capitals are only used for proper nouns*
?	-	*rising intonation, not necessarily a question*
acCUSED	-	*indicates that a syllable or word is given extra stress*

Further readings

Cook, G. 1989. *Discourse.* Oxford: Oxford University Press.

This book is a good introduction to discourse, pitched for teachers in training and others new to the area.

Drew, P. and J. Heritage (eds.) 1992. *Talk at Work: Interaction in institutional settings.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This book gives a good cross section of typical CA investigations and shows CA techniques in operation.

McCarthy, M. 1991. *Discourse Analysis for Language Teachers.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

McCarthy explores in more detail the concepts found in Cook's introduction.

van Lier, L. 1996. *Interaction in the Language Curriculum: Awareness, Autonomy and Authenticity.* New York, NY: Longman.

This gives a useful introduction to the ways in which teachers can influence classroom interaction and its effects on language learning.

Useful Web sites

ERIC (Educational Resources Information Centre) (http://www.cal.org/ericcll), links to Digest: Discourse Analysis for Language Teachers (http://www.cal.org/ericcll/digest/0107demo.html)

ERIC is an invaluable source of information.

Conversation Analysis.Net (http://www.conversation-analysis.net)
Ethno/CA News (http://www.pscw.uva.nl/emca)

Sponsored by newsgroups dedicated to conversation analysis, these are sites that have information about publications, conferences, research in conversation analysis, and membership details.

US Department of State Office of English Language Programs (http://exchanges.state.gov/education/engteaching/onlineca.htm)

This is an excellent general site for teaching resources. Use their search box to search for "classroom discourse" or "discourse."

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Section **Three**

Supporting the learning process

This section deals with ways of integrating and supporting the ideas presented in the first two sections of the book. The first chapter looks at a unique application of communicative language teaching called content-based instruction. In this section, you will find a recycling and integration of many of the ideas presented in the preceding section.

Coursebooks are a staple in most classrooms, providing guidance, coherence, and practical ideas. In Chapter 11, you will find ways of using coursebooks to support your teaching. A similar treatment for computer-assisted language teaching is presented in the chapter that follows.

The next two chapters also form a pair. Chapter 13 introduces the idea that in addition to focusing on language, the classroom should focus on the learning process. Helping learners identify and develop their own learning styles and strategies is fundamental to the idea of autonomy, which is the theme of the chapter that follows.

The final chapter looks at assessment and evaluation from the perspective of the classroom teacher. As with other chapters in the collection, the chapter provides background and articulates key principles before providing practical examples of assessment and evaluation in action.

Chapter **Ten**

Content-based instruction

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Goals

At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

- ✔ **define** content-based instruction (CBI).
- ✔ **differentiate** between common forms of CBI (e.g., theme-based, sheltered, adjunct, sustained-content language teaching).
- ✔ **understand** how these forms apply to different student populations and instructional settings.
- ✔ **demonstrate** familiarity with the principles of CBI.
- ✔ **apply** these principles to your instructional context.

1. What is content-based instruction?

My personal interest in **content-based instruction, CBI,** derives from an experience I had when I was 11 years old. My family moved to Germany for a year and I found myself, with no knowledge of German whatsoever, attending a school in Germany where the medium of instruction was German. I was fortunate that the headmistress of the school designated me as a *Gaststudentin* (guest student). This meant that I was allowed to audit classes but was not required to do all the homework or take tests.

Certain subjects were easier than others. For example, in math I could partially follow what the teacher was presenting by looking at the problems she wrote on the board. History was much more difficult to follow. Approximately three months into the experience, however, something happened. I was sitting in biology class and the teacher had drawn a large circle on the board. She then filled in a smaller darkened circle in the center of this circle, labeling the circles with two unfamiliar words–*Zelle* and *Kernzelle.* This was followed by a series of additional sketches showing concentric outer circles and an inner mass that appeared to first grow, then begin to divide. "Oh," I remember thinking, "she's teaching us about cell division." Since we'd studied cell division in my school in the U.S., I was able to apply my background knowledge. I decided that *Zelle* must mean cell and *Kernzelle* nucleus. Even more amazingly, I realized that if I concentrated, I could figure out almost everything the teacher was saying. Without consciously realizing it, I was beginning to acquire German–not in the traditional way (in a language classroom with a language teacher), but in the subject matter classroom, through **content**. Within a month, I was understanding most of my subject matter classes and within a year I was relatively fluent.

Years later, having been trained as a language teacher, I realized my experience in Germany had a name, CBI. I also learned that my success learning German could be explained by certain theories of second language acquisition.

Before proceeding further, let's examine two important notions, **context** and content. To comprehend the difference between these, try the following. First, picture a teacher's use of the *context* "Los Angeles vs. San Francisco" in a one-hour lesson on writing paragraphs of comparison and contrast. In this lesson, the teacher might first present ways to organize compare/contrast paragraphs (e.g., block style vs. point by point style), then elicit from students the differences between the two cities and brainstorm with them an organizational plan for the paragraph. Next, picture a five-week CBI unit centered on the *content* of urban issues (e.g., crime, traffic, youth culture) in Los Angeles. In this unit, students read articles about urban issues in the city, conduct independent research on one of the subtopics, and discuss and write about their findings. All language instruction (e.g., grammar, vocabulary, writing) is conduct-

ed using the content of urban issues as a point of departure. Thus, students might study the grammar of conditional sentences within the context of urban crime ("If police efforts were more community-based, the inhabitants of that community would not perceive the police as enemies.")

In the first example, the teacher uses the context of differences between the two cities to illustrate a single teaching point (comparison/contrast). Whereas in the second example, all language activities in the extended five-week unit revolve around the content of urban issues in Los Angeles. This content-rich environment provides optimal conditions for students to acquire language since (1) language is being continually recycled throughout the unit and (2) students are given multiple opportunities to use the new language they acquire as they read, discuss, and write about the topics.

Reflection

1. Think back to your own experiences in the second language classroom (either as a learner or a teacher). Can you remember any of the contexts used to present language items? What were these?
2. Think of other examples to illustrate the difference between context and content.

What, then, are the characteristic features of CBI? Quite simply, CBI refers to the teaching of language through exposure to content that is interesting and relevant to learners. This content serves several purposes. First, it provides a rich context for the language classroom, allowing the teacher to present and explain specific language features. Additionally, it provides for what Stephen Krashen (1985) calls comprehensible **input**–challenging language that is slightly above the current linguistic level of the students which, according to Krashen, provides the foundation for successful language acquisition.

Let's return to the example of the CBI unit on urban issues mentioned above. In this unit, the content of urban life in Los Angeles has been chosen because of its relevance to the learners' lives and its potential interest level. The course materials, which consist primarily of readings about various aspects of urban life in the city (e.g., violence, traffic, urban settlement patterns), provide a context for the teacher to use when teaching lessons on issues such as citing sources or achieving paragraph unity. It is important in our definition of CBI to note that the selection of content extends over more than one lesson. In fact, CBI units are often several weeks or more in length. As we will see later in the chapter, the use of sustained content over a period of time effectively differentiates this approach from the previous practice of simply selecting a context for the presentation of new language.

Assume that you have been asked to design a CBI unit around the theme of the city or area where you live. Make a list of at least five topics you would include in this unit. Share this list with other members of the class.

2. Background to content-based instruction

Basing language teaching on content is not a new idea. For probably as long as second languages have been taught, materials developers and teachers have sought interesting content to engage learners' interest. However, the approach that has come to be known as CBI first appeared in the mid-1980s with the publication of Bernard Mohan's work, *Language and Content.* Mohan characterizes his work as an exploration into the ways in which the "learning of language and subject matter… [can] be accomplished" (Mohan, 1986, p. iii). Following closely on the heels of Mohan's exploratory work are two other early works on CBI by Cantoni-Harvey (1987) and Crandall (1987)–both of which helped to further launch this movement.

In the work I have done with my colleagues Ann Snow and Mari Wesche (Brinton, Snow, and Wesche, 1989), we identify several "prototype" forms of CBI–namely theme-based language instruction, sheltered content instruction, and adjunct instruction. These forms differ in several important respects: (1) the type of population and setting that they serve; (2) the respective degree of focus on language or content; (3) the selection of content; and (4) the degree of coordination with subject matter courses and instructors.

Reflection

1. Think about a situation where you learned or have taught English.
2. What was the setting (e.g., at school, a private language institute, a university)?
3. Who were the students in the class and why were they learning English?
4. In what way did the setting, the population of students, and their reasons for learning English influence how English was taught?

To better understand these three prototype forms, let's examine the following scenarios:

Scenario 1

Theme-based language instruction: Beginning-level English language learners studying English at the fourth grade level work with the theme of friendship. Since the primary aim of this class is language acquisition, the English teacher uses this theme as a point of departure for instruction in reading, listening, speaking, and writing skills (Brinton, 2001a). The thematic content stretches over several weeks of instruction, providing rich input for lessons that are either language-based (i.e., with a focus on vocabulary, pronunciation, and grammar) or skills-based (i.e., with a focus on listening, speaking, writing, or reading). In this environment, students can successfully acquire language.

Scenario 2

Sheltered content instruction: English language learners enrolled in a sheltered seventh grade science class improve their English language skills while studying about the big bang theory of the origin of the universe (Brinton and Holten, 1997). The science teacher in this class has received special training in working with second language (L2) learners. Because the students are all still acquiring English as a second or additional language, she modifies her presentation style to help the students comprehend the material. The teacher's primary goal is for students to understand the content materials (in this case, about the origin of the universe). But she also spends some time helping students with language-related issues (e.g., academic vocabulary, reading skills) that pertain to the science unit they are studying. The exposure to higher-level language (through the content materials) and the explicit focus on language issues by the teacher set the stage for successful language acquisition.

Reflection

Teachers teaching sheltered classes modify their teaching to facilitate learners' comprehension. Examine the partial list below. Then decide for each type of accommodation which category it belongs to.

Categories: (1) linguistic accommodation
(2) paralinguistic accommodation (use of body language)
(3) instructional routine

Type of accommodation:

- slower rate of speech
- gesturing to emphasize important points
- checking students' background knowledge
- frequent comprehension checking
- simpler sentence grammar
- outlining the day's activities on the board
- shorter sentences
- use of audio-visual aids

Scenario 3

Adjunct instruction: University-level ESL students are enrolled in paired or "adjuncted" English and psychology classes (Brinton, Snow, and Wesche, 1989; in press). Two separate instructors teach the classes—an English language instructor and a psychology instructor. Although the two classes meet and are graded separately, the two instructors meet regularly to coordinate their teaching objectives, and the English language instructor uses the psychology materials as content for the English language course. The instructional goals of these two classes differ since the main goal for the psychology class is for students to understand and learn the subject matter; the main goal for the English class, on the other hand, is for students to improve their English language skills. Students are able to achieve this goal through their exposure to challenging, yet comprehensible, input in the psychology class and through the language support and systematic language instruction that they receive in the English class.

These scenarios are real-life examples of the prototype models my colleagues and I described in our 1989 work. To summarize the differences in these models, let's return to the differences noted on page 202.

1. Population/setting–The first difference concerns the types of students and settings to which the models are best suited. Since theme-based instruction is the most generally applicable, it is appropriate at virtually any level of language learning and in a wide variety of settings. Sheltered and adjunct instruction, however, are more restricted in their applicability. Sheltered courses are typically found in middle schools and high schools where large populations of learners are receiving subject matter instruction in a language other than their first language. Finally, adjunct courses are typically found in settings where students are studying language as well as subject matter, such as high schools, colleges, and universities.
2. Lesson focus–The second distinction between the models concerns the focus of the lesson itself. As can be seen from the above scenarios, the instructional focus in CBI may be on language (as in theme-based instruction), on content (as in sheltered instruction), or on both (as in adjunct instruction).
3. Selection of content–The third distinction concerns the type of content that is selected. Because most CBI instruction occurs in schools, colleges, and universities, the content of the language class often overlaps with that of students' subject matter classes. In our ESL courses at my university, for example, we have selected content from a range of required general education courses that students take to graduate from the university.

4. Degree of faculty coordination–A final distinction involves the degree or amount of coordination required between language and content faculty. Adjunct instruction is quite different from the other two models in this respect since it requires the systematic coordination of the language and content instructors. For example, these instructors typically meet before the course (and periodically throughout the course) to discuss curriculum and to coordinate objectives. They may also use this time to discuss the types of assignments they will set for the students. This in not true for sheltered and theme-based instruction, where the instructors do not coordinate in this fashion.

These "prototype" models represent early attempts of practitioners to apply CBI principles to various student populations and instructional settings. As such, they are useful for understanding the flexibility of the CBI approach. However, since that time CBI has been applied in virtually all parts of the world, with the result that numerous additional CBI models continue to evolve.

A recent innovation in CBI is **sustained-content language teaching (SCLT)**. SCLT (Pally, 2000; Murphy and Stoller, 2001) involves a focus on a "single content area, or carrier topic ... [along with] a complementary focus on L2 learning and teaching" (Murphy and Stoller, 2001, p. 3). According to Murphy & Stoller, because the use of sustained content simulates the conditions and demands of the subject matter classroom, it allows language learners to more deeply engage the content, in the process acquiring the academic vocabulary and language skills needed for the mainstream. SCLT does not require coordination of the language teacher with a content-area expert. Instead, the content serves as a point of departure for language instruction. As such, SCLT most closely resembles theme-based instruction, with the difference that theme-based courses typically cover a variety of topics, whereas in SCLT the content is "sustained," and students work with only one topic. In theme-based instruction, according to this distinction, a ten-week course might consist of five different topics (e.g., nuclear energy, cloning, volunteerism, leadership, and life expectancy).

3. Principles for content-based instruction

1. Base instructional decisions on content rather than language criteria.

Two issues that language course planners or materials designers face at the outset of the planning phase are selection (i.e., which items to include) and sequencing (i.e., how to order these items). In the days of the grammar trans-

lation approach, it was thought that certain language items (e.g., simple present tense) were more easily acquired than others. Thus, the decision was made to include these easier items in the beginner course and to sequence them at the beginning. Content-based instruction takes a rather radical departure from this approach since it allows the choice of content to dictate or influence the selection and sequencing of language items. In adjunct instruction, for example, the psychology professor's introductory lecture on "What is Psychology?" might be coupled with the English instructor's focus on the language of definition (Brinton, Snow, and Wesche, in press). Similarly, in the sheltered unit about the origins of the universe mentioned above, the focus might be on helping students understand and acquire core academic vocabulary (e.g., "expand" equals "get bigger;" "decrease" equals "get smaller," etc.).

2. Integrate skills.

Rather than isolate skills in skill-specific classes (e.g., "English Grammar," "Writing," "Listening and Speaking"), CBI practitioners use an integrated skills approach to language teaching, covering all four language skills as well as grammar and vocabulary. This reflects what happens in the real world, where interactions involve multiple skills simultaneously. Also, unlike other approaches that dictate a specific skill sequence within each lesson (i.e., starting with listening, then reading, then writing, etc.), there is no set sequence of skills to be taught in CBI. Instead, a lesson may begin with any skill or, alternatively, with a focus on grammar or vocabulary. As we have seen in principle one, it is the content itself that influences the decisions about selection and sequencing.

Examine the teaching sequences (Figure 1) for the UCLA introductory units on local winds (atmospheric science unit) and kinship (anthropology unit) (from Brinton, et al., 1997). Are these sequences the same or different? What explanation can you find for the sequencing? Share your ideas with other classmates.

Introduction: Local Winds	**Introduction: Images of Family Life**
Strategy: *Cubing*	***Grammar:*** *Using modals to express possibility*
Vocabulary: *Expressing power through verbs*	***Vocabulary:*** *Kinship terms*
Literature: A Year in Provence	***Reading:*** The Way We Are
Grammar: *Participial phrases*	***Vocabulary:*** *Figurative language*

Reading: *Relish the Rhône* ***Grammar:*** *Verb tense in description, narration and explanation* ***Video lecture:*** *Wind direction* ***Strategy:*** *Comprehending unstressed words* ***Reading:*** Demon's Gates and Devil's Doors ***Grammar:*** *Expressing contrast through subordination* ***Strategy:*** *Sensory description in storytelling*	***Reading:*** Why Men Need Family Values ***Grammar:*** *Referring to sources* ***Strategy:*** *Reacting to readings* ***Video lecture:*** *Post-marital residence* ***Vocabulary:*** *Key terms*

Figure 1 Teaching sequences: Units on local winds and kinship

3. Involve students actively in all phases of the learning process.

Because it falls under the more general rubric of **communicative language teaching** (CLT), the CBI classroom is learner rather than teacher centered (Littlewood, 1981). In such classrooms, students learn through doing and are actively engaged in the learning process; they do not depend on the teacher to direct all learning or to be the source of all information. Central to CBI is the belief that learning occurs not only through exposure to the teacher's input, but also through peer input and interactions. Accordingly, students assume active, social roles in the classroom that involve interactive learning, negotiation, information gathering, and the co-construction of meaning (Lee and VanPatten, 1995). Richards and Rodgers (1985) and Nunan (1989) characterize some possible roles played by students in the communicatively-oriented classroom as follows: recipient/listener; planner, interactor and negotiator, tutor of other learners; and evaluator/monitor of his/her own progress. All these roles are ones assumed by learners in the CBI classroom. In keeping with the multiple roles assumed by learners, the CBI teacher also assumes multiple roles. She may serve as the primary resource for students, particularly where issues of language or culture are concerned. But she also serves as the organizer of tasks, the controller or facilitator of student-centered activities, the prompter of student responses, and the assessor (both formal and informal) of student efforts.

4. Choose content for its relevance to students' lives, interests, and/or academic goals.

The choice of content in CBI courses ultimately depends on the student and the instructional setting. In many school contexts, content-based lan-

guage instruction closely parallels school subjects. Thus, in a middle school context, topics may be drawn from social science, history, and/or life science areas that students are studying in their subject matter classes. Similarly, in the college or university setting, students may enroll in linked or adjunct language and content classes, with dual instructors covering the same content from a different perspective and with differing instructional objectives. In other settings, topics may be drawn from students' occupational needs or be determined by general interest inventories. In fact, this principle is often criticized as a potential weakness of CBI since determining what is of relevance or interest to students is notoriously difficult for both teachers and materials or curriculum developers. However, because the introduction to content in CBI stretches over an extended period of instructional time, teachers have ample opportunity to engage students' interest and to capitalize on students' prior knowledge about a given topic. This mandate for the teacher to sell the students on the content that has been selected is an important underpinning of CBI teacher training.

Decide on a setting (either the one in which you are currently teaching or one in which you hope to teach in the future). With this setting in mind, locate interesting and relevant authentic content. Share this content with class members and discuss your reasons for selecting it.

5. Select authentic texts and tasks.

A key component of CBI is authenticity–both of the texts used in the classroom and the tasks that learners are asked to perform. To better understand this principle, we need to examine the meaning of authenticity. Hutchinson and Waters define **authentic texts** as those that are "not originally constructed for language teaching purposes" (1987, p. 159). Thus, an extract from a content area textbook, a cartoon, the lyrics to a popular song, or a short story would all qualify as authentic texts. However, as Hutchinson and Waters note, bringing an authentic text into the classroom alters its original purpose, which was not to teach language, but rather to inform (in the case of the textbook), entertain (in the case of the cartoon), or perhaps both (in the case of the song or the short story). In other words, the use of an authentic text in a language classroom implies that it has been removed from its original context and that its purpose in the language classroom is quite a different one indeed.

This objection also holds true for task authenticity. Our purpose in interacting with texts in the real world varies greatly according to the content itself, as well as to the circumstances. In the case of a textbook passage, we

may read for global understanding and/or specific details; in the case of a popular song, we may listen purely for enjoyment or seek to understand the meaning of the lyrics. Similarly, with a political cartoon or newspaper editorial we may read to understand the political point of view being expressed and/or to determine the cartoonist's or author's bias. In CBI, since the objective is to aim for authenticity of task, the task(s) associated with a given text should mirror those that would take place in the real world.

Discuss the real-world purposes that an individual might have for using the content you selected in the previous Action box (page 208) and brainstorm several appropriate tasks that learners could do using this content. Share these with group members or the class as a whole.

6. Draw overt attention to language features.

The purpose of CBI is to expose learners to authentic input with the goal of their being able to use language for communicative purposes. Texts form the primary input source in the CBI classroom, with additional input provided by the teacher (through classroom language) and peers (in pair or group work). All of these provide comprehensible input. However, CBI departs from some other approaches to language teaching in its belief that comprehensible input alone will not lead to successful language acquisition (Brinton and Holten, 2001). Instead, it makes use of awareness-raising tasks to draw attention to specific language features found in the authentic texts.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

The techniques and tasks used in the CBI classroom are familiar ones to anyone who practices CLT. These techniques and tasks reflect the principles of CBI since they involve the active participation of learners in the exchange of content or theme-related information. The following is a partial list of techniques and activities commonly found in CBI classrooms.

Pair and group work are a hallmark of the communicative classroom. In CBI, they entail the discussion or exchange of information related to the content unit. In pair or group work, the teacher first presents the task, then divides students and sets a time limit for completion of the task. While students work, she circulates to answer questions and makes sure that students are "on task"

(i.e., completing the task according to the instructions given). Pair and group work culminate in a reporting stage, with students from each group sharing their ideas or solutions with the rest of the class.

Information gap is a form of pair work in which the participants are each given different pieces of information. Using only language (i.e., without looking at their partner's information), they must communicate to fill in the missing gaps in information.

Jigsaw is another variation of information gap. Students are first divided into "expert" groups, with each group given a different piece of information. Once the students in each group have become familiar with their piece of the jigsaw, they are regrouped. Each new group consists of at least one student from each of the previous expert groups. Students then share their expertise to complete the task and report their findings to the rest of the class.

Graphic organizers involve the use of visuals that assist in organizing information. They can consist of diagrams, tables, clusters, etc. The teacher may use these graphic organizers to present information or guide student brainstorming. Alternatively, learners may be asked to read or listen for key information and enter this information in the graphic organizer.

Discussion and debate involve opportunities for students to express their own opinions about topics, in this case related to the theme of the CBI unit.

Role-play entails having students act out a situation. Each participant is given information about the role and the situation. Role-play can involve two or more students. In CBI, the role-play would be connected to the overall unit theme or topic.

Survey tasks ask students to conduct a poll of people (either inside or outside the classroom) to determine opinions on a selected topic. These opinions are reported back to others, usually in the form of a chart or table.

Process writing is a technique commonly found in CLT. It involves having students write multiple drafts of papers. Each draft receives either comments from the teacher or from a peer. Based on these comments, the student writer revises the draft and resubmits it to the teacher for evaluation. Often, students do two or three drafts of each paper they submit.

Problem solving involves students working in pairs or groups to arrive at a solution to a given problem. In CBI, the context of the problem relates to the theme students have been studying in the content unit.

Sequencing involves students rearranging events or pieces of information into their logical order. This type of task is especially useful in the teaching of reading and listening.

Ranking involves students determining an order of listed items based on their perceived importance. Ranking is often done in pairs or groups, with group members being asked to reach consensus on the ordering. A designated reporter then shares the ranking that has been determined with the class as a whole, often providing a rationale for this ranking.

Values clarification involves students taking a stand (agreeing or disagreeing) on controversial statements related to a chosen topic. Usually done in pairs or groups, it often involves asking students to come to consensus and then report on their decision and their discussion to the rest of the class members.

Reflection

Examine the list of CBI techniques and tasks (pages 209-211). Which ones have you experienced in your own second or foreign language learning? Which of these techniques and tasks have you enjoyed most? Why?

5. Content-based instruction in the classroom

To illustrate CBI in action, let's look at selected classroom extracts from one of the scenarios mentioned earlier–the use of friendship as the content in an integrated language unit for intermediate-level learners in the middle school setting (Brinton, 2001a). This entire theme unit is designed to span several weeks of instruction. (See Appendix page 220 for an overview of the complete unit.) The extracts illustrate the integrated skills focus of CBI as well as the other underlying principles discussed above.

Extract 1 Introduction to the CBI unit "What is a friend?"

In the classroom extracts, *T* stands for teacher and *S* represents a particular student. *Ss* stands for students.

Background: This interaction takes place at the outset of the CBI unit. The teacher has begun the unit by writing some key words related to the theme on the blackboard (e.g., buddy, friend, acquaintance, pal, schoolmate, classmate) and asking students to decide whether these words have general or specific meanings and whether they are used in formal or informal contexts. She next displays several definitions on the overhead projector:

T: *Who can read aloud the first definition?*

S: (raises hand)

T: *Okay, Winnie.*

S: *"Friend—person, not a relation, whom one knows and likes well."*

T: *Great. So how many pieces of the definition are there?*

S: *Three.*

T: *Anybody else?*

S: *Four.*

T: *Right. What are they?* (enumerates with fingers as students identify person, not a relation, knows, and likes well.) *Is it a good definition? What do you think?*

Ss: *Yeah ...*

T: *Any problems that you can see? Does it leave out anybody you think belongs?*

Ss: (murmured responses, e.g., *my sister, my dog...*)

T: *Yeah, it says "not a relation" so we can't include your sister or your cousin. And it also says a person so we can't include your dog or your cat. Let's look at another definition. Who can read number two? Hyun-sook?*

S: *"Friend—person whom one likes but is not related."*

T: *Thanks. Okay, what do you think? Is this the same as the other definition?*

S: *Yeah.*

T: *Is it missing anything? Take another look at the first definition ...*

S: *Knows.*

T: *Right. Is that important?*

S: *No, not really.*

T: *I agree. If you like somebody well, we can assume you know them, right? Okay, let's look at the third definition. Any volunteers? Yuri, go ahead ...*

S: *"Friend—someone whom you like very much and enjoy spending time with."*

T: *Anything different about this definition?*

Ss: *Enjoy spending time with.*

T: *Right. Is that important? Are your friends people you enjoy spending time with?*

Ss: (mumbled responses and gestures of affirmation)

T: *Mmhmmm ... we usually enjoy spending time with our friends. If we don't, they aren't very good friends! Anything else different about this definition?*

S: *It says* somebody, *not* a person. *Maybe it can be a dog or a cat?*

T: *That's interesting. What do the rest of you think? Do you agree with Raoul that this definition includes pets?*

S: *Isn't* somebody *a person?*

T: *Yes, usually. So this definition probably doesn't include pets either.*

T: *What about the last definition? Jinna? Can you read it for us?*

S: *"Friend—person whom one likes and trusts."*

T: *What about this one? Is there anything different here?*

Ss: *Trusts.*

T: *Is* trusts *important?*

Ss: *Yeah.*

T: *I agree. I think it's really important. But the other definitions didn't mention it at all, did they? Okay, so get in your groups and take out one piece of paper per group. I want each group to choose somebody to write. In the space at the end of the page, I want your group to write its own definition of* friend. *You can use the dictionary definitions we just looked at to help you create this definition. Is everybody clear what I want you to do?*

Ss: *Yes.*

T: *Okay, you have five minutes.*

Commentary The teacher begins this lesson by reviewing vocabulary associated with the word "friend." She elicits words and their meanings from students and introduces several definitions of friend from learner dictionaries. She then elicits reactions from students, prompting or guiding them in the discussion activity. This segment of the lesson is controlled by the teacher. However, the atmosphere is interactive and students are free to give their personal opinions. The activity sets the stage for the next, student-centered activity in which students create a group definition of friendship.

Reflection

Read Extract 2 (pages 214-216).

1. What is the language focus of this activity?
2. Which principles of CBI do you see reflected?
3. How well would this topic work in the setting that you teach in/hope to teach in?

Extract 2 Grammar review

Background: Prior to this activity, students have completed a group work task involving magazine pictures. Each group was given a magazine picture of a child and asked to (1) give the child an appropriate name and (2) from a list, select five adjectives (e.g., *funny, generous, dependable, helpful,* and *thoughtful*) that describe the child's personal characteristics. The magazine pictures along with the names and characteristics are posted on the blackboard for all to see. Figure 2 shows the blackboard layout.

Jenny	Tommy	Ling	Sam	Tara
outgoing	rowdy	shy	smart	funny
smart	funny	sweet	helpful	energetic
caring	loud	outgoing	nice	warm
nice	lazy	energetic	loyal	smart
helpful	loyal	warm	shy	caring

Figure 2 Blackboard layout

T: *That's great! So now we have all the pictures on the blackboard. Do you think these kids are friends?*

Ss: *Yeah.*

S: *Not everybody.*

T: *Right, they probably aren't all friends. Do you think Jenny and Tara are friends?*

Ss: *Yeah.*

T: *Why?*

Ss: *Because they're the same.*

T: *Exactly. What about Tommy and Ling?*

Ss: *Probably not.*

T: *Right, their characteristics are pretty different. I don't think they're friends. So what do you think the relationship between all the kids is? Sara?*

S: *They go to school.*

T: *What's the word we learned?*

Ss: *Classmate.*

T: *Right, they're classmates. Okay, so let's take a look at the personal characteristics you've listed. What about Jenny? Who can read me the characteristics listed for Jenny? Martha?*

S: *"Outgoing, smart, caring, nice, helpful ..."*

T: *Good. Tell me again ... Jenny is ...*

S: *Jenny is outgoing, smart, caring, nice, and helpful.*

T: *Right. Somebody else ... tell me about Tara ... Okay, Winnie?*

S: *Tara is funny, energetic, warm, smart, and caring.*

T: *Excellent. Everybody, take a look at the board. Can you find two people who are outgoing?*

Ss: *Jenny and Ling.*

T: *Right. So tell me about Jenny and Ling. Raoul?*

S: *Jenny is outgoing and Ling is outgoing.*

T: *Can we say it another way? Remember what we practiced yesterday? Try again, Raoul.*

S: *Jenny is outgoing and Ling is so.*

T: *... and Ling is? Grace?*

S: *Jenny is outgoing and Ling is too.*

T: *Great.* (Writes following pattern on board: *X is ___ and Y is TOO.) Everybody, repeat, Jenny is outgoing and Ling is too.*

Ss: *Jenny is outgoing and Ling is too.*

T: *... and Ling is too.*

Ss: *... and Ling is too.*

T: *Try the whole sentence again, everybody ...*

Ss: *Jenny is outgoing and Ling is too.*

T: *Now find two people who are shy. Who can tell me about them? Okay, Yuri ...*

S: *Ling is shy and Sam is too.*

T: *Perfect. Everybody* (motions students to chorally repeat)

Ss: *Ling is shy and Sam is too.*

T: (Points on the board to Tommy and Tara) *Tell me about Tommy and Tara* (motions students to chorally repeat)

Ss: *Tommy is funny and Tara is too.*

T: *We learned another way to say it. Can anybody remember? Hyun-Sook?*

S: *Tommy is funny and so is Tara.*

T: (Writes following pattern on board: *X is ___ and SO is Y.) Everybody* (motions students to chorally repeat), *Tommy is funny and so is Tara.*

Ss: *Tommy is funny and so is Tara.*

T: (Points on the board to Sam and Jenny, motioning students to chorally repeat.)

Ss: *Sam is helpful and so is Jenny.*

T: *Okay, get in your groups again and write five sentences using these* (points to blackboard) *patterns. Everybody ready?*

Ss: *Yeah.*

T: *Let's go.*

Commentary In this grammar review activity, the teacher prompts student responses by pointing out similar characteristics and asking students to construct sentences (either individually or chorally) using the patterns "X is ___ and Y is too/X is ___ and so is Y" which have been previously practiced. Students are active participants. The teacher is careful to recycle language

from previous lessons (e.g., the grammar patterns being practiced) and from previous tasks (e.g., vocabulary presented in the introduction to the unit). Because the focus of this activity is on accuracy, the teacher uses peer- and self-correction techniques to focus students' attention on the correct form of the utterance.

Reflection

In CBI, the teacher should draw overt attention to language. How do you see this principle applied in Extract 2? Which components of language is the teacher focusing on?

Extract 3 Values clarification

In this activity, which immediately follows the activity in Extract 2, students first respond individually to the values clarification questions. They then join their groups to discuss their answers and reach a consensus. During this time, the teacher walks around to answer questions and help resolve differences of opinion. Once all groups appear to have agreed on their answers, the teacher conducts a tally and asks students to rationalize their answers. Figure 3 shows the student handout.

Values clarification: Look at the statements. Put a check mark (✓) next to your opinion: strongly agree (SA), agree (A), disagree (D), or strongly disagree (SD). Be prepared to explain your opinion.

Statements	SA	A	D	SD
Friends don't keep secrets from each other.	__	__	__	__
Friends have the same beliefs.	__	__	__	__
Friends like to do the same things.	__	__	__	__
A friend always helps another friend in trouble.	__	__	__	__
A friend will lie to help you.	__	__	__	__

Figure 3 Values clarification handout

T: *Okay. Everybody about finished? Raise your hands if you are finished. Good.* (Writes SA, A, D, and SD across the top of the board and to the left underneath, lists the numbers 1-5). *Let's start with a show of hands. What did you think about number one? Who can read the statement out loud? Sylvia?*

S: *Friends don't keep secrets from each other.*

T: *Good. How many people strongly agreed? Everybody? Wow, that's amazing.* (Tallies response.) *What about number two? Yuri, can you read it?*

S: *Friends have the same beliefs.*

T: *Strongly agree? Two groups, okay. Agree? Nobody, hmmm. Disagree? Raoul's group. Strongly disagree? Two, okay.* (Tallies response.) *Number three? Jinna, read the statement please.*

S: *Friends like to do the same things.*

T: *Right. Who strongly agrees? Everybody again? That's interesting ...* (Tallies response.) *Number four? Martha?*

S: *A friend always helps another friend in trouble.*

T: *Okay, how many people strongly agree? Nobody? Agree? Still nobody? Disagree? Wow, four groups! That's a lot. And strongly disagree? Yuri's group. Okay.* (Tallies response.) *And the last statement, Kim?*

S: *A friend will lie to help you.*

T: *That's pretty interesting. A friend will lie to help you. How many of you strongly agreed? Raoul's group? What about agree? Martha's and Sylvia's groups. Disagree? Winnie's group. And strongly disagree? Yuri's group.* (Tallies response). *So we have a lot of disagreement about number five.*

Ss: *Yeah.*

T: *So, I want to hear from someone who strongly agrees with statement number five. That was Raoul's group, right? Who can tell me why your group strongly agreed? Tracy?*

S: *Maybe you are in trouble. You stole something. And your friend lies and says you didn't do it. That's a good friend.*

T: *Okay, so in your group's opinion even if you do something bad a friend should lie to protect you.*

Ss: *(*Murmured responses, e.g., *no and that's bad ...)*

Commentary Values clarification tasks are relatively common in communicatively-oriented classrooms. Here, the task is tied to the theme of friendship, with the statements crafted in such a manner as to reflect themes in the texts that students will encounter later in the unit. As a student-centered discussion activity, it provides a forum for students to voice their personal opinions about controversial topics. Because students are then asked to reach consensus in their groups, it also provides a forum for students to debate and persuade others of their opinions. Finally, it provides an opportunity for students to rationalize their opinions.

Reflection

1. As discussed in Section 3 (pages 205-211), CBI aims for both text and task authenticity. Under what circumstances might we engage in values clarification in the real world?
2. Do you see the task in Extract 3 as an authentic task?

6. Conclusion

This chapter has presented a brief overview of CBI along with a discussion of some of its more commonly practiced models (theme-based, sheltered, adjunct, and SCLT). It has situated CBI within the broader paradigm of CLT, articulated the underlying principles of CBI, and shown how these principles mesh with those of the communicatively-oriented classroom.

The classroom extracts illustrate the underlying principles in action. They provide a clearer picture of how content and language provide complementary aspects of the curriculum and how the input-rich environment of the CBI classroom can lead to successful language acquisition.

Appendix

Overview of the "Friends" Unit

Cycle 1	Cycle 2	Cycle 3
(1) Dictionary definitions: Students examine dictionary definitions of the word "friend." They discuss the differences in the definitions and then, in groups, write their own definition.	**(8) Values clarification:** In groups, students discuss controversial statements about friendship (e.g., "A friend will lie to help you") and arrive at consensus. They share their group opinion with class members.	**(15) Poster activity:** In groups, students make posters about the things they do with their friends. They then explain their poster to their classmates.
(2) Scrambled sayings: Students are presented with scrambled sayings about friendship. They unscramble the definitions and discuss their meaning (e.g., "Birds of a feather flock together" vs. "Opposites attract").	**(9) Listening cloze:** Students listen to the song "You've Got a Friend" by Carole King (1999) and complete a listening cloze. The teacher then guides them in a discussion of the song's message.	**(16) Prereading:** Students examine the pictures of four teenagers (Kenyon, Randy, Daryl, and Robin) in their bedrooms (Salinger, 1995). They discuss the clues to the teenagers' personalities that are evident in the pictures.
(3) Pronunciation: Students review the placement of the tongue for /r/ and /l/ and practice the correct articulation of these two sounds using the sayings about friendship in (2) above.	**(10) Definition activity:** Students revisit their definitions of "friend" from cycle 1. They make changes based on the definition of "friend" in the Carole King song. Alternatively, they can write Carole King's definition of "friend."	**(17) Intensive reading:** In an excerpt from In my Room – Teenagers in their Bedrooms (Salinger, 1995), students locate the views of friendship as expressed by the four American teenagers.
(4) Collocations: Students are given sets of verbs, nouns, and adjectives and asked to combine them to form frequently-used collocations (e.g., "a close friend," "a lifelong friend," "to make a friend," "to lose a friend").	**(11) Reading I:** Students receive a scrambled picture sequence from Art Spiegelman's (1991) cartoon novel Maus (Spiegelman, 1991). They work in groups to sequence the events of a story in which the young boy Art is abandoned by his friends and seeks solace from his father, a Nazi concentration camp survivor. Art and his father discuss the concept of friendship.	**(18) Graphic organizer:** In groups, students complete a graphic organizer using information from the reading (e.g., "Who used to argue?" "Who is more mature now?" "Who has new friends?").
(5) Vocabulary building: The teacher presents adjectives that describe personal characteristics (e.g., "thoughtful," "generous," "outgoing," "dependable"). Students then practice pronouncing the words, focusing on word stress patterns.	**(12) Reading II:** Guided by the teacher, students answer literal comprehension questions (e.g., "How old is Art?" "What does he like to do for fun?") about the passage.	**(19) Grammar consciousness raising:** Students reread the "teenager" excerpts looking for instances of past tense and present perfect verbs. They then review the difference in the usage of these tenses with the teacher.
(6) Magazine picture elicitation: Students are grouped. Each group receives a magazine picture of a child and is asked to (1) give the child a name and (2) brainstorm five personal characteristics for the child. The pictures are then posted on the board and the information is written underneath it.	**(13) Reading III:** In pairs or groups, students discuss the answers to interpretive questions (e.g., "Are Art's friends true friends? Why or why not?" "What does Art's father mean when he says 'If you lock them together in a room with no food for a week then you could see what it is, friends'?").	**(20) Writing:** Students are given a picture prompt (two friends having a conversation); they are asked to write the conversation between the friends. Alternatively, they can be asked to write a conversation between Kenyon and Randy, the teenage roommates from the reading.
(7) Grammar review: Using the characteristics students have generated in the magazine picture activity, the teacher reviews previously-studied patterns (e.g., "Both Mike and Angie are energetic." "Leila is studious and so is Tommy.") Using the information on the blackboard as an elicitation table, the teacher drills this information. Students then practice writing sentences using the patterns.	**(14) Jazz chant:** As a whole class activity, students practice apologizing to a friend using the jazz chant "Excuse Me. That's OK. Never Mind. No Problem" (Graham, 1986). They then discuss ways in which Art's friends might apologize for having abandoned him.	**(21) Role-play:** With a partner, students select from two possible role-play scenarios ("Kenyon and Randy need to economize" vs. "Daryl and her boyfriend decide to spend more time with their same-sex friends"). They practice the role-play and then perform it for the class and receive feedback.

Further readings

Brinton, D. M. and P. Master (eds.) 1997. *New ways in content-based instruction.* Alexandria, VA: (TESOL).

This volume, part of TESOL's *New Ways* series of teacher resource texts, contains a rich collection of ideas and ready-made lesson plans for those interested in implementing CBI in a variety of settings.

Brinton, D. M., M. A. Snow and M. B. Wesche In press. *Content-based second language instruction* (new ed.) Ann Arbor, MI: University of Michigan Press.

This new edition of the authors' 1989 text describes in detail the three prototype models of CBI discussed in this chapter. It also addresses the issues of implementation, materials development and adaptation, and evaluation in CBI. New to this edition are an updated bibliography of work in the field and a glossary of terminology.

Murphy, J. M. and F. L. Stoller (eds.) 2001, Summer/Autumn. Sustained-Content Language Teaching: An emerging definition. Special issue of *TESOL Journal,* 10(2/3).

This issue of the *TESOL Journal* is dedicated to examining sustained-content language teaching (SCLT). In the preface, the guest editors provide a definition of SCLT. Six feature articles provide examples of SCLT in action. Also included are reviews and an overview of Web sites for SCLT

Snow, M. A. and D. M. Brinton (eds.) 1997. *The Content-Based Classroom: Perspectives on Integrating Language and Content.* White Plains, NY: Longman.

This edited volume provides an overview of updated practices in CBI. Included are a focus on the theoretical underpinnings of CBI, curriculum and materials design, teacher preparation, assessment, research, alternative models, and differences between CBI and other current teaching approaches.

Helpful Web sites

The content-based language teaching through technology (CoBaLTT) initiative (http://carla.acad.umn.edu/COBALTT.html)

This site, part of the University of Minnesota's Center for Advanced Research on Language Acquisition (CARLA) project, is designed to help teachers implement CBI through technology. It includes an extended rationale for CBI, chat rooms for teachers who wish to discuss issues with other CBI practitioners, and a search engine for CBI lessons and units in a variety of languages.

Ohio ESL (http://www.ohiou.edu/esl/teacher/content.html#materials)

This site, hosted by Ohio University, provides a definition and rationale for CBI along with links to numerous rich resources on the topic. These include short articles, sample CBI lessons, and listserv and chat opportunities.

Language and civil society: A forum electronic journal (http://exchanges.state.gov/forum/journal)

This electronic journal consists of several content-based volumes on the following topics: civic education, business ethics, environmental education, and peace education. The accompanying activities, which include short background readings, discussion activities, and suggested World Wide Web links for further research, are aimed at enhancing students' communicative abilities in English.

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Brinton, D. M., J. Frodesen, C. Holten, L. Jensen, and L. Repath-Martos 1997. *Insights 2: A Content-Based Approach to Academic Preparation.* White Plains, NY: Addison Wesley Longman.

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Chapter Eleven

Coursebooks

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **analyze** how a coursebook is organized and what it emphasizes.
- ✔ **devise** ways to adapt or supplement an activity for a specific group of learners using techniques such as personalization and format shifting or by introducing supplementary material.
- ✔ **explain** how you would prepare learners to do an activity, how you would monitor them, and how you would follow up the activity.

1. What is a coursebook?

Coursebooks are prepackaged, published books used by the students and teacher as the primary basis for a language course. Coursebooks range from those that are broadly focused on developing all language skills to those that focus on a specific skill such as writing, or specific area such as hotel management. In addition to the student book, coursebook packages may include audio-cassettes or CDs, videos, workbooks, CD-ROMs, test packages and Internet materials. They almost always include a teacher's guide. In this chapter, we will focus on the student book, since it is the one component most likely to be used by all the students in the classroom. Examples will be taken from integrated skills coursebooks that are intended primarily for learners in countries where English is not a national language.

A coursebook is a learning tool shared by teachers and learners that can be used in systematic and flexible ways. In order to use a coursebook systematically and flexibly, it is important to understand how it is put together and how it can be adapted to meet the needs of your particular learners. The coursebook provides a plan for learning, a visible outline of what is to be learned in the classroom, as well as a bank of resource material and ideas (Acklam, 1994). What happens in the classroom fills out and transforms the outline into learning experiences for the students.

2. Background to the design and use of coursebooks

Most people who have studied a foreign language have used a coursebook at some point in their studies. The way coursebooks look and what they contain go hand and hand with the prevailing ideas at the time they were published about how languages are best taught and learned. Up until the mid-twentieth century, language books were used mainly in academic settings in order to understand the written texts of the target language. This approach, which is still common in academic settings today, is called the **grammar translation** approach. Coursebooks contain long reading passages, with vocabulary glossaries and grammar notes in the students' mother tongue. Students are tested on their ability to translate texts with lexical and grammatical accuracy. In the 1960s and 1970s, the focus shifted from grammar translation and its emphasis on written texts to **audiolingualism,** which focused on the spoken language. (See the chapters on methodology and grammar, this volume.) Audiolingualism was an outgrowth of **behaviorist** theories that learning is habit formation, the result of response to stimuli. Language coursebooks used dialogues, pattern practice, and substitution drills in which the teacher provided a stimulus such as a sentence beginning

with *they* and a cue *she,* and the learners provided a response sentence, changing the subject from they to she. **Structural linguistics,** which views language as a system, reducible to a finite set of grammatical structures, also had a strong influence on language texts. For example, *English 900,* a series first published in 1964, contained 900 sentences. By mastering the sentences, one was supposed to have mastered the language.

In the 1970s and 80s, there was a shift toward the **notional-functional approach,** championed by the Council of Europe (e.g., Van Ek and Alexander, 1975). Language was understood to be used for purposes, or functions, such as expressing opinions, and to talk or write about both abstract and concrete topics, or notions, such as time and weather. Communication took precedence over grammar. Coursebooks began to emphasize functional language as well as pair work and group work activities in which learners used the language to communicate with each other.

The development of English for Academic Purposes (EAP) and of English for Specific Purposes (ESP) also influenced the kinds of materials that were published. EAP coursebooks focus on the development of one or two skills, such as writing or reading for academic purposes. ESP coursebooks focus on the development of specific workplace skills such as public health administration. EAP and ESP coursebooks use authentic material such as newspaper articles and other source materials. The use of authentic or quasi-authentic materials is also common in current coursebooks in order to simulate the use of language in real contexts.

Other approaches to teaching languages have questioned the effectiveness of coursebooks. The introduction of **task-based language teaching** in the 1980s challenged the very use of coursebooks. In task-based approaches, language is learned through negotiation with other learners in problem-solving or task-management situations that focus on meaning, rather than form, not through learning prespecified grammar, functions or notions. Tasks can range from discussing the effectiveness of an advertisement and reporting on the discussion to designing an original advertisement. Because coursebooks specify language to be learned, they were seen as incompatible with this approach. However, many current coursebooks now include tasks or projects to stimulate interaction and negotiation among learners.

Other critics have charged that, because a coursebook specifies what is to be taught and learned, it becomes an operating manual that the teacher and students follow unquestioningly. It leaves little room for decision-making and adapting to the needs of the particular group. (See, for example, Swan, 1992.) Proponents of using coursebooks have argued that they provide a needed structure for interaction in the classroom and that learners see the textbook as a guide that helps them organize their learning and provides security (Hutchinson and Torres, 1994). One purpose of this chapter is to help teachers understand how to take advantage of what a coursebook has to offer and not feel dominated by it.

Reflection

Think back on your own experience learning with a coursebook. Did you notice any differences in the coursebooks you used? Did you find the coursebooks a help or a hindrance? Why?

3. Principles for using a coursebook

1. Understand how the coursebook is organized.

A coursebook provides a visible outline for what is to be learned in the classroom. Coursebooks are often described metaphorically as maps (O'Neil, 1993). Maps provide a guide to the territory to be covered. The actual classroom teaching and learning can be viewed as a journey through the territory. The first principle for using a coursebook is to become familiar with the territory so that you can plan the journey.

Most coursebooks are organized around key features of language. These features include topics and associated vocabulary (e.g. food or transportation), grammar structures (e.g. verb tenses or how to form questions), and social and cultural interaction skills (e.g. how to order in a restaurant or how to politely refuse something). Coursebooks also emphasize two or more of the four skills of speaking, listening, reading, and writing.

The first step is to explore the coursebook to see how it is organized. Often the table of contents (sometimes called scope and sequence) provides a chart that shows how the authors have mapped out the territory within each unit and across units. Knowing how the book is organized can help you to make decisions about how to adapt it to your particular group of students. Each unit or chapter of a coursebook is a microcosm of the book as a whole, so one way to get to know a coursebook is by examining a unit.

Reflection

Look at the Table of Contents extracts on page 229 from three different intermediate level coursebooks. What features of language are they organized around? What are the similarities and differences in the ways they are organized? What do you think accounts for the differences?

Unit Title	Functions	Grammar	Listening and Pronunciation	Reading and Writing	Learning Strategies and Skills
Life Stories	• Talk about past actions • Talk about frequency of actions • Talk about lifestyles • Talk about habits and routines	Simple past tense: Questions, short answers Was born/married Irregular past tense of verbs Used to Had to Reported speech: verb *say*	Listen: listen to a biography to put events in chronological order Pronunciation: use to	Read a biography Write an autobiography Write a biography (Project)	Look for time order cues in biographical material List events in chronological order as a writing strategy

Figure 1 *Super Goal 3* (McGraw-Hill, 2002)

Alike yet different

Speaking *The roles of men and women*

Listening *Short oral report—weekend cooks*

Grammar *Review of contrasting tenses: simple present vs. present progressive; present simple past vs. present perfect*

Reading *Contrast/comparison*—How different are men and women?

Conversation *Sharing news and stating an opinion strategies*

Grammar More adjective clauses: Fran works with a sister that specializes in interior decorating.

Writing *Personal reports*

Figure 2 *CrossCurrents 1* (Pearson Education Limited, 1992)

Topics	Functions	Grammar	Listening/ Pronunciation	Writing/Reading	Interchange Activity
Unusual and Exceptional jobs	Giving opinions about jobs; describing and comparing jobs	Gerund phrases as subject and object; comparisons with *er/more/less* than and as … as	Listening to descriptions of jobs; Sentence stress	Writing about career advantages and disadvantages "Strategies for Keeping Your Job" Reading advice about behavior in the workplace	The best and the worst Finding out about classmates' summer or part-time jobs

Figure 3 *New Interchange 3: English for International Communication* (Cambridge University Press, 1998)

Reflection

Usually, the different language features or components of a coursebook chapter or unit are linked together around a topic or topics. What is the focus of each of the units profiled on page 229? How are the components of each unit linked?

2. Adapt the material.

Coursebooks are not written for a specific group of people. Since they are meant to be used by different or successive groups of learners, they can't be. They're written for a generalized target group (e.g., for children or adults, for use in English speaking countries or in other countries, for beginner, intermediate or advanced levels, and so on). No book can meet all the needs and interests of each group of learners that uses it. For this reason, a coursebook *must be adapted* to your particular group of learners. Acklam (1994, p. 12) suggests the following acronym for adapting a coursebook: "SARS."

S = Select What parts of the coursebook do you definitely want to keep?
A = Adapt What parts of the coursebook do you basically want to keep, but need to change in some way to make them more suitable for your students, and in tune with your teaching style?
R = Reject What parts of the coursebook do you definitely want to leave out?
S = Supplement What else do you need to bring to the coursebook to fulfill the requirements of the overall syllabus you are working to, and to respond to the needs of your particular students?

Figure 4 SARS (Select, Adapt, Reject, Supplement)

Remember, a coursebook is not an inflexible document, it is a learning tool that is used by learners and teachers. Your decisions about what to "select, adapt, reject and supplement" depend on who your learners are (age, interests, purposes for studying and language level), what the institution emphasizes, the resources available to you, how much time you have, and

what you feel is important. If there is too much X, then do less of X. If there is no Y, then add Y, if Z is unnecessary for your students, then skip Z. For example, Sato (2002) found that Japanese high school students and teachers initially had difficulty using coursebooks that emphasized speaking since they were accustomed to coursebooks that emphasized reading with a focus on translation and grammar. They were able to use the coursebooks more effectively when the teachers designed oral performance assessments to be done at the end of each unit. The addition of the tests gave the learners a goal and thus made them more willing to do the speaking activities in the coursebook. In the section on techniques we will look at ways to adapt and supplement a coursebook.

3. Prepare the learners.

In an on-line research project a colleague and I conducted with a group of teachers from four different countries, we found that coursebook activities usually fail not because they're too boring or too complicated, but because the learners haven't been adequately prepared to do them. Put another way, any coursebook activity can be successful as long as learners know what to do and have the ability to do it. (If they don't have the ability to do the activity, the coursebook may be at too high a level.) Preparing the learners means two things. First, it means orienting them to the content and purpose of the activity, that is, making sure they know *what* the activity is about and *why* they are doing it. Second, it means making sure they understand the steps of the activity, *how* to do it. However, simply telling the learners the *what, how,* and *why* of an activity doesn't prepare them. They need to demonstrate either verbally or in action that they have understood.

Preparing the learner really means preparing yourself. What is the context for the activity? The images that accompany an activity are often helpful in providing a context. How can you make the context clear and interesting to the learners? What is the point of the activity? Is the focus to learn grammar? Is it to practice speaking? Is it to learn vocabulary? The title of the activity often provides clues to the purpose. What are the steps involved in carrying out the activity? How can you ensure that the learners know what to do? How long will the activity take?

Figure 5 is a page from a textbook aimed at young adults/adults at the intermediate level. There are two activities on the page. Describe how you would prepare the learners to do each activity so that

a) they know *what* the activity is about (How would you orient them to the content?);
b) *why* they are doing it (How would you make sure they understand the purpose?);
c) and *how* to do it (How would you break down the steps?).

Decide on a time limit to give the students for each activity.

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1 Talk it over

Complete the sentences using some of the words in the list.

Women are more _____ than men.
Men are more _____ than women.

competitive	cautious	logical	possessive	emotional	aggressive
considerate	intuitive	industrious	generous	relaxed	sensitive

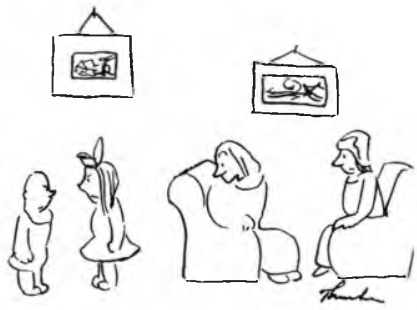
Compare your sentences and opinions with a classmate. Which statements do you agree with?

2 Talk about... Cartoons

Look at these cartoons. Describe what is happening in each one. What generalizations do they show about men, women, and children?

"He doesn't know anything except facts."

"Well, if I called the wrong number, why did you answer the phone?"



"Alice can be a little *girl* Commando in your game, Donald."

Figure 5 *CrossCurrents 1* (Pearson Education Limited, 1992)

4. Monitor and follow up.

Any activity actually has three parts: preparation, implementation, and follow-up. While the students are doing an activity, you have an important role: to monitor what and how well they are doing. The easiest way to monitor is to walk around the classroom and observe what they are doing, (in a neutral, not a judgmental way). As you circulate, you can answer questions, keep track of language problems, offer helpful corrections (if they don't inhibit fluency), and make sure they are doing what they are supposed to be doing. Monitoring also helps you to see if the time limit you set was appropriate and whether it will need to be shortened or extended. Often teachers concentrate on the students in the front rows and remain at the front once an activity is underway. Consequently, the students at the back give up on the activity and the learning opportunity is lost.

It helps to develop signals to let students know when to stop. In small classes, this can be done via language such as "OK, time to stop." In large classes, clapping your hands or ringing a bell are more effective than using your voice, unless you have a resonant voice! Once an activity is done, it is important to follow up so that students can demonstrate what they have learned or ask questions about it. For example, if students have practiced a dialogue in pairs, then a few pairs can demonstrate the dialogue to the group. If groups of three have just discussed what they like to read and why, then a few students can report to the class on what they learned about their partners' preferences. Alternatively, the teacher can survey the class. For example, "How many of you like to read ___?"

5. Build a repertoire.

In addition to being organized around key features of language, a coursebook generally has consistent types of activities in each unit or chapter such as pair and group tasks, **role-plays, information gaps,** listening tasks, and vocabulary games. It helps to build up your own repertoire of ways to do each type of activity. For example, most listening activities include some kind of task. One way to approach a listening activity (after the appropriate introduction to what it's about) is for students to listen through once to get the general idea; listen a second time and do the task in the book such as answer questions or fill in a diagram; and then listen a third time and check their answers. If you follow this format consistently, you provide some predictability for the students–they learn familiar ways to approach an activity. It also helps to have ways to vary an activity once students are familiar with the basic format. For example, students can try to do the task before the first listening as a way to create anticipation for what they will hear.

Building a repertoire also means having techniques for supplementing what is in the textbook. Part of my own repertoire includes putting things on cards or strips of paper that students can manipulate. For example, one way to teach vocabulary is to have students write the vocabulary words on cards and then group them in some way. Another way is to put parts of sentences on cards so that students can put them in order and learn the grammar. I sometimes write prompts on cards for speaking and writing activities. I also have students write comprehension questions to reading passages on cards and quiz each other.

The teacher's guide that accompanies the coursebook is an excellent resource for learning about ways to teach and vary activities. When Alison Rice and I were writing the introduction to the teacher's guide for *East West Basics* (Oxford University Press, 1994), we included nine different ways to prepare for a dialogue and ten different ways to practice it. Teacher's guides also give step-by-step suggestions for how to teach each activity in the student book.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

In this section, we look at techniques and tasks for implementing the five principles outlined in the previous section. The first two techniques are designed to help you understand how the coursebook is organized.

Survey or map the territory When familiarizing yourself with the table of contents, trying to take in the entire contents of the book can be overwhelming. Start small, with a group of units or just one unit. Some books have review units, so a natural chunk is the group of units leading up to the review unit. If you own the book, make notes as you go through it about what you like, what you don't like, what you want to emphasize, supplement, and reject.

Another way to survey the territory is to make a map of it. This means creating a nonlinear visual representation of the contents of the book or unit. By taking apart the pieces and rearranging them in a visual way, you become familiar with what is in the book. These kinds of "mind maps" or "word webs" can be done at any level: book, unit, or activity. (See Andersen, Chapter 4, this volume.)

Group prioritizing There is often more material in a coursebook than you can cover in the amount of time available. Richard Acklam suggests the following activity (1994, p. 13). "Give out the books on the first day [of class], and, for homework, ask students to decide which topics/grammar areas in the book they are most interested in/concerned about. The next day the students vote on the most relevant parts of the book for them, and this immediately helps the teacher to select appropriately."

One advantage of this technique is that the assignment gives the students a reason for looking through the coursebook. It gives them ownership of the "tool" and helps them understand it is flexible. It also opens dialogue among them and the teacher. One disadvantage is that some learners may feel intimidated or inadequate to the task. Or they may feel that making these decisions is the teacher's job. One way to adapt this task would be to have them do the same kind of prioritizing, but only for one unit.

The next three techniques will help you adapt the material to your particular group of learners.

Personalizing Personalizing means asking for or giving personal or culturally familiar information related to the material in the coursebook. This technique draws on the learners' experiences and opinions and so makes the material more real and accessible to the students. I remember observing a high school French teacher teach telephone numbers using the examples in the textbook. The students were bored and inattentive. By simply asking them to use their own telephone numbers, she would have made the material more relevant and motivating. In addition to making material more relevant, personalizing also allows for personal and cultural comparisons. Learning how to order food from a menu is a common coursebook activity. Learners can be asked to compare the way menus are organized in their culture(s), what items cost, and what food items are included.

Personalizing can be done in preparing for an activity, during an activity, or following up an activity. Take the example of ordering from a menu. The menu in the coursebook is unlikely to be one students have actually used. In preparation for the activity, the teacher can ask students to make a list or sketch of what they expect to find in a menu. They can then compare their lists to the menu in the book and discuss how they are similar and different. To personalize during the activity, the learners can discuss foods on the menu that they've tried, and ones they've never tried, and whether they would want to order them or not. As a follow-up, the teacher can ask the learners to talk about the kinds of restaurants they go to and what they usually order. Alternatively, they can prepare menus with only their favorite foods.

Reflection

Why is personalizing important? What are some considerations when planning ways to personalize the material and activities in a coursebook?

Format shift **Format shift** means switching to a different skill or grouping than the one proposed in the book.

- Switching to a different skill: A reading text about places to vacation in Australia can be used as a model for writing about places to vacation in the students' own country. The same text can be used for pair dictation or for pronunciation practice. In one sense, format shift is about supplementing through skill integration: when appropriate, giving students opportunities to speak, listen, read, and write about each activity.
- Switching to a different grouping: a pair question and answer activity about the ideal roommate can become a mixer in which the whole group gets up and walks around and asks different people the same question. An individual writing activity about the pros and cons of school uniforms can be turned into a small group brainstorm and group essay.

Use props, visuals, or realia Props, visuals and realia stimulate visual and cultural interest in a lesson. Realia are objects or texts that are used by people in their everyday lives. Props are theatrical aids to represent a role or situation. Visuals are pictures, drawings, photos or images. (These three categories very often blend.) Realia for a lesson about phone numbers might include a phone book or an advertisement with phone numbers. Realia for a unit about places to vacation might include tourist brochures. Props for a lesson on phone numbers might include a toy telephone, and for a lesson on places to vacation, a beach towel and ski goggles. One of my colleagues uses a plastic bow as a humorous prop to demonstrate a dialogue between a woman and a man. He places the bow in his hair when speaking the woman's part and at his throat when speaking the man's part. Visuals for a lesson on vacations might include pictures of different vacations spots.

Props, visuals and realia can be used both to prepare students for and to supplement or extend an activity. The teacher should not be the only source of these supplementary materials. Students can be asked to bring in materials related to the topics, such as pictures of their ideal vacation spot or photos from their last vacation.

The two activities in Figure 5 (page 232) are aimed at intermediate adult/young adult learners. Think of a group of learners that fits that description.

Describe:

- how you would personalize the activities so that they are relevant to the learners and highlight potential cultural differences.
- different ways of grouping learners to do them (individual, pair, small group, whole class).
- props, visuals, or realia you or the learners could bring in to supplement them.

The next two techniques are designed to help you prepare the learners to do the activities.

Visual instructions Visual instructions is a fancy way of saying "demonstrate what to do." This technique is based on the notion that showing is much more effective than telling. For example, to introduce a pair activity, you can write an example of the pair exchange on the board and then use your hands to represent the two speakers as you demonstrate the exchange. (Some teachers use puppets, others change positions.) You can then ask two students to stand up and model the exchange. If you are introducing a group activity in which students are to survey each other in groups (e.g., about what they like to read and why), you can demonstrate the activity by asking one student the questions first and then having the student ask you the same questions.

Elicitation Elicitation means asking the students to provide information or examples based on what they know. In preparing for an activity that reviews the present perfect tense, you can ask for several examples from the students. However, elicitation doesn't mean putting learners on the spot. It only works when you try to elicit what they are likely to know. Because it emphasizes the learners' experience and knowledge, elicitation helps to take the focus off of the text as the source of authority and helps learners become more self-reliant, an important skill in learning a language. Elicitation works hand in hand with personalization. To prepare for an activity about reading preferences you can first ask the students "What are things we read?" and list their responses on the board. It is also a way to get differences of opinion, or examples that are different from those provided in the coursebook. Students can be asked whether a picture that shows a family living in a large house is the way most people live. Elicitation is also useful when following up an activity.

Reflection

For the Action box on page 232, you made a list of ways to prepare students for the activities in Figure 5. How would you modify them to include visual instructions or elicitation?

The next two techniques are designed to help you monitor and follow up what the students do.

Mistake log One way to monitor what and how well the students are doing is to keep a mistake log. Make a note of the activity and the class and as you circulate, write down the mistakes you hear the students making. Mistakes

can be grammatical, lexical (vocabulary), or cultural. The mistake log can then be used in a number of ways. You can use it immediately after the activity and elicit correction from the students. For example, in an activity for practicing polite ways to ask for something, the teacher noticed that many of the students were not using the word *please*, which was included in the examples in the book. After the activity, she wrote two contrasting examples on the board "Could you bring me a glass of water?" and "Could you bring me a glass of water, please?" She asked the students to discuss the difference and why one was more polite than the other.

If there are recurrent mistakes, for example incorrect use of tenses, you can prepare a separate lesson and use examples from the log. The log will also show you and your students in which areas they are improving because the mistakes occur less frequently.

Group survey One way to follow up an activity is to do a group survey of the results. Surveys answer the questions how many, how often, how much, how long, and so on. For example, after an activity in which students have asked for and given information about their families, the teacher writes three headings on the board: only child, one brother or sister, more than one brother or sister, and then surveys the class to find out how many fit in which category. In a group survey after an activity on reading preferences, the teacher writes each type of reading on the board, asks for a show of hands for each, and writes the number after each category. She then asks the group why the categories with the most and least numbers are the most and least popular.

Activity chart Building a repertoire requires setting up some kind of system for keeping track of what has been successful so that you can use the techniques again. One way to do that is to make a chart with the relevant four skills of speaking, listening, reading, and writing (depending on which you teach), as well as other focal areas such as grammar, culture, or vocabulary.

Chapters 2, 3, 7 and 8 in *Practical English Language Teaching* provide descriptions of excellent activities that can be used in the classroom. Refer to the appropriate chapter in order to complete the activity chart. Write one or two activities from each chapter.

Focus area →	Listening	Speaking	Vocabulary	Grammar
Activity	•	•	•	•
	•	•	•	•

5. Using a coursebook in the classroom

The purpose of this section is to show you some of the ways language teachers use the concepts and techniques already discussed. The first example shows how a teacher prepares to teach the first two activities in a unit. The second example shows how a teacher adapts an activity in a unit. The last example shows how a teacher prepares her students to do an activity, how she monitors, and how she follows up the activity.

Teacher A teaches at a language institute in Morocco. The learners are men and women, mainly in their twenties, and at an intermediate level of English. In preparation for teaching the activities in Figure 6, Teacher A has made notes about how she wants to teach the activities on that page.

Look at the textbook excerpt in Figure 6. Notice how the teacher has annotated the page with her comments.

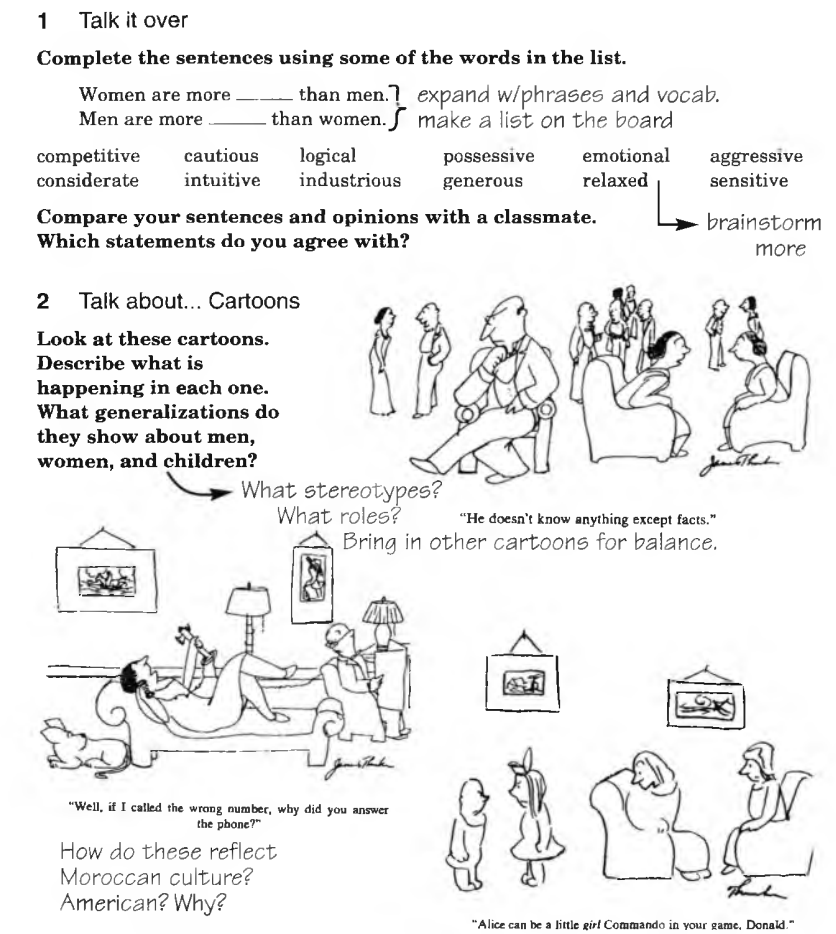


Figure 6 *CrossCurrents 1* (Pearson Education Limited, 1992)

Commentary Before the students even open the book, Teacher A plans two preparatory activities (discuss terms and brainstorm) to orient students to the theme of the unit and to generate useful vocabulary based on their own experience. The first activity in the book *Talk it Over* aims to provide the vocabulary and grammar needed to compare men and women as a basis for expressing personal opinions. The activity already has personalization built in since students are expressing their own opinions. However, as it is a forced choice, the students may feel they have to express opinions they don't hold. The teacher plans to add an additional grammar structure *As...as* so that the students can talk about similarities in addition to differences. She plans to review the vocabulary, however it is unclear from the notes how she will make sure they understand new vocabulary. If some students don't know certain vocabulary words, she could elicit explanations or examples from the students who do.

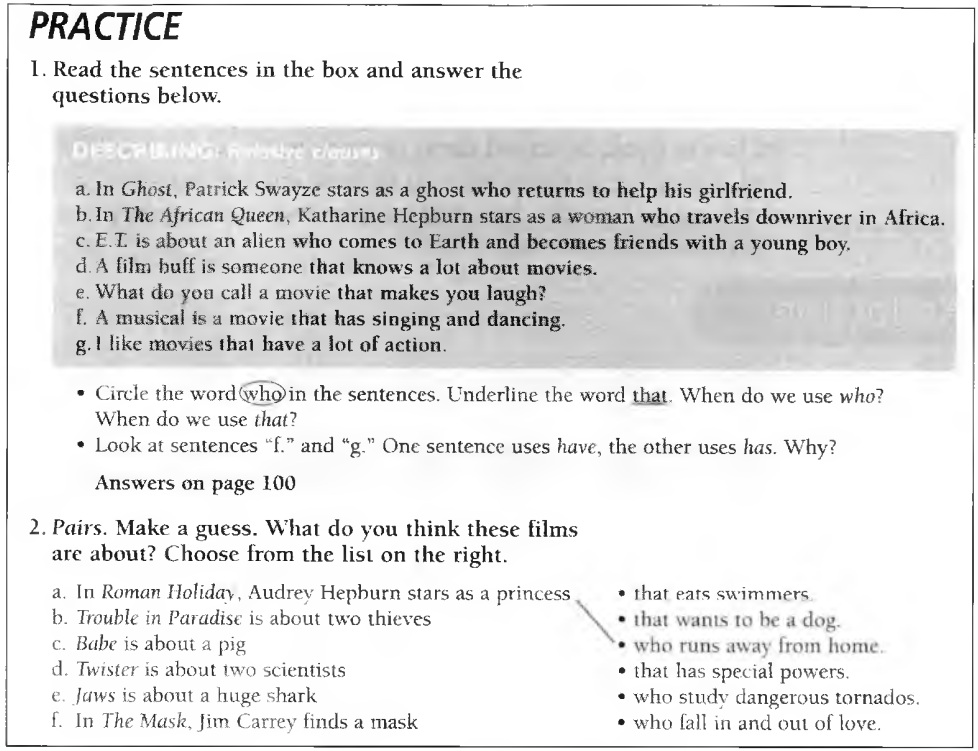
The second activity in the book *Talk about...Cartoons* asks students to describe the cartoons and the way they generalize male and female traits and roles. The teacher questions the viewpoint of the textbook. She feels the stereotypes are too traditional, so she plans to bring in additional visual material to show a variety of perspectives.

Think of a particular group of learners. Consider their age, gender, level of English, and interests and purposes for learning English. Choose a page from a coursebook. Write on the page what you would keep, what you would adapt, what you would reject and what you would supplement.

Reflection

Look at Teacher A's notes in Figure 6. What are ways that she plans to supplement the material? How does she plan to adapt the activities and why? How will she prepare the students? How will she personalize the material?

Teacher B teaches at a language institute in Brazil. His students are adults at an intermediate level. He is teaching Activity 2 in Figure 7. In this activity, they are applying the rule they learned in Activity 1.



PRACTICE

1. Read the sentences in the box and answer the questions below.

DESCRIBING: Relative clauses

a. In *Ghost*, Patrick Swayze stars as a ghost **who returns to help his girlfriend.**
b. In *The African Queen*, Katharine Hepburn stars as a woman **who travels downriver in Africa.**
c. E.T. is about an alien **who comes to Earth and becomes friends with a young boy.**
d. A film buff is someone **that knows a lot about movies.**
e. What do you call a movie **that makes you laugh?**
f. A musical is a movie **that has singing and dancing.**
g. I like movies **that have a lot of action.**

- Circle the word who in the sentences. Underline the word that. When do we use *who*? When do we use *that*?
- Look at sentences "f." and "g." One sentence uses *have*, the other uses *has*. Why?

Answers on page 100

2. *Pairs.* Make a guess. What do you think these films are about? Choose from the list on the right.

a. In *Roman Holiday*, Audrey Hepburn stars as a princess
b. *Trouble in Paradise* is about two thieves
c. *Babe* is about a pig
d. *Twister* is about two scientists
e. *Jaws* is about a huge shark
f. In *The Mask*, Jim Carrey finds a mask

- that eats swimmers.
- that wants to be a dog.
- who runs away from home.
- that has special powers.
- who study dangerous tornados.
- who fall in and out of love.

Figure 7 *Transitions 1* (Oxford University Press, 1998)

The activity takes about fifteen minutes.

The sentences that are in the book have been transferred on to cards.

Teacher B divides the class into two groups of six students and hands out a set of cards to each group. He tells them to match the cards. Six movies are described on the cards; there are twelve cards in each set. Examples: *Trouble in Paradise* is about two thieves…(card 1A)…who fall in and out of love (card 1B); *Babe* is about a pig…(card 3A)…that wants to be a dog (card 6B). Students sit on the floor to work. They spread out the cards on the floor but are confused about what to do. The teacher gives them an example by matching one pair of sentences himself. Once students have understood what the teacher is asking them to do, they get down to work. Students interact loudly with each other as they move the cards around and try to match them correctly. They make an effort to use English to communicate and do so successfully. The teacher stands by the students as he watches them working, but does not intervene in their negotiation. Students are on task throughout the activity and are able to match the sentences correctly in the end. Once they have finished matching the cards, the teacher plays the tape for them to check their answers. (The tape has the correct answers.) The teacher checks to see if they have any questions. There aren't any, so he moves on to the next activity.

Commentary Teacher B adapted Activity 2 by doing two format switches. The first switch was from reading and drawing lines to speaking and matching cards. Instead of having the learners connect the two sentence halves by drawing a line in the book, he transferred the sentence halves onto cards. The second switch was from pair to group work. Instead of having them work in pairs, as suggested in the book, he asked them to work in groups of six. The teacher assumed that telling the students what to do was enough preparation for the activity. It didn't work. Once he had demonstrated what to do, they understood.

Reflection

Why do you think Teacher B adapted the activity this way? What are the advantages of doing the activity the way the teacher has done it rather than the way it is suggested in the book? What are the disadvantages?

I see two important advantages to the way Teacher B has done it–group involvement and kinesthetic manipulation. One possible disadvantage is that students may not want to work on the floor or that there may not be space to spread the cards out on the floor.

Teacher C, in Extract 1 page 243, teaches in a private language school in Hong Kong. Her students are young adults. In the following example, we see how she teaches an information gap activity shown in Figure 8. In this kind of activity, Student A has information that Student B doesn't have and vice versa. The activity requires the students to use the target language in order to find out the missing information. Teacher C prepares the learners to do the activity, monitors them as they do, it and follows up with examples.

Action

Along the side of Extract 1 (page 243), draw lines where the three phases of the activity (preparing, doing, follow-up) begin and end.

Then note where you find the following:

- Orienting the learners to the purpose of the activity
- Orienting the learners to how to do the activity (making sure they know what to do)
- Elicitation from learners
- Providing a context for the activity
- Monitoring the activity
- Personalizing

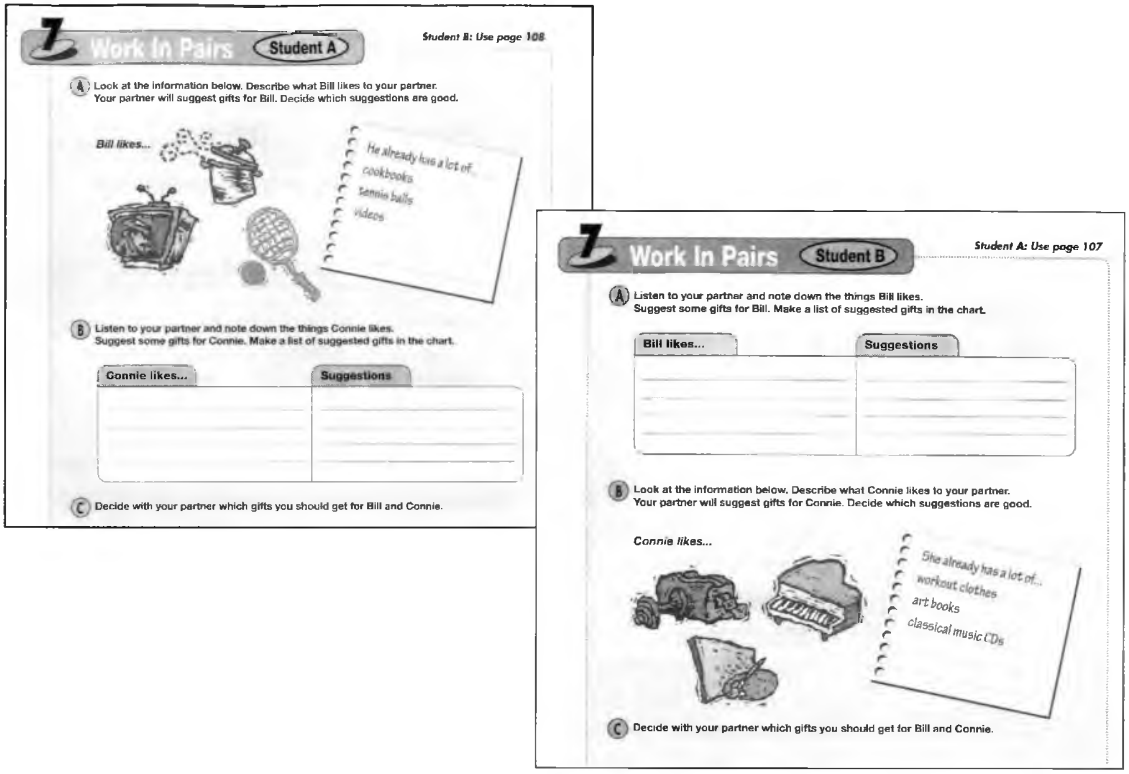


Figure 8 *Expressions 1* (Heinle/Thomson, 2001)

In the classroom extracts, *T* stands for teacher and *S* represents a particular student. *Ss* stands for students.

Extract 1

T: *Right, now are you ready to do the info gap task? Yes? We've done lots of these, now, haven't we?*

Ss: *(Nod)*

T: *The purpose of this task is to give you more practice in the language we're learning in this unit. What ARE we practicing? Remember? Johnny?*

S: *Talk about what people like.*

T: *Talking about what people like—good. And?*

S: *Talking about gift giving.*

T: *Talking about gift giving. Right. These are our communication goals. And what structures do we use to do these things? … Anyone? … Yes, Mary?*

S: What do you like? *And* What do you like doing?

T: *Great! And we use* "like" *to talk about things, right? And* "like doing" *to talk about activities. What about making gift giving suggestions?*

S: *Let's.*

T: *OK, good,* Let's get him a CD, *or* Let's get Tom a golf club. *OK, now WHEN do we give people gifts? WHEN? Yes, Monica?*

S: *Birthday.*

T: *Birthdays are good.* (Writes *birthdays* on the board) *Johnny?*

S: *New … new baby.*

T: *That's a good suggestion.* (Writes *new baby* on the board and continues eliciting until there are a number of events on the board.) *OK, now get into your pairs and I want Student A to look at page 107, and Student B to look at page 108.* (Peers over students' shoulder) *Johnny, you're the B student aren't you? You're looking at the wrong page. 108, please. Good. Now, Bill likes the things the A students can see in the picture, but he already has these things. OK? Understand, Monica? Right. So, tell your partner what Bill likes, and your partner will suggest gifts. Write the suggestions in the space, and then decide on the best idea. Oh, Student A—start off by suggesting a reason for buying a gift—look at the board—it's his birthday, he's going away and so on. Right, off you go.*

(The students complete the task. As they do so, the teacher circulates and monitors. When she hears a mistake, she writes it in a notebook, but does not interrupt the students.)

T: *OK, I think everybody's finished now. Are you two finished? Right, good. So, now I want you to do the same thing for Connie. B, tell A what Connie likes. A will make suggestions. Write them down then decide, decide on the best one, OK?*

(Again, the teacher circulates and monitors. At one point she is stopped by one pair, listens to their question and says "It's called a subscription—a subscription.")

T: *OK, time's up. Let's hear what each pair decided.* (Teacher elicits responses from the students and writes them on the board.) *Well, that's great—look at all these interesting gifts. Which of these gifts would YOU like to receive, Johnny? … Sorry?*

S: *The California Fitness Subscription.*

T: *Yeah, I like that one, too. How about you, Sophie?* (She continues, eliciting students' preferences, and writing their names next to the gift.) *OK, now, you all did very well, but I noticed a few mistakes creeping in here and there. Look.*

(She writes the mistakes from her notebook on the board and gets students to self-correct.)

Commentary Teacher C provides an excellent example of how to introduce and maintain control of an activity so that students are free to concentrate on the task and practice the target language. When she elicits examples, she makes sure to call on a variety of students. She is nonjudgmental in the way she makes sure that students are "on task" and in the way she introduces error correction at the end. She provides a human touch in her responses by not only asking for students' personal preferences, but in commenting on what they have chosen and on what she herself would choose.

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, I outlined some of the ways in which coursebooks have changed through the years, as well as some of the disadvantages and advantages of using coursebooks. I then explained five principles for using a coursebook, followed by techniques that show how to put the principles into practice: how a coursebook is organized, ways to prepare for, monitor, and follow up an activity, ways to adapt and supplement what is in a coursebook, as well as how to build a repertoire of one's own. In the last part of the chapter, we looked at how three teachers prepare to teach using a coursebook.

Further readings

Graves, K. 2000. *Designing Language Courses: A Guide for Teachers.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

Chapter 9, "Adapting a textbook," goes into more detail about ways to adapt a coursebook at the syllabus, unit, or activity level with step-by-step examples from teachers. It also discusses the "hidden curriculum" of coursebooks.

Rinvolucri, M. 2002. *Humanising Your Coursebook: Activities to bring your classroom to life.* London: First Person Publishing.

This book describes 95 activities for using a coursebook with sections on warm-up activities, grammar, vocabulary, reading, writing, listening, speaking, and assessment.

Woodward, T. 2001. A Central Tool: The Coursebook, p. 145–160 in *Planning Lessons and Courses*. Cambridge: Cambridge University Press

This section includes ideas for orienting yourself and the students to the coursebook as a whole as well as thoughtful ways to adapt it.

Helpful Web sites

Many coursebooks now have their own Web sites to provide additional activities.

Here are Web addresses for a few of the major ESL/ELT publishers.

Cambridge University Press (http://publishing.cambridge.org/elt)

Heinle/Thomson Publishing (http://www.heinle.com)

McGraw-Hill/Contemporary (http://mhcontemporary.com)

Oxford University Press (http://www.oup.co.uk)

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Chapter **Twelve**

Computers in the language classroom

Ken Beatty, City University of Hong Kong (China)

At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **explain** the following concepts: CALL, schema, behaviorism, and constructivism.
- ✔ **explain** how CALL can be used as whole class and small group activities.
- ✔ **explain** ways to maximize learning opportunities for CALL materials, including poor materials.
- ✔ **evaluate** language learning software.

1. What is CALL?

Computer-assisted language learning (**CALL**) is closely related to many other disciplines *and* the computer. As a tool to aid teaching and learning, CALL is often subsumed within them. For example, CALL has become increasingly integrated into research on and the practice of the general skills of reading, writing, speaking, and listening as well as into discrete fields, such as autonomy, corpus linguistics, and testing. The difficulty of defining CALL is apparent in this selection of related terms and acronyms:

- Computer-aided instruction (CAI)
- Computer assisted learning (CAL)
- Computer assisted language instruction (CALI)
- Computer-assisted language teaching (or testing) (CALT)
- Computer adaptive teaching (or testing) (CAT)
- Computer-based training (CBT)
- Computer-mediated communication (CMC)
- Computer-mediated instruction (CMI)
- Intelligent computer assisted language learning (ICALL).

Some of these terms are synonymous with CALL, while some shift focus to narrower concerns. But, given the breadth of what may go on in CALL, a general and useful working definition is: *any process in which a learner uses a computer and, as a result, improves his or her language.*

Under this definition, CALL covers a broad range of activities. This is reflected in the diverse topics one is likely to read in CALL journals: materials design, explanations of computer technologies, pedagogical theories about working at the computer, and the computer as a mode of instruction, to name a few. CALL materials include those specifically created to teach language, as well as computer-based materials adapted for teaching language (for example, English language newspaper Web sites or computer games with heavy English content).

CALL continues to grow in many directions. Understanding its scope is further complicated by constant advancements in hardware and software and an increase in computer literacy among both teachers and learners. Three decades ago, CALL would have been constrained to on-screen written exercises with simple graphics. Currently, CALL interactions are likely to include sound, animation, video and communication over local area networks (LANs), email and Internet chat lines. It would not be rash to predict that CALL will soon feature learner immersion in full virtual reality.

CALL is popular both in and out of the classroom. Classrooms may feature a single computer, a class set or even a situation in which portable laptop computers are issued to each learner who carries them from class to class along with, or instead of, books.

In the classroom, CALL activities may be used both as a reward and a remedial aid. Some classes are CALL language labs, building on the functions of traditional listening labs. But because of CALL's difficulty in accommodating listening and speaking, it is almost always used as a supplement to traditional classroom teaching and learning. Outside the classroom, many commercial applications promote themselves as complete methods for learning a language or part of a language, particularly in programs aimed at business travelers. But there is no empirical evidence of anyone ever learning to speak a new language simply by using a computer.

Reflection

1. Why have so many related terms grown up around CALL?
2. What are some implications of CALL not being clearly defined?

2. Background to teaching with CALL

CALL in the language classroom is, in some cases, evolving as quickly as computer technology itself evolves. In other cases, CALL in the language classroom is relatively unchanged from the behaviorist directives of the 1950s. For example, the most traditional and still most common form of CALL programs are behaviorist computer-based **gap-fill drills,** in which learners answer questions or fill in information in **cloze** exercises, where key or random words have been replaced with spaces. This approach is closely associated with B. F. Skinner (1954, 1957, 1968), whose approach emphasized rote learning, along with the techniques of mimicry and memorization through repetitive drills. Learners are rewarded by small positive responses, often including the right to move to a new level of drill.

Skinner's behaviorist theories found practical application in **programmed instruction** or **programmed learning**. A behaviorist model suggests learners can be taught a wide variety of subjects if presented with information in small steps, each step requiring appropriate responses (i.e.,

correct answers to questions) before offering more difficult or more advanced steps. Such an idea seems machine-like and, in fact, Thorndike put forward the idea of an automated mechanical book in 1912, and such a machine was constructed as early as 1926. It featured multiple-choice questions on a rotating drum and four keys for selecting answers. The machine collected the responses and even distributed a candy when all the correct choices were made (Merrill, et al., 1996).

Skinner (1968) suggested the machine was ahead of its time, but supported the idea of machine instruction as a way of increasing learner autonomy to avoid an essential problem, the pace of instruction in a group of learners whose comprehension and learning rates are at different levels:

> Even in a small classroom the teacher usually knows that he is going too slowly for some students and too fast for others. Those who could go faster are penalized, and those who should go slower are poorly taught and unnecessarily punished by criticism and failure. Machine instruction would permit each student to proceed at his own rate (p. 30).

The potential benefits for learners proceeding at their own rate crosses the boundaries of different models of instruction, and the arrival of the computer presented an ideal technology for programmed instruction. Programs could be **linear**, with all learners following the same path or **branching** with learners facing more difficult questions if their answers were correct or undertaking remedial training and/or questions if their answers were wrong.

Many the above features of programmed instruction are still common in CALL today, but Stevens (1992) notes it fell from popularity in language learning because it tended to focus on details and surface forms of the language at the expense of real-world communication.

Despite these criticisms, programmed instruction continues to be pervasive in CALL, sometimes combined with other, less behaviorist features. The reason for its enduring appeal may simply be that programmed instruction is an easy–if not ideal–thing for the computer to do. Today, a popular use of such programs is in teaching learners how to pass standardized tests.

A typical computer-based gap-fill drill lesson might look something like this.

Example

1. Learners enter the program and are asked for personal information, such as a name, that personalizes some of the coming content.
2. Learners select from a menu of options what they would like to learn. Choices might include presentation of language items in different formats, such as a story, a video of a conversation, a flowchart, or table.
3. A new language item or set of items to be learned are presented, giving a contextual demonstration of its meaning. This on-screen modeling

may be done through associations with pictures, sounds, animation, and/or video. Further explanations may be available through pull-down menus, timed prompts, or hyperlinks (text or images which are linked, by a mouse click, to further information).

4. Learners are given a choice of repeating the presentation of information, seeing the information presented in another form, or proceeding to a test.
5. The test offers some kind of immediate feedback. The feedback may be as simple as a score or may offer detailed critiques of the correct and incorrect answers provided by the learners.
6. Based on the learners success, they are either directed back to the same presentation of information or a variation of it.
7. Steps 3 through 6 are repeated until the learners achieve success. Then they are either moved along to a parallel set of language items or to a more difficult level. Alternatively, if the learners choose to exit the program, the program may keep a record of their attempts for future (and/or teacher) reference.

Reflection

1. What are the advantages and benefits of behaviorist approaches and programmed learning?
2. Programmed learning is popular, yet criticized. Why do you think it is criticized, and why do you think it remains popular despite criticism?

Beyond **behaviorism,** psychologist F.C. Bartlett first proposed the idea of **schema** theory in 1932. Nunan (1993) defines schema theory as, "A theory of language processing which suggests that discourse is interpreted with reference to the background knowledge of the reader or listener" (p. 124). Nunan also notes, "... schema theory suggests that the knowledge we carry around in our heads is organized into interrelated patterns. These are constructed from all our previous experiences and they enable us to make predictions about future experience" (p. 71). Anderson (1988) helps to define a schema approach to teaching and learning by suggesting it is one in which knowledge is:

> ... not merely a collection of facts. Although we may be able to memorize isolated facts for a short while ... meaningful learning demands that we internalize information; we break it down, digest it and locate it in our pre-existing highly complex web of interconnected knowledge and ideas, building fresh links and restructuring old ones (p. 197).

Schema theory is the foundation of **constructivism**. In a constructivist approach, a software program draws on the expertise of the learner and builds on it, offering multiple paths of inquiry and different ways of looking at the same problem or challenge. A typical constructivist program involves the learner in a kind of a quest, in which the teaching and learning objectives are achieved almost as a peripheral consequence of completing some other task.

For example, *Who is Oscar Lake?,* a CD-ROM-based game, is an example of a constructivist language learning program. It is a mystery game in which the language learner has been framed for the theft of a diamond and must go to a foreign city (featuring the target language) and use clues and interviews to try to trace the thief. The pace of the game is controlled by the learner, and different choices change the plot line. In the program, learners learn language as a peripheral activity to solving the mystery. On-line dictionaries and translations with sound are available if needed.

3. Principles for teaching CALL

1. Evaluate the appropriateness of the software program or computer-based resource (e.g., game or Web site):

Expertise Learners who determine what they know and do not know about a task are more likely to engage in productive work. Does the program pretest learners to evaluate what portions of the program will be of most use to them? Teachers can help in this process by identifying each learner's strengths and weaknesses and supplying appropriate software. Is the program at a challenging level for your learners?

Motivation Learners are usually faced with extrinsic motivation and manufacture intrinsic motivation when it suits them. Teachers and learners need to create motivation through establishing goals and understanding how CALL activities can help achieve them.

Program objectives Is it clear what the program aims to accomplish in terms of learning? Are these objectives realistic?

Target audience Many CALL materials may be aimed at specific audiences such as business people or primary students. Is the program pitched at students in your class?

Cognitive overhead How difficult is it to learn how to use the program?

Cost Is the program worth it? Is it better to get a few stand-alone copies rather than an expensive site-license?

Pedagogical approach Is the program behaviorist or constructivist? Does the program teach, or does it merely test?

Authenticity Does the program make use of authentic materials and situations? Do these materials relate to the experiences of the learners?

Feedback How does the program offer feedback?

Role of the learner/teacher What is expected of the learner? What is expected of the teacher?

Self-study/classroom Is the program intended for self-study or classroom use?

Technological appropriateness Does the program require extra hardware or software to make it work efficiently?

In groups, discuss CALL programs you have used or seen in the classroom. Evaluate them in terms of the above criteria. What other criteria might you apply to CALL programs?

2. Create an environment in which CALL is supported.

Arrange the CALL classroom to maximize interaction Many early CALL classrooms were integrated into traditional listening labs with dividers between learners to ensure privacy and discourage cheating during examinations. This type of isolation of learners, especially in a row-on-row situation, discourages interactions and opportunities for scaffolded learning. CALL classrooms should be organized so that learners have opportunities to share computer screens and discuss their common progress.

Ensure easy access to CALL Engaging in CALL should be as painless as taking a book out of a library or using any other common academic resource. Too often computing time is restricted, access to software tightly controlled, and budgets for very visible hardware are not matched with funds for software, upgrades, and repairs.

3. Monitor learner participation in CALL programs and encourage autonomy.

Determine roles When learners work together at the computer, they often select roles for themselves. Depending on the presentation of the software, learners may see the computer as a form of television providing passive entertainment in which they do not need to engage, or they may see it as a teacher, or even a kind of fellow learner.

Encourage responsibility There is seldom enough time or resources for comprehensively learning a language in a classroom, so learners using CALL should be encouraged to take responsibility for their own learning. This means making the best use of computing facilities when they have access to them and finding ways to follow up on what they have learned when they are away from the computer.

4. Encourage the use of CALL programs as a starting point for collaboration and learner interaction.

Encourage collaboration Have learners use the computer as an area for brainstorming. This is made more effective as the learners simultaneously search for information to aid in discussions. As learners interact, they help each other learn at a level appropriate to their language abilities. Collaboration can also take place on the Internet, through e-mail penpal or keypal arrangements.

Imagine, or role-play, two learners using a CALL program for the first time. What kinds of discussions are they likely to have? How might these discussions help their general language awareness and development? How might these discussions help their computer literacy?

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

In this section, we look at common CALL techniques and programs. The techniques can be easily adapted to various languages, ability, and skill levels.

There are several taxonomies to classify CALL techniques. Software reviews often provide examples. One taxonomy, offered by Chandler (1984), is based on how much control there is between the program and the learner:

- Tutorial/hospital model: user as patient
- Games/funfair model: user as emulator
- Simulation games/drama model: user as role-player
- Experimental simulations/laboratory model: user as tester
- Content-free tools resource/center model: user as artist or researcher
- Programming languages/workshop model: user as inventor

In practice, however, programs are likely to stretch across a range of these models. For example, the main part of a CALL program may use a tutorial model, but testing may be done in a game or simulation format.

Below are five examples of simple CALL techniques and programs.

Internet treasure hunt An Internet treasure hunt asks learners to find a number of pieces of information. The teacher organizes the tasks so that learners will learn various strategies, such as paraphrasing. The teacher may also want the learners to encounter peripheral information to encourage general learning. The searches might be of a general nature, such as asking adult learners to find Web sites where they can learn about language related to their occupations, or knowledge domains, such as language related to sports.

The following example lesson might be suitable for a group of ESL learners who are reinforcing their knowledge of the simple past. They might also be studying early American history in another class and the ESL teacher might be using the following as a support activity.

Example

Teacher: *For this lesson, I want you to find ten facts about Christopher Columbus. You may find many Web sites mention places named after him, but the facts you need to find are the ones I have written on the board: Where and when was he born? How old was he was when he died? What did he do? (and so on). Think of synonyms when you're searching for your answers. I would also like each student to find out one different fact about him, so you will need to check with each other.*

The task encourages learners to think in terms of keywords beyond the question, for example, birth and birthday as well as born. The request for unique information encourages learner interaction.

Concordancing Concordancing is a process of looking at relationships among words. Even without a concordancing program, a teacher can still ask learners to look up words and strings of words on the Internet to find natural contexts.

Learners can get a better understanding of how the words are used appropriately. It is a self-study technique that the learner can take away from the classroom. Visit Grammar Safari at http://www.iei.uiuc.edu/web.pages/grammarsafari.html.

Example

Look at today's newspaper and find a phrase you don't understand. Use a search engine such as www.google.com to look for occurrences of the phrase (for example, *tongue in cheek*). Collect ten definitions or examples and review the meaning with other students.

E-mail penpals E-mail penpals can be arranged by the learners themselves or as part of a class-to-class exchange. It would be ideal for language learners to correspond with native speakers of the target language, but in practice, native speakers sometimes find it a less than satisfactory exchange and break off contact. Learners may also find it frustrating to be confronted with unfamiliar slang, expressions, and obscure cultural references. A preferable situation is to engage learners of the target language from different native language groups, for example, Portuguese and Norwegian students both studying and corresponding in Japanese. In a class-to-class situation, a series of assignments or prompts might be offered. (For a summary, see Warschauer, Shetzer & Meloni, 1999.)

Chatlines Chatlines are a variation on *penpals* and are commonly referred to as IM (i.e., instant messages) discussions. Such discussions have the advantage of occurring close to real time. Learners can build a conversation, but it may suffer if one or more of the learners has poor typing skills. One of the advantages to both the learner and the teacher is that transcripts of the discussion may be preserved and studied.

Thesaurus The thesaurus function in most versions of popular word-processing software programs is something that can be exploited by teachers and learners to encourage vocabulary expansion. A simple exercise is to have learners complete a piece of narrative or descriptive writing, then go through it, changing all of the adjectives and adverbs by highlighting them and using the thesaurus function to find replacements. Unknown words can be discussed and learned, and known words can be compared for subtle differences to their synonyms.

Companion Web sites In addition to the usual ancillaries such as workbooks, testing packages and teachers' manuals, many commercial textbook series have companion Web sites. These sites vary in quality, but most have something interesting to offer. The beauty of these sites is that they are usually not password protected, and can therefore be accessed regardless of whether or not you are using the printed textbook. (Of course, as they were

designed to supplement the textbook series they go with, their effectiveness is limited if you attempt to use them as 'stand alone' resources.)

For example, the textbook series *Expressions* (Heinle/Thomson, 2001) by David Nunan has a site at http://expressions.heinle.com. Each unit in the series has supporting material on the Web, as well as an "exploration section." This section contains a Web-based project that requires the learner to apply the language they have been learning in the unit. One interesting feature of this site is that if the student enters the teacher's e-mail address, the site will, when the student submits his or her work, generate a diagnostic report on the student's answers.

Language learning sites In the last few years a number of commercial language learning sites have appeared on the Internet. Two of the best known of these are Englishtown and GlobalEnglish. These sites are intended as comprehensive language learning solutions. In other words, students should be able to learn English by engaging with the content provided (at a price) through the Internet without necessarily attending a face-to-face class. Many online language learning providers, however, recognize the fact that students need direct interaction with teachers to learn a new language. As such, they promote **blended learning** solutions in which students meet regularly in chartrooms with instructors. The *blend*, then, combines students working on their own on Web-based activities with live sessions with a teacher and other students.

Web-based programs have a number of potential advantages over regular classroom instruction. In the first place, the computer is a "patient tutor." The student can repeat exercises as often as necessary to gain mastery, something that is not always feasible in a face-to-face classroom. Students can also gain instant, individualized feedback on their performance, often with a diagnostic report on where additional practice is needed. Finally, they have the advantage of providing the learner with a "private space" for practicing their English, something which is valued by shy or inhibited students.

Visit the GlobalEnglish Web site at www.globalenglish.com and complete one of the assignments that are offered free of charge. How did the experience compare with other forms of self-study? Based on your experience of completing the assignment, what would you see as the advantages and disadvantages of this mode of learning?

5. CALL in the classroom

The purpose of this section is to show how CALL concepts and techniques can be realized at the level of classroom action. The following two fictional extracts feature distinct approaches to CALL. The first features a CALL classroom with Internet access in which Spanish is being taught; there is no commercial CALL software being used in this lesson other than what can be found free on-line. In the second extract, a teacher in a CALL classroom is making use of a commercial program, Transparent Language *Learn Chinese Now,* to teach Mandarin. In reality, there is little reason why one would choose one approach over the other. Instead, teachers are likely to integrate the two over the course of a single lesson or set of lessons.

Reflection

Study the following two extracts.

1. In what ways are the extracts similar? In what ways are they different?
2. What is the purpose of each lesson?
3. Which activities would be most effective? Why?

In Extract 1, held midsemester, the teacher has welcomed her students (age 15) to her beginner Spanish class and done a few spot-checks on comprehension of the last day's lesson. She now introduces today's topic to her eighteen students. Although some of the discussion would take place in the target language (Spanish), it is presented in English here for the convenience of the reader.

Extract 1

Teacher: *The topic of today's lesson is* mercado. *(She writes the word on the board; it means* marketplace.*) Who knows what* mercado *means? (Six hands shoot up and the teacher makes a mental note of the students for a later task.)*

Teacher: *Okay, let's hear it. Tom?*

Tom: *Isn't it about selling something?*

Teacher: *Perhaps. What do you think, Janet?*

Janet: *I went to a* supermercado *in Mexico last summer, so I think it's a kind of grocery superstore where you buy different kinds of food.*

Teacher: *Mmm. Brett, you have an idea?*

Brett: *Well, if* supermercado *is* superstore, *then* mercado *must just be a store.*

Teacher: *Good logic. Anyone else have something to add? Yes, Amy?*

Amy: *I think* mercado *is a place to sell things, I'm not sure if it's just for groceries.*

Teacher: *Okay, we're going in the right direction, but I'm not hearing that everyone agrees or has a perfect idea of what* mercado *means. This is what we want to do today: we want to build a* ***knowledge domain*** *around* mercado. *Who remembers what a knowledge domain is? Yes, Janet?*

Janet: *It's all the words and phrases about an idea.*

Teacher: *Sounds good. Anything else? Yes, Ming?*

Ming: *Pictures about the idea and some activities, too.*

Teacher: *Good. The six people who put up their hands at the start, yes, that's you, Tom, Janet, Brett, Amy, George and Ming, pick two other people each and form teams. This is what I want you to do: use the Internet to collect examples of the word* mercado. *When you are looking, you may also find some digital images of a* mercado *as well. Save these in a separate document and we will see if we can use them later. When you've got your teams, I want you to write me a* ***learning contract*** *for how you're going to approach the topic. I expect you to be able to teach the other students about some aspect of* mercado *using information you have found on the Internet. But first you need to learn what a* mercado *is. You've got five minutes. I'll come around to each group.*

(Five minutes pass in which the teacher circulates among the groups. The teacher finds that the students have discovered that *mercado* means marketplace. Armed with this information, the students propose to attack the topic from different directions. The teacher ensures there is no repetition among the proposals and sets the groups to work. Each group has written a "contract" that says what they will complete by the end of the week for presentation in the following week. If they cannot complete it in class, they know that it will be assigned as homework. As the groups work, the teacher addresses the class again.)

Teacher: *I'll just interrupt you for a moment to fill you in on what each team is doing. As always, if you can find a way to help each other, it's worth extra points. Now, Tom's team has decided to use translation software at http://babelfish.altavista.com to make up a mini-dictionary of words related to* mercado. *You're focusing on both English and Spanish, aren't you, Tom?*

Tom: *Yes, that's right. And we'll print out a copy for each student.*

Teacher: *Good, save a copy of the file for me. We'll add it to our other*

mini-dictionaries. Janet's group is also making a dictionary, but they're taking key words and finding a picture (www.corbis.com) for each one, is that right Janet?

Janet: *Yes, and we'll work with Tom's group to use some of the same words.*

Teacher: *Will you modify the pictures?*

Janet: *Yes. We're using simple photo-editing software to add arrows and key words in the pictures. Uh, we'd also like to borrow the digital camera later.*

Teacher: *Great. You might decide you want to work together as one larger group and make one dictionary with translations and pictures. I've written* mercado *on the board. As your group finds other key words and phrases, use the markers to add words and phrases in a spider chart. That way we all can share. Brett, you're doing something with pictures too?*

Brett: *Yes, sort of ... our group is making a crossword puzzle of lots of words related to* mercado. *We can do it by making a table in our word-processing program. We'll use some clip art at http://dgl.microsoft.com/mgo1en/eula.asp for clues, but we'll use some English words for clues as well.*

Teacher: *Good. Work with the other groups. And don't forget to write an answer key. Amy? Your group is doing something with concordancing?*

Amy: *We're doing a search for* mercado *and writing down all the sentences where it is used. We want to see what words go with it.*

Teacher: *And how will you make it available to the other students?*

Amy: *We'll make a handout and include the addresses of the Web sites, too.*

Teacher: *Don't forget to look for places where* mercado *is used in English pages; use a Boolean search. I want you to think about why a Spanish word would be popular in English. Ming, you're writing a cloze exercise in a word-processing program?*

Ming: *Yes. We'll write one in English and one in Spanish. We'll work with Amy's group and use some of the same sentences.*

Teacher: *Great. And George? Your group is doing something with sound?*

George: *We want you to help us pronounce some of the words and phrases. We'll record them and make a simple Web page with the sentences and the sounds.*

Teacher: *Okay, talk to the other groups and get an idea of the important words and phrases. I like the Web page idea and once the other groups are finished, we might add everything to a single Web page. Now, let's get going.*

(The teacher lets the teams begin and circulates among them, marking progress, offering suggestions and encouraging cooperation. In some groups, she assigns roles, making certain students responsible for liaising with other groups and others responsible for recording progress. She prompts students to use as much Spanish as possible in their discussions. At the end of the lesson, students report on any problems they are having and other team members offer advice. The teacher asks the students, What did you learn today? Then she takes some answers and ends the class with words of praise. After class she makes notes on how she might make use of the student resources in future lessons.)

Commentary The teacher uses a constructivist approach and has created a situation that builds upon the knowledge of the students both in their language knowledge–defining *mercado*–and proposing an approach that makes the students responsible for extending their schema around the word. The teacher also allows students to build on their computer knowledge, allowing them to choose the ways in which they might approach the task of activating the term *mercado* and its peripheral vocabulary and ideas.

The idea of learning contracts, agreements of what the students plan to accomplish, shifts responsibility to the students and frees the teacher from constant supervision so she can devote her time to pedagogical issues. Her offer of extra points for cooperation ensures that students take over part of the teaching duties, sharing what they have found. The teacher shifts her focus as a dispenser of knowledge to a facilitator helping her students work as autonomous learners, and supporting Hutchings, et. al. (1992) suggestion that, "Those who prepare the course material may learn much more than those who receive it" (p. 171).

Imagine you are teaching the same type of lesson as in Extract 1 but on a different topic and, perhaps, in a different language. What challenges do you think you and your students would face? Write your own classroom extract.

In Extract 2, held midsemester, the teacher has welcomed his students (age 15) to his beginner Chinese class and collected their homework. He administers a brief quiz and allows students to self-check to ensure comprehension. Based on the quiz, he decides to review the previous day's work but allows six of the better students to explore a newly-purchased Chinese software program, Transparent Language *Learn Chinese Now*. He asks these students to start the program, find an area that interests them and be prepared to report back to the class what they have learned. There is no paper manual, but he gives the students the carton and explains that he will help them once he has had time to get the rest of the class working.

Reflection

Read Extract 2, then think about these questions.

1. In what ways are Extracts 1 and 2 similar? In what ways are they different?
2. What is the purpose of each lesson?
3. Which is the richer student experience?
4. Should the teacher in Extract 2 have previewed the software before asking the students to use it? Why or why not?

Extract 2

(As the students wait for the computer to warm up, they make small talk and discuss what they are expected to do.)

Juanita: *Okay, so let's look at this box. What does it say?*

Harris: *It's got some pictures on the back, some screen captures about what it looks like. Do you see something you'd like to do?*

Juanita: *Well, we should just divide up and look at different sections. I'll take the one for this picture on the back, some people are talking and it has the conversation in Pinyin (Chinese Romanization).*

Peter: *How about inside the box? There's pictures of the Chinese characters, that's what interests me. I'll work with Anna.*

Erin: *There are some games. Don and I will look at those.*

Juanita: *Okay then. Let's do it.*

(The students start up the program and begin finding their way and working with it. After ten minutes, their teacher takes a break from the rest of his class and stops by to speak with each pair.)

Teacher: *How's it going here?*

Juanita: *Fine. We're working on this section with the conversations.*

Teacher: *Are you learning anything?*

Juanita: *Well, it's okay. Some stuff is familiar but …*

Teacher: *But?*

Juanita: *Well, you've already taught us a lot of the Chinese characters, but this section doesn't use characters.*

Teacher: *Is that confusing?*

Juanita: *Well, I don't know if we'll ever see Pinyin when we go to China.*

Teacher: *You'd be surprised. It's used quite a bit for street signs and labels.*

Harris: *The other problem is that they break up the words into syllables.*

Teacher: *What do you mean?*

Harris: *Well, you see here?* Peng you. *That should be one word. Do they write it like that in China?*

Teacher: *Uh, no, they don't.*

Harris: *And see, here, they say* you *means friend. Doesn't* pengyou *mean friend?*

Teacher: *Well, yes, but if you saw you written as a single character, you'd expect it to mean* friend. *Also,* friend, *as a radical affixed to another character might suggest a* friend *aspect. But no, to answer your question, I'm not sure this is the best way to learn.*

Juanita: *So you think it's a garbage program?*

Teacher: *Too soon to say. You need to look at it and find what's good and bad about it. Listen, can I ask you to write a short review of this feature? It would be helpful to explain your points to other students.*

Harris: *Sure.*

Juanita: *Will do.*

(The teacher moves on to the second pair.)

Teacher: *Peter, how are you doing?*

Peter: *Well … Anna and I are looking at the Chinese character section.*

Teacher: *And how does it work?*

Anna: *You click on each character and it says the sound. The sounds are quite similar, so it helps to be able to hear them together.*

Peter: *Yes. And there are different colors for different kinds of sounds.*

Teacher: *Is that helpful?*

Peter: *Sure.*

Teacher: *Okay, turn away from the screen. What is blue used for?*

Peter: *Uh …*

Teacher: *Well, have another look. Any problems?*

Anna: *I thought there would be something here for us to practice writing the characters, but there isn't.*

Teacher: *No? Nowhere in the program?*

Peter: *Nope. We looked.*

Teacher: *Well, try to get what you can out of it. Also, I'll give you some index cards and try writing down the characters for flashcards. I'll give you a few minutes at the end of the hour to test the class on the sounds. Questions?*

(The teacher moves on to the third pair.)

Teacher: *Okay, what have you two been up to?*

Erin: *Games. We've got the games.*

Don: *We tried the crossword program, which is a little difficult, but then we went on to the ...*

Teacher: *Sorry, what was difficult about the crossword program?*

Don: *Well, we didn't know much of the vocabulary.*

Erin: *And we weren't really sure what the picture clues meant. We had to spend some time figuring out the pictures and then maybe getting a prompt for a free letter.*

Teacher: *Mmm. Do you think it's something you might get better at if you tried it a few times?*

Erin: *Maybe. But I think the words change every time you play. You also get your score at the end to see how well you've done.*

Teacher: *What about the other game?*

Erin: *It's better. It's a cloze exercise. We also tried the sound recording.*

Teacher: *Oh, how was that?*

Erin: *Quite good. It's probably the best thing on the program.*

Teacher: *Mmm. I'd like you to make a couple of notes about the program for the other students. Could you do that for me?*

Don: *What should we write?*

Teacher: *Some of the same things you told me. Add instructions on how to get started in the games and recording sections.*

Commentary The teacher uses a behaviorist program to occupy a group of the better students; he might just as easily have used it as a remedial program but, as it was new, he wanted some of his better students to help find out more about its strengths and weaknesses. Like the teacher in Extract 1, he allows the learners autonomy to structure their tasks as they best see fit. Hopefully, the students act responsibly in the knowledge that they are being rewarded for their performance and will be challenged by the teacher later in the lesson.

Early in the lesson, the teacher finds time to visit the six students and make sure that they are on track. He finds some problems with the program and will perhaps modify his future purchases of software on the basis of the students' feedback. In general, there have been few opportunities for the students to activate their language, but he challenges them to think of ways in which they might get more out of the program. He also finds ways to make the students responsible for sharing their views with other students.

Select a software program and design your own teaching sequence. Now imagine yourself teaching the sequence. How do you think it will go? Write your own classroom extract.

6. Conclusion

This chapter began by defining CALL in loose terms, acknowledging that it is a quickly evolving discipline. CALL practitioners, researchers, and developers face a daunting task of keeping up with developments in the field. This chapter has pointed out some of the ways of presenting CALL in the classroom through simple techniques, but there are also always new software programs for improving language learning. What is important is to evaluate these programs to ensure that they offer pedagogically appropriate materials for your students. That said, even poor materials can present opportunities for learning if handled appropriately.

Further readings

Beatty, K. (forthcoming 2003). *Applied Linguistics in Action: CALL.* London: Pearson.

This book offers a historical overview of computer-assisted language learning and explores the current and future developments.

Chapelle, C. 2001. *Computer applications in second language acquisition: Foundations for teaching, testing, and research.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

This book focuses on the use of the computer for teaching language with particular attention paid to how students acquire information.

Klein, B., M. Hunt, and R. Lee 1999. *The Essential Workbook for Library and Internet Research.* New York, NY: McGraw Hill Higher Education.

This workbook provides step-by-step instructions for teachers and advanced learners on getting the most out of Internet resources.

Fox, J. 1991. *Learning Languages with Computers: A history of computer assisted language learning from 1960–1990 in relation to education, linguistics and applied linguistics.* Unpublished Doctorate thesis, University of East Anglia.

This is a good overview of the history and basic ideas in CALL.

Helpful Web sites

Open University Language Studies' web directory (http://www.open.ac.uk/education-and-languages/links/languages.cfm)

This Web site offers a general collection of language resources for both students and teachers.

I Love Languages (formerly Human Language Resource Page) (http://www.ilovelanguages.com)

This Web site offers a general collection of language resources in many languages.

Evaluating a CALL Initiative (http://edvista.com/claire/eval.html)

This Web site offers several resources for evaluating programs, CALL and Web sites.

Global English Corporation (http://www.globalenglish.com)

Global English offers fee-based English courses for adults and children.

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13

Chapter **Thirteen**

Learning styles and strategies

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **provide** a definition of a learning style and learning strategy.
- ✔ **clarify** the difference between learning styles and strategies.
- ✔ **explain** why learning styles and strategies are important considerations in second language teaching.
- ✔ **identify** some major learning styles and learning strategies.
- ✔ **identify** learning styles and strategies in your own lesson plans.
- ✔ **identify** five important features of your own learning style profile.

1. What are learning styles and strategies?

As an English language teacher you may recognize your students learn differently, but you may not have the necessary skills for dealing with different **learning styles** and **strategies** in the classroom. The purpose of this chapter is to help you learn more about learning styles and strategies so you can help your English language students learn most efficiently.

The terms *learning styles* and *learning strategies* can be confusing. Some English language teachers think they are the same thing, but they are not. Learning styles and strategies are linked to one another, but they are not the same thing.

Learning styles refers to " ... an individual's natural habitual, and preferred ways of absorbing, processing, and retaining new information and skills." (Kinsella, 1995, p. 171). These styles seem to persist regardless of the content you are trying to master (e.g., learning to fly an airplane vs. learning another language) or the method of instruction you are given (e.g., straight lecture vs. problem-solving, small group work). Whether you know it or not you also have preferred ways of absorbing, processing, and retaining new information and skills.

Learning strategies are different from learning styles. Learning strategies refer to "... characteristics we want to stimulate in students to enable them to become more proficient language learners." (Oxford, 1990, p. ix). In this case, we are not talking about preferred ways of doing things, but rather looking at the characteristics of tasks that second language learners must do and purposely teaching students the behaviors that will help them be successful learners. Strategies must first be identified as important to a given task, and then, they are purposely taught. For example, a common task teachers use is to ask students to make a written summary of information acquired from listening to or reading text. The task is to say or write the main idea. This is a cognitive strategy known as summarizing.

Reflection

Do you think knowing about learning styles and strategies is important for second language teachers? Why or why not?

Using the definitions above and without further reading in this chapter, give an example of a learning style and a learning strategy from your own experiences as a student and/or teacher.

2. Background on learning styles and strategies

The major research base for much of the current work on learning styles began in the first quarter of the twentieth century with the work of noted psychologists Carl Jung (1976) and Jean Piaget (1968). In recent years, English language teachers have become very interested in learning styles. In the last decade we have seen works specifically devoted to learning styles and English language teaching appear on the market–Reid (1995, 1997), Kinsella (1995), Oxford (1990), and Oxford and Anderson (1995). This chapter will cover the most common and significant learning styles. As educators, we hear the most about the perceptual learning styles–visual, auditory, kinesthetic, and tactile; however, perceptual learning styles are only one piece of a much larger learning-style picture. It is important to see the different learning styles as connected because learners will have more than one learning style. In addition, different tasks may be approached in different ways, making more than one learning style significant for a given task.

Learning styles are both individually and culturally motivated (Kachru, 1988; Nelson, 1995). Within a given culture and on a larger scale, we can see certain learning style preferences among individuals surfacing. This is not to say that everyone within the culture has the same preferences, but, rather, that culture does play a role in the development of our preferences. This can lead to conflicts in a second language classroom that is made up of students from different language backgrounds when the teacher does not understand the relationship between the students' learning styles and his/her own (Cohen, 1969; Oxford, Ehrman & Lavine, 1991).

Strategies are specific means that learners use to learn or improve their language. There are many different kinds of learning strategies, depending on the context and tasks. Because the scope of this chapter is limited, I will only introduce strategies for learning in a classroom environment. (See Oxford 1990; Silver and Hanson, 1996a, Silver and Hanson, 1996b). These classroom learning strategies are broken down into three areas: **cognitive**, **metacognitive**, and **socio-affective**.

The labels used for describing learning styles and strategies vary greatly. The taxonomies in this chapter work well for English language teachers. They are

neither too complex nor too simple, and they identify features of learning styles and strategies that are critical for second language learners. Neither the taxonomy for learning styles nor the taxonomy for learning strategies is meant to be exhaustive. They simply present ways of thinking about learning styles and strategies that are easy and manageable. We will also explore the types of behaviors that students with different learning styles might exhibit in the second language classroom. The ultimate goal in applying these taxonomies to instructional planning and design is to create English language teaching environments that assist different students in learning English efficiently and effectively.

In considering how to apply learning styles in the L2 classroom, I have found it useful to look at three broad categories of learning styles (see Figure 1)–cognitive, sensory, and personality.

Learning Style Taxonomy for the L2 Classroom

Type 1: Cognitive Styles	Type 2: Sensory Styles	Type 3: Personality Styles
Field Dependent—learns best when information is presented in context. They are often more fluent language learners **Field Independent**—learns mos effectively step-by-step and with sequential instruction. They are often more accurate language learners	**Perceptual:** **Visual**—learns best when there is visual reinforcement such as charts, pictures, graphs, etc. **Auditory**—learns more effectively by listening to information **Tactile**—learns more effectively when there is an opportunity to use manipulative resources **Kinesthetic**—learns more effectively when there is movement associated with learning	**Tolerance of Ambiguity:** refers to how comfortable a learner is with uncertainty; some students do well in situations where there are several possible answers; others prefer one correct answer
Analytic—works more effectively alone and at his/her own pace **Global**—works more effectively in groups	**Environmental:** **Physical**—sensitive to learning environment, such as light, temperature, furniture **Sociological**—sensitive to relationships within the learning environment	**Right and Left Hemisphere Dominance** **Left-brain** dominant learners tend to be more visual, analytical, reflective, and self-reliant **Right-brain** dominant learners tend to be more auditory, global, impulsive, and interactive
Reflective—learns more effectively when they have time to consider new information before responding **Impulsive**—learns more effectively when they can respond to new information immediately; as language learners, they are risk takers		

Figure 1 Learning style taxonomy for the L2 classroom

Look at the description of each learning style. Make a list of the styles that best describe you. Share your results with a partner.

Each student in your classroom will have cognitive, sensory, and personality type learning styles. In order to use the information presented in Figure 1 most effectively, you must gain a working knowledge of the general categories of learning styles so you can (1) recognize different styles in yourself and your learners, and (2) create lesson plans and classroom activities that address these varied styles.

There are many different ways to categorize learning strategies (Oxford, 1990). Given the emphasis in the past decade on helping learners develop critical thinking skills and cognitive academic language proficiency (CALP) (Cummins, 1996), I have chosen to review some general learning strategies. In the cognitive academic language learning approach (CALLA), Chamot and O'Malley (1994) identified some general learning strategies that contribute to second language student success in academic and classroom environments. While the focus in the CALLA model is on children learning a second language, the general learning strategies are important for all language learners in formal classroom environments. General learning strategies fall into three areas–metacognitive (i.e., strategies to help students think about their own learning), cognitive, and socio-affective.

General learning strategies for second language learners in academic contexts (adapted from Chamot and O'Malley, 1994 and Oxford, 1990)

Learning strategy	Definition of strategy
Metacognitive strategies	
Planning	Previewing main ideas Making plans to accomplish a task Paying attention to key information Seeking out and arranging for conditions to promote successful learning
Monitoring	Self-checking ones comprehension
Evaluating	Developing the ability to determine how well one has accomplished the task

(Continued page 272)

Cognitive strategies	
Summarizing	Saying or writing the main idea
Induction	Figuring out the rules from samples of language
Imagery	Being able to visualize a picture and use it to learn new information
Auditory representation	Mentally replaying a word, phrase, or piece of information
Making inferences	Using information in the text to guess the meaning
Using resources	Developing the ability to use reference materials
Grouping	Classifying words, terminology, quantities, or concepts
Note-taking	Writing down key words and concepts in verbal, graphic, or numerical form
Elaboration of prior knowledge	Relating new to known information and making personal associations
Social/Affective strategies	
Cooperating	Learning how to work with peers—completing a task, pooling information, solving a problem, and obtaining feedback
Clarifying	Learning how to ask questions to get additional explanation or verification from the teacher or someone else who might know the answer
Self-talk	Reducing anxiety by talking positively to oneself

Figure 2 Learning strategies for L2 learners

3. Principles for teaching learning styles and strategies

1. Vary activities and materials.

Learning style profiles are different for everyone. No two classes of students will be exactly the same. The class of students you have for one session may have very different learning styles from students you have in the next session. Students will also have different needs relative to learning strategies depending on their collective goals and objectives. When I started working with learning styles in the early 1980s, I thought that I needed to determine the learning styles of the students in each class, and then create lesson plans and select activities and tasks to match their learning styles. What I discovered was that the profiles and needs of each class were different. If I had continued with my initial way of thinking, I would have been constantly creating new materials, activities and tasks, changing formats, and refocusing my lessons. A simpler and more logical approach for addressing learning and strategies eventually surfaced. Once I began to understand the different styles and strategies presented in Figures 1 and 2, I began to think of learning styles and strategies in a more global sense. Rather than create tasks and activities for a specific group of students, I began varying the activities and tasks to address a broad range of learning styles and learning strategy needs. Over a period of time, many different styles and strategies would be addressed.

2. Make all learning styles value neutral.

The students in your classes will all have different learning styles. Some styles will work better than others in different learning situations, but no one learning style is better than another one. As an English language teacher, it is important that you understand the learning styles of the students in your classes and value all styles equally. One way that you can show that you value all learning styles is to make certain that you vary your lesson plans so that they include activities that address the different styles. When you, as the teacher, embrace diversity in learning, you set an excellent example for your students to do the same thing.

3. Audit your teaching.

If you are a practicing teacher, conduct an audit of your teaching for two or three weeks. Focus on either styles or strategies, and on one or two specific styles or strategies at a time. Before you begin making changes in your approach to teaching relative to learning styles and strategies, you should

always make certain that you have a very clear understanding of what it is that you routinely do. Once you understand what you routinely do, you will be able to make changes in your teaching in order to broaden or change your approach to both learning styles and strategies in your classrooms. For example, if you always have your students work alone, you may want to change your practice and have them work in small groups occasionally. If you always ask questions that have one possible correct answer, you may want to change your practice and ask open-ended questions that can be answered in several different ways. If you are not yet a practicing teacher, you may want to observe an experienced teacher to understand how both learning styles and strategies can be used in the second language classroom.

4. Encourage students to stretch their learning styles.

Rather than think of each learning style as very separate and unique, I have found it useful to think of learning styles on a continuum. By thinking of learning styles on a continuum, I can see more clearly what styles students are using in the classroom and can get a clearer picture of how to help them stretch their learning styles–particularly for students at the extremes of the continuum. For example, the cognitive learning style of impulsive/reflective can be seen on a continuum with the impulsive learning style at one end and the reflective at the other end. When you see students who prefer using the impulsive learning style (e.g., completing work quickly and immediately in class), you can acknowledge the strengths of the global style (e.g., These are generally the students who do get their work finished and in on time!). Then, try to assign some tasks in which the impulsive learning style may not serve them well (i.e., when students must work on a multistep project on their own that requires careful consideration at each step). By recognizing students' learning style strengths and then giving them opportunities to stretch themselves, you help them develop a better understanding of how they learn best. By pointing out that the learning style in question may not always serve them well, you can help them see the limitations in their current ways of learning. By suggesting other behaviors at the opposite end of the continuum, you help them stretch their learning style capabilities.

5. Find ways to link both learning styles and strategies.

Learning styles and strategies are closely related; therefore, it is important to find ways to link these two concepts in course curricula. Learning styles stem from the learners themselves–their preferred ways of perceiving and processing information. Learning strategies stem from the tasks–ways of per-

ceiving and processing information that are important to completing a task successfully. Sometimes learning styles and strategies match up beautifully for students, but at other times, they do not. When preparing lesson plans, it is important to look closely at each task and activity that students are required to complete and ask yourself two questions:

- What learning styles will be most useful in completing these tasks?
- What learning strategies will my students need in order to complete these tasks successfully?

Once you have answers to these questions, you can make adjustments in the planning and presentation of course materials in order to provide an optimal learning environment for your language learners.

Reflection

What specific things might you do to help learners stretch their learning styles?

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

There are many advantages to using learning styles and strategies in lesson planning and curriculum development. The English language classroom certainly becomes a more varied and interesting environment when learning styles and strategies become an integral part of learning. Students learn content and language, and they learn more about themselves and how they learn. Using learning styles and strategies gives teachers a more holistic view of learning and spawns creativity in the development and use of techniques for learning. Here are two techniques for using learning styles and strategies. I have chosen these techniques because I believe they have the broadest appeal.

Creating inventories Language learners enjoy knowing more about themselves and how they learn if they also perceive themselves to be learning English at the same time. Inventories are an excellent way of helping learners develop their language skills and learn more about their individual process of learning. There are a number of useful learning style inventories already on the market (Oxford, 1990b; Reid 1995; Kinsella, 1995; Dunn,

Dunn, and Price, 1975, 1979, 1989) that can provide you and your students with useful and quite reliable information about learning styles and strategies. I also believe there is great value in homemade inventories because they can be useful in providing springboards for important discussion in the classroom both on the results obtained from the inventories and on the process of creating the inventories. The following inventory was created with my students in order to talk about the perceptual learning styles. The perceptual learning styles are visual, auditory, tactile, and kinesthetic.

My students identified the content for the inventory in a brainstorming session. Collectively they brainstormed some typical activities (e.g., driving a car or talking to a teacher about a problem), preferences (e.g., for movies, CDs, sports) and beliefs about self (e.g., personal appearance, disciplining children). I created the inventory by carefully thinking about each item in relationship to perceptual learning styles. I selected the behaviors that were representative of auditory, visual, and kinesthetic learning styles and created the multiple-choice questions below. Students not only participated in useful language activity during the brainstorming session, but also had a chance to take the inventory individually and then discuss the results with a partner or in a small group.

Example **Perceptual style inventory for language learners**

Directions: Work alone. Answer the questions. Choose the one answer that best describes you. When you have finished, summarize your answers. What is your strongest learning style? Do you have more than one? Then, with a partner and share your answers. Where are your answers different? Similar?

1. A person can tell what you are feeling by
   a) the way your face looks
   b) the way your voice sounds
   c) the way you stand, move, and hold your body
2. If I need to talk to someone about something very important, I prefer to
   a) meet face-to-face
   b) talk on the telephone
   c) talk while I am doing something else
3. When I am driving or riding in a car for long distances, I frequently
   a) check the rearview and side mirrors and watch out for other cars.
   b) turn on the radio or listen to a cassette or CD
   c) move about in my seat trying to get comfortable and make frequent stops
4. When I am angry at someone, I
   a) give them the silent treatment
   b) tell others immediately
   c) clench my fist and storm off

5. When I attend a meeting, I
   a) prepare notes, agendas, overheads, etc. in advance
   b) enjoy discussing and hearing others ideas
   c) doodle and daydream
6. When it comes to the clothes I wear, I pay most attention to
   a) comfort and how I feel
   b) how I look
   c) compliments and what others say
7. The best form of discipline is
   a) to take away something of value
   b) to discuss the problem
   c) to refuse to speak or interact
8. When I have a little free time, I like to
   a) participate in some sport or physical activity
   b) watch TV or movies
   c) listen to the radio or my favorite music
9. I try to keep up with what's going on in the world by
   a) scanning the newspaper or catching a few minutes of the evening news while I'm doing other things
   b) reading the newspaper or news magazine
   c) listening to the radio or watching the evening news
10. I think the most effective way to reward someone (including me) is
    a) a pat on the back, a handshake, or a hug (whichever is appropriate)
    b) oral praise in front of peers
    c) letters, notes, and stickers with positive comments

Answer key

Total the points for each a), b), and c) checks. Numbers 1 -5 a) visual, b) auditory, c) kinesthetic; Numbers 6-10 a) kinesthetic, b) auditory, c) visual. If you have more points in any one area, that area will be your dominate learning style. It is quite common to have equal points in two areas. This means that you have a bi-modal profile.

Interactive search and find Interactive search and find works much in the same way as creating inventories in terms of student involvement. The major difference is that creating inventories focuses only on learning styles and Interactive search and find focuses on learning strategies and learning styles.

Again, my students identified the content for the Interactive search and find in a brainstorming session. Collectively they brainstormed some different strategies they use for learning (e.g., using resources, summarizing, etc.) and different ways in which they prefer to learn (e.g., setting their own goals, learning in a step-by-step fashion, etc.). I selected the content for the Interactive search and find based on student input. Again, students not only participate in useful language activity during the brainstorming session, but also have a chance to participate in the Interactive search and find with their peers.

Interactive search and find

Directions: You will need to get up and out of your seats and talk with your classmates. Find someone for whom the following statements are true. Get signatures from your classmates. They should sign their names in the blank spaces under the statements. Try to get as many different signatures as you can.

Find someone who . . .	***Name***
1. learns new information more effectively step-by-step.	_____
2. knows how to use an English/English dictionary.	_____
3. knows how to find information on the Internet.	_____
4. learns best when interacting with other people.	_____
5. can read a passage and pick out the main ideas.	_____
6. knows how to use an encyclopedia.	_____
7. is good at taking notes.	_____
8. notices temperature, sound, and light in the classroom.	_____
9. likes to take risks in learning.	_____
10. knows how to cooperate in a group.	_____
11. is good at using information to guess meaning.	_____
12. asks questions to get additional information.	_____
13. learns best when interacting with other people.	_____
14. is a fluent language learner.	_____
15. learns more effectively through hearing language.	_____
16. learns more effectively through hands-on material.	_____

Inventories and Interactive search and find are just two examples of useful and creative techniques that result from learning style and strategy taxonomies and frameworks.

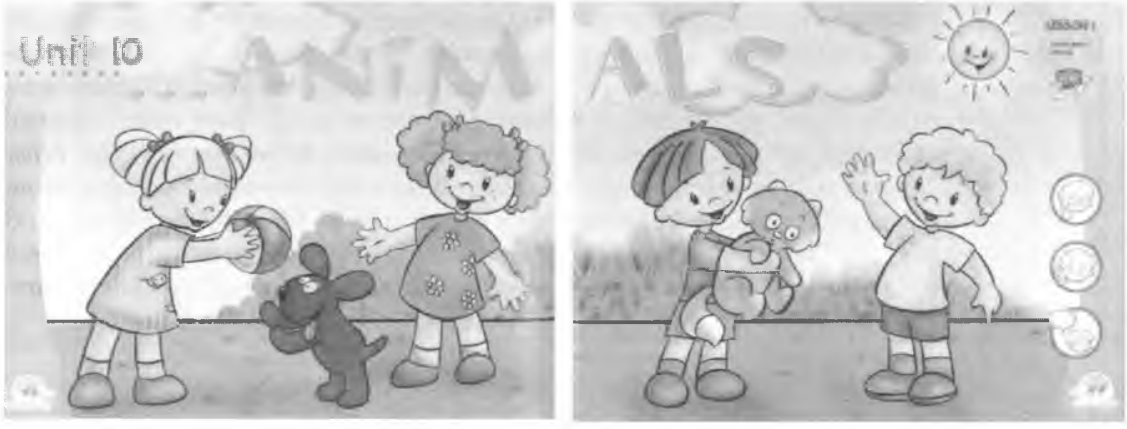
Work with a partner. Look at the Perceptual style inventory for language learners (on page 276) and identify the different learning styles in each of the questions without looking at the answer key. Work with a partner. Look at *Interactive search and find* and identify the different learning styles and strategies in each

of the questions.

5. Learning styles and strategies in the classroom

In the previous section, we focused on techniques and tasks that teachers created with their students. In this section, I would like to show you how to apply the ideas presented in this chapter to already existing commercial materials. For purposes of this example, I have selected two lessons. The first lesson is from *Parachutes Book 1.* The topic is pets and animals. *Parachutes* is a series for very young children. This lesson will be used to illustrate the application of learning styles. The second lesson is from *Quest: Reading and Writing in the Academic World, Book 2.* The topic of this lesson is "The Ancient World: Egypt." *Quest* is a series that prepares adult students for college level work. This lesson will be used to illustrate the application of learning strategies.

Learning styles The lesson in *Parachutes Book 1* (Figure 3) focuses on pets and animals. In this lesson, young language learners are given an opportunity to develop all of their perceptual learning styles–visual, auditory, tactile, and kinesthetic.



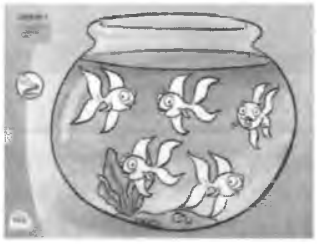
Activity 1

Figure 3 *Parachutes Book 1* (McGraw-Hill, 2001)

In the first activity, children listen to the words, point to the pictures, and say the words on the tape. This activity addresses their visual, auditory, and tactile learning styles. In the second activity (Figure 4), students count the fish and color them. This activity addresses their visual, tactile, and kinesthetic learning styles. In addition to the activities in the student book, the teacher's edition offers numerous other activities. The *Mind Map* activities give students an opportunity to develop both analytic and global styles by giving them opportunities to work alone and work with other children. Some of the activities in the Teacher's Guide are step-by-step, while others are presented in context. These different activities address both field dependent and field independent learners and build on their strengths. Most of the activities expose students to a limited amount of information, thereby helping learners who are not comfortable with uncertainty and have a low tolerance for ambiguity. The collage activity supports left-brain dominant learners because it helps them analyze and reflect. *Awareness of Math* exercises help right-brain dominant learners by focusing on interactive, global, auditory activities.

Learning Strategies In *Quest Book 2*, the lesson on ancient Egypt focuses principally on reading and writing although speaking and listening are also developed through the variety of activities introduced. The first half of the chapter is devoted to reading and the second half to writing. Three readings on ancient Egypt are introduced. Each reading section is divided into *Before Reading, Reading,* and *After Reading.*

In the prereading activity in Figure 5 (page 281) students are asked to use the cognitive learning strategy– elaboration of prior knowledge and the socio-affective strategy of cooperating. Elaboration of prior knowledge asks students to relate new information to known information and to then make personal associations. Most students know something about Egypt already. The *Before Reading* activity asks students to think about what they already know about Egypt and relate the knowledge to a wall painting of the Pharaoh Nakht and his wife. There are no wrong answers to the questions. Students are encouraged to use their prior knowledge. Students are also asked to work together to complete a task, thereby using the socio-affective strategy of cooperating.



Activity 2

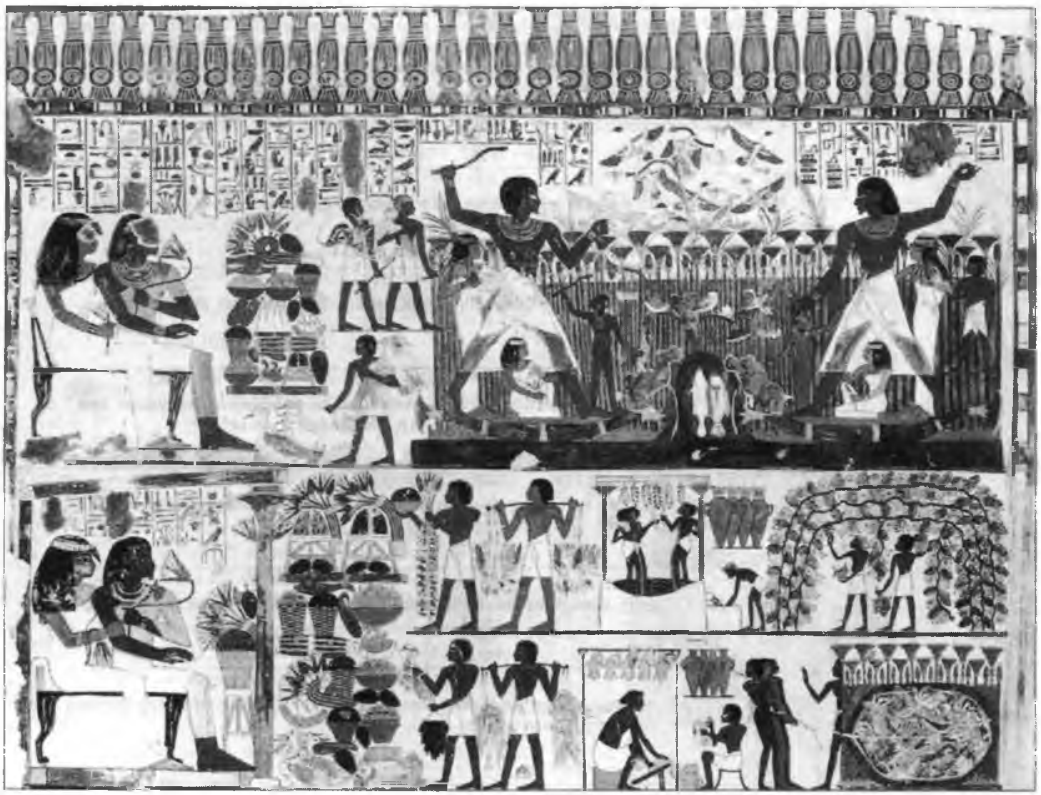
Figure 4 *Parachutes Book 1* (McGraw-Hill, 2001)

Part One Rules of Egyptian Art

Before Reading

Discussion. Look at the following wall painting. In small groups, examine the details of the painting and answer these questions.

1. Which people are Nakht and his wife? Why do you think so?
2. Who might the other people be?
3. What are the people doing? Describe as many activities as possible.
4. Do these figures look realistic? Why or why not? What seems strange about them?

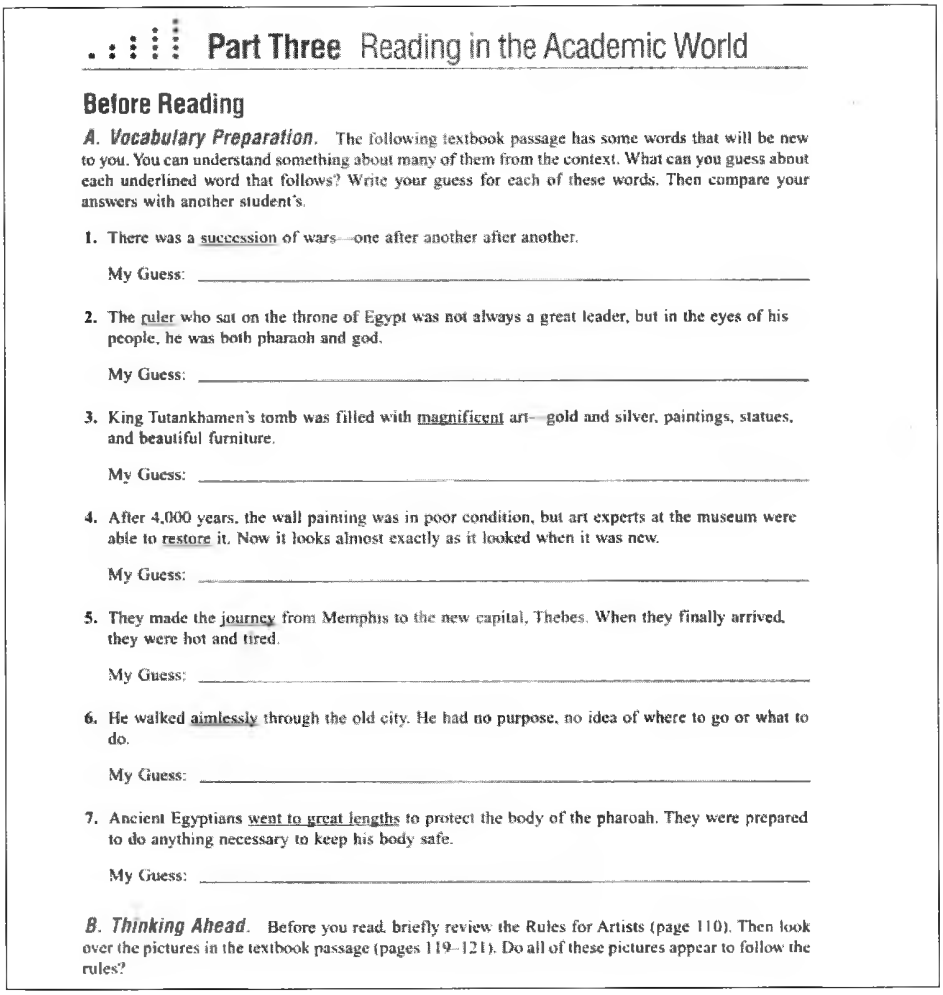


Nakht and His Wife. Copy of a wall painting from the tomb of Nakht, c. 1425 BC, Thebes, Egypt. The Metropolitan Museum of Art, New York

Figure 5 *Quest: Reading and Writing in the Academic World Book 2* (McGraw-Hill, 1999)

In the next *Before Reading* activity (Figure 6), students are asked to once again make inferences and use the information given in the text to guess the meaning of words. They are also asked to use the cognitive strategy of deduction/induction to see if the information they are given in the pictures is consistent with a set of rules introduced earlier in the unit. Finally, they are asked to evaluate their answers by comparing their answers with a partner and develop the ability to determine how well they have accomplished the task.

In summary, the *Before Reading* activities in this section of *Quest Book 2* help learners develop strategies in each of the major categories–metacognitive (evaluating), cognitive (deduction/induction, making inferences, grouping, and elaboration of prior knowledge), and socio-affective (cooperating).



Part Three Reading in the Academic World

Before Reading

A. Vocabulary Preparation. The following textbook passage has some words that will be new to you. You can understand something about many of them from the context. What can you guess about each underlined word that follows? Write your guess for each of these words. Then compare your answers with another student's.

1. There was a succession of wars—one after another after another.

   My Guess: _____

2. The ruler who sat on the throne of Egypt was not always a great leader, but in the eyes of his people, he was both pharaoh and god.

   My Guess: _____

3. King Tutankhamen's tomb was filled with magnificent art—gold and silver, paintings, statues, and beautiful furniture.

   My Guess: _____

4. After 4,000 years, the wall painting was in poor condition, but art experts at the museum were able to restore it. Now it looks almost exactly as it looked when it was new.

   My Guess: _____

5. They made the journey from Memphis to the new capital, Thebes. When they finally arrived, they were hot and tired.

   My Guess: _____

6. He walked aimlessly through the old city. He had no purpose, no idea of where to go or what to do.

   My Guess: _____

7. Ancient Egyptians went to great lengths to protect the body of the pharoah. They were prepared to do anything necessary to keep his body safe.

   My Guess: _____

B. Thinking Ahead. Before you read, briefly review the Rules for Artists (page 110). Then look over the pictures in the textbook passage (pages 119–121). Do all of these pictures appear to follow the rules?

Figure 6 *Quest: Reading and Writing in the Academic World Book 2* (McGraw-Hill, 1999)

In the *Reading* sections, students are introduced to the concept of summarizing–identifying the key or main idea. Students focus on summarizing by thinking about the main idea as they read and underlining the interesting and surprising information.

Reading

As you read the following passage, think about the answer to this question.

- Why did the style of Egyptian art stay almost the same for 3,000 years?

Reading

As you read the textbook passage, think about the answer to this question.

- How was art a mirror for the three periods in ancient Egyptian history?

Egyptian Civilization: A Brief History

It is usual to divide the long history of Egypt into three periods: the Old Kingdom, the Middle Kingdom, and the New Kingdom. These are further divided into dynasties. A dynasty was a period when a single family provided a succession of rulers. When one pharaoh died, a successor was chosen from the same family. It was important to keep the blood of a royal family pure; therefore, the pharaoh was not allowed to marry outside of the immediate family.

The Old Kingdom

The earliest dynastic period began around 3100 BC when Upper and Lower Egypt were united by a powerful pharaoh named Menes. Menes established his capital at Memphis and founded the first of the thirty-one Egyptian dynasties.

It was during the Old Kingdom that the pyramids were built. These massive tombs were an attempt to keep the body of the pharaoh safe. The Egyptians believed that the soul, or *ka*, remained with the body until death. At death, the ka left the body for a time, but it later returned and united with the body again for the journey to the next world. If the body was destroyed, the ka had to travel aimlessly for all eternity. For this reason, the Egyptians went to great lengths to protect the body—especially the body of the pharaoh, for he was both a king and, in the eyes of the people, a god.

Often, however, thieves broke into the pyramids. They stole the gold and other treasures and destroyed the pharaoh's body. Consequently, sculptors began to create statues of the pharaoh, such as the portrait of Khafre on his throne. They put these statues inside the tomb so that the ka could enter this stone statue for the journey to the next world.

Khafre, c. 2600 BC. Egyptian Museum, Cairo, Egypt

Figure 7 Reading activities from *Quest: Reading and Writing in the Academic World Book 2* (McGraw-Hill, 1999)

In *After Reading, Part One,* students again work with summarizing. In addition, they work with advance organization. They use a graphic organizer to help them identify the key elements in the reading. In *After Reading, Part Two,* students have a chance to work again with elaboration of prior knowledge and guessing from context when they work with new idioms. In addition, they get a chance to develop metacognitive strategies by evaluating their performance on the activities and self-checking comprehension. They develop the socio-affective strategies of clarifying and cooperating when they are asked to cooperate in working with a partner and to ask questions. In summary, students are given opportunities to develop all three types of strategies in the *After Reading* activities–metacognitive, cognitive, and socio-affective.

After Reading

A. Main Ideas. Go back to the reading. When you find the answers to these questions, mark them with a felt-tip pen.

1. If Egyptian art didn't change much for 3,000 years, was there a problem with the ability of the artists?
2. Why didn't Egyptian art change much for a such a long time?

B. Application. Look back at the wall painting of *Nakht and His Wife*. Fill in the chart with examples from this painting. Then add the number of the rule (from Rules for Artists) that told the artist what to do.

Elements	Examples from the Wall Painting from the Tomb of Nakht	Rule #
space		
animals		
people: color		
size		
activity		
style		
actions of people (besides Nakht)		

C. Response Writing. For ten minutes, write as much as you can about the wall painting *Nakht and His Wife*. Describe it and explain in your own words why the artist used these elements.

Figure 8 After Reading activities from *Quest: Reading and Writing in the Academic World Book 2* (McGraw-Hill, 1999)

Reflection

What do you think would be the main challenges in introducing either the *Parachutes* lesson or the *Quest* lesson in the classroom?

6. Conclusion

This chapter introduced the concepts of learning styles and strategies, explained how they are different, and how they are linked together. In addition, useful taxonomies were provided to help teachers work with styles and strategies in their classrooms. This chapter also focused on five principles to help guide you in applying learning styles and strategies in your classroom, two specific techniques that include a perceptual learning inventory and an interactive activity, and two sample lesson plans from commercial texts to show you how to identify and work with learning styles and strategies. The information collected in this chapter should provide you with tools necessary for accomplishing the goals outlined at the beginning of the chapter. If your goal is to better meet the individual needs of your students, address the diversity you see in your classroom, and to better prepare your students for their classroom language learning experiences, then working with learning styles and strategies and applying the concepts presented in this chapter is a worthy endeavor.

Further readings

Chamot, A.U. and J. M. O'Malley 1994. *The CALLA Handbook.* Reading, MA: Addison Wesley.

This handbook was written for public school teachers who are responsible for teaching core curriculum subjects to language minority children. The handbook integrates the latest research on learning strategies with actual classroom-tested activities.

Christison, M. A. 1998. An Overview of Learning Styles and Their Application to the L2 Classroom. *Sunshine State TESOL Journal.*

This article provides a fairly comprehensive overview of learning styles, identifies student classroom behaviors associated with each learning style, and offers suggestions for practical activities.

Oxford, R. L. 1990. *Language Learning Strategies: What every teacher should know.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

Based on current research, this text provides English language teachers with practical recommendations for developing their students' second language learning strategies. Detailed suggestions for strategy use in each of the four language skills are included, as well as case studies and models for setting up similar programs.

Reid, J. (ed.) 1995. *Learning Styles in the ESL/EFL Classroom.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This book is a collection of practical articles on learning styles edited by Joy Reid. It is now out of print, but can be accessed at <http://www.humanities.byu.edu/faculty/andersonn.html>

Reid, J. (ed.) 1997. *Understanding Learning Styles in the Second Language Classroom.* Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Pearson ESL.

This book is a collection of articles on learning styles and multiple intelligences. It is specifically directed to English language teachers and focuses on both theory and research and practical application.

Silver, H. F. and R. J. Hanson 1996. *Learning Styles and Strategies.* Woodbridge, NJ: The Thoughtful Education Press.

This manual is designed to increase one's understanding of learning styles and strategies and is based on Jung's Theory of Personality Types. It also enables teachers to help students become more responsible, autonomous learners.

Helpful Web sites

LD Pride, The Vancouver Island Invisible Disability Association (http://www.ldpride.net/learningstyles.MI.htm)

Learning Strategies Corporation (http://www.learningstrategies.com)

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Oxford, R. 1990a. Styles, Strategies, and Aptitude: Connections for language learning. In T. Parry & C.W. Stansfield (eds.) *Language Aptitude Reconsidered.* Englewood Cliffs, NJ: Prentice-Hall.

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Silver H. F. and J. F. Hanson 1996b. *Teaching Styles & Strategies.* Woodbridge, NJ: The Thoughtful Education Press.

Chapter **Fourteen**

Learner autonomy in the classroom

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **define** autonomy and explain what fostering autonomy in the language classroom means to you.
- ✔ **say** how you would organize a project or series of classroom activities so that the students make choices and decisions about their learning.
- ✔ **evaluate** how textbook units and classroom activities offer, or fail to offer, opportunities and support for autonomy.

1. What is autonomy?

In a definition that has stood the test of time, Holec (1981, p. 3) defined **autonomy** as "the ability to take charge of one's own learning." More recently, I have defined it as "the capacity to control one's own learning" (Benson, 2001, p. 47). Although these definitions do not differ substantially, autonomy is perhaps best described as a capacity, as Holec has often described it, because various kinds of abilities can be involved in control over learning. Researchers generally agree that the most important abilities are those that allow learners to plan their own learning activities, monitor their progress and evaluate their outcomes. In my own research, I have also suggested that different kinds of abilities may be needed for control over the day-to-day management of learning, control over the mental processes involved in second language learning and control of the content of learning (Benson, 2001, p. 50). But these ways of talking about autonomy only describe the areas of learning over which autonomous learners need to exercise control.

No matter how we divide up the language learning task, the abilities that allow learners to control each area are clearly many and varied. It is also difficult to specify exactly what they are. Little (1991, p. 49), for example, tells us that autonomy is a capacity for "detachment, critical reflection, decision-making and independent action," but Candy (1991, pp. 459–466) lists more than a hundred abilities associated with autonomy in learning! This tells us that autonomy can never be an all or nothing matter (Nunan, 1997). There are degrees of autonomy, and autonomy may also take different forms. From the classroom teacher's point of view, therefore, the important question is not how to produce autonomous learners, but how to build upon the autonomy that learners already possess. For this reason, we tend to say that autonomy can be fostered, but not taught. In order to foster autonomy in the classroom, we as teachers need to provide learners with the opportunity to make significant choices and decisions about their learning. We also need to help them develop abilities that will allow them to make these choices and decisions in an informed way.

Reflection

The best place to begin exploring your own understanding of autonomy may be your own experiences of learning:

1. Who were your favorite teachers and why? Did these teachers allow you to make choices and decisions? Is this one of the reasons that they were your favorites?
2. What is your attitude towards choice and decision-making in your own learning? Which choices and decisions do you think that you should make yourself and which would you prefer to leave to teachers?

2. Background to autonomy in the classroom

In the field of political philosophy, personal autonomy refers to our freedom and ability to "shape our own lives" (Young, 1986, p. 81). Advocates of personal autonomy see it as a basic human right–without autonomy our lives may be less than human. Preparing younger learners to exercise personal autonomy in adult life is a declared goal of many educational systems around the world, but advocating autonomy *in learning* means more than this. It means that students should be allowed and encouraged to shape their own *learning* as well as their own lives. Put somewhat differently, it means that learning should be seen as an integral part of life, and not as a preparation for it.

The idea of autonomy first came into language teaching in the late 1960s through the adult education movement in Europe and North America, and for many years it continued to be associated with adult learners who had left formal education. Many of the early autonomous language learning projects were carried out within the Council of Europe's Modern Languages Project in the 1970s. Henri Holec, who provided us with our first definition of autonomy in learning, played a key role in this project as the director of the *Centre de Recherches et d'Applications en Langues* (CRAPEL). This center continues to be a focal point for research and practice on autonomy in the present day.

At CRAPEL, autonomy was fostered through **self-directed learning,** or learning outside the classroom that was planned and executed by the learners themselves. Self-directed learning at CRAPEL was based on a **self-access center**–an open access resource center containing authentic print, audio and video target language materials. Self-directed learning also involved learner training, in which learners learned how to learn by experimenting with self-access materials with the help of language learning counselors. Many of the important concepts and practices associated with autonomy in learning today were established in this and other Council of Europe projects for adult learners. In the 1980s, however, the emphasis began to shift from the adult learner who was no longer receiving formal education to younger and older learners whose learning was mainly focused on the classroom.

One of the most influential classroom projects was carried out by Leni Dam and her colleagues in English language learning in Danish secondary schools (Dam, 1995). Their approach does not involve self-access or formal learner training. Instead, classroom learners are simply asked to take responsibility for the major decisions in their language learning throughout their secondary school years. The learners are also asked to take responsibility for ensuring that their learning meets national curriculum and examination requirements. The work of Dam and her colleagues has clearly demonstrated that teenagers can manage their own classroom learning without adverse effect on their proficiency. Although it is sometimes suggested that their situ-

ation is exceptional, similar projects elsewhere have also produced positive results. Johnson, et al. (1990), for example, have shown that primary school children are able to make significant decisions about their language learning and Holmes (1990) has reported similar results for young children with learning difficulties.

Early work on autonomy was mainly concerned with learners who were learning on their own. The experience of fostering autonomy in the classroom has, therefore, raised new questions concerned with the social relationships involved in autonomous learning. One of these questions concerns the role of the teacher in an autonomous classroom. If the learners make most or all the key decisions about their learning, what does the teacher do? Voller (1997) has argued that the teacher may act as a *facilitator* who initiates and supports decision-making processes, a *counselor* who responds to the ongoing needs of individuals, and a *resource* who makes his or her knowledge and expertise available to the learners when it is needed. Clearly, teachers who want to foster autonomy should not see themselves as directors of classroom learning or as founts of knowledge to be poured into the heads of the learners. Crabbe (1993, p. 208) also reminds us that fostering autonomy is not simply a matter of how we see our relationship with our students. It is also a question of how we interact with them. The important question, he argues, is "whether the minute-by-minute classroom practice indirectly *fosters* or discourages autonomy" by highlighting choices in the curriculum and challenging the learners' ideas about their own roles in the classroom.

A second important question concerns the social side of learner decision-making in the classroom. In earlier models of self-directed learning, it was largely assumed each learner would make decisions by and for themselves. But in recent years, emphasis has been placed on the ways in which the choices and decisions of one influence those of others. Important work on classroom decision-making has been carried out in the fields of collaborative experiential learning (Kohonen, 2001) and curriculum negotiation (Breen and Littlejohn, 2000). In both of these approaches, coming to terms with the needs and choices of other learners in the classroom is seen as a crucial aspect of the development of autonomy. Little (1996, p. 210), has also argued that autonomy implies interdependence, rather than independence, and that a "capacity to participate fully and critically in social interactions" is essential to it.

A third question concerns our own autonomy as teachers. In recent research on "teacher autonomy," our willingness and ability to model the autonomy that we would like to see in our students is seen as being of greater importance than any particular method or technique (Little, 1995; McGrath, 2000). All teachers are, of course, subject to institutional and curriculum constraints that limit the freedom they are able to grant their students. For this reason, the ways in which we foster autonomy will depend on our individual judgments of what is possible or reasonable in our own situations. But as

Little (1995, p. 178) argues, the starting point for teacher autonomy must be a recognition that we cannot help but "teach ourselves," because the curriculum that we present to the learners is our own. Even if the curriculum we present to the learners has been designed by others, it is our interpretation of it that counts most for the learners in our classroom. In this sense, autonomous teachers are those who are aware of the ways in which they interpret the curriculum and who look for areas within it where there may be room for negotiation with the learners. When we ask learners to make choices and decisions, we are also asking them to take risks. It is, therefore, reasonable that we should be prepared to take risks ourselves. This means that teacher autonomy also implies confidence in our own professional judgment of when and where it is appropriate to transfer control to the learners.

The ideological roots of autonomy in learning remain important because they can help us to understand why fostering autonomy in the language-learning classroom can be important to learners. Research on the effectiveness of autonomous learning projects suggests that learners who participate in them may well gain rather than suffer in terms of proficiency (Dam and Legenhausen, 1996; Dickinson, 1995). But for many teachers this may be less important than the personal and social benefits that can be gained through autonomous language learning. Fostering autonomy may simply mean helping students to learn languages in ways that are more relevant to their lives. Early work on individual self-directed learning also remains important. Self-access and learner training have now become important features of the language learning scene in general, and most teachers are likely to come across these ideas at some point in their careers. (See, for example, Gardner and Miller, 1999, on self-access and Cohen, 1998, on learner training.) These ideas also point to important considerations when we try to foster autonomy in the classroom. Although our school may not have a self-access center, providing learners with a choice of resources in the classroom will be important. Although we may not wish to have formal learner training sessions, helping learners to make choices and decisions will also be important. Thinking about the newer questions in autonomy–our roles as teachers, the social dimensions of classroom decision-making, and our own autonomy as teachers–will also be of value in our efforts to put autonomy into practice in the classroom.

Reflection

In their book on new methods of teacher education, Freeman and Cornwell (1993, p. xii) ask: "Is learning to teach a matter of replicating how other teachers do things? Or does it depend on coming to grips with ones own ways of thinking and doing things in the classroom?" How would you answer this question? How is your answer related to teacher autonomy in your view?

3. Principles for fostering autonomy in the classroom

Dam (1995, p. 6) suggests that fostering autonomy in the classroom is initially "a matter of getting started, of taking the first steps towards creating a learning environment where learners are encouraged to make decisions concerning their own learning, where the teacher dares to let go." The results of these first steps will largely determine the steps that follow, which means that there is no simple recipe for fostering autonomy in the classroom. In place of such a recipe, however, we can offer certain principles based on our knowledge of what tends to work well in classrooms and what doesn't.

1. Be actively involved in the students' learning.

In traditional classrooms, teachers plan the content of lessons and methods of presentation, organize practice or communicative activities during the lessons themselves, and evaluate learning outcomes through tests and other forms of assessment. In other words, they direct the students' learning. Teachers who want to foster autonomy try to avoid these kinds of direction as much as possible, but this does not mean leaving the students to get on with the job of learning by themselves. Instead, they try to help the students take greater control over their learning by becoming more actively involved in it themselves. Some of the ways in which this can be done through preparation, classroom management, and evaluation will be exemplified below. For the moment, however, let us say that the first principle for fostering autonomy is that both the learners and the teacher must be actively involved in everything that happens in the classroom.

2. Provide a range of learning options and resources.

Fostering autonomy begins with preparation, which often involves thinking about the different ways in which something can be learned. In order to offer choices and opportunities for decision-making, we will need to bring a range of learning options and resources into the classroom. For example, if we are using a particular textbook, we will need to think about how the activities can be modified or re-ordered according to the students' preferences. If we want to offer learners a choice between **inductive** and **deductive** ways of learning a grammar point (see, Nunan, Chapter 8, this volume), we will need to prepare tasks that support both approaches. This can, of course, represent a considerable burden for a busy teacher, which is one reason why a self-access center can be a useful complement to classroom learning. An alternative is to encourage learners to bring in their own learning resources.

Dam (1995, p. 14), for example, simply asked students to bring some English into the class. The things that they brought included a cap with English words on it, tourist brochures, advertisements with English phrases in them, a newspaper, and even a joke that one of the students had written. These objects were placed in a box labeled Our Own Materials and became resources for personally relevant language work in later lessons. This example shows how students can also be involved in lesson planning. Planning for the next lesson in an autonomous classroom often begins at the end of the last lesson with the teacher asking the students what they would like to do next.

3. Offer choices and decision making opportunities.

While it is important to build opportunities for choice and decision making into lesson plans, it also important to create and respond to such opportunities when they arise spontaneously. Decision making takes place in the language learning classroom at a number of levels. Later in this chapter, for example, we will see how decision making opportunities can arise or be inhibited by different styles of teacher talk. The physical organization of the classroom may also be important. If the furniture is laid out so that students can sit in groups, choose who they work with, and move around during the lesson, they are more likely to take initiative in the classroom. By moving around the classroom and sitting with groups of students, teachers can also create an atmosphere where the students are encouraged to make suggestions. Choices and decisions need to be made at various levels of the teaching and learning process, and many teachers prefer a gradual approach in which the learners progressively move from lower to higher levels (Nunan, 1997). But it is also important that the choices and decision making opportunities offered should be significant from the students' point of view. This calls for sensitivity on the teacher's part to what the students see as significant and what they see as trivial.

4. Support the learners.

In order for learners' choices and decisions to be meaningful they must also be informed. This means, for example, that if we are going to offer the learners a choice between inductive and deductive tasks in grammar learning, we will probably need to explain the rationale behind each approach, allow the learners time to experiment with each, and give them the opportunity to discuss and evaluate their experiences. Teachers who want to foster autonomy also often make themselves available as counselors to individual learners during and between classes. The line between support and direction,

however, can be a fine one because both imply that we make our knowledge and expertise available. For example, it may be difficult to explain the differences between inductive and deductive tasks without implicitly directing the students to one or the other by communicating our own preference. Supporting, rather than directing, the learners in their choice of task would mean presenting the options in a way that encourages free choice and shows respect for the learners' final decision.

5. Encourage reflection.

Learner's choices and decisions ultimately become meaningful to them through their consequences. Many teachers feel that direction is justified because it makes learning more efficient. If students decide things for themselves, they will make mistakes and precious time that could otherwise be spent on learning will be wasted. The argument against this is that mistakes are an opportunity for learning. We know, for example, that the production of linguistic errors in speech and writing may be a form of hypothesis-testing that is important to language acquisition. Hypothesis-testing in the learning process may be equally important in development confidence in our own ways of learning. Students, however, do not always see things in this way and teachers need to actively encourage reflection, help students to draw conclusions, and help them to act upon them. Returning once again to our inductive/deductive grammar task choice in Principle 2, the teacher might organize a brief review at the end of a lesson where students who have tried each approach report on their experiences. A decision could then be made on whether the whole class should continue with one of these approaches, whether each individual should continue with their own preference, or whether more time is needed for experimentation. A decision could then be made on what the teacher and the students should do in order to prepare for the next class.

Reflection

What are your feelings about classroom decision making? What kinds of decisions do you think can safely be left to the learners, and which do you think the teachers should make?

Write a proposal for a series of classroom activities focussed on past tense verb forms and designed to foster autonomy. Your proposal should specify: (a) areas for learner choice and decision making, (b) the resources you would make available and those that are to be provided by the learners, (c) your role as the project teacher, and (d) opportunities for reflection.

4. Classroom techniques and tasks

The ways in which teachers put the principles described in the previous section into practice vary a great deal and depend largely upon the teaching and learning situation and the teacher's creativity. In this section, I will describe some of the techniques and tasks used by one teacher in one situation in order to exemplify how these principles were put into practice in the context of one short experimental course. The situation is a university classroom, but the techniques and tasks described could be used in any classroom where grammar is the focus. The course is described in greater detail by Littlejohn (1983).

Littlejohn's students were English language learners at the University of Bahrain, who had failed their preparatory English course in the previous year, and were required to take an additional 84-hour course. Littlejohn first demonstrated his own active involvement by deciding not to repeat the previous year's course or draw up a syllabus before the course began. Instead, he planned a sequence of activities designed to involve the students in the selection of learning content and in the management of day-to-day classroom activities.

Littlejohn began by asking the students to complete a questionnaire in English on their learning experiences and preferences. The results were compiled on the board and discussed in class. This activity was teacher-directed but designed to demonstrate that the learners' experiences and opinions would be drawn upon during the course. One of the outcomes of this activity was a collective awareness that grammar, which became the focus of the remainder of the course, was particularly important to the learners.

Littlejohn next divided the students into small groups, which were each allocated a different unit from the previous year's grammar textbook. The groups were asked to assess exactly what each section in their unit asked them to do and to rate each section in terms of difficulty (see Figure 1). Based on the results of this task, a list of grammar topics in order of their difficulty for the class as a whole was compiled on the board. Again, this activity was teacher-directed, but the learners had taken a first step towards active involvement in the planning of the course, because these topics determined the content of much of the remainder of the course.

Look at each section of each unit that you have been assigned and try to fill in the table below:

Unit/section	What exactly does the section ask you to do?	How difficult is it? 1 2 3 4 5 6 7 8 9 10 very easy very difficult	
		Personally	Group average

Figure 1 Textbook assessment sheet (Littlejohn, 1983)

The next step was to allocate the grammar topics to groups of volunteers, who then researched their chosen topic in order to present their findings and provide exercises, tasks, games, and other activities for the whole class. During the research phase, the learners began to make choices and decisions that were meaningful because they would determine what each group would present to the class. In order to help the learners make these choices and decisions, the teacher brought resources into the classroom (grammar books, dictionaries, and other textbooks). He also supported the learners by providing initial guidance and by sitting among the students during the classroom research sessions, giving advice when called upon.

Towards the end of the course, Littlejohn also introduced student-directed lessons in which small groups of students planned and carried out learning activities of their own choice. In order to prepare for these lessons, the groups first compiled a list of all the activities that they had done in class before, those that they had found enjoyable and useful, and their ideas about what they wanted to learn. The activities they chose were thus based on reflection upon their earlier experiences and current needs. The teacher again supported the students with resources and by being available for assistance. He also followed up these student-directed sessions with teacher-led sessions in which he introduced other possible activities and approaches and initiated discussions on problems in learning without teacher direction.

Littlejohn reports that the students who took this course did well in their final examinations. He also reports that, although they were both weak in English and came from traditional learning backgrounds, after some initial resistance they responded well, displaying a sense of responsibility for their learning and playing an active role in class. One point to note about this example is techniques and tasks were creatively designed and sequenced. Because the development of autonomy is a gradual and unpredictable process, techniques and tasks tend to "work" only when they build upon each other and are responsive to the immediate needs of the learning situation. It is also worth noting how Littlejohn retained overall control over the structure of the course, but skillfully used techniques and tasks to progressively transfer control over the content and methods of day-to-day learning to the learners.

The techniques used by Littlejohn illustrate how autonomy can be fostered in the classroom through creative design and sequencing of techniques and tasks. But in order to use techniques and tasks of this kind, a teacher must already have some freedom in relation to the implementation of the curriculum. There is also much that can be done to foster autonomy within more restrictive situations, however, and in this section we will consider three examples of how the ways in which we talk to and interact with our students can create or inhibit opportunities for choice and decision-making.

Teachers' instructions

Even in an autonomous classroom, it is often the teacher who provides the tasks and activities. The ways in which we present these tasks and activities, however, can be significant. Crabbe (1993) recorded classroom task instructions during a course for adult immigrant learners in New Zealand. The following is an extract of an instruction for a reading task on the theme of social customs:

Extract 1

OK, well, I've got another piece of reading here. Some of you may have heard of Guide for New Settlers. There's a section on specific social events—what you should do in situations. What I want you to do is not to read it in detail but to scan it for the questions I have given you. There are headings that will help you find where the information is. I'll ask you to do this as quickly as possible and finish in fifteen minutes. (Crabbe, 1993, p. 449)

As Crabbe notes, the teacher does not explain why the learners should scan rather than read in detail or what the *purpose* of the scanning activity is in the context of the lesson. While the students are reading, the teacher also notices that one of the students is not following the task instructions, and says:

Extract 2

Excuse me J, you don't need to read the whole thing from start to finish. You look at the questions first and then try to find the answers. (Crabbe, 1993, p. 449)

Again, the teacher does not explain why the learner should not read from start to finish, but simply reminds him of the instruction in order to keep him on task. This teacher may well have been following a tried-and-tested strategy of revealing the stages of the lesson step-by-step–a strategy that can both simplify the lesson for the student and create a certain amount of suspense. Teachers who wish to foster autonomy, however, might choose to act otherwise, by first explaining the lesson plan as a whole and the purposes of each

task. When they encounter learners who have gone off task, they might begin by asking why they have done so and, if it seems important that they go back to the task as it was originally designed, explain the purpose of the task again. This example illustrates how important the ways in which we interact with learners can be if we want to foster autonomy. It is essentially by talking and listening to students that we become actively involved in their learning and create opportunities for them to be more actively involved in what happens in the classroom.

1. How would you rephrase the instructions in Extract 1 so that they might be more supportive of the learners' autonomy?
2. Take a unit from any general language teaching coursebook—for example, a unit that begins with a text or dialogue and goes on to provide language input and tasks. Evaluate this unit in terms of the degree to which the task instructions are likely to inhibit or support autonomy.
3. Imagine that you were to teach this unit over a lesson or two. What additional instructions or explanations would you give, and how could you modify the tasks so that they would be more supportive of autonomy?

Teacher-learner dialogue

Language teachers often engage in dialogue with learners, not for the purpose of organizing classroom work, but for the purpose of teaching new language and engaging the learners in communicative practice. In her book on classroom interaction, Johnson (1995) discusses two contrasting dialogues of this kind, which highlight how opportunities for choice and decision-making can be involved even in this kind of talk. In Extract 3 (which is taken from a much longer dialogue reprinted in Johnson's book), the teacher is discussing a newspaper advertisement for a clearance sale.

Extract 3

1. ***T:*** *What is this advertisement about?*
2. ***Peersak:*** *Radio … sale.*
3. ***Milo:*** *Cheap sale …*
4. ***T:*** *What is the word that is used there?*
5. ***Suchada:*** *Clearance sale.*

6. ***T:*** *Clearance sale. OK, in the first place, do you know the meaning of "clearance sale?"*
7. ***Suchada:*** *Clearance sale.*
8. ***T:*** *Clearance sale. Let's look at the word "clearance". What does it come from?*
9. ***Peersak:*** *Clear.*
10. ***T:*** *Therefore, "clearance" sale will mean what?*
11. ***Suchada:*** *To clear up.*
12. ***T:*** *To clear up, that's right. To clear up all the goods in the store…*

(Johnson, 1995, p. 94)

Johnson's comment on this extract, which continues in much the same vein, is that the talk follows a typical pattern in which the teacher initiates most of the exchanges with questions that aim to elicit specific short responses–usually a vocabulary item or its meaning. We can also note that in their answers, the students are essentially "filling in blanks" in the teacher's contribution, rather than making linguistic choices or decisions. In Extract 4, the teacher and student are discussing an article on Gay Pride week.

Extract 4

1. ***T:*** *So what other questions do you have about this (the article), or Gay Pride week in general?*
2. ***Stan:*** *What is this pin?*
3. ***Rosa:*** *Oh, I saw that too …*
4. ***Stan:*** *I saw this on some people, but I didn't know. I thought it some politics or something…*
5. ***T:*** *OK. It says, "Straight, Secure, Supportive." Do you know what that means?*
6. ***Stan:*** *Maybe some politics.*
7. ***T:*** *You thought it had to do with politics? Well, you are sort of right, because Gay Rights has become a political*

issue, but let's think about the words on the pin; it says "Straight, Secure, Supportive." Do you have any ideas about what "straight" means in reference to what we have been talking about, in terms of Gay Rights Week?

8. ***Rosa:*** *Opposite, not gay.*

(Johnson, 1995, pp.102–103)

In Extract 4, the teacher also talks most of the time, but she begins with an open-ended question and her follow-up questions respond to a question initiated by one of the students. Although these follow-up questions are also concerned with the meanings of words, it is interesting to see how the interaction develops once the meaning of the word supportive has been established.

Extract 5

24. ***T:*** *Yes, that we can support them as people who have social and legal rights, but we don't have to be like them.*

25. ***Stan:*** *But maybe they think you are gay too, maybe they think you are because they see your pin and that's what they think.*

26. ***Rosa:*** *No, you're not like them but it's OK.*

27. ***Stan:*** *What if they see this pin on you, they might just think you are too.*

28. ***T:*** *Well, what would you think if you saw someone wearing this pin? ...*

(Johnson, 1995, p. 104)

In Extract 5, the students not only begin to speak more, but also to exchange opinions with each other. The teacher's last question in the extract also responds to their exchange of opinions and to their feelings about the topic at hand.

These extracts illustrate teacher-student interactions of very different types and it is worth noting that the ways in which two teachers initiate and

develop these interactions have an important influence on involvement of the learners in them. Teachers who wish to foster autonomy may favor interactions of the second type, because they leave space for learners to make not only linguistic choices and decisions, but also choices and decisions about the meanings that they express. Again, this example illustrates the importance of the ways in which we interact with students. Through classroom dialogues of this kind, we provide opportunities for language practice and acquisition, but we also communicate expectations of what we expect learners to contribute to the classroom. Students who are accustomed only to answering teachers' questions are far less likely to offer opinions about how their learning is organized than those who are accustomed to offering opinions during classroom dialogues.

1. Choose a reading text from a general language teaching coursebook. How would you lead a discussion on the text that would give the students opportunities to make linguistic choices and express opinions?
2. How would you move on from this discussion to a task that the learners had contributed towards themselves? For example, you may think about how to develop the discussion of the topic of the text into a discussion of "how we can find out more about this topic?"

What an autonomous classroom looks like

These comments on teacher talk suggest that fostering autonomy in the classroom cannot really be reduced to techniques or tasks. Teaching styles, attitudes towards interaction, and the spaces that we create for learners to become actively involved in their own learning are important factors, which set the context for how well a particular task or technique will work. For this reason, we will conclude with an extract from Dam's (1995) account of her own efforts to create an autonomous classroom for secondary school learners of English in Denmark, which gives an impression of what an autonomous classroom might look like. Here, Dam (1995, pp. 67–9) reproduces her notes from a lesson with a class she had been teaching for four years. The students were working together on group projects.

Example **Tuesday, March 13—a single period**

There is no break before this lesson, so when the teacher arrives some groups have already started work while others haven't. The teacher passes her materials over to the different groups. For . . . (one) group she hasn't been able to find anything. They themselves, however, have been to the local

library and have brought along some Danish books on the topic. The teacher reminds the class that today they will only have half an hour for their group work because of the presentation of the radio play "Little Red Riding Hood" which had been announced by one of the groups in the previous lesson.

Soon all the groups are at work, and there is time for the teacher to move around and observe what is going on. Have they gotten started? Are they following their plans? Have they managed to find materials? Are there any problems? Do they need help? There is also time to discuss why they chose the topic they did.

The following is an extract from one student's diary.

Example

Tuesday, March 13

1. *go on with our radio play*
2. *Homework: read in "The woman who disappeared." chapter 3 and 4.*
3. *presentation of "Little red riding hood" by Rasmus, Martin, Louise and Sandra.*

Presentation agenda:

a. *tell about how we decided to work*
b. *read a part from our roles*
c. *listen to the tape*
d. *comments: I think it was good, because they spoke in a funny way.*
   —they spoke clearly
   —it was funny

Example **Notes from the teacher's diary**

- *Remember to support positive and "constructive" comments from the class when presenting projects.*
- *Think of ideas for "being better at reading and talking" for the radio-play group.*
- *Bring along some English poems.*
- *Sandra has improved her intonation.*

The work in the class continues like this for the next few weeks. Once a week there is a presentation of previous group projects. Apart from this, the groups continue undisturbed with their projects and with individual work, and they plan their time themselves. The teacher sees to it that she gets around the groups at least once a week.

Commentary Although incomplete, Dam's notes convey a vivid impression of the kinds of things that are likely to be happening in a classroom where the learners have become used to more autonomous ways of learning. Some of the things we may note are that the lesson appears to have no clear beginning or end. The students are working at their own pace on self-designed group tasks and their work is not bounded by the formal timetable. The natural development of these tasks also determines the schedule of whole class events, such as the performance of the radio play. Student's diary suggests that she is actively involved in planning and evaluating her own work (and the work of others!). The teacher is not "teaching" in the traditional sense, but is rather facilitating and supporting, although she also seeks opportunities to become actively involved in the students' work. Dam's diary also suggests that she is constantly reflecting upon the events and processes that are taking place in the class and planning ahead. Dam's account may give the impression of a chaotic classroom! But we should also note that it took her and her students four years to reach this point. By this stage the coherence of the students' learning lies not in her efforts to direct it, but in their own understanding of the relevance of what they are doing.

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, autonomy has been defined as the capacity to control one's own learning. At the most basic level, fostering this capacity in the classroom begins with the teacher's own decision to become more actively involved in the students' learning in order that the students may also become more actively involved in making choices and decisions. I have suggested some principles, techniques, and tasks that may help us to go further than this, but I have also emphasized that fostering autonomy is largely a question of talking and listening to students in ways that will help them feel that their involvement in classroom processes at every level is respected and valued. We cannot teach students to become more autonomous. We can, however, create the atmosphere and conditions in which they will feel encouraged to develop the autonomy that they already have.

Further readings

Benson, P. 2001. *Teaching and Researching Autonomy in Language Learning.* London: Longman.

This volume offers a comprehensive survey of theory and practice in the field.

Breem, M. P. (ed.) 2001. *Learner Contributions to Language Learning.* London: Longman.

Highly recommended as a collection of papers surveying recent thinking relevant to the issues discussed in this chapter in the field of second language acquisition.

Breen, M. P. and A. Littlejohn (eds.) 2000. *Classroom Decision-Making: Negotiation and process syllabuses in action.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

A stimulating collection of accounts of experiments in classroom decision-making.

Dam, L. 1995. *Learner Autonomy 3: From theory to classroom practice.* Dublin: Authentik.

A practical account of autonomous work in the classroom.

Little, D. 1991. *Learner Autonomy 1: Definitions, issues and problems.* Dublin: Authentik.

A brief, cogent introduction to the theory of autonomy in language learning.

Helpful Web sites

Autonomy and Independence in Language Learning (http://ec.hku.hk/autonomy)

This Web site is maintained by the author of this chapter and includes a comprehensive bibliography on autonomy and related issues.

AILA Scientific Commission on Learner Autonomy in Language Learning (http://www.vuw.ac.nz/lals/div1/ailasc)

Less forbidding than its name might suggest, the AILA Scientific Commission is the main professional group concerned with autonomy in language learning. The AILA SC Web site is a good source for upcoming activities and publications.

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Chapter **Fifteen**

Classroom-based assessment

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At the end of this chapter, you should be able to:

Goals

- ✔ **list** the reasons why assessment and evaluation are carried out in the ESL/EFL classroom.
- ✔ **describe** a range of methods and tools that can be used to assess language proficiency and achievement.
- ✔ **develop** classroom assessment tasks that are linked to learning outcomes.

1. What is assessment and evaluation?

Assessment

Chapelle and Brindley (2002, p. 267) define **assessment** as "the act of collecting information and making judgments on a language learner's knowledge of a language and ability to use it." Assessment is thus concerned with *individual student learning.* The term evaluation, on the other hand, is often used in the broader sense of *program evaluation,* and refers to the process of collecting information and making judgments on the quality of the *total language program.* This involves a consideration of a range of elements in addition to student learning, such as teacher and student attitudes, teaching methods and materials, as well as administrative systems and resources.

The two most important qualities of assessment are **validity** and **reliability.** A valid assessment is one which provides information on the ability we want to assess and nothing else. If we wanted to find out about a person's conversational ability in English, for example, we would not ask them to read out a list of English words, since reading aloud would not be considered by most people to be part of conversational ability. Validity also concerns the extent to which the *uses* that are made of assessment are appropriate. To continue the previous example, using the results of an assessment of reading words aloud as an indicator of conversational ability would be an *invalid* use of that test. Similarly, in the context of classroom assessment, if we wanted to find out how well learners had mastered the vocabulary that they had covered in class, it would not be appropriate to use a test containing vocabulary they had not been taught.

Reliability refers to the consistency with which our assessment tools measure language ability. An assessment is reliable when there is little difference in learners' scores or in judges' ratings across different occasions or different judges. If we use a test to assess a learner's ability on Monday, we would want it to yield similar results on Tuesday. Similarly, if two teachers were assessing the same piece of student writing, we would hope that they would be in fairly close agreement on the quality of the performance.

Reflection

1. In some educational settings, the quality of language programs is judged solely on the basis of students' test scores. Is this fair?
2. A teacher wants to assess the listening comprehension of her advanced ESL/EFL class. She plays them a radio news bulletin and asks them to write a short paragraph outlining the main points. Is this a valid assessment of listening ability? Why or why not?

Evaluation

Evaluation is a broader concept than assessment. It involves collecting and interpreting information (which will usually include assessment data) for making decisions about the effectiveness of a particular program. Language program evaluation may be carried out for a variety of reasons. Often the government or an external funding body will want to know whether the program is providing "value for money" and will commission a team of consultants to conduct an evaluation. Sometimes an institution might conduct its own internal evaluation in order to identify any problems with its administrative and educational systems, with a view to improving them. However, teachers are usually concerned not so much with system level concerns such as these, but rather with the question of whether or not their course was successful on its own terms. In particular they will want to find out learners' opinions of the course.

Imagine you were a teacher and you were asked by the school you work in to provide evidence of the quality of the program you were teaching. Write down a list of the information that you would want to collect.

Quality, like proficiency, can be defined in many ways and for this reason it is not easy to list indicators of quality. Nevertheless, if we think about the elements that might contribute to a program's success from teachers' and learners' perspectives, then we can begin to identify some of the factors that we would need to take into account in determining whether our course worked. These might include:

Student factors

- Student learning outcomes

Course factors

- Content
- Atmosphere
- Materials and learning activities
- Assessment
- Teaching/classroom management

Institutional factors

- Facilities
- Resources

The evaluation could also include a self-evaluation element for students and teachers which provides the opportunity for them to reflect on the extent to which the course has met their own goals and expectations.

Turn each of the factors on pages 311-312 into a question. For example: "Were student learning outcomes satisfactory?" How would you go about answering these questions?

2. Background to assessment and evaluation

Beliefs about the nature of language proficiency have changed somewhat over the years and language tests have reflected these changes. From the 1950s to about the mid-1970s, it was thought that language proficiency involved mastery of separate parts of the linguistic system such as the sound system, grammar, and vocabulary, so these were the elements that were tested. Typical test items that test candidates encountered might have looked something like the following:

Discriminating between sounds

Choose the word that contains the same sound as that underlined in the first word.

glove a. top b. move c. bus d. over

Grammar

I've been living here.....ten years
a. since b. during c. for d. while

Vocabulary

Choose the word which is closest in meaning to the word on the left:
apprehensive a. obvious b. worried c. near d. ready

The tests that were used during this period were known as discrete-point tests because they tested one linguistic item at a time. In order to make them as reliable as possible, the designers included large numbers of items and used machine-scorable "objective" types of items such as multiple choice.

Although these kinds of tests were highly reliable and efficient to administer, they could only assess a person's knowledge of isolated elements and thus did not provide much useful information about the test-takers' ability to use the language in the real world. Applied linguists and language test developers, therefore, began to reassess the notion of language ability and to try to spell out explicitly what happens when people use language for communicative purposes. One of the first attempts to do this in a systematic way was by Canale and Swain (1980) who proposed a model of communicative competence that identified the different kinds of abilities that were required to communicate appropriately in a particular social context. More recently, Bachman and Palmer (1996) have proposed a detailed framework for describing communicative language ability that includes language competence (including grammatical knowledge as well as knowledge of how to use language appropriately in context) and strategic competence (strategies that enable language learners to create and understand discourse). Bachman and Palmer (1996, p. 57) provide a detailed guide for describing the characteristics of the language tasks that learners have to carry out in real life so that assessment tasks can be designed to reflect these characteristics.

This principle of matching assessment tasks to real-world language use has been increasingly applied to language test construction in recent years. In contrast to the rather artificial items that were used in earlier tests, many tests nowadays include authentic-looking texts and present the learner with tasks similar to those they would encounter in using the language for communication. Thus, some of the commonly used tests of English for academic purposes (EAP) require candidates to demonstrate the language skills they would need as a student in an English-speaking university, such as writing an essay in which they present and defend their opinion, or listening to a lecture in which they have to identify the lecturer's main points. Similarly, the assessment procedures that are used for certifying foreign language teachers' proficiency in the United States include an oral interview in which candidates have to converse with a native speaker of the language they are preparing to teach. In the interview, candidates might have to carry out a range of language functions that could include giving personal information, describing people or activities, telling a story, giving opinions, and speculating about future events. This emphasis on real-life language is also evident in classroom assessment. Assessment activities used by teachers today will typically include a range of performance tasks that require learners to engage in purposeful communication that is relevant to their needs. We will look at some of these later in this chapter.

3. Principles of classroom assessment and evaluation

1. Make sure that the kind of assessment you use is appropriate for its intended purpose.

In language programs, assessment is used for a variety of purposes. The main ones are:

- to give learners feedback on their progress and to motivate them to study
- to certify a person's ability or determine their suitability for selection
- to demonstrate achievement to external parties such as parents, school boards or government funding authorities

(Broadfoot, 1987)

It is very important to ensure that the type of assessment you use is appropriate for its purpose. The misuse of assessment can have quite detrimental effects on learners. Consider these comments from students, quoted by Shohamy (1985, p. 9):

> We spent ten lessons conjugating the past tense but on the test there were only two conjugations.
>
> I don't see the connection between the test and my knowledge. Otherwise how can I explain the fact that I get good grades on English tests, but last week, when I met an American, I couldn't say anything in English? How come we never get to speak on tests?

These students cannot see the relationship between what they are supposed to be learning and what they are being tested on. Thus, these tests, which are intended to be motivational tools, are having quite the opposite effect.

Reflection

Think of the tests you have taken during your educational career. Can you remember ever taking a test that was not appropriate for its intended purposes or target group? If so, what effect did this experience have on you?

2. Make sure your assessment tasks are based on an explicit statement of the ability you are assessing and are clearly related to learning outcomes.

Before we can assess something, we have to be able to describe it, so the starting point for any language assessment is a statement that describes the ability we want to assess. If we want to assess something called speaking ability, for example, we have to be able to specify what the components of this ability are. This is called **construct** definition. A construct is an abstract concept (in this case speaking proficiency) that cannot be observed directly.

When they are designing a proficiency test, the first thing that test designers do is to write what are called test specifications which define the construct that is to be tested and describe the kinds of tasks that will be used. Making the construct explicit in this way gives the designers a means of verifying that the tasks they construct actually test what they are supposed to be testing.

The same principle applies in the case of classroom assessment. However, the starting point for planning classroom assessment will usually be a statement of student learning outcomes rather than a theoretical construct definition. Since the main aim of assessment is usually to establish the extent to which outcomes are achieved, it is very important to ensure that assessment tasks are clearly related to the course or unit outcomes. An example of how this can be done is shown in Figure 1. You can see how the broad learning outcome (here it is called a "profile sentence"), *greet someone*, is broken down into more specific behaviors that are involved in greeting someone *(performance criteria)*. To determine whether or not someone has achieved the outcome, the teacher needs to devise an assessment task that requires learners to demonstrate these abilities.

PROFILE SENTENCE: Greet someone

Performance criteria (the student has demonstrated the ability to:)
Use appropriate forms of address
Use a range of greetings and responses
Recognize and convey relationship and attitude in a short encounter

Consistency
Demonstrate ability in at least three contexts with variables such as time, place, relationship.

Constraints
Greetings should be both initiated and responded to.

Examples of contexts
As member of a group, with neighbors, shopkeepers, friends, colleagues, officials, teachers

Examples of appropriate evidence
Oral demonstration

Figure 1 Performance criteria for a proficiency exam (Royal Society of Arts, 1988)

Reflection

What abilities do you think would be involved in the following Profile Sentence?
Order a meal in a restaurant.

3. Involve learners in assessment.

Classroom assessment is part of the learning process, so it should be done with learners, not to them. Before assessment takes place, it is important to make sure that learners know why they are being assessed, what the results of the assessment mean, and how the results are going to be used. In addition, the instructions for doing the task need to be made clear. In some cases it might be necessary to provide these in the learners' first language. The criteria that will be used to assess their performance also need to be explained. If different levels of achievement are possible for a particular task, learners should be told what these levels mean and what is considered to be a satisfactory level of performance.

If the purpose of an assessment is to provide diagnostic feedback, then this feedback needs to be provided in a form—either verbal or written—that is easy for the learners to understand and use. For example, learners often want explicit feedback on their written errors and advice on how to proceed in order to address the problems they are having. Conferences involving either one-to-one or group discussion between teacher and students are one way in which this can happen.

4. Use a variety of assessment methods.

In recent years, teachers have become increasingly dissatisfied with using "one-off" tests to assess classroom achievement. A test is a finite event that happens in a short time and by definition, the type and amount of material that can be included is limited. In addition, some learners simply do not like taking tests and perform below their real ability. For these reasons, assessment researchers in recent years have stressed the importance of using a variety of assessment methods in addition to tests. Not only does this show development over time, but it also gives the teacher a richer picture of learners' abilities in a range of different contexts.

Different types of assessment are used at various points throughout a language program for various purposes. These are summarized below. Specific examples will be given in the next section.

Precourse assessment

At the beginning of a course of instruction, we will usually want to ascertain the learners' ability to use a language for particular communicative goals, regardless of any instruction they may have had previously. For this purpose we would use a **proficiency test** which would give us a general idea of their level of ability so that the course can be pitched at the appropriate level of difficulty. This could be either a commercial test or one that is developed "in-house" by a particular institution. A proficiency test may also be used as a **placement test** to sort learners into groups of similar proficiency level or as a **selection test** to ascertain whether a person has sufficient language proficiency to begin a particular course of study or to practice a given profession or occupation. Even though most teachers will not be responsible for the construction of proficiency tests, it is important that they are able to interpret and act on the information that such tests provide.

The results of proficiency assessment may be interpreted in two ways. First, learners' scores or grades can be compared with each other (e.g., "Maria scored 90 out of 100/in the top 10 percent"). This is known as a **norm-referenced** interpretation. Alternatively, their performance may be compared with an external standard or criterion which has already been defined, such as a particular course objective or descriptor of a performance (e.g., "can give simple personal information"). This is known as a **criterion-referenced** interpretation. Criterion-referenced reporting provides test users with qualitative information about what a test taker can do with the language. For example, a learner who is assessed at Threshold Level on the framework used by the Council of Europe for describing language proficiency:

> Can understand the main points of clear standard input on familiar matters regularly encountered in work, school, leisure, and so on. Can deal with most situations likely to arise while traveling in an area where the language is spoken. Can produce simple, connected text on topics that are familiar or of personal interest. Can describe experiences and events, dreams, hopes, and ambitions and briefly give reasons and explanations for opinions and plans.
>
> (North, 2000, p. 28)

In-course assessment

Once learning is under way, we will want to find out how much a student has learned in a particular unit of instruction. For this purpose, we would use some form of **achievement assessment**. Achievement assessment may be based either on the specific content that has been covered or on the course objectives. Hughes (1989) considers that the latter approach is greatly preferred since he believes that assessing mastery of specific content may not tell us whether the objectives have actually been achieved. As we have seen, the major advantage of basing assessment on the course objectives is that there is a very close link between assessment and instruction: what is taught is what is assessed and what is assessed is what is reported. This allows teachers, learners, and external parties such as parents or school administrators to see to what extent the intended outcomes of the course have been achieved.

An informal way of keeping track of progress over a period of time is by giving *progress achievement* tests such as short weekly tests based on the topics, themes, or structures that have been covered during that week. The results of these tests can be used to give students feedback on their progress in relation to the course objectives and to help them identify any areas where they might need to do more work. Used in this way, the tests have a **diagnostic** function. Another important purpose of progress achievement tests is to motivate learners by allowing them the opportunity to demonstrate what they have learned. For this reason, they tend to be designed so that learners achieve high scores.

In addition to tests, there are a variety of other non-test procedures that can be used to gather ongoing information on learners' progress and achievement, including systematic observation, conferences between the teacher and the student, and self- and peer assessment. One method that has been shown to be particularly useful is the **portfolio**. A portfolio contains a collection of student work selected by the student that demonstrates their efforts, progress, or achievement over a period of time. Portfolios may contain samples of classroom tests, samples of writing, audiotapes, or videotapes of oral performances.

End-of-course assessment

At the end of a period of instruction teachers will usually need to report on learners' achievement to external authorities (for example at the end of a school term). This is known as **summative assessment**. For this purpose, *final achievement tests* would be used. These usually resemble formal tests and may be constructed by external educational bodies or by teachers within an institution with special responsibilities for assessment.

In this section we will look at some examples of ways in which students' proficiency and achievement can be assessed at various points throughout the program for the range of purposes that we have identified. We will also consider how learners themselves can be involved in the assessments.

Proficiency assessment at course entry

As we have seen, the results of some proficiency tests are reported in the form of criterion-referenced descriptors of different levels of ability. Although these descriptors are a useful indicator of a learner's overall proficiency, they tend to be rather broad and general and thus are of limited value in course planning. However, general proficiency descriptors can be helpful in sensitizing learners to what is involved in learning a language, particularly if they are couched as self-assessment (SA) statements, as in the following example from Oskarsson (1980):

	SPEAKING	
☐	I speak the language as well as a well-educated native.	5
☐		4.5
☐	I speak the language fluently and for the most part correctly. I have a large vocabulary so I seldom have to hesitate or search for words. On the other hand I am not completely fluent in situations in which I have had no practice with the language.	4
☐		3.5
☐	I can make myself understood in most everyday situations, but my language is not without mistakes and sometimes I cannot find the words for what I want to say. It is difficult for me to express myself in situations in which I have had no opportunity to practise the language. I can give a short summary of general information that I have received in my native language.	3
☐		2.5
☐	I can make myself understood in simple everyday situations, for example asking and giving simple directions, asking and telling the time, asking and talking about simpler aspects of work and interests. My vocabulary is rather limited, so it is only by a great deal of effort that I can use the language in new and unexpected situations.	2
☐		1.5
☐	I can just about express very simple things concerning my own situation and my nearest surroundings, for example asking and answering very simple questions about the time, food, housing and directions. I only have a command of very simple words and phrases.	1
☐		0.5
☐	I do not speak the language at all.	0

Figure 2 Self-assessment statements for speaking skills

If you speak another language, rate yourself on the speaking scale (Figure 2, page 319). To what extent do you feel your proficiency was adequately represented by the descriptions on the scale? Add any features of your proficiency that you think are missing.

Asking learners at the beginning of the course to self-assess where they are on this type of scale and the level they wish to achieve can be a useful way of involving them early in the specification of their own language learning goals and objectives, thus encouraging self-direction.

SA can also be used as a placement tool. Learners can be asked to say how well they can carry out the types of tasks that they will encounter in the syllabus. This provides information that the teacher can use in course design and also encourages learners to reflect on their learning needs, goals and objectives.

Commentary The notion of SA may be unfamiliar and even threatening to some learners, and in some cases, it may take some time before they understand the rationale for self-assessment. In this regard, one of the clear messages that emerges from research into SA is that it needs to be introduced in a carefully staged way so that learners know why it is being used and how it can help them learn better. Before asking learners to use SA tools, then, the teacher needs to spend some time discussing the aims of self-assessment, its advantages, and ways in which learners might become involved. This could be done at the beginning of a course in conjunction with proficiency assessment using a SA scale such as the one above. The learners also need to have the opportunity to develop skills in organizing their learning, reflecting on their achievements, describing their own and their peers' performances, and making assessment decisions. Some people maintain that a parallel learner training program is necessary if SA is to be systematically incorporated into the program. Given the need for this supplementary component, it may be difficult to incorporate SA into language programs in which hours of instruction are limited.

Reflection

1. "Self-assessment is a waste of time. Learners will just cheat." What do you think of this statement?
2. If you were asked to justify the use of self-assessment to a language learner, what would you say?

Ongoing achievement assessment

Observation

Observation is one of the most widely used methods of keeping track of learners' progress in the classroom. Teachers commonly observe learners' performance in the classroom on a day-to-day basis and follow this up with some kind of diagnostic feedback, either verbal or written, which alerts the learner to his or her strengths or weaknesses. Used in this way, observation is an important part of **formative assessment,** the purpose of which is to inform and improve the learning process.

One of the most commonly used formats for observation-based assessment and monitoring is the checklist. In its most basic form, this consists of a grid containing the learner's name, the task or objective which is to be attempted, and a series of boxes which allow the teacher to note whether or not the task has been successfully achieved. In some cases, rather than a simple yes/no judgment on achievement, there is a simple rating scale describing different levels of attainment in relation to the task or objective that is the object of instruction. Some formats also allow for the inclusion of the learner's and/or their peers' assessment of their own achievement in addition to the teacher's.

Reflection

Study the checklist (Figure 3, page 322) that was developed for monitoring learners' achievement of English language competencies in a workplace program in the U.S. (U.S. Department of Health and Human Services, 1985). Imagine you are a teacher who is discussing the checklist with a student after it has been filled in. Is there anything you would want to change?

Action

Design a similar checklist for monitoring learners' achievement of language competencies in a beginning level unit on shopping (you will need to think about what competencies are involved). Include five competencies.

Name ..... **Class** .....

TEPR Entry Date ..... Social Security No. .....

Key : 0 - Needs Improvement
1 - Communicative/Satisfactory
2 - Good
3 - Very Good

	Date	Date
1. State previous occupation(s) in simple terms.		
2. Ask and answer basic question about work shifts, starting date, specific hours and pay day.		
3. Read want ads and identify skills needed for a job.		
4. Describe previous work experience, job skills, qualifications, and training in detail, including degree of ability.		
5. State own ability to use tool, equipment, and machines.		
6. Follow simple step-by-step oral instructions to begin and perform a task which is demonstrated, including simple classroom instructions.		
7. Ask if the task is done properly.		
8. Ask simple clarification questions about routine job task and instructions.		
9. Ask supervisor/co-worker for help.		
10. Respond to simple oral warning/basic commands about safety.		
11. Interpret common warnings/safety signs at work site.		
12. Give simple excuses for lateness or absence in person.		
13. Report work progress and completion of tasks.		
14. Follow simple two-step oral instructions on the job.		
15. Find out about the location of common materials and facilities at the work site.		
16. Follow simple oral instructions which contain references to places or objects in the immediate work area.		
17. Modify a task based on changes in instructions.		
18. Respond to supervisor's comments about quality of work on the job, including mistakes, working too slowly, and incomplete work.		
19. Give specific reasons for sickness, absence, or lateness.		
20. Report specific problems encountered in completing a task.		

Figure 3 Student competency checklist

Commentary The checklist format, although obviously fairly basic, is simple to use and allows for achievement of tasks or objectives to be informally and rapidly monitored by the teacher either on an individual or group basis. Developing strategies and skills can also be noted and monitored. In addition, it serves as a record which can be used by learners to keep track of their own learning progress and difficulties and to demonstrate achievement of objectives to other people. The performance levels that are used, however, tend to be rather vague and impressionistic (e.g., "good") and might need to be made more precise if the information had to be conveyed to other people.

Developing tasks for assessing achievement: rating scales

As we have seen, assessing language production requires the elicitation of a performance and then a judgment on that performance. In the case of speaking and writing skills, this judgment will often be carried out using a **rating scale** that describes and quantifies the key features of the performance, as in the previous example from Oskarsson (1980). The scale descriptors may be quite general (e.g., "Can handle most social situations with facility.") or they may relate to a particular area of language use (e.g., "Can write a wide range of business correspondence with confidence and competence."). Scales can even be developed to describe a specific task (e.g., "Provides all/most/some information."). It is generally inappropriate to use a scale that has been designed for one purpose (e.g., a general proficiency scale) for another purpose (e.g., to describe achievement of a particular classroom objective).

Now look at the cartoon in Figure 4.

Figure 4 Prompt for picture description task

Reflection

Study the Extracts 1 and 2 below which were collected from two adult ESL learners doing a picture description task. Which learner do you think is the more proficient? Why?

Extract 1 **Learner 1**

Ze boy gives ze...money ze man who selled ze balloon...and ze man...give him ze change...and ze balloon..and ze boy...runs with three balloons to his mother. He's very exciting about zis...and ze boy gives ze rest of ze money his mother. But he...ze boy is too light for ze balloon and he goes up in the air.

Extract 2 **Learner 2**

Dey boy wants a balloon...so...de boy...told to grandma "I want a balloon" so you gave me some money and...er...de baby went to...er...er...salesman ...and...de boy told him "I wanna three balloon" and den..."How muchee?... er...um...um...de salesman gave him some changee...and den...balloon. He's got a balloon now...and...he came back here...um...and den...he gave grandmother some changeee...give...um...gave her...have her...er...de boy flew...flew up.

Commentary Interestingly, when I gave a group of ESL teachers this exercise, they did not agree in their rankings. Some of them thought that Learner 1 was more proficient because she was able to explain precisely why the boy flew away ("the boy is too light for the balloon"). However, others thought that Learner 2 was better because in their view she provided more detail, had a wider range of vocabulary and better control of grammar (note her consistent use of the past tense, even though in this case the historic present would normally be used).

What criteria would we use, then, to rate these performances? The ones that this group of teachers came up with were as follows:

- Overall communicative effectiveness (task fulfillment)
- Fluency
- Vocabulary
- Grammatical accuracy
- Pronunciation, intonation and stress

If you look at the criteria, it becomes clear that the reason for the disagreement between the teachers can be traced back to the emphasis that they give to the different features of performance. Some teachers were focusing on the first criterion, overall communicative effectiveness (also called task fulfillment), which concerns the learner's ability to get the message across, while others were more concerned with the learner's mastery of the language code in terms of grammar and vocabulary.

Once the key features of the performance have been identified, it is relatively straightforward to turn them into a rating scale. But in order to be able to quantify the performances we need to add a scoring system. The scale might then look like this:

Overall communicative effectiveness	5	4	3	2	1	0
Fluency	5	4	3	2	1	0
Vocabulary	5	4	3	2	1	0
Grammatical accuracy	5	4	3	2	1	0
Pronunciation, intonation and stress	5	4	3	2	1	0

Figure 5 Criteria scale for rating speakers

If some criteria are deemed to be more important than others, different weightings can be given to each of the criteria. If the teachers were able to agree that communicative effectiveness was more important than, say, pronunciation, this could be reflected in the marking scheme by giving the former a weighting of, say, 30 percent and the latter a weighting of 10 percent.

Because rating is quite a subjective process, it is important to ensure that people who use rating scales regularly are provided with training in how to interpret and use them. This is particularly necessary when the results of the assessment carry high stakes (such as selection or entry).

Reflection

Of the performance criteria in the rating scale above, which do you think would be the most difficult for raters to agree on? Why?

Using the model on page 325 (Figure 5), try to create a similar rating scale for the outcome statement: *Can give an oral presentation.*

You may need to change some of the performance criteria.

6. Conclusion

In this chapter, I have briefly traced the development of language assessment from the time when it was concerned with people's mastery of isolated elements of the language to its present focus on using language to communicate in the real world. We have looked at the different purposes for which language assessment is carried out in language programs and the kinds of tools that can be used to assess proficiency and achievement. One of the main themes running through the chapter has been the need for a close link between assessment and teaching. Classroom assessment is a means of informing and improving learning–if you teach what you assess and you assess what you teach, then both learners and teachers know what has been achieved and where they need to go next.

Further readings

Bailey, K. 1998. *Learning about Language Assessment.* Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This book is a good introduction to assessment issues, and is firmly based in practice, with many examples of actual tests and assessment tasks used by teachers, accompanied by helpful commentaries from the author. It provides clear explanations of assessment tools and techniques for test analysis.

Brown, J. D. (ed.) 1998. *New Ways of Classroom Assessment.* Alexandria, VA: TESOL.

Brown has compiled a very useful compendium of teacher-developed classroom assessment activities that can be integrated with teaching. It contains numerous examples of assessment that do not involve formal testing, such as observation, self-assessment, portfolios, journals, and conferences.

Cohen, A. D. 1994. *Assessing Language Ability in the Classroom.* Second Edition. Boston, MA: Heinle & Heinle.

This is a comprehensive overview of assessment theory and practice, firmly grounded in research, containing numerous examples of tools for assessing language proficiency and achievement.

Genesee, F. and J. Upshur 1996. *Classroom-Based Evaluation in Second Language Education.* Cambridge: Cambridge University Press.

For the development of both formal and informal assessment tools for classroom use, this clear, nontechnical guide includes numerous examples of techniques that can be used for a range of assessment purposes.

O'Malley, J. M and L. Valdez-Pierce 1996. *Authentic Assessment for English Language Learners.* New York, NY: Addison-Wesley.

This volume provides a detailed and accessible introduction to ways of integrating teaching and learning in ESL classrooms through the use of "authentic" assessments such as observations, checklists, interviews, and portfolios. It contains many exemplars of assessment tools that can be adapted to local needs.

Helpful Web site

Resources in Language Testing (http://www.surrey.ac.uk/ELI/ltr.html)

Run by Glenn Fulcher from the University of Surrey, this site is a very useful "one-stop shop" that offers a rich variety of resources relating to language assessment. It contains links to a large number of assessment sites, both in general education and language learning. As well, there are downloadable articles on assessment, video interviews with experts in the field, examples of tests, and a wide range of other information on aspects of language assessment. The site is regularly updated.

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Shohamy, E. 1985. *A Practical Handbook in Language Testing for the Second Language Teacher.* Tel Aviv: Tel Aviv University.

United States Department of Health and Human Services 1985. *Mainstream English Language Training Project.* Washington DC: Office of Refugee Resettlement, United States Department of Health and Human Services.

Glossary

academic vocabulary – vocabulary that is more frequent and widely occurring in academic text than in other types of text

accuracy – the ability to produce grammatically and phonologically well-formed words, phrases, and sentences

achievement assessment – an assessment of what has been learned in a particular course or unit of instruction

acquisition orders – the chronological order in which learners acquire the grammatical items in a second language

adapted – a text that has been simplifiied in terms of its grammar and vocabulary

adjacency pairs – two bits of language that fit together appropriately

adjunct program – a course that focuses on second language writing in support of a "content" course, such as psychology or chemistry: these courses teach the style and vocabulary expected in the content course

altered – a text in which the wording is the same as the original, but that has been altered in terms of visuals, typesetting, glossing, etc.

approaches – general, philosophical orientations to language teaching

assessment – collecting information and making judgments on a learner's knowledge

audience – readers for a piece of writing

audiolingual technique – drill-based techniques based on behaviorist psychology

audiolingualism – a drill-based method based on behaviorist psychology and structural linguistics

authentic texts – spoken and written language which is created in the course of genuine communication rather than being specially created for the purposes of language learning and teaching

autonomy – the capacity to control one's own learning

behaviorism – a theory of learning associated with the use of repetitive drills; learners are considered to be empty vessels into which the teacher pours knowledge

blended learning – Web-based study combining independent learning with teacher-mediated instruction in a chatroom environment

bottom-up processing – using component parts: words, grammar, and the like, to process meaning

brainstorming – a learning strategy involving generating as many ideas, words or concepts related to a given topic as possible

branching computer program – a program in which learners face more difficult questions if their answers were correct or undertake remedial training and/or questions if their answers were wrong

CALL – computer-assisted language learning

channel – the medium of the message (aural/oral or written)

clause – a group of words with a subject and a verb marked for tense that form a grammatical unit

cloze – a listening or reading based completion activity where every fifth word in a text has been replaced by a blank

cognitive code learning – a method based on the notion that second language learning involves reasoning rather than habit formation

cognitive overhead – refers to the learning that must take place before a student is able to use a program; for example, for primary school students, the odd arrangement of letters on a computer keyboard presents considerable cognitive overhead to completing a task that requires them to write

cognitive learning strategies – learning strategies that apply directly to learning

cognitivism – a teaching approach that believes writing is part of a process of critical thinking and problem-solving

communicative language teaching – a language teaching method based on the concept that interaction is the key to language learning and that students must have opportunities to communicate during lessons

comprehensible input – challenging language that is slightly above the current linguistic level of the learner

concordancing – a process of looking at the relationship between words to reveal rules about language use in the real world

construct – an abstract concept that cannot be observed directly

constructivism – a theory of learning which builds on the knowledge of individual learners and allows them to organize their own learning

contact assignment – a task in which learners have contact with other people and use the target language to speak with them

content – the "what" of a language syllabus (topics, themes, grammar, vocabulary pronunciation), as opposed to the "how" (pedagogical tasks and activities)

content-based instruction (CBI) – the teaching of language through exposure to content that is interesting and relevant to learners

context – the situation in which language occurs

contrastive rhetoric – the comparison of writing styles and processes from different languages

core meaning – the meaning that is the common part of the various senses of a word

coursebook – a published book used by the students and teacher as the primary basis for a language course

criterion-referenced – the interpretation of assessment results in relation to an external standard

curriculum development – processes and procedures for selecting, sequencing, and justifying program content, learning procedures, and evaluation

declarative knowledge – knowledge that allows one to state a rule or principle

deductive learning – a procedure in which learners are give a rule or principle, and then find examples of the rules in samples of language

descriptive grammar – grammars based on what people actually say and write as opposed to what they should say and write according to prescriptive grammarians

diagnostic test – assessment that identifies learners' strengths and weaknesses

discourse – the study of the relationship between language and its contexts of use

discourse community – a group of language users with a common purpose, for example, physicists, who use language in a similar way

dispreferred sequence – when two pair-parts of speech do not fit together

distinctive feature – a particular quality of a speech sound which distinguishes it from another speech sound (e.g., voicing); usually related to where in the mouth a sound is produced and how it is produced

editing – improving writing through correcting mistakes in grammar, spelling, and punctuation

evaluation – the collection and interpretation of information for making decisions about the effectiveness of an educational program

explicit – in explicit teaching, the learner's attention is deliberately drawn to a principle or rule

expressivism – a teaching approach that encourages self-expression through journal writing, personal narratives, and so forth

extensive reading – reading silently for extended periods of time

fluency – the ability to speak the language with relative ease while focused on getting one's meaning across: fluency includes the ability to produce connected, continuous streams of speech without causing communication breakdowns

fluent reading – reading smoothly at an appropriate rate with adequate comprehension

foreign language (FL) context – a situation where the language being learned is not the society's language of communication (e.g., learning English in Japan or studying French in Australia)

format shift – switching to a different skill or grouping than the one proposed in the textbook

formative assessment – assessment that is carried out in order to inform the learning process

freewriting – an unstructured writing exercise in which grammar, spelling, or other formal elements are not important

gap-fill drills – exercises in which the learner has to provide information expected by the program, rather than demonstrating what he or she knows

genuine – an authentic text that has been created for the real world, not the classroom

global/gist listening – listening for the main idea, topic, situation, or setting

grammar dictation – a technique where the teacher dictates a passage containing target language forms at normal speed while students take notes and then work together to reconstruct the passage

grammar-translation – a language teaching method based on the explication of grammatical rules and extensive practice in doing translations from the first to the target language and vice-versa

graphic organizers – drawings, pictures, or outlines that show how reading material is organized

high frequency words – the most frequent 2000 words of a language

holistic – paying attention only to the whole piece of writing, and not giving attention to one detail over another

holistic rubric – a rubric which describes in general terms the qualities of excellent, good, fair, and unsatisfactory assignments

implicit – in implicit teaching, the learners are left to infer principles or rules for themselves

inductive learning – a procedure whereby a learner studies samples of the target language and devises rules and principles based on those samples: it contrasts with deductive learning, in which the rules are presented and then applied

information gap activity – an activity in which one learner has information that another lacks and they must use the target language to convey that information

input – spoken or written language that is made available to learners as a basis for learning

input enhancement – a technique for getting students to notice the grammar item that the teacher wants to introduce

input hypothesis – Stephen Krashen's theory stating it is necessary for the learner to understand input language that is slightly beyond the learner's present linguistic competence

intensive reading – reading a short passage to develop specific reading skills

interactive models – the processing of top-down and bottom-up data at the same time

interactional speech – speech for the purpose of establishing or maintaining social relationships

jigsaw activity – a bi-directional or multidirecitonal information gap situation, in which each person in a pair or group has some information the other person(s) must have in order to complete a task: they must use the target language to share that information

keyword technique – a mnemonic technique which involves using a first language word to link the form and the meaning of a foreign word

knowledge domain – an organized collection of information on a topic, including processes

learner-centered education – an approach that uses information about learners' needs and preferences in selecting learning content and procedures; also refers to programs in which learners are actively involved in learning through doing

learning burden – the amount of effort needed to learn a word, depending largely on how much the aspects of the word relate to previous knowledge

learning contract – a way to help teachers and students share responsibility and provide constructive feedback for learning through increased accountability: learners agree on goals to be met but are usually quite free to decide the ways in which they meet those goals

learning (pedagogical) tasks – classroom work which has an outcome other than the production of a piece of language and in which the focus is principally on meaning rather than form

learning strategies – characteristics teachers want to encourage in students to enable them to become more proficient learners

learning styles – a learner's natural, preferred ways of absorbing, processing, and retaining new information

linear computer program – a program where all learners follow the same path

low frequency words – words not in the most 2000 frequently used words of a language

metacognitive learning strategies – learning strategies where students control their own learning process

method – integrated set of classroom procedures, usually based on beliefs on the nature of language and learning

methodology – the development of principles and procedures for selecting, sequencing, and justifying learning tasks and activities

morpheme – a meaning unit in a language, which is either a *free morpheme* (a word) or a *bound morpheme* (a prefix or a suffix)

morpheme order studies – a series of studies conducted in the 1970s which showed that learners acquire certain grammatical morphemes in a set order regardless of their first language background

negotiation for meaning – the processes, during interaction, of checking, clarifying, asking for slower speech and/or repetition, which enables speakers to understand and make themselves understood

non-weighted rubric – a rubric which provides descriptions of writing quality by level across other writing criteria

norm-referenced – the interpretation of assessment results in terms of the performance of the group that is tested

notional-functional approach – an approach to syllabus design based on concepts such as time, duration, quantity, as well as a specification of the things that people do through language such as ordering, inviting, and complaining

phonemes – meaning-bearing units of sound in a particular language; phonemes can be *segmental* (the consonants and vowels) or *suprasegmental* (stress, rhythm, and intonation)

phonics approach – an approach to the teaching of reading in which students are taught to match the sounds to letters

phrase – two or more words functioning together but without a verb marked for tense

placement test – a test that is used to place learners into a group or class

portfolio – a collection of student work selected by the student that demonstrates their efforts, progress, or achievement over a period of time

practicality – the extent to which a test or assessment can be feasibly implemented with available resources

prescriptive grammar – rule-based grammars specifying what people should say and write

principled eclecticism – a combination of approaches to teaching, choosing the most appropriate elements from each to suit the population or situation

procedural knowledge – being able to apply a rule or principle to practice

process writing – a teaching approach that places importance on different aspects of the cycle of writing, including invention, drafting, and revision, and not just the final product produced

productive – producing language, as in speaking and writing, going from meaning to form

proficiency test – an assessment of a person's ability to use a language for a particular purpose regardless of any previous instruction

programmed instruction (or programmed learning) – a behaviorist approach to teaching at the computer in which incremental achievements or failures at different tasks govern the student's learning path

quickwriting – similar to freewriting, but typically with a given topic

rating scale – a scale containing a series of ordered categories indicating different levels of ability

receptive – receiving language, as in listening and reading, going from form to meaning

reliability – the consistency with which an assessment measures language behavior

revision – the rethinking improvement of a piece of writing through clarification, development, and reorganization

role-play – a speaking activity in which the learners take on someone else's identity and act out a situation in order to practice using the target language

rubric – a written form or checklist to assist in the evaluation of a writing assignment

schema – the interrelated knowledge patterns in our minds

schemata – background knowledge

second language (SL) context – a situation where the learners' target language is the language of communication in the society (for example, when studying English in the UK or learning Spanish in Mexico)

segmentals – a language's inventory of individual consonant and vowel sounds: most analysis of the English sound system include at least 24 consonant sounds and 15 vowel sounds

selection test – a test that is used to determine whether a person is accepted into an educational program

self-access center – an open access resource center containing authentic print, audio, and video target language materials

self-directed learning – learning outside the classroom that was planned and executed by the learners themselves

silent way – a method designed to maximize student self-responsibility and minimize student dependence on the teacher

simulation – a role-play activity which attempts to approximate realistic conditions by using props, documents, settings, etc.

skills – unconscious awareness of strategies while reading a passage with understanding

social constructionism – a teaching approach that focuses on the context of writing and the influence that context has on the product

socio-affective factors – emotional aspects of language learning such as anxiety, motivation, and self-esteem

strategic reading – choosing the appropriate strategies to be a successful reader

strategies – conscious steps that readers take to improve their reading ability

structural linguistics – an approach to linguistics based on the notion that language consists of sets of hierarchical units, from sounds to morphemes to words to clauses to sentences

sustained-content language teaching (SCLT) – a version of content-based instruction in which learners acquire language in the course of intensively studying a single subject

suggestopedia – a method based on the use of relaxation techniques to make students more receptive to the target language

summative assessment – assessment that takes place at the end of a course or unit of instruction

suprasegmentals – a dimension of the sound system that extends over more than individual consonant and vowel sounds: suprasegmentals include patterns of word stress, sentence stress, rhythm, and intonation (including the rhythmic and melodic characteristics of speech)

sustained content language teaching (SCLT) – language development course in which course content is drawn exclusively from one academic discipline

syllabus – a document setting out language content (topics, themes, grammar, vocabulary and pronunciation features) in a sequenced and integrated way

tango seating – a seating arrangement in which two students are facing opposite directions but their right shoulders (or their left shoulders) are together, so that they can hear one another but not see what is on their partner's desk

target language – the language which learners are attempting to learn

task-based language teaching – an approach to pedagogy in which the point of departure is an inventory of things that people do with language rather than a list of grammatical items

text – a stretch of spoken or written language of undetermined length

top-down processing – using background knowledge to process meaning

transformational-generative grammar – a theory that attempts to describe a finite set of abstract rules for generating all grammatical utterances in a language; the theory explicitly rejected the notion that language acquisition was a matter of habit formation

transactional speech – communication for the purpose of getting something done, typically the exchange of goods and/or services

unequal power discourse – discourse in which one party has more social status and/or power than the other(s) and therefore has certain privileges (delegating turns, nominating topics, changing topics, asking questions, etc.) that the other speakers don't have

utterance – something someone says

validity – the extent to which an assessment is appropriate for its intended purposes

voicing – the question of whether or not the vocal chords are vibrating when a sound is made

weighted rubric – a rubric which breaks the writing skills into categories and sub-categories and assigns a specific point value to each

word family – a base word and its closely related inflected and derived forms

wordmapping – the process of creating a visual representation or 'map' of the relationship between topic-related vocabulary

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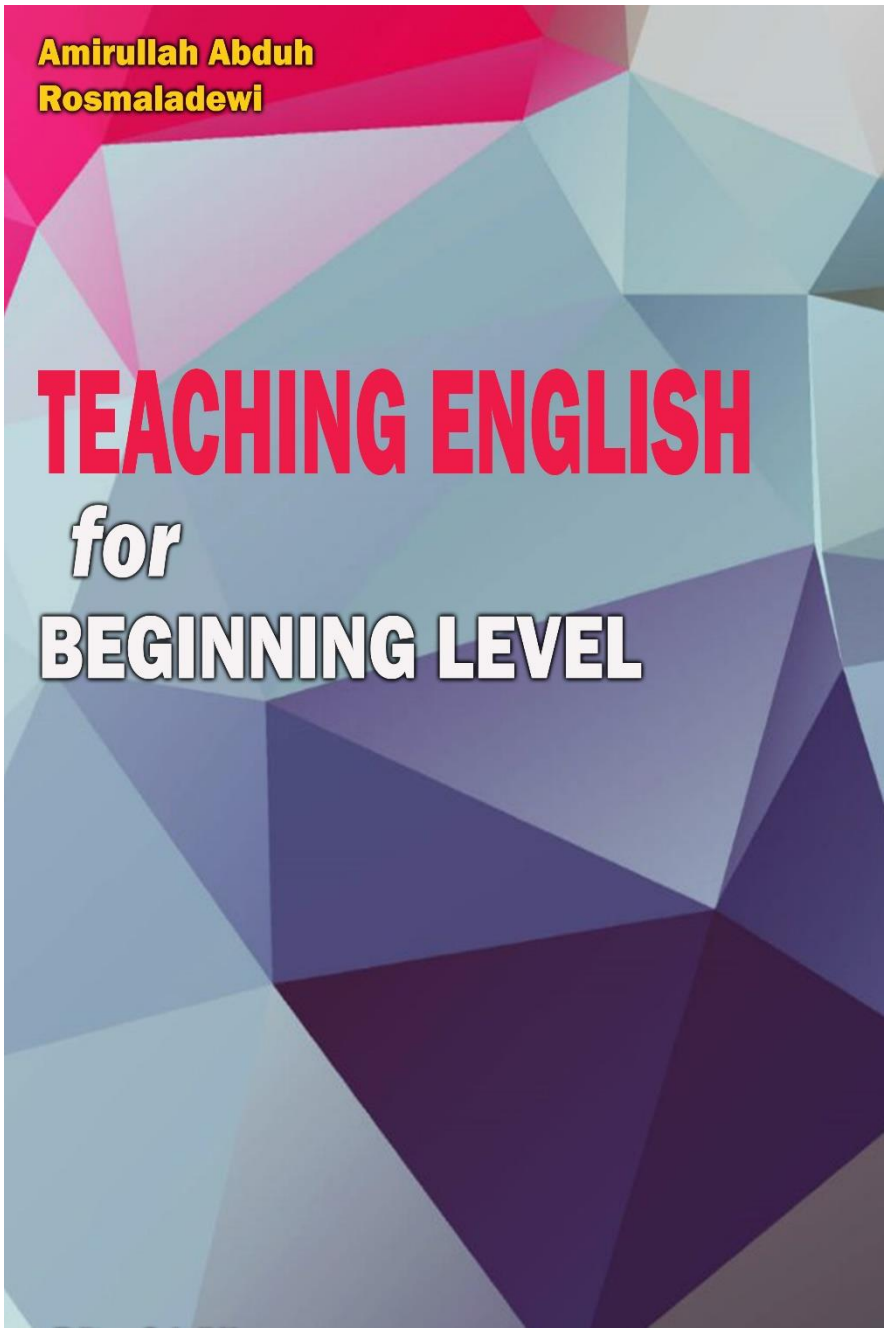

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PREFACE

As the Rector of the Universitas Negeri Makassar, I thank the writers, Amirullah Abduh and Rosmaladewi, who manage to complete the draft of this book. This book aims to address the scarcity of strategies and approaches to Teaching English for Beginning Level that particularly accommodate local teaching issues and materials as part of exercises and examples.

I expect that this book can be very useful for students across many different universities and beginning teachers who are interested to pursue their career in the field of teaching English for early ages. I recommend them to read and use this book as one of their resources. Last but not least, good luck for the writers and am looking forward to receiving other excellent books forthcoming.

Makassar, December 2016

Rector,

Prof. Dr. Husain Syam, M.TP

WRITERS' NOTE

We thank Allah SWT who blesses us to get through this book. We thank all friends and colleagues who support for the completion of this book.

Aim
This book is intended to provide unique perspectives of Teaching English for Beginning Level (TEBL). It includes concepts, strategies, examples, and exercises from both local and global knowledge.

Contents
This book, from the beginning to the end of the chapters, contains all relevant information regarding TEBL.

Acknowledgement
Any materials used in this book is acknowledged and referenced in the final section of this book.

Expectation
This book can be used as one of the key resources for student teacher and beginning teacher in the field of English Language Education and other related fields.

Writers

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I. LEARNERS OF BEGINNING LEVEL

1.1. Defining beginning level

The definition of beginning level provided by Slatterly and Willis (2001) is used widely in online courses: "Young Learners" (YL) were 7–12 years old; "Very Young Learners" (VYL) were defined as under 7 years of age. The term of beginning level is called the foundation stage or young learners. For a small child, being 3 is very different from being 4 or being 5. The beginning level is about us teachers celebrating what it means to be 3 (or 4 or 5) years of age and not constantly striving to make children 'be' something else. This means that we need to know our children, know what they can do, what they enjoy and what they find challenging. Teachers must help them feel secure and valued.

Teaching beginners is considered by many people as the most challenging level of language instruction. Since students at this level have little or no prior knowledge of the target language, the teacher becomes a "central determiner" in whether students accomplish their goals. This also be the most tangibly rewarding level for a teacher because the growth of students' proficiency is apparent in a matter of a few weeks. In this level, the students have very little language "behind" them. Teacher may be attempt to go along with the popular micro- conception that the target language cannot be taught directly, that the teacher have to resort to a good deal of talking about the second language in the students' native language, such beginning language courses have demonstrated for many decades. Teachers have to keep in mind that the students' capacity for taking in and retaining new words, structures, and concepts is limited. As teachers,

we should present the material in simple segments that do not overwhelm our students. We have to remember that they are just beginning!

1.2. Principle theories of teaching beginning level

The principle theories of teaching young learners are important to be taken into account when dealing with young learners. They are:

a. Children are active learners and thinkers (Piaget, 1970). Children construct knowledge from actively interacting with the physical environment in developmental stages. They learn through their own individual actions and exploration. Piagetian stages of development (cited from Pinter, 2012) cover four levels: *first* is sensori-motor stage from birth to two years of age that young children learn to interact with the environment by manipulating objects around them; *second* is pre-operational stage from two to seven years of age that child's thinking is largely reliant on perception but he or she gradually becomes more and more capable of logical thinking; *third* is concrete operational stage from seven to eleven years of age that children thinking begins to resemble 'logical' adult thinking and they develops ability to apply logical reasoning in several areas of knowledge at the same time such as maths, science, or map reading; *fourth* is formal operational stage from eleven years onwards that children are able to think beyond the immediate context in more abstract terms and they are able to carry out logical operations such as deductive reasoning in a systematic way.

b. Children learn through social interaction (Vygotsky, 1962). Children construct knowledge through other people, through interaction with adults. Adults/teachers work actively with children in the Zone of Proximal Development (ZPD). Zone of Proximal Development (ZPD) refers to the difference between the child's capacity to solve problems on his own and his capacity to solve them with assistance.
c. Children learn effectively through scaffolding by adults (Bruner, 1983). The adult's role is very important in a child's learning process. Like Vygotsky, Bruner focused on the importance of language in a child's cognitive development. He shows how the adult uses "scaffolding" to guide a child's language learning through finely-tuned talk. (Cameron, 2001). Bruner stated that parents who scaffolded effectively:

- created interest in the task;
- broke the task down into smaller steps;
- kept child "on task" by reminding him of the purpose or goal;
- pointed out the important parts of the task;
- controlled the child's frustration during the task;
- modeled the task, including different ways to do the task.

1.3. Characteristics of learners of beginning level

A number of experts provide detail characteristics of young learners into two phases; under 7 years old and 7-12 years of age (Slatterly, & Willis, 2001; Shin, 2006), as in table below:

Very young learners (under 7)	Young learners (7-12)
- acquire through hearing and experiencing lots of English, in much the same way they acquire L1 - learn things through playing; they are not consciously trying to learn new words or phrases – for them it's incidental - love playing with language sounds, imitating, and making funny noises - are not able to organize their learning - not able to read or write in L1; important to recycle language through talk and play - their grammar will develop gradually on its own when exposed to lots of English in context.	- are learning to read and write in L1 - are developing as thinkers - understand the difference between the real and the imaginary - can plan and organize how best to carry out an activity - can work with others and learn from others - can be reliable and take responsibility for class activities and routines

1.4. Environment for L1 and L2 learners

Researchers have noted that even though children may use similar processes for acquiring L1 and L2, the environment for L1 and L2 acquisition can be quite different (Brewster, Ellis & Girard, 2004).

L1 environment	L2 environment
❖ language highly contextualized ❖ in the real world the language used is authentic ❖ learner highly motivated	❖ language more decontextualized ❖ in the classroom the language used tends to be artificial ❖ learners may not be highly motivated

It is important to create environment where children can enjoy learning foreign language by self exploration and can interact with others. In L2 learning, the environment should be created to attract students' motivations and interests. It is also essential to provide realia or objects where learners can illustrates the materials that are currently being discussed.

1.5. Learner's learning style

Every child has its unique characteristic of language learning. This characteristic is highly influenced by learning styles. Pinter (2012: 14) classified 'styles' into three broad categories. The first

style can describe personality types such as more careful and reflective children as opposed to impulsive and more interactive children. Other styles, related to personality features, describe cognitive categories such as analytic or global learners who are more holistic in their approach. Finally, some styles describe perceptual differences. Some children prefer listening to new input while others need lots of visual stimulus. Yet others are kinesthetic, which means that they like to feel and touch things and move their body in expressive ways to aid their learning and communication.

Gardner's Framework of Multiple Intelligence which was published in 1983 are also known as the learning styles of children, as follows:

Linguistics	Sensitivity to the sound, rhythm, and meaning of words and the different functions of language
Logico-mathemathical	Sensitivity to and capacity to detect logical and numerical patterns, ability to handle long chains of logical reasoning
Musical	Ability to produce or appreciate pitch, rhythm, or melody and aesthetic-sounding tones, understanding of the forms of musical expressiveness
Spatial	Ability to perceive the visual/spatial world accurately, to perform transformation on those perceptions, and to recreate aspects of visual experience in absence of relevant stimuli
Bodily-kinaesthetic	Ability to use the body skilfully for expressive as well as goal oriented purposes, ability to handle objects skilfully
Interpersonal	Ability to detect and respond appropriately to the moods, temperaments, motivations, and intentions of others

Intrapersonal	Ability to discriminate complex inner feelings and to use them to guide one's own behaviour, knowledge of one's own strengths, weaknesses, desires, and intelligences
Naturalist	Ability to recognize and classify varieties of animals, minerals, and plants.

Garner Multiples Intelligence. Adapted from A. Pinter, *Teaching Young Language Learners*, Oxford University Press 2012.

1.6. Summary

- The definition of beginning level: "Young Learners" (YL) were 7–12 years old; "Very Young Learners" (VYL) were defined as under 7 years of age.
- Children are active learners and thinkers.
- Children learn through social interaction.
- Children learn effectively through scaffolding by adults.
- Both YL and VYL require both six senses to acquire language.
- The environment for the acquisition of L1 and L2 is quite different.
- Children learning styles follows Gardner's multiple intelligences.

2. TEACHERS OF BEGINNING LEVEL

2.1 Teachers beliefs

All of us bring to teaching memories of our own lives in school, perceptions about what it is 'teach' and beliefs about classroom should be. Moyles (2002) has identified the basic beliefs and principle in teaching beginning level:

B believe in what you do, and believe what you do on children's interest and needs
A approachable personality is vital & always try to think positively and react thoughtfully
S sense of humor is essential-second sight is useful & structured approach to teaching
I in-touch with different abilities and interests as well as integrate children in a class
C control and respect must be earned and communication skills must be excellent
T totally firm, fair and flexible as well as treat everyone with respect
E explain things clearly and explicitly
A analytical and self reflective
C confident, calm, caring, and creative
H happy background and happy classroom
I imaginative and inspiring
N need for planning, observation, and evaluation
G get it organized

2.2. Areas of teaching beginning level

Teachers at the foundation stage has its own areas of learning and teachers of younger children still require a sound knowledge of the subject matters within the areas stated in figure below, for it probably true to say that younger child, the securer our knowledge of different curriculum aspects needs to be. Harmer (1998) described the areas of beginning level that teachers should know as follows:

a. Role of language: language acquisition, language learning, foundation of literature.
b. Children voice: time spent on activities, concentration/attention/opportunity, and handling choices.
c. Self discipline: autonomy, self management, intrinsic motivation, and appropriate behaviour.
d. Team work: roles of other adults, team management skills, being facilitators, and reading about early years matters.
e. Observation and assessment: using knowledge of planning, record keeping, and setting up new learning environment.
f. Children abilities: start with what child can do, individual differences, and gradual access to new skills.
g. Child's world: concept of early childhood, ability to enter child's world, and child-like view of experiences.
h. Play: its role, children exploration, imagination and creativity, and teachers understanding of play.
i. First hand experiences: uses of senses, immediate experiences, concrete materials, cross curriculum topics, curiosity and context of learning.
j. Process of learning: observation-activity, skills, new learning, transfer of knowledge and skills, and practice.
k. Physical development: motor skills, fine, gross, and psycho-motor development.
l. Parents: collaboration in learning, home contact, and carers.

m. Perceptual variation: understand how each children 'see' the world.
n. Important of whole child: socially, emotionally, morally, intellectually, physically, and spirituality.

2.3. What makes good teachers

A research has been conducted in an English course which consisted of students from different nationalities. The students who were studying at Cambridge Comprehensive School have been interviewed by Harmer (1998) to get the characteristics of good teachers as follows:

a. They should make their lessons interesting so you don't fall asleep in them.
b. A teacher must love his/ her job. If she/ he really enjoys her/his job that will make the lessons more interesting.
c. The teacher has his/ her own personality and doesn't hide it from the students, so he/she is not only a teacher but a person as well- and it comes through the lesson.
d. Teacher has lots of knowledge, not only of his/ her subject.
e. A good teacher is a good entertainer in a positive sense.

The character and personality of the teacher is a crucial issue in the classroom. However, it is usually related with the relationship between the teacher and the students. These are some responses of the study;

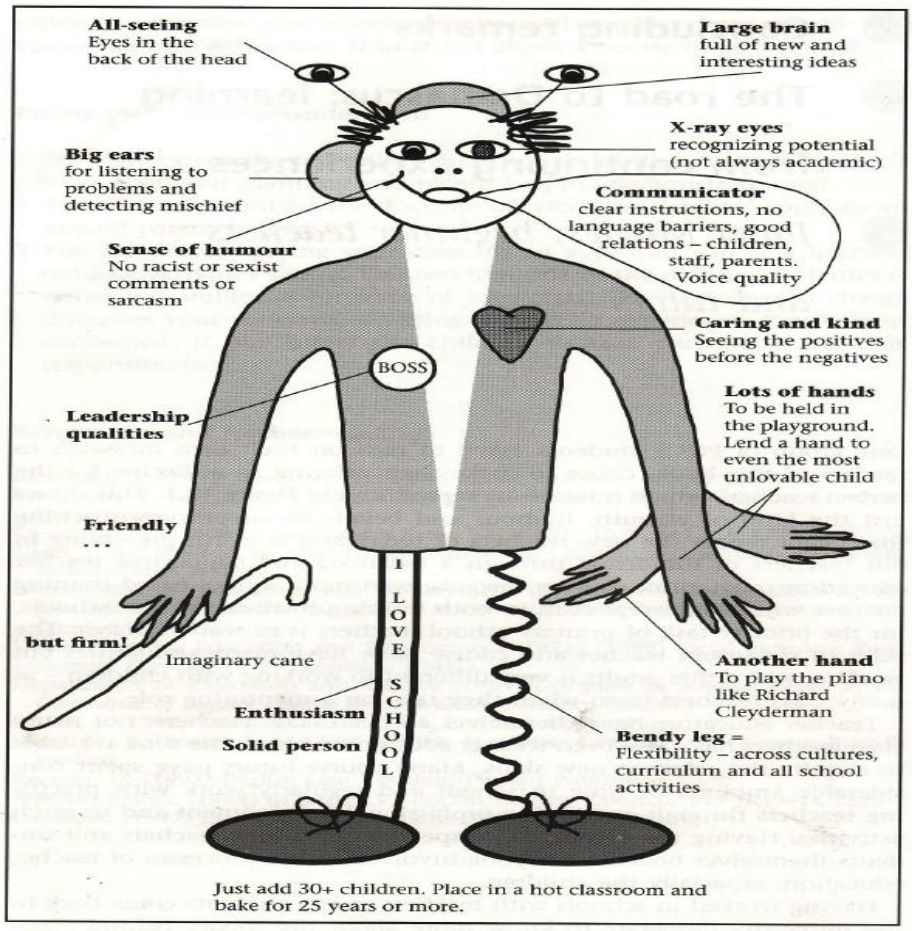
a. Teacher must be approachable. Teacher should be available when their students need to talk whether about the subject or other case.
b. A good teacher has an affinity with the students that they are teaching. Successful teachers are those who can identify with

the hopes, aspiration and difficulties of their students while they are teaching them.

c. Teacher helps rather that shout!
d. Teacher knows their students' names.

2.4. Recipe of perfect teacher

The perfect teachers proposed by Janet Moyles (2002) have the characteristics of its shown in picture 1.



2.5. Summary

a. Teachers' beliefs refer to the principles of basic teaching.
b. The areas of teaching cover pivotal points for teachers to get through when they teach.
c. Teachers' characters and personality becomes crucial elements to become good teachers.
d. Teachers of English should know the recipe of becoming outstanding teachers.

3. CLASSROOM MANAGEMENT

3.1. Contact with students

There are four basic principles as proposed by Harmer (2003, pp. 15-16) of how teachers use their physical presence in class: *proximity*, *appropriacy*, *movement* and *contact.*

Proximity: teachers should consider how close they want to be to the students they are working with. Some students resent it if the distance between them and the teacher is too small. There is specific criteria of how distant teachers to the students in the class, however it will depend on what is happening in the classroom that teacher should think about.

Appropriacy: Determining of how closely you ought to work with students is a matter of appropriacy. Any behavior that is done by the teachers in class such as standing behind the chairs, sitting on the floor, standing beside students should bring about the positive impact to the students and to the teachers themselves. More importantly that building good relationship is one of the excellent ways to have effective class.

Movement: teacher is not a runner or a tennis player who move actively around the class during the session, but a person who can move in moderation according to the need and interest as well as the condition of the class. A teacher is not also a statue that is just silent and passive so that it makes the class bored.

Contact: teachers should decide their contact with students including physical presence and approach to students that depending on the condition and the nature of the class.

3.2. Seating arrangement

There are four types of seating arrangement proposed by Harmer (1998; 31-32): a orderly rows, circle and horseshoes, and separate tables.

Orderly rows: there are several obvious advantages when students sit in orderly rows. Teachers has not only clear view of students and students can see a teacher, but also teachers enable to keep eye contact with students as well as it makes lecturing easy. It helps students more discipline because teachers can identify who is missing in the row for a class. Orderly rows are best suited for large class ranging from 40 to 200 students at a time.

Circle and Horseshoes: this seating arrangement is well planned with smaller classes. Teacher role seems to less dominating for circle and horseshoes seating position. It creates equality among all students who sit in a circle, therefore they have the same opportunity to talk and share ideas among students. In addition, it makes teachers to be closer with students especially if teachers want to get to know their students comprehensively.

Separate tables: students who are seated in small group at individual tables help teachers to move around the class smoothly checking the students work and helping out if they are having difficulties-prompting the students at this table, or explaining something to the students at the table. Students seem to be more responsible on their own learning and are treated as adult language learning.

According to Alexandra Ramsden (1999), the best arrangement depends on the situation of the class and teacher. In his paper, he discussed five common types of seating position that can be used by teachers. He also pointed the positive and negatives sides of the arrangements. The types are below:

Clusters

This seating arrangement consists of four or five desks pushed together so every desk is facing another one. The fifth desk, if needed, would be put on the end of the group of four. In this situation the teacher is free to walk around the room without bumping into students desk or chairs and can work with the groups. The groups of students need to be thought about before setting up. The students need to be able to work together. There will have to be different levels of students at each group so that they can help each other learn and grow. Clusters are very common in situations where there is a lot of group learning and work. The desks together make it easy for all students in the cluster to see each other and to discuss. In this situation the philosophy of the teacher is more collaborative learning. This lets the students have hands on activities and learn by practicing. The teacher shares and gives guidance and help to the students. This arrangement also, allows for students to do individual work at their desk.

Clusters model (photo from Ramsden's website)

Clusters are not very good during test or quizzes because students can easily cheat off each other. Clusters can be a disadvantage to the teacher when giving a direct instruction lesson because students may not be oriented toward them. Students may have their back to the teacher and not be focused to the front of the room. This arrangement is usually found in the younger elementary grades and universities because there is more cooperative learning and hands on activities. It seems as thought the middle and high school in the United States do not use as much hands-on and cooperative learning because at this age in the students lives they are very social and worried about who is sitting with who and friends with whom. I think that teachers don't use this kind of instruction not because they don't value it but because the students would use most of their time not working but talking about life and all the social activities. The students would be wasting their instructional time and the teacher would be using their time making the children be quiet.

Desk rows

This seating arrangement is a traditional classroom seating arrangement of several rows of desks facing the teacher. The students desks are not touching each other but are lines up in rows and columns. The teacher is usually only able to walk from the front to the back in this set up, not walk from side to side without making students move. Before assigning seats to children the teacher needs to do a sociogram. The teachers need to quickly map social interactions between and amongst students so they know where to place the children.

Desk rows type (photo from Ramsden's website)

Also, they need to decide which students can handle being in the back of the classroom. The students are in a perfect test taking arrangement if the teacher is monitoring the class. In this situation the teacher's philosophy is probably more adult-run and direct instruction. The students are all facing the teacher and can see the blackboard, overhead projector, screen and other instructional aids. It is easy for the teacher to monitor all the students.

The problem with this arrangement is some students are going to have to sit in the corners and in the back of the room. In these locations in the classroom students participate and interact less and more behavioral problems occur. This arrangement is also not good for group work or projects. Taking the time to have the students get into groups and move their desks is taking away important instructional time during the school day. Desk rows are very common in the older grades where numerous amounts of tests are given and direct instruction is prevalent.

Table rows

This type of seating positions consists of long tables that are placed in rows that are perpendicular to the front and back of the room. The students sit next and across from each other. This set- up is typically found in science labs and writing workshops. It is a good arrangement for group work and large group projects. The philosophy of the teacher who would set up their classroom with table rows is probably collaborative learning. They motivate their students by letting them work together, and it helps students learn how to learn. During writing workshops it is easy for students to turn to a person and do a peer editing and to share their work. In science labs it is sensible to have a large table where everyone can the item and participate.

Table Rows model (cited from: flickr.com)

The problem with this set-up is there are students that are at the end of the tables in the back of the room that will not be able to see during the direct instruction time. Also, it is hard for the teacher to see all the students and watch their faces and behavior. It allows the student for a lot of socializing and it is very bad in a test situation. None of the students are facing the front of the room when sitting at the table. It is hard to have class discussions because the students will not hear each other without moving and looking around to see who is talking. Table rows are good for situations where there is hardly any

direct instruction and students work together to figure out problems and activities. Usually this is found in the middle grades in science classes.

Semi-circle

Semi-circle seating arrangement is when all the desks touch each other facing the front of the room in a semi-circle shape. The teacher can easily see each student and they can see him/ her and the instructional aids. The philosophies of the teacher using this arrangement can be direct instruction, child run or collaborative. Each philosophy could be implemented into this classroom setting. Because all the students can see each other they can have debates and discussions amongst themselves. The students can give ideas on how they want to do an activity and the seating arrangement could probably accommodate the activity. Also, because the students all have clear vision to the board, direct instruction from the teacher could be very common. The teacher would have full control over the students. The teacher could easily walk around the room and monitor everybody's work. The students would also be able to work together doing projects and activities.

Semi-circle model (photo from Ramsden's website)

The semi-circle seating arrangement would be bad because the teacher would have a hard time meeting with the students one-on one. This is because the seats are very close to each other. Also, the semi-circle would take up almost the entire classroom so there isn't much room for activities or conferencing outside the desk area. Semi- circle desk arrangement can be used in all grade classrooms and for all educational philosophies. This is because the teacher can have classroom discussions and all the students can see and hear each other well. The teacher can take a passive role and listen to the students and let them run the class. Also, in this arrangement the teacher can run the class giving the student's step by step instructions. All the students are facing the front of the room and have their own space to work. The students can work easily together without much movement because they are sitting directly next to each other which makes hands on activities and collaborative learning possible.

Pairs

Having the students sit in pairs seating arrangement is when the two students desks are together and spaced away from other pairs. This arrangement allows the teacher to walk around the classroom and monitor all the students. Previous the seating arrangement the teacher needs to decide which students can be paired together and not misbehave or lower their academic stamina. The teacher philosophy is probably a mix between adult run and collaborative learning. Pairs allow the students to work together and independently.

Pairs Seat Model (photo from Ramsden's website)

The students are all facing the teacher and front of the classroom. It is easy to have the students see the instructional aids that could be used. In this situation children can take tests and the teacher can easily monitor. They can do activities and learn cooperatively. The downfall of pair seating arrangements is again that there are students that will be in the back and the corners of the room. Also, this arrangement doesn't allow for much class discussion because the students are not facing each other and it is hard to hear and see who is talking. To allow the children to work together is necessary for the teacher to make sure the class as a whole can have a partner and work together. It is important that the teacher picks out the pairs so there isn't anyone left out. Pair seating arrangement is found more in fourth, fifth or sixth grades where students take more responsibility for their actions and behaviors.

3.3. Summary

There are several important things that can be summarized for this chapter:

- Four principles of how teachers use their physical presence in class: proximity, appropriacy, movement and contact.
- There are at least eight model of seating arrangements: Orderly rows, Circle and Horseshoes, Separate tables, Clusters, Desk Rows , Table Rows , Semi-circle, and Pairs.
- Each of seating arrangement has advantages and disadvantages.

4. TEACHING APPROACHES FOR BEGINNING LEVEL

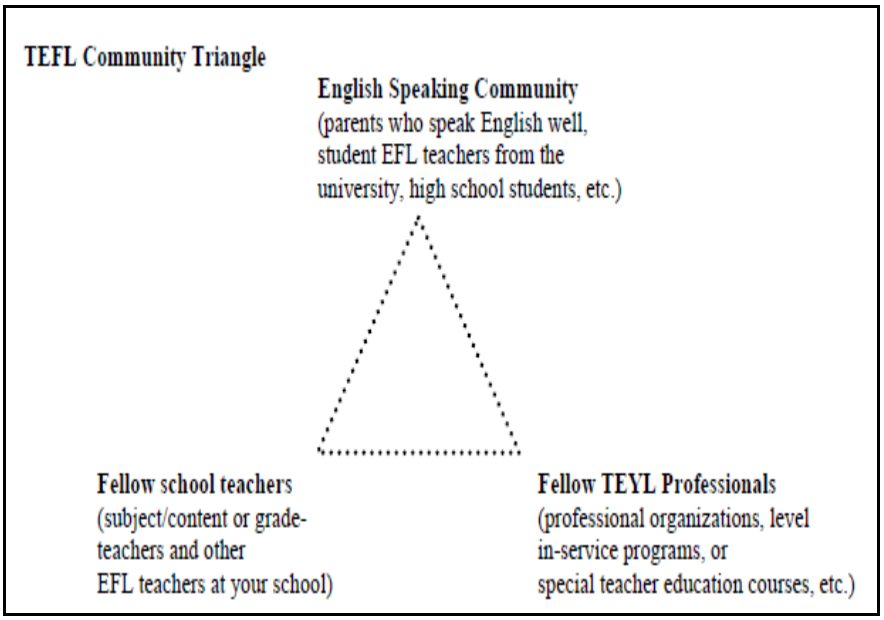
4.1. Useful approaches for teaching beginning level

Joan Kang Shin (2006), in the English Teaching Forum (Vol. 44, No. 2) published by the U.S. Department of State's Office of English Language Programs. Teaching English to beginning level is a rapidly growing field around the world, and English education is increasingly found at the primary levels. However, starting earlier is not necessarily the solution for producing better English speakers. Therefore, the useful approaches for teaching beginning level are below.

1. Supplement activities with visuals, realia, and movement.	
Young learners tend to have short attention spans and a lot of physical energy. In addition, children are very much linked to their surroundings and are more interested in the physical and the tangible. As Scott and Ytreberg (1990) describe, "Their own understanding comes through hands and eyes and ears. The physical world is dominant at all times."	▪ Use brightly colored visuals, toys, puppets or objects ▪ Community donations for toys and objects ▪ Create a"Visuals and Realia Bank" ▪ Use Total Physical Response (TPR) by James Asher (1977) See: Use TPR Storytelling by Blaine Ray http://www.blaineraytprs.com/

2. Involve students in making visuals and realia.	
Having children involved in creating the visuals that are related to the lesson helps engage students in the learning process by introducing them to the context as well as to relevant vocabulary items. Students are more likely to feel interested and invested in the lesson and will probably take better care of the materials (Moon 2000).	▪ Students draw different characters for a story or make puppets, masks, play-do sculptures ▪ Collaborate with the art teacher to make the visuals you need for you activities ▪ Students contribute their own toys for the lesson ("Show and tell")
3. Move from activity to activity.	
Young learners have short attention spans. For ages 5–7, Keep activities around 5 and 10 minutes long. For ages 8–10, keep activities 10 to 15 minutes long. Scott and Ytreberg (1990) suggest creating a balance between the activities in the column on the right side.	▪ Quiet/noisy exercises ▪ Different skills: listening/talking/reading/writing ▪ Individual/ pairwork/ groupwork/ whole class activities ▪ Teacher-pupil/ pupil-pupil activities
4. Teach in themes. A thematic unit, a series of lessons on the same topic or subject, can create broader contexts in which to teach language, recycle language from lesson to lesson, and allow students to focus more	Common themes for YLs: animals, friends, family, environment, citizenship, shopping, or units revolving around a storybooks, websites, celebrities, or movies students like Themes based on curricula from students' other subjects are also effective (Haas 2000)

on content and communication than on language structure.	
5. Use stories and contexts familiar to students.	
Use of stories and contexts in home country or culture can help YLs connect English with their background knowledge, which is limited because of their young age and inexperience.	▪ Take a favorite story in the L1 and translate it into English ▪ Allow students a chance to personalize content every lesson
6. Establish classroom routines in English.	
YLs function well within a structured environment and enjoy repetition of certain routines and activities. Having basic routines in the classroom can help to manage young learners.	▪ Clap short rhythms for students to repeat. ▪ Start the lesson with song or chant ▪ Add classroom language to the routines as well
7. Use L1 as a resource when necessary.	
Use L1 in the classroom as a resource for forwarding the learning process without becoming too reliant on it. Concentrate on building communicative skills. Save your time for the target language actually within students' reach	▪ Quickly make a difficult expression comprehensible by translating into L1 ▪ Use L1 for complicated directions for activities
8. Bring in helpers from the community **9. Collaborate with other teachers in your school.** **10. Communicate with other TEYL professionals.**	



4.2. Summary

There several important things to be summarized in this chapter:

- Teaching children is very challenging. The challenge is how to make children enjoyable, supported, full of practice, meaningful, purposeful, and social interaction.
- The useful approaches for teaching language to children:
  - Supplement activities with visuals, realia, and movement.
  - Involve students in making visuals and realia.
  - Move from activity to activity
  - Teach in themes.
  - Use stories and contexts familiar to students.
  - Establish classroom routines in English.
  - Use L1 as a resource when necessary
  - Bring in helpers from the community
  - Collaborate with other teachers in your school.
  - Communicate with other TEYL professionals.

4.3. Further Discussion

- What are the challenges of teaching young learners and very young learners?
- Are there differences of teaching YL and VYL in town and in remote areas? If yes, Explain!
- How important approaches to teaching English for YL?
- Have you ever experienced teaching with one of the approaches above? If no, will you use them?

5. TEACHING LISTENING TO BEGINNERS

5.1. Listening for beginners

It is interesting to note that listening is the skill that children acquire first, particularly if they have not yet learnt to read. Scott and Ytreberg (2004) suggested several essential elements for teachers to take into account when teaching listening to children. First, since students learn foreign language by listening as the main source of the language, teachers should incorporate much of visual materials, facial expression, movements, mime and pictures. Second, it is worth remembering too that if a teacher mentions a word or a thing in a foreign language only once, then it may disappear easily. Therefore, it is important to say things clearly and to repeat them. For example when you are telling a story, you don't have to tell it from the beginning to end without breaks. You can always re-tell it again and again as you go along. "the story starts on a nice, sunny Sunday morning. Faiqa and Naila are….where are they? In the forest. Right. They are in the forest. And what are they doing? They are picking mangoes. So, it's a nice, sunny Sunday morning, and Faiqa and Nailah are in the forest picking mangoes. Third, children normally have very short attention span when they are learning foreign language. So, it is vital not overload children and not focus on one item for longer periods when you are working on listening tasks

5.2. Several strategies of teaching listening

The new language is introduced with support from the teachers' gestures. Pinter (2012:50) suggested two different ways which help children grasp the meaning; first, children join in with the actions, and second, teachers point to the pictures. Most children would probably want to join the action and together point the pictures that have been said by teachers. In addition, the other strategy for teaching listening can grow out of Total Physical Responses (TPR). For example, there are so called 'listen and respond' activities such as 'listen and clap your hands', or 'Simon says'. In these activities children have to listen and understand messages, decide whether they are right or wrong, and act accordingly. Other activities such as 'Listen and draw the picture' or 'Listen and colour in clown's clothes' include drawing or colouring. Yet other exercises include simple ticking or circling or require some writing, such as true and false. Many of these are focused 'listen and do' exercises with an end product such as a picture, a colourful clown, or an animal mask to take home to show parents. Because of the focused nature of these tasks, it is easy for the teacher to monitor what children have understood from the listening text. These activities not only give excellent listening practice but also offer opportunities for incorporating into English class multiple intelligences through sticking, colouring, and making simple objects.

5.3. Aspect of difficulty in listening

There are two difficulties encountered by very young learners and learners when they learn foreign language. The first difficulty is the type and length of the text the children listen to. The text and the length are too long and the contents sometimes are not familiar to

students. The second difficulty is the familiarity of the person whom they are listening to (Pinter, 2012). It is easier to listen to the teacher than to recordings because teachers can adjust the speed of their speech and modify their language. Teacher can also repeat messages and use gestures and facial expressions to help children to work out meaning. What also makes a difference is the response the children need to make before, while, or after they listen.

5.4. Activities for listening

There are a number of suggested listening activities for very young learners and young learners.

Listen and do activities

a. Moving activity
   Children would love moving activities when they are learning foreign language. The examples of moving exercises are "close the door, open the door, count up to ten then walk to the board, etc". It is important to modeling the activity first, then repeat for several times, and finally ask the students to do it. If the children do not understand at first, they can still watch others do then they can do similar things as others do. The language elements for these exercises include simple vocabulary relating to movement, counting, and spelling words.
b. Raising your hand up
   There are a lot of different kinds of exercises that can be used for teaching children to put their hands up, for example by counting numbers, mentioning colours, and mentioning things' names. Children can put their hands up when they reach number 'five' as they exercise to count the numbers.

c. Miming

It is an interesting activity for every child because they can perform some simple vocabulary. In mime story, teachers and students do the actions, for example: a teacher is performing, "listen to music" for several times. Then the children should guess what the teacher is doing, by saying, what am I doing? Or if children do the activities, you can ask, what is he or he doing now?.

d. Drawing

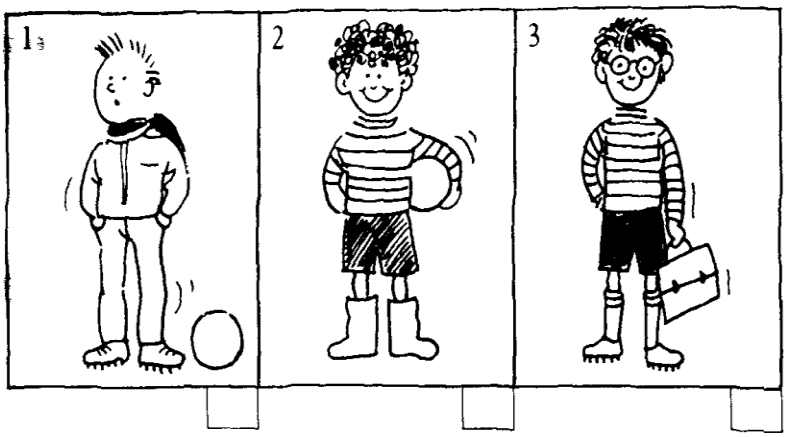
The most important thing to take into account for this activity is keeping this one simple because children like to draw some simple things. Some of the objects are surrounding schools, home and community. The procedures are teachers mention the words to students several times and the students draw it on board or in the books depending on the condition of the class.

Listen for specific information

a. Recognizing picture

Teachers will show explain the picture and then students will guess which picture is it. This activity as suggested by Scott and Ytreberg:

> Has anyone seen this boy? He has dark hair and big ears. He is wearing rubber boots and carrying a football. He has strip shirt and short. Which one is that?



Adapted from Scott and Ytreberg's book.

b. Recognizing mistake

Teacher can use pictures and tell students about the picture, but some part of the story are not correct. So the students should correct the words mentioned by teachers based on the picture they have seen. Teachers will do this for several times.

c. Arranging things in order

Teacher can use the card below as the example to ask students put things in order from card "A" to card 'TEN". Teachers may list a number of objects in the class and ask students to arrange them based on the functions or its shape.

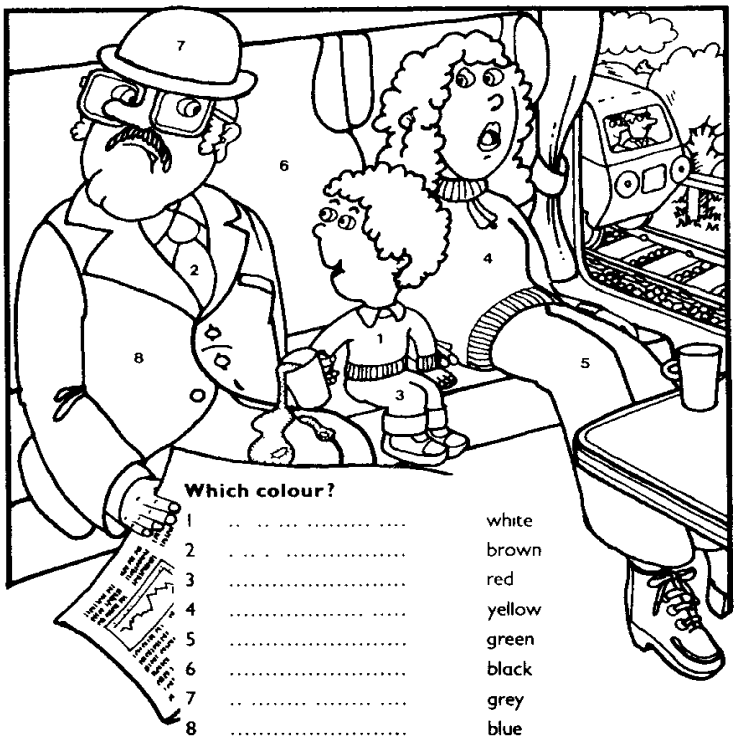
d. Filling tables

Teachers may use table or questionnaire to perform this activity. Teachers will read the story that is related to tables, while students are listening to teachers and filling the column with the words they hear from the teacher, as the example below:

Names of students	How many books do they have	How many bags do they have?
Nailah		
Faiqa		
Yuyun		
Irfan		

e. Colouring

Students will colour the picture based on the teacher's instruction. The instruction can also be written in the picture as sample below. Firstly, teacher will mention the colour what people are wearing. Second, students will colour the picture based on teachers' commands.



Adapted from Scott and Ytreberg's book

Listen and repeat activities

a. Rhymes

A rhyme means a word which has the same last sound as another word. Every child will love this activity because it is fun and enjoyable. For example : *Bat and 'cat' rhyme, 'Side' and 'hide' rhyme, 'Hit' and 'sit' rhyme, I love coffee-I love tea.* Then students will repeat what they have heard from their teachers.

b. Listening and creating songs

   Songs are part of listen and repeat activities because students listen to the songs and then they repeat after that. The interesting part of the activity is that teacher may not depend on the available song, but they may create their own song based on the local surrounding or atmosphere. The example of songs below:

c. Listening to stories

   The younger the students are, the shorter time they can focus on the lesson. Therefore, the story should not quite long and easy to remember for both teachers and students. Initially, teachers will write down setting of the story on board and then tell a story.

5.5. Summary

a. Listening for beginners: listening is the first language skill to be acquired by children
b. Several strategies for teaching listening: involving children and TPR
c. Aspect of difficulty in listening: familiarity and length and type of text
d. Activities for listening: listen and do, listen for specific information, and listen and repeat activities.

6. TEACHING SPEAKING FOR BEGINNING LEVEL

6.1. Speaking for beginners

Speaking skill is one of the challenging skills for every student when she or he learns a foreign language. However, the most essential thing is that every activity created for children should be fun, enjoyable, communicative, and motivated them to keen learning a foreign language. Fun means children feel happy with the activity created by teachers. Enjoyable means they are enthusiastic to participate at any speaking activity. Communicative means that every activity or game should involve students to get it through or to perform the activity. Motivated means students are eager to know what the next activity they want to do with others or with their teachers. It is also important to note that children like simple, involvement and repetitive activities in speaking.

Harmer (2003) describe into three terms: rehearsal, feedback, and engagement. Rehearsal refers to provide opportunity which allows children to repeat the language they have known outside classroom context or provide classroom activity where they can the language as it feels like real context. Feedback deals with every activity which is performed by students should have feedback at the end of it either from teachers or other students in order to show them the correct language. Engagement is that any speaking activity should engage them emotionally so that they can enjoy lesson well.

6.2. Several strategies for teaching speaking

There two important strategies in teaching speaking for very young learners and young learners. The first is through controlled speaking activity (guided speaking activity), and the second is free speaking activity. Controlled speaking activity is the exercise which is designed for students to get involved in speaking by providing all the necessary language required to complete the task. Free speaking activity is designed for students to get involved in a natural learning atmosphere without providing any necessary language required to complete the task. Both controlled and free speaking activities should include the criteria as suggested by Brown (2001) that is keep them short, keep them simple, keep them interactive, and keep them active.

6.3. Aspect of difficulty in speaking

Scott and Ytreberg (2004) said that it is very difficult to ask young learners of English to speak if they don't have language input in advance. It is unavoidable for children to insert their native language when they are learning English especially if they can't find the word in English. The other difficulty is that finding the balance between providing language through controlled activities and at the same time letting them enjoy natural talk. Most of our students have little chance to practice speaking English outside the classroom and therefore it is highly needed to practice speaking a lot when they are in class.

6.4. Activities for speaking

There are several suggested activities for speaking of very young learners and young learners of English

The Yes game

Students get one point for each question they ask that you truthfully answer "Yes" to, e.g. "Are you British?" "Are you a teacher?" and "Are you sitting down?" They can then ask each other questions in the same way. You can also move onto getting points for each "No" answer, e.g. "Are you a dog?" You can also make this more intensive language practice by telling them they must get a particular short answer from you, e.g. "Yes, I am" or "Yes, I have"

Question chains

This game is good for making a challenge out of tedious questions like "How old are you?" and "Where are you from?" Ask the student sitting at the end of the row a simple question such as "What is your name?" and pass them something to represent the question, e.g. a magnetic number 1 or a board pen. Gesture that they should ask the same question to you and pass the thing back to you. Answer the question, go to the other end of the class and ask the same question to the student sitting there, passing the same object. Then pass them another (different) object while asking another question, e.g. "How are you (today)?" After they have answered that question, demonstrate and explain that they should pass the same two objects in the same order to the person next to them, asking the same question each time. After they have done that, give them a third object and get them to make up their own question to ask the same person. When that person has answered, they should pass the same three objects while asking the same three questions, then add their own fourth

question. Continue, increasing the number of questions each time. The game can finish when you reach a nice round number (e.g. ten objects and numbers), goes all round the class, or reaches such a large number that they give up. You can also play the same game in groups.

An easier to play variation is for each student to repeat just the last person's question then add their own, so that each person is remembering one question and making one question. You can add an element of challenge by telling them that their new question can't be one that has been used before. An even simpler version is to get them to take turns asking questions, with anyone who repeats a question that has already been used losing a point.

Find someone who

This is a well known language learning game where students mingle and ask each other questions to find which person the fact they have on their worksheet is true for. This activity is good for waking students up by getting them out of their chairs and is also good practice for "Nice to meet you" and introductions. In low level classes you can't do this with true information about the students as they will have told each other everything they can in the language they have available (e.g. names, jobs and ages) many times already. That being the case, you will need to give each person a roleplay cards with some personal information about their "new" self, plus one worksheet with the information they should be searching for. The Find Someone Who worksheets can be the same for each student or different for each person. They then stand up and go round the class asking questions until they find out that this person is Nailah, this person is 7 years old, this person is a seven year old film star etc, then sit down when they think they have found all the information. As you can see from these examples, it is possible to add a little humour by your choice of roleplay sentences. You can add more speaking to the game by

students passing on all the information they have found out so far to the person they speaking to.

Very simple roleplays

This is another way of livening up revising the same old personal questions yet again. Ask students to give imaginary answers to all the questions that they have asked, giving them one or two prompts such as a name or job to get them started. While this on its own is fun, you may find that the person asking the question will have no real reason to listen to the answers. One way of taking away this problem is to ask the person who asked to questions to report back to the class, and then for everyone to find similarities between people's stories, e.g. how many answered "I am Spanish" when they were given the roleplay card saying "Your name is Esteban"

I don't know

Students have to ask each other questions that they get the real response "I don't know" for, e.g. "What is this called in English" while pointing at a shoe lace or "When is his birthday?" with a classmate or a photo of a famous person. As all the questions are about things they aren't expected to know, this often helps students get over their embarrassment at not knowing the answers most of the time in class.

Guess who

Prepare at least ten information cards about real or imaginary people on a worksheet, including data such as names, ages, nationalities, likes and jobs. Students ask Y/ N questions until they can guess which person on the worksheet you have chosen. The cards should be designed so that the people have lots of things in common, e.g. mainly from one country or only two jobs amongst the ten people.

If you are sure they will know all the information, you can play the same game with just a list of famous people's names.

Puzzles

Draw up a worksheet similar to that described above, but with only between four and eight people on it. Make a blank version of that table for the students and a list of six to twelve hints by which they can fill in all the missing information, e.g. "Three people are British", "The person who isn't British isn't a dentist", "Two people are dentists and two people are doctors" etc.

Test each other on the text

Another thing that you can't do with very low level students is have very interesting comprehension questions for reading texts. You can partly make up for this by having students test each other's memory on what was written in the text, e.g. names, times they do things, jobs etc. If they haven't studied third person s yet, you can do the same thing but with the person answering the questions taking on the role of the person in the text.

Test each other on each other

You can do something similar to the activity above by students testing each other on what they know about their classmates. Again, if they don't know third person s yet they can take on the role of their classmate when they ask the questions and so answer them with "I…" and "My…"

Disappearing text

Another fun memory game with short reading texts and dialogues is to delete the text one word at a time, with the student

whose turn it is reciting the whole thing from the words left on the board and memory and then choosing the next word to be deleted.

Shadow reading

Another way of making dialogues more memorable and interesting is to have students read it out while the tape is playing, trying to match the rhythm and speed of the recording. When they've got the hang of this, turn down the volume half way through and see if they are still more or less in time when you turn it back up right at the end. Try this a few times and stop when they have made a big improvement or got close

Sentence hangman

This is like the opposite of Disappearing Text above. Write the first letter of a dialogue that they haven't seen before (but that is made from language that they have studied before) or haven't seen for a while up on the board. All the students or just one team get one chance to guess the next letter. The teacher then writes that second letter up so that they can check if their guess was right, and this continues until the whole text is up on the board. You can make the challenge easier by always giving the first letter of the next new word after you finish the last one, so that they only have to guess from the second letter each time. If you want to score, you can give one point for each right guess or put a line into a hangman for each wrong guess- but note that for a long dialogue there will be many more mistakes than in a normal game of hangman so you'll need to give them more chances with a hangman that has fingers, eyebrows etc.

Say it happily etc

Low level students can need quite a lot of drilling and reading out of dialogues, which can quickly get boring and anyway they might have a negative impression of due to having done it in their previous, unsuccessful attempts at language learning. One way to liven it up is to ask them to do the same dialogue with different feeling in their voices such as "bored" and "excited". Their classmates can then guess which feeling they were trying to do and/ or compete to make the most extreme version

Dialogue substitution chains

After students have read out a short dialogue together, ask them to read it out again but changing one piece of information (without writing it down) such as a name. The next person reads it out with the last person's change and making one more change themselves, e.g. a time. This continues until students can't remember the previous changes or can't think of any new ones

Change the performance memory game

This is similar to the idea above, but with the students listening with their books closed and trying to spot the information that has been changed from their memory of the dialogue. You can also ask students to make the dialogue wrong by taking out words, putting extra words in, changing words around, changing lines of the dialogue around, etc.

Match the questions and answers pairwork dictations

Matching questions and answers ("How are you?" "I'm fine, thank you") is a tedious but perhaps necessary exercise at this level, but one you can add some more interest and speaking to. Give one student a worksheet with all the questions, and the other student a worksheet with all the responses mixed up. Without showing their

sheets to each other, they have to match up the questions and answers by reading them out and agreeing which ones go together. You can add a puzzle element and therefore some fun to this by the letters that represent the responses making a word (e.g. (t)(a)(b)(l)(e)) when they are written in the same order as the questions.

Gapfill pairwork dictations

This is another boring task that can be livened up by giving the gapped sentences to one student and the missing words mixed up to the other student and getting them to match them up as described above.

The clap clap clap game

Students sit in a circle and all clap three times. The person whose turn it is should say a word that hasn't been said before in the category you are practising, e.g. months, jobs, countries or colours, on the fourth beat. This continues until someone says something that has been said before or pauses too long.

Tennis

If you have taught students pairs of words like "she- her", "England- English" or "act- actor", you can get them practising them by one person "serving" one of the root words and the other trying to "return serve" by saying the matching word.

Spies

To play this game you will need someone who has never been in the class such as another teacher, another member of the staff in the school, a student from another class, a student who is joining the class next week, or someone communicating by computer or telephone on

conference. Tell some of the students in the class that they should swap identity and some that they should keep their own identity, then let them practice answering questions as themselves or as their classmate. The unknown person then enters the class (or starts the form of distance communication you are using), asks questions and tries to work out (from body language, pauses etc) who is answering as themselves and who is answering as someone else. You can do the same thing by getting students to record each other answering the questions and getting someone to do the guessing after the class, reporting back to the students on how well they did in fooling that person.

What's My Line?

This is the same as the game above, but with everyone in the class answering each question in the same person's role (saying "I am Juan Miguel" all around the class in answer to "What's your name?" etc), and then the person who asked the question has to work out which one person was telling the truth.

The above games are adapted from: Edition.tefl.net/speaking game-14 February 2012.

Change word substitution

Teacher : I have a book. a pen
Student : I have a pen
Teacher : Bag
Student : I have a bag
Teacher : want
Student : I want a bag

We should be creative to create the subtitution words for attract students' attention and curiousity. The simple statement for the

first could give for students and then grade in to complete one.

Points the sentence

Example:
I hate eat ice cream
Like to Play foot ball
Love Go to the cinema

Point one of statement and the student try to say it in a good sentence. For the note, increase the speed points in each parts. Modification is needed.

Give the number for students

I hate to Ice cream. Play foot ball, 3
Students had number 3 must be respond it. I hate to play foot ball
Then continue with other word, and change it for every students , might be better.
Writes a dialogue and Rubs out some of the words

For the first, give the students many sentences and ask them read completely. At the mid of sentences the teacher can rubs out some of word such as a, the, in, of, it, or etc. Next , the students try to guess it by memorize it, till they familiar about the sentence completely.

Try example below:

My mother cook Nasi Goreng (fried rice) every Sunday morning, but some times we can taste other menus like fried noodle and so on.

The teacher can rubs out the words of cook, but or like and then students complete it.

(http://syafnihanifah.wordpress.com/2011/04/28/creative-design-for-teaching-speaking-beginner-level/, 13 february 2012).

6.5. Summary

a. Speaking for beginners: simple, fun, motivated and enjoyable
b. Several strategies for teaching speaking: controlled and free speaking activities
c. Aspect of difficulty in speaking: balancing free and controlled speaking activities and lack of vocabulary input.
d. Activities for speaking: different ranges of games such as yes game, gap filling, puzzles, etc.

7. TEACHING READING

7.1. Reading for beginners

Oral work has become the first resource for children to acquire foreign language. Then the second main source of children learning English is through written materials. As soon as they get matured and old enough, they start to familiarize themselves with the printed materials such as reading and writing. Reading should become enjoyable exercise for children through short meaningful reading passages and related to children's world.

Harmer (2001) believed that reading at early stages of children is useful exposure to English writing such as the way to construct sentences, and is useful for language acquisition such as vocabulary, grammar, and punctuation. Reading is also good exercise to build the culture of reading among children in order to become their hobbies or their interests.

7.2. Several Strategies for teaching listening

Many young children between five to ten years of age are in the process of learning to read in their mother tongue (Scott & Ytreberg, 2004). There is a question for this age whether or not children have mastered their native language alphabet will strongly influence them in initial stages of teaching reading in English. Scott and Ytreberg research found that the children of German and Japan at the age of nine will already be familiar with most of the technique of reading-with word divisions, sentence links, paragraphs, how letters relate to sounds, how the illustrations help children understand what

is going on. I do believe as well many of Indonesian children whose age of nine will have been familiarized with some of reading clues like conjunctions, prepositions, and picture illustrations.

There several approach for teaching reading of English to children. First is scanning which aims to provide skills to children to search detail information in text such as date, month, year or specific events. The application of scanning to children is through reading words and phrases, such as today is February 14 2012 (today is, February 14, 2012). Second is skimming which deals with getting general information or idea of what the text is about. The application of skimming to children is through reading whole sentence not looking separated words and phrases, such as my full name are Faiqa Khaira Lubna.

7.3. Aspect of difficulty in reading

It is quite challenging for children whose mother tongue's alphabet is not roman script. So it takes more steps for them go through when they are learning to read in English (Scott and Ytreberg, 2004). The other difficulty is that students of young ages who haven't mastered how to read in their native language will find themselves hard to read the short English passages. In addition, if reading passage is not equipped with picture illustration, it may not attract young learners to read the text. Finally, reading will only become passive activity for children if it doesn't involve moving activities such as they have to write down on board the word children find in the passage.

7.4. Activities for reading

There are several suggested activities for reading:

Reading from a story book

Teacher will read a story from a book which may come from folklore or traditional story and may take from up to date story of what is going on around us today. Scott and Ytreberg (2004: 54) provide sample story for children:

That's a bird. It's green.
That's a butterfly. It's red
That's a fish. It's blue
That's a crab. It's yellow
That's a cat. It's white
I'm an elephant. I am grey
That's an elephant. It's super
I am an elephant and I am super

The above story can be done repeatedly to students until they can perform and read it correctly. The story reading can be done in group of three or in pairs.

Creating and reading story

This is an interesting exercise for teacher and children when they are in class or outside classroom. The procedures are:

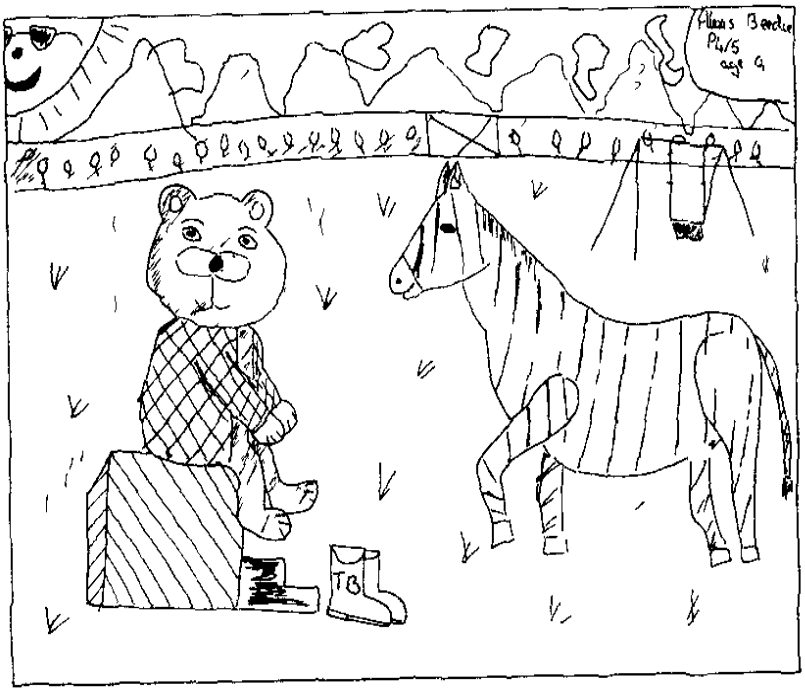
a. Teacher provides sample of how to create story
b. Teacher models the story for several times
c. Teacher provides vocabulary relating to the story that he or she wants to create.
d. Teacher asks one student to be sample to create sentence from the words provided on board

e. Both teacher and student read the story and this exercise is done repeatedly.
   The example of creating story is below:

Teacher: That's…
Student: a book
Teacher: It's…
Student: Pink
Teacher: Yes, That's a book. It's pink

Reading from picture

Teacher can always find an interesting picture which is taken from local or surrounding environment. It is a nice activity if it is an authentic material. The picture can also be taken from the student's drawing class. We can use it as the main source of reading from the picture. The example of student's drawing is below:



Adapted from Scott and Ytreberg (2004: 55)

From the picture, a teacher may ask several questions for example, what can you see in the picture? If students lack of vocabulary, a teacher may prompt it such as it's a….a horse, etc.

Reading a loud

It is an exciting exercise if a teacher can build daily reading habits for whole class by reading a loud a story together. This can be a motivating activity for students and can be a good start of building a reader's holic (a person who loves reading) as early as possible. The text of reading a loud can be taken from folklore or modern story of what is happening around us today.

Matching topics and picture

The pictures for the activity can be also taken from around the school or local publication. The example is below:

What is in the picture? a. Modern port b. Poatere port of Makassar c. Hasanudin airport d. Daya bus terminal	 berizikbanget.blogspot.com
What building is it? a. A tall building from Jakarta b. A phinisi tower of UNM c. A graham pena Makassar d. A bosowa tower	 fsdunm.wordpress.com

What house is it? a. Traditional house from Papua b. Traditional house from Minang c. Tongkonan, a traditional house from Toraja d. Traditional house from Bima	 kinko.wordpress.com

The above pictures are the example of local authentic materials that can be found around us. Teacher doesn't have to use some pictures which may unfamiliar for them. These pictures attach emotionally to children because they are around them. This activity can be done in group with the procedures as follow:

a. Teacher puts students in several groups
b. Each group will compete each other to choose the best topic of the picture.
c. Teacher will show the picture on board or through LCD projector and students have to guess what it is
d. A group who achieve more points will be the leading group.

Reading a song

There are many children songs for education. Teachers may also use local songs if they can translate them into English. The procedures of this activity:

a. Teacher provide songs and the copy it to every child
b. Teacher models how to read the song
c. Then students follow the teachers
d. After reading it, a teacher and students will sing together
   The example of song for children as follow:

Thank you

By **Jaycie Voorhees**

When someone does something nice I tell them Thank You
When someone does something nice I tell them Thank You
Thank you thank you thank you thank you
When someone does something nice I tell them thank you

When Mommy gives me food to eat, I tell her thank you…
When someone shares a toy with me, I tell them thank you…
When teacher helps me tie my shoe, I tell her thank you…

(taken from **http://www.songsforteaching.com/store/music-in-my-mouth-pr-8511.html**. This song is available on CD

Silent reading activities

Teacher may ask students to perform silent reading activities in some stages of teaching reading. This silent reading activity will help to establish students' confidence. Teachers may use local authentic materials or international topics which teachers may find around them. This activity aims to the exposure of the reading habits and aims to build the culture of good reader.

Reading from cards

Teacher may provide a collection of cards containing story which can folklore or modern story. The card is stored in the class and then it can be taken whenever children want to read or a classroom group reading activity. The card contains a series of story or a summary of local story as the example below:

La Upe Story

Buginese Folklore

La Upe was a motherless buginese boy who lived in traditional kampong. He's tortured by his step mothers when whe was young. He fell in love with princess, however at first he was refused by king. After the princess got stuck in the door, La Upe released her with his magic. Finally, La Upe got married with princess and lived happily.

A summary of story from: ceritarakyatnusantara.com

7.5. Summary

a. Reading for beginners: reading is the second source of learning foreign language
b. Several strategies for teaching reading: scanning and skimming
c. Aspect of difficulty in reading: children is unable to read English
d. Activities for reading: reading story, creating story, reading from picture, reading from songs.

8. TEACHING WRITING

8.1. Writing for beginners

Writing activity may only be successful if children can already write in their native language or in the process of developing writing ability (Scott & Ytreberg, 2004). Writing is a skill which required the language inputs including vocabulary, grammar, and punctuations have been introduced or embedded in children. Some children may find this activity become enjoyable especially when they have mastered their native language and have been exposure with English. According to Harmer (2001), before setting the writing task for elementary level students, teachers should make it sure that students have enough language competency to complete the task. Therefore, it is important for teachers to introduce the kinds of language elements to be used for writing task.

8.2. Several strategies for teaching writing

There are two essential strategies for teachers to be used in children writing. First is controlled writing which refers to the writing activity based on the picture, map, physical environment around classroom or school that has been provided by teachers. While the second is free writing activity where students are trying to create a sentence or several sentences based on children's imagination, experiences, and ideas. The topics are also based on children's interests.

The stages of writing for beginning follow Barbara Allman et al (2000) suggestions: prewriting, drafting, revising, and publishing.

Prewriting—activities to generate ideas for writing. Motivate students to write by means of discussions, questions, games, illustrations, brainstorming activities, etc. At this stage of the writing process, ask your students to take these steps:

- Think about the topic or theme of writing.
- Form ideas, gather information, brainstorm, read, and observe.
- Think about words or phrases you want to say.

Drafting—The first writing. As they begin to write, tell your students to keep in mind to focus on writing theme or topic. Offer your students support and encouragement, answer questions, and confer with them. During the drafting stage of the writing process, instruct your students to take these steps:

- Organize your thoughts by using mind-mapping.
- Choose ideas and develop them.
- Sequence your ideas.
- Write your first draft.
- Get feedback from others.

Revising—Reevaluation and editing for students writing. Teach your students to consider the suggestions of their peers, rearrange ideas, and make changes to make their writing more clear.

Publishing—Sharing writing with other students. Publishing the writing may take any number of forms, such as displaying it around the class, reading it aloud, binding it into a portfolio, or talking about it with others.

8.3. Aspect of difficulty in writing

Writing is quite challenging skill for young children to master. It is different from the oral skill. The complexity of writing skill deals with the aspects where any children have to have enough language input in advance including the mechanical writing elements such as neatness, punctuations etc, let alone not to mention the idea to get the writing is starting. Another thing is that writing is not easy thing to do since many children take longer time to master this skill.

8.4 Activities for writing

Straight copying writing activities

Teachers may provide a collection of beautiful writing to use for teaching writing in classroom. It can be from local story or modern story or any related interesting issues that may attract students' attention and motivation to write. It is a little bit easier for students that familiar with writing, but it's quite challenging for students who are yet to learn to write. Teachers need to help those children by prompting them words or sentences they would like to write. Straight copying can only be done at early stages of writing especially for those who have just learned how to write.

Read- erase-reproduce

This activity helps students to activate their cognitive aspect because this activity involves memory to learn by heart the sentence, erase, and reproduce the sentence again. The procedures of this game:

a. Teacher write a short and simple sentence on board
b. Teacher allows students to memorize the sentence for few seconds

c. Teacher erase the sentence on board
d. Teacher allows children to re-write the sentence they have memorized in advance.

Writing from picture

Every child likes visual things such as pictures, imaginations, and illustration. This can be very enjoyable and fun for young learner of English. The procedures are:

a. Teacher provides picture or image
b. Teacher puts students in several groups
c. Teacher delivers picture to each group
d. Teacher set the time for each group to construct the sentences
e. Teachers allows students to work and discuss in group
f. If students can't make a sentence, teacher should prompt students by pointing what are the things in picture.
g. Below are the samples of picture that can be used for writing.

The prompt for students:

It is .....
Sultan Hasanuddin Airport Makassar
It is the Sultan Hasanuddin Aiport Makassar

rotyyu.wordpress.com

The other type of prompt for students:

What is it?
What can you see?
Where is it?

darimakassar.com

Write anything you see from the picture!

semuahanyamasalalu.blogspot.com

Dictation- writing activities

This activity can very guided and controlled by teachers because teachers will dictate any sentences and the students will write

down what they have heard from the dictation. Scott and Ytreberg (2004) provide criteria of dictation for children as follow:

a. Be short
b. Be made of sentences that can be said
c. Have purposes and be connected to work before or comes after
d. Be read or said at normal speed.

The procedures are:

a. Teacher provides sentences which based on the above criteria
b. Teacher allows students to prepare things to write
c. Teacher dictates the sentences and students write it down
d. Teacher will say that in a normal speed.

For example:

Faiqa has a new bag.
She is very happy with it.
She will bring it to class tomorrow.

The dictation can also be used filling the table as follows:

a. Dewi has a nice car, but she doesn't have motorbike
b. Amirah has three necklaces, but she doesn't have ring
c. Lubna has large houses, but she doesn't have bicycle

The students will write down what they have heard from the teacher's dictation on the grid of the table below.

Name	have	Have not
Dewi		

Amirah		
Lubna		

Writing letter or invitation letter

This exercise is the other guided writing activity that helps students to write a letter to their friend in classroom or their friend outside classroom. The example of writing is below:

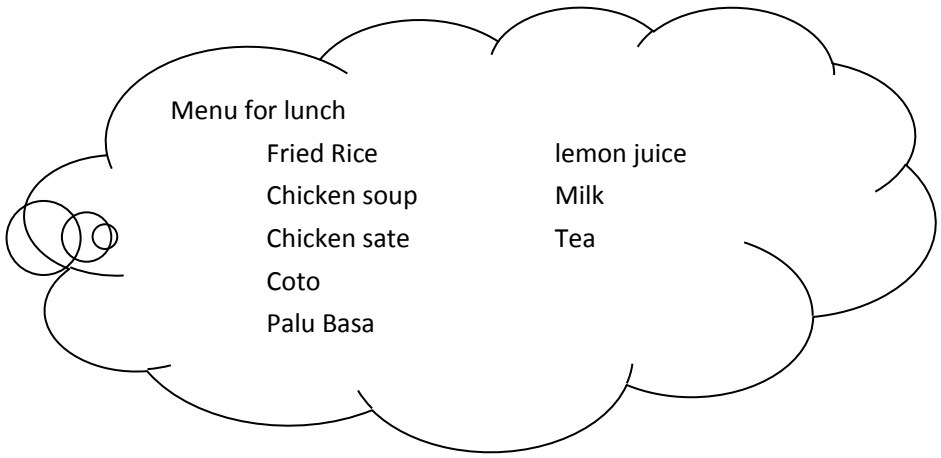
Dear…
Please come to my birthday at…… on ……..
love
Nailah

Reply letter

Dear…
Thank you I will come at…… on ……..
love
Faiqa

Writing simple menus

The students will love this writing activity because they are grouped in several pairs and then they may act as chef. The menu can comes from what they have eaten everyday or the best food they like to eat most.

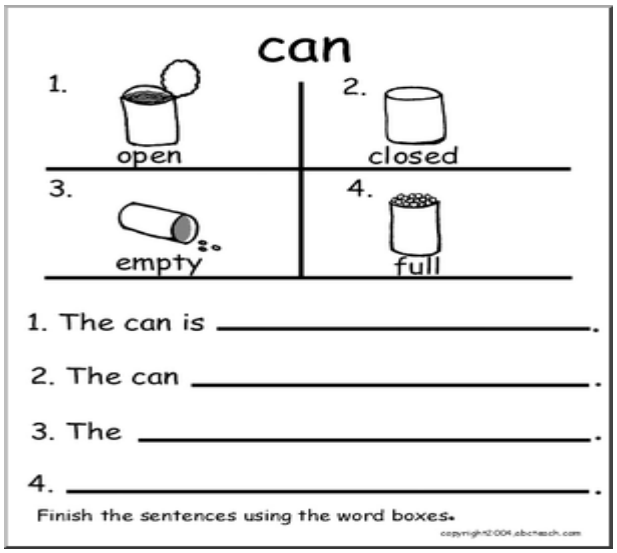


Writing short messages

Many of children nowadays are familiar with the use of mobile phone. It is important to use the mobile as an asset for teaching writing in English. The language for this is quite simple, short and meaningful. It is also a good practice for students to use English as way of communicating with other friends. The activity may use real mobile for students who own it or they may write it down in a piece of paper which then write it on board. So every child can see and provide input to the result of writing.

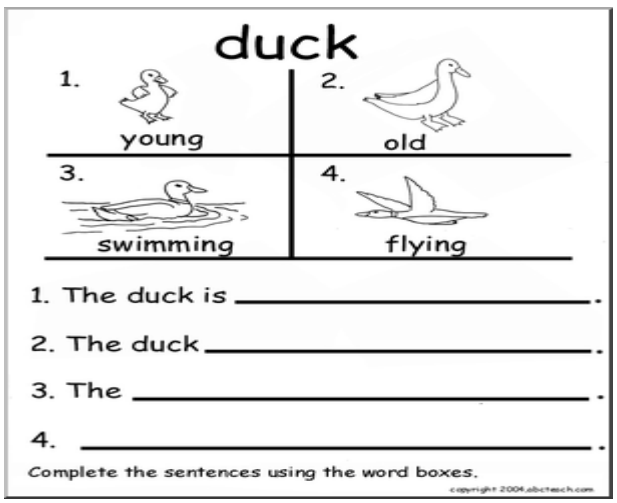
Writing with certain name of things

This activity aims to introduce students with some certain grammatical aspects of English. The word 'can' is displayed in the picture as shown below:



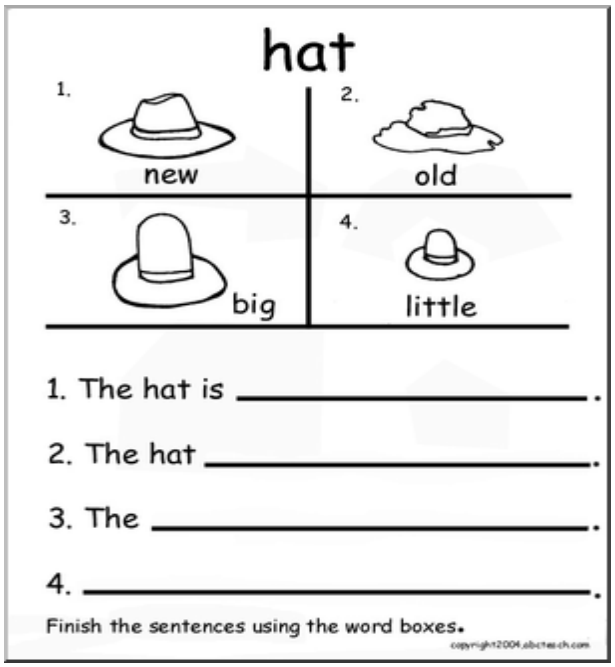
http://www.abcteach.com/directory/basics/writing/

The other example of writing with certain name of things as follow:



http://www.abcteach.com/directory/basics/writing/

Another one is using the name of 'hat' as follows:



http://www.abcteach.com/directory/basics/writing/

8.5. Summary

a. Writing for beginners: children have to have enough language input before starting to write
b. Several strategies for teaching writing: pre-writing, drafting, revising, and publishing
c. Aspect of difficulty in writing: it requires understanding of writing mechanics
d. Activities for writing: straight copying, read-erase-reproduce, writing from picture, dictation, letter, and writing menus.

9. ASSESSMENT OF BEGININIG LEVEL OF ENGLISH

9.1. Defining assessment, evaluation, and testing

It is clearer and more convenient in English to keep the terms ‘assessment, evaluation and testing distinct, although in other languages their equivalents are sometimes used interchangeably. It is sometimes difficult to differentiate the term of and ‘evaluation, ‘assessment’ and testing:

Evaluation is the process of gathering information in order to determine the extent to which a language programme meets its goal. Relevant information can be teachers’ and parents’ opinions, textbook quality, exam results, and children’s attitudes. Some of the tools of evaluation process are tests, questionnaires, textbook analysis and observations

Assessment is any systematic way of finding out about **people’s** levels of knowledge or skills, understanding, attitudes, and motivation. Assessment can be carried out through a number of instruments (for example: tests, portfolio) and can be formal or informal. In our case the people are Young Language Learners.

Testing is one of the procedures that can be used to assess a child’s performance. A test has a certain objective, for

example, to see to what extent a child has achieved this objective. Testing uses tasks or exercises and assigns marks or grades based on quantifiable result (Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003:4; Rixon, 2005)

Therefore, the differences of assessment, evaluation, and testing are below:

Dimension of Difference	**Assessment**	**Evaluation**	**Testing**
Content: timing, primary purpose	*Formative:* ongoing, to improve learning	*Summative:* final, to gauge quality	*Instruments for assessment and evaluation*
Orientation: focus of measurement	*Process-oriented:* how learning is going	*Product-oriented:* what's been learned	*Instruments for assessment and evaluation*
Findings: uses thereof	*Diagnostic:* identify areas for improvement	*Judgmental:* arrive at an overall grade/score	*Instruments for assessment and evaluation*

9.2. Purposes of assessment

Some children may motivate to learn English because they want to know the improvement of their English ability. However, some children may feel threaten and scared of hearing the word assessment. In English language teaching, assessment is necessary for several purposes as identified by Georgiou & Pavlou (2003):

- To have a record for children progress
- To provide children's with what language elements and skills they have achieved and what language elements and skills they need to improve.
- To see how effective and successful teaching methods and materials used for teaching
- To provide information for parents, colleagues and school authorities.

9.3. Assessment processes

The assessment of language learning of children requires three stages of process: pre-assessment, during assessment, and post assessment processes.

Pre-assessment

- Teachers prepare all the required documents for assessment
- Teachers notify students in advance the type and scheme marking assessment
- Teachers inform student the date, the length and the name of students to be assessed.

During assessment

- Teachers should conduct assessment on the date that have been informed
- Teachers should explain clearly the task for the assessment: how to do it well
- Teachers should explain clearly the criteria for the assessment
- Teachers should explain how long the tasks need to be completed
- Teachers should explain clearly the rules and regulations during assessment.

- Teachers should tell students the purposes of assessment

Post-assessment

- Teachers should provide feedback of the assessment results to students
- Teachers should communicate the result of assessment with parents if necessary
- Teachers should make a good record of the assessment result.

9.4. Focus of assessment

There are two important things to be assessed in children learning: language skill and attitudes (Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003). The skills that teachers are assessing are listening, speaking, reading, and writing.

Listening consists of sub-skills which have been taught (see previous chapter 5). The sub-skills are listening specific information, listening for general information, and listening from songs. Speaking also consists of a number of elements such as fluency, vocabulary, and pronunciation. Assessing speaking ability of children will normally focus on communicative ability of a child on asking questions, answering questions and describing simple objects or picture. Reading includes various sub-skills such as reading for specific information (scanning), reading for general information (skimming) and whole understanding of a short story. Finally, writing is considered as the hardest skill for children who involve many elements such as spelling, grammar, punctuations, ideas, and vocabulary.

The assessment of students' attitudes includes the students feelings and motivation (positive and negatives) toward learning

English. This can be done through observation, short questionnaire and a short individual conversation with children.

9.5. Forms of assessment

There are several suggested the forms of foreign language assessment when you are teaching very young learners and young learners: portfolio assessment, learners' projects, self assessment, peer assessment, tests, take-home tasks, and observation (Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003: 12).

Language portfolio assessment

A language portfolio is a collection of samples of work produced by the child over a period of time (Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003: 12). The collection of works involves written work, drawings, projects, a record of book read, recordings, test results, self-assessment records, teacher and parent comments. Portfolio provides a record of what activities or tasks that students have been able to do during a certain period of time.

There are several steps in the portfolio assessment process: first, the teacher and the student need to clearly identify the portfolio contents, which are samples of student work, reflections, teacher observations, and conference records. Second, the teacher should develop evaluation procedures for keeping track of the portfolio contents and for grading the portfolio. Third, the teacher needs a plan for holding portfolio conferences, which are formal and informal meetings in which students review their work and discuss their progress. Because they encourage reflective teaching and learning, these conference are an essential part of the portfolio assessment process (Venn, 2000, p. 540).

The portfolio assessment has advantages and disadvantages. The advantages are:

- Promoting student self-evaluation, reflection, and critical thinking.
- Measuring performance based on genuine samples of student work.
- Providing flexibility in measuring how students accomplish their learning goals.
- Enabling teachers and students to share the responsibility for setting learning goals and for evaluating progress toward meeting those goals.
- Giving students the opportunity to have extensive input into the learning process.
- Facilitating cooperative learning activities, including peer evaluation and tutoring, cooperative learning groups, and peer conferencing.
- Providing a process for structuring learning in stages.
- Providing opportunities for students and teachers to discuss learning goals and the progress toward those goals in structured and unstructured conferences.
- Enabling measurement of multiple dimensions of student progress by including different types of data and materials. (Venn, 2000, p. 538)

While the disadvantages of portfolio assessment are:

- Requiring extra time to plan an assessment system and conduct the assessment.
- Gathering all of the necessary data and work samples can make portfolios bulky and difficult to manage.
- Developing a systematic and deliberate management system is difficult, but this step is necessary in order to make portfolios more than a random collection of student work.

- Scoring portfolios involves the extensive use of subjective evaluation procedures such as rating scales and professional judgment, and this limits reliability.
- Scheduling individual portfolio conferences is difficulty and the length of each conference may interfere with other instructional activities. (Venn, 2000, p. 538)

Learners' project

Language project assessment is usually in group work. The activity includes drawing projects, observing projects, organizing things in order, and environmental projects. The advantage of project is that you are able to assess mixed ability of group, while the disadvantage is that it is difficult to assess at the same time both group work and the contribution of every child to the group's work.

Self assessment

Self assessment is a type of assessment that is conducted by students themselves. The sheet form of self assessment is provided by teachers which can include questionnaires, journal, or a portfolio. Below is the example of self questionnaire assessment (Adapted from Georgiou & Pavlou, (2003: 179).*Assessment Young Learners:*

.Name: Class: Date:

No	Items	Yes	No
	Attitude to learning English		
1	I like learning English		
2	I like working with friends		
3	I like listening to teacher		
4	I like to do all my homework		
	Listening		
1	I recognized colours		

2	I can recognize numbers		
3	I can understand short dialogue		
4	I recognize simple things		
	Speaking		
1	I can introduce myself		
2	I can ask someone's name		
3	I can count numbers		
4	I can count from 1-10		
	Reading		
1	I can read short sentences		
2	I can recognize things used at school		
3	I can recognize number		
4	I can read short conversation		
	Writing		
1	I can copy words		
2	I can write her/his name		
3	I can write numbers		
4	I can write colours		

Peer assessment

This teacher introduces an activity in which children will assess each other's progress in learning recently taught language and grammatical concepts. They will use a clear and simple assessment sheet. Working in pairs children will decide whether their partner can or cannot do the things on the sheet. They will also indicate ways in which their partner can improve. The sample of peer assessment through rubric below:

Name _____Date_____

Instruction: Color the smiley if you completed each direction.

	Items
	ou can count the number from 1 -10
	ou can recognize things around the class
	ou can recognize and mention colours
	ou can introduce your name
	ou can introduce other's name

Testing

This is traditional type of assessment which can include multiple choice questions, true-false statements, and cloze-tests. The advantage of this type assessment is that it is objective, it is easy to mark, and it is easy to prepare. However, the disadvantage of this type of test is that it is intimidating and stressful for children (Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003: 11). This type of test should be in complementary with other types of assessment.

Take home assignment

Take-home task is the out-of-class activities that the teachers assign to students. These activities are an extension to schoolwork.

Homework can include practice assignments that emphasize newly acquired skills. It can be in the form of preparation assignments to make students ready for class activities. Projects that have to be worked on in parallel with schoolwork also form a part of homework. This project work may continue throughout the term or the entire academic year. In these activities students apply their academic skills to create a piece of work through research.

The advantages of homework can build up an initiative for autonomous learning, discipline students, set deadline, decide how much time they need to get through and ensure the completion of the task (Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003: 12). While the drawback is that the take home task should accompanied with parents involvement and guidance, and students should pay attention on what has been assigned by teachers at school, otherwise they may lose the point of what they want to do at home.

Observation

Teachers' observations of children help them to assess the progress which children are making. Observations help teachers to decide where children are in their learning and development and to plan what to do. This is an essential part of daily practice in any setting, regardless of the age of the baby or child. Looking, listening and noting is important because it helps you to:

- Get to know a child better and develop positive relationships with children and their parents

- Plan appropriate play and learning experiences based on the children's interests and needs, and identify any concerns about a child's development
- Further develop your understanding of a child's development

- Develop a systematic and routine approach to using observations
- Use assessment to plan the next steps in a child's developmental progress and regularly review the approach (Hodgman, 2006).

To record observations, teachers can make short notes soon after the lesson, keep them on file, use checklists as the example below. The observation can very subjective and should be in combination with other assessment method ((Georgiou & Pavlou, 2003: 12).

The checklist of observation on children learning

Name: Class: Date:

No	Items	Yes	No	To some extent
	Attitudes			
1	Shows interest in learning English			
2	Pays attention in class			
3	Does homework			
4	Shows willingness to help classmates			
5	Show respects to others			
	Listening			
1	Understand teacher's instruction			
2	Understand idea in spoken text			
	Speaking			

1	Speaks at with acceptable pronunciaton			
2	Initiates talks with teachers and others			
	Reading			
1	Reads at acceptable pace			
2	Understands main idea of text			
	Writing			
1	Writes at acceptable pace			
2	Writes clearly			

Modified from Georgiou. S. L & Pavlou, P. (2003: 180). Assessing Young Learners. Oxford University Press

9.6. Marking schemes of assessment

Marking schemes are a way of indicating the level to which a learner has achieved the aims of the assessment task. The followings are the marking schemes for reading, writing, speaking, and listening.

Sample of assessing recognition of animal names (reading)

9-10	Very good	You can read the names of all animals we learnt
6-8	Good	You can read most of the names of animals well
3-5	Fair	You can read some of the animals well
0-2	Try harder	You try harder to learn to read the names of animal

Adapted from Georgiou. S. L & Pavlou, P. (2003: 180). Assessing Young Learners. Oxford University Press

Sample of assessing copying skills (writing)

9-10	Very good	You can copy all words very well
6-8	Good	You can copy most of the words well
3-5	Fair	You can copy some of the words well
0-2	Try harder	You try harder to learn to copy the words

Adapted from Georgiou. S. L & Pavlou, P. (2003: 180). Assessing Young Learners. Oxford University Press

Sample of assessing understanding spoken language (listening)

9-10	Very good	You can understand all words very well
6-8	Good	You can understand most of the words well
3-5	Fair	You can understand some of the words well
0-2	Try harder	You try harder to understand the words

Sample of assessing numbers 1-10 (speaking)

9-10	Very good	You can mention all numbers very well
6-8	Good	You can mention most of the numbers well
3-5	Fair	You can mention some of the numbers well
0-2	Try harder	You try harder to mention the numbers

9.7. Summary

a. Defining assessment, evaluation, and testing: assessment is for formative purposes, evaluation is for summative purposes, and testing is instruments for both of them.
b. Purposes of assessment: to record all students' progress and achievements.
c. Assessment process: three stages of it-pre assessment, during assessment, and post assessment.
d. Focus of assessment: all four skills-listening, reading, speaking, and writing.
e. Forms of assessment: portfolio, projects, self assessment, peer assessment, testing, take-home tasks, and observation.
f. Marking scheme of assessment: the marking scheme are very good, good, fair, and try harder.

10. CURRICULUM, SYLLABUS AND LESSON PLANNING

10.1. Defining Curriculum & Syllabus

Very broadly, curriculum is everything the child experiences in the context of schooling that is intended to foster learning. But 'everything' is a very tall order and clearly there is a wealth of knowledge in the world that would be impossible to transmit to every child everywhere. The curriculum here refers to English subject curriculum which is the intended curriculum to ensure children acquired to think and to know things that influences experiences in everyday world.

Schools also have a 'hidden curriculum' which centres around those aspects that children and teachers cultivate within their more informal relationships but which contribute to the general ethos of the school and through which incidental learning often occurs; for example children learning games from each other in the playground (Bishop and Curtis, 2001).

Curriculum is the complete set of taught material in a school system. It is prescriptive (as opposed to the 'descriptive' syllabus, which is the outline of topics covered. If the curriculum prescribes the objectives of the system, the syllabus describes the means to achieve them.

Over the years, 'curriculum' has meant different things to different educationists. Some simply equate curriculum to the

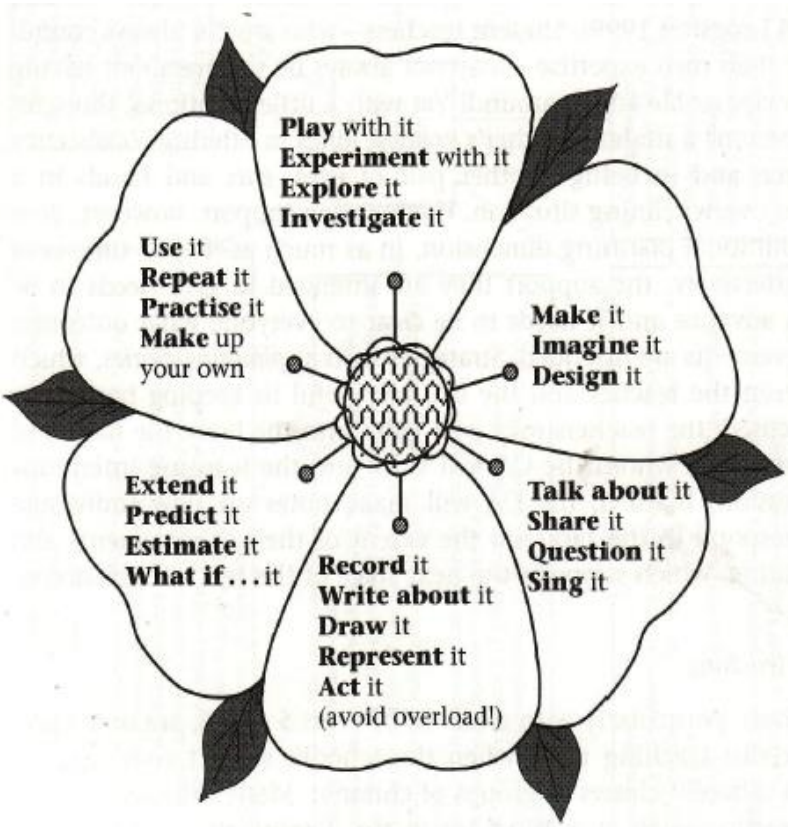
syllabus that is to be transmitted in the class. “A syllabus gives a more focused outline for particular subjects. It can’t be equated, because a curriculum is for a course but a syllabus is for a subject,” says Dr. Yasmin Jayathritha. The curriculum is the superset and syllabus is the subset of curriculum.

A syllabus will not generally indicate the relative importance of its topics or the order in which they are to be studied. In some cases as Curzon (1985) points out, those who compile a syllabus tend to follow the traditional textbook approach of an 'order of contents', or a pattern prescribed by a 'logical' approach to the subject, or - consciously or unconsciously - a the shape of a university course in which they may have participated. Thus, an approach to curriculum theory and practice which focuses on syllabus is only really concerned with content. Curriculum is a body of knowledge-content and/or subjects. Education in this sense, is the process by which these are transmitted or 'delivered' to students by the most effective methods that can be devised (Blenkin et al 1992: 23).

Therefore, The syllabus is the content, the list of topics/concepts to be taught, whereas the curriculum is a consideration of the objectives, the content, methods chosen to achieve those objectives. It could/should contain a consideration of the kind of assessment one will use to check progress.

10.2. Curriculum flower power

The curriculum below reflects the notion of ‘doing and playing’ for children in learning the language.



10.3. Syllabus for beginning level

Mohsenifar (2010) proposed several types of syllabus for ELT in primary schools: situational syllabus, task based syllabus, skill-based syllabus, structural based syllabus, content-based syllabus, and learner-based syllabus.

a. Situational syllabus

With this type of syllabus, the essential component of organization is a non-linguistic category, i.e. the situation. The underlying premise is that language is related to the situational

contexts in which it occurs. The designer of a situational syllabus tries to predict those situations in which the learner will find him/herself, and applies these situations, for instance; seeing the dentist, going to the cinema and meeting a new student, as a basis for selecting and presenting language content. The content of language teaching is a collection of real or imaginary situations in which language occurs or is used. A situation usually includes several participants who are involved in some activity in a particular setting. The language used in the situation comprises a number of functions combined into a plausible part of available discourse. The main principle of a situational language teaching syllabus is to teach the language that occurs in the situations.

In this syllabus, situational needs are important rather than grammatical units. The major organizing feature is a list of situations which reflects the way language and behavior are used everyday outside the classroom. Thus, by connecting structural theory to situations the learner is able to induce the meaning from a relevant context. One advantage of the situational approach is that motivation will be heightened since it is "learner- rather than subject-centered" (Wilkins.1976: 16).

b. Skill-based syllabus

Skills are abilities that people must be able to do to be competent enough in a language, rather independently of the situation or context in which the language use can occur. In this syllabus, the content of the language teaching involves a collection of particular skills that may play a role in using language. Although situational syllabuses combine functions together into specific settings of language use, skill-based syllabi merge linguistic competencies (pronunciation, vocabulary, grammar, and discourse) together into generalized types of behavior, such as listening to spoken language for the main idea, writing well-formed paragraphs, delivering

effective lectures, and so forth. The chief rationale behind skill-based instruction is to learn the specific language skill. Another less important objective might be to develop more general competence in the language, learning only incidentally any information that may be available while utilizing the language skills.

c. Structural or formal syllabus

This is recognized as the traditional syllabus which is often organized along grammatical lines giving primacy to language form. The focus is on the outcomes or the product. It is, in fact, a grammatical syllabus in which the selection and grading of the content is on the basis of the complexity and simplicity of grammatical items. In other words, it specifies structural patterns as the basic units of learning and organizes these according to such criteria as structural complexity, difficulty, regularity, utility and frequency. The learner is expected to master each structural step and add it to his/her grammar collection. It makes ample use of highly controlled, tightly structured and sequenced pattern practice drills.

d. Task-based syllabus

A task-based syllabus supports using tasks and activities to encourage learners to utilize the language communicatively so as to achieve a purpose. It indicates that speaking a language is a skill best perfected through interaction and practice. The most important point is that tasks must be relevant to the real world language needs of the learner. It should be a meaningful task so as to enhance learning. The content of the teaching is a series of multifaceted and focused tasks that the students want or need to perform with the aid of the language they are learning. Tasks combine language and other skills in specific contexts of language use.

Since language learning is considered subordinate to task performance and language teaching also occurs just as the need arises during the performance of a particular task, the tasks are best defined as activities with a purpose other than language learning so as to develop second language ability.

e. Learner-based syllabuses

Breen and Candlin (1984) were the first ones proposed the belief of basing an approach on how learners learn. The emphasis is upon the learner, who it is hoped will be engaged in the implementation of the syllabus design as far as that is practically possible. The learners' awareness of the course they are studying helps them increase their interest and motivation, attached with the positive effect of developing the skills required to learn.

A predetermined and prearranged syllabus provides support and guidance for the instructor and should not be so simply dismissed. The opponents of this view indicate that a learner-led syllabus seems far-reaching, radical and utopian in that it will be complicated to follow as the direction of the syllabus will be mostly the responsibility of the students. Moreover, without the support of a course book, a lack of aims may come about.

f. Content-based syllabus

This syllabus is intended to design a type of instruction in which the crucial goal is to teach specific information and content using the language that the learners are also learning. Although the subject matter is of primary and vital importance, language learning occurs concurrently with the content learning. The learners are at the same time language students and learners of whatever content and information is being taught. As compared with the task-based approach of language teaching that is connected with communicative

and cognitive processes, content-based language teaching deals with information. This syllabus can be exemplified by assuming a chemistry class in which chemistry is taught in the language the learners need or want to learn, possibly with linguistic adjustment to make the chemistry more understandable.

10.4. Syllabus content for beginning level

Below is the example of syllabus for beginning level (early young learners) which is modified from Pearson English (2009).

Language Content

a. Areas of Language Use

- Introduce and greet other people
- Identify people by name
- Ask someone their name
- Respond to simple instructions
- Identify key classroom, household and other objects
- Ask/answer about colour and position of objects
- Ask/tell someone their/your age
- Ask/talk about families
- Request things
- Express simple likes
- Suggest simple activities
- Describe people's appearance in terms of age, height and features
- Express numbers from 1 to 20

b. Main Structures

- Has / Have got
  I've got a dog. Has he got a dog? He hasn't got a cat.

- There is / are
  How many dogs are there?
- The imperative and negative imperative
  Get up. Sit down. Be quiet. Don't touch.
- The verb 'to be' in the present tense
  He's John. Are you Mary? I'm not tired.
- The Present Continuous (affirmative only)
  Mr Brown is watching television.
- 'Can' for ability and requests
  Mrs Brown can swim.
- 'Let's' for simple suggestions
  Let's go to the cinema.
- Basic question words
  What? Where? What colour? Who? How many? How much? Which?
- Demonstratives - pronouns and adjectives
  This is… That's… Is this/that…? This book is good.
- Possessive 's'
  Ben's book.
- Personal and possessive pronouns and adjectives
  I, mine, my etc
- Plural of nouns
  books, cats, classes, houses, children, men, women
- Prepositions of place
  The book is on/under/by the chair.
- Simple conjunctions
  and, but

c. Topics

- Families
- Pets and Animals
- School
- The Body and People's Appearance

- Toys
- Houses

d. Vocabulary

- Simple colours
  Red, blue, green, yellow
- Nouns for family members
  Mother, father, mum, dad, brother, sister, aunt, uncle, grandmother
- Numbers from 1 to 20
- The house
  Kitchen, bathroom, bedroom, garden
- Parts of the body
  Arm, leg, head, back
- Children's clothes
  T-shirt, shorts, sweatshirt, baseball cap, trainers
- Basic adjectives for feelings
  Happy, sad, tired, hungry
- Common pets and zoo animals
  Dog, cat, tortoise, rabbit, snake, monkey, lion, tiger
- Common toys/playthings
  Bicycle, computer games, doll
- Verbs often used for classroom instruction
  Sit down, stand up, open your books, write, fill in
- Classroom objects
  Book, pencil, pen, ruler, school bag

10.5. Lesson Planning

Lesson planning is an art of mixing techniques, activities & materials in such a way that ideal balance is created for the class (Harmer, 2001). Therefore lesson planning should provide learning

activities, realistic, suit the learners level and interest, well-planned design, have certain objectives and provide flexibility for teachers.

Lesson Planning

Procedure:

Warm-up: T⇨ Ss

- T greets the students and takes attendance
- T asks if Ss could do the assignment

Presentation T ⇨ Ss

1) contextualization and vocabulary presentation

- T takes a fruit Ss know well (e.g. a watermelon)
- T elicits name 'watermelon' and writes as heading on board
- T asks the following series of questions building up information on the board under the heading (see Board Plan)

a) What colour is it? Elicit - Green
Cut melon open
b) What colour is it inside? Elicit - Red
c) How big is it? Elicit - (very) big
d) What shape is it? Elicit - Round
and teach 'egg-shape' if necessary
e) Is it sweet or sour? (mime 'sour')
Elicit - Sweet
f) Is it juicy or not? (show 'juicy')
Elicit - (very) Juicy

- Write sub-heading 'seeds' on board. Show seeds and ask:

g) How many seeds are there? Elicit - A lot
h) How big are they? Elicit - Small
I) What colour are they? Elicit - Black

2) Presentation of structure form and meaning T ⇨ ss

- T writes on board, under information from step 1, 'What is a watermelon like?'
- T builds up by guided elicitation the following description

'A watermelon is green outside and red inside
It is big and round (very big and egg-shaped).

3). Practice T ⇨ Ss

T asks: What is (an orange) like?
Students describe one or two fruits orally
(Better students describe new fruits, weaker students copy)

10.6. Summary

a. Defining curriculum and syllabus: curriculum is much more general than syllabus
b. Curriculum flower power: a list of strategies and content in general
c. Types of syllabus: situational syllabus, skilled-based syllabus, structural syllabus, task-based syllabus, learner-based syllabus, and content based syllabus.
d. Syllabus content: language content and use
e. Lesson planning: sample of present, practice, produce lesson planning.

11. MENTORING AND INDUCTION PROGRAMS FOR BEGINNING TEACHERS

11.1. Context of mentoring

A number of researchers have noted that there is no formal mentoring and teacher induction for beginning teachers in Indonesian high schools (Stephens and Moskowitz, 1997;Research Triangle International, 2004). Sadly, I also experienced this similar circumstance when I started teaching in 2000 at one of the public high schools in South Sulawesi province, Indonesia. My reflection of being a new teacher in the profession is that:

> I'll not forget my first experience as a beginning teacher in the profession because it was a landmark day in my life. I was very happy of being a teacher. Soon after, I faced problems, such as managing students' behavior and deciding what teaching method should I used. I did not know what to do; there was no mentoring or induction at all. I was pretty sad.

In addition, most beginning teachers across Indonesia work, as Hargreaves (1994) characterized as isolated educators from their colleagues. This condition is potentially damaging for aspect of teaching psychologically and workplace condition (ibid.). Williams (2001) argued that working isolated and individually can bring about the difficulty for teachers' development especially the new induction teachers.

The teaching practicum of university students in Indonesian high school context is, to date, still far from the hope. Practicum students are brought to schools just to transform their knowledge and skills gained from the universities (Groundwater-Smith, Ewing, & Cornu, 2003), rather than to understand the roles and duties of teachers and the complexity of school culture (Ewing & Smith, 2002). The practicum experience of student teacher is also probably done for the purpose of the fulfillment of university curriculum requirement. The situation is similar to Australian context, where student teachers "have less commitment to schools, limited time to reflections, and poor the assessment, insufficient time and status" (Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training, 2002, p. 105). These indicate that there is a demand to introduce, as Ewing (2001, p.30) describes, as "a sustained, systematic approach to addressing the needs of beginning teachers". The systematic program (Bolton, 2004; Hatton & Laws, 1993), such as mentoring and induction program, provides the practical advice for those who are new at the schools.

This paper, therefore, aims to examine the literatures related to the potential constraints and suggested strategies of developing mentoring and induction program for beginning teachers in Indonesian secondary education. The discussion is begun with the overview of mentoring and teacher induction concept.

11.2. Mentoring and induction program

What is mentoring and induction?

Bolton (2004, p. 2) makes a clear distinction between mentoring and induction: "*mentoring program* aims to match a beginning or inexperienced teacher with an experienced colleague,

usually from a different subject area, who offer advice, assistance, support on issues which primarily classroom focused, whereas, *the induction days* are practical, hands-on workshops to acquaint the new teacher with people, places and things which they need to know in organization".

However, theorists identified that mentoring has been used during the induction period of the new teachers (Hoffman, Edwards, O'Neal, Barnes, & Paulissen, 1986; Thies-Sprinthall, 1986, cited in Carter & Francis, 2000). Mentoring is also an attempt to develop staff capabilities (Brounstein, 2000) in order to recognize the school environments. Mentoring has been well explained (Carter and Francis, 2000, p. 2) as "a process that mitigates teacher isolation, promotes the concept of an educative workplace and leads to the creation or understanding of consensual norms in a school, faculty, or grade team."

The word 'mentoring' and 'induction' are interchangeably used in the discussion, because mentoring is a part of induction program or vice versa, which both emphasize on professional learning and development of teachers during the transition period (NSW Department of Education and Training, 1998).

Therefore, the literatures suggested that mentoring is a dynamic process to develop beginning teachers' skills and knowledge and to understand the school culture and teacher obligations, which is done during the induction period in schools.

Models of mentoring

There are three models of mentoring program (Robinson & Parbery, 2004), as follows: (1) apprentice model, where the mentor is a skilled 'craftsperson'. This kind of mentoring will include several areas of teaching challenges for beginning teachers, such as,

understanding school and its culture, classroom management, preparing lessons and assessment (Ewing, 2001; Groundwater-Smith, Ewing, & Cornu, 2003; Hatton & Laws, 1993; Marsh, 1996). Robinson & Parbery (2004, p. 8) argued that this model is very 'prescribed model of mentoring that has been well arranged by the organization or schools'; (2) the competence-based model, which a bit similar to the apprentice model; however, this model emphasis on the need of mentors to demonstrate the skill and knowledge demanded by the beginning teachers; (3) reflective practitioner tradition, which emphasizes on how new teachers reflect on their actions and how mentors reflect on their coaching roles.

Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training (2002) proposed school-based induction and mentoring model. This model is based on 'the ethic of care' through the partnership between systems, districts, and schools. The seven steps of the school-based induction programmes are:

a. Develop policy
b. Assign responsibility
c. Design delivery model
d. Allocate resources
e. Plan for accountability
f. Implement the model
g. Evaluation. (Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training, 2002; pp. 115-117)

The benefits of mentoring and induction programs

A number of researchers have identified that mentoring benefits for the beginning teachers in the profession (Huling & Resta, 2001; Carter & Francis, 2000; Ewing 2001). In addition, Huling & Resta, (2001) note that mentoring and induction programs assist new

teacher in terms of professional development, reflective practice, psychological benefits, collaboration, and contribution to leadership

Professional competency development

Competency is described as what teacher can actually do at work and what the principals actually expect to you (Hughes & Jowitt, 1996). This competency can be developed through mentoring. Huling & Resta, (2001) argued that mentoring assists the professional competencies both mentors and mentees. Mentoring is also really helpful to develop professional identity (Ewing, 2001), because it enables beginning teachers to exchange their perceptions, feelings, and to solve any challenges they encountered.

Reflective practice

Mentoring can be an instrument for both mentors and mentees to reflect their own belief of teaching, learning process, and careers (Huling & Resta, 2001). In addition, beginning teachers (Ewing, 2001) can 'challenge experienced staff to think about teaching and learning practices they have taken for granted. For example, the assistant principal states: *"Nadia has changed the dynamics of our staff with her freshness enthusiasm. She works so hard – She is there at dawn and is often the last to leave"* (Ewing, 2001, p. 31). This indicates that mentoring not only benefits beginning teachers, but also encourages experienced staff/teachers to reflect their teaching practices that they have been using so far.

Psychological benefits

The advantage of mentoring program is to help beginning teachers develop self esteem (Ewing, 2001;Groundwater-Smith, Ewing, & Cornu, 2003; Wollman-Bonilla, 1997 cited in Huling & Resta, 2001). For experienced teachers (Scott, cited in Huling &

Resta, 2001), mentoring is empowerment instrument and contributes the significance for the world.

Collaboration

A number of researchers have noted that mentoring and induction programs help teachers to understand others, and to work collaboratively (Carter & Francis, 2000; Bolton, 2004; Huling & Resta, 2001; Kalantzis & Harvey, 2002). Jarzabkowski (1999, p. 13) pointed out that 'working collaboratively saves teachers time, inspires better teaching, and improves the quality of teaching practice by creating better ideas for and about teaching'. Brady and Kennedy (2003) have identified that collaborative work can promote opportunities to learn, foster continues school development and create professional confidence. Hargreaves (1994) stated that collaborative work can improve teachers' professionalism and create inclusive school environment.

Contribution to teacher leadership

Huling & Resta (2001) affirmed that through mentoring experiences, mentors can "build their capacity for leadership through structured professional development including training and experience in classroom observation and coaching skills". Freiberg (cited in Huling & Resta, 2001) revealed that at the end of their experience of being mentors, "100 % of the mentors in were offered unsolicited positions as a result of their experience in the mentoring program". On the other hand, beginning teachers will start (Ewing, 2001) to contribute and to improve their initial experiences in teaching and learning.

11.3. Developing mentoring and teachers induction program

Purposes of developing mentoring program

Researchers have recognized several purposes of induction and mentoring programs (Ewing, 2001; Ewing & Smith, 2002;Hatton & Laws, 1993; NSW Department of Education and Training, 1998; Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training, 2002). Therefore, the aims of induction and mentoring programmes for beginning teachers in Indonesian context are to:

- Assist beginning teachers to understand the classroom, school system and community contexts.
- Build beginning teachers ' commitment to the their profession.
- Help beginning teachers to understand their roles and responsibilities as professional educators.
- Establish beginning teachers confidence in their profession.
- Assist the beginning teachers to develop teaching preparation, and classroom management.
- Establish relationship between beginning teachers and senior staff in schools.

Constraints in developing mentoring program

Technical perspective

It is interesting to note that changing teachers' attitudes to accept and to support the development of a new program in schools is a bit challenging (Hargreaves, et al., 2001). This is probably due to most teachers in Indonesia has settled with the traditional ways of teaching. New teachers in the provision are seen and treated as the experience teachers (Stephens and Moskowitz, 1997). This perception

and attitudes, therefore, are very confronting in introducing mentoring and teachers induction program.

In addition, it is unlikely that some senior and experienced teachers to think and to examine critically if there is an introduction of new idea, because they are probably very busy with their teaching duties. The situation might look similar to what Barth (2001, p.7) states: "a new teachers must not speak until they have experienced, for at least two or three years. If a new comer had an idea to say something, others will say, "what does he or she think he is? I have been doing that job for twenty years". Therefore, this is the most difficult challenge in the development of mentoring in Indonesia.

Cultural Perspective

Developing teacher-mentoring programs, inevitably, challenges the educators' emotion, belief, and experience (Hargreaves, et al. 2001). Fullan (1991) describes that changing teachers' belief is changing their practices that could be very emotionally, intellectually, and culturally challenging.

The conservative cultures of most Indonesian high school are, as Fullan (1993) characterized, as the way that teachers are trained, the way that school is organized and the way that educational hierarchy operates. The school cultures in terms of leadership (Bottery, 1992) are hierarchical, class-based, and bureaucratic heritage. Therefore, the new program has to fit in and around existing components in the organization (Barth, 2001). Perhaps this conservatism affects the development of new programs.

Political Perspective

Gaining support from Department of Education, school supervisors, education council and teachers' association to develop

professional mentoring program is politically difficult (Hargreaves, et.al. 2001). The formal introduction of new program in schools has to be approved by the parliament in order to provide budget allocation. Funding is inevitably important (Ewing, 2001) to facilitate program for new teachers.

11.4. Strategies for developing mentoring in Indonesia

Mentoring and induction programs have been widely used in the United State of America (Huling & Resta, 2001; Hunt Jr, et al, 2003; Johnson et al, 2004) and Australia (Ewing, 2001; Ewing & Smith, 2002; Carter & Francis, 2000) to address the problems of beginning teachers. The following strategies for developing mentoring program for Indonesian high school context are: establishment of national plan, promoting the urgency of mentoring, and establishing partnership framework.

Establishment of national plan

National plan of mentoring and induction programs is significantly important to address the problems of beginning teachers in Indonesian secondary schools. The example of national plan of mentoring and induction program of beginning teachers is in Australia (Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training, 2002). Perhaps the cultural and political constraints can be overcome. If the mentoring program has been established nationally, it is unlikely the districts and the schools to reject it, because there will be funding allocation from the central government to implement this program in schools.

Promoting the urgency of mentoring

There are lot strategies to promote the urgency of mentoring and induction programs such as, workshop, case studies and project piloting. Workshops can be done at national, districts and school levels. This is to involve all related stakeholders as done in Australia by Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training (2002). Case studies can be done through learning the cases from the other countries such as, Australia and the United States of America where mentoring and induction programs for beginning teachers have been implemented well. Project piloting in several schools can be an example of how mentoring and induction programs help new teachers.

Establishing partnership framework (policy level, districts, and schools)

In Australia, the Commonwealth government has established national framework of mentoring and in induction programs (Commonwealth Department of Education, Science, and Training, 2002). The national framework can be a model for national policy level. In addition, the example of states and districts roles in implementing mentoring for beginning teachers is implemented by the New South Whale Department of Education and Training (1998). Mentoring and induction program in school can be seen from Quakers Hill High School, NSW (Robinson & Parbery, 2004). Perhaps this framework can be a good model for developing mentoring program for Indonesian high school beginning teachers.

11.5. Summary and recommendations

The literature strongly indicates that developing mentoring is very important to the induction experience of beginning teachers in

secondary education. This literature confirms that mentoring is significantly beneficial for beginning teachers. Mentoring helps not only for new teachers to establish their confidences, self-esteem, and professional experiences, but also for senior teachers to learn and to reflect on their teaching and learning practice, and to build up their leadership skills.

There are challenges faced in developing mentoring and induction programs. Changing people's opinion to accept the change, bureaucratic and hierarchical systems, and gaining political to fund the program are the constraints for introducing mentoring in Indonesia. The alternative strategies are promoting the urgency of mentoring and induction programs, developing national plan, and establishing partnership framework among policy levels, districts, and schools.

There are several recommendations for the Department of National Education of Indonesia, as follows:

a. The Department of National Education should consider establishing a national plan to address the problems of beginning teachers and to keep them in the profession.
b. The Department of National Education should take into account to fund further investigations of the importance of developing mentoring.
c. The Department of National Education should consider funding for a range of pilot projects of mentoring and induction in some secondary schools across Indonesia.
d. The Department of National Education should take into account to run workshops at national level, district levels, and school levels.
e. The Department of National Education should consider building team to study and learn the cases of mentoring and induction from Australia and the United States of America.

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